

HANDBOOK OF Teaching Public Policy

Edited by
Emily St.Denny • Philippe Zittoun



HANDBOOK OF TEACHING PUBLIC POLICY

HANDBOOKS OF RESEARCH ON PUBLIC POLICY

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Handbook of Teaching Public Policy

Edited by

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To our students, and those who taught us.

*

In memory of our friend and colleague, Bruno Dente.

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1. Introduction to the *Handbook of Teaching Public Policy*

Emily St.Denny and Philippe Zittoun

From the emergence of policy studies after the Second World War (Dunn 2019; deLeon 1988; Lasswell 2003), and specifically during the development of the ‘policy sciences’ in the 1970s, there has been an inseparable link between producing knowledge about public policy and producing knowledge about how to teach it. This is evident in the work, for example, of Harold Lasswell, as one of the founding policy scholars. While Lasswell focused particularly on developing the policy sciences in the 1950s (Lasswell 1951), the question of teaching became central to his work in the 1970s and was then connected with the development of new academic programs and the training of policy practitioners (Lasswell 1971). Lasswell came to consider that policy training was associated with the development of what he called ‘policy scientists’, with the key ‘training problem’ concerning how to ‘establish an environment that contributes to the formation of persons who copy no single model, and who integrate the better features of each partial approximation’ (Lasswell 1971, 132). In his mind, training policy professionals in addition to policy researchers was integral to the policy sciences project.

Beyond Lasswell’s work, this inseparable link can also be observed through the important development of policy research, resulting from the increased recruitment of policy scholars to deliver a large number of new educational programs on public policy. Indeed, a significant number of policy programs and public policy ‘schools’ or ‘institutes’ emerged in the United States during the 1970s, in response, among other things, to the launch of the Planning-Programming-Budgeting System (PPBS) by President Lyndon B. Johnson in 1965, which required civil servants with strong grasp of policy analysis and other policy-relevant knowledge and skills (Allison 2006). Allison explains that, between 1967 and 1971, many universities created graduate programs and schools to address this issue of training a policy-skilled workforce. These included: the Institute of Public Policy Studies (University of Michigan), the Kennedy School (Harvard), the Goldman School of Public Policy (University of California, Berkeley), the Lyndon B Johnson School of Public Affairs (University of Texas), the Institute for Policy Sciences and Public Affairs (now the Sanford School of Public Policy at Duke University), among others. At the same time, and supporting the development of all these training programs and teaching institutes, we can observe a proliferation of what represents the first public policy handbooks and textbooks (Bauer and Gergen 1968; Sharkansky 1970; Ranney 1968; Mitchell 1969; Richardson 1969; Jones 1970; Lindblom 1968; Anderson 1975; Dror 1968; Dye 1966, 1972).

However, these programs and schools were immediately and continually confronted with the need to try and reconcile ambiguities inherent to the field since its emergence. In particular, debates emerged about how best to articulate teaching approaches that placed an emphasis on either academic or applied research, on approaching public policy as a specific field of knowledge or through the lens of interdisciplinary perspectives, on sectoral versus theoretical perspectives, and on policy as a subfield of economics or as an element of politics

and government studies (Dror 2006), etc. Questions also persisted concerning the ability of public policy teaching and training to meet the ambitions of agendas like the PPBS, as well as the problem-solving limits of public policy knowledge more generally (Wildavsky 1969). These issues contributed to shaping the content of curricula (Crecine 1971; Allison 2006) to the extent that defining policy training became inseparable from defining public policy as a field of inquiry.

Throughout the 1980s, the discipline experienced further growth through its exportation beyond North America, first to Europe and Australia, quickly followed by South America, Asia, and Africa. However, while in the United States the development of a clear academic program to teach public policy preceded and further drove the development of policy research, the reverse is true elsewhere. In most countries outside of North America, scholars from other social science disciplines began developing research agendas related to public policy in the 1980s whilst teaching remained comparatively underdeveloped, with very few public policy courses offered. The number of specialised graduate programs began to grow in the 1990s and 2000s, usually outside of dedicated ‘schools’ or departments. This diffusion process remained fragmented, with patterns differing between countries in line with the disciplinary backgrounds of those leading the initiatives. Different approaches emerged to mirror the unique normative, cultural, social, intellectual, and political background in each nation or region. This diversity is further echoed in the multitude of university programs established worldwide from the 1990s onwards, resulting in public policy becoming a fixture of many mainstream undergraduate and postgraduate degrees in politics, government, public policy, and public administration.

Since then, and particularly during the 2010s, the link between public policy teaching and research has been further weakened. While the research field has become increasingly internationalised, teaching has tended to remain anchored to national traditions and orientations. Public policy, as a field of research, has benefited from gradual institutionalisation and the development of new opportunities for international exchange and the creation of a more solid foundation upon which to advance research. This is exemplified by the establishment in 2015 of the International Public Policy Association (IPPA). The IPPA is a dedicated international academic association that has published several academic journals and book series, organises biannual conferences on public policy, and fosters academic networks. The common ground created by international networks, facilitated by organisations such as the IPPA, has not detracted from the discipline’s empirical and theoretical diversity, but rather has contributed to stabilising its heterogeneity on epistemological foundations that can be systematically discussed.

While public policy research has tended to internationalise, teaching has tended to remain anchored to national traditions and orientations. Moreover, and in apparent contradiction, the link between producing knowledge about public policy and about how to teach it – which underpinned the initial vision behind the ‘policy sciences’ – has tended to erode. A few reasons have been put forward to explain this. First, academic research, as a set of social practices, does not operate in a vacuum. Norms, expectations, values, and incentives all have an impact on how professionals conduct their work. In the case of public policy, a focus on professional advancement has led scholars to privilege publishing academic books and articles with a primary focus on explaining the policy process, its dynamic, approaches, and controversies (Zittoun and Peters 2016). By contrast, systematic scholarly interest on teaching and learning public policy has been comparatively less developed. In this sense, a great deal of how public policy is taught seems to be content-led. This means that, as a discipline, researchers produce

a great deal of substantive material – textbooks are the prime example – that are intended to aid students in understanding the policy process, but that the practices which surround the teaching of this material, as well as the pedagogical assumptions we weave into it, are rarely explicitly discussed. The privileging of knowledge production rather than teaching illustrates the classical trajectory of a discipline in which a logic of career competition in the field of research incentivises the rapid complexification and densification of knowledge (Latour, Woolgar, and Biezunski 2005; Merton 1973; Bourdieu 1976).

Second, the gradual erosion of the historically strong links between knowledge production and systematic reflection on teaching and training can also be explained by the growing disinterest of academic researcher after the 1970s in ‘policy analysis’. The ‘policy sciences’ endeavour of the 1960s and 1970s initially intended for strong integration between the field of policy analysis – considered to represent a contextually and practically oriented form of policy-relevant problem solving – and the policy process field, in which knowledge about how policy is made, why it changes, etc., is produced. Envisaged as a ‘usable knowledge’ (Lindblom and Cohen 1979) and more as ‘an art and craft’ (Wildavsky 1989) to solving complex public problems, policy analysis became a terrain of disciplinary dispute between, in particular, political scientist and economist (Wildavsky 1969), both of whom vied to inform the perspectives, objectives, and skills associated with the field. Moreover, the strong relevance for political science research of questions pertaining to policy and policymaking pushed many political scientists to focus on policy process research rather than on policy analysis (Jones 1970). This erosion was also increased through the development of a large critique, since the 1990s, of traditional ‘policy analysis’ as ‘ideological’. Based on Habermas’ critiques about technocratic knowledge (Habermas 1973), Fischer argued how this technically oriented rational approach hid its normative foundation in the name of a ‘scientific’ and ‘apolitical’ perspective. These critiques contributed to the launch of one of the main contemporary approaches to policy analysis based on the ‘argumentative turn’ (Fischer and Forester, 1993; Durnová, Fischer, and Zittoun, 2016), which has as one of its core dimensions an inherent attentiveness to policy teaching and learning for transformative socio-political change.

Overall, however, the gradual separation of policy analysis from policy process studies was reinforced by the internationalisation of the latter at the expense of the former. The difficulty of updating combined policy analysis and policy process knowledge to meet rapidly changing contexts, and the challenges associated with exporting this form of knowledge to new settings outside of the United States have all served to weaken an integrated approach to policy training. As Cairney and Weible argue, two paths now exist to serve two different goals (Cairney and Weible 2017; Cairney 2021). To illustrate the two pathways, we can explore the changing professional and disciplinary structures of each field. In terms of professional associations, for instance, we can contrast the Association for Public Policy Analysis and Management (APPAM), founded by primarily US-based public policy schools and committed to advancing knowledge and practice in policy analysis, with the aforementioned IPPA, created by researchers with a focus on political science and which aims to contribute to the development of policy process knowledge. What North American scholars tend to refer to as ‘policy analysis’ – that is practically and contextually oriented research *for* policy – has generally been overlooked outside of that region, despite the term ‘policy analysis’ being widely used outside of the United States to refer to policy studies more broadly (Knoepfel et al. 2011; Larrue, Varone, and Knoepfel 2005; Sager, Ingold, and Balthasar 2017; Dunn 1994; Bardach 2008; Weimer and Vining 2017).

Third, questions concerning teaching and pedagogy, including how to identify and foster best practice, remain almost universally underdeveloped at university level, and public policy is no exception. How to teach is a matter of central importance for educators working up to, and including, high school level. At these levels, it is almost universally the subject of dedicated training and certification. By contrast, higher education teaching-related research and professional development remains patchy and limited. Nevertheless, changes are now afoot in many countries in this regard. University-based educators are increasingly being required to participate in training schemes intended to professionalise teaching and learning in higher education (Milton 1972; Robinson and Hope 2013). Nevertheless, these efforts remain directed at improving general teaching practice, requiring scholars to adapt generic insights and skills to meet the specific content and goals of their disciplinary endeavours. Moreover, while systematic research on how to teach public policy has not received the same attention as substantive research, it is not the case that nothing exists on the topic. Indeed, as a discipline we can and do publish research on teaching in higher education. For example, journals such as *Teaching Public Administration*, the *Journal of Public Affairs Education*, the *Journal of Policy Analysis and Management*, the *Journal of Comparative Policy Analysis*, the *Journal of Political Science Education*, and *Critical Policy Studies* have been known to publish research on teaching aspects of public policy. Nevertheless, this type of scholarship remains very limited and has primarily focused on teaching policy analysis rather than public policy more generally.

On the one hand, the apparent absence of systematic scholarly reflection and debate about teaching public policy could be taken to suggest that this is a low priority area for the discipline. On the other hand, teaching public policy undeniably constitutes a sizeable part of the job for many policy researchers, especially those based in universities. A discourse of deficit, which emphasises how much less of a priority thinking, studying, and writing about teaching seems to be for our discipline, problematically eclipses the fact that many of us spend a great deal of time actively reflecting on, talking about, designing, implementing, and assessing public policy-related teaching. Although it is not absent from our discipline, sustained and systematic scholarly discussion about how to teach public policy draws far less attention than that devoted to research. The factors that have contributed to this relative invisibility are the same as for other disciplines: the lack of discipline or sector-wide teacher development, the devaluing of teaching-related scholarship relative to substantive research, the widespread tendency for scholars to be individually responsible for their own courses, and the absence of dedicated journals or organisational networks.

Like in many other disciplines, educators in public policy tend to base their teaching on ‘know-how’ that has been acquired via personal experience (and trial and error) rather than on insights formulated through methodical research or sustained collegial debate. In the case of public policy specifically, however, certain historical disciplinary trajectories have also contributed to shaping the individualisation of practice. Indeed, to use Wildavsky’s (1989) expression, teaching public policy is often approached as an ‘art’ – a practice in which plural forms of knowledge (which can encompass knowledge about the policy process, practically oriented policy analysis, substantive knowledge of particular policy areas, as well as knowledge from adjacent disciplines like economics, political science, management, law, sociology, etc.) are assembled in a more or less coherent manner to inform manifold practices which contribute to shaping students’ learning experiences. This approach is very different from one based on systematic and rigorous knowledge that is exchanged, confronted, discussed, and stabilised with

colleagues. Many discipline-specific factors have contributed to the dominance of this ‘art and craft’ approach to teaching policy. These include: the high level of fragmentation of the policy field in terms of its substantive, theoretical, and methodological traditions; its relatively late internationalisation process; the significant influence of various national academic traditions concerning public policy; the varying ways in which public policy has been embedded in the broader provision of social science education, either as a discipline in its own right or as a sub-discipline of broader fields like political science; and the specificity of national policy processes and national needs in terms of policy analysts and civil servants.

WRITING A HANDBOOK ABOUT TEACHING: AN IMPOSSIBLE BUT NECESSARY CHALLENGE

In light of this complexity, writing a *Handbook of Teaching Public Policy* represented both a necessity and a particularly difficult challenge. It is a necessity, first, for policy teachers, and for the students that they teach, both of which continue to grow in numbers across the globe. If most public policy scholars exchange regularly about their knowledge and research, it is much rarer for them to have dedicated pedagogical training or opportunities to learn and exchange about their practices. At the same time, what our students want and expect from us is changing, and we (and they) deserve to be better equipped to address these new contexts. The internationalisation of research concerns not only researchers but also students who increasingly benefit from international mobility, be it in terms of relocating for their whole degree or for shorter term exchange programs. At the same time, the materials and formats at the disposal of students and teachers is also changing rapidly. Online courses and digital learning materials, for example in the form of podcasts, blog posts, or recorded video content, are increasingly being made available by both universities and individual researchers themselves. The growing availability of digital learning materials, their varying form and quality, and the opportunities and challenges they may provide in terms of increasing geographic and social accessibility, are all issues that our discipline needs to consider explicitly and systematically as we seek to enhance public policy teaching. Indeed, if it was not before, the importance of an adaptive and responsive teaching practice was made eminently clear during the COVID-19 pandemic, the experience of which now forms an undeniable legacy to contemporary discussions about teaching and learning in higher education.

While producing such a *Handbook* appears to us a necessity, it has also presented a tremendous challenge. In fact, the use of the singular term ‘challenge’ masks the plural difficulties associated with a project such as this one. The first difficulty concerned the struggle contributors (ourselves included) faced when seeking to discuss teaching. All the authors in this volume enthusiastically agreed to collaborate on this project, but many of us were quickly surprised by just how difficult it can be to write about teaching – this despite the fact that we all have rather considerable experience writing about public policy. Pivoting from our comfort zone to instead reflect on our teaching practice – much of which has been gained through experience rather than systematic training in higher education – caught many of us off guard. We were suddenly without a secure grasp of the requisite conceptual and theoretical language we usually employ when writing about our research. In this regard, our experience is likely to be quite common to most scholar-practitioners. Indeed, as early as the 1970s, Milton argued that ‘faculty do not have the time, the familiarity with its specialized language or the inclination to

avail themselves of the literatures [...and the] elementary principles of learning, especially in higher education have been neglected, abandoned' (Milton 1972; Robinson and Hope 2013). Cross, too, considered that

most professors are naïve observers of teaching in addition to being naïve practitioners of the art and science of teaching [...] do not know enough about the intricate processes of teaching and learning to be able to learn from their own constant exposure to the classroom [...] as they are not prepared to observe the more subtle measures of learning. (Cross 1994; Robinson and Hope 2013)

It is surprising that we did not expect this to be the case from the beginning. Indeed, many public policy researchers study practitioners like policymakers, politicians, or street-level bureaucrats, and many also teach these practitioners. In the process of studying and engaging with these actors, we come to know very well how difficult it can be for them to reflect beyond their own practice and critically consider the complex processes into which they fit and to which they contribute. Perhaps, then, working by analogy, we should have foreseen the issue of how challenging it would be to reflect on our own participation in the complex processes that underpin knowledge creation and transmission in and for public policy. Instead, this realisation came more gradually. In the process of discussing amongst ourselves the boundaries and content of each chapter, of presenting drafts to each other at conferences, and of engaging with written peer review, we were progressively confronted with questions concerning how to make sense of our teaching practices, how to situate them within broader disciplinary but also socio-cultural and historical trajectories, and how to balance descriptive insights about how we – as individual practitioners – teach (and why) with prescriptive insights about how we – as a discipline more generally – ought to teach.

The result of this process is an atypical handbook. Traditionally, a handbook would aim at presenting a definitive factual overview of a particular subject. In areas involving practice, a handbook might stretch to include instructions on how to perform certain tasks. This *Handbook* certainly aims to approach comprehensiveness – it covers a great deal of ground, seeking to give as much representation as possible to the breadth and diversity that makes up our discipline – but it cannot aspire to be definitive. We have yet, as a discipline, to agree on the firm contours of our subject area and, in fact, such agreement if it were ever reached would likely remain illusory, as new research agendas and new perspectives continually shift the empirical, theoretical, and methodological terrain we explore. Moreover, it cannot lay claim to decisively setting out the best way – or even all the best ways – to teach public policy. Many chapters highlight areas of good practice, or point readers in the direction of evidence-backed approaches for effectively supporting public policy learning, but none categorically prescribe correct practice. This partly reflects the fact that the suggestions put forward by the authors originate in the triangulation of experience and intuition rather than from systematic scientific inquiry into how to teach. Primarily, though, it reflects the understanding that *how* we teach depends on a lot of factors, many of which are situated and contextual, and not all of which are within teachers' control.

Putting the *Handbook* together was in itself a learning experience. It took longer than we initially thought it would. One of the reasons for this was the struggle we all faced – in different ways – to navigate (and survive) the COVID-19 pandemic. Indeed, the first editorial meeting for the project was held during the first lockdown, with children playing in the background. At that point, we intuited but, with hindsight could not realistically foresee, the scope and scale of the disruption this period would constitute. In particular, and as concerns this *Handbook's*

subject matter, the pandemic profoundly affected the work of scholars and teachers employed in universities. It also revealed even more starkly the inequities that marbled our profession and our sector, including those associated with teaching. Across the board we witnessed our colleagues pivot to online teaching with incredible dedication. Even in crisis we innovated, never losing sight of the reason why we teach, namely our students. If anything, the pandemic brought out teaching practices into even sharper focus. Working on the *Handbook* in these conditions was rife with paradox: even as we thought more about our teaching than we ever had previously, we also had to do so in incredibly trying circumstances – some, typically those with caring responsibilities and/or health vulnerabilities, facing more difficulties than others.

The resulting *Handbook* is, then, more modest than we had perhaps initially envisaged. By this we mean that, as a result of our own learning and professional self-reflection, our vision for what the *Handbook* could and should be changed. We had conceived of it as a compendium of best teaching practices, which colleagues could turn to for quick and easy reference when designing a course. No such ‘one stop shop’ of teaching techniques has been produced, rather the book presents a set of carefully considered testimonies which contribute to enriching our understanding of teaching public policy. The modesty of the testimonies, and therefore of the book, also serves to remind us how the development and internationalisation of our discipline does not need to take the form of unified harmonisation but can rather espouse plurality and enrichment through an acknowledgement and a celebration of the diversity of approaches, methods, cases, puzzles, etc. that constitute it. Nevertheless, in order to achieve a degree of comprehensiveness and cohesiveness across the *Handbook*, we tried to support contributors to achieve balance across a number of objectives.

The first objective was to preserve a firm focus on the main subject of this *Handbook*, namely *teaching* public policy. This means privileging a discussion of issues concerning the transmission of public policy knowledge and, for the authors, implied finding a way to describe the theoretical, conceptual, or methodological subjects at the heart of their chapter but in a way that explicitly relates this back to questions concerning teaching and learning. We encouraged authors to make explicit the meanings they attribute to their chosen topic – indeed, ours is not a unified discipline in which there is unanimous consensus over the meaning and operationalisation of different abstract notions or logics – but in a way that emphasises the fundamentals crucial to student understanding. To identify and suggest techniques for negotiating challenging aspects of teaching public policy, each author draws on personal experience and their own disciplinary perspectives, including those associated with the specific logics that underpin their field of expertise. Authors also needed to think carefully about how we can communicate to students elements of a knowledge which is always variable and in ‘progress’. All scholars know that policy knowledge is structured by epistemological and ontological perspectives and is never definitively complete or finished. Chapters, therefore, also had to consider how content could be taught in a way that explicitly attached it to those who developed the field, to its as-yet unfolding historical and intellectual trajectory, and to its underpinning scientific assumptions and orientations. This does not mean that authors could not choose a specific definition or perspective, but it does mean that they were encouraged to be explicit and explain them. Rather than objectifying the theory or the concepts they wanted to cover, we suggested that they contextualise them by explaining their origins, how they have evolved, and what debates or disagreements have punctuated their development, all with a goal of helping teachers give meaning to the knowledge they teach.

The second objective is inextricably related to the first and concerned making visible the complex relationship between the content, teaching practice, and the specific position of each chapter author. The issue at heart concerned the manner and extent to which approaches or strategies could be presented as widely reproducible and which should instead be considered illustrative and in need of careful adaptation to different cases and contexts. On the one hand, the implied tone of a ‘handbook’ is definitive and prescriptive. On the other hand, what we do – produce and attempt to transmit knowledge – is likely to be deeply informed by our own intellectual orientations, social identities, and professional trajectories. Trying to unpick, from our own experience and practice, those elements which can presumably be presented as settled and uniformly applicable, and those which reveal us as uniquely positioned, can be extremely tricky. While we tend to self-efface in a great deal of our scholarly work, the opposite was crucial here. Being upfront about who we are and what we teach, and reflecting on how our positions and experience inform the insights and analyses we present in this book is crucial to allow those who read us to understand where we are coming from and whether what we are saying is germane to their own beliefs, needs, and interests.

The third goal involved not just thinking in terms of information transmission, premised on the movement of knowledge from teacher to student, but also to focus on a learning-centered student perspective. This focus implies first being aware that public policy is taught to many different types of audience, in many different pedagogical configurations (e.g., as full degrees, as single courses, as part of larger courses in adjacent disciplines, etc.), across increasingly diverse modalities (including in person, hybrid, and online), in accordance with varying expectations and opportunities in terms of the materials used (e.g., access to publications, translations, digital tools, etc.). The balance to strike here concerned being as practically helpful as possible, for instance identifying activities, strategies, and questions to be employed in the pursuit of learning, while also embedding within such suggestions an awareness of flexibility, diversity, and inclusion. Rather than asking authors to try to be all things to all people – an unfair and unrealistic task – we instead encouraged them to be as specific as possible about the design considerations that underpin their suggestions.

Finally, a number of chapters in the *Handbook* are dedicated to shedding light on how public policy is taught in different regions. Authors in this section were tasked with reaching an additional objective, namely balancing comprehensiveness and parsimony in their analyses and descriptions. On the one hand, we wanted chapters in this section to tell us something general about how public policy is taught across an entire continent. On the other hand, as these regions are wide and diverse, we also believed that in-depth case studies would be helpful in providing specific insights into areas of similarity and difference. We therefore encouraged authors to depart from a common framework in which they provide an overview of programs and curricula with particular attention paid not only to where and when a degree program policy is taught but also by how and by whom. This included giving consideration to: the level at which public policy is taught; whether it is taught as a stand-alone discipline or as part of other subjects; relatedly, where public policy teaching is housed institutionally (e.g., as part of a dedicated ‘school’ or university department, or within other departments and faculties); who teaches public policy (e.g., professional trajectory, disciplinary orientation); and finally what kind of content is taught (e.g., source materials used, dominant theoretical approaches, etc.). Case studies of particular countries were then encouraged to give a more detailed view of some of the salient similarities and differences between units within the same region. Ultimately, the balance afforded to these different elements varies between chapters, as authors sought

to foreground new knowledge about aspects we know less about. The result is less ‘cookie cutter’ and more ‘rich tapestry’, which we feel more realistically represents the diverse reality of contemporary public policy teaching across the globe.

THE STRUCTURE OF THE *HANDBOOK*

The *Handbook* is structured in six parts. Unlike the last part, which proposes a general overview of the curricula proposed in the different continents, the five first divisions can be understood as tackling variations of the same question: how can we teach public policy? Rather than proposing a single answer to this complex issue, we have chosen to ask the same question in different ways. How can teaching public policy be understood through the lens of different pedagogical approaches (Part I)? How can we teach different public policy theories (Part II)? How can we teach different methods through which to study public policy (Part III)? How can we teach different analytical public policy tools (Part IV)? How can we adapt public policy teaching to its different publics (Part V)? How is public policy taught across the world (Part VI)? All of these questions are related and complementary, and we divided them in this manner as a strategy to increase the variety of viewpoints and give our ‘art and craft’ discipline, which has traditionally been difficult to delimit and describe, some form.

Part I critically examines the different general orientations to teaching and learning public policy, with clear discussion of the assumptions, objectives, and trade-offs involved in each approach. The concern is less with playing them off each other than it is with highlighting the potential for innovation, integration, and combination. This section is also intended to clearly address the core tensions at the heart of current approaches to teaching public policy. Contrasting, for example, modes of teaching that privilege linear and historical accounts of the discipline, which involve sequential discussion of the issues and controversies that underpinned its development and reveal what Raymond Aron called the chronological ‘sequences of thinking’ (Aron 1976), with a more ahistorical focus on competing theories of the policy process. Peters and Zittoun, for example, make a case for teaching public policy from a perspective that explicitly recognises that what we teach – and therefore also how we teach and have taught in the past – is a historically and socially constituted field. Public policy is not a stable or settled object. Rather, what we consider it to mean and contain, and where we consider it to stop and start as an area of human inquiry and practice, is continually shifting and being renegotiated.

Part I also features three chapters detailing traditional and emerging practical orientations to teaching public policy based on the participant-centered learning experience. Weaver, for instance, presents a staple pedagogical approach: the use of cases. The chapter not only discusses the pedagogical importance of using cases in our teaching practices, but also identifies some important criteria to help teachers to develop their own cases. Meanwhile, in their chapter on interactive pedagogy, Dente and Vecchi propose an innovation to enhance participant-centered learning: interactive pedagogies involving digital games. Arguing that the use of games can contribute to helping students better understand the complexity of the policy process, the authors suggest different examples of ‘serious games’ and discuss how these can be integrated into teaching. This section concludes with a chapter by Lindquist, reflecting on the considerations that underpin teaching modalities that involve an online dimension. This final chapter presents a detailed reflective account of how teaching can be different – for both

students and teachers – when conducted online or offline, and talks us through the different programmatic, pedagogical, technological, and student-oriented considerations that inform course design and delivery when teaching public policy online.

Part II of the *Handbook* focuses on some of the key theories of the policy process and discusses different ways to teach and learn them. Each theoretical approach has its own origin, development, examples, and context of understanding. Developing meaningful comprehension of these different theoretical lenses requires a good grasp of their fundamental similarities, overlaps, and differences. In each case, general considerations of what is being taught is then discussed in relation to the authors' own practices. Choices about what to emphasise, for instance through the selection of certain key texts or through the structuring of course content around certain central themes, are presented and the trade-offs considered. In doing so, the internal workings of the theories, and the logics we typically use to relate them to students, are made evident.

Part II begins with a chapter by Weible and Carter that aims to give a general overview of the place and role of positivist policy process theories in teaching and learning. In the process, the chapter also discusses how to approach teaching important theoretical perspectives, including the Advocacy Coalition Framework, Narrative Policy Framework, and the Institutional Analysis and Development Framework. Zahariadis, Petridou, and van den Dool then consider how the logic and main conceptual elements of the Multiple Streams Framework (MSF) can be made accessible to students, as well as how teachers can support students to better understand its appropriate use and critically engage with the abundant MSF policy scholarship. Next, Skogstad's chapter on teaching Historical Institutionalism (HI) suggests building strong links between pedagogic practice and the classical and more contemporary HI scholarship. This approach allows the theory to be contextualised alongside the questions that have driven those who employ it. Shafran then discusses possible approaches to teaching the Punctuated Equilibrium Framework. Here, the conceptual logics that compose the framework are argued to be the lynchpin for student comprehension.

Supporting students to understand the multi-level dynamics that link individual to collective and organisational behaviour requires unpacking a rich conceptual repertoire, much of which can be achieved through careful articulation of content, discussion, and skills development. In their chapter in Part II, Hassenteufel and Zittoun then present some strategies for teaching non-positivist – specifically pragmatist and constructivist – approaches to public policy. The authors suggest anchoring teaching to the historical development of these perspectives. This, they argue, allows their internal logics to be revealed in a way that clearly contrasts them with the positivist approaches that otherwise dominate much of the discipline. Finally, this section of the *Handbook* ends with a chapter by Dubois and Lotta on teaching street-level bureaucracy (SLB). Teaching SLB, they posit, presents valuable opportunities to make concrete what public policy consists of. It is therefore an approach that directly links together theory and practice. The teaching strategies they propose therefore center this complementarity and encourage practitioners to be creative in how they bring the outside world of policy into their classrooms.

Part III of the *Handbook* focuses on teaching policy research, with an emphasis on methodology. Public policy is an empirical field of social science, and theoretical development is primarily informed through empirical research. Learning public policy requires not only understanding research methods and techniques, but also understanding the complex link between knowledge and the reality it seeks to describe. Part III grapples with historical and

ongoing debates about hierarchies of knowledge in policy research (and the social sciences more generally), as well as the comparative value of different ways of exploring policy as a realm of human activity.

Nowlin and Wehde begin this section by setting out what they argue to be the main considerations for teaching quantitative methods to public policy students. In the process of re-establishing methodological fundamentals, they make clear the need to firstly take your audience into consideration – students of public policy are diverse and so too are the purposes for which they may go on to use quantitative method – and, secondly, closely link methods and theory. In their chapter on teaching qualitative methods, Durnová, Hejzlarová, and Mouralová take a different approach, focusing on setting out the main orientations or ‘organising principles’ of qualitative policy research to be taught, including creativity, reflexivity, transparency, and openness. Drawing on their own experience of carrying out and teaching qualitative policy research in increasingly complex conditions, they present concrete examples and propose practical strategies for supporting student learning in this area. Engeli and Rothmayr Allison then address the question of how to teach comparative public policy (CPP), arguing that practitioners first need to reflect on what constitutes the field in order to then support students to grasp its plurality. In doing so, they call for a teaching practice that gives space to ever broader ranges of cases and more plural forms of comparative research design. Next, Siewert presents a useful ‘checklist’ for instructing public policy students in Qualitative Comparative Analysis (QCA). The chapter serves as a tour through the internal logics and analytical decisions that underlie the application of QCA and proposes ways that teachers can help various types of students comprehend and apply them through tangible examples and strategies. Beach then tackles another of the more recent methodological tools at our disposal: process tracing. The key challenge, argues Beach, is finding a path through disagreements about what this approach is and how it can and should be used in practice. In such circumstances, it is essential for improving student comprehension and competence to pay attention to the fundamentals, particularly those pertaining to how various dimensions relate, including research purpose, and beliefs about the nature of reality (ontology) and the nature of knowledge about the world (epistemology). Finally, the section ends with a chapter on teaching qualitative interviewing as a method. Here, Chailleux and Zittoun make a case for helping students acquire the fundamentals, namely understanding what interviews can (and cannot) reveal about the policy process, before helping them select the correct orientation for carrying out this type of research.

Part IV of the *Handbook* focuses on teaching about analytical tools to generate a particular kind of knowledge: knowledge *about* policy but which can also be used *for* policy. The policy process is, among other things, a knowledge-driven process. Certain forms of inquiry yield information not only about how knowledge is taken up and used by policy actors but also information that in itself can be fed into the process. Chapters in this section are underpinned by a certain duality, in which policy is both subject and object of inquiry. The skills and orientations taught from these perspectives are complex to transmit, since they require an understanding of the policy process, as well as a wide range of cross-cutting proficiencies associated with carrying out research, and analysing and communicating information.

Part IV begins with a chapter by St.Denny and Cairney on teaching policy analysis where they argue that the tension between ‘practical’ policy analysis and ‘academic’ policy research is historically and professionally constituted rather than inherent. They make the case for reintegrating insights from policy process theories with a wide range of problem-solving techniques to help students prepare for a wider range of tasks and scenarios than those initially

envisioned for policy analysis graduates. In their chapter on teaching policy design, Bakir, Singh Bali, Howlett, Lewis, and Schmidt then consider how the subject matter is taught to different audiences, mapping the central questions and themes typically used to structure course content, as well as detailing what opportunities exist for innovating in this area. In doing so, they shed light on the mutable disciplinary and pedagogical boundaries between policy science and design perspectives in this area. In his chapter, Hajer tackles the challenge of teaching students the importance of language and narratives for and in public policy. Generally considered as neutral, Hajer proposes multiple examples and strategies to allow students to understand how each word, statement, and narrative shapes public policy rather than just describes it. In her chapter, Smith then reflects on her own experience of helping students without a strict political or social science background critically understand the different functions evidence can and does play in policy. Here, Smith argues, the key is surfacing often invisible orthodoxies and supporting students to unpick their and other socially held beliefs about the interplay between knowledge and action. Finally, the section ends with a chapter by Chouinard and McDavid on teaching policy evaluation. Much like policy design, policy evaluation avowedly straddles different disciplinary boundaries, and teaching approaches are consequently very diverse. By opting to frame their chapter in terms of a reflective dialogue between two very differently positioned practitioners, the authors emphasise the extent to which who we are is intertwined with how and what we teach.

Part V of the *Handbook* then considers in detail the different publics engaged in learning about public policy. Who we teach varies considerably, and the question of transferring public policy knowledge is inseparable from the question of which public is being addressed. This section therefore not only explores different approaches to teaching and training, but also critically considers where the boundaries lie (if indeed they do) between different learning and teaching experiences. It considers, for instance, whether there is or ought to be a difference in the way we consider public policy as the subject of teaching (to university students, for example) or of training (to practitioners).

Part V begins with a chapter by Pacheco-Vega on teaching undergraduate and master's students. Based on a systematic review of how public policy is typically taught to these groups, the chapter sets out a competence-based framework intended to support teachers in their efforts to combine policy-relevant content and valuable transferable skills. Addressing the question of teaching public policy to PhD students, Radaelli grapples with a very different audience: these early career researchers, we are reminded, are as different as the topics they study, and we cannot presuppose a common disciplinary basis or even similar professional aspirations. Looking back over his career, Radaelli offers a rich account of how both students and supervisors might approach public policy learning and teaching within the broader boundaries of what the doctorate is, that is to say a particular kind of educational experience that extends far beyond the doctoral thesis. In their chapter on teaching practitioners, Savard and Caron argue for the adoption of a fundamentally different orientation to that of traditional university students, namely an 'andragogical' approach – that is one that specifically centers the maturity and life experience of students in order to better engage and activate them. The section concludes with a chapter by Tosun on teaching the public – a group that, while often the subject of our instruction, is frequently disregarded as such. Because of its diversity, teachers cannot presume any shared knowledge or interest among this audience. Tosun argues that academics trying to pedagogically engage the public should therefore make an effort to

create a shared base for learning and comprehension by making linkages between the abstract ideas they are trying to convey and the real world in ways that are captivating and surprising.

The sixth and final part of the *Handbook* tackles the important issue of mapping and further developing useful and effective public policy teaching in a globalised but also incredibly disparate world. It has two objectives: one practical and one critical. Practically, it provides an overview of different country- and region-specific approaches, and discusses the pedagogical tensions and trade-offs involved in training practitioners and teaching students intending to engage with policy at local, national, and international levels. In doing so, it also engages with questions of representation in the curriculum and in the broader discipline, highlighting the importance of fostering greater geographic and demographic diversity in the voices and views put forward in the teaching of public policy. Critically, it invites authors to reflect on the historically contingent and co-constitutive nature of teaching and practice. Indeed, social and institutional norms vary across regions and over time concerning who teaches public policy, who studies it and why, and what beliefs and assumptions are disseminated and reproduced in the process. Critical accounts of the historical development of policy teaching and training in different regions are therefore valuable for capturing and problematising societal and political beliefs about how to organise and improve decision-making that often remain taken-for-granted.

Part VI comprises six chapters, five of which are regional in focus, and one of which acts as a critical synthesis. The first chapter in this section, by Manga Edimo and Obosi, gives an overview of public policy teaching in Africa. Drawing on empirical research, with a particular focus on Cameroon and Kenya, the authors highlight salient characteristics and key contrasts, in a way that historically and sociologically contextualises teaching in these countries, drawing our attention to how colonial legacies, disciplinary boundaries, and shifting policy foci have contributed to shaping practice in this area. In their chapter on teaching in Asia, Nair, El-Taliawi, and van der Wal similarly attempt to identify patterns across a vast and disparate region. With some evidence suggesting that specialised ‘schools’ may be helping to institutionalise regionally specific teaching practices and learning content, the increasing prominence of public policy teaching across the continent prompts the authors to consider the extent to which a distinct public orientation is being established. Bandelow, Hornung, and Schröder then provide us with an overview of public policy teaching in Europe. Their systematic analysis of public policy programs offers much needed insights into the plurality of content, the variety of approaches, and the differing levels of dedicated provision across the region. Country case studies then allow the authors to suggest possible explanations for this diversity, many of which involve nationally distinct ways of organising both the academic profession and the state itself. These factors also account for some of the variations identified by Porto de Oliveira, Osorio Gonnet, Pacheco-Vega, and Munoz-del-Campo in their chapter on Latin America. Here, however, strong scholarly links with North American and European content, as well as very different historical experiences – for instance with authoritarianism – are also used to explain salient differences. The final regional chapter, by Laforest and Rathgeb Smith, tackles the question of teaching public policy in North America. Unlike the other chapters in this section, the authors do not go down the well-trodden path of surveying how policy is taught in the long-established institutions dedicated to this in the region. Instead, the implications of new opportunities and challenges likely to face public servants are discussed in relation to developing a responsive and future-oriented approach to policy teaching. The authors contend that placing an excessive emphasis on ‘classical’ policy analysis instruction

will eventually underserve both students and the constituencies whom they will later work on behalf of.

Finally, in her synthesising chapter, Brans reflects on what these insights mean for internationalising both public policy teaching and the discipline more broadly. Overall, the author argues against outdated view that equate internationalisation with uniformisation, pointing instead to the discipline's diversity as a source of richness which must yet be fostered through inclusive and transnational action, including in terms of how and what we teach.

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PART I

APPROACHES TO TEACHING PUBLIC POLICY

2. Teaching public policy through the history of the discipline, theories, and concepts

B. Guy Peters and Philippe Zittoun

INTRODUCTION

One of the ways of teaching an academic discipline, its theories, and its concepts, is to use a historical approach that presents academic knowledge by returning to the past; in other words, to the moment when the concept or the theories were created by authors, developed and published in articles and books, and included in academic debates because – frequently – of the controversies that they generated. For example, a historical perspective to teaching gravity can use the history of Galileo, Newton, and Einstein to evoke the research question at the time, the context in which it was developed, the difficulties encountered, the debates generated, and to show how these actors' theories generated consensus or dissensus.

Teaching academic knowledge through history is not new. It first emerged at the beginning of the 20th century with the development of physics, and was then further developed after the 1950s. In 1926, for instance, Paul Langevin argued that it was a pity to teach the practical dimension of sciences without paying attention to its history (Langevin 1926). Specifically, he asserted that learning through history increased student motivation, and served to demonstrate that knowledge production is an ongoing process through which theories and concepts are not just developed but further refined and clarified. Other examples of historical orientations to knowledge production include Russel Wallace, who focused on the development of the history of science in the US, specifically in Harvard; Conant, who argued in the 1950s that students could not understand the methods of science without analyzing how science had been developed; and Kuhn, who taught the dynamics of scientific revolutions (Burkett et al. 1960; Conant 1944).

While a historical approach to teaching has long been a feature of many sciences, teaching social sciences through history has attracted less attention. More recent, less global, and more fragmented, social sciences are less often taught using a historical perspective. While there exists some form of narrative or etiology around the emergence of some social sciences, such as those explaining how Weber and Durkheim founded the discipline of sociology, and while some books propose a historical perspective of social sciences, the position of history in teaching, in textbooks and in handbooks, is generally poor. This also holds true for the field of policy studies. Most textbooks and handbooks have ignored the history of policy sciences, which is a very fragmented discipline that has only been recently internationalized (Peters and Zittoun 2016). While the etiology of the discipline can be traced back to Lasswell and to the emergence of policy sciences (deLeon 1988; Zittoun 2019; Farr, Hacker, and Kazee 2006; Dunn 2019), most of the available literature has presented the discipline as largely ahistorical and has tended to overlook its historical, social, and political contexts.

In this chapter, we first develop the educational benefits associated with teaching public policy using a historical approach. Specifically, we focus on the value of teaching approaches

that historically contextualize the discipline as well as the social contexts in which it is embedded. We also pay attention to the position of the different authors who have developed new knowledge in their fields, to the main controversies, and to the critiques levelled. In the second part, we provide several examples of controversies that have contributed to the development of policy studies and that can be taught.

ADVOCATING FOR TEACHING THROUGH A HISTORICAL PERSPECTIVE OF POLICY STUDIES

There are two main ways in which to teach an academic discipline such as policy studies. The first, which is largely dominant, consists of presenting the current theories and concepts as inherently relevant and ahistorical knowledge. From this perspective, teaching focuses on presenting the ontological and epistemological foundations of the field, defining concepts, showing the different links between them, and presenting the theories. The second involves narrowing the focus to see how authors in a given context have developed their theories and concepts, and to look at the opposition they have encountered, and the significance these dynamics have had for empirical studies.

In the first part of this chapter, we will focus on the five main advantages of analyzing policy studies using a historical perspective.

First, relying on a historical approach to research development allows for a better understanding of the research questions that preceded the emergence of concepts and theories themselves. As historians and sociologists of science have shown, research questions do not emerge from nowhere; rather, they are often related to their political, economic, social, and academic context. Resituating the shaping of these research questions facilitates understanding by identifying what characterized both the novelty of the question and what may be described as the mood of the period. This allows us to both avoid anachronisms and shed light on the research questions. How, then, can one better understand theories and concepts other than by addressing the questions that they sought to answer? For instance, in the case of public policy, how can one understand Lasswell's sudden interest in the topic without paying attention to the questions posed by the Second World War on the resistance of democracies and on the relationship between academics and the State?

Moreover, historical accounts of knowledge production allow us to better grasp the complexity of the link between theory and empirical reality. Too often, the ahistorical presentation of a theory gives the pedagogical image that the theory always comes first. However, the description of the iterative movements that researchers carry out between empirical observation, the collection of data and their conceptualization challenges this linearity. It demonstrates that what is fundamentally in question is neither theories nor concepts, but the back-and-forth and the trial and error that allow us to describe and understand the complexity of reality. As Popper (1972) explains, the impossible discovery of Vulcan, or the invention of ether, were essential to the theoretical turning point of modern physical science. In the same way, one would struggle to understand, for example, the emergence of the concept of agenda without exploring the debates on the limitations of decision theories in the 1960s.

The historical approach also allows us to focus on how arguments and evidence contributed to the emergence of theories (Becker 2017). Indeed, the 'history factory' allows us to see how theories and concepts were discussed at the time they emerged, how they were criticized and

questioned, and how they resisted – or failed to resist – their detractors who focused on their ontological, epistemological, or methodological weaknesses. This approach highlights the importance of the evidence surrounding a theory or a concept, but also that of the tests to which the theory is subjected at the risk of disappearing or being reworked. Identifying the relationship to proof and evidence is not only of historical interest, but also of pedagogical interest since it allows us to underline the importance and the fragility of the creation of evidence in scientific production.

Teaching through historical narrative also proposes an ambitious look at academic knowledge. Historical narratives trace key moments in the emergence of new theories and concepts. They show the capacity of scientists to question and surpass themselves, and demonstrate how scientists never stop questioning their knowledge and their ‘discovery’ or findings. Focusing on the emergence of a theory and on its resistance to criticism allows us to express some form of fascination with this work of knowledge production and to build a pedagogically attractive and interesting story (Latour, Woolgar, and Salk 1986). Far from having emerged by chance, studies appear as the result of long and often difficult efforts during which the researchers question themselves, raise doubts, and are confronted by difficulties that are sometimes insurmountable, at least for a while.

Based on the observation above, a historical approach also allows us to see how one theory begets another, both as a reaction to the first, but also as a means of addressing unexplained elements. The advocates of a given policy theory or approach often tend to focus solely on it, without acknowledging that it is located in an ongoing pageant of theoretical development, and that every theory has its own antithesis.

Analyzing the successions, controversies, and questioning of theories allows us to retain, pedagogically, a modest approach to knowledge. Far from appearing as a certainty, the narrative of the production of knowledge allows us to show the doubts and questioning that cut across the academic field and demonstrate the extent to which the efforts of knowledge that are still required are greater than those we have already provided. It reminds us that researchers are not people of certainty, who assert their knowledge as an incontestable truth; rather, they place the question of uncertainty at the heart of learning. At a time when the uncertainty of knowledge about both epidemics and crises is at the heart of the difficulties encountered by contemporary governments, this approach to doubt can only make it easier to adopt a prudent posture.

Finally, given that it is constructed in the form of a story, learning through a historical approach offers a narrative that arouses interest much more than a statement structured around concepts and theories does. Writing a story allows for the introduction of both a temporal dynamic and a dramaturgy that attracts the reader’s attention, heightens the desire to know the next steps, and – by keeping readers on the edge of their seats – allows them to have a better retention of the knowledge proposed. The greater attention given to the dramaturgy of a story facilitates memorization and learning, hence the importance of the etiological story as well as the presentation of scientific controversies which avoid an overly linear and predictive discourse – as well as stage struggles with uncertain outcomes – and which increase captivation.

EXAMPLE 1: THE CONTROVERSIES SURROUNDING PUBLIC POLICY'S EMERGENCE

Most disciplines have an etiological narrative about the conditions of their emergence. In the case of public policy, this narrative is often twofold. First, it includes the emergence of the field in the United States and, depending on the country, its importation, and – in most cases – its hybridization. The first has the advantage of being common to all countries and is based on several studies and works that have primarily focused on Lasswell, but have often neglected the academic environment of which he was part. Indeed, regarding what is sometimes referred to as the ‘Chicago School’ of political science (Almond 2004; Heaney and Hansen 2006; Simon 1987), few are aware of the repeated controversies that the works undertaken by this group have encountered, nor of the particular role that the Second World War played in its emergence. To understand the importance of the emergence narrative, we would like to give an account of the important debates that surrounded Lasswell’s publications on public policy between 1943 and 1955, as well as the Chicago School more generally. These major controversies involved what Monroe (2004) referred to as Chicago 1, which comprised Charles Merriam political scientists, such as Harold Lasswell, Harold Gosnell, and Gabriel Almond, opposed against Chicago 2, which regrouped political scientists around Leo Strauss, David Easton, and Leonard Binder, leading Lasswell to leave Chicago for Yale (Almond 2004; Monroe 2004; Simon 1987; Heaney and Hansen 2006).

The debate between the two Chicago schools was complex and concerned different dimensions. We would like to highlight one of these dimensions, which focuses on the ontological distinction between values and facts and the capacity for political science to produce scientific advice. These debates opposed those scholars aligned with Charles Merriam, who considered that it was possible to distinguish facts to allow academics to develop neutral scientific research that could be linked to values and transformed into advice, to those aligned with Leo Strauss, who considered that distinguishing fact and value was an illusion and that there was no neutral scientific ‘advice’ without values (Merriam 1931; 1942; Behnegar 1997).

David Easton was one of Lasswell’s greatest critics. In 1950, he published an article about Lasswell, entitled ‘Harold Lasswell: Policy Scientist for a Democratic Society’, in which he examined ‘the two phases in his thinking about values in relation to a democratic community’ (Easton 1950, 451). Analyzing Lasswell’s writing, Easton considered that, in the first half of his career, Lasswell had followed the Weberian tradition which refused to separate fact from value, to prioritize values, to indicate preferences in term of goals, or to privilege a particular theoretical perspective. In the second half, however, he attempted ‘to say something about our ultimate social objectives’ and considered that the social sciences may offer a normative perspective by ‘knowing what these goals ought to be’.

To grasp this perspective, it is important to return to the 1934–40 period in which Lasswell’s writing attempted to understand the political system. His analysis, however, integrated observations of values or goals, the better to understand how they constituted a powerful ideology. In his famous book, *Politics: Who Gets What, When, How*, Lasswell proposes that, distinct from political philosophy which seeks to ‘justify preferences’, political science should be considered as the scientific ‘study of influence’ (Lasswell 1950, 13). Following his previous work on propaganda, this book focused on how elites used symbols, violence, values, and goods to maintain their dominant positions. In this theoretical perspective, Lasswell perceived public

policy as a 'control device' (p.175) 'to provide the means of efficient control' (p.174). Put differently, public policy is not the main question under study; rather, it is a secondary subject.

There was a change of perspective sparked by the Second World War when Lasswell worked for the US Army. During this period, he published some important notes for the government, touching on values, and also published articles where he focused on public policy and established a link between developing intelligence for public policy and stability for democracy; he maintained this link after the War. In *The Policy Sciences* (1951), Lasswell's introduction developed 'the Policy Sciences of democracy'. To do so, he affirmed the separation between fact and value, and explained that the researcher needed to be engaged in the choice of values which have an impact on the choice of problem orientation. He also considered that, after this problem orientation, the contribution of sciences can inform policy as a fact. As he explained, 'the special emphasis is upon the policy sciences of democracy in which the ultimate goal is the realization of human dignity.' For example, Lasswell drew on the book written by Gunnar Myrdal, *An American Dilemma: The Negro Problem and Modern Democracy*, which was value-oriented because of the choice of the problem, and on which the sciences could shed light concerning how to act on those values (Myrdal 1944).

This new perspective sparked controversy. While the use of different disciplines to gain a better understanding of social problems was not contested, the debate revolved around three main points. The first concerned the choice of problem – the problem of interest to policymakers is not necessarily the problem of interest to researchers. Lasswell attempted to respond to this criticism by highlighting the need to choose 'fundamental problems' over fashionable ones. The second point, which Easton contested, was the capacity to take into account researchers' goals and values, while the last point was developed by Lerner and Merton (1951), who argued that 'research is not adequately focused on the practical problem'.

EXAMPLE 2: AGENDA, NON-DECISION, AND DECISION

If we consider that the problem of agenda-setting is part of the policy process, similar to policy formulation and decision-making, we must point out that the concept of 'agenda' and the focus on problems sparked major controversy in the 1960s. Indeed, authors such as Herbert Simon, Harold Lasswell, Charles Lindblom, and Robert Dahl, who focused on the decision-making process and considered its pluralist dimension, were opposed to those such as Schattschneider, Bachrach and Baratz, and Cobb and Elder, who considered that the former advocated an illusionist, pluralist, and apolitical model because they forgot to focus on the major role played during the pre-decision process by elites who stifled the problems that they did not want to solve.

In the 1950s, the decision-making issue was one of the key research topics in political science, with the production of works from authors such as Simon, Truman, Dahl, Lasswell, and Lindblom. The issue was also present in economics which focused on dynamic game theories (Simon 1944; Truman 1951; Lasswell 1956; Lindblom 1959). The objective was not only to grasp and to better describe decision-making process itself during this Cold War period, a process supported by the RAND Corporation,¹ but also to develop an alternative to

¹ The RAND Corporation is a research organization focused on public policy founded in 1948 and supported by the US Air Force to better understand the decision-making process and to develop analytical tools for policy solutions.

the concept of power of elitist models developed by sociologists such as C. Wright Mills or Floyd Hunter. As Robert Dahl suggested in 'A Critique of the Ruling Elite Model' (1958), in order to distinguish a scientific theory from an ideological one, 'empirical evidence' is essential. It acts as a test through the 'careful examination of a series of concrete decisions' (p.466), making it possible to identify the link between the preferences of the ruling elite group and the decision made.

With the work of Schattschneider (1960), the controversies that had previously pitted elitist sociologists against behaviorist political scientists shifted instead to turn political scientists of different traditions against each other. Criticizing the pluralist approach and its idealistic perspective of democracy, as well as political parties and interest groups, the author explained how these approaches were wrong to focus only on the decision-making process as a way to socialize conflicts and solve problems and to forget to observe the events that preceded along with the competition between different conflicts before their entry into the decision process. He referred to this as 'the conflict of conflicts' and explained:

There are billions of potential conflicts in any modern society but only few become significant. The reduction of the number of conflicts is the essential part of politics [...] A democratic society is able to survive because it manages conflict by establishing priorities among a multitude of potential conflicts. (Schattschneider 1960, 66)

In two well-known articles, Bachrach and Baratz (1962; 1963) criticized Dahl's perspective and compared the elitist sociological approach to power with the pluralist political science approach. For them, the two conceptions of power were not opposed; rather, they were two faces of the same phenomenon, depending essentially on what one observed and on where one observed it. They criticized pluralists for focusing their attention only on the concrete and observable part of the decision-making process as an exercise of power, and for forgetting that 'power may be, and often is, exercised by confining the scope of decision-making to relatively "safe" issues' (Bachrach and Baratz 1962, 918). They considered that power was not only, as Dahl suggested, a situation where 'A has power over B to the extent that A can get B to do something that B would not otherwise do' (Dahl 1957, 203); rather, 'power is also exercised when A devotes his energies to creating or reinforcing social and political values and institutional practices that limit the scope of the political process to public consideration of only those issues which are comparatively innocuous to A' (Bachrach and Baratz 1962, 918). They criticized Dahl's idea of 'erroneously assuming that power is solely reflected in concrete decision' because this excluded the capacity of groups to prevent contestation, conflict, and issues (Dahl 1961).

Concerning the second face of power, Bachrach and Baratz developed the concept of 'non-decision', which may be explained by the political process helping to suffocate a problem before it is included in the decision-making process. Their main idea was to consider that the dominant groups maintained their powerful position through the 'mobilization of bias', essentially around norms and frames, to disqualify problems supported by dominated groups. As they explained:

the use of power and its correlates is a crucial means for sustaining and strengthening the mobilization of bias and thereby perpetuating "unfair shares" in the allocation of benefits and privileges. The exercise of power towards this end is a major form of non-decision making, defined as a process for thwarting latent or manifest challenges to things-as-they-are. (Bachrach and Baratz 1975, 900)

Their criticism of Dahl's perspective sparked major controversy between authors such as Debnam, Merelman, and Goldfinger. The main criticism of this latter group concerned the epistemological and methodological difficulties involved in undertaking empirical research for something that does not exist and empirically validating invisible phenomena. They argued that it was impossible to validate the existence of the second face of power; the one corresponding to the mobilization of biases. Debnam suggests that it is possible to observe the emergence of an existing problem or event, but not of a non-event (1984). In response to these criticisms, Bachrach and Baratz identified several phenomena which could be considered as 'non-decisions', such as the 'co-option of opponents, public denial of legitimacy to demand for change, and deflection of challenges by referring grievances to study commissions' (1975, 902). They essentially focused on two points. The first considered 'non-decision' as 'an act, performed either overtly or covertly, that is susceptible to observation and analysis', and the second that the 'mobilization of bias is an effective instrument of power [...] observable in its nature and its impact'.

This major controversy led to the works of Roger Cobb and Charles Elder in the 1970s. As suggested by Bryan Jones (2016), their book *Participation in American Politics: The Dynamic of Agenda-Building* (Cobb and Elder 1972) helped to calm the controversies by proposing some form of conciliation with the concept of agenda-building. They went beyond the opposition between the elitist researchers, who focused on the pre-decision process, and the pluralist ones who preferred to focus on the decision-making process, and considered both as part of the same policy process. While they did not invent it, they largely contributed to making the concept of 'agenda setting' famous and establishing it as an important phase of the policy process. In their view, the study of the politics of agenda-building (Cobb and Elder 1971) is complementary to that of the politics of decision-making.

EXAMPLE 3: POLICY ANALYSIS VS. POLICY PROCESS STUDIES

From the late 1960s to the 1970s, another major controversy arose, supported by a new generation of political scientists who wanted to shift from the study of the decision-making process, where policy analysis is dominant, to policy process studies. They proposed developing models of the policymaking process that would integrate agenda setting within the policy formulation, decision-making and policy implementation processes (Bauer and Gergen 1968; Dror 1968; Lindblom 1968; Jones 1970; Dye 1972; Lowi and Olson 1970). These policy process studies were embedded in political science and focused on the politics involved in creating a policy, rather than on the quality of the policy being adopted. Furthermore, most of the research using policy process models was retrospective and focused on explaining the reasons for the adoption of a policy, rather than prospective and aimed at improving the quality of policy choices.

The interest that political scientists began to express in public policy was, in part, a response to the fear that this area of research would be dominated by economists. Moreover, political scientists were facing challenges and were seeking to develop a new orientation. In 1965, the committee appointed by the Social Science Research Council held significant discussions around this issue and organized two conferences in 1966 and 1967, where they asked: 'What professional expertise and obligations, if any, have political scientists to study, evaluate, and

make recommendations about public policy?' These conferences brought together the entire American political science community (Bauer and Gergen 1968).

The 'stages model' was the principal model of the policy process developed at this time. More descriptive than explanatory, it presented policymaking as a process that proceeded from agenda-setting via several stages and ended in evaluation. While not explanatory in itself, it provided the foundation for a lot of the explanatory research that followed, demonstrating the dynamics of a particular stage and the effects of that stage on the final policy choice. Agenda-setting ultimately became the most developed of these individual stage research programs.

One concern of political scientists at the time was the need to show that politics did indeed matter. The alternative argument was that public policy, and especially public expenditure, was determined by economic factors. The dominant argument for some time was that governments in richer territories spent more money, regardless of the political party in control of the government. There were numerous measurement and methodological flaws in that literature, but it did create a lively debate about what the policy process could and could not do in shaping the activities of the public sector.

The process model was important for what it could explain, or describe, about policymaking in the United States, but it was also important as a foundation for comparative policy studies. The functionalist assumption behind this model was that the same stages would appear in policymaking, regardless of the political system being studied. Therefore, differences between the processes used in various countries could be utilized to provide explanations of differences in policy outputs.

Political scientists' interest in the policy process and its outcomes largely coincided with the rise in use of important analytic models in the public sector. Perhaps the most famous of these was the Planning-Programming-Budgeting System (PPBS) introduced into the United States Department of Defense by Robert McNamara (Hammond 1968). This was a budgeting system that sought to assess the optimal use of available funds, in part through reconceptualizing government not so much as a collection of organizations but as a collection of programs that may involve contributions from many organizations.² This model of decision-making also diffused to other countries, resulting in the use of 'Rationalisation des Choix Budgétaires' (i.e., 'Rationalisation of Budgetary Choices') in France (Lord 1973) and in a weaker version in the United Kingdom, called 'Programme Evaluation and Review' (Heclo and Wildavsky 1974).

Although not as prominent as PPBS, other analytic models came to be used more commonly in government during this period. These included 'cost-benefit analysis' (CBA), which had been used in some organizations for some time, for example the US Army Corps of Engineers, although it was soon applied in a wide range of settings, perhaps especially in regulatory organizations. Another example is 'management by objectives' (MBO) (Rose 1977). All these analytic methods were designed to improve the quality of policies adopted as well as to link those policies with comprehensive evaluation methodologies.

Indeed, this was also the period in which policy evaluation was being supported and developed more fully. The Great Society programs of President Lyndon B. Johnson, for example, all devoted some of their funds to evaluation. At this time, there was also a great deal of scholarly attention paid to evaluation methodologies (Rossi, Freeman, and Wright 1979). Evaluation

² This fundamental idea of thinking about broad programs in government emerged again in the 1990s with some versions of performance management.

was the final stage of most models of the policy process (barring feedback) but was also an important location for policy analysis. While much of the policy analysis movement stressed *ex ante* analysis, *ex post* evaluation was also important for improving the quality of the programs being implemented.

This debate raises several important points about teaching public policy. The first is the multi-disciplinary nature of the study: economists, political scientists, and scholars from other disciplines all have something to say about policy, and the different perspectives illuminate the underlying subject matter. Furthermore, thinking about public policy is both prospective and retrospective. There are some virtues in thinking about how best to make new policies and how to avoid pitfalls in so doing, as well as in understanding how policies have been shaped and what effects they have had.

EXAMPLE 4: POLICY DESIGN VS. MULTIPLE STREAMS

Another significant dichotomy within the development of policy studies can be understood through contrasting policy design with the Multiple Streams Framework that has been used to explain policy choices. At the extreme, this contrast might be seen as one between rationality as an approach to policymaking and the bounded rationality that developed out of Herbert Simon's analysis of decision-making. The contrast, however, goes somewhat deeper than this and reflects fundamental ideas and biases about what policy analysis is and should be.

Let us begin by considering policy design. Davis Bobrow (2006) argued that policy design was 'ubiquitous, necessary and difficult'. To some extent, policy design has been occurring since governments first engaged in making public policies, but the academic literature only began to deal with this topic in the 1970s and 1980s (Linder and Peters 1984; Mayntz 1988; Bobrow and Dryzek 1987). When governments make a policy, there is a design of sorts, but the elements that constitute this design may be more implicit than explicit, and the design may have occurred by inertia or by accident. Other academic disciplines, such as planning and economics, have also been heavily involved in policy design, although perhaps not by that name.

For scholars of policy design, at least in the first major wave in the 1980s, design involved more than merely the formulation of a program designed to meet a particular policy problem. Design involved an understanding of that underlying problem and some intellectual commitment to particular perspectives on policy (see Howlett and Lejano 2013, 361–2). The purpose of design is not just to pick a set of ready-made solutions off the shelf and then to implement them; the purpose is to create a more integrated whole that provides an integrated vision as well as plans for coping with a problem. Arguing that this would be the solution is perhaps too large a claim, but the claim of amelioration could be entertained.

The integrated conception of design initially involved three elements. The first was an understanding of causation and, with that, the recognition that a policy problem may have alternative models of causation, each implying a different design for ameliorating the problem. The identification of the problem also involved the selection of goals for any policy intervention. The second element of design was argued to be instrumentation, or the selection of the most effective instruments to implement the program and to reach the posited goals. Finally, a policy design had to involve values. What would a good, or at least an acceptable, outcome of the policy be? This therefore involved linking the other parts of design with policy evaluation.

This early version of policy design also had certain technocratic aspirations. The assumption was that, with sufficient information and cogitation, it would be possible to devise algorithms that would connect solutions to problems, and provide policymakers with clear guidance about how to intervene. That ambition was, in retrospect, wildly optimistic but did reflect belief in the efficacy of policy analysis and also spurred some thinking about the underlying nature of policy problems (Hoorbeek and Peters 2017).

As well as provoking some interest in the fundamental nature of policy problems, policy design was also crucial in increasing interest in policy instruments. Although some economists had been discussing economic policy instruments for some time (see Kirschen 1964; Tinbergen 1956), tools had not been a major concern for many policy analysts (but see Lasswell, 1951). To some extent, the literature on instruments developed autonomously, but this was also linked with design and with the need to make instrument choices a component of design (see Howlett and Lejano 2013). Thus, at about the same time that the policy design literature was flourishing (in its first incarnation), the literature on instruments was also developing rapidly (see Hood 1986; Salamon and Lund 1989).

The design literature was, if anything, too successful in promoting an interest in policy instruments. The basic premises of design, e.g., that instruments and evaluation needed to be embedded in a broader conception of policy, tended to be forgotten in the rush to discuss the utility of specific instruments or the choices between alternative instruments. Thus, for many scholars in the field, policy design became equated with policy instruments. The implicit (and occasionally explicit) assumption was that all one needed to do to design a policy effectively was to pick the correct instrument and the problem would then be solved.

Interest in policy design, other than in instruments, waned after the early 1990s. As already noted, many people in policy studies assumed that policy instrument choice was policy design. However, in the second decade of the 21st century, there has been an increased interest in returning to design in something of its original formulation, involving fundamental ideas about policy and the nature of its problems and its link with values (see Peters and Fontaine 2022). In addition, the emerging literature on policy design has begun to place greater emphasis on the role of institutions in designing, as well as on the interventions required to implement a design.

At the same time that the policy design literature was developing and undergoing some of its transformations, another strand of thinking about policy was also being developed. This literature, usually referred to as ‘multiple streams’ (see Zahariadis 2007), is, to some extent, the antithesis of the policy design literature. While policy design is prospective and interested in using policy analysis to develop better policies, the Multiple Streams Framework tends to be retrospective and to offer explanations for policies that have been chosen.³

The intellectual foundations for the multiple-streams approach were laid well before the approach became more visible during the 1970s and 1980s. Herbert Simon’s ideas about satisficing rather than optimizing (1957) – and, subsequently, initial discussions of bounded rationality – are crucial to this approach. The basic idea of Simon and his successors is that the world in which public policies intervene is very complex and involves many interactions between variables, interactions that are difficult to control. Likewise, many of the problems that policymakers must confront are poorly structured and hence difficult to solve (Simon

³ As we will argue later in the chapter, multiple-streams has some utility as a prospective tool for analysis. At a minimum, it can tell the policymaker not to be too concerned about specific choices, and also that there is a need for policy entrepreneurs to manage the multiple streams.

1997; Dunn 1994). Therefore, the policymaker is better off not attempting to design rationally, but rather making policy changes more incrementally, adopting a solution that works in the short term and then continuing to make small adjustments in order to improve the problem being addressed.

The basic idea of the multiple-streams approach is that, rather than being designed, policy choices are made by the convergence of three streams that are all necessary for a decision. The ‘garbage can model’ (Cohen, March, and Olsen 1972) was the first conception of the Multiple Streams Framework to be introduced into public policy. This model was argued to be of particular relevance for organizations characterized by ‘problematic preferences, unclear technology and fluid participation’, characteristics which were assumed to abound in public and educational organizations (Cohen, March, and Olsen 1972: 1).⁴ Decision-making occurs when streams of problems, solutions, and decision-makers converge and encounter a decision-making situation. The decision which results is therefore dependent upon what ideas are available at the time, and on what solutions are selected out of those available within the ‘garbage can’. In short, rather than being planned and decided upon in a fully rational manner, the decision is – to some extent – random.

Approximately a decade later, John Kingdon (1984) presented his own version of the same basic idea, which explicitly labeled the multiple-streams approach. In this version of the model, problems remain as a stream, but solutions are replaced by ‘policies’ and participants are replaced by ‘politics’. This version of the model is clearly developed for studying public policy, as opposed to the more general applicability of the garbage can model. These three streams ‘couple’ (Kingdon’s choice of words) in a ‘policy window’ – the analog of a decision situation. While retaining much of the indeterminacy of the garbage can model, Kingdon’s multiple-streams model does allow for more agency, as it emphasizes the role of the policy entrepreneur in identifying, or even creating, policy windows and then in being willing to go through that window with a policy in hand.

The garbage can model, and Kingdon’s multiple-streams approach, are the foundational works of the Multiple Streams Framework, but the basic models continue to be debated and elaborated (see Herweg and Zahariadis 2018). The two major themes in the elaboration of the multiple-streams approach have been the delineation of the role of agency in the model, which at times can appear to lack clear identification of actors, and the attempts to operationalize the concepts within the framework (see Cairney and Jones 2016).

In addition to laying out some important ideas about public policy and the policy process, these two strands of thinking can help the student to understand some fundamental points about public policy. The most important point emerging from comparing these two strands of thinking is the contrast between rational and bounded-rational thinking in policy. Can the policy analyst design policies *ex ante*, or are they at the mercy of more random events that place significant limits on their rationality? Furthermore, if bounded rationality is a dominant feature of policy studies, then are there means of imposing greater human agency on what may appear random, for example, by way of Kingdon’s ‘policy entrepreneur’?

The contrast between these two strands of thinking also illuminates the differences between what is usually referred to as policy analysis and what is referred to as policy studies (see St.Denny and Cairney in this volume). Policy design falls more readily into the policy

⁴ The garbage can model was developed initially to understand decision-making in universities.

analysis category, being more prospective and more interested in shaping new policies. The multiple-streams approach is a better example of policy studies, being concerned with explaining how certain policies are created. Both these are worthwhile areas of inquiry, but they are different, even if both are concerned with public policy.

EXAMPLE 5: POSITIVIST VS. CONSTRUCTIVIST AND CRITICAL APPROACHES

Cutting across the social sciences as a whole, the controversies between positivist and constructivist approaches have also taken place in the field of public policy at different moments. More specifically, two traditions have had a considerable influence on policy studies. The first is the pragmatism tradition developed by John Dewey and the Chicago School of Sociology, and the Chicago School of Political Science and its professors such as Charles Merriam and Harold Lasswell (Dunn 2019; Ansell 2011; Zittoun 2014). The second tradition concerns the positivism trend in economics and the theory of games and its large influence on the US political science scene, including the idea of using natural sciences to study public policy.

The debate organized in 1950 by the American Political Science Association, between Charner Perry, Herbert Simon, Harold Lasswell, Max Radin, and George Lundberg, probably sparked the first major controversy between positivist and non-positivist approaches in both the field of political science and in public policy (Perry 1950; Simon et al. 1950). This debate took place during the behaviorist revolution and at a time when game theory was being developed in economics. Perry, a philosopher and semiotics expert, argued that political science could not use the natural science method to study human behavior; first because human beings are always influenced by their own subjectivity and their own language, and second because political scientists must also use a language to describe that which is not neutral. Both Herbert Simon and Harold Lasswell criticized his initial idea. They asserted that political sciences in general, and in the study of decision-making in particular, could not use the method developed by natural sciences. Lasswell underlined that it was important for models to grasp political activities: the ‘cyclical models’ developed in American municipal affairs with the ‘reform-relapse-reform’ cycle; the ‘input output model’, which is an impact model; and the ‘newly developed models of decision making processes [...] [developed by] the mathematician von Neumann and the economist Morgenstern, which led in 1944 to the application of the game theory to the study of choice [...] to “explain” choices as well as to advise on “rational” decisions’ (Simon et al. 1950, 424).

From the 1950s to the 1980s, positivist approaches became increasingly essential in public policy, as did their critiques. The use of ‘models’, inspired by natural or other sciences, to explain public policy become largely dominant. Analysis from the behaviorist and post-behaviorist approaches was largely influenced by the natural science ‘model’. David Easton developed a ‘systemic model’ which was largely influenced by physics (Easton 1965), while David Truman proposed to focus on the ‘process of government’ and to consider it as a movement from where one could identify causality (Truman 1951). The public policy ‘turn’ in the 1970s was clearly based on the idea that public policy must be analyzed as a ‘process’ (Jones 1970; Bauer and Gergen 1968; Lowi and Olson 1970). This movement continued until the 1990s with models such as the ‘Punctured Equilibrium Framework’ (PEF), inspired by

natural science, and the ‘Multiple Streams’ or the ‘Advocacy Coalition’ (ACF) Frameworks, inspired by physics (Baumgartner and Jones 2015; Sabatier and Weible 2007; Kingdon 1984).

New controversies emerged in the 1980s with the development of different approaches influenced primarily by the linguistic turn (Habermas 2001; Durnová, Fischer, and Zittoun 2016); the critical approaches developed by scholars like Frank Fischer, Dvora Yanow, and Maarten Hajer; the definitional approaches developed by Rochefort and Cobb (1994); the cognitive approaches developed by Jobert and Muller (1987); the discursive approach developed by Radaelli and Schmidt (2005); and the pragmatist approach (Fischer 2003; Fischer and Gottweis 2012; Yanow 1996; Hajer and Wagenaar 2003; Rochefort and Cobb 1994; Jobert 1985; Radaelli and Schmidt 2005; Zittoun 2014). These approaches focused on how actors perceived and defined the world. They rejected the positivist model which viewed concepts such as ‘interest’, ‘ideas’, ‘instruments’, or even ‘value’, as objective and independent variables capable of explaining policy processes in the same manner as physical science can explain object movement through independent variables. These paradigms viewed each of these concepts as social constructs dependent on how meaning is produced and used by actors during the process. Defining both the problem and the solution were thus viewed as two sides of the same coin of the policy process.

The opposition between positivist, constructivist, and interpretative approaches takes a different form depending on the diversity of perspectives within each approach. The first debate focused more on policy analysis and opposed rational choice theories against argumentative theories. By rejecting the idea that it is possible to produce objective knowledge on policy (Lasswell 1971; Fischer and Forester 1993), the argumentative turn in policy analysis provides new insights, challenging the ontological distinction between policy and politics established by the authors previously mentioned. Among the first to open this debate were Martin Rein, Frank Fischer, John Forester, Douglas Torgerson, and Charles Lindblom during the late 1970s and early 1980s, followed by writers such as Deborah Stone, Giandomenico Majone, and Maarten Hajer and Dvora Yanow. In their studies, all these authors argued that it was impossible to analyze public policies objectively and rationally; they further illustrated that all policies were first and foremost discursive constructions that combined heterogeneous elements, such as values, instruments, and consequences. Consequently, rather than using rationality to analyze public policies, these authors suggested studying actors’ analytical production as well as their use of arguments. Rather than searching for the objective ‘meaning’ of a public policy, Stone (1997) and Majone (1989) proposed studying how actors interpret policy, and the interpretive struggles that these actors waged in order to influence the choice of policy instruments. For example, they examined how arguments regarding feasibility can circumscribe the field of possibilities by imposing limits.

The second debate occurred between authors who analyzed ‘objective’ variables, such as interest, preference, ideas, and even values, in an attempt to understand policy process through a causal explanation, and those who considered that each of these variables was a social construction that was not independent and stable, and thus could be observed only during interaction. Most positivist approaches, such as new institutionalism, ACF, or PEF, viewed ideas, beliefs, and values as variables, distinct from preference and interest, which allowed them to understand causality of policy change (Weible and Jenkins-Smith 2016; Capano and Howlett 2009). For instance, several approaches considered that ideas and values could be ranked objectively on the basis of different circles’ beliefs, including core values, core policy beliefs, and secondary policy values, and that they could also be used to understand the condition of

collective action (Hall 1993; Sabatier and Weible 2007). Constructivist approaches reject the distinction between ideas and interests, believing both to be social constructs (Zittoun 2009). They argue that policymakers develop their activities depending on their subjective grasp of the context and on how they shape their interest, their causal stories (Stone 1989), and their own statement (Zittoun 2016).

The third debate concerns policy solutions and instruments (Hood 1986; Zittoun, Fischer, and Zahariadis 2021; Howlett and Mukherjee 2017). While all approaches agree that a problem exists not objectively but as a social construction (Rochefort and Cobb 1994), there are controversies about policy solution. Some authors consider that a policy solution is an objective and neutral instrument (Margetts and Hood 2016). Drawing on the work of Michel Foucault and on the sociology of science, other authors reject the concept of the instrument as a neutral object devoid of meaning and effects (Lascombes and Le Galès 2007). They pay serious attention to the production of actors' practical knowledge, its use, and the way in which knowledge is challenged in general. They therefore suggest that one must observe the making of policy instruments and policy solutions through collaborative interaction as meaning struggles inside discrete and public arenas (Zittoun, Fischer, and Zahariadis 2021; Zittoun and Chailleux 2022)

CONCLUSION

Teaching in the public policy field by drawing on historical controversies with their concepts, their theories, and their story-telling can be an educational approach to presenting a more dynamic perspective. This approach shows that academic fields develop through conflicts and struggles, and continue to evolve. It can also provide a constructive way to understand how a concept was developed to grasp a given reality at a certain period and in certain circumstances. The lack of use of this approach may possibly be explained by the fact that researchers are yet to take the time to go back to these stories in their handbooks and their textbooks in order to explain the foundations of the discipline.

There is a clear need for additional work to explain the history of development, and for greater debate to make controversies more visible. As discussed in this chapter, many of the controversies that arose during the origins of the discipline persist today. If public policy students fail to understand the roots of contemporary controversies, they may fail to understand the intellectual foundations of the debates and of the discipline as a whole. While returning to these old, seemingly outdated, debates between scholars who are no longer with us may be viewed as a waste of time, in reality it may act as a crucial learning and teaching experience.

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3. Teaching public policy with cases

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INTRODUCTION

Instructors in many public policy programs (as well as related fields such as public administration, political science and international relations) have long used real-world cases or examples as part of their teaching repertoire. While the definitions of cases and “the case method” vary widely (see Gerring 2004), they typically focus on the intensive study of one or a small number of exemplars with the goal of illuminating a broader class of relationships that have similarities to those being examined in the case(s) under study.

The purposes for which cases are used, and to some extent the materials that are used, can be quite different, however. For teaching undergraduates, especially at an introductory and intermediate level, exposure to cases can be particularly useful to introduce them to the complexity of the constraints that confront policymakers. For Ph.D. and other advanced research students, cases provide an opportunity to test hypotheses “inside the box” of organizations and processes that can be impossible to measure and test at the aggregate level with quantitative data. For similar reasons, they can also be particularly useful in building theories of politics and policymaking (Eckstein 1975; George and Bennett 2005) that involve complex sets of independent and dependent variables. Specificity and rigor in defining relationships, and in some cases close attention to the temporal sequence of events (“process-tracing”), are essential to increase the credibility of causal claims made in case research. Case research methodology is now included as a part of the training of students in many social science Ph.D. programs.

The focus of this chapter, however, is not on case research, but rather on how public policy cases can be used in the classroom, with a special focus on professional (e.g., Masters in Public Policy and Public Administration) students as well as working professionals participating in executive education programs. For these students, teaching with cases generally has a distinctive central purpose—developing analytical skills that current or aspiring policy professionals will need to exercise in their future professional lives. It is also frequently associated with a particular instructional style known as “case method teaching” and a particular form of case study materials. While case-focused professional education is most heavily identified with business education (Andersen and Schiano 2014), it has long been recognized as a valuable tool in professional education in fields as varied as law, medicine, nursing and social work (see for example, Garvin 2003; Lynn 1999, Chapter 1) as well as public policy (see for example, Rosenbloom 1995), because these professions are particularly likely to feature constant and recurring dilemmas of policy choice, implementation, and professional practice and ethics where there are no simple one-size-fits-all “right” answers. While the use of cases in education of policy professionals, and the materials and pedagogy associated with it, are the primary focuses of this chapter, other case-teaching audiences, purposes and materials will also be discussed.

The first section of this chapter focuses on “formal” written cases as teaching objects. The second section discusses alternative case materials—informal “curated” cases developed by

the instructor—and provides suggestions on how to develop curated cases. The third section discusses case teaching as a teaching method—what its proponents call “participant-centered learning.” The fourth section briefly addresses challenges of teaching with cases and participant-centered learning in an online context.

CASES AS TEACHING OBJECTS: FORMAL CASES

As Robert Leone (1989, 710) has noted, “‘Case Method’ Is Two Words”—i.e., it refers to both to the “teaching object” (Alford and Brock 2014), that is the *material* presented by the instructor around which a class session is organized, and an *instructional strategy* that focuses on learning through interactions *among* students as well as between students and instructor while one-way lectures by the instructor take a back seat or are dispensed with altogether.

Those new to teaching with cases are likely to have a number of questions, including: what is a case? What is the case method? How are cases structured? What are the main challenges in teaching with cases? This chapter addresses all of these questions, starting with the most basic one: what is a case? Most fundamentally, a case is a story; a narrative description, usually written, but sometimes multimedia, of a particular situation, usually one drawn from real life. In public policy professional education, these case narratives frequently take the form of what can be called “formal written cases” like those available from the case libraries at the Harvard Kennedy School and Harvard Business School. While instructors may, of course, write their own cases, the time commitment involved in doing so, and the limited career rewards for doing so (especially relative to time invested in research targeted at disciplinary journal and book projects), mean that most instructors do not do so; instead, they rely on cases from the Kennedy School and other sources.

The central objective in formal cases is generally to set up a compelling policymaking problem or dilemma that has at least some generalizable features. It requires readers to decide what analytical tools and strategies are needed to analyze that situation, sift through information and then to “take a stand,” depending on the way the case is structured, either making a strategic choice, or drawing a conclusion about why a particular set of actions was taken, whether that set of actions was optimal or could be improved upon, and what alternatives might have been preferred.

Formal cases can be structured in several ways, as will be discussed later in this chapter, but most have some common characteristics:

- They are short—generally between 1 and 20 pages, though some of them have exhibits and appendices that can add to the length. These appendices may include maps, quantitative data, organizational charts, timelines and other materials intended to aid in understanding the case, and in some cases to apply specific skills—for example, in quantitative analysis.
- They are generally “objective” and “balanced” in tone. Objectivity involves the authors refraining from making positive or negative value judgments on the case protagonists and their actions, though they may cite the opinions of others on those issues. Balance involves incorporating the perspectives of multiple stakeholders and experts who represent conflicting definitions of the problem, distinctive values and priorities, and/or contrasting views of the potential consequences of different policy or instrument choices.

- They generally avoid explicit discussion of theory, or at least do not put it in the foreground. This is quite different from cases written for the purposes of social science hypothesis development or testing, where theoretical and methodological issues are usually front-and-center, sometimes in the form of explicit hypotheses presented before the case is introduced.
- They are written in the past tense, about events that have already occurred, although they frequently include a discussion of what might happen in the future under different scenarios.
- Rather than providing a complete historical narrative, they avoid extraneous information not relevant to the key issues that the case focuses on. They do, however, try to convey the complexity of constraints and debates where appropriate.
- In its most common form, decision-forcing cases, where one or more protagonists is/are required to make one or more policy choices, how these central policymaking dilemmas were resolved is not revealed in the case, although a separate epilogue may do so. The reason is that readers of the case will usually interpret what the protagonist actually did as the “correct” response even if it is deeply flawed.

Obviously, there are some unique aspects to every case, but to be useful in skill-building, a good formal case should feature important elements that the people being trained are likely to encounter again, and that they will be able to draw upon when they confront similar situations. It should also engage students, drawing them in and forcing them to think about what the constraints and options are for the stakeholders in the case. In addition, effective decision-forcing cases usually embrace uncertainty; they don’t have an obvious “right” answer about what the protagonist(s) should do on which all readers will quickly agree. This element of uncertainty is what allows a good teaching case to serve as an effective vehicle for professional skill-building and for collaborative learning and interaction; it should prompt debate among participants in the class precisely because it embraces uncertainty and ambiguity rather than a single correct answer.

Case Study Topics

While public policy and management case studies have some common elements, they also differ on at least two dimensions: the types of problems or dilemmas that they address, and how they are structured. Many public policy cases address *basic questions of policy choice*: should a government privatize its water utility or its public transit system or public pension scheme, for example? Should it rely on a rail transit system or bus transitways to reduce urban congestion? Should it have a universal public pension, a social insurance pension scheme or a system of mandatory private pension accounts to provide income for its aged citizens? What are the likely consequences of different options, both in general and in a particular context?

Other cases involve *implementation and management* issues that are critical to the success of a policy or project. Once a country has decided to build a toll highway from its capital city to that city’s airport through a public-private partnership (PPP), for example, a number of implementation issues arise. How should it design the PPP contract to make sure that the contractor has appropriate incentives? How should it monitor the company that it has selected to be the concessionaire to build and operate the highway to make sure that the quality of materials is what was specified in the contract? How can it best coordinate decisions by and information

flow among multiple stakeholders? Should tolls be set to fully cover the construction and maintenance costs of the highway, even if that means that low-income citizens are not able to afford to use the highway? (For an example, see Gainer and Chan 2016). Or, once Seoul, South Korea has decided to use incinerators to address part of its solid waste problem, how can it work with local communities to address their “Not in my backyard” concerns that could derail the project? (Han, 2019) These implementation and management questions can be absolutely critical to the success or failure of a program or project, but they concern how to fine-tune the policy once its basic structure has been settled.

A third type of problem or dilemma addressed in some cases is issues of professional practice or ethics—for example, how a front-line worker like a social worker can best serve the interests of their clients, or what a police officer should do if they observe their partner using excessive force.

A final type of case problem is what can be called “technical cases.” These usually involve the analysis of quantitative data and involve practice in specific analytical techniques to answer questions like, how can we best optimize the flow of patients through a public health clinic to maximize the utilization of scarce personnel? Technical cases often include substantial appendices with quantitative data that participants must analyze to justify their arguments.

Structures of Formal Cases

The other major dimension of formal cases is how they are structured. There are four main types of cases: decision-forcing cases, retrospective cases, lesson-drawing cases and policy simulations. These different cases offer distinctive advantages and disadvantages.

What are called *decision-forcing cases* usually feature a single protagonist or a collective body that has to make a decision within a limited period of time. The case opening generally introduces the protagonist(s) and his/her/their strategic dilemma. The case closing typically outlines what the major options are and sets a deadline for reaching a decision. The protagonist(s) needs to evaluate the options and make a recommendation or decision. Readers of the case are not told what the decision was, or what impact it had, except perhaps in an epilogue that is revealed at the end of class. The objective of decision-forcing cases is generally to identify the most promising options available to the protagonist(s) and the advantages and disadvantages of each option, what constraints they face, and the likely reactions of other stakeholders to each option. The student has to make a decision—to take a stand—walking “in the shoes” of the protagonist.

Decision-forcing cases have several distinctive advantages and disadvantages. On the positive side, they make excellent classroom teaching vehicles for stimulating discussion and forcing students to analyze information and “take a stand” on which options to choose. On the negative side, there is a risk that they may create a false impression of a single decision point or suggest that the protagonist has more autonomy than they really have, when the process may actually be very complicated and require complex negotiations and multiple approvals. Similarly, decision-forcing cases may not be the optimal format for tracing complex implementation processes and how they play out over time, since these cases generally focus on a specific decision point in time. Finally, while decision-forcing cases work well in the classroom, they are likely to be less useful as guidance to a policymaker in making a specific decision, since they don’t offer clear lessons or even describe what the actual outcome of the situation was.

A second major type of formal case is what are called *retrospective cases*, exemplified by Princeton University's Innovations for Successful Societies' case program. As the name suggests, retrospective cases *do* reveal what happened in a policy conflict, and they frequently trace a process over an extended period rather than having a particular focal point in time. Thus, they are particularly useful in looking at implementation issues. They try to understand why a set of actions and outcomes took place, and they frequently offer some evaluation of outcomes. They may offer critiques of whether decisions and actions taken were the most appropriate ones, but these critiques are usually offered as the reflections of one or more participants in the case rather than as "best practices" or as specific recommendations for action to be emulated.

Retrospective cases also offer several distinctive advantages and disadvantages. On the plus side, they facilitate a longer-term perspective and better drawing of connections among multiple policy decisions than is typical of decision-forcing cases. They also reduce the focus on a single "decision-maker as hero" and a single decision point that is typical of decision-forcing cases; this is probably a more realistic portrayal of the policymaking process in most cases. On the downside, knowing which policy or implementation option was chosen may lead participants to give inadequate attention to potential alternatives to the choices actually made; even if those alternatives may actually have been better, they are likely to be discounted by students since they weren't chosen.

Another potential downside of retrospective cases is that they may reduce student engagement in the classroom since they know how the case turned out—they are no longer fully in the protagonists' shoes. But retrospective cases can be adapted to increase student engagement, for example by asking students to imagine that they are in a similar (real or hypothetical) political system facing a comparable choice, or in the same system at a later point in time. The discussion can focus on what policymakers can learn and apply from the experience discussed in the case—what should be done similarly, and what should be done differently, either to avoid the problems encountered in the case, or because the economic and socio-political context is different. Retrospective cases are also likely to be more useful as learning vehicles for policymakers than decision-forcing cases are, since policymaker readers know at least some of what the consequences of a particular course of action were, and can draw conclusions from those consequences and perhaps adapt them to their own situation.

A third major type of formal case structure is what can be called *lesson-drawing cases*. The structure of lesson-drawing cases is generally similar to retrospective cases. But in lesson-drawing cases, the authors do draw specific lessons from the experience of the cases, although these lessons may be negative (e.g., specific pitfalls to avoid) as well as positive.

Because lesson-drawing cases are similar in structure to retrospective cases, their advantages and disadvantages are also similar. They frequently allow a longer-term perspective and drawing connection among multiple policy decisions than is typical of decision-forcing cases, and especially facilitate focusing the discussion on how the adopted policy works and why it works in a particular context. But lesson-drawing cases also may lead to underplaying both of the constraints on the policy adopted and on shortcomings of the response—especially if the case protagonists were heavily involved in providing information for or drafting the case. In addition, lesson-drawing cases may lead to inadequate attention in the case, and inadequate attention in classroom case discussion, to potential alternatives to the "best practice" adopted.

As with retrospective cases, lesson-drawing cases can be adapted in useful ways by changing the decision-making context. Part of the case discussion can revolve around questions such

as “Would this policy that seems to have been successful in Country A be feasible in Country B, and would it be successful there as well? If not, why not?”

A fourth major type of case structure is what are called *policy simulation exercises*. In these cases, participants are generally assigned to one of several roles, which they play throughout the exercise. These simulation exercises frequently have the objective of building cooperation in a team, building negotiation skills and thinking about how to resolve a conflict among multiple stakeholders, in addition to resolving a particular policy choice or implementation dilemma. Harvard Business School’s Everest simulation, for example, deals with the team-building skills needed for an expedition to make it to the top of Mount Everest, while the Harvard Kennedy developed a simulation of a hypothetical pandemic—of zombies. Many standard decision-forcing and retrospective cases can also be adapted by the instructor to work similarly to simulation exercises, by assigning teams of students to play the roles of specific stakeholders in the case and present their perspectives during the case discussion.

While these four types of case structures are the main ones used in public policy teaching, several variations on these structures are possible. Perhaps the most common variant is the “multi-part case.” In these cases, students are usually given a typical decision-forcing case and have to decide how to analyze and respond to a particular situation. After that discussion is finished, they get a second part of the case. The second part may be a simple epilogue that is discussed in the last few minutes of class. But it may address a whole new set of implementation dilemmas that arose after the initial decision, and be the focus of an entire additional class session. In “disguised” or “composite cases,” the identities of the case participants are disguised or changed to protect identity and privacy of those participants. This is particularly likely to be used in professional practice cases. An associated risk, of course, is that participants in the discussion may not have the same level of engagement in a case if they feel that it is “less real.”

Sizable public affairs case libraries have been developed at the Harvard Kennedy School, the University of Washington’s Electronic Hallway, Princeton’s Innovations for Successful Societies and the Leadership Academy for Development at Stanford University in the United States, as well as at the Australia and New Zealand School of Government and the Lee Kuan Yew School of Public Policy at the National University of Singapore. The World Bank’s Global Delivery Initiative also offers a number of cases, mostly of the lesson-drawing type. The Hubert Project at the University of Minnesota is developing a set of multi-modal cases (Kilonzo, Sandfort and Liu 2016).

Available case libraries in public policy are much smaller than those for business cases, however. There are several reasons for the relative paucity of public affairs cases. Perhaps the most important is the absence of professional incentives for faculty at public affairs schools and related faculties to write cases. Most public affairs schools are dominated by faculty who come from traditional academic disciplines (notably, economics and political science), and many public affairs school faculty have joint appointments in, and a strong identification with, disciplinary departments. Training and professional reward structures in those departments reward publication in disciplinary journals where hypothesis development and testing through quantitative methods are often valued over the empirical richness of single or comparative cases. Moreover, journal practices of blind peer review provide at least a veneer of quality control that may be perceived by colleagues as lacking for policy cases that are published outside of this peer review process. Thus, the supply of formal public policy and management cases remains small, especially for cases covering countries outside the United States.

Use of formal policy cases as classroom teaching objects is also hindered by the absence of a public affairs equivalent of the UK-based Case Centre, which aggregates case collections from many business schools throughout the world in a single portal. Individual public policy case collections also vary widely in how searchable their case libraries are, the search terms used, whether teaching notes are provided, and whether cases are provided free or require payment of a licensing fee. Many participants in public policy degree and executive education programs also have stronger preferences for cases that reflect the context of their own political system more than those in fields such as business, social work and nursing, where the problems addressed and potential solutions can be more easily abstracted from specific policymaking contexts.

ALTERNATIVES TO FORMAL TEACHING CASES

The relative paucity of formal “Kennedy School-style” public policy cases is not an insuperable obstacle to utilizing cases as teaching objects in public policy courses, either as the central pedagogical approach or as a supplement to other teaching strategies. Indeed, “curated cases”—a set of materials collected by the instructor that focus on a particular empirical situation or decision—can serve as the functional equivalent of a formal case. Like formal written cases, they can either lead up to a decision-forcing point or provide a retrospective view of a policy. These materials can be either primary or secondary materials or a combination of the two. Like formal cases, they are generally intended not to illustrate a “best” way to address a particular situation, but rather to force students to think about the options available to decision-makers in governmental and non-governmental organizations, and the constraints acting on those decision-makers.

A variety of materials can be used to develop curated cases, and using several different types of materials can help to compensate for gaps, biases and shortcomings in a particular source material. Articles in journals that focus on a particular region (e.g., *Journal of Modern African Studies*, *China Quarterly* and *Latin American Politics and Society*) and journals focused on a particular policy sector (e.g., *Energy Policy*, *Global Environmental Politics*, *Social Science and Medicine*) are particularly useful as sources of curated cases. These articles were generally written for explanatory (hypothesis-testing or hypothesis-generating) purposes—or sometimes simply to provide a rich empirical description—rather than as tools for public policy professional education. They thus may be especially appropriate for teaching undergraduates and research-oriented students such as those in Ph.D. programs more than as part of a course for skill-building for professional students, but they can still be used for the latter purpose. Such articles are usually lighter on theory and high-tech quantitative methods and modeling that are found in flagship journals of academic disciplines, but they often offer a good narrative discussion and rich empirical detail on a case. Similarly, case study chapters in books—or even entire books—can also be very useful for the richness of detail they provide. Indeed, Graham Allison’s *Essence of Decision*, one of the classics of international relations, is essentially an extended case, presented from three different perspectives. While such articles and books usually are written from a particular perspective (or to test alternative perspectives, as with *Essence of Decision*) instructors teaching professional students can either encourage the students to discount that perspective or to consider alternative perspectives if the approach taken in a particular teaching object is not relevant to the learning objectives for the class.

Articles from the print and broadcast media can also be very useful components in putting together curated cases, especially as supplements to primary materials such as government reports, testimony in legislative hearings and other primary government documents. News clips from broadcast media, some of which are posted on YouTube, can be particularly useful in increasing the sense of immediacy for student participants. Obviously, using primary materials is easier when students in the class have a reading and listening knowledge of the language of the country being studied. Having a relatively uncensored and unconstrained local media is also very helpful, but it is possible to construct curated cases even for countries like China where there are restrictions on press reporting, using a combination of domestic and foreign news sources.

A search on Google Scholar (scholar.google.com) to find articles in journals and chapters in books is often a useful first step in collecting materials for a curated case. Such searches are likely to turn up source materials that the instructor would not normally read, but are nevertheless extremely relevant to a particular case. This can be supplemented with Google search to find primary source materials (e.g., government reports) and media reports that can be used to create a curated case. Adding a search term that limits searches to quality media sources such as the *New York Times* and the *Guardian*, which tend to be more detailed, provide lots of information and be less biased, can help to speed up searches for material. The *New York Times'* articles about the COVID-19 pandemic that might be relevant for a course in public management, for example, can be used to discuss US efforts to increase the supply of ventilators (Kulish, Kliff and Silver-Greenberg 2020) and COVID vaccines (Hamby and Stolberg 2021), and why the country encountered difficulties. Similarly, if there are specific national or regional newspapers that are likely to have coverage of an issue and/or a particular policymaking context, searching their websites may turn up materials that would otherwise be missed. For very recent cases, searching YouTube and Google Video for news clips and other video materials can be useful. Once materials have been gathered, they can be winnowed down to a reasonable number whilst trying to preserve a diversity of perspective as much as possible. As with formal cases, developing a set of questions handed out in advance that focus students on the key issues that the instructor wants them to address in a particular case is likely to lead to better quality discussion.

There are many reasons why using curated cases can enrich public policy education. First, many formal cases focus primarily on policy analysis skills and implementation, but there are relatively few cases on the policy process and policymaking skills (e.g., issue-framing, mobilizing diffuse interests, building stakeholder group coalitions and venue shopping). Curated cases can add greater political context than formal cases, especially those in the decision-forcing format, usually provide. Curated cases can help to get away from the “decision-maker as hero” approach that is common in decision-forcing cases, where a single decision-maker can determine policy success or failure. Curated cases compel students to decide what information is relevant and what is not rather than having it done for them by an “omniscient” casewriter. Because different students may focus on different information, this can lead to a broader-ranging discussion. Curated cases may also facilitate the presentation of several points of view (e.g., through opposing op-eds or interest group briefs) and a variety of disciplinary perspectives rather than focusing on the perspective of a single protagonist. In addition, curated cases allow instructors to make use of “the perfect case”: sometimes a real-life situation seems like the perfect illustration of an analytical point that the instructor wants to make, but there is no formal case written on the situation, and writing a case is out

of the question because of time constraints. Developing a curated case provides many of the advantages of a formal case with much less investment of time than researching and writing a case. Finally, curated cases allow the course to cover issues that are very current, and for which both formal cases and independent scholarly studies are not yet available.

Of course, curated cases also have limitations. Because the materials that an instructor includes in a curated case were originally written for other purposes, they often include material that is unnecessary for the teaching objectives of the class. Utilizing multiple materials also means that there is likely to be substantial repetition across those materials. And because many materials are not written to be as free of theoretical or policy biases as possible—indeed, the opposite is often true—they require particular care from the instructor both in selecting materials and in reminding students to be aware of and to compensate for such biases. Although developing curated cases is likely to require a considerable investment of time for the first few cases that are curated, like teaching in a participant-centered style, it is a skill that gets easier with practice. It is also relatively easy to train a skilled research assistant to do much of the gathering of materials.

As with formal written cases, curated cases can be used in several different ways. Instructors can use them the way formal cases are normally used: to stimulate a class discussion that ties analytical concepts developed in a class to concrete situations, making those concepts more “real” to students, and forcing students to “take a stand” on what option to choose or whether the action that was taken was optimal. Curated cases can also be used for memo-writing assignments and as the basis for role-playing simulations. Instructor-developed role-playing simulations are generally far more time-consuming to prepare than cases for discussion because they involve not only gathering materials but also developing rules on how teams interact. Most materials can be used interchangeably; those that have been collected for class discussion purposes can also be used for memo-writing assignments and (usually with substantially more advanced planning) for role-playing simulations.

CASE TEACHING AS PEDAGOGY: PARTICIPANT-CENTERED LEARNING

As noted at the beginning of this chapter, case teaching is often used to describe both cases as teaching objects and a pedagogical method, frequently referred to by its adherents as “participant-centered learning,” though the linkage between the two is not a necessary one. While this method can be used for any type of student, it is particularly associated with teaching in professional and executive education programs.

Participant-centered learning is a pedagogy that tries to use “multilogue,” in which the professor guides student discussion but does not dominate it. Rather than a series of sequential dialogues between the professor and students, students are supposed to learn from one another’s contributions, compelling students to collectively think through analytical problems in a discussion guided by the instructor. The fact that it is a collective enterprise makes it difficult, but also exciting for both the instructor and students as they work together to consider options, constraints and, especially in decision-forcing cases, to take a stand on the issues addressed by the case.

The combination of cases as teaching objects and participant-centered learning can help bring to life theoretical concepts that are often dry and difficult to understand and apply

when presented in the abstract. And as Graham Allison suggested in *Essence of Decision*, it facilitates students moving beyond simplistic “rational actor models”—i.e., that policymakers behave as unified actors who make decisions based on calculations of their own self-interest, albeit with incomplete information (Allison 1971; Allison and Zelikow 1999). Instead, Allison argued, decisions are likely to be influenced by a variety of factors, such as organizational procedures and bureaucratic politics and conflict. In addition to helping students learn to apply a more complex set of analytical skills and concepts to decision-making, they also develop skills in public speaking, negotiation and collaborative learning that they will need to apply in the professional world that they are either entering or are already working in. They learn that it is okay to ask questions of each other, ask questions of the data and other information they are analyzing, and listen and learn from each other. Analyzing cases allows students to test drive their emerging skills and professional judgment in an environment with low stakes. When a skilled teacher and a motivated class interact, case teaching can increase student engagement and learning, and expose them to different viewpoints that they might not otherwise have considered (Pearce 2002).

Case discussions are especially prevalent as an instructional strategy in executive education: experienced practitioners are likely to be impatient both with listening to lectures and with abstract theories that seem divorced from the challenges that they face in their working lives. But case-oriented instruction and theory need not be in conflict—indeed, case studies can be a way to make analytical concepts come alive for students of all types, making it more likely that they will be able to understand and address professional challenges such as building stakeholder coalitions, assessing the behavioral consequences of policy alternatives for policy targets, gaining the confidence and support of front-line workers, and scaling up promising pilot projects.

For most instructors who use cases as teaching objects and/or participant-centered learning as a pedagogical style, neither is an end in itself; they are instead used in service of a broader set of learning objectives for a course, not to the exclusion of either teaching objects or classroom management strategies. But research on participant-centered learning suggests that in terms of absorbing and being able to utilize concepts, students are much more likely to remember those concepts and be able to immediately apply them when they were actively engaged in acquiring them. Many students may have difficulty remembering material in a theory chapter in a textbook about stakeholder management or a lecture about policy implementation because it seems very abstract outside of a particular context. Having to apply theoretical knowledge and think about how it can help to make better decisions and what the problems are that are likely to arise in applying that knowledge in concrete situations is especially useful for students in professional development training programs. It can also help to develop professional judgment that can be applied over a career facing complex ambiguous situations where there is no obvious single right answer. This can be especially useful where “professional reasoning and knowledge application” (Lynn 1999, 104, 105) are more important than acquisition of “essential facts and descriptive information.”

Because a discussion-oriented format inevitably involves some sacrifice of control over the pace and direction of the class, case instructors have developed a series of strategies to ensure that their learning objectives for specific class sessions are met (see for example, Lynn 1999; Andersen and Schiano 2014, Chapter 3). Many case instructors utilize class session plans that include both time management and whiteboard management components. Time management plans divide the class session into a set of “discussion blocks” with rough time allocation for

each; these allow the instructor to avoid missing key parts of their learning objectives for a class session because of lack of time. Similarly, whiteboard management plans can help instructors to highlight the main analytical points that they want to make through the way that the plan is organized. Using the whiteboard can also allow the instructor to filter and reframe student comments in a more felicitous way than originally presented. Using role plays—either brief or extended—can help to put students “into the shoes” of case protagonists, while breakout groups can give students who are reluctant to speak in front of an entire class a less intimidating venue in which to participate in discussions.

As noted earlier in the chapter, participant-centered learning does not require exclusive or even dominant use of cases as teaching objects or class discussion as the sole pedagogical style. Discussion of cases can also be used as a supplement to more traditional texts and journal articles, and many case-centric instructors use a combination of traditional lectures (which can be delivered asynchronously online) and class discussion. Some instructors alternate sessions built around lectures and case discussion sessions. Case discussions and lectures can also be integrated within a single class session in what can be called the “reality check method”: an instructor may, for example, introduce one or more theoretical perspectives or analytical techniques in the first part of a class session and then use a case to apply that to a real, usually problematic, situation to assess how well they explain decisions actually made and implemented (retrospective cases) or help to make choices among multiple policy options (decision-forcing cases). Another way to use cases is what can be called the “drop-in” method. Here an instructor might employ cases from recent news articles (e.g., the *New York Times*’ articles on US COVID policy) for a relatively small portion of a class session.

There are several constraints on using the participant-centered learning approach with formal or curated cases as the primary teaching objects. Building a set of cases that work well for particular classes can be very labor-intensive. A participant-centered teaching methodology may also be more difficult to manage in classroom contexts where many or most students come from cultures where student participation is not encouraged, and it may pose difficult questions of managing power dynamics and stereotypes among students, including those along gender and ethnic lines. In addition, a mix of pedagogical strategies may be desirable for novice case teachers, since guiding case discussions is a skill that develops over time and with practice.

PARTICIPANT-CENTERED LEARNING ONLINE

The challenges of participant-centered learning are magnified in an online teaching context, and online teaching by necessity grew in importance during the COVID-19 pandemic, when many universities shut down in-person instruction. A number of resources emerged to assist in the transition (see for example Levy, 2020). Many of the principles and strategies that are used to manage participant-centered learning in an in-person format carry over easily to the online context, notably the principle that overall course learning objectives should drive the flow of topics that are addressed throughout the course and the specific cases chosen, rather than the other way around. Use of pre-planned but flexibly implemented discussion blocks and an overall time management plan is also widely applicable in online teaching, as are signaling major discussion issues in advance through study questions to help students prepare for the class discussions. As in in-person classes, use of in-class polls, breakout groups, role plays and

simulations can help to keep the discussion student-focused rather than a series of dialogues between the instructor and students. Other strategies associated with participant-centered learning such as whiteboard plans can be adapted to the online context using the screen-sharing function—and completed whiteboards can even be saved and emailed to students after class, so that students do not need to be distracted by scribbling notes down during class.

Online instruction also facilitates a clearer division in delivery between material that was previously delivered through in-class lectures and discussion-focused class segments; the former can be shifted to asynchronous platforms that give students more flexibility in when they access that material. A good rule of thumb is that if transmission of information is the main objective of a class—for example, summarizing and contrasting different theories of the impact of globalization—asynchronous lecturing is likely to be more efficient; this asynchronous lecture can be followed up with a synchronous online case discussion that serves as a “reality check.” It is also useful to provide students with a vehicle such as an online discussion board to raise questions or offer comments on the asynchronous lecture material, and it can be included in grading for the course. Of course, it can be difficult to ascertain whether students are actually listening to the asynchronous lectures without some sort of verification mechanism such as quizzes.

CONCLUDING THOUGHTS

There is no single right way to use cases as teaching objects or to engage in participant-centered learning. The Harvard Business School’s “case dominant” approach to learning through cases, with most courses structured around the case method, is unlikely to become the dominant approach for any professionally focused public policy program for many reasons, including paucity of relevant cases, focus on technical skills in policy curricula, and lack of interest and preparation by faculty in case writing and case teaching. And the growing availability of retrospective and lesson-drawing cases as alternatives to decision-forcing cases, make the “decision-maker as hero” approach of decision-forcing less dominant in public policy case teaching.

Case teaching—both as teaching object and pedagogical method—should be seen as one of many options available to teachers of public policy for all types of audiences—undergraduate, graduate-oriented and professional. How and how much (and how well) it is used will vary according to the topics, learning objectives, courses and audiences of particular programs, as well as institutional norms and the pedagogical skills and style of individual instructors.

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4. Teaching public policy by interactive pedagogy

Bruno Dente¹ and Giancarlo Vecchi

INTRODUCTION

The paradigmatic change from a ‘teacher-as-a-speaker’ to a ‘teacher-as-a-designer’ implies efforts by instructors (and by the connected higher education institutions) to combine the preparation of learning content with the design of the ‘learning experience’: its objectives, activities, instruments and technologies, and spaces. The debate particularly stresses the need to transform the classroom into an active, student-centred learning space (Davidson 2017), mainly through interactive pedagogical methods; this orientation is recognised even in the public policy field where ‘interactive teaching ... is seen as facilitating greater engagement and deeper learning than traditional lecture-monologues’ (Alford and Brock 2013: 125).

Interactive pedagogy methods are designed to promote theoretical knowledge transfer and understanding by improving students’ engagement and encouraging them to participate in discussions with the teacher and their peers. These strategies promote active teaching and learning through a wide range of techniques, such as case studies, role playing, games, simulations, team-working, etc. Such an orientation has a long history, remembering here only the call by educational reformer John Dewey for a learning environment in which students learn by doing and not by sitting passively listening to lectures (Dewey 1933; Dworkin 1959: 124). The COVID-19 pandemic has served to further reinforce the interactive pedagogy approaches and reinvigorated the related debate because of the need to maintain effective interactions during remote teaching and learning with the use of digital platforms and devices (Carrillo and Flores 2020).

This chapter illustrates the main points of the debate regarding active teaching and learning in the public policy field, particularly stressing the role of educational digital games. The following section presents the reasons for the relevance of interactive pedagogy to public policy teaching. The third section explains the contents and uses of the main interactive pedagogy techniques. The fourth section presents the contents of an educational digital game called P-Cube, as an example of a serious game coherent with the aims of the active teaching strategy. Finally, the last section focuses on methods to assess the results of interactive pedagogy use in teaching, and presents final comments regarding the main pros and cons emerging from evaluation studies of previous experiences.

¹ This chapter is dedicated to my mentor and colleague Bruno Dente, who passed away mid-January 2022. We started to plan the contents of this contribution during the preparation of an ICCP 2021 panel in Barcelona, where we presented the structure of the P-Cube educational digital game and some of the premises of this chapter for the first time. He was seriously ill at the time, but continued to support me in developing the different parts.

INTERACTIVE PEDAGOGY, ACTIVE TEACHING AND LEARNING, AND PUBLIC POLICY

Interactive pedagogy highlights the need to modify conventional teaching approaches, advocating for the use of a student-centred rather than a teacher-centred approach to achieve better learning outcomes. The traditional model entails a one-way monologue, in which the lecturer discusses a topic with the purpose of transferring information from the supposed expert to the student, who is considered an ‘empty vessel’ that remains alert to receive and store information. The weaknesses of this approach, as underlined by educational research, can be summarised as follows: a) limited retention of information and knowledge (Dale 1969); b) precarious motivation and inspiration (Walker 2009); c) incomplete learning, with reference to skills that go beyond the transfer of information, such as critical and independent thinking, judgment, and creativity (Alford and Brock 2013); and d) limited student attendance at traditional lectures (Herreid 1994).

Interactive methods use different approaches and objectives. Participants are actively engaged in debating the content of and contributing to the lectures with their teacher(s) and peers. The level and quality of engagement are the means by which to improve students’ motivation and learning satisfaction, which follows the recognition that they have some control over the lecture. Interactivity can trigger the mechanism of self-efficacy, or the student’s belief regarding their capability of achieving the learning outcomes. Consequently, an interactive class can develop connections between the lecture content and the students’ interest, and foster their will to reciprocate in response to the encouragement to contribute (mutuality); it can also facilitate the generation of new examples and insights (variety) that are useful for appealing to students’ interests and relating to the characteristics (social, economic, political, etc.) of the contexts in which they live.

The claim for interactive pedagogy in public policy teaching reflects these aims, justified by the need to meet the following three expected outcomes of a course:

- to transfer the meaning of concepts and theories,
- to help students understand the application of concepts and theories to reality and to different contexts,
- to couple the content of concepts and theories with other needed skills and competencies of students.

One of the main goals of interactive teaching is to help lecturers explain theories, models, or research methods that are the core of a discipline; the engagement needs to be directed towards the intended learning objectives, and this means that the courses should be designed ‘... as a means for drawing out concepts, or a “foil” for which the concepts help make sense.’ (Alford and Brock 2013: 245). Consider, for example, teaching and learning policy decision-making processes and the characteristics of the incremental model proposed by Lindblom; debates based on real or fictional cases, or the use of role-playing techniques, provide opportunities to clarify the differences between ‘partisan mutual adjustment’ and ‘rational-synoptic’, ‘bounded-rationality’, and ‘garbage-can/multiple streams’ models (Walker 2009; Dente 2014). To quote another example, the case study strategy characterises the method used by Susskind and colleagues to teach the concept of the ‘best-alternative-to-a-negotiated-agreement’ and the role of a negotiator in consensus-building processes (Susskind et al. 2005).

A second connected goal associated with the use of interactive teaching and learning concerns the linkage and integration of policymaking theories with concrete situations, contemporary real issues, and the practice of decision-making (Nagel 2002). The objective is to move teaching beyond the use of abstract examples for theoretical illustrative purposes to a deeper level of engagement that shifts students' thinking towards the use of theory as an analytical tool to solve real problems. This perspective is even more relevant for courses directed at public managers and practitioners; in this case, the opportunity to present situations that they have encountered or that they can deal with in day-to-day public sector practices is often underlined (Alkadry and Miller 2002).

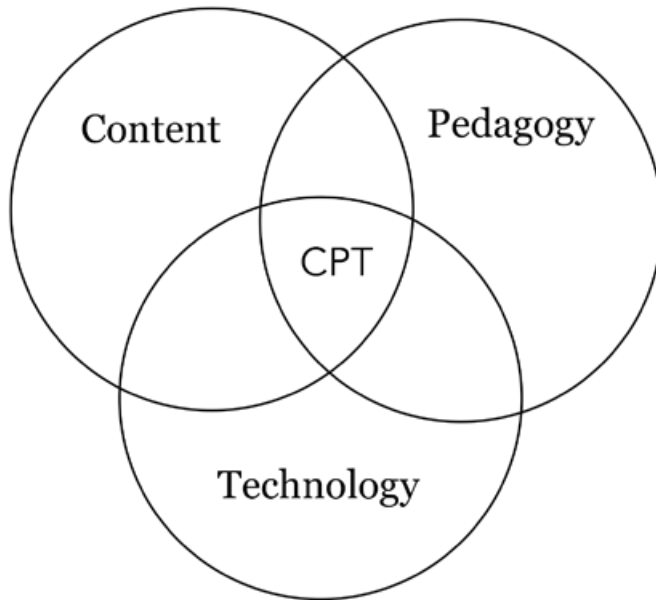
The third category reflects the objective of using active teaching and learning techniques to improve students' capabilities; a goal that goes beyond the transfer of specific concepts and the application of knowledge to concrete situations. Critical thinking skills, analytical capacities, judgment, and independent thinking are some examples of these factors (Alford and Brock 2013; Oros 2007). Moreover, considering both the structure of international classes and the global context in which students will work, as well as covering the roles of practitioners in public and private organisations (and some of them will be academic researchers), interactive teaching and learning can improve soft skills such as leading a group, interacting with different cultures, and developing communication skills. Scholars also underline competencies regarding information management, mediation and facilitation, interactions with the general public, ethics and values, technical writing, reports and presentations (Averch and Dluhy 1992; deLeon and Steelman 2001; Davidson 2017).

In the last decades, the debate on active learning methods has also developed in connection with the diffusion of the distance teaching/learning modality, a trend that exploded during the COVID-19 pandemic (Carrillo and Flores 2020; Hodges et al. 2020; Loepp 2021). Distance education exists in many forms; it started with correspondence courses and grew into educational television in the last century. Then, during the mid-1990s it evolved into learning on the web and, later, through digital devices (Perry and Pilati 2011). Remote teaching and learning can be organised in different ways. Digital platforms and tools allow synchronous and asynchronous communication and collaboration, expanding the opportunities for students to attend courses. Moreover, courses can be organised in hybrid or blended modalities, which are fully delivered through digital platforms or delivered face-to-face but with the use of digital tools in class. This evolution underlines the role of technological supports in implementing different active teaching methods.

TECHNIQUES TO SUPPORT INTERACTIVE PEDAGOGY IN TEACHING AND LEARNING PUBLIC POLICY

Many techniques can be used to improve interaction in class and student participation and motivation. For example, Stone (2012: 39) described her way of explaining distributive conflicts in which equality is the goal; she used to deliver a cake to her public policy class, asking students to come up with an equitable solution for dividing the cake among themselves. In other words, as observed, she used an object as a means to discuss a concept (Alford and Brock 2013). The field has developed in the recent decades because of the evolution of digital technologies and devices. A useful framework for analysing the pros and cons of the different techniques is one that considers three variables, as shown in Figure 4.1: the content goals to

reach, the pedagogical aims and processes, and the technological support needed and its role in achieving the expected outcomes (Mishra and Koehler 2006). The content goals are the specific package of theories and concepts to teach and learn, and they are reflected in both the teacher's knowledge and mastery of the subject, and the expected levels of students' competence at the end of the course. The pedagogical aims and processes are the classroom techniques used as vehicles to transfer the planned knowledge and to motivate the students. Technological support represents the use of specific devices to facilitate teaching and learning processes. The intersections among these three variables, represented in Figure 4.1 in terms of overlapping closed curves (as in a set diagram), are the parts of a course based on the simultaneous use of specific interactive strategies.



Source: Authors' elaboration from Mishra and Koehler 2006: 1025.

Figure 4.1 The content–pedagogy–technology framework

In this section, using the above diagram as a guide, we discuss some of the main techniques used to implement interactive pedagogy strategies. These are: a) the case method, b) simulations and role playing, and c) educational serious games.

Case Method

As explained in the previous chapter by R. Kent Weaver, the use of the case method in education has had a long history, including in its application in teaching public policy and public administration (Lynn 1999; Herreid 2011); it is considered a valuable strategy to help students interpret real-world contexts and acquire problem-solving skills (Pearce 2002; Brooke 2006).

In the present chapter, it is worth pointing out that, as a pedagogical strategy, the case method should be able to improve participants' engagement and facilitate in-depth learning. The aim is to come up with a structured environment where students are motivated not only to focus on completing tasks, but also to have concern for learning and understanding what is revealed through the case example. In other words, the use of cases involves a participant-centred teaching and learning process. In order to accomplish this objective, the design of a course (or part of it) based on the case method needs, first, specific teachers' expertise to help students understand and interpret the case. A second relevant factor is the definition of the interaction process among students and between the instructor and the class. There are a variety of venues for presenting cases, such as discussion, debates, trials, and public hearings. The discussion approach is perhaps the best known one (Herreid 2011; Weaver, chapter 3 in this volume). Considering the increasing popularity of online courses and virtual classrooms, the implementation of the case method needs some attention and caution (Brooke 2006; Andersen and Schiano 2014). For example, in classes in which students are located in places with weak internet connections or if they live in countries that ban certain platforms, overcoming these limitations is essential (Perry and Pilati 2011). In addition, students (beginners or seasoned) or practitioners could be new to the online format, so instructions to communicate and debate online (netiquette) are useful. The literature on the case method analyses the critical factors that can undermine the use of this technique (Leone 1989). Example of these factors are: a) the apathy, when students seem passive and unengaged; b) the refusal of some participants to express their views; c) students acting as compulsive talkers; d) team discussions that take irrelevant directions.

Simulation and Role Playing

Simulation and role playing are terms for techniques that are often used interchangeably; in general, there is agreement that simulation is a broader concept than role playing. In public policy courses, simulations are tools that mirror real-world situations; they are not necessarily perfect models of a policy reality, but they give students an understanding of policy processes short of actually being involved in them (Smith and Boyer 1996). Simulations encompass a variety of tools for helping students connect abstract concepts and theories with real-world phenomena and for increasing information retention (Baranowski and Weir 2015). An example of a simulation is when users can modify the values of input variables and the parameters of a model to determine and monitor the impact of their course of action over time on the different parts of a system (e.g., a community condition, an ecological environment) (Ku et al. 2016). Role playing is a specific declination of simulation exercises; it entails students assuming the roles, in a safe environment (the class), of someone else to explore their motivations and positions and to act as they would in a given real scenario (Shafer 2016; Ladousse 1987).

The use of these strategies in public policy, public administration, and political science courses has a long tradition because in such classrooms pure laboratory experiments are not possible or ethical and '... instructors in these fields have turned to simulations as ways to allow students a laboratory-like experience' (Silvia 2012: 399; Woodworth and Gump 2005; Asal and Blake 2006). Moreover, the literature stresses objectives such as the improvement of critical thinking and the application of key concepts and knowledge gained through readings and lectures to real (or realistic) problems.

Examples of the use of simulations and role playing in public policy courses can explain their success (see Boyer and Smith 2015 for a useful list). One of the main teaching subjects

of application is policy decision-making; here, simulations and role playing help students and practitioners understand the differences between rational and political policymaking models, increasing their comprehension of the complexity of decision-making processes in different policy sub-systems (Bots et al. 2010; Ku et al. 2016). Other applications are focused on the legislative processes in local, national, and supranational venues, involving international relations as well; simulations in these contexts imitate real-life decision-making settings in which participants play the roles of different policy actors, try to manage a particular issue, and arrive at a choice (Spooren et al. 2018). Examples are the Model United Nations (Cicchi et al. 2021), The American Democracy Game and the games of iCivics.org in the US, and ‘policygame.it’ in Italy. An increasing number of applications regard environmental and sustainability policies with the aim of introducing the dynamics of non-linear systems and public wicked problems (Rinfret and Pautz 2015; Ku et al. 2016; Cairney and St Denny 2020). The so called ‘policy lab’, which consists of the organisation of a collaborative space in which participants interact with stakeholders in designing policy solutions, can also be included in this family (Wellstead, Gofen, and Carter 2021).

In terms of pedagogical objectives, these techniques are of value beyond the improvement of participants’ interactions, intrinsic motivation, and other skills, such as communication. This is because they allow the iteration of tests, enabling greater retention of concepts which can increase long-term learning of the cognitive knowledge and skills required for students and practitioners to become competent in handling complex problems (Ku et al. 2016). In terms of course design, the literature stresses the need to focus on only a small number of significant concepts and to plan, in advance, every element to involve in the exercise such as the scenario explanation, the ground rules, the role assignments, the deadlines to perform the tasks, and the role of an instructor in coaching the groups. Finally, the debriefing step concludes the exercise; it allows the participants to explain in their own words the reasons for the choices and their experiences, and the teacher to summarise the major points and how they relate to the subject under study (Boyer and Smith 2015).

The technological side of simulation and role playing includes both *non-digital* (Rinfret and Pautz 2015) and *computer-based supports* (Ku et al. 2016). For example, the characters involved and the fictional scenario should realistically account for the social and/or natural phenomenon in a defined policy context. The aid of tools, such as computer simulation models (with virtual reality software), is now considered essential to a better realistic representation of the phenomenon, and to better balance the enjoyment experience of the participants with the challenging tasks. In any case, teachers should verify the possible barriers to technology use and the prior knowledge and skills of the participants. Experts underline that simulation itself cannot lead to effective learning if the design and facilitation are not properly conducted. Pedagogical barriers (e.g., lack of study resources and inadequate teaching preparation and professional development) may hamper a course success, and clarity in how a technological model can assist transparent and systematic simulation procedures may be lacking. The construction of a computer-based simulation requires collaboration between content and programme designers to maintain coherence with the learning objectives (Jamil and Isiaq 2019). More elements are summarised in the next section because computer-based simulations and role playing share many characteristics and critical features with digital educational games.

Active Education Through (Digital) Serious Games

Serious games are analogue or digital games whose primary purposes are different from those of entertainment games; the definition of explicit, structured rules and goals distinguishes them from simple playing activities. There are different types of serious games, such as those oriented to develop individual and group competencies (education and training, also used with the term ‘edutainment’), to test behaviours in realistic settings (simulations), and to facilitate collective dialogue and problem solving among stakeholders (policy games) (see Dörner et al. 2016; Olejniczak, Newcomers, and Meijer 2020).

The use of games in education and training has had a long history, dating as far back as the time of Plato and evolving into, for example, military and war-themed games. The term ‘gaming’ for social science purposes emerged during the early 1960s (Duke 1974; Wilkinson 2016). As reported by many authors, the oxymoron ‘serious games’ was introduced by Abt (1987), who pointed out that games are effective in teaching and training for different types of students because they are highly motivating, and they communicate the concepts and facts of many subjects very efficiently: ‘The oxymoron *Serious Games* unites the seriousness of thought and problems that require it with the experimental and emotional freedom of active play.’ (Abt 1987: 9–11; see also Breuer and Bente 2010; Djaouti et al. 2011). Moreover, games create dramatic representations of the real problems being studied. Players can assume realistic roles, face problems, formulate strategies, make decisions, and obtain quick feedback on the results of their choices. At the same time, a teacher can evaluate students’ performance without the distortions of direct examinations and real-world try-outs emerging (Abt 1987). Another relevant contribution was offered by Duke (1974), who developed many serious games to simulate organisational strategic management, even for public sector institutions (games in the urban field, such as Metropolis and METRO-APEX). Using the term ‘policy game’ or ‘policy exercise’ interchangeably with ‘serious game’ in more recent publications, he underlined that this tool is ‘relevant for strategic problem solving because – in a well-structured, transparent and effective way – it can put into operation a large number of the lessons that have emerged from the literature that deals with resolving macro-problems’ (Duke and Geurts 2004: 23).

The evolution of digital technologies in the 1980s provided the basis for the development of computer games and the use of digital serious games in teaching, in schools, academic courses, and training (Djaouti et al. 2011; Dörner et al. 2016). Considering specifically the public policy discipline, Mayer (2009) described the emergence, after the Second World War, of what came to be known as the decision sciences, which includes operations research, systems analysis, and policy analysis (see also deLeon 1981). He explained: ‘In the 1960s, systems and policy analysts therefore started modifying and developing a broad range of gaming practices and methods. Hence, a variety of gaming formats evolved, such as scenario-based gaming, simulation gaming, and seminar gaming’ (Mayer 2009: 829). Mayer also underlined the role, in the US, of the Rand Corporation (Brewer 1974; Shubik and Brewer 1972), and of journals such *Simulation & Gaming* in improving the theory of gaming and simulation, assessing the use of games in different public policy sectors (land-use planning, air pollution, management of urban development problems; see the *SimCity* game in 1989), and even in education and training. During the same decades, many authors highlighted the need for critical reviews and evaluations of games and simulations based on comprehensive, rational, and linear policymaking, drawing attention to emerging studies on bounded rationality and incremental decision models (see Lee 1973; Brewer 1975).

In any case, the improvements in ICTs allowed for much more effective, easier-to-use, and interactive games, and with these characteristics they became useful to policy-oriented learning. After decades of proposals and experimentations, including in Europe (Mayer 2009), at the beginning of the new century the potential for the use of serious games in public policy had a new impulse. Interest in this field is well represented by Sawyer and Rejeski's (2002) white paper, in which they suggested the relevance of such tools for public organisations and underlined the different categories of serious games (e.g., simulation, information, propaganda, awareness, and therapy). Among their suggestions is the use of such games for education and training (see also Wilkinson 2016; De Lope and Medina-Medina 2017). More recently, the concept of *gamification* has emerged to describe aspects of the mechanics of gaming and the gameful experiences in educational contexts (Krath, Schürmann, and von Korflesch 2021).

Considering the use of serious games in teaching and learning public policy, the rationale underlying their adoption should first be motivated in terms of content transferability to concrete situations. Games are considered useful ways to illustrate how theories work and how they might be adapted to real-world conditions and contexts. The literature often underlines the need to use examples that can represent the complexity – even if in a simplified manner – of down-to-earth decision-making processes in policy courses; first, in terms of the multi-actors operating in policy arenas and of the strategic interactions among them, as emerging from the works of Allison; Simon; Lindblom; Cohen, March, and Olsen; and Kingdon, to quote the authors of well-known contributions; and, second, considering the technical, physical, and economic characteristics of many policy (often wicked) problems (Mayer 2009; Bots et al. 2010; Shin 2021).

Other contributions propose the use of games (digital or not) in policy evaluation to teach and educate participants (students, practitioners, and stakeholders) about effective strategies to achieve an expected outcome in a particular policy issue (Olejniczak, Newcomers, and Meijer 2020).

Educative digital games to teach and learn often rely on simulations and role playing. For example, iCivics is a platform for educational online games and lesson guidelines to support civic education teaching modules. Brown (2018) presented a reflection on the use of games to teach negotiation strategies in the sector of climate change policies. Another area concerns the use of (digital) games to teach qualitative and quantitative methodologies (Asal et al. 2018).

In general, the main issue with the use of games in policy analysis, which continues to be debated, concerns their capacity to transfer concepts and theories of the policy process in such a way that reflects the complexity of multi-actor arenas and policy problems, despite the simplified (often fictional) world they represent. Focusing on some game elements is therefore useful for discussing the expected pedagogic outcomes. Following the well-known taxonomy of Benjamin Bloom on educational goals, the literature presents three different outcomes: a) affective and motivational, b) behavioural, and c) cognitive learning (Krath, Schürmann, and von Korflesch 2021; see also Krathwohl 2002).

Gaming is considered highly effective in linking the entertainment aspect with intrinsic motivation and attention. It induces learners' motivation to repeatedly reflect on the content (playing at the same level more than once to achieve the learning outcomes or improve performance), and it introduces new, rich, and mediated content along with exploratory in-game learning activities that allow attention retention and knowledge expansion beyond the intended learning outcomes set by the teacher (Lameras et al. 2017). Games can also improve self-efficacy when performing the tasks and winning the game competition, including feeling

satisfied and developing a positive attitude towards the learning contents. Games in education can improve behaviours, such as engagement and participation, social collaboration and teamwork, and knowledge transfer. In terms of the cognitive aspect, the expected results of game adoption are the improvements in critical and creative thinking, content understanding, contextualisation, and concept adaptation (Seaborn and Fels 2015).

The technological aspects are obviously relevant. Games can be structured around elements such as missions, levels, timers, points, badges, leader boards, avatars, quests, social graphs, fictional content, and collaborative learning steps, in which knowledge creation emerges through discussion and negotiation between individuals and groups. These attributes define the mechanic, aesthetic, and interactive processes of games, influencing the game experience of players and the ways in which the gaming process engages and motivates students, and promotes effective learning (Lameras et al. 2017).

Moreover, digital educational games highlight the issue of the relationship between teachers, students, and computers, including the digital skills of the former in interacting with devices and the game structures. These issues imply strong cooperation between teachers and digital programmers in the design phase (Lameras et al. 2017) to reach an optimal balance between entertainment and learning, with solutions that need to be challenging without being unmanageable (Breuer and Bente 2010).

There have been studies on the evaluation of educational serious games, and they have developed variables and indicators to assess user experience. A proposed framework considers four categories: a) gaming experience, b) learning experience, c) adaptivity, and d) usability (Law and Sun 2012; Moizer et al. 2019). The *gaming experience* concerns the player's one-to-one relationship with the game. It involves variables such as game challenge and gaming competence of the players (absorption and immersion of the gamers in a goal-driven activity), as well as 'affect', which refers to confidence, self-efficacy and attitudes, and tension. The *learning experience* is associated with game effectiveness and the definition of clear goals, features, and feedback to help players concentrate on both the game and the learning tasks. Here, the relevant elements are content appropriateness (encompassing, among other things, ethical considerations for issues such as inclusivity and non-discrimination, for example), integration between activities and the knowledge and skills to improve, feedback during and after the game to increase reflection on the experiences and results achieved, extensibility of the game content with other supporting instruments and tools, and media matching (use of the appropriate media). *Adaptivity* refers to the characteristics of a game tailored to suit the needs and goals of a course and its users (featuring, for example, repeating tasks). Finally, *usability* concerns the interface and ease of playability, control of the game environment, fidelity/verisimilitude in terms of correspondence between the real and virtual content, and graphic and audio factors.

This taxonomy of dimensions represents a relevant guide to teachers who are involved in innovative teaching and learning programmes. It invites an in-depth consideration of the nature and characteristics of the available technological tools in matching the course objectives.

DIGITAL EDUCATIONAL GAMES IN PRACTICE: AN OVERVIEW OF P-CUBE (PLAYING PUBLIC POLICY)

This section contextualises the discussion above by presenting the characteristics of a digital educational game designed to teach policy decision-making and to increase an interactive

pedagogy strategy, which is directed to both students and practitioners. The game has four sections, focused on different policy areas: urban innovation, social inclusion policies, European Union decision-making processes, and science and policy decision-making. A course (or part of it) can be planned using missions from a single section or from the different policy areas, with the aim to focus on the main strategies that characterise the decisional processes of the subject. To support the complete explanation of the theoretical model and to cover the use of the complete set of decisional strategies, a stand-alone module was designed focused on urban innovation decision-making.

Contents and Learning Objectives of the Game: How to Decide About Innovations in Complex Policymaking Processes

The roots of the course and the connected game² are anchored in the lessons derived from the vast literature on decision-making processes in pluralistic societies, which were developed in the last 50 years (Dente 2014). Lindblom (1959, 1979) clarified that stalemate or incrementalism is the frequent result of conflicts and negotiations among the different actors operating in policy arenas, even when solutions are available.

Starting from this assumption, the course attempts to address the following essential problem: how can decisional processes be designed to overcome obstacles that are likely to arise in attempts to introduce an innovation (not incremental, not necessarily paradigmatic) as a solution to a collective problem? The basic idea is to ask players to put themselves in the shoes of a policy innovator who tries to steer a proposal through the complexities of public policymaking. In this journey they will meet a wide number of characters (politicians, bureaucrats, social activists, private companies, experts, etc.) who may help or, in some cases, fight against the innovation, or remain uninterested. They will be confronted with a series of choices between different alternatives until the end of a journey that, in almost all the steps, will be successful. In analytical terms, the policy innovator should adopt a decisional strategy to alter the behaviour of the actors and to mobilise a sum of resources (political, financial, legal, and knowledge; depending on the case, the player should mobilise one type, or more than one type of resources) that are sufficient to overcome the opposing coalition/s. The selection of the appropriate strategy among a range of options (strategies that are grouped in categories such as: altering the complexity or/and the density of the network, altering the stake of the decision, altering the resources, altering the interactions among actors, altering the time of decisions, etc.) is a relevant part of every step to accomplish the mission; in other words, to decide about an innovative choice. With this approach the game aims to offer a learning experience that does not try to simplify the complexities of public policymaking, or to provide ready-to-use solutions to decisional problems. The general assumptions of the course are that innovation in public policies is possible, there are several ways to achieve it, and the process of learning how to do it can even be fun.

² P-Cube (Playing Public Policy) is an educational digital game designed by Bruno Dente and realised with the collaboration, for the public policy contents of: S. Busetti (Fondazione Politecnico di Milano and Teramo University), I. Perez Duran (University of Barcelona), C. Radaelli (Science for Democracy and EUI Florence), G. Vecchi (Politecnico di Milano), J. Ziller (University of Luxembourg), and ALDA – European Association for Local Democracy; the TU Delft GameLab realised the digital mechanics of the game.

Focusing on the stand-alone module of urban innovation (15 missions), every mission contains an attempt to introduce a relevant innovation in the fictitious urban setting, such as a new infrastructure, a new procedure, a new policy, a new project, etc., meant to address a collective problem and overcome the obstacles of the decision-making process. The virtual location is Euroville, a middle-sized city in a large European country, whose constitution defines three levels of government (national, regional, and local) and the European Union level. All the missions are designed in a fictional way but are based on real cases in order to situate the theoretical concepts in concrete situations; these were reconstructed by the team from their own previous research and based on a literature review, website analysis, and interviews with sectorial experts. Examples are the decision about the construction of a mosque, the integration of migrants, the use of an old industrial area, the management of waste, the transport governance at a metropolitan scale, etc.

The target audience are MA and MSc students in planning, public policy, urban sociology, and management; and practitioners (professional planners, non-government organisations and civil society organisational representatives, and public employees at the local level). The team tested the prototypal version with positive results in terms of comprehension and functionality, both in academic classes (also with international students) and in practitioner training courses.

Pedagogical Objectives

The pedagogical aims cover many of the topics discussed in the previous sections. Active learning dimensions are ensured through the students' involvement and interaction while playing the game. The first part of a course module includes a theoretical introduction by the teacher. Then, the class is divided into small teams of a maximum of five or six people, which compete with one another to find the correct solutions and complete all the missions – the competitive dimension acts as an additional motivator for students. To find the correct solution in every mission, the team members should engage in discussion; they will consider the nature of the mission, the information provided, the actors involved, and the available alternative strategies to mobilise the needed resources. The interaction among the team members should increase their capacity to understand and use relevant concepts, as well as improve their soft skills, such as cultural comprehension (particularly in international classes), teamwork management, communication, and self-esteem. The role of a facilitator concerns avoiding negative dynamics (e.g., inability to proceed to the next mission, passive students, and a mechanical searching for the solution). The cases are meant to be 'debatable', which means that, in the debriefing at the end of a mission, the instructor's feedback should not only point out the general lessons that can be learned from the case, but also attempt to facilitate a general discussion of the possible alternatives and outcomes that would have been reached in different contexts. A specific handbook is provided, along with the necessary additional materials, to support the teacher's and facilitator's activities. At the end of the game, the performance of every team is summarised in a chart that can be used to determine the final mark, in combination with other learning evaluations (a test, a case study, a project work, etc.).

Technological Features

The main challenges in designing the game were the transformation of the first version realised on paper (in fact, on cards and printed instructions) into a digital one, and the improvement

of the ‘game experience’ when using digital devices. The main solution considers the game competition among the teams; the scoring follows a leaderboard in which the teacher will decide for each mission the time allotted to reach the correct solution and in which the number of mistakes to complete a mission will also be reported. The graphic dimension is the other relevant aspect of the digital design, and it concerns, for example, the bar to show the progress toward conclusion, avatars, etc. Moreover, the opportunity to play the game in person, online, or in a blended mode is of value. Finally, the digital solutions allow the opportunity to add many other levels and policy areas, and the game sets may be adapted in the future to consider other contexts beyond the European one.

CONCLUSIONS

The use of active learning in public policy courses was evaluated to be substantially effective in achieving learning objectives (see, for example, Baranowski and Weir 2015; Ku et al. 2016; Herreid 2011). To assess the results, scholars who adopted these methods mainly used survey techniques, through questionnaires, to collect students’ answers after exercises. In some examples, the surveys were repeated to consider some classes in parallel, and, in others, two cohorts of students were involved, following the course in different years. Self-assessment strategies were also implemented. In some cases, instructors were involved in the ex-post evaluation. Assessments derived from pre-post experimental techniques with control groups were rarely used. Some papers reported empirical results obtained from exams or final grades as measures of the effectiveness of active learning methods. However, this approach was criticised because of difficulty in isolating the effects of other variables on students’ learning and engagement.

The focus of the assessments was ‘what’ the students learned during the exercise, the development of certain skills, and their opinions of the specific methods used and their characteristics. In any case, gauging what the students learned was considered more difficult than determining how much they enjoyed a specific active learning experience (Baranowski and Weir 2015).

Among the relatively positive results emerging from these analyses, was the need for teachers to develop their course design competencies. This was especially the case when adopting digital tools to support active teaching and learning strategies, both because of the need to manage relations with digital programmers and to satisfy the expectations of digital native students and participants.

Returning to the more general topic of active learning and student-centred methods in teaching public policy, one of the main findings of the evaluations was the effectiveness of these strategies in representing the complexities of policymaking processes and of policy problems, with the participants being invited to apply the concepts learned in class to ‘real-world situations’. Moreover, these approaches contributed to students’ critical thinking and judgments regarding policy alternatives, considering the different actors’ interests and values (beyond the context simplification that also characterises the most developed digital games and simulations) (Silvia 2012; Haigh 2020).

These conclusions refer to one of the issues characterising the use of active teaching and learning in public policy courses, as underlined by some scholars in their analysis of the future of public policy studies. Many courses are often focused on a battery of methods (mainly quantitative) that are useful in policy analysis, and on competencies that should be part of an

education that can support the orientation to evidence-based policymaking. However, at the same time, it seems unquestionably relevant to improve the coverage of ‘real’, ‘down-to-earth’ policymaking processes in policy areas or sub-systems (e.g., health, administrative reforms, justice, environment and climate change, and food, etc.); skills that are important to improve the capacity of policy experts to take on roles in the dynamics of policy changes regarding the ‘big questions’ of our times (e.g., among many, Ostrom 2002; Cairney 2015; Radin 2019; Dunlop and Radaelli 2021).

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5. Teaching public policy to mid-career MPA students: Recalibrating the online balance

Evert Lindquist

INTRODUCTION

This chapter reflects my experience teaching a graduate course on ‘The Public Policy Process’ for mid-career professionals, which focuses not only on developing policy analysis skills to inform policy advising but also knowledge of the policy-making process. It does so by drawing on what we commonly call the ‘policy cycle’ heuristic to explore elements of policy analysis, appreciation of the governance context, and developing skills (Lindquist and Wellstead, 2021). This course was developed for online delivery well before the COVID-19 pandemic, as part of the University of Victoria’s MPA Online program, which started in late 2003. This chapter provides insights about the positive features of online delivery based on the author’s experience with a successful course. It also reports on how decisions by our university to ‘pivot’ to a different course-management system led to adopting different pedagogical approaches and striking new balances (e.g., less reliance on discussion threads, real-time discussion forums, flexibility for students dealing with family and work demands), while maintaining the high level of student-instructor interactions.

For most instructors, the ‘pivot’ was not just about embracing a new course management system, it was also about discovering for the first time how to teach courses with online tools and digital platforms, even if many instructors had been increasingly relying on course websites for sharing class notes, slides, and other course resources. For many instructors, online instruction was a lesser pedagogy, especially for those vested in performative approaches in lecture halls and seminar rooms, and for those with less interest in the different ways in which students learn, and where they learn. Indeed, online courses can be an equally effective and sometimes a better way to deliver education and professional development. Claims that ‘online’ courses are necessarily ‘inferior’ to in-class formats (e.g., Kingwell, 2020) are easy to challenge. Indeed, online courses – which can take a variety of forms – can be better suited to meet diverse learning and teaching styles, provide means for greater and more efficient one-on-one instructor contact with students, and further better writing and analysis by all students taking a course. Moreover, once an instructor teaches online, they will broaden their perspectives on pedagogy and, as a result, likely design face-to-face courses in different ways.

This chapter has four parts. The first part reviews design considerations for any policy course, with a view to the particular policy course I taught. The second part provides more details on the course itself: the number and typical profile of students, the course’s aspirations and rhythms, and the assignment and incentive structure. The third part considers the adjustments made in light of the COVID ‘pivot’ and the resulting improvements. The conclusion reminds readers that the chapter reflects my preferences as an instructor, and the role of the course in the larger MPA Online program. Indeed, with the ever-increasing array of pedagogical tools and resources offered by digital technologies, there are many ways to design, deliver,

and enhance courses that reflect instructor styles, student audience, and the course's role in broader curricula whether a primarily face-to-face or online course.

TEACHING PUBLIC POLICY: DESIGN CONSIDERATIONS AND STRIKING BALANCES

Whether to be delivered in person, online, or hybrid formats, several factors should be considered when designing a policy course: the nature and mix of students; the location and focus of the course; the instructor's views on where students' learning best occurs; the role of theory in teaching practical skills; whether to focus on team or individual learning; and if cases should be relied on. This section reviews these factors and the balance struck for 'The Public Policy Process' course.

The Profile and Mix of Students

Policy courses should be designed differently depending on whether the students are early in their careers or have considerable public or non-profit experience, and take into account the diversity of educational and professional backgrounds. If comprised of mid-career students, the course should draw on their experience and provide concepts and theoretical frameworks to help them make better sense of the worlds in which they work. Even here the mix of student backgrounds can vary considerably: mid-career cohorts might be comprised mainly of policy specialists (in which case a course might focus on different analytic tools, ways to gather data, forms of engagement, etc.); or, there can be considerable diversity in professional experience (e.g., policy advising and analysis, program management, front-line service delivery and managing networks, specific corporate services, and central agency experience), and more effort must be made to show the relevance of such diverse experience as essential for developing, designing, and implementing workable policies. The ADMN 556 course I have taught falls into the latter category, where students with program delivery and corporate services backgrounds are similar to early-career students with a need to learn more about policy-making dynamics, even if they are subject-matter experts and well versed in a range of skills, including the production of succinct, professional briefing notes and presentations.

Location and Focus of the Course in a Program

Public policy and administration programs vary as to whether they focus on public policy *per se* vs. public management and administration, and whether they intend to produce policy analysts with expertise in certain policy domains and/or specific analytic skills, or more generally trained public servants. Even if focused on developing policy analysis skills, programs can still differ substantially with respect to how deeply they develop certain research and analysis skills, including focusing on specific quantitative or qualitative methods. If a policy course is located at the beginning of a program, it is more likely to be focused on imparting the 'lay of the land', exposing students to broader realms of policy-making and the range of policy tools. If taught towards the end of a program, it is more likely to be synthetic, drawing on other courses in the program and geared towards tackling specific problems and issues, providing more of a 'capstone' or final project experience. If a 'pure policy' program, it may

have several courses dedicated to specific phase of the policy cycle (e.g., policy research and analysis, policy implementation, policy evaluation, performance management). ‘The Public Policy Process’ is one of two final courses in a generalist program for mid-career students. It functions as a *de facto* capstone experience, building on student learning from prior courses on governance, research methods, strategic planning, communications and engagement, and strategic human resource management, etc.

Views on Where Learning Occurs

Course design is variously informed by an instructor’s view of how to foster student learning at different phases of their careers, what an instructor is familiar with, and program-wide imperatives covering all courses. Such views and constraints become especially important to recognize and reflect on as one shifts to online pedagogy. Do students learn only ‘in the room’ or ‘outside the room’? Do students learn from instructors, from practitioners, or from other students? How much learning occurs when students work on their own or through team experiences outside the classroom? In the classroom, do students benefit more from Socratic engagement and dialogue, or grappling with problems? For ‘The Public Policy Process’, instead of relying on recorded lectures, students have been incentivized to become familiar with selected concepts by reviewing reading (supported by ‘reading guidance’ from the instructor) and postings, then encouraged to explore the salience of concepts with other students through real-time dialogue with colleagues, and finally, to consolidate their learning by applying the concepts to their selected policy or work-placed challenge (the latter is reviewed in a ‘one-on-one’ forum viewable only by the instructor and student).

Connecting Theory to Practice

Policy analysis involves not only problem definition and identifying workable options and advice for policy-makers for the problems they are grappling with, it is also about appraising the evolution and state of relevant policy domains, the governance and stakeholder context, and drawing on available relevant research. With this in mind, how much theory should be shared with students in a graduate course is an interesting question for professional programs, especially when ‘craft’ or developing appreciation of the nuances of the policy-making context is as important as deploying practical tools (Wildavsky, 1979). It strikes at the heart of Lasswell’s (1970) distinction between ‘knowledge in’ vs. ‘knowledge of’ policy-making. Concepts and theoretical frameworks, if chosen carefully, provide established practitioners with language to describe, parse out, and illuminate their practice worlds. Moreover, it enables them to more efficiently share and analyze their respective experiences and the problems they are working on for their policy briefs, and it demonstrates to students the existence and value of the substantial literature on these topics.

However, usually the foundational elements of theoretical frameworks, rather than their implications for scholarly research, are most illuminating (and often, all that instructors and students have time for). Depending on where a policy course is in a program (e.g., introduction, specialized policy course, or capstone), the relative weight given to practice and theory should shift, as should decisions about which theoretical frameworks to include. For ‘The Public Policy Process’, students are introduced to sophisticated yet nuanced theories of the policy process (e.g., Weible and Sabatier, 2017; Althaus and Threlfall, 2021) and frameworks

for understanding a broad range of relevant phenomena and dynamics, including policy networks and communities, policy problems, engagement, decision-making, implementation, and evaluation and performance management. These theories and frameworks enable instructors to show students how policy problems differ with respect to their complexity, history, stakeholders, and institutional contexts, and enable students to more productively lesson-draw from promising practices from other jurisdictions.

Team Projects vs. Individual Assignments

Collaboration is valued highly in the public sector and, for early-career students, learning how to lead and contribute to teams is an important professional skill. Mid-career students, though, are usually already aware of the need for and importance of teams, due to their experience. Moreover, mid-career students typically have far less time to engage in team activities during the course, especially when combining part-time MPP or MPA programs and work. On the other hand, many mid-career leaders would benefit from learning concepts and theory about managing teams for performance and dealing with tensions and conflict, but this is best dealt with in leadership or strategic human resource management courses prior to taking a capstone policy course. In ‘The Public Policy Process’, the mid-career students do not work in teams, but are expected to explore concepts and compare their experiences and class projects in the group discussion forums, where they become familiar with the topics of other students, and better appreciate the unique aspects of their own.

Case Method vs. Individual Assignments

Many programs rely heavily on cases to explore the complexity of policy challenges. Cases – whether developed in advance or ‘live’ – can be used for class discussions and team competitions, and to tap different perspectives and skills of students. Cases can expose early and mid-career students to the intricacies of policy-making, especially when accompanied by guest practitioners from the public sector. Even when mid-career students have considerable experience, the case method provides an opportunity for them to deal with new challenges, take on different roles, analyze them more fully from multiple vantage points, and lever concepts and theoretical frameworks to animate discussions. But cases focus the attention of classes on a single challenge, which may not be representative of many other challenges, and they require considerable energy to prepare and finalize. An alternative is to rely on ‘live’ cases, where instructors present a team with contemporary issues, for which they have to seek out pertinent literature and data, redefine the problem, develop options, and identify strategies for implementing recommended approaches. This fosters information-gathering and sense-making skills, and is especially useful for early-career students. Some programs can opt for relying heavily on cases; others might use them selectively. ‘The Public Policy Process’ relies on yet another alternative: students to identify their own ‘on the horizon’ issue, so that each is essentially working on a ‘live case’, which can be juxtaposed against the work of colleagues and show an intriguing array of contemporary issues.

Designing public policy courses involves balancing several design considerations. There is no shortage of pedagogical approaches to consider and balances to strike – much depends on the instructor, the larger program and student make-up, and the specific role a course plays in the full curriculum. No judgment has been made here as to which balance might be superior

for all policy courses – students with different backgrounds and aspirations could be well served by any of them, and learn much from courses designed by instructors with different pedagogical instincts – but I have pointed to the choices made when designing ‘The Public Policy Process’. The next section considers how these design balances were operationalized to meet this particular course’s changing delivery and operational formats.

FROM DESIGN CONSIDERATIONS TO A COURSE: STRUCTURE, RHYTHMS, INCENTIVES

This section considers how the design principles, balances, and choices were converted into an online course structure. ‘The Public Policy Process’ was delivered as an online course for several years before the COVID-19 pandemic. It was delivered using CourseSpaces, a Moodle-based platform, as part of the MPA Online program, explicitly designed and delivered as an asynchronous but interactive professional program. This larger program format sought to cater to students across the mountainous province of British Columbia (our university is located in the capital city) and Canada who could not leave their jobs or families to pursue graduate-level studies, often working in smaller towns or wanting the convenience and flexibility afforded by asynchronous instruction. Interestingly, occasional efforts by our School of Public Administration to explore whether to introduce more synchronous parts to courses were not embraced by most students in the program – since that was what they found attractive about the program – so the asynchronous approach persisted.

‘The Public Policy Process’ functions as a *de facto* capstone course in an MPA Online program, usually one of the two last courses in a ten-course program, which students take while working at regular jobs. When they take the course, they are familiar with asynchronous online pedagogy and interacting with other students and instructors via discussion threads for units. A typical class has about 24–30 mid-career students who variously have policy, operational, corporate services, or program management experiences from all levels of government (municipal, regional, provincial, federal, Indigenous, and special purpose agencies) and the non-profit sector. These students are typically self-funded, but often secure modest financial support from their employers. Students identify candidates for a ‘live’ work-related issue for their policy-brief assignments, with one selected, developed, deepened, and refined over the semester. This ensures they have good access to data and information from their workplaces, helps them prepare for ‘on the horizon’ issues, and better balances learning needs with work demands. The course sequentially and selectively introduces concepts and theoretical frameworks to help students locate features of cases and contrast them with those of colleagues. This process informs analysis and the development of options and implementation strategies. Instead of team projects, the course relies heavily on group discussions, allowing students to get a firm grip on concepts and theories, and offering them opportunities to contrast their cases with others.

The course is comprised of 12 units delivered over 12 weeks, with each unit covering a different topic (see Table 5.1). The students have two major assignments: (1) a scoping policy brief, which builds into (2) a full policy brief. This final briefing note provides background; a literature review; a stakeholder and policy community analysis; a review of existing policy mixes; options for consideration along with multi-year costings for each option; and a recommended option and detailed implementation plan, including performance monitoring,

engagement, and communications plans. The final briefing note is about eight pages long, in single-space format with headings and sub-headings, and multiple annexes. The students negotiate and refine their topics with the instructor at the front-end of the semester, usually focusing on challenges they will confront in their jobs over the next 6–12 months, or enabling them to branch out into new directions, especially if they want to broaden their horizons for new career opportunities.

Table 5.1 Unit topics for ADMN 556 ‘The Public Policy Process’

Introduction: What is Public Policy?
Contemporary Policy Challenges and Policy Success
From Policy Research to Policy Analysis and Communicating Insights
The Policy Cycle: Aspirations, Heuristic, or Competency Framework for Policy Work?
Defining Problems and Identifying Stakeholders
Mapping Policy Communities: Advocacy Coalitions, Networks, Partnerships
Anticipating Policy-Making Dynamics: Looking Forward and Backwards
Design: Instruments, Mixes, Co-Production
Implementation Strategies and Pathways
Performance Reporting, Evaluation, Delivery
Engaging Citizens and Other Stakeholders
Coming Full Circle (or ‘Policy Cycling’ Back)

With the exception of the first week, the course has a regular weekly rhythm:

1. By Thursday noon reading guidance for the next week is posted on the course website, providing tips on what to skim and what ideas or insights students should draw from the readings, along with one or two questions to focus on for their Monday posts. Students have time to do the readings over weekend (and discussed below, they use the weekends to work on their ‘one-on-one’ posts to further their projects).
2. On Monday evenings, students post 250–300 words in response to focusing questions based on the readings. Until they post, students cannot see what their class colleagues have written. This creates incentives for students to review the readings thoroughly and make a considered and cogent contribution. Once all the posts are received, the instructor consolidates all of the posts for each discussion group (usually four groups in total) into a Word document, to lower the transaction costs of reviewing the posts, and adding three questions to animate the group discussions.
3. Participating in the Wednesday one-hour discussion forum is a course expectation. Each forum begins with a check-in to see how students are progressing in their professional, personal, and university lives, and to get reactions to, and clarifications of, ideas in the readings. The rest of the forum explores the three discussion questions designed to encourage students to start thinking about how to apply knowledge and skills in a practical way. This also provides students with an opportunity to share professional experiences on those topics. On Thursday morning, the instructor provides a roll-up of key observations and implications from across all of the discussion forums, keyed to the discussion questions but with a view to the ‘one-on-one’ posts.
4. Each unit is completed when students make their ‘one-on-one’ post, which can only be viewed by the instructor. This post applies the learning from earlier in the unit so that students can move their policy brief project along in bite-sized chunks. These are posted by

Saturday evening or early Sunday, so the instructor can review them and provide feedback on Sunday afternoon.

This pace is demanding but keeps students on track. Students are contacted five or six weeks before the course starts to warn them of the pacing and expectations, and to identify their preferred times for the Wednesday forums. Over the years, most students indicate they prefer to do coursework on the weekends. A significant portion of the course grade (40%) rewards prompt posting on Mondays and Saturdays and regular forum attendance. The weekly ‘one-on-one’ postings are treated as ‘work-in-progress’, often as part of a rolling effort to narrow down or redefine the focus of the briefing note; a process which often extends through to developing policy options and, ultimately, a recommended option and a detailed implementation plan. For the instructor, the weekly review of all of the one-on-one postings is a formative undertaking, akin to being the executive director of a big policy shop, overseeing and commenting on the work of many analysts working on diverse topics.

These weekly submissions help ‘build’ the larger note, but these posts cannot just be aggregated to create the final policy brief. This is because notions about what the problem is and how it should be tackled evolves weekly as students gain new conceptual and theoretical insights from the course, as well as novel perspectives from each other. When students draft their notes, they must ensure their previous postings are well integrated and work logically together. Typically, students change the problem definition or arrive at different conclusions in light of new evidence over the weeks, requiring a recalibration of the point of departure and arc of their notes to ensure continued coherence. This process also demonstrates the iterative nature of policy analysis. Students receive feedback, guidance, and encouragement each week in the ‘one-on-one’ forum – adjustments in how they approach their analysis are folded into their first or second briefing note depending on what phase of the course they are in. Exemplar notes from previous classes are posted on the course website, so students can see finished notes, the range of topics and the diversity of analyses undertaken, and high-quality writing and analysis. It also allows students to see how components of the course fit together to form a whole.

Students have opportunities to present their notes in their discussion forums at key junctures in the course. As the course progresses, they increasingly share their various analytic takes in these forums as they explore different elements of policy analysis and better understand the evolution of the policy domain and stakeholder environment, phases of the policy-making process, and specific needs of the clients they are preparing the notes for. Having each other’s topics as comparators sharpens how they think about their own topics. However, a drawback of the course structure is that students do not get much opportunity to review the work of colleagues outside their discussion forum (a list is shared of all the topics students are tackling), although some students monitor the work of colleagues in other forums.

PRE-COVID ONLINE TEACHING AND LEARNINGS FROM THE PIVOT

For decades, universities and colleges have delivered courses on a distance basis, to serve students in professional programs, meet accreditation requirements, and provide continuing education to students in the workforce. This began with correspondence courses, later often supplemented by in-person or video recordings. In recent years, correspondence approaches

have been enhanced by new technologies, such the internet, the web, and digital platforms and devices. Each wave of change has contributed to enhancing the ‘distance’ experience, gradually allowing such courses to become more interactive, with more opportunities to engage with both instructors and other students. The digital era allows access to a bewildering array of ‘learning objects’ (e.g., articles, digital books, websites, videos), and interactive tools are available for online and face-to-face courses. Digital technology has changed the landscape of possibilities and expectations so much that it is increasingly rare to find face-to-face courses delivered *without* a digital platform or supporting course management software. Indeed, post-secondary institutions, once reluctant to invest in state-of-the-art digital platforms for online programs, began to do so as more and more instructors and students demanded access to digital course platforms for face-to-face courses. This has led to the blurring of boundaries between what are ostensibly distinct approaches to delivering courses: face-to-face and online.

One of the more interesting pre-COVID-19 features of ‘The Public Policy Process’ compared to other courses in the MPA Online program was its pacing and the approach to discussion forums. Rather than have an entire class engage in weekly or bi-weekly rounds of discussion relying on asynchronous discussion threads from 20 or more students, four distinct discussion forums were created, so students would not be overwhelmed with posts from the whole class. It was easier for them to deal with six or seven other colleagues, and meant they could not freeride off other posts. Once students uploaded their Monday postings, only then could they review others’ posts. As the instructor, I could then post two or three discussion questions for each discussion group (each handled by dedicated discussion threads) and, over the next two days, students exchanged views on those threads, with the instructor looking in and commenting on the posts. However, CourseSpaces provided options to allow students to ‘look into’ but not contribute to the other discussion forums, enabling cross-discussion group learning and even commentary across the forums. On Thursdays, I would provide a roll-up or summary of various themes covered by all the forums to close out the unit, with students contributing their ‘one-on-one’ posts on the weekend.

When the COVID-19 pandemic swept across Canada in spring 2020, universities and colleges had to assess quickly their ability to switch to online forms of course delivery. For many instructors and administrators, unfamiliar with online instruction and associated technologies, this was a shock and great unknown. Fortunately, many pockets of these institutions had developed pertinent expertise and supporting IT systems and software were available. However, the big question was whether these institutions had the systems and personnel to move all of their courses over to online delivery, when only a small percentage had previously been delivered fully online. For the systems administrators a big issue concerned obtaining the best course management software and access to sufficient server space to support all courses moving to full online delivery. Though to shift to fully online teaching in this context may have appeared to have dramatically transformed the way many courses had been delivered, it should be seen as a partial – albeit significant – change, since most courses already had web-based ‘shells’ and some degree of web-based structured content. However, the challenge was to encourage and support them to record lectures or deliver them in real-time online, redesign tests and examinations for online formats, and adjust other features of their courses. The University of Victoria moved from the CourseSpaces platform to a D2L product, Brightspace, without consulting instructors, since the systems staff believed that Brightspace had more features, could link with other software products, and supplied its own servers. To its credit, the University provided an enormous amount of transitional support, but, interestingly, the new course man-

agement system, as well as the arrival of Zoom as a reliable interactive learning and meeting software (a substitute for the University-supported BlueJeans), forced non-trivial changes to ‘The Public Policy Process’, already fully delivered online.

The software shifts created new constraints and opportunities for delivering the course, requiring a rebalancing in how it was delivered. First, although the Moodle course software was less polished than Brightspace, it was more intuitive and easier to work with: students and the instructor could efficiently see a course’s entire architecture and the trajectory of discussion threads could be surveyed and navigated very efficiently. Second, with Brightspace, instructors could no longer enable students to see into other discussion forums, so relying on smaller discussion forums necessarily meant restricting dialogue among students to their respective discussion groups. Third, navigating discussion threads in Brightspace was far more difficult: posts are surrounded by far more white space and larger lettering, part of the posts could first be seen and then would have to be fully ‘opened’, and fewer posts could be seen on a given page. For a course that sought to engage busy students working in full-time positions, these were not trivial changes. On the other hand, the arrival of Zoom, which quickly replaced BlueJeans as the University’s preferred video software, once security issues had been dealt with, represented a compensating development. Indeed, Zoom was incorporated directly into the Brightspace system, along with a host of other capabilities for sharing videos and other learning objects. It was also easy to record Zoom meetings, which could also be used as learning objects, particularly valuable when capturing interventions by guest speakers to whom students would otherwise have had time-limited access and for supporting students who needed to miss a class for health, family, or professional reasons.

With this new online software landscape, I decided to forsake the asynchronous discussion threads flowing from the Monday postings. I developed a ‘business case’ for the next groups of MPA Online students about why it would be best to shift to ‘synchronous’ discussion forums on Wednesdays, each an hour long. The primary reasons were that this new approach would save them a great deal of time and that they would have an opportunity to learn more directly and efficiently from each other. Furthermore, there would be four standing forums, with the times chosen after canvassing all of the students about their preferences during that day. I would meet them half-way by providing separate ‘roll-ups’ of the Monday posts in each discussion forum (the six or seven posts would all be reformatted for easier review) along with the three discussion questions that would animate the Wednesday forums. The discussion questions and four roll-ups were posted to the entire class so that all students, if they chose to do so, could review the posts of the other three groups. And, even though there were strong incentives in the course for students to post in a timely fashion and take part in the discussion forums, students were allowed to join other forums if their schedule changed. Alternatively, I could record the discussion forum, and they would have to review and post their comments on the discussions of their colleagues.

Having taught ‘The Public Policy Process’ twice since the start of the COVID-19 pandemic, I can report that the shift in delivery was successful. It is a demanding course, but students evinced a strong preference for the synchronous dialogue forums. They appreciated interacting with each other and the instructor. That said, more than an hour for the discussion forums would have been too much for students and the instructor alike. Very few students ever missed a forum and, when they did, it was usually because of family, work, or personal reasons. After an absence, students either took advantage of dropping into other forums or reviewed the video recordings, reporting back to their groups with comments. Even though many students

were weary of work-related Zoom meetings, they nevertheless seemed to appreciate the Zoom discussion forums, presumably because they were able to exchange ideas and think freely outside their ‘workplace boxes’. The quality of writing did not decline due to not having the asynchronous discussion threads, largely because the Monday postings still had to be succinct and professional, and students continued to ‘write-up’ to the higher quality posts.

CONCLUSION

Online pedagogy has long been undervalued by universities and scholars. Evolving student sensibilities and needs in the digital era, along with the imperative to respond to the pandemic, have confronted everyone with the full possibilities presented by digital platforms and tools. Along with online courses, I have continued to teach face-to-face synchronous courses with students, and I have found both equally energizing and satisfying. There are excellent face-to-face and online learning experiences, but we also know, conversely, there are less than satisfactory ones in *both* delivery modes. Once an instructor has delivered an online version of a course, the experience will likely challenge their preconceptions about how learning works, where it really occurs, and what the best ways are for fostering meaningful learning. Indeed, with such experience in hand, instructors will likely alter how they approach the design and delivery of even face-to-face courses. Moreover, digital technologies present so many possibilities for enhancing both face-to-face and online pedagogy that the distinctions between modes of teaching are significantly blurred.

The COVID-19 pandemic forced all instructors to adapt their courses, even if the pedagogical objectives and mix of students in their classes remained the same. What changed was the mode and technology for delivery, which required adaptation to new constraints and possibilities, and striking new balances to ensure the best possible learning experience under the circumstances and perhaps to enhance it. In the case of ‘The Public Policy Process’, the COVID ‘pivot’, enabled by two kinds of software, significantly improved students’ experiences. It is a great example of how new constraints and possibilities can lead to useful modifications. It is telling that, in addition to strongly affirming the revised model of the course, many students would like more opportunities to see each other’s progress on their respective briefing notes. This will be factored into the next iteration of the course, likely with a new ‘opt-in’ forum for work-in-progress since some students are protective of their work-in-progress, while others tackle confidential issues. Ultimately, as contexts evolve, course design will continue to be led by a reflective practice that informs the important choices instructors have to make in order to balance design principles according to what best meet the students’, program’s, and instructors’ needs.

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PART II

TEACHING PUBLIC POLICY THEORIES

6. Theories of the policy process: Ways to think about them and strategies for teaching with them

Christopher M. Weible and David P. Carter

INTRODUCTION

As instructors of professionally oriented graduate courses—and those pertaining to Master of Public Administration (MPA) and Master of Public Policy (MPP) programs, in particular—we often find ourselves balancing complementary and sometimes competing responsibilities. We introduce students to the goals, processes, and products of scholarly inquiry while at the same time helping them apply academic methods and insights for practical aims. Along the way, we attempt to articulate the purpose of generalized and abstract knowledge. We also strive to demonstrate its utility for the sometimes-idiosyncratic conditions, contexts, and occurrences of professional realms.

Perhaps nowhere are these complementary (sometimes competing) responsibilities more evident than in courses focused on policy process theory. Why should students, especially those uninterested in academic careers, be bothered with abstract concepts and logic? Theories are, after all, by definition divorced (to some extent) from everyday experience and practice. Moreover, why would public servants study broad, generalized phenomena as policy processes when many are focused on more tangible, marketable skills such as budgeting, performance evaluation, and data analytics?

Of course, the task of teaching policy process theory is quite different in the context of advanced graduate students, such as doctoral students in the fields of public affairs and public administration. Such academically oriented students may be quicker to value abstract theory, particularly when informing their research. The most consistent challenge we encounter in working with these students is helping them grasp the nuance of various theories—to move beyond surface-level understandings of theoretical logic for a deeper appreciation of each theory's conceptual strengths and limitations, as well as the opportunities that exist for developing the theories in new and promising ways.

In this chapter, we respond to these various instructional challenges by drawing from our experiences to offer ideas for thinking about policy process theories and ways of teaching (with) them. Throughout the chapter, we use the term “public policies” to refer to formal decisions and non-decisions of governments (Dye, 1972). As *public* policies involve governments, they almost invariably relate to *public* concerns and questions of what it means to address (in varying ways and extents) *public* problems, such as protections and liberties, benefits and burdens, and collective and individual wealth, welfare, and happiness.

We use the term “(public) policy *processes*” to refer to phenomena broadly surrounding all things related to public policies. Policy processes involve individuals and associations who are affected directly or indirectly by policy decisions and seek to influence policy decisions (or

non-decisions). They also involve settings, often described as contexts or environments, that shape how these individuals and associations think and act and, in turn, are shaped by these individuals and actors. In addition, they involve politics, which allocate power and assign burdens and benefits (Schneider and Ingram, 1993).

We recognize that describing general policy processes in abstract conceptual terms and logics (i.e., in theories) offers a narrow snapshot of the broad scope of policy research, writ large. However, a focus on policy process theory has the great benefit of spanning the dual purposes of generalized knowledge dissemination and analysis of empirical processes and decisions specific to place, time, people, and impacts. Such benefits are contingent on (among other things) *how* instructors leverage policy process theory in and beyond the classroom. To these ends, we relay what we have learned about teaching policy process theories as generalized knowledge, gateways to the insights of policy process literature, and tools to understand better and navigate real-world policy contexts.

We bring in illustrations from three prominent theoretical traditions within the policy process literature: the Advocacy Coalition Framework, the Narrative Policy Framework, and the Institutional Analysis and Development Framework. However, given the space limitations of a book chapter such as this, we omit detailed descriptions of the three theories; for these, see the relevant chapters in Weible and Sabatier (2018), among others.¹ And although we use these three theories to animate parts of the discussion, we seek wider relevance by positioning our observations and arguments relative to the definition, purposes, and functions of policy process theories, generally speaking.

WHAT ARE POLICY PROCESS THEORIES?

In this chapter and the policy process theory literature, generally, the term “theory” refers to a conceptual apparatus that articulates a logical set of relationships and outcomes underlying one or more aspects of a wider process (in this case, public policy processes).² Under this broad definition, “theory” is more-or-less synonymous with a “theoretical framework” (or simply “framework”) and is sometimes used interchangeably with the label “theoretical approach” (or simply “approach”). Some authors make important distinctions between these words (e.g., Ostrom, 1990), and such distinctions are germane and informative for Ph.D. students and scholars. Nonetheless, we have found the synonymous treatment of the terms most useful in the context of professionally oriented master’s program courses. Theories help us understand the world and make decisions through description, explanation, or prediction (or combinations thereof).³ Their purposes include a combination of description, explanation, or prediction.

¹ Parts of this chapter can be found in Weible, C.M., 2020. “Theories of Policy Processes: Ways to Think about Them and Use Them.” <https://medium.com/policy-process-matters/theories-of-policy-processes-ways-to-think-about-them-and-use-them-9368792ecb50>.

² There are many different definitions of theories in the social sciences (Merton, 1968). We use this because of its simplicity and adequacy in describing policy theories.

³ Theories can also be defined through the frameworks-theories-models distinction, which sometimes affords analytical lucidity (Schlager and Cox, 2018). Other times, however, the distinction can hinder creativity and progress. Policy process theories, as mentioned, refer to those in the study of public policy, as might be found in, but not limited to: Peters and Zittoun (2016), Schlager and Weible (2013), and Weible and Sabatier (2018). Such a focus captures part of the public policy literature but not all.

Theories consist of words that signal or indicate phenomena deemed essential or relevant in policy processes. We call these words “concepts.” Concepts can lean abstract (e.g., trust) or concrete (e.g., name of an employer). As theories are constituted (in part) by identifying and articulating concepts, policy scholars spend substantial time formulating and refining concepts to distinguish their essential and nonessential characteristics (Goertz, 2012). Once important concepts of interest are identified and articulated, we outline assumed relationships between them to render impressions of policy processes’ complex interdependencies and dynamics. We might phrase these interrelations formally as hypotheses, propositions, principles, expectations, axioms, etc. (Weible, 2018). Other times, we describe them less formally in text.

Some scholars have drawn practical lessons from policy theories (Cairney, 2015; Shipan and Volden, 2012; Weible et al., 2012; Weible and Cairney, 2018). The lessons of policy process scholarship are inherently grounded in its primary focus on policy processes. As such, and in contrast to the field of public administration and management, these lessons pertain less to matters of managing organizations and delivering public services and more to general strategies for influencing political behavior, composing persuasive narratives and discourse, formulating and designing public policy conducive for implementation and successful governance, and other surrounding phenomena.

WHAT IS THE RELATIONSHIP BETWEEN THEORIES AND KNOWLEDGE?

Theories emerge from initial empirical observations that are refined, expanded, and sometimes refuted continuously over time. As a result, theories represent reservoirs of knowledge of what we know (and don’t know) about aspects of the world (Weible and Cairney, 2018). Hence, one of the reasons we teach policy theories is to relay what we know and engage students with these insights. Of course, our knowledge about a topic might be tentative, incomplete, incorrect, and open to interpretation. For example, the Narrative Policy Framework offers a systematic approach for analyzing stories in political discourse (Shanahan et al., 2018). Under this approach, stories are (more or less) arguments about the roles different actors are rendered to play in a political situation (e.g., as a hero, villain, or victim) by promoting or demoting a policy solution. Thus, for example, we might never know how to write a persuasive story in political discourse to win a debate, but we know something about the common components of stories and how to analyze them (Shanahan et al., 2018). Theories are not divorced from practice but have been and continue to be informed by it.

A theory, therefore, embodies a dynamic and constant interaction between conducting empirical research and then updating the theory accordingly. It also involves ongoing communications between instructors and students, researchers and practitioners, scholars and professionals. Such exchanges provide a means of generating theory-relevant knowledge, a mechanism of constant checking of the validity of such knowledge, i.e., whether it makes sense, passes external scrutiny, and is practically helpful. As theories develop in response to empirical research, temporal lags and topical gaps inevitably surface and persist between “actual” policy processes and theories. Yet, sometimes theoretical insights endure and inform practice. Ostrom’s (1990) design principles for governing common-pool resources, for example, continue to inform the formulation of public policies.

New theories usually emerge from perceived deficiencies in collective understandings of one or more dimensions of the policy process. With time, we come to take for granted the insights embedded in prior—even groundbreaking—theories. For example, Baumgartner and Jones (2010) elaborated on exiting theoretical logic based on empirical evidence to demonstrate that policy change should not be viewed as solely incremental (per the current understanding) but as a combination of incremental change and occasional punctuations. Similarly, our depiction of advocacy coalitions has grown to encompass not just commonality in policy-related beliefs that form the glue of these political associations, but also their network structures and, increasingly, the resources and activities they wield to influence policy processes (Weible et al., 2012).

Indeed, if students took a course in policy processes in 1991 instead of 2021, our teaching about patterns of policy change over time and advocacy coalitions would be radically different. In this respect, not only is our knowledge about policy processes continuously updating, so are our theories, methodologies, and methods. The result becomes a continuous updating of knowledge and the standards by which any theory, methodology, or method contributes to such knowledge. Thus, effective teaching of policy process theory requires an ongoing dialogue with current and new scholarship. Relatedly, the successful practical application of policy process theory requires engaged practitioners who can draw from the developing insights of contemporaneous research—aided by training in a policy process theory course.

The discussions, thus far, refer to theories in the plural and not in the singular. Many theories populate policy process research because the phenomena in question (public policy processes) are multifaceted, with dimensions of place and time. There are multiple theories to discover and interrogate the different “faces” of the policy process and contrast and compare policy processes across places and times. Furthermore, scholars have developed a suite of different policy process theories because they emphasize the different orientations, perspectives, and values held by their founding researchers. Thus, diverse academic communities and phenomena coincide with diverse theories.

The value that policy process scholars place on multiple theories also serves as a conceptual bulwark against the dogma of the so-called “master” theory. Such a development would replace conceptual variety with homogeneity of thought, parallel diverse research communities with authoritative hierarchy, and organic “grassroots” foci with “approved” theoretical emphases. The best guard against such dogma is to embrace the multiplicity of theory and the accompanying diversity in ontological, methodological, and epistemological orientations. We teach this not by forcing students to adopt different orientations but rather by helping them to suspend their adopted orientation(s) to entertain other points of view. Indeed, any time we teach a course using multiple theories, we assume pluralistic rather than monolithic ways of knowing, although without the expectation that anyone needs to agree with all perspectives.

THEORIES AS A LEXICON

One of the more common difficulties in teaching and learning theories shared across professional, doctoral, and post-graduate contexts is found in the idiosyncratic vocabularies around which they are often constructed. As theories build from concepts, any effort to learn theories necessitates learning new lexicons and, thus, different ways of thinking. Even more challenging, theories take commonly used words or phrases and give them specialized meaning. In

the Advocacy Coalition Framework, for example, students need to understand terms such as “advocacy coalitions,” “the devil shift,” “policy core beliefs,” and “policy subsystems.” In the Narrative Policy Framework, they need to understand “policy narratives,” “narrative elements,” “narrative strategies,” and more. In the Institutional Analysis and Development Framework, two key terms are “action situations” and “institutions.”

Despite the challenge theoretical lexicons present, they are also one of the greater substantive assets that theories offer. We frequently have practitioners say that they had long recognized one or more theoretical concepts in their professional experience but not had the language to talk about it (or them). They often continue to say that beyond providing useful terminology for such phenomena, a theory helped highlight why the phenomena had stood out to them in a clearer manner than had been previously possible. Thus, through their lexicons, theories affect what we notice and how we think. Figure 6.1 visualizes a three-way relationship between the world and our thinking through theories. When we say “thinking” we use the term colloquially in reference to how we understand or make sense of something. We create theories that shape how we perceive policy processes, and, in turn, policy processes shape our theories and thinking. Of course, as shown in Figure 6.1, we can also see policy processes unmediated by policy theories; a point we emphasize further below about reflexivity.w

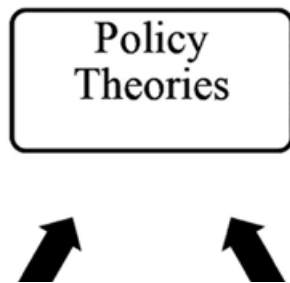


Figure 6.1 *Theories as intermediaries between our thinking and policy processes*

THEORIES AS LENSES AND TEACHING CRITICAL THINKING

One way we often find ourselves introducing students to theory (and those students less familiar with scholarly thinking, in particular) is as different “lenses” through which to understand the world around us. By this, we mean seeing the world from particular ontological perspectives. We cannot escape our individual lens, nor should we devalue it; our lens, after all, forms part of who we are. We will always view the world through our mental faculties, which has benefits, especially in bringing reflexivity into our research (Durnová and Weible, 2020). Yet, we can embrace our lens and still learn to view the world through different lenses. Multiple lenses – that is, multiple theories – can help us see policy processes differently.

The point in learning multiple theories is not rigorous coherence or a singular way of viewing policy processes. Indeed, we want to introduce students to theories that might not mesh with their ontological views of the world. This is, hence, one of the ways that multiple theories foster critical thinking. A range of definitions and interpretations of “critical thinking” exist. We adapt Wade’s (1995) strategies for critical thinking to illustrate the benefits of knowing

Table 6.1 *Linking critical thinking to multiple theories*

Strategies for critical thinking	Corresponding benefits of multiple theories
Ask questions; be willing to wonder	Provide different perspectives that prompt different questions
Define terms	Build from concepts that require definitions
Examine evidence	Prompt questions about appropriate approaches for methods of description, explanation, and prediction
Analyze assumptions and biases	Prompt questions about assumptions made implicitly or explicitly; raise questions about the role of biases in research
Avoid dogmatic reasoning: “if I think this way, it must be true”	Mitigate threats of “theory tenacity” (thinking one theory is always right) and “theory confirmation” (seeking support for a particular way of thinking) (Loehle, 1987)
Don’t oversimplify	Stress limitations and warn against simplification from any one theory
Consider other interpretations	Provide different lenses and, thus, interpretations of policy processes
Tolerate uncertainty	Instills a humility of our mental faculties

multiple theories, as shown in Table 6.1. Table 6.1 outlines how strategies for critical thinking link with learning multiple theories, which includes broadening understandings, increasing tolerance and questioning, and avoiding oversimplifications. If done with credibility, teaching policy process theories, will help students further their critical thinking skills.

THREE STRATEGIES FOR TEACHING (WITH) SOME POLICY THEORIES

There, of course, are near innumerable ways to teach with public policy process theories. We offer the following three strategies that we have found fruitful in our instruction.

Applying Standard Guidelines for Analyzing Theories

The difficulties in learning and using theories reflect their abstractness, lexicon, and complex foci. To assuage these difficulties, we provide a guideline for analyzing theories. The purpose of this is to provide a set of questions to ask for each theory to understand them and compare and contrast them. This guideline aims to help students learn theories through common questions but not push away other questions outside them (See Part A of Appendix 6.1 for a compressed version). In brief, students apply these questions to grasp each theory in classroom discussions.

1. *What is the scope?* Scope refers to the type of questions or objectives that a theory helps answer or achieve. It also refers to phenomena or settings that the theory most likely applies. For example, the scope of the Advocacy Coalition Framework deals mostly with questions involving advocacy coalitions, policy-oriented learning, and policy change, especially in contentious settings. The scope of a theory should not be taught and learned as rigid rules bounding all future research. Indeed, equally important is what lies outside a theory’s scope and what happens when a theory is applied there. People often explore a theory in areas outside its traditional scope to develop new ways of thinking, sometimes within or outside a theory. One great example is Koebele’s (2020) use of the Advocacy Coalition Framework in less continuous and more collaborative settings.

2. *What were the original knowledge deficits or source materials?* All policy theories emerge from prior understandings and perceived knowledge deficits about policy processes. To understand a theory, pay attention to its original inspiration and foundations. Ask what inspired its creation? This helps tie the theory to the field's historical development and the broader literature and give insights into its purpose. For example, the Narrative Policy Framework (Shanahan et al., 2018) emerged partly from a desire to develop a systematic and generalizable approach to studying stories in the policy process. While stories have long been studied in policy studies, none had offered a coding approach to emphasize inter-subject reliability in the data collection.
3. *What are the assumptions?* All theories take something in the world for granted, declare aspects of the world as given, or promote (or demote) the importance of something in the world. For example, some theories might take a particular decision-making setting, such as a legislative session or a multi-stakeholder collaborative situation, and elevate it as the principal unit of analysis. Other theories might emphasize structure, such as rules, in shaping (and being shaped by) human behavior, whereas other theories might emphasize individual agency. Even when the focus is on individual agency, theories might make different assumptions about people regarding their motivations, mental faculties, etc. Finally, theories might accentuate different causal drivers or sources of power; common examples include individuals, organizations, collectives, discourses, and contexts. Some theories, like the Advocacy Coalition Framework and the Narrative Policy Framework, explicitly state their assumptions. For these two theories, the challenge is making sense of those assumptions and what they mean in comprehending and applying the approach. For instance, the Advocacy Coalition Framework's principal unit of analysis is the policy subsystem, a term used to describe a subset of any political system focused on a particular issue in a locale. One of the challenges in studying policy subsystems is that people engaged in them partly construct them. People in the policy process will establish the boundaries of their issue area to curtail conflicts or even break those bounds to foster conflict (Schattschneider, 1960). Studying policy subsystems, thus, is not a question of discovering a policy subsystem that is stable outside of human comprehension. It becomes a search to understand how those involved in a policy subsystem perceive its boundaries and how the researcher perceives it as well. Whereas some theories explicitly state their assumptions, others do not. The Institutional Analysis and Development Framework is not as explicit in stating its assumptions. In this case, the assumptions need to be extracted from a careful analysis of the text. For the Institutional Analysis and Development Framework, this might include the importance of institutions; the possibility for self-governance; the action situation as the principal unit of analysis; and a model of the individual that can vary in what is assumed about their mental faculty, motivations, and preferences.
4. *What are the key concepts?* Theories build from concepts and their definitions. When identifying concepts, ask whether the definition covers the essential characteristics of the phenomenon, distinguishes it from other phenomena, and fosters common understandings and reliable observations and measurements. This question aims to extract the concepts that comprise the theory, recognize them, and strive to understand them. This can be done through careful reading of the text or in-class discussions of them. For example, the Institutional Analysis and Development Framework directs students and researchers toward the concept of institutions as the rules, norms, and strategies that permit, forbid, and require behaviors. This framework organizes its rules into a typology, offers defini-

tions that distinguish different rule types from each other, and creates a method of reliable measures (Siddiki et al., 2019). Moreover, these rules operate not in a vacuum but in configurations to shape (and to be shaped by) action situations. An action situation refers to a collective action setting whereby people interact to achieve outputs and outcomes. For example, a classroom for a course is an action situation that is structured by rules. Students can be directed toward identifying the boundary rules of how students and professors enter and exit the space, the rules that establish positions of professor and student, the rules for the appropriate exchange of information, the rules for establishing the incentives or payoffs for participating in the course, and more.

5. *How are the concepts interrelated?* All theories interrelate concepts in some relational form, often called causal processes. This might be visualized in a flow diagram or a 2x2 table, or described in the text. This might be posited in a set of hypotheses, propositions, expectations, or principles. Such interrelations usually involve feedback loops to reinforce notions that policy processes continuously evolve without beginning or end. At the same time, most theories have a focal output or outcome. For example, when policy change is the focal output, the feedback loop becomes how one instance of policy change conditions the next, like when the Advocacy Coalition Framework offers a flow diagram of the general relationship among its key concepts. Notably, this includes a policy subsystem with two competing advocacy coalitions motivated by their members' beliefs and using resources and strategies to influence change in public policy. The flow diagram in the Advocacy Coalition Framework, or any theory, does not represent all of the relationships among its concepts. Many times, key concepts are not included, or feedback loops and concept interdependencies are not shown. Similar arguments can be extended to the hypotheses mentioned in the Advocacy Coalition Framework. These hypotheses bring attention to some of the major iterations posited by the framework but not all of the interactions. For example, this framework posits the importance of deep core beliefs (e.g., fundamental values, identities, and so forth) conditioning policy core beliefs (e.g., beliefs focused on the policy issue, such as preferences for policy solutions). Yet, deep core beliefs are not listed in the hypotheses. Thus, instructors and learners of these policy process theories should be mindful that each posits interactions in its ontology that sometimes are represented in the hypotheses or perhaps a flow diagram but not always.
6. *What are the sources of empirical support?* All theories have been applied to understand policy processes on a variety of topics and settings using various methods. Ask how the theory has been applied, what empirical evidence supports its arguments (i.e., its causal process), and what knowledge has been gained since its original creation. More critically, inquire about the mix and quality of applications (different settings, topics, methods, etc.) and revisions and adaptations to the theory in response to empirical findings. This particular question is difficult for students or anyone new to the field (or unfamiliar with any theory) to answer. At times, authors of the theories will describe the empirical support. There are also literature reviews of many theories that describe the nature and quality of the applications (e.g., Pierce et al., 2017); such reviews can help answer this question. Another way to answer this question is to ask whether and how theories have been applied outside of their usual context. To what extent, for example, has a policy theory developed in western contexts been applied in non-western contexts or non-democratic settings? Moreover, even if theories have been applied in non-western contexts (e.g., see Schlauffer

et al., 2020), it might not mean the insights gained adequately describe or explain the policy process and, hence, might not suggest such applications should occur.

7. *What are the current research deficits and future research ideas?* No theory is without current deficits and challenges. Indeed, a vibrant theory continuously evolves in response to criticisms and limitations that prompt new research and revisions. Many of the theories will list research opportunities in their summaries. For example, a recent summary of the Narrative Policy Framework identifies several areas for future research, including a greater focus on linking narratives to policy change (Shanahan et al., 2018).
8. *What are some implications for practice?* All theories should offer some insights into policy processes. These insights will not be deterministic in specifying what to do all the time and in all settings. In drawing practical implications, instructors and learners should remain mindful that many policy process theories emerged to describe a context or a public problem. They were not developed to provide policy recommendations for what policy solution should be endorsed (as might be found in the field of policy analysis). Thus, they represent what Harold D. Lasswell described as “knowledge of” the policy process rather than “knowledge in” the policy process (Lasswell, 1970). Examples of this type of practical implications include a better understanding of, and ways to, organize the complexity of policy processes; a better understanding of patterns and forces that drive policy change; different ways to form and maintain political associations; strategies for approaching agenda setting; the role of information, science, and stories in policy processes, and more.

Case Applications: Academically Oriented and Public-Facing

Our second strategy for teaching with policy process theories is likely the more intuitive of our approaches, and one that many instructors likely come to on their own: having students apply one or more policy theories to analyze an empirical case. We offer two models for this strategy. One is a more traditional academic application, likely better situated for doctoral students. The other is a public-facing application tailored more for professionally oriented students.

Comparative policy theory application paper

This first case application activity mirrors an empirical research study. Students are charged with applying two policy process theories to analyze a single empirical policy process, which might include any aspect of the policy process, including a policy debate, policy decision, policy content, policy outcome, among other potential foci. Students draw from primary data, secondary data, personal experience, and/or a synthesis of various secondary sources in their theory applications, to present two “findings” (one for each theory). The paper’s discussion serves as a comparative assessment—a place for students to identify and articulate the relative strengths and limitations of each theory as it pertains to the empirical case in question.

Policy theory blog post

The second case application activity is intended as a public-facing product, written with an educated lay audience in mind. While the primary purpose of the comparative policy theory application paper (above) is to understand the strengths and limitations of policy process theories, the objective of the policy theory blog post is to take theoretical insights about how policies are made and implemented and apply them for a greater understanding of empirical policy decisions. We recommend that students be offered the opportunity to publish their writing

in a publicly accessible venue, such as Medium or a course website blog. In our experience, a reasonable assignment expectation is for students to develop long-form blog posts of about 2,200–2,500 words; in other words, something that would take about ten minutes to read.

Policy Praxis

Our third strategy for teaching with policy process theories represents perhaps one of the more complete attempts to bridge the instructional gap between generalized theoretical knowledge and empirical matters that are specific in issues of place, time, people, and impacts. Here, students are directed to identify a real-world policy process that they care about, become familiar with/informed about it, and participate in it. “Participation” in this context means more than posting on social media, passively sitting in on a meeting, or talking with family or friends. We make clear to students that the goal of the activity is to engage in *substantive* and *meaningful* policy action.

The purpose of the policy praxis activity is more than to engage in an empirical policy process (as important as this is); it offers students a chance to test their newly acquired theoretical insights and expertise in the real world. We suggest that instructors encourage students to deploy the policy process lessons that they have learned and then critically reflect on their utility at understanding and navigating the policy context in question.

Although policy praxis assignments may be limited to a single action or activity, they are likely more impactful if they involve multiple actions at different points throughout a semester. Some examples include (but are by no means limited to):

- Meeting with an elected representative (e.g., from the state legislature, city council, or executive office in question) or administrative official/public servant (e.g., a high-level administrator from the relevant agency) to discuss and advocate regarding the policy issue of concern.
- Participating in one or more relevant public meetings, such as those held by a city council, an elected official’s public listening tour, or an agency’s public hearing and comment meetings. “Participation” denotes more than attendance; the student should engage in the process by, for example, submitting comments, publicly asking questions or making comments, and/or otherwise interacting with the people and events in question.
- Organizing a letter (or email) writing campaign, for example, among friends, within a relevant organization, or across an advocate network, to a political official, policy implementer, or relevant public administrator regarding the policy issue in question.
- Researching a proposed policy (e.g., regulation), conducting a careful analysis of it, and submitting a comment during the outlined notice and comment period.

There are a number of ways in which students can report on their policy praxis. We offer three here. First, consider starting each class with a small group or course-wide (depending on the size of the class) discussion focusing on policy praxis activities. Elect one or more students as “feature” presenters to describe their activity to date, field questions, and lead a related discussion. Second, for a more introspective praxis assignment (when students are expected to engage their policy praxis for the entire semester, in particular), have students keep a digital journal of their experience. As part of the journaling, they can reflect on and engage the theoretical arguments learned in the class and experienced in the field. Such journaling can be completely unstructured (students write what they want as it comes to them) or very

structured (students respond to specific prompts, questions, or instructions). Finally, for less time-intensive assignments and/or to focus on participation over reporting, have students write short reflections on their praxis experiences in online discussion forums. Students can thereby engage over and learn from one another's policy praxis experiences.

CONCLUSION

In this chapter, we have drawn on our own experiences to provide ways to think about policy process theories and teach (with) them. We emphasized the importance of using policy process theories as lenses for interpreting the world and using multiple theories to foster critical thinking. We offered three instructional techniques to teach policy theories, including: (1) a guideline for analyzing, comparing, and contrasting theories; (2) case applications—both academically oriented and public-facing; and (3) a praxis assignment of actually engaging in real-world policy processes.

We end this chapter with words of caution. Policy process theories, as a collective, represent one way to view the world, and such views can hinder creativity, individuality, and observations. Each policy process theory or any collection of them can become dogmatic in restricting and distorting how we think about the world. This might happen, for example, in using a theory to impose a particular conceptual classification scheme on a situation. Theories can then represent a type of hegemony in thinking and suppress other ways of thinking. A couple of ways to mitigate such threats is to maintain a commitment to open-mindedness and to try and learn different ways of knowing and research techniques that fall outside of mainstream theory-based traditions (Durnová and Weible, 2020).

Regardless of how we approach policy processes as a science, we should strive to maintain awareness of the innate human tendency to gravitate towards simplified and singular understandings and embrace the multiplicity of policy processes, including its uncertainty, ambiguity, and uncontrollability.

Of course, the usefulness of using theories in professional degree programs depends on the quality of teaching, something we all need to improve. Ideally, this essay contributes to such efforts or at least offers another way to think about it.

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APPENDIX 6.1

Part A: Guideline for Analyzing Theories

1. Scope: a. What phenomena or settings is the theory most applicable and useful to? b. What types of questions or objectives is the theory good at answering or achieving? c. What lies outside the theory's scope?
2. Original knowledge deficits and source materials: a. What inspired the original creation of the theory; that is, what knowledge deficits did it originally seek to fill? b. What were some of the foundational scholars/other approaches from which the theory drew inspiration?
3. Assumptions: a. What aspects of policy processes does the theory take for granted, declare as given, or promote (or demote)? b. What does the theory assume about individual motivations, mental faculties, etc. (or what might be called the "model of the individual")? c. What does the theory assume about the sources of power (or what might be called the principal "causal drivers")? d. What is the principal unit of analysis?
4. Concepts: a. What are the key concepts in the lexicon? b. To what extent do the concepts' definitions cover the essential characteristics of the targeted phenomena? c. To what extent do the concepts' definitions distinguish them from other phenomena? d. To what extent do the concepts' definitions foster common understandings and reliable observations and measurements?
5. Interrelations: a. How does the theory interrelate its concepts (e.g., look for flow diagrams, hypotheses, etc.)? b. What are the focal outputs or outcomes and how does the theory deal with feedback loops (if at all)? c. What are the major factors contributing to those outputs or outcomes?
6. Strengths, revisions, and empirical support: a. How has the theory contributed to the study of public policy? b. What revisions and adaptations have been made over time to the theory? c. What have been the strengths and weaknesses of the theory's applications? d. What do we know today that we didn't know when the theory originally emerged?
7. Current deficits and future research ideas: a. What are some of the current research deficits? b. What questions or challenges remain?
8. Implications for practice: a. What practical strategies or insights can the theory offer to better think about, or potentially engage in, policy processes?

Part B: Case Applications—Academically Oriented and Public-Facing

Sample instructions: comparative policy theory application paper

In this assignment, you will apply two different theoretical approaches to understand a public policy of your choice. The theoretical approaches will be applied as "lenses" through which to "view" the public policy, highlighting different aspects of the policy process in question. You will further conduct a comparative assessment of the two policy theory applications to identify and illustrate the strengths and limitations of each policy theory.

Choosing a public policy and policy theories

Your first task will be to select the public policy to be examined in the paper. The chosen policy can be one you already know a great deal about or can be a policy that you wish to familiarize yourself with. In either case, you will need to ensure that you can access adequate

information regarding the policy to complete the assignment. You will also need to select two theoretical approaches that will be applied and compared in the assignment.

Assignment instructions

This assignment requires you to develop and exhibit an understanding of the public policy and two theoretical approaches that you select for application. It requires you to exercise critical thinking and judgment in the application and assessment of your chosen theories. You will need to conduct background research on your public policy, akin to a case study. This background research may include newspaper and/or other media products; white papers or “grey” literature from political think tanks, advocacy groups, and other organizations; governmental data; reports; and/or publications, etc. You may also choose to (or need to) find one or more individuals to interview who are involved in, or knowledgeable about, your public policy. You will provide a brief description of your background research in the paper.

The paper should include the following components. It is suggested, although not required, that your paper adheres to the following overall structure:

1. **Introduction:** The introduction should explicitly state the purpose of the paper, orienting the reader to the public policy under examination and the public policy theories that are applied. It should also justify or explain why the public policy and two theories in question were chosen. It may help provide direction to the paper (and theoretical applications) if the introduction includes a question that the paper seeks to answer or an overall argument that the paper makes.
2. **Theory:** The theory section(s) should provide descriptions, or overviews, of the two policy theories that are applied in the paper. This should include a general introduction to the theories—e.g., What phenomena is the theory principally designed to explain? What factors of the policy process does it highlight?—and then provide a more detailed discussion of the elements of the theory that are most relevant to the paper’s application. This means that the theory section need not incorporate a comprehensive depiction of each theory—rather, the discussion should focus on the parts of the theories that are important to the application. Be sure to provide clear and accessible definitions for terminology or jargon that is specific to the theory. It will likely be most effective to address each of the two theories in distinct sections/subsections.
3. **Case description:** This section should provide the reader with an overview of the public policy in question. The case description should include the components that make up the policy topic primer (i.e., background and context, events, actors, debates, and points of consensus); however, the description should focus on the elements most important for understanding the chosen policy and that are most relevant to the subsequent applications.
4. **Research approach:** The research section should be a brief (one or two paragraphs) description of the manner in which information was collected to inform the paper, the sources that were relied on most heavily, and a justification (explanation) of why the chosen forms of information collection were most appropriate for the task.
5. **Theoretical applications:** You should have two theoretical application sections/subsections—one for each chosen theory. In each of these applications, you should use the elements, logic, and argument of the theoretical approach to explain the public policy process you chose. As stated above, this process may be facilitated by seeking to answer pre-established questions about your public policy or the policy process in which it is

embedded. The materials you draw on to inform the discussion of policy theories can include *but must extend beyond* required course readings.

6. **Comparative assessment:** This section is the ultimate product of the paper and perhaps its most important part (although if the preceding sections are not well done, they will undermine this section's effectiveness). In the comparative assessment, you are responsible for outlining what was learned about your chosen public policy through the application of each theory:
 - a. The strengths and limitations (or faults) of each theoretical approach that were highlighted through the applications.
 - b. What was learned about each of the theoretical approaches through their application to your chosen policy.
7. **Conclusion:** The conclusion should summarize the main arguments of the paper, its applications, and its evaluation/conclusions. It is advised that the conclusion begins with a reminder to the reader of the purpose of the paper. No new information should be presented in a conclusion. Instead, the conclusion serves to remind readers of the most pertinent ideas presented in the preceding pages.

Sample instructions: policy theory blog post

In this assignment, you will develop a blog post based on your application of a public policy process theory. Unlike a typical course paper, blog entries are published online. Imagine a broad audience for your blog entry and try to craft something that will be equally interesting and applicable to everyone from your family and friends to seasoned policy researchers, such as those who authored the articles we read in class.

1. **Content:** The blog is a space for theoretically informed dialogue on policymaking and implementation. Your entry should be some critical reflection or analysis that offers novel, important, and/or under-appreciated insights regarding an empirical (i.e., real-world) policy process or our theoretical understanding of policy processes. Your entry should take the form of an essay organized around a central thesis (or argument). Blog ideas include (but are not limited to):
 - Using a policy theory's concepts and logic to explain a particular policy process, an example of policy change/stasis, or a policy's design/content,
 - Drawing practical lessons from one or more policy theories to argue for a new (or change in) advocacy approach in a particular policy process,
 - Reviewing a particularly noteworthy (in your assessment) piece of policy research (or body of work) to translate its findings and their importance for a non-academic audience,
 - Other approaches that you think of.
2. **Length:** There is no hard expectation for the length of your entries. However, the *Policy Process Matters* blog is meant to be a place for thoughtful long-form analysis and writing. A minimum blog entry therefore will likely take about ten minutes to read, or be about 2,200–2,500 words (research suggests that people generally read 200–250 words per minute). You can use the online Read-o-Meter to estimate the reading time of your draft.
3. **Linked references:** Because the goal of the assignment is to apply course ideas and content, *it is expected that you will draw from and link to relevant policy theory research and literature*. You will “cite” such literature by hyperlinking the relevant text to the source material online (e.g., the URL of an article online).

Part C: Policy Praxis

Sample instructions: policy praxis

For this activity, your charge is to find a real-world policy process that you care about, learn more about it, *participate in it*, and report back on your experience. “Participation” in this context means more than posting on social media, passively sitting in on a meeting, or talking with your family/friends. *The goal of the assignment is to engage in substantive and meaningful policy action.* Some examples include (but are not limited to):

- Meeting with an elected representative (e.g., from the state legislator or city council) or high-level administrative official to discuss and advocate for the policy issue of concern,
- Participating in (by submitting comments, asking questions, and otherwise interacting in) a public policy process-related meeting,
- Organizing a letter-writing campaign (e.g., among your friends, family, and colleagues) to a policymaker/implementer/administrator regarding a particular policy issue,
- Researching a proposed regulation, conducting a careful analysis of it, and submitting a comment during the notice and comment period.

Important notes: When deciding on your participation, make sure that it is appropriate for current conditions (i.e., the COVID-19 pandemic); this may mean opting for online/virtual participation over physical/in person. Any participation engaged in as part of this class must be peaceful and legal; I cannot support activity undertaken for this class that is violent or violates laws (including property damage). Finally, be aware that there are formal processes for some activities, such as municipal permits required for demonstrations; it is your responsibility to know such requirements.

7. Pedagogical approaches in teaching the multiple streams framework

Nikolaos Zahariadis, Evangelia Petridou and Annemieke van den Dool

Imagine you wake up the morning of April 26, 2001 to read in the news that U.S. President George W. Bush has issued a visceral response to what he perceived to be Chinese provocations over Taiwan. If the island came under attack from China, he would do ‘whatever it took’ to help Taiwan. This phrase can take on many meanings and interpretations, including armed conflict. The idea of leaving some policy aspects vague and subject to interpretation is part of a broader U.S. policy toward what China called ‘strategic ambiguity.’ No matter its benefits or drawbacks (Haass and Sacks, 2020), incomprehension and interpretation are part and parcel of the process of policymaking.

But what if ambiguity that is, the existence of multiple, partly incomprehensible and definitely irreconcilable perspectives on a given issue, is not strategic; that is, intentionally created, but ubiquitous? We don’t want to say what the U.S. response will be because we don’t really know. What if it exists at all levels of political life? Would policymaking approximate the rational problem-solving process we are accustomed to advocating or do we need a radically different explanation? The multiple streams framework (MSF) aims to explain public policy in the presence of ubiquitous ambiguity.

In this chapter we describe the workings of the MSF and explore different ways to make teaching it more effective. We first describe the logic and main elements of the framework. We then discuss learning objectives and pedagogical approaches on how best to teach MSF. We present three approaches. The first we call the jigsaw exercise and is comparative in nature. It involves identifying an issue, discussing appropriateness of application, complementarity of approaches, strengths and weaknesses, as well as data needs. The second is an interactive simulation. Students are given a scenario and decision-making rules and are asked to make a collective decision. The third is a research-intensive peer review. It consists of reviewing published MSF applications. Students are asked to describe their shortcomings, identify best practices and specify ways to improve research.

Overall, there are two main points that students of public policy should take from learning about MSF:

1. Serendipity and time are important parts of public policy. This complements but does not substitute the main argument by policy scholars that explanations of policymaking involve understanding interactions among actors and institutions. Rather, it is meant to communicate to students that there *is* a right (and a wrong) time for ideas. This message is conveyed through the policy windows which not only give timing a privileged position in the explanation, but also delineate context. That implies that policies are made within a given context; take the context away and different policies may be adopted.

2. Most policymakers often do not have well-formulated positions on issues before them or they come to the table with preconceived notions and dismiss anything that reverses them. A prominent psychological theory, prospect theory, calls such preconceptions cognitive biases. This is to say that policymaking is not rational, although sometimes it is. Rationality is often the privilege of a few who seem to steer the process in certain directions. In essence, policy adoption (whether agenda setting or decision-making) is partly the product of a few well-connected individuals or corporate actors, called policy entrepreneurs, who build coalitions and have a very good sense of purpose, timing and persistence.

KEY ELEMENTS OF THE MSF

The MSF begins with the premise that ambiguity exists in policymaking. This idea is expressed in the form of three assumptions: the preferences of policymakers are unclear, there is opaque organizational technology, and participation in the process is fluid (Kingdon, 1995). Combined, these conditions paint a picture that differs from traditional notions. If policymakers do not know or care about most issues for which they need to make a decision, how are policies made? Policymakers can obviously not employ rationality because they do not know; and if they do not know, they cannot assess the value of each option to decide which will likely yield the most benefits. Yet, decisions are made; attacks are launched, trade is conducted, people are hired. Clearly, we need a different way of thinking about the process. To further capture accuracy, MSF makes two auxiliary assumptions:

- policy decisions are made under some type of time pressure, and
- parallel information processing dominates the policy process (Zahariadis, 2003).

Taken as a whole, these assumptions point to the need for a radically different explanation of the process, one based on timing rather than rationality.

Timing, or what MSF calls temporal sorting, is the key to understanding how policies are made. Temporal sorting refers to the point that issues are attended or decisions are made based on when they enter or exit the system. For example, in pure form, policies are made according to when they came to the attention of policymakers or the deadline by which they need to be made rather than on the basis of some rational ordering or importance. Priorities, however defined rather than content significance, matter. In this world, policymaking resembles more a time management system that ensures decision-makers, much like business executives or high-level organization officers, are not overwhelmed by constant demands on their time.

Five Variables of Policymaking

The MSF points to five critical variables (Herweg, Zahariadis and Zohlnhöfer, 2018). Policies are made according to how and when these elements interact with one another. The five elements are: three streams of problems, policies and politics, policy windows, and policy entrepreneurs. Policies are made when skilled policy entrepreneurs couple the three streams during open windows. While some scholars have complicated this argument by adding windows (e.g., Herweg, 2017) or streams (e.g., Howlett, McConnell and Perl, 2015), we keep things simple for ease of exposition.

Three relatively independent streams flow through each policy system: problems, policies and politics. While each contains numerous elements, e.g., problems or solutions, some stand a higher chance of consideration by policymakers than others. Problems refer to public issues, demands or concerns that citizens have. They may be unemployment, crime, access to clean water or quality education. There are always more problems to address than policymakers can pay attention to. Because problems have a perceptual element, a group's demand need not become a public issue—policymakers have to find ways to ration their attention. This is done by way of three items: focusing events, categorization and feedback. Focusing events refer to major crises that are suddenly thrust on the government's agenda, demanding attention. These include the aftermath of such diverse events as earthquakes, famines, floods or nuclear accidents. Categorization involves the choice of placing indicators under one category rather than in another. For example, crime means something different if it is framed as a question of poverty or race or ethnic background. Feedback reflects past experience with such issues.

Policies are solutions to public problems. They are often formulated behind the scenes in policy communities, which involve networks of experts, officials and others who are interested in these issues, such as transportation, defense, healthcare and others. Solutions are continuously debated, amended or rejected in those communities using several criteria of efficiency and effectiveness. More efficient or effective policies, technically feasible solutions and those that seem to be espoused by many members of the relevant policy community stand a higher chance of reaching the 'ear' of policymakers.

The broader politics stream has three dimensions: the administrative/legislative branch, pressure group campaigns and the national mood. Obviously, policies are decided by people with political authority whether they are in the executive or legislative branches. Dynamics at that level shape the likelihood of receptivity to any problem or solution via ideology, proclivities, and the like. Pressure group campaigns reflect the broader societal agenda, which is a crucial element of any democratic (and not only) political system. The national mood reveals how the informed public think about issues.

Policy windows refer to propitious opportunities for action. They may open in the problem or the political stream. Policy windows frame and limit the context within which policy is made. They provide ephemeral occasions that may limit or steer policy debate toward particular directions. For example, the COVID-19 pandemic may point out the limits of a country's health system or a government's inability or unwillingness to care for its people. Examples of problem windows may include the events of 9/11 or Hurricane Katrina. A political window may include the outcome of an election, e.g., the rise to power of President Trump in the U.S. Windows are occasions for possibly new issues to be raised and new solutions to be debated or adopted.

Policy entrepreneurs are skilled individuals or corporate actors who attempt to couple or join together the three streams during open windows. They create or broker between coalitions, advocate for particular problems and solutions to be examined, or lead opposition to others. The idea is that behind every policy there is an individual or group that advocates its adoption. Ideas do not exist irrespective of people, although they may be espoused by different people at different times and in different venues. Entrepreneurs usually come from policy communities because they are experts in the area they work in. While many can act entrepreneurially, few are successful at it. They invest time and resources and use different strategies to achieve their goal.

The odds that a particular policy will be adopted increase when all three streams are coupled. This is obviously difficult because of the Herculean effort required, the political acumen needed, the ability to see an opportunity when others do not and sometimes sheer luck. Although this picture of policymaking has been mostly applied to democratic systems, it is flexible enough to be also relevant to less democratic settings with appropriate adjustments. It is highly contextual in the sense that it requires understanding of different elements in isolation and their interaction but only at opportune moments. It is also elitist in the sense that it privileges particular individuals or groups with access to the corridors of power. The implication is that despite the chaotic picture it paints, power is still in the hands of the few. The difference is that policy power is not solely or even mainly institutionally determined but rather temporally shaped by persistence, acumen, access and context.

LEARNING OBJECTIVES

To develop pedagogical approaches for teaching the MSF, we first identified learning objectives based on Bloom's (1956) taxonomy of educational outcomes. This taxonomy was originally developed in the 1950s to help standardize exams at U.S. colleges. Bloom's taxonomy has since been further refined (Anderson and Krathwohl, 2001). Although the framework has been criticized, it is widely integrated in course design to ensure alignment of course objectives, assessment and content (Seaman, 2011), which is why we take Bloom's taxonomy as our starting point for identifying learning objectives and learning activities pertaining to the MSF.

Bloom's framework consists of six hierarchical layers of learning outcomes that escalate in terms of complexity and abstractness (Bloom, 1956; Krathwohl, 2002). The bottom layers focus on lower level learning outcomes, including remembering and understanding information. The middle and top layers represent higher level learning outcomes and include applying, analyzing, evaluating and creating information. Lower level learning outcomes do not necessarily correspond to lower educational levels. In other words, it is fully possible for students to work through this entire sequence within a course or program. However, lower level learning outcomes are a prerequisite for attaining higher level goals. By deliberately moving through the hierarchy, instructors gradually prepare students to independently design and execute their own policymaking research projects.

In the process of developing learning objectives, we have focused on the essentials, i.e., things that are 'worth learning' (Anderson and Krathwohl, 2001 pp. 6–7) for a typical public policy student. While a small number of students pursue academic careers, the overwhelming majority of public policy students are trained to work in policy or policy-adjacent positions in government, media, non-profit organizations, consultancy and industry. Consequently, the overarching learning goal is for students to understand the processes and factors that drive government (in)action so that they can analyze and participate in policymaking in a meaningful way. The learning objectives listed below all use action words commonly associated with the relevant taxonomic category (Stanny, 2016). For example, learning objectives focused on remembering tend to include words such as 'define,' 'describe' and 'list.' Higher learning objectives use words such as 'critique,' 'explain' and 'analyze.'

Understanding and Analyzing Policymaking Through the MSF

We have identified seven learning objectives pertaining to understanding and analyzing policymaking through the MSF. These are introduced below starting from lower level learning outcomes that are prerequisites for higher level learning such as independently applying the MSF to new cases.

The first learning objective is *listing and defining the MSF's five key elements*: policy stream, problem stream, politics stream, policy window and policy entrepreneur. This knowledge is a prerequisite for understanding the MSF and correctly applying it. Hence, this basic knowledge acquisition contributes to an improved understanding of policymaking.

The second learning objective is *describing under what conditions policymaking is not a rational problem-solving process*. A fully rational-comprehensive approach in which all aspects of an issue and all consequences of all potential solutions are identified and evaluated is not feasible when dealing with complex problems due to bounded rationality, time constraints and ambiguity. Bounded rationality is our cognitive inability to collect and process all information in a systematic way (Simon, 1997). Time constraints are a consequence of a large number of issues demanding attention simultaneously while policy actors can only attend to a limited number at any given time. Ambiguity refers to a situation in which there are many different ways of thinking about an issue or solution (Zahariadis, 2014). Consequently, policymakers typically reason from the existing situation and only take small steps away from it (Lindblom, 1959).

The third objective is *explaining why policymaking is non-linear, both in terms of processes and policy actors* (Herweg, Zahariadis and Zohlnhöfer, 2018). The MSF shows that problems, policy solutions and politics develop at varying paces and reiteratively. Attention to an issue fluctuates. It can take years for an issue to be perceived and framed as a problem. Events such as disasters can accelerate the development of the problem stream but can also push issues off the agenda. Likewise, policy solutions come and go and are frequently reused, regardless of the exact nature of the problem. At the same time, participation in policymaking is fluid in the sense that there is a constant turnover of individuals and organizations that are active within a certain policy area. Moreover, policy preferences can easily change over time as a result of e.g., changes in uncertainty and framing.

The fourth objective is *analyzing the role of policy entrepreneurs in policymaking*. Misalignment of problem definition, policy proposals and political views can be overcome by the actions of a policy entrepreneur. This individual or organization invests time and resources to link the problem, policy and political streams. For a policy entrepreneur to be successful, they must not only display social acuity and lead by example, but also be effective in problem definition and team building (Mintrom and Norman, 2009; Petridou and Mintrom, 2021).

The fifth objective involves higher level educational outcomes in Bloom's hierarchy, namely *analyzing and critiquing existing studies and proposing ways to improve them*. Such activity exceeds mere memorization and involves analysis and evaluation. Are there gaps in implementing MSF research? What are they and how can they be filled? But learning must go beyond this point and focus on creating synergies with other frameworks of the policy process. Why and under what conditions is the MSF a superior analytical tool relative to other lenses? As Allison (1971) makes abundantly clear in his seminal study of the Cuban missile crisis, policy frameworks may offer both competing and complementary explanations. Under what conditions they are the former or the latter is a question that is mainly a function of research

design (Zahariadis, 2005). In other words, synergies with other lenses must be explored systematically under many conditions to provide a more complete understanding of the process.

The sixth and seventh objectives consist of the highest level educational outcome. It involves creating information by *designing and executing an MSF study*, which requires *justifying the use of the MSF as an analytic tool relative to other policy process theories*. Do the assumptions (Herweg, Zahariadis and Zohlnhöfer, 2018) of opaque technology, unclear preferences and fluid participation hold? Does policymaking take place under time stress? If so, MSF is a good choice. Does timing make a difference? Are there open policy windows? Can specific policy entrepreneurs be identified? Have they made a difference? Answers to these questions improve the added value of the study.

Using a careful research design (Levy, 2008), we can test and develop the MSF's explanatory potential. If the assumptions hold and the study corroborates MSF's hypotheses (Herweg, Zahariadis and Zohlnhöfer 2018), then we have replicated the results. This conforms to what Yin (2018) called the case study's replication logic. If the assumptions hold but the findings do not confirm the MSF's hypotheses (most likely design), then we have contracted its applicability. If the assumptions do not hold but the findings appear to be in congruence with MSF's hypotheses (least likely design), then we have extended the framework's reach. All are valid arguments that teach us something about research and the validity of MSF.

In sum, the learning objectives pertaining to understanding policymaking are listed below:

- List and define the MSF's key components,
- Describe under what conditions policymaking is (not) a rational problem-solving process,
- Explain why policymaking is non-linear, both in terms of processes and policy actors,
- Analyze the role of policy entrepreneurs in policymaking,
- Analyze and critique existing MSF studies and suggest ways for improvement,
- Justify using the MSF as an analytic tool relative to other policy process theories,
- Design and execute a case study using the MSF.

ASSESSMENT AND LEARNING ACTIVITIES

Our learning objectives may be integrated in the so-called backward design to teaching, which distinguishes three sequential steps: identification of learning outcomes, selection of assessment criteria, and design of learning experiences and instruction (Wiggins and McTighe, 2005). Backward design forces instructors to make deliberate choices about learning outcomes and how to measure those outcomes, instead of simply 'filling' a course with (pre-existing) course content.

Consistent with the backward design approach to course development, in this section we propose assessments and learning activities for the learning objectives introduced above. We do so through three different pedagogical approaches, which we have labelled: jigsaw exercise, simulation and peer review. They stress different aspects of the MSF and are, therefore, better suited to fulfill different purposes. By including a variety of approaches, we take into account diversity in learning preferences, teaching styles and institutional environments. Moreover, this provides sufficient room for instructors to select and adjust. Table 7.1 provides an overview of the proposed assessment and learning activities.

Table 7.1 *Assessment, objectives and learning activities*

	Jigsaw exercise	Simulation	Peer review
Main learning objectives	List and define the MSF's key components Analyze an existing MSF case study Analyze the role of policy entrepreneurs in policymaking Describe the ways in which policymaking is non-linear	Evaluate whether the MSF is an appropriate analytic tool for a study by comparing it to other policy process theories Explain why policymaking is (not) rational	Critique existing MSF studies and identify potential improvements Design and execute an MSF study
Learning activity	In-class jigsaw exercise	Modified simulation	Evaluation of an MSF journal article
Assessment	Oral presentation or written report	Oral presentation	Peer review report
Format	Five teams of five students	Team based	Individual
Class size	25; adjust exercise based on class size	Students work in teams, so theoretically no limit	Work in teams if large class size
Strengths	Collaborative learning Long-term knowledge retention	Collaborative learning Critical thinking Long-term knowledge retention	Training to become peer reviewer Insight into publishing process Improved science literacy
Required conditions for success	Adjust exercise based on number of students Flexible classroom Pre-assign roles to avoid freeriding	Frontload work: invest in clear and functional design of the modified simulation	Limit length of peer review report Apply well-developed rubric

The Jigsaw Exercise

Academic teaching remains dominated by summative assessments such as individual mid-term papers and final exams, for which students are prepared by traditional lecturing. In recent years, active learning approaches have received more attention, which require students to take more responsibility for their learning process while the role of instructors shifts more towards that of a facilitator. Within this new teaching approach, student learning is evaluated throughout the course using both formative and summative assessments (Harlen and James, 1997).

The jigsaw is an example of an active learning activity (Hedeen, 2003). As listed in Table 7.1, multiple learning objectives can be achieved through the jigsaw, but we focus here on analyzing and critiquing an existing MSF study and suggesting ways for improvement. Suitable assessment include oral presentations or a written report, which can both be either individual or team based. We propose the jigsaw exercise as an in-class activity.

The jigsaw exercise divides new concepts or theories into smaller pieces of information, which allows students to zoom in on individual components before reassembling them into the full picture (Hedeen, 2003). The jigsaw exercise is especially well suited for teaching the MSF because of its compartmentalization. The MSF consists of at least five core components. Moreover, the three streams develop mostly independently from each other, which adds to the possibility of dividing the exercise into distinct elements.

Before coming to class, the instructor assigns as reading material an introduction text to the MSF and an existing published MSF case study, which can be selected based on policy area relevance or student interests. We have included a list of introduction texts and selected published applications in Appendix 7.1.

In class, students are divided into five expert teams of five individuals and each team is assigned one distinct piece of the MSF. The natural parts to be assigned to the expert teams are the five core components of the MSF. For example, expert team 1 is assigned the policy stream, expert team 2 is assigned the problem stream, expert team 3 is assigned the political stream, and so on. Within their expert team, the students examine the assigned concept with the aim of each team member becoming an expert of the assigned concept, meaning that they should be able to explain the concept to individuals from other teams.

Once the expert team has agreed on a shared understanding and each member has subsequently internalized this, the expert teams are dissolved and new groups are formed. These consist of one representative of each expert team. This means that all original expert teams are now represented in each new group. In the new groups, each expert explains their concept to the other non-experts, who can ask the expert clarifying questions.

Once all representatives have shared their concept, the team can start to reassemble the puzzle; that is, explain policy change (or the lack thereof) in a comprehensive way, including the identification of obstacles to and opportunities for policy change as well as ways to improve the assigned study.

From a student perspective, this jigsaw exercise has several advantages compared to traditional lecture-based classes. First, students get to interact with their peers, which allows them to learn from others while also sharing their own insights. Second, this type of interactive learning is more likely to result in longer-term knowledge retention. Third, this exercise may contribute to the honing of the entrepreneurial skills of those students who are more empirically oriented and are interested in being agents of change in the field of public policy. Mintrom (2019) notes that policy entrepreneurs possess a number of attributes that may be nurtured and skills that may developed so that they can engage in entrepreneurial strategies (see also Petridou and Mintrom, 2021). Attributes include ambition, social acuity, credibility and tenacity, whereas a set of entrepreneurial skills consists of strategic thinking, team building, collecting evidence, making convincing arguments, engaging multiple audiences, negotiating and networking (Mintrom, 2019). Because Frisch-Aviram, Beeri and Cohen (2021) have shown that street-level bureaucrats may be trained to be policy entrepreneurs, an exercise like this one in a public administration or public policy class may be designed to emphasize practicing the above skills.

From an instructor perspective, there are also advantages to the jigsaw exercise compared to a traditional lecture-based approach. First, the instructor is able to monitor student learning and can intervene as needed. Second, preparation time is reduced as the instructor's role changes from lecturer to facilitator.

At the same time, the jigsaw MSF exercise has most potential if three conditions have been met. First, there may be logistical limitations in terms of classroom assignment. The jigsaw exercise is ideally conducted in a flexible teaching room where desks can be moved into team islands or, if teaching remotely, students can be divided into break-out rooms via platforms like Zoom or Microsoft Teams. Second, if the exercise is conducted in classes with fewer than 25 students, the design of the exercise need to be adjusted accordingly. This can be done by either assigning multiple elements to each expert team or by excluding certain elements (e.g., the policy window or the policy entrepreneur). Likewise, if the exercise is conducted in classes with more than 25 students, multiple expert teams need to work on the same element or the five core elements need to be broken down further. For example, the problem stream can be divided into focusing events, feedback and indicators, and assigned to three expert teams.

Third, to ensure that all students actively participate and to reduce freeriding, it is helpful to assign specific roles to each team member, e.g., note taker, facilitator and timekeeper.

The Simulation

Let us revisit the American foreign policy episode that started this chapter. How can we guide students of public policy towards the understanding of the processes that led to that specific policy output, namely the decision to use some sort of retaliation against a foreign government? Theories of the policy process are complementary and tend to provide different perspectives to students of public policy (Petridou, 2014). Though there is not a 'right' or 'wrong' approach, framework or theory, some are more suitable than others depending on the task at hand.

Public policy processes refer to 'the interactions that occur over time between public policies [defined as the decisions that governments make within their jurisdictions (Mintrom, 2012)] and surrounding actors, events, contexts, and outcomes' (Weible, 2018, p. 2). Processes are dynamic, contextualized and have a lot of interlocking parts, which makes studying (and teaching) them maddening and rewarding in equal measure. Public policies and their attendant processes are often abstract and hard to grasp. This results in a certain level of intractability, especially for more empirically oriented students interested in careers as practitioners.

Theories of the policy process consist of a combination of theories and frameworks. They are not theories in the strict sense that they may be falsified and thus summarily rendered invalid. Rather, they identify elements that are important for the analysis of the processes underpinning policymaking and they also specify the relationship among these elements (Weible, 2018). They develop a set of shared concepts that may be developed into principles and testable hypotheses used to understand a public policy phenomenon and explain the processes that belie that phenomenon (Ostrom, 2007). These elements, relationships, principles and hypotheses are reassessed, adjusted, occasionally discarded, updated and evolved through continuous intellectual work and empirical applications in different contexts. It is fruitful to consider the perspectives and analytical foci of a number of theories of the policy process in a comparative fashion. Such a comparative exercise highlights the complementarity of these theories, while it fosters awareness regarding the choice of one approach over another.

We base this comparison on Cairney and Heikkilä's (2014) comparison of policy process theories. Existing theories and frameworks keep evolving while new ones are being developed, often based on existing ones (Petridou, 2014), making a comparative exercise across the entire gamut of theories, frameworks and approaches rather cumbersome. Rather, the exercise is based on five different dimensions of frameworks and theories: scope and level of analysis, vocabulary and concepts, assumptions, model of the individual, and relationships among key concepts (Cairney and Heikkilä, 2014). A focus on theoretical dimensions foregrounds critical thinking rather than a mechanical account of theories and frameworks.

A team-based, comparative simulation exercise applying MSF to a policy change event starts with an assignment of a policy sector or a policy change episode by the instructor to teams of five students. Each student will be responsible for the analysis of each of the above dimensions. This is an oral exercise, ideally iterative (with different policy change events), so that all team members have the opportunity to elaborate on all categories. We view it as a 'modified' simulation because students do not take on an assigned role of an actor *per se*; rather, they focus their analysis on one theoretical dimension at a time. The assignment should be contingent in the sense that it should be broad and include the policy sector as well as an

episode of policy change in order to create the contingencies necessary for a comparison across theories. If we revisit the example in the beginning of this chapter, the assignment would be the single episode in Sino-American relations, or conversely, Sino-American relations over the span of several decades.

As a first step, and consistent with the course objective of justifying using the MSF as an analytical tool relative to other policy process theories, we would let the teams ponder on the scope of the MSF in comparative terms. For example, an episode in foreign policy under conditions of ambiguity (rather than uncertainty) at the subsystem level with a focus on actors would be best suited for MSF. Conversely, if the research question was about foreign policy over time with a focus on stability, punctuated equilibrium theory (PET) would be best suited instead. Furthermore, if focus were placed in institutions rather than actors, institutional analysis and development (IAD) would be the appropriate theory, whereas if we were more interested in interactions in advocacy coalitions and learning over time, the advocacy coalition framework (ACF) would be a better choice. Moreover, the team member would choose an additional two or three theories and elaborate on the components of them as well, such as, for example, the characters in the narrative for narrative policy framework (NPF) or policy feedback and the effects this has had on policy change if using policy feedback theory (PFT). The contingency of the assignment (the single episode of policy change or the policy over a long period of time) facilitates the differentiation among the theories and highlights the utility of MSF.

Second, the team deciding the applicability of MSF must align the assumptions of the framework with the ones of the project at hand (Zohlhöfer, Herweg and Zahariadis, 2022). If, for example, the project at hand assumes rational actors (that is, actors with fixed preferences who have unlimited time to make rational decisions) MSF may not be the right choice of analytical tool.

Third, assumptions regarding the individual must be discussed in the team. MSF explicitly challenges assumptions of rationality. The majority of theories of policy process operate in the context of bounded rationality when it comes to actors, albeit placing emphasis on different dimensions: beliefs are key to ACF, while values and emotions feature prominently in the social construction framework (SCF).

Finally, the teams discuss the relationship among the key concepts of the framework, exemplifying them with concrete concepts from the assignment. In explaining an episode in foreign policy, the student may elaborate on the different streams as well as the window of opportunity that was opened by a focusing event; while in explaining foreign policy over time, the focus would be on incremental factors that precipitate change if using PET. A final consideration nuancing the team discussion would be the kind of data that would be needed for an MSF analysis of the assigned policy change event.

The main purpose of this comparative exercise is to transform abstract theoretical concepts to tangible components of a policy process. Applying the MSF to policy change encourages critical thinking and fosters long-term knowledge retention as a result of the collaborative nature of the exercise. For this activity to be fruitful, the instructor must consider carefully the policy sector and the policy change event they assign—the assignment should clearly highlight the differences among theories and frameworks and should be conducive in discussing MSF. The assignment ought to be given far enough in advance so that teams have time to consider the application in comparative theoretical terms.

Peer Review

While the MSF is widely used to identify obstacles to and opportunities for policy change, scholars have pointed out shortcomings in how the framework is applied to case studies. To create awareness of these shortcomings and to prevent students from making these same mistakes, we propose a research-focused teaching approach. Its learning objective is to train students to critique existing MSF studies and to propose potential improvements.

To assess whether students have achieved the learning objective, we propose relying on a peer review report as final assessment. The advantage of this approach is that it mirrors the scholarly publication process, which allows students to get a deeper understanding of academic publishing. While this is clearly beneficial for students who pursue an academic career, this is also relevant to students in professional career paths because it increases their scientific literacy.

For the students to be able to evaluate existing MSF publications, they need to be aware of common shortcomings in MSF research. Here, we recommend assigning Zohlnhöfer, Herweg and Zahariadis (2022) or Cairney and Jones (2016) who offer several proposals for improving MSF research, including reliance on recent MSF research, coverage and clear operationalization of all key elements, and connecting to the wider MSF literature. In addition, students should be provided guidelines for writing their peer review reports, which should not just include content requirements but also examples of professional and non-professional behavior.

We envision the final peer review as a one-page written report, submitted either individually or by small teams. Like an actual peer review report, it should briefly summarize the article and the overall impression in addition to discussing specific areas for improvement. These suggestions should be based on Zohlnhöfer, Herweg and Zahariadis (2022) or Cairney and Jones (2016). To help structure their peer review, instructors may want to provide a rubric that covers requirements for both content and professionalism.

This peer review exercise is especially well suited for teaching the MSF because of widespread criticism that the framework is not systematically tested, which is a result of, *inter alia*, variation in the operationalization of the framework. The peer review not only trains students in assessing the quality and limitations of existing MSF publications—which may inform their own future work—but also prepares students to conduct their own MSF studies. At the same time, the exercise fills a crucial educational gap. Academics seldom receive formal training in writing peer review journal reports and hence are ill-prepared for this task. As a result, peer review reports are not necessarily as constructive, balanced and professional as they ought to be. From an instructor perspective, this peer review exercise is an opportunity to share personal experiences and gauge students' readiness for starting their own research projects. The exercise fits especially well as a (formative or summative) assignment in a traditional lecture-based course as students can mostly work independently, outside regular class hours.

At the same time, the peer review requires a time commitment from the instructor as peer review reports need to be graded. To manage the workload, we propose to strictly limit the length of the report to just one page and to work with a well-developed rubric for grading. Alternatively, the instructor can transform the exercise into a formative classroom activity. In that scenario, teams evaluate one or more assigned journal article(s) and present their findings in a five-minute presentation in class.

CONCLUSION

We described the logic and key elements of the MSF and explored different ways of teaching it. Using Bloom's (1956) taxonomy, we identified seven learning objectives and three pedagogical approaches. The first approach is a jigsaw exercise, which involves identifying an issue, discussing appropriateness of application, complementarity of approaches, strengths and weaknesses as well as data needs. The second involves an interactive simulation whereby students are given decision-making rules and are asked to make a collective decision under specific scenarios. The third is a peer review, consisting of reviewing (and critiquing) published MSF applications. The three approaches achieve different learning objectives, inspire synergies with other policy lenses and make teaching the MSF more effective.

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APPENDIX 7.1

Table A7.1 Suggested reading list for students

Type of reading	Reference
Classics	Herweg, N., Zahariadis, N. and Zohlnhöfer, R. (2018) 'The multiple streams framework: foundations, refinements, and empirical applications,' in Weible, C. M. and Sabatier, P. A. (eds.) <i>Theories of the policy process</i> . 4th ed. New York: Routledge, pp. 17–46.
	Kingdon, J. W. (2014) <i>Agendas, alternatives, and public policies</i> . 2nd ed. Essex, UK: Pearson.
	Zahariadis, N. (2007) 'The multiple streams framework: structure, limitations, prospects,' in Sabatier, P. A. (ed.) <i>Theories of the policy process</i> . 2nd ed. Boulder, CO: Westview Press, pp. 65–92.
	Zahariadis, N. (2014) 'Ambiguity and multiple streams,' in Sabatier, P. A. and Weible, C. M. (eds.) <i>Theories of the policy process</i> . 3rd ed. Boulder, CO: Westview Press, pp. 25–58.
	Zohlnhöfer, R., Herweg, N. and Zahariadis, N. (2022) 'How to conduct a multiple streams study,' in Weible, C. M. and Workman, S. G. (eds.) <i>Methods of the policy process</i> . New York: Routledge.
Textbooks	Hill, M. and Varone, F. (2021) <i>The public policy process</i> . 8th ed. London: Routledge.
Literature reviews	Cairney, P. and Jones, M. D. (2016) 'Kingdon's multiple streams approach: what is the empirical impact of this universal theory?' <i>Policy Studies Journal</i> , 44(1), pp. 37–58.
	Jones, M. D., Peterson, H. L., Pierce, J. J., Herweg, N., Bernal, A., Raney, H. L. and Zahariadis, N. (2016) 'A river runs through it: a multiple streams meta-review,' <i>Policy Studies Journal</i> , 44(1), pp. 13–36.
	Zohlnhöfer, R., Herweg, N. and Rüb, F. W. (2015) 'Theoretically refining the multiple streams framework: an introduction,' <i>European Journal of Political Research</i> , 54(3), pp. 412–418.
Selected applications	Abiola, S.E., Colgrove, J. and Mello, M. M. (2013) 'The politics of HPV vaccination policy formation in the United States,' <i>Journal of Health Politics, Policy and Law</i> , 38(4), pp. 645–681.
	DeLeo, R. A. (2018) 'Indicators, agendas and streams: analysing the politics of preparedness,' <i>Policy & Politics</i> , 46(1), pp. 27–45.
	Derwort, P., Jäger, N. and Newig, J. (2022) 'How to explain major policy change towards sustainability? Bringing together the multiple streams framework and the multilevel perspective on socio-technical transitions to explore the German "Energiewende",' <i>Policy Studies Journal</i> , 50(3), pp. 671–699.
	Henstra, D. (2010) 'Explaining local policy choices: a multiple streams analysis of municipal emergency management,' <i>Canadian Public Administration</i> , 53(2), pp. 241–258.
	Kusi-Ampofo, O., Church, J., Conteh, C. and Heinmiller, B. T. (2015) 'Resistance and change: a multiple streams approach to understanding health policy making in Ghana,' <i>Journal of Health Politics, Policy and Law</i> , 40(1), pp. 195–219.
Videos	Urban Policy Lab Konstanz (2015) 'Multiple streams approach: an introduction,' [online video] Available at: https://www.youtube.com/watch?v=JULvyBVoJiI .
	Kim Saks McManaway (2020) 'Week 6--multiple streams framework,' [online video] Available at: https://www.youtube.com/watch?v=4TtNv2gHUec .

8. Teaching an historical institutionalist approach to public policy¹

Grace Skogstad

INTRODUCTION

Since the term ‘historical institutionalism’ (HI) was coined three decades ago (Steinmo, Thelen and Longstreth, 1992), a considerable theoretical and empirical literature has developed to explain how institutions develop, change and structure behaviour, including with respect to public policy-making. Much of this literature seeks to explain large-scale outcomes like democratic transitions and state-building, or the establishment and/or reform of formal macro-level institutions like constitutions or formal meso-level institutions like party systems (see, for example, chapters in Fioretos, Falleti and Sheingate, 2016). While it is clearly helpful in elaborating HI theoretical concepts and methodologies, this chapter focuses on the subset of the HI literature that illuminates how institutions affect the development of public policies in and over time, and how policies, once established, can themselves acquire institutional status with consequences for later policy development. Specifically, the chapter addresses the following questions: what key insights from this field of research do instructors of public policy try to convey to students and practitioners of public policy? And by what pedagogical means?

In answer to the first question, this chapter suggests a major theme in teaching an HI approach to public policy is the dynamism of this field of research in terms of both theoretical and empirical development. To assist instructors in demonstrating the dynamism of HI research, this chapter draws attention to scholarship that exhibits the refinement of analytical premises about the structuring and stabilizing role of formal institutions in politics and public policy development in response to critics. This exercise includes illustrating how other causal logics, principally those invoking ideational and discursive factors, have been incorporated into HI accounts in order to provide fuller explanations of how institutions and public policies change. A recent example of the dynamism of HI accounts of policy development is the application of HI concepts of policy feedback to policies with respect to energy transitions and climate action: a subject that many students find timely and relevant.

With respect to the second question, namely how to teach an HI approach to understanding public policy, the chapter identifies existing literature that is likely to be helpful in describing the theoretical assumptions, concepts and methods used by HI scholars. This literature has been dominated by studies examining the durability of US public policies, and more specifically, American social policies (including healthcare, social security and pensions), including how they differ from those in other industrialized democracies (Lynch and Rhodes, 2016). While much of the empirically based HI research is thus focused on a particular institutional context, it is nonetheless useful in elaborating core HI concepts and methodologies for explain-

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ing policy dynamics. It accordingly has an important place in a curriculum on HI and public policy by providing the content for lectures and class discussions. Depending on their level of study, students often cannot be expected to ‘learn by doing’ the typically detailed empirical longitudinal case studies that characterize HI scholarship, but all can ‘learn by example’ from these case studies. While most of the literature cited here illustrates key theoretical concepts and methodological approaches used by HI scholars to describe policy-making in advanced industrialized democracies, the few case studies that invoke HI concepts in other contexts – and particularly in the global South – are also referenced.

To address the question of the insights to be conveyed and the methods to do so, this chapter is organized as responses to a set of questions. They are the questions of interest to HI scholars that are also germane to teaching HI approaches to policy studies. The questions concern what assumptions HI scholars have about the causes of human behaviour and the nature of the policy process, the major theoretical concepts and methods they use to explain policy choices and policy outcomes, their responses to critics of their approach, and the usefulness of HI public policy research and knowledge to policy practitioners.

WHAT ARE HI SCHOLARS INTERESTED IN? WHAT ASSUMPTIONS DO THEY MAKE ABOUT HUMAN BEHAVIOUR THAT AFFECT HOW THEY CONCEPTUALIZE THE POLICY PROCESS AND POLICY DEVELOPMENT?

In the words of one of the earliest HI scholars, Sven Steinmo (2008: 126), ‘What the HI scholar wants to know is why a certain choice was made and/or why a certain outcome occurred.’ This objective, however, clearly does not distinguish HI scholars from other public policy scholars. Indeed, explaining why particular decisions and not others are made by governments is a major goal of all public policy scholarship. To accomplish it, policy scholars focus on the policy process and the contextual and other factors that affect the interactions among political actors within it.

Peter Hall (2016: 31–32), an early contributor to HI scholarship, describes HI scholars’ assumption of human behaviour as ‘structured in space and time.’ By this he means that political actors’ behaviour is conditioned by contextual effects, some of which vary across place and time, but others of which are relatively stable for discrete periods and often diverge across cases. The ‘structures’ referenced by Hall include institutions in which actors are embedded at a particular point in time and which affect both the immediate outcome of interest while also conditioning outcomes in later periods.

Some HI scholars, seeking to explain why a certain choice was made and a certain outcome occurred, direct their attention to how prevailing political institutions affect political outcomes synchronously (that is, in the short run). Such an account would often focus on how institutional rules affect the access to decision-makers and influence of different actors, including those representing social and economic groups. For other HI scholars, explaining why a certain choice was made and a certain outcome occurred entails examining how political institutions have not only synchronous but also the diachronous effects (over time) described by Hall (2016). Their accounts would examine how antecedent choices at time 1 (T1) with respect to establishing an institution – or public policy – set the parameters for choices at time 2 (T2): for example, by affecting the preferences and strategies of political actors in policy-making

(Jacobs, 2016). Demonstrating the diachronous effects of institutions and established public policies is the major contribution of public policy scholars to explaining why and how policy choices and their outcomes can vary across places and over time.

Case studies of the development of the welfare state are instructive examples of HI scholarship that reveal how differences in countries' political institutions account for differences in their provision of social welfare policies. A recurrent animating puzzle of this literature has been the 'exceptionalism' of the US welfare state in terms of its weaker welfare state provision (for summaries of this literature, see Jacobs, 2016; Lynch and Rhodes, 2016).

WHAT DISTINGUISHES HI PUBLIC POLICY SCHOLARS' ACCOUNTS OF THE POLICY PROCESS AND POLICY DEVELOPMENT?

To appreciate how HI approaches to the policy process differ from other approaches, it is important for students to understand what an institutionalist logic entails, how HI scholars define institutions, and how they conceptualize the role of institutions in the policy process. Parsons (2007: 76) is helpful in defining an institutionalist logic: 'institutions directly shape action by unintentionally altering the costs and benefits of conscious choice over time.' His book, *How to Map Arguments in Political Science*, is also useful in distinguishing an institutionalist logic from a structural approach, which attributes people's actions to their position in an external material environment; from a psychological approach, which attributes people's actions to their internal makeup and the hard-wiring of their brains; and from an ideational approach, which attributes people's actions to their (historically constructed) cognitive and affective beliefs (ibid.: 12–15).

Institutionalist scholars define institutions in different ways. For example, in her pioneering work on the origins of social policy in the United States, Skocpol (1992) focuses on formal rules and organizations like state legislative, administrative and judicial organizations, as well as party organizations. In his early work, Hall (1992: 96) uses the term institutions more inclusively to refer to not just formal rules and compliance procedures but also less formal customary practices that structure the behaviour of individuals in the polity and economy. Other HI scholars include established norms as institutions (Blyth, 2002). What establishes an entity like a formal or informal rule or organization, says Hall (2016: 35), is their 'rule-like quality in the sense that the actors expect the practices to be observed.' As such, we cannot make sense of individuals' behaviour within institutions without reference to these practices (ibid.).

HI theories about how institutions (be they formal rules, organizations or customary practices) originate and develop over time pay close attention to the timing and sequencing (that is, history) of political processes. Scholarship by Thelen (1999, 2000) and Pierson (2000a, 2000b, 2003, 2004) is pathbreaking in developing these themes. Thelen (1999) emphasizes the need to recognize that 'institutions emerge from and are embedded in concrete historical processes – with the result that an institution can be understood as "the embodiment of historical processes".' HI scholars usually emphasize that institutions are contingent outcomes of power struggles in which some political actors and interest groups prevail over others (Hall, 1992).

The HI emphasis on the exercise of power in the origins of institutions contrasts with rational institutionalist (RI) scholars who regard institutions as voluntarily selected by political actors and representing an equilibrium of their preferences (Shepsle, 1989). RI scholars argue

that institutions can constrain political actors' ability to achieve their political preferences, but they do not believe they reconfigure their preferences as HI scholars do. Indeed, a major focus of HI scholars, as discussed later in the chapter, is to demonstrate how institutions (including established public policies) alter the political landscape wherein people's preferences, resources and incentives to engage in political action are determined.

HI scholars examine the policy process and policy development differently than do scholars who assume that the causal factors that affect policy development do not vary in their significance over time. For Pierson (2000a: 263) paying attention to history means conceiving of the policy process as 'a moving picture rather than a still image' that unfolds over time (Pierson, 2000a: 263). That is, policy processes and choices at a later point in time are circumscribed by earlier (historic) processes that are embedded in institutions as 'formal rules, policy structures, or norms' (Pierson, 2000b: 264–265). Paying attention to the temporal context of policy development, as Peter Hall (2016: 38) argues, also enables us to understand why 'some outcomes may be more likely in some kinds of temporal contexts than in others and similar causal factors may have more impact in some periods than in others.'

The works cited here by Hall, Pierson and Thelen are useful for introducing students to HI scholars' conceptualization of the policy process and policy development, even while alerting them to nuances in these scholars' understanding of what an institutionalist logic entails. Hall (1992, 2016), for example, envisions the political process as structured not only by institutionalist logics but also by structural and ideational logics (as discussed later in this chapter). Included within Pierson's (2000b: 264–265, 2003) view of the unfolding policy process are 'big, slow-moving processes,' like economic or political developments, that shift the institutions within which political contestation takes place, with consequences for later policy outcomes.

WHAT THEORETICAL CONCEPTS HAVE HI SCHOLARS DEVELOPED TO EXPLAIN POLICY CHOICES AND TO DEMONSTRATE HOW THE POLICY PROCESS IS CHARACTERIZED BY THE CONNECTION OF POLICY EVENTS 'IN AND OVER TIME'?

Consistent with their understanding of politics as a process that unfolds over time and is structured by the institutional framework of policy development, HI scholars have theorized a number of concepts to explain how public policies are connected to one another in patterns of change and/or continuity. These concepts incorporate arguments about the importance of *timing* (when policy relevant events occur relative to other policy events) and *sequencing* (the order in which policy relevant events occur) to policy development (Howlett, 2009; Rayner, 2009). The foremost HI concepts to which students should be introduced are the following: policy feedback, reactive sequences, historical conjunctures, critical junctures, path dependency, layering, drift, and conversion.

Policy Feedback

Policy feedback – 'the ways in which previously established social policies affect subsequent politics' (Skocpol, 1992: 41) – is a central concept in HI accounts of how the policy process

connects antecedent and subsequent policy events. Drawing on Schattschneider (1935), Skocpol and Ameta (1986), and Skocpol (1992), Pierson (1993) fleshed out how policies, as important rules of the decision-making game, have causal effects on ensuing political developments. He drew attention to how policies' allocation of material economic, informational and political resources modifies the political capacities and incentives of interest groups, state actors and mass publics.

In his 1994 book, *Dismantling the Welfare State?*, Pierson elaborated on the role of policy feedback in explaining why conservative politicians in the UK and the USA had been unable to achieve their goals of retrenching the social welfare state. In subsequent articles, Pierson (2000a, 2000b) also advanced theorizing of the conditions conducive to positive or self-reinforcing feedback processes that stabilized or expanded early policy choices. Even while emphasizing that initial policy choices would give rise to mechanisms that 'locked' them in, Pierson (2000a) also drew attention to alternative outcomes of non-reinforcing policy sequences and the disruption of existing policy pathways as a result of historical conjunctures of two or more policy sequences.

Another important contribution of Pierson was to exhort scholars to be more precise about the characteristics of policies that matter and under what circumstances (when and where). Drawing students' attention to how Pierson's call to action has been heeded brings them to a rich and ever-expanding literature that helps them understand how research builds on both the insights as well as the critiques of earlier scholars. Students can also appreciate the evolving state of feedback research by consulting periodic summaries and overviews; see, for example, Béland (2010a), Mettler and SoRelle (2018), Béland and Schlager (2019), and Sewerin, Béland and Cashore (2020).

Much of the policy feedback literature focuses on the 'first-order' effects of policies: that is, on their political impacts on the resources, capacities, beliefs and subsequent political behaviour of nonstate and state actors. This literature is clearly of interest to HI public policy scholars insofar as it reveals how the effects of policy choices can (re)shape the political landscape for subsequent policy development: for example, by altering the capacity of state officials, affecting the incentives and resources of individuals' and groups to mobilize in the political arena, and altering their views of public policies and appropriate relations among states, markets and individuals. This literature on first order effects is dominated by US case studies and other liberal democracies (see Mettler and SoRelle, 2018 for a good summary). An exception is Hern's (2017) investigation of policy feedback in what she labels 'low-capacity democracies.' Using the case of Zambia, Hern (2017) argues that even marginal access to publicly-provided services can have the feedback effect of increasing political participation.

For most public policy scholars, it is the 'second order' effects of a policy on its own subsequent stability and change that are of keen interest. Jordan and Matt (2014) describe investigating these second order effects as examining the entire *feedback loop*, from a policy's effects on the socioeconomic system to a policy's termination or change. Examples for students of policy studies that investigate the full feedback loop include Campbell's (2003) study of US retirement programs, Patashnik's (2019) study of the fate of several US reforms, Weaver's (2010) study of public pension regimes in western industrialized countries and Skogstad's (2017) study of the EU's renewable fuels policy.

An important development in the policy feedback literature is theorizing and documenting different kinds of feedback processes. Case studies lend support to Pierson's (1993, 2000a, 2000b) thesis that self-reinforcing feedback processes occur once social policies gain a toehold

with the consequence of making policy change difficult (see, for example, Campbell, 2012). Other research has demonstrated that policies may fail to generate effects that reinforce them; to the contrary, they may also give rise to self-undermining feedbacks. Weaver's (2010) examination of negative feedbacks in pension policies is an illustrative theoretical and empirical case study. Another important theoretical contribution to this literature is Jacobs and Weaver's (2015) examination of the conditions under which self-undermining feedback is likely to arise and be a source of policy change. Examples of other studies that provide theoretical elaboration and empirical case studies of self-undermining feedback, and the consequent implications for patterns of continuity or change in a policy, are Patashnik and Zelizer (2013), Skogstad (2020), and Schmid, Sewerin and Schmidt (2020).

A final important development in the policy feedback research is the identification of factors that affect whether feedback effects are likely to be self-reinforcing, self-undermining, neither, or both. Foremost among these factors are the design of a policy – that is, the choice of policy instruments and their calibration (Sewerin, Béland and Cashore, 2020; Daugbjerg and Kay, 2020; Jordan and Matt, 2014); the presence of institutional supports in the implementation phase (Jordan and Matt, 2014; Oberlander and Weaver, 2015; Patashnik, 2008; Patashnik and Zelizer, 2013; Skogstad, 2017, 2020; Weaver, 2010); and political actors' deliberate efforts in constructing policy feedback (Dagan and Teles, 2015). As discussed further below, attention to how the design of a policy instrument can affect its feedback effects is likely to be particularly instructive for policy practitioners.

Critical Junctures and Path Dependence

Critical junctures and path dependence are interrelated concepts that also demonstrate how factors of timing and sequencing affect institutional/policy development. Drawing on scholarship that highlighted how 'major watersheds' set the direction of political life for a significant period of time, Collier and Collier (1991) provided an early definition of a critical juncture: a period of significant change in which existing institutional patterns are dislodged. They also stressed the need for scholars to identify the conditions under which critical junctures take place as well as their mechanisms of production and reproduction. A major hypothesis of critical juncture thinking is that institutions 'often tenaciously resist change' (ibid.: 36) so that a critical juncture requires the pressure of an 'external shock' (ibid.: 31). Since this early conceptualization, HI scholars have provided greater explanatory precision of the circumstances under which critical junctures occur and the role of agency (that is, political actors) in them and whether they have lasting effects (see, for example, Capoccia and Kelemen, 2007; Hogan, 2019).

For scholars of public policy, the critical junctures during which long-standing policy sequences are disrupted and policy shifts onto a new policy trajectory have been conceptualized as a punctuated equilibrium (Baumgartner, Jones and Mortensen, 2018). Policies established during a punctuated equilibrium are, like other institutions, theorized to have causal effects on the path of future policy development, and more specifically, to foreclose alternative policies pending another critical juncture. Pierson (2000b) was at the forefront of describing the mechanisms that lead to policies, once established, creating path dependence. Critical junctures and path dependence are thus closely related concepts, with the former theorized as the 'starting points' for many path-dependent processes (ibid.; see also Mahoney, 2000: 513).

Like its partner concept, critical juncture, path dependence has also been subject to critique (c.f. Kay, 2003, 2005). A major premise of path dependency, and its professed lock-in effects of policies, is that initial policy events in a sequence matter disproportionately over time by offering ‘increasing returns’ to the beneficiaries of a policy and providing incentives to others to adjust their behaviour in order to also benefit from the policy. This assumption of path dependency has been challenged by scholars who argue that antecedent policy events do not necessarily generate ‘buy in’ and that enacted policies can equally trigger counter-reactions in the form of reactive sequences that undermine them or leave them vulnerable to chronic political contestation over time. Examples of studies that investigate reactive sequence dynamics include Daugbjerg’s (2009) analysis of changes to the European Union’s Common Agricultural Policy and Skogstad’s (2017) analysis of retrenchment of the European Union’s renewable fuels policies.

An informative case study for students with an interest in policy developments outside advanced industrialized democracies is Teichman’s (2019) account of how critical conjunctures, linked to waves of popular mobilization in Chile and Mexico, brought income distributional conflicts to a head but did not resolve them. Rather, she demonstrates the inability of social groups to use critical conjunctures to reverse or break apart previous institutional arrangements owing to successful counter-reactions by propertied and middle-class allies. Teichman describes a process of reactive historical sequences whose outcome is increasing high levels of income inequality over time.

Gradual Change Mechanisms

The focus on critical junctures and path-dependent policy processes has been critiqued by other HI scholars for conceptualizing institutional/policy change as dichotomous: either abrupt and discontinuous or very minor and mainly continuous over time. Kathleen Thelen (1999, 2003, 2004) and her colleagues (Streeck and Thelen, 2005; Mahoney and Thelen, 2010) have theorized alternative modes of institutional change. They argue that institutions must adapt over time in order to survive to a changing context around them, and do so through gradual changes, often incremental, that can be highly consequential. They have theorized mechanisms endogenous to institutions like *layering* (the introduction of deliberate additions and revisions to existing policies to address new concerns), *drift* (the failure to adapt policies to new circumstances in order to achieve their original goals), *conversion* (the reinterpretation of policies to serve new purposes) and *displacement* (the removal of existing policies and the introduction of new ones) as well as the conditions under which they occur to result in modifications to institutions and/or their outcomes (Thelen and Mahoney, 2015).

Literature of this sort that examines endogenous mechanisms of institutional change is helpful in demonstrating how and when political actors, as enabled by the institutions they occupy, adapt these same institutions over time, but equally, as well are empowered to delay or prevent institutional change (Capoccia, 2016).

Students can be introduced to these different modes of gradual change and the role of political actors in them by examining Adrian Kay’s (2007) case study of layering in Australian health insurance policy, and Daugbjerg and Swinbank’s (2016) study of layering in the European Union’s Common Agricultural Policy. Layering, drift and conversion are given detailed coverage by Hacker, Pierson and Thelen (2015). Hacker (2004) illustrates the role of

drift, conversion and layering in his study of social policy retrenchment in the US and theorizes the political-institutional conditions that are conducive to each mode of change.

HOW HAS THE HI PUBLIC POLICY LITERATURE RESPONDED TO CRITICS, AND THE IDEATIONAL CRITIQUE IN PARTICULAR?

Theoretical criticisms of HI scholarship come from those who adopt different ontological perspectives: that is, about what exists in the social world to shape actors' behaviour. Those who adhere to a structural logic – and who argue that individuals' actions are invariantly determined by their position in a material environment not manipulable by the actors (Parsons, 2007: chapter 2) – fault HI approaches for neglecting the causal importance of economic structural variables (Pontusson, 1995). Those who adhere to an ideational logic – and who argue that individuals' actions are determined by their cognitive beliefs and evaluative interpretations of the situation around them – critique HI approaches that fail to take account of ideational variables like norms, cognitions (knowledge) and discourse.

HI scholars have responded to these critiques theoretically, by engaging in debate about the differences among various institutionalist scholars about how institutions originate, change and have political consequences. Students can become aware of these distinctions among historical, rational, sociological and discursive/constructive institutionalism by consulting readings like Hall and Taylor (1996, 1998); Hay and Wincott (1998); Schmidt (2008); Hay (2009); and Blyth, Helgadóttir and Kring (2016).

It is noteworthy that criticisms about HI's over-emphasis on institutional factors to the neglect of other causal factors never applied to all HI scholarship. In his chapter in the first collection on historical institutionalism edited by Steinmo, Thelen and Longstreth (1992), Hall (1992: 90) observed that

those who approach the world from the standpoint of historical institutionalism accord prominence to the role of institutions in political life, but they are not concerned with institutions alone. Rather, their analyses explore the role of several variables – often encapsulated as institutions, interests, and ideas in the determination of political outcomes.

Hall's (1989) case study of the paradigmatic shift from Keynesianism to monetarism in British economic policy situated the impact of institutions within what he called 'a broader matrix' of clashing social and political interests, structural changes in the world economy, and competing interpretations of the economy. That is, it combined institutional, ideational and structural factors.

In a similar fashion, Blyth (2001, 2002) demonstrated how economic ideas, interests and institutions created and later transformed embedded liberalism in the United States and Sweden in the twentieth century. Blyth built the causal effects of ideas – in reducing uncertainty during a crisis, as resources for collective action and coalition-building, as weapons to attack and delegitimize existing institutions, as institutional blueprints to construct new institutions, and as mechanisms to coordinate expectations and stabilize institutions – explicitly into his account of institutional change.

While some HI scholars – those for whom institutions are material organizations that are ontologically prior to the individuals who occupy them – have resisted building ideational

and discursive factors into their accounts of institutional development and change (Blyth, Helgadottir and Kring, 2016), others do so (Béland, 2007, 2010b). In their examination of critical junctures, mechanisms of gradual change and policy feedback, HI scholars have demonstrated the contingency of these phenomena on the agency of political actors. With respect to critical junctures, students can be directed to Hogan (2019); on mechanisms of gradual change and policy feedback, they can profit from reading Béland (2007, 2010a).

Close examination of case studies that integrate institutional and other logics of explanation will help students to appreciate the complexity of public policy development. They also provide fodder for classroom debates about the relative significance of the different factors, including institutions, that combine to explain public policy-making and policy outcomes.

WHAT ARE THE MAJOR METHODS USED BY HI PUBLIC POLICY SCHOLARS AND HOW CAN THESE METHODS BE TAUGHT? WHAT ARE THE MAJOR CRITICISMS AND LIMITATIONS OF HI METHODS?

As noted above, HI scholars have introduced several key concepts or causal mechanisms – critical junctures, path dependency, policy feedback and gradual change mechanisms – to explain how policy outcomes are the result of historical processes. To demonstrate the empirical causality of these hypothesized causal mechanisms, HI scholars typically conduct individual or small-N case studies and compile detailed evidence of the case(s) under scrutiny. Their major sources of information are historical documents, and, where possible, interviews with policy actors knowledgeable about the development of the policy. Using these information sources, HI scholars trace the processes that link a hypothesized cause (a critical juncture, for example) to its hypothesized effect (path dependency).

Process tracing to establish the causality of historical effects on policy development requires an extended time frame. Demonstrating the effects of path dependency, policy feedback and gradual mechanisms of change, not to mention the impacts of slow-moving processes, requires tracing policy development for an elongated period, rather than investigating short-term factors (Hall, 2003). Empirically documenting an entire feedback loop, Jordan and Matt (2014) point out, is ‘an encompassing and ambitious research agenda’ that stretches over time insofar as it entails investigating all of the following: how the policy design came about, its impacts, why and how it subsequently changed politics, and whether, as a result of the latter, the policy design itself changed.

HI scholars also need to be knowledgeable about the changing broader context – not only institutional but also cultural and economic – insofar as HI causal mechanisms, like policy feedback, only acquire causality on policy outcomes in interaction with contiguous events. Reliable historical evidence is crucial. To study critical junctures, for example, Capoccia and Kelemen (2007: 355) recommend using historical evidence to establish not only what decisions were taken but also those that were considered but ultimately did not prevail. This method, they argue, is a rigorous way to establish a critical juncture through counterfactual reasoning; that is, consideration of other plausible consequences that might have resulted had other viable choices been taken.

The substantial informational, and hence, time-consuming demands of doing HI-informed research make it unrealistic to expect undergraduate or even many graduate students to learn

HI methods by doing HI research. However, the empirical grounding of HI scholarship and its reliance on qualitative methods make this literature more easily comprehended by students than research which relies on sophisticated quantitative methods. As Walker (2009) suggests, close examination of longitudinal case studies over the course of a term can be a fruitful group exercise for students and one in which they can learn from one another.

HOW IS HI PUBLIC POLICY RESEARCH AND KNOWLEDGE USEFUL TO POLICY PRACTITIONERS?

The knowledge of HI scholars about the temporal dynamics of policy-making is of potential utility to policy practitioners. An important example is the insight of HI scholars about how past policies and decisions, once institutionalized, influence current policy-making and the range of feasible policy options. HI scholarship alerts practitioners to design features of public policies whose feedback effects can heighten the likelihood that policies will become locked in over time, or, conversely, fail to garner supportive constituencies that allow them to be resilient in the face of opponents. Policy feedback literature also reminds practitioners of the need to devote adequate resources to new policies and to maintain the support of influential groups for them if they are to succeed.

Of direct relevance to current or future practitioners tasked with finding solutions to policy problems or charged with implementing public policies is recent work which addresses how policies to advance innovative technologies to tackle climate change can be intentionally designed to leverage feedback dynamics for transformative change (Jordan and Matt, 2014; Meckling, 2019; Rosenbloom, Meadowcroft and Cashore, 2019; Sewerin, Béland and Cashore, 2020; Smith, 2020).

Prominent American HI scholars have also turned their attention to how the feedback effects of policies can be used to find durable solutions to long-standing problems. The results and recommendations of the Policy Feedback Project led by Jacob Hacker and Paul Pierson (2019) are intended to provide lessons for how policy-makers can effectively address politically challenging problems in the American context of high partisan polarization and economic inequality. While the contributors to the project acknowledge the complexity of feedback dynamics, policy-makers can still glean insights from their recommendations regarding how supportive feedback dynamics can be leveraged during the establishment, entrenchment and expansion of ambitious and risky program initiatives. As a contributor to this project, Patashnik's (2019) recommendations on strategies to limit the risk and potency of elite, interest group and mass public backlash – a form of negative feedback – should be of use to policy-makers who want to 'load the dice in favor of sustainable change.'

More generally, in demonstrating the weight of history on current policy-making, HI scholarship's utility to policy practitioners is its sobering reminder that policy-makers rarely, if ever, start with a *tabula rasa* when it comes to devising solutions to problems that reach the policy agenda. Prompting policy practitioners to be cognisant of the effect of antecedent policies and their legacies on subsequent public policy developments – and the leverage within those constraints – may be where HI scholarship is most useful. While policy practitioners can undoubtedly profit from reading HI empirical case studies, a more effective mode of communicating HI scholarship to them is likely to be a two-way conversation in a seminar setting.

CONCLUSION

Instructors tasked with teaching historical institutionalism to students of public policy have a substantial body of literature to draw on. This chapter has provided an analytical framework for constructing such a course by organizing the HI literature relevant to public policy in terms of answers to the following: the questions that are of interest to HI scholars, their assumptions about the causes of human behaviour and the nature of the policy process, the major theoretical concepts and methods they use to explain policy choices and policy outcomes, responses of HI scholars to critics of their approach, and the usefulness of HI public policy research and knowledge to policy practitioners. The chapter has identified foundational and illustrative works that instructors can assign to familiarize students with answers to these questions, and thereby also illustrate the dynamism of HI scholarship over time. In terms of the delivery of a course on HI and public policy, the chapter recommends the use of lectures, class discussions and assignments that provide students with an opportunity to examine closely published case studies that examine the development of different public policies over time.

As noted throughout this chapter, the HI public policy literature is overwhelmingly focused on policy development in the context of industrialized democracies. As such, its foundational and subsequent rapidly expanding literature provides the basis for an ongoing discussion between instructors and students about the relevance of this literature in other political-institutional contexts, including their own. Such a pedagogical exercise will, ideally, spur graduate students to conduct their own empirical research into the portability of HI concepts beyond the institutional context in which they originated.

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9. Teaching punctuated equilibrium theory

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INTRODUCTION

Punctuated equilibrium theory (PET), ultimately, is a theory of political organizations and institutions disproportionately processing information. This disproportionate information processing, born out of innate human cognitive limitations, leads to long periods of policy stasis interrupted by brief periods of large, abrupt changes. When introducing PET, then, it is best to start with the micro-foundations of decision-making: bounded rationality as opposed to rational choice or incrementalism. With that knowledge, students can apply human cognitive limits to organizational theory and design and then to organizational behavior in political systems. By building from micro-foundations of decision-making to the organizational behavior of political institutions, the transition to the full theory of punctuated equilibrium in policymaking is an easy one. The Comparative Agendas Project's (CAP) datasets and Trends Tool (Comparative Agendas 2022) can be used to help even the most inexperienced student track policy outputs and trends over time and across institutions both within a specific country and in a comparative setting. Undergraduate students can use the Trends Tool to visualize punctuated changes in a policy area of their choice and apply the newly acquired knowledge of decision-making and PET to explain said changes. Graduate students can build on existing datasets to answer interesting questions and expand the existing knowledgebase of PET. Students exposed to PET in this way then have both a robust theoretical understanding of policy change as well as an opportunity to apply that knowledge in the research setting.

One approach to teaching PET, then, is to break the subject into four distinct parts: (1) micro-foundations of decision-making, (2) applications of those micro-foundations to organizational theory, (3) organizational behavior within the political system, and (4) policy outputs and applied research. This chapter is organized around these four elements of PET, providing a review of the key topics and concepts as well as related teaching resources with a particular emphasis placed on active learning. Having students read about and experience (through active learning exercises) human cognitive limitations, i.e., the micro-foundations of decision-making, allows for a greater understanding of organizational design and information processing.

MICRO-FOUNDATIONS OF DECISION-MAKING

Bounded Rationality

To teach policy change, it is imperative and pedagogically relevant to begin with the underlying assumptions of human decision-making. In contrast to rational choice theory in economics, PET relies on bounded rationality to explain how individuals process information and make decisions. There are limits on human rationality—knowledge is incomplete, outcomes can

be only imperfectly anticipated, and there is often no way to know all possible alternatives (Simon 1997). In order for decision-makers to make a choice they must focus attention on the problem, have a mechanism to generate alternatives, and a capacity to acquire facts (Simon 1983). Consequently, the decision-maker will not be able to optimize, and there will be no guarantee of consistency.

There are four basic principles of bounded rationality: (1) decision-makers intend to make rational decisions, (2) uncertainty is present throughout the entire decision-making process, (3) tradeoffs will lead to satisficing rather than optimizing, and (4) decision-makers must adapt to their task environments (Jones 2003). Pedagogically, it is helpful to separate these four principles and introduce them serially so students can see their individual as well as cumulative impacts on decision-making and policy change. Particularly for undergraduates and practitioners, having them learn and experience the underlying micro-foundations creates more interest for the former and more acceptance of the importance of studying policy theories for the latter.

The principle of intended rationality (Jones 2003) states that people are goal-oriented but are unable to accomplish many of their goals because of their own cognitive limits and complex decision-making environments. Issues like climate change, global terrorism, and poverty are complex problems that require lots of information to determine the causes, potential alternatives, and policy outcomes. A comprehensive solution is very improbable due to the amount of information needed and the complex political environment; there is not even agreement as to whether some of these problems are the responsibility of the government, much less how to solve them.

The principle of uncertainty (Jones 2003) suggests that people have a difficult time assessing risk and making decisions in the presence of uncertainty. Humans have a tendency to either over or under assign risk to a given situation. The recent public health pandemic is a great example of how risk assessment varies by decision-maker. Even after the death toll for COVID-19 reached over 6 million worldwide, there are still many who think the entire pandemic was a hoax (Johnson 2022; Kavanagh 2022).

The principle of tradeoffs (Jones 2003) suggests that people have a difficult time choosing between competing alternatives, especially in trading off benefits against losses. When teaching bounded rationality, I often start with more personal examples and then progress to broader political examples. I find that students who can relate to bounded rationality first have an easier time understanding of how it fits with PET. The following examples are just one way to do this. For individuals, the principle of tradeoffs can be illustrated using the process we go through while parking a car at a big box store: How often do individuals spend more time driving around looking for a closer space than if they would have simply taken the first space and walked in? In politics, these tradeoffs are often more complicated and require policy-makers to weigh long-term costs and short-term gains against short-term costs and long-term gains. A policy area such as climate change is a great example of this; to correct many issues with climate change requires great short-term investment while we may not see policy gains for many years to come. The alternative option is to spend little now and deal with the consequences later.

According to the principle of adaptation, people can overcome cognitive limits and environmental complexities given both time and resources (Jones 2003). One example is public health. Through the use of time and resources, scientists were able to do away with many of the serious communicable diseases that used to plague many countries (ex: smallpox, polio, and mumps). Another way to think about this is that the principle of adaptation says that with more

resources we can better understand and receive information in the environment, subsequently increasing our abilities to make decisions.

The number of resources devoted to decision-making varies—on issues that individuals are comfortable with they tend to rely on past experiences and heuristics to make decisions. This peripheral processing is how people deal with information when both motivation and attention are low. On the other hand, central processing is how people deal with information when motivation and attention are both high. In this case, individuals will use more mental resources and allow new data and information a greater role in shaping the decision process.

For example, compare how you deal with routine household chores to putting together a complicated piece of IKEA furniture. In the first scenario, you largely rely on muscle memory and past experiences and likely multitask (ex. listen to a podcast, talk on the phone). In the latter scenario, you must carefully pay attention and follow directions so you can complete the project properly. More cognitive resources are used in the second situation indicating central processing as opposed to peripheral processing in the first.

Problem Definition

Because of humans' innate cognitive limits, the language used to describe policy and the problem definition process is especially important. In policy debates, problems and solutions are often thrown together, sometimes even used interchangeably. Too often students have difficulty separating the policy problem from the proposed solutions. Even at the graduate level, the issue frequently persists with students conflating the two, arguing, for example, that the problem is the need for higher oil production rather than identifying the problem as a lack of energy independence and one possible solution being to increase the national oil production. Analytically and pedagogically, though, it is helpful to separate problems and the problem definition process from solutions and the process of identifying viable solutions. Newell and Simon (1972) contend that decisions can be broken down into two parts—the construction and definition of a problem and the identification of alternative solutions. The problem space is characterized by multidimensional problems that are messy and undefined. Decision-makers must determine what the problem is or which dimensions of the problem are most important.

This winnowing of problems is often referred to as problem definition or the process through which a phenomenon is labeled as not only a problem, but one that deserves the government's attention (see Kingdon 1984; Stone 1989). Problem definition can also be conceived as the process through which policymakers identify which dimension of a problem is in greatest need of government intervention (see Dery 1984; Jones 1994). In the first conception of problem definition, for example, policymakers identify energy availability as a problem government should address. In the second conception, if there is agreement that energy availability is a problem, policymakers must then determine which of the many dimensions of that issue that the government should focus on: domestic oil production, alternative sources of energy, or use of fossil fuels.

Framing

Discussing framing, causal stories, and policy images can help solidify the importance of the problem definition process in policy change for students. Reading how different policy frames or images lead to different policy solutions also helps reiterate the difference between

problems and solutions. For undergraduate students, this might include a conversation about competing frames on a current event. For graduate students, a reading assignment built around texts like *The Decline of the Death Penalty* (Baumgartner, De Boef, and Boydston 2008) or 'Up in Smoke' (Worsham 2006) would be more appropriate. Indeed, this should enable students to see that how a problem is defined not only steers the debate surrounding that particular problem, but also limits which solutions can or cannot be considered later in the policy process (Stone 1989; Kingdon 1984; Baumgartner and Jones 1993). Baumgartner and colleagues (2008) do an excellent job illustrating this point using the history of the death penalty in the US. The rise of the innocence frame (innocent people can and do get sentenced to death) as opposed to moral and justice frames (an 'eye for an eye') has coincided with a decrease in the prevalence of the death penalty.¹

Frames or causal stories can be used to connect a cause to the problem, place blame on opposition, and allow political parties or policy entrepreneurs to credit claim (see Stone 1989). By using causal stories, strategic framing, and controlling policy images those in power can maintain power (see Baumgartner and Jones 1991, 1993; Worsham 2006). By disrupting these frames, images, and causal stories, policy outsiders are able to encourage policy change. Baumgartner and Jones (1991) and Worsham (2006) show how once policy images in nuclear energy and the framing in tobacco (respectively) changed, dominant players lost power and major policy change occurred in both instances.

Developing a Curriculum for Teaching the Micro-Foundations

To teach the micro-foundations of decision-making, and lay the theoretical foundations for PET, I balance three different dimensions: what to feature and emphasize in the reading syllabus, what issues and questions to foreground in class discussions, and what active learning activities to mobilize. This section sets out insights from my own practice in relation to these three dimensions.

Firstly, in terms of reading syllabus, a balance needs to be reached between foundational texts, summary materials, and more recent work. Foundational works by Simon (1995), Etzioni (1967), and Jones (2003) explain the impacts of cognitive limits on decision-making with Simon and Jones specifically focusing on bounded rationality. Simon's work introduces bounded rationality and Jones goes one step further to summarize the four main principles of the theory as well as to discuss how individual cognitive limits impact organizational behavior. Simon and Etzioni are more appropriate for more advanced theory-focused students, whereas Jones (2003) is particularly good at outlining how the principles of bounded rationality affect individuals and then connecting that directly to organizational behaviors. Stone (1989), Baumgartner and Jones (1991), and Baumgartner and colleagues' (2008) readings provide foundational discussions of causal stories, policy images, and framing, respectively. Each is approachable at all levels and offers a different perspective on the importance of framing in general and different policy examples (ex. nuclear energy, death penalty) to help students

¹ Unlike most western democracies, the U.S. still allows and frequently implements capital punishment. As the use of DNA and other forensic measures have gained prevalence and shown that people can and have been wrongly convicted, the country has seen an increase in the acceptance of the innocence frame and a decrease in the approval of capital punishment. The resulting policy has been fewer death sentences.

understand and engage with the material. To further the discussion on framing I will often split the class into two groups and have half read a story that is framed positively and the other half read a story with a conflicting frame and then have them discuss differences.

In terms of more recent and summary material, my syllabus draws on Kahneman (2013) and Ariely (2010), who offer opportunities for students to apply bounded rationality to their own lives in order to further their understanding of the materials. Kahneman's work would be most appropriate for advanced, theory-focused students. Ariely's book, though, is more accessible for students at all levels and may be particularly helpful for practitioners as it offers examples in healthcare processes. Shafran, Jones, and Dye (2020) provide a comprehensive summary of bounded rationality in public administration from Simon to current. Their article is best used with more advanced theory students or practitioners given the breadth of the material and focus on public administration.

The reading material is then contextualized and developed in class discussions. Class discussions can emerge organically, but it is also often fruitful to prepare questions to ensure that key issues and aspects are not overlooked in the process. Depending on the students, different discussion questions can be more or less useful for engaging students in discussion and the application of the reading either in terms of theory or practice. For advanced theory students, having them consider how the theories speak to one another is always a top goal when teaching any policy theory. The following questions can be good conversation starters and help assess comprehension on the micro-foundations of decision-making.

- What is incrementalism? How is it supported by bounded rationality?
- Is mixed scanning just a different way to think about bounded rationality, especially central versus peripheral processing? Or is it different entirely?
- How are organizations both victim to cognitive limits, but also how do they help overcome the cognitive limits of humans?

For my students focused on more practical applications, one of my main teaching goals is to keep them engaged with the material. The following questions can help them apply the theories to their organizations and the policy process as well as encouraging participation and gauging comprehension.

- What impact does bounded rationality have on stakeholders' decision processes?
- What are some examples in current events that we can link to bounded rationality?
- How do goals matter when it comes to decision-making? Attention? Altruism?

Class discussions can also be supplemented with other active learning exercises. For example, I often layer on such activities when supporting students to learn about bounded rationality and the principle of adaptation which suggests that individuals can overcome their cognitive limits and environmental complexities with enough time and resources. In short, people rely on heuristics and peripheral processing when attention and resources are low, but central processing when motivation and resources are high. One way to further student comprehension on the topic is by allowing them to experience the switch from peripheral processing to central processing.

An additional exercise involves choosing a sleight of hand video, such as ‘The Monkey Business Illusion’ (Simons 2010) or ‘Whodunnit’ (Dothetst 2008)² and priming the students to peripheral process. For example, you can ask students to solve the murder mystery in ‘Whodunnit’ or ask them to think of a time they made a less than optimal choice while they are watching the video. Once the video plays, ask students if they noticed the less than obvious features of the video. Most students will admit to being oblivious. Discuss why they may have missed these features and compare to peripheral processing. Next, allow the students to rewatch the video. If possible, offer students motivation to increase attention and their cognitive resources (ex. candy or extra credit to the student who notices the most background changes). Finally, discuss what students noticed the first time that they did not notice originally. Why were they able to process more information the second time? How does this relate to central processing? Conclude the exercise by relating it to political organizations and parallel versus serial processing. How does policymaking differ when an institution is processing multiple issues as opposed to focusing on a single issue at a time?

BOUNDED RATIONALITY APPLIED TO ORGANIZATIONAL THEORY

The relationship between individual decision-making and organizational behavior underlines the importance of teaching bounded rationality first and in a way that illustrates human cognitive limits clearly for students. A foundational knowledge of bounded rationality helps us understand organizational theory in terms of decision-making, information processing, and agenda setting, and directly translates individual limits to organizational behavior, especially with the principle of adaptation (Jones 2003). For individuals, the principle of adaptation suggests that with more resources people can better understand and receive information, which is illustrated by the switch between peripheral processing on familiar issues to central processing for more difficult and novel issues. Applied to the organizational level, the two modes of information processing are parallel and serial processing.

Institutions allow for a much greater amount of information to be processed and multiple problems to be addressed at once. In the U.S. Congress, for example, committees allow the institution to process grand amounts of information across multiple policy areas at once. Each committee is working on a separate problem or policy issue and relying on preprogrammed solutions (i.e., the status quo policies). However, when previously prepared solutions fail, the institution, here Congress, must adapt and move from parallel processing to serial processing. All committees, then, are focused on the major problem at hand and are searching for a new solution to fix the issue. How institutions actually process the information they are gaining is explained by the theories of information processing.

Information Processing

Earlier in the chapter I discussed the difference between problems and solutions in helping students consider the two concepts separately rather than conflating the two. Here, too, it is

² ‘The Monkey Business Illusion’ can be found on YouTube: https://youtu.be/IGQmdoK_ZfY; ‘Whodunnit’ can be found on YouTube: <https://youtu.be/ubNF9QNEQLA>.

important to break down information processing into two types—solution-space politics and problem-space politics—to help students recognize key differences between the two processes. Work by Baumgartner and Jones (2015) suggests that when the dimensions of a problem are low and the problem is well-defined, as expected in solution-space politics, policymakers engage in a narrow, expert search. Policymakers engaged in an expert search can target and solicit information from actors they know to hold valuable information (Baumgartner and Jones 2015). This narrow, expert search is possible for two important reasons. First, much of the uncertainty surrounding the problem has been previously addressed in the problem space (Baumgartner and Jones 2015). Policymakers know the problem and the most important aspect(s) of that problem, thereby winnowing proposed solutions and limiting the information necessary for decision-making. Second, the limited set of solutions being winnowed effectively narrows the list of actors involved (or potentially involved) in policy implementation (Baumgartner and Jones 2015). Therefore, not only is the what (information) narrowed but so too is the who (potential information suppliers). For example, policymakers operating in the nuclear energy solutions space have a relatively short list of federal agencies from which they can solicit pertinent information (see Lewallen, Theriault, and Jones 2015; Gailmard and Patty 2013).

The same narrow approach to gathering information would not be appropriate in the problem space. Problems tend to be messy and highly multidimensional. They are often both new and not clearly defined. The information supplied is just as likely to be messy, which we should expect of information supplied in a competitive and crowded atmosphere. Therefore, a broad search is necessary to get a greater understanding of the available information and to account for possible biases and inaccuracies.

The pluralistic theory of information suggests that policymakers need not search or solicit information so much as prioritize or filter the barrage of available information (see Workman, Jones, and Jochim 2009). Baumgartner and Jones (2015) call this entropic search. Entropic search becomes necessary when problems are not well-defined. Policymakers must look to a wider pool of information sources to identify potentially pertinent attributes of the problem (Baumgartner and Jones 2015). Entropic search, being so broad, potentially allows for an infinite number of willing information suppliers (see Esterling 2004; Workman, Jones, and Jochim 2009; Shafran 2021). Policymakers engaged in entropic search are, therefore, prioritizing information sources rather than actively searching for information or incentivizing sources to supply it. By prioritizing information, policymakers must choose to attend to some sources of information while ignoring others.

For those new to organizational theory, it is important to note that the problem-space and solution-space distinctions allow us to highlight differences in information processing in the policy process. However, I also find it necessary to reiterate to students that a policy area is not necessarily contained in only one space. One way to do this is to remind them of the five-stage policy process. While we may break the policy process up into these five stages to better understand them, I often tell them that the actual policy process would be better illustrated by putting those five stages in a blender: everything is constantly in flux. For example, once an issue is defined and occupies the solution space, there is no guarantee that it will remain in that context. Constant feedback in the political system (Jones and Baumgartner 2005) means that a policy is never permanently in one space or another. Policy solutions are frequently reevaluated and redefined. Baumgartner and Jones's (1991) work on nuclear energy is a great example of this constant redefinition. Prior to 1979, nuclear energy in the U.S. was

a well-defined policy area with a generally agreed upon set of potential solutions. Like most issues, it was not permanently entrenched in the solution space. As a result of the shock of the Three Mile Island accident and new information regarding the dangers of nuclear waste, the problem was no longer well-defined. Nuclear energy policy was suddenly multidimensional and in need of redefinition in the problem space. Also note work by Workman, Shafran, and Bark (2017) and Shafran (2021) which looks at congressional committees' efforts to engage in information processing and prioritization.

Agenda Setting and Attention

Even though parallel processing increases the number of issues an organization can pay attention to, the cognitive and attention limits mean policymakers can only attend to a finite number of policy problems at any time. Further, policymakers can only attend to a finite number of information sources in regard to any given policy problem. Agenda setting is the prioritization of issues: not only what the government is willing to engage with, but, just as importantly, what government is not willing (or able) to engage with (Bachrach and Baratz 1962; Cobb and Elder 1983; Baumgartner and Jones 1993). Some ways in which the government's agenda gets set include: policy initiators (ex. Barack Obama and healthcare reform in the U.S.), new information or emerging technology (ex. climate change; see Sabatier and Jenkins-Smith 1993), or triggering events like major crises (ex. global pandemic or terror attack; see Baumgartner and Jones 1993).

Bachrach and Baratz (1962) suggested that there are two faces of power: the power to decide and the power to set the agenda. They argue that the power to set the agenda and determine what issues will be discussed and worked on versus those that will not be discussed or worked on is the most important power in government. The power to set the agenda comes with gatekeeping power: the ability to decide what issues will be attended to and which solutions will be considered. The majority party in government is a great example of the power of agenda setting. The two faces of power can sometimes prove to be a difficult concept for students at all levels to grasp. I find that some examples, both silly and based in actual politics, can help students discern the difference between the two. One example I like to provide is how I often set the agenda for my young children. They get to decide between three activities that I offer (set the agenda). My children feel empowered by the choice, but it is I, as the parent and agenda setter, who is actually controlling the situation. Politically, agenda setting by the majority party versus decision-making by back-benchers is a helpful example.

Positive and Negative Feedback

When we look at agenda setting at the organizational level, there are two types: negative agenda setting and positive agenda setting. Again, in my experience, separating the two types of agenda setting and feedback helps students more easily understand their differences and roles within the policy process. Negative agenda setting focus is on maintaining the status quo and minimizing the influx of new ideas (see Bachrach and Baratz 1962; Jones and Baumgartner 2005). Negative agenda setting is usually achieved using negative feedback. Negative feedback is the process of dampening incoming messages that do not support the status quo. In the nuclear energy policy in the 1940s to 50s in the U.S., we clearly see that those organizations that benefited from the status quo policy of nuclear energy expansion worked

(successfully) to keep naysayers from garnering attention and therefore were able to keep issues like health and environmental concerns associated with nuclear energy off the agenda (see Baumgartner and Jones 1991).

Positive agenda setting, on the other hand, is when policy outsiders or political entrepreneurs try to increase attention to new ideas and promote policy change by bringing attention to a new issue; that is, getting the new issue onto the organization's agenda. Positive agenda setting, in the absence of a crisis or focusing event, will rely on positive feedback to garner attention (Jones and Baumgartner 2005). Sticking with the nuclear energy example (Baumgartner and Jones 1991), outsiders like the Union of Concerned Scientists used positive feedback to amplify their public and environmental health concerns to a wider audience. Positive feedback is a process of issue expansion by creating a bandwagon or contagious effect to spread the message. Positive feedback relies on other organizations, like political institutions, the media, or even social media, to increase attention to the issue. In the nuclear example (Baumgartner and Jones 1991), the Union of Concerned Scientists used the courts and congressional committees that were less sympathetic to the nuclear energy industry to spread their message of concern for public and environmental health.

Venue Shopping

Negative and positive feedback are constantly at odds when agenda setting. Those in power want to maintain power and the status quo messaging and use negative feedback to keep outsiders out. Positive feedback seeks to overcome the negative feedback by amplifying the alternative message. The most successful way to expand attention is through venue shopping (Baumgartner and Jones 1991). If a group or policy entrepreneur cannot get access to a particular policy area, then they can look for alternative venues (ex. courts, media, the public) that may be more receptive to their positions. Usually when venue shopping is successful, the status quo breaks down and the issue area receives mass attention. A new policy image is then created along with a new set of power dynamics. Two great examples of this are the aforementioned nuclear energy example in which policy outsiders used the courts as alternative venues (Baumgartner and Jones 1991) and tobacco policy change in which policy outsiders relied on the health committees as alternative venues (Worsham 2006). These articles are both very helpful for guiding all types of students through this material and the related concepts.

Developing a Curriculum for Applying Micro-Foundations to Organizational Theory

Following the structure I set above, I now sequentially consider the three related dimensions of curriculum design – syllabus, discussion questions, and active learning – in the context of teaching PET at the organizational level. Fundamental works introducing organizational behavior, especially in terms of information processing and agenda setting, include: Bachrach and Baratz (1962), Baumgartner and Jones (1991, 1993), and Cobb and Elder (1983). The works by Bachrach and Baratz and Cobb and Elder both introduce and define agenda setting within organizations. The works by Baumgartner and Jones continue this trend by applying agenda setting theories to nuclear energy (1991) and then by introducing what would become the Policy Agendas Project to measure and track agenda setting in the U.S. (1993). Each of these foundational pieces is approachable at all levels and offers a different perspective on the importance of agenda setting and information prioritization. Undergraduates will need

more support which is why I start with examples like ‘agenda setting for toddlers’ and move to more practical examples, like the role of a Prime Minister or Senate Majority Leader in agenda setting versus decision-making by the full chamber.

Concerning summary and more recent work, Worsham (2006) uses the theories laid out by Baumgartner and Jones (1991, 1993) to explain the agenda setting, policy change, and venue shopping in tobacco policy. This article is useful at all levels of learning. Again, undergraduate students need more support to work through the article, but it resonates well with practitioners and theory-focused students alike. Workman and colleagues (2009) and Baumgartner and Jones (2015) both broaden students’ understanding of information processing. These are more theoretical and therefore much more difficult for undergraduates and less interesting for practice-focused students. While both are very important for understanding information processing more broadly in organizations, they may require more instructor support for those students who are not interested in graduate-level policy theories.

Discussion Points

Discussion points to put this material into context can be tailored, depending on students’ level or background, to engage them in both reflection and the application of the reading either in terms of theory or practice. For advanced theory students, having them consider how the theories speak to one another is always a top goal when teaching any policy theory. The following questions can be good conversation starters and help assess comprehension on information processing and agenda setting in organizations.

- According to Bachrach and Baratz, what are the two faces of power? Explain each.
- What is negative feedback? What does it look like in terms of policymaking? Can you provide a recent example of a negative feedback campaign that supports the status quo?
- What is positive feedback? What does it look like in terms of policymaking? Can you provide a recent example of a positive feedback campaign by those hoping to disrupt the status quo?

For students focused on more practical applications, a main teaching objective is to keep them engaged with the theory-heavy material. The following questions can help them apply the theories to their organizations and the policy process as well as encouraging participation and gauging comprehension.

- What role do venues play in positive feedback? If you were working to change a certain policy at the local level, what are some venues in your city or county that you could use for help? How might these differ by policy area?
- Describe an example of slip-stick dynamics in a public agency.
- How does an undersupply of information versus an oversupply of information affect decision-making? Consider this question in the context of COVID-19, both in the beginning of the pandemic and now, a few years later. In very emotional times, like the public health crisis, how do high emotions impact the supply of information?

Finally, we can devise active learning activities to demonstrate concepts like venue shopping and positive feedback. Positive feedback is an amplifying effect on incoming information, like contagions or bandwagons. In politics, policy entrepreneurs work to create positive feedback

on their messages by venue shopping in hopes of having their messages projected to the public and political system at large. Increase student understanding of both positive feedback in agenda setting as well as venue shopping by having students work to create positive feedback for messages of their own.

An additional active learning exercise that I use in my practice involves students, in groups, coming up with an instructor-approved message to promote via social media and word of mouth (ex. 'Eat dessert first!'). For each group, create a short online survey that message recipients take to acknowledge that they received the message and how (ex. social media platform, in-person interaction). Each group should strategize on how to best share the message with the survey link (ex. social media, QR codes with classmates). After 1–2 days, share with the class how each group was able to share and amplify their message and what venues (ex. Facebook, Twitter) were most successful. Discuss how groups with more resources (i.e., greater social media presence) were able to reach more people. Compare this to policy entrepreneurs trying to gain traction for their messages. What role does venue shopping play in positive feedback? How do resources relate positive and negative feedback or agenda setting in politics?

ORGANIZATIONAL BEHAVIOR WITHIN POLITICAL SYSTEMS

Three Levels of Policymaking

When teaching policy change using PET, it is helpful to explain the three levels of policymaking: micro, meso, and macro. The distinction between these levels is helpful because: (1) it is another opportunity to show the impacts of individual cognitive limits (micro level) on the organization, and (2) it makes connecting the breakdown of subsystem politics (meso level) to macro-level policy punctuations more intuitive later in the semester. At the micro level, policymaking largely occurs at the individual level, whether this involves voters or policymakers. Media coverage and public attention does not really occur for this level of decision-making, especially not for individual voter behavior.

Meso-level policymaking occurs in subsystems in which actors are focused on making policy in a specific area (see Thurber 1996; McCool 1998). This space is characterized by very limited media coverage, usually only via specialized outlets and with minimal public attention, and only those directly affected by a given policy are involved. Policy subsystems consist of issue-specific experts from three sources: congressional committees with jurisdiction, relevant bureaucracies, and vested interest groups (Baumgartner and Jones 1991; Thurber 1996; McCool 1998). In the case of the United States, a simple textbook example of an energy subsystem or iron triangle would include the three major actors: the House Committee on Natural Resources, Department of Energy, and the American Gas Association. Students seem to do better if I introduce the subsystem in the simple terms of an iron triangle. Once they feel comfortable with this level of understanding, we move on to a more multifaceted explanation.

In reality, subsystems are much more complex than the energy example shared above, involving multiple congressional committees, bureaucracies, businesses, and interest groups with actors moving in and out of the system over time. The subsystem approach, however, has persisted in popularity in our field given its ability to facilitate the study of bureaucratic politics, public policy, and policy implementation (McCool 1998). Most policymaking occurs within the subsystem setting—off of the agenda and out of the public's view (Thurber 1996;

Jones 1994). Negative agenda setting and negative feedback allow the dominant subsystem to maintain power over the policy area (Baumgartner and Jones 1991, 1993; Worsham 2006).

PET uses the subsystem setting to study policy change (Baumgartner and Jones 1993). According to PET, when new information enters the subsystem, either because of outsiders using positive feedback and venue shopping or due to a crisis that the subsystem cannot handle, problem definitions can change leading to policy change (Baumgartner and Jones 1993). Worsham (2006) uses tobacco policy to illustrate how new information, in this case from the Surgeon General and public health experts, can shift the problem definition (or policy image) from one that supports the status quo and the dominant subsystem to one that does not.

When the subsystem can no longer manage the policy image and status quo, the problem bleeds over from the meso level, which is largely off the public's agenda, to the macro level (Baumgartner and Jones 1993). At the macro level, all major players will tend to become involved (judiciary, executive, and legislative branches), and there will be increased attention from the public and media. Increased attention means the policy will be on the agenda and much more likely to change as a result.

Punctuated Equilibrium Theory

Punctuated equilibrium theory addresses both the typical incremental policy changes noted by authors like Davis, Dempster, and Wildavsky (1966) as well as the disjointed nature of policymaking. Jones and Baumgartner (2012) summarize it best by saying: 'Policymaking is a continual struggle between the forces of balance and equilibrium, dominated by negative feedback processes and the forces of destabilization and contagion, governed by positive feedback processes' (p. 3). For the most part, any given policy area is characterized by long periods of policy stability (reliance on the status quo) interrupted by episodes of abrupt and substantial change (Baumgartner and Jones 1993). The long periods of stability are explained by power being balanced among dominant interests in the subsystem and successful negative feedback and agenda setting. Major shifts in attention, whether due to focusing events like crises, or policy entrepreneurs successfully engaged in positive feedback, explain abrupt change.

We can use the levels of government mentioned earlier to help visualize the process. When attention is low and negative feedback keeps the policy image stable in the meso level, we should expect stable policy areas with only incremental changes. When either a triggering event or positive feedback draws attention to the area, the policy moves from the meso agenda to the macro agenda and receives major attention which frequently (but not always) foreshadows change.

Disproportionate Information Processing

Now that students have built up to the PET, I find it helpful to pause to discuss with them some of the underlying causes of policy punctuations, specifically disproportionate information processing. The redistribution of resources and attention from parallel to serial processing is not usually a smooth process. The organizational rules and procedures often make this shift a difficult one resulting in disjointed and episodic change (Baumgartner and Jones 1993; Jones 2001). Therefore, as the political environment shifts (due to a crisis, new information, or just a shift in policy image) political organizations have difficulty proportionately processing

incoming signals. Instead of responding and updating to the signals in a proportionate manner, the organization is likely to discount new information and allow errors to accumulate.

Negative feedback processes mean that the subsystem or organization does not readily update to the new information and errors accumulate to form a bottleneck. The ‘stickier’ the organization (more rules and institutional veto points) the more difficult it is for the organization to attend and process the new information (Jones, Sulkin, and Larsen-Price 2003). Jones and colleagues (2003) measure the stickiness of an organization, known as institutional friction, with kurtosis measures and find that there is less friction or stickiness at the early stages in comparison to later stages of the policy process. The ease at which committees respond to incoming signals with congressional hearings is an example of low friction in the early stages of the policy process, whereas passing public laws is the least responsive stage to incoming information because of the sheer number of potential veto points.

Within an organization, attention is a zero-sum resource; attention to one issue means less attention is left for other issues (Jones and Baumgartner 2005). As a result, organizations are unlikely to switch their attention to new problems which results in this error accumulation. The longer the errors are allowed to accrue in the system, the more powerful the force necessary to overcome those errors and the related institutional friction. The periods of accumulation then are the periods of policy stability which are broken up by short periods of episodic changes. This process relates back to parallel and serial processing. When the organization finally decides to redistribute attention and resources to the problem via serial processing, ‘instead of an efficient channeling of inputs to outputs, the result is a disjointed procedure, characterized by long periods of underreaction to the signal followed by short bursts of overreaction or punctuated change’ (Shafran, Jones, and Dye 2020, p. 16; Baumgartner and Jones 1993).

Developing a PET Syllabus

Curricular development to address this final layer of PET learning usefully features foundational pieces for understanding organizational behavior in political systems, including punctuated equilibrium, such as Weible and Sabatier (2017), Thurber (1996), and Jones and colleagues (2003). Thurber’s work explains the three levels of policymaking and pays special attention to the role information plays in the policy process. Weible and Sabatier’s edited volume, *Theories of the Policy Process*, summarizes PET among other policy theories, whereas Jones and colleagues show how to measure policy punctuations in American political institutions. For those not studying American political institutions, Baumgartner and colleagues (2009) discuss PET in a comparative perspective and Jones and colleagues (2019) look at policy punctuations in different governing systems.

Especially for students in more applied programs like public administration, having additional readings that can help them apply theory to practice is imperative. My practical students seem to particularly enjoy Boushey’s (2010) work using PET and related principles to help explain policy diffusion across the American states. Those particularly interested in budgeting also find Davis and colleagues’ (1966) look at the budgeting process to be a great way to connect their careers or interests to PET. (Note: Davis and colleagues do not address PET, as it was written decades prior to PET. However, they discuss the budgetary process in similar terms.)

In terms of key discussion points, I find that variations on the following questions can be good conversation starters and help assess comprehension on organizational behavior within political systems, especially the punctuated equilibrium theory:

- What is disjointed policy change?
- How does PET differ from other theories of change: incrementalism, multiple streams theory, advocacy coalition framework?
- How does parallel versus serial processing relate to PET?
- What are policy monopolies? Policy images?
- How does institutional friction and the associated four costs relate to policy stability? Punctuated change?

The following questions can help students bridge the gap between theory and practice by encouraging them to apply the theories to their organizations and the policy process as well as fostering participation and gauging comprehension:

- In what ways are institutions structured against change? How does the institutional setup of your organization exacerbate the tendency for long periods of stability and short, rapid bursts of change?
- What is the bottleneck of attention? What is disproportionate information processing? Error accumulation? Error correction? Can you think of an example of this at the regional level?
- What are some of the costs (consider institutional friction) that delay policy change in your organization or an organization you hope to work for?

Finally, active learning examples should also be developed to make complex and abstract concepts easier to grasp. For instance, bottlenecks of attention and disproportionate information processing place a major role not only on policy stability (policymakers aren't continuously updating their information), but also on policy change (once the bottleneck is overcome there is often an overreaction to information resulting in large changes). Students can theoretically understand how gatekeeping and institutional costs create these bottlenecks and slow change, but it can also be helpful to illustrate this gatekeeping in action.

In my practice, for instance, I often build in use of the Center for American Politics and Public Policy (2022) LegEx (Legislative Explorer) resource, which illustrates the legislative process. LegEx uses small blue and red dots to represent Democrat- and Republican-sponsored legislation. The dots move through the process from committee to referrals to chamber calendar to chamber floor to the President's desk. Most bills, though, are not successfully passed and sit in one veto point or another. This tool allows students of public policy to easily visualize the veto points within the legislative process: congressional committees, legislative calendar, etc. Each of these veto points is a prime opportunity for a bottleneck of attention. I therefore have students visit <http://www.legex.org/us/process/>. Once there, they can watch a simulation of a session of Congress of their choosing (93rd to 113th Congresses are currently available). The House of Representatives is represented on the right side of the screen and the Senate is on the left. By clicking on the play button on the upper left, bills represented by small red and blue squares will move across the screen to committee spaces. These squares represent introduced bills referred to committee. The red squares on the right are bills introduced by Republican members of the House. The blue squares from the right are bills introduced

by House Democrats. Same is true on the left for the Senate. By the end of the simulation, students see how bills work their way (or not) through the committee system and Congress as a whole. I can generate discussion and gauge comprehension by asking students related questions, including: Where are bottlenecks of attention located? Why should we expect this? How does this relate to transaction costs?

POLICY OUTPUTS AND APPLIED RESEARCH

Policy Outputs versus Outcomes

PET helps us understand both policy stability and policy change. It does not, however, predict when specifically, how often, or how much change will occur, which is especially important to stress to all students. We can use the theory to help us understand when change is most likely to occur and how to measure that change retrospectively. When measuring change, we can look at both policy outputs and policy outcomes. Outputs are the actual products or actions that are produced by a policy, whereas outcomes are the larger social, economic, or political impacts of the outputs. For example, in education policy outputs are directly affected by decision-makers like distributions in classes and disciplinary actions (Meier and Stewart 1992). Although decision-makers want to affect policy outcomes (student performance) with these policy outputs, the outcomes are affected by multiple issues outside their control, including parental involvement and support.

Public Opinion

Another way to consider the outcomes of policy is by looking at the effect on the public. One important consideration here is how policies can encourage the creation and participation of publics. May (1991) suggests that policies that are associated with private risks, such as commerce, healthcare, and labor, are more likely to have active publics that want to participate in the policymaking process. On the other hand, those policies that focus more on public risks, such as natural disaster relief, are less likely to have publics that are active publics.

Campbell's (2012) work on social policies suggests that policies can create mass politics. Existing policies often feed back into the policy system, shaping both subsequent public opinion and policy change. Policies can affect the targeted groups by affecting feelings of political efficacy and engagement as well as the likelihood of mobilization by interest groups. Policy design can also have the opposite impact and undermine political participation. Campbell provides excellent examples of each in the American context.

Policy Feedback

Policy feedback can come from and influence publics, but it also frequently comes from the bureaucracy. Bureaucrats are typically discussed in terms of implementation (Pressman and Wildavsky 1973; Rein and Rabinowitz 1978; Wilson 1991). While these studies of implementation show that bureaucrats possess expertise and vast amounts of valuable policy information (see especially: Kingdon 1984; Weaver 1987; and Brehm and Gates 1999), research also shows that bureaucrats frequently play an important role in information supply at all stages

of the policy process (Shafran 2021; Workman, Shafran, and Bark 2017; Workman 2015; Gailmard and Patty 2013; and Miller 2004).

Bureaucrats are significant in terms of both information processing and policy surveillance. Many bureaucracies were created just to collect information and surveil policy domains (Feldman and March 1981). Using the policy expertise gained by constantly collecting information and surveilling policy areas, bureaucrats can direct legislative attention to potential policy problems and solutions (Workman 2015; Lee 2013; and Gailmard and Patty 2013).

Policymakers use this information gathered and processed by bureaucracies to help define problems, set the agenda, and establish policy alternatives (Gailmard and Patty 2013; Workman 2015; Miller 2004; Baumgartner and Jones 2015; Shafran 2021). This ability of the bureaucracy to collect, process, and share information to direct macro attention is particularly important given that macro institutions have limited time, expertise, and resources to make policy.

Comparative Agendas Project

The Comparative Agendas Project (CAP) is the perfect toolset to help students learn about PET. CAP is a collection of datasets that code institutional attention and outputs in over 20 governments. Each of the CAP datasets have been coded according to policy content using a coding scheme that is consistent across time, institution, and country. The content coding scheme covers 20 major policy topics and over 200 minor topics across institutions: media, parliamentary and legislative, prime minister and executive, political parties, judiciary, budgets, and public opinion and interest groups. This coding scheme is not only consistent across these different institution types and time, but also across the countries involved in the project. For example, the U.S. Policy Agendas Project has an extensive number of available datasets including: all congressional hearings from 1946 to 2020, all public laws from 1948 to 2019, and all executive orders from 1945 to 2021.

The CAP provides the Trends Tool that offers instructors a user-friendly way to illustrate policy stability and punctuations when discussing PET as well as subtopics like agenda setting and framing. CAP also offers a great opportunity for undergraduate and graduate students alike to get their first introduction to data collection and applied research. Undergraduates can use the Trends Tool and available data to answer introductory research questions such as: ‘How has congressional attention to civil rights varied over time?’ Graduate students can download the data and add to it to ask more difficult and challenging questions.

Developing a Curriculum for Active Learning

Curriculum development designed to support students to become independent researchers in this area should focus particularly on materials and activities that support the application of theory to data. Jones and Baumgartner (2012) offer a great summary of PET from theory to more recent and diverse applications. This article can help piece everything together for students of all interests and academic abilities. Jones and colleagues (2009), May (1992), and May and colleagues (2008) each offer a different way to apply PET and related principles to democratic representation, policy learning and failure, and response to agenda disruption respectively.

There also exists a wide range of applied scholarship from which students can draw insights and inspiration. Both Workman (2015) and Campbell (2012) offer ways to better understand the political process in terms of the role of bureaucracy and the public in the policy process, respectively. Workman also tends to be a hit with my public administration students as they appreciate a more in-depth look at the role administrators play in agenda setting and policy change. For those studying policy outside the U.S., Jones and colleagues (2009) do a great job looking at public budgeting in a comparative analysis based on PET and related concepts.

In terms of class discussion, the following questions can be good conversation starters and help assess comprehension on both policy outputs and applied research:

- The three parts to bureaucratic problem solving are policy monitoring, problem definition, and information generation. Define all three and discuss how bureaucrats help solve policy problems.
- How does bounded rationality affect the public's policy preferences and priorities?
- Name a social policy that has affected a target group through the three pathways: resources, political engagement, political mobilization.

For my students focused on more practical applications, it can be a challenge to help them connect the readings to the work they are doing or hope to do. The following questions can help them apply the theories to their organizations and the policy process as well as encouraging participation and gauging comprehension:

- How does attention factor into agency response and policy design? What are two ways to organize attention within an agency?
- How do bureaucracies monitor the policy environment for emergent problems or new dimensions of a problem?
- What are several reasons why policy failure does not foster learning?

Ultimately, it is important for students at all levels, from undergraduate degree to Ph.D., to engage in applied research. It is one thing for students to understand the PET as a theory of policy change and another to illustrate that theory by tracking actual policy outputs, such as bills introduced, hearings held, laws passed, or budget outlays.

Even less advanced students can be supported to carry out theory-informed policy research. One accessible learning exercise to activate this cohort involves having students use the CAP datasets and Trends Tool to apply the theory of punctuated equilibrium to changes in policy attention or outputs. For example, a student might present the question: 'How does congressional attention to public health and disease prevention vary over time?' To answer that question, the student would need to identify the appropriate datasets for measuring congressional attention (ex. congressional hearings) or congressional outputs (ex. laws passed). The student would then have to determine which CAP policy topic (<https://www.comparativeagendas.net/pages/master-codebook>) best represented public health (Minor Topic 331). Using these datasets and the minor topic, the student could then create a graph of congressional attention to public health over time using the Trends Tool (<https://www.comparativeagendas.net/tool>). The graph generated provides a starting point for students to visually identify punctuations that can then be investigated using primary sources like Congress.gov and the *New York Times* Archives.

CONCLUSION

PET is comprised of four distinct areas of study: (1) micro-foundations of decision-making, (2) applications of those micro-foundations to organizational theory, (3) organizational behavior within the political system, and (4) policy outputs and applied research. I find it easiest to introduce students to these four pieces in this order because it seems to be an intuitive way for them to understand how individual decision-making processes affect organizations and political systems. Further, many of the resources shared here have been chosen to highlight these effects of human cognitive limits on organizations, especially political institutions.

The goal of this chapter is to share one perspective on teaching PET and hopefully encourage more of the field to create active learning spaces for our students. It is often very difficult to make learning interactive and fun when studying politics. Policy process theories and PET specifically, offer the opportunity to engage our students. This chapter offers reading suggestions, discussion starters, and active learning assignments to inspire student interest and participation. I believe that once students experience boundedly rational decision-making in these activities, they are more likely to become invested in the broader theories of information processing, organizational behavior, and PET.

It is vital to assess your students' academic ability as well as career and learning goals when implementing the resources from this chapter. Different learning levels and goals require different types of readings, discussion questions, and assignments. The more you can tailor your course to your students' needs and interests, the more engaging and successful the course will be.

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10. Teaching pragmatist and constructivist approaches to the policy process

Patrick Hassenteufel and Philippe Zittoun

INTRODUCTION

Teaching pragmatist and constructivist approaches to public policy is not an easy pedagogical task, depending firstly on how familiar students are with these kinds of approaches. Students with a background in other disciplines like sociology or anthropology where these orientations are well-established may, for example, have an advantage over those only familiar with economics or certain positivist political science traditions. This chapter is written primarily with the latter in mind. That is to say it aims to support the teaching of students with no or little knowledge of what constructivism and pragmatism are, with the understanding that much of what is said remains relevant to students who are already better versed in these approaches. In particular, the chapter argues that a pedagogical pathway must be built starting from the most classical and familiar perspectives belonging to these approaches and working towards newer approaches, interrogating their specificity and the value they add to understanding the social and political world, and then explaining how they can be used analytically and empirically to understand the policy process.

Before presenting our teaching recommendations, it is necessary to delineate the perspectives we refer to as ‘constructivist and pragmatist’. These regroup all the approaches that propose to understand empirical reality by taking seriously the large influence of the reflexive, discursive and subjective capacity of human beings to grasp the world on the basis of individual and collective behavior (Fosnot 2005; James, Bertucci and Hayes 2018; Duffy and Jonassen 1992). Such approaches are referred to in different ways depending on the discipline. In philosophy, they encompass Dewey’s pragmatism (Dewey 1939), Habermas’ communication perspective (Habermas 2001) and the phenomenological tradition; in sociology, the comprehensive Weberian perspective, symbolic interactionism and ethnomethodology; in public policy, interpretative and discursive approaches.

One of the main common points among these different approaches is the idea that social behavior, and more generally human activity, is so specific, unexpected and undetermined that, unlike other sciences like physics or biology, we cannot find general theories and methods to understand rules determining the functioning of societies. Contrarily to the original project of Auguste Comte (Comte 2013), who hoped to find in the positivist sciences like physics and natural sciences theories and methods to observe society, or of Spencer (2004), who sought to find them in biology, these approaches claim their capacity to develop a scientific approach which is built specifically for human behavior. They reject the idea of ‘objective’ variables with which to grasp human behavior and, more generally, they suggest the need to go beyond the dialectic opposition between objective and subjective perspectives.

To teach these approaches, we propose a pathway, derived from our own teaching experience, adapted for students who come from backgrounds very different to these, or who are

early on in their studies and have yet to be introduced to the subject matter. As positivist approaches are more familiar to many students, we also use examples taken from the history of science (encompassing both the physical and social sciences) to allow this learning pathway to begin with epistemological considerations (Buchwald and Fox 2013). The main goal is to encourage students to first generate questions, interrogations and doubts, before helping them develop new perspectives on how to observe and comprehend the policy world through the use of specific research designs and different methodologies. Adopting pragmatist and constructivist lenses to approach questions of policy can confront students with different challenges to those they are used to when operating from within a positivist paradigm. By presenting general reflexive questions, such as epistemological ones pertaining to the complicated interaction between theories and empirical reality in sciences in general and in social sciences in particular, one can assist students in navigating these challenges. This is why we propose structuring teaching on the subject into three focused parts. The first part focuses on the complexity of producing knowledge on society. The second part focuses on the use of constructivist and pragmatist perspectives to understand the construction of public problems and the agenda setting, which are the most common dimensions of inquiry in the policy studies community. The last part strives to explain how these constructivist and pragmatist approaches can also be used to develop empirical insights into all the dimensions of the policy process.

TEACHING EPISTEMOLOGY AND THE LIMITS OF POSITIVISM

One of the main challenges posed by constructivism and pragmatism is their epistemological perspective, which is generally more challenging to understand for those who are not familiar with it. Contrary to positivism, these approaches believe that the traditional scientific method used by physics to separate object and subject, identify links between objects and causalities, and posit regular laws, is not suited to understanding society and social processes where the subject is never distinguishable from the object, the context is always different and plays a significant role, and where uncertainty is the norm. Put differently, the primary teaching challenge is to encourage students to abandon their traditional conceptions of what constitutes science and to transcend the dualist viewpoint based on object and subject or person and society.

In order to teach the constructivist and pragmatist perspectives it can be strategically helpful to encourage students to create their own reflexive view about what science is and how the positivist perspective is not the only scientific way to understand the social world. The insights we present below draw on our experience of designing and running a course for physics students but which may be modified for a variety of student profiles who are unfamiliar with constructivism. Students with this background often begin from a position where they consider alternative perspectives to positivism as ‘less scientific’. Starting off by asking a seemingly simple question like ‘what is science?’ can be an effective way to provoke reflection among them, allowing student to put their often unexamined assumptions into words or to evoke insights they have previously been taught. The teacher can note all the answers on the whiteboard without commenting on them except for observing their diversity. Being confronted to very different answers is part of the process of reckoning with the possibility of alternative ways of approaching what seems commonplace or familiar. It is then possible to expand from

this general question by asking more precise ones like: ‘How do we distinguish a scientific truth from a truth of “opinion” or “belief”?’.

Students’ minds can be further opened by demonstrating the intricate connection between the scientific theories put forth to explain how the universe functions and the empirical observations of this reality. One of the pedagogical strategies here can be to organize a vote among students on a choice between three proposals followed or preceded by a collective debate:

Which proposal do you agree with the most?

1. Scientific theory relies on the facts it observes.
2. Scientific theory distrusts the facts it observes.
3. Scientific theory induces facts that we may not be able to observe.

The teacher can then utilize three historical scientific accounts where researchers are faced with a discrepancy between theory and observation to demonstrate how each of these propositions can be accurate.

The first story concerns the discovery of Neptune and helps to show how a scientific theory can allow us to describe the world beyond empirical observation. In the 19th century, a discordance was discovered between the observation of Uranus’ trajectory and the calculation of the trajectory based on Newton’s theory. In 1846, Urbain Le Verrier (1811–1877), astronomer and mathematician, hypothesized that this shift could be explained by the presence of another planet whose trajectory he calculated. Johann Galle, a German astronomer, then pointed his telescope there and discovered Neptune.

The second story shows that the empirical observation can also reveal how a theory is false. In 1855, the same Le Verrier observed another anomaly around the trajectory of Mercury (Underwood 2021; Le Verrier 1874). Its perihelion calculations predicted 43 arc seconds per century. He proposed the same hypothesis as he had in the case of Uranus, positing that another planet (Vulcan) existed and was responsible. In 1860, the telescope took advantage of an eclipse to search for this planet but nothing was found. The anomaly remained unexplained until 1916 when Einstein questioned Newton’s theory and recalculated the trajectory of Mercury thanks to the theory of general relativity (Clark 2007; Galison 2003).

The last story helps to underline how sometimes, and specifically with quantum physics, observation can shape reality. In the 17th century, a controversy opposed Huygens and Newton (Chaudhary n.d.; Bussotti 2015). Newton considered light as a particle and followed the classical mechanic law. Huygens considered light as a wave and answered with the wave theory. Newton, who enjoyed more prestige, ‘won’ the controversy, until the 19th century, when Young and Fresnel, and later Maxwell, developed experiments which proved that light is a wave. Then, in the 20th century, Einstein proved with the photoelectric experiment that light is not only a wave but also a particle (Galison 2003; Gott 2002). Later, with quantum theory and new experiments, physicists developed the idea that it is the experiment that shapes the light as either a particle or a wave (Bohr 1996).

These three stories allow us to underscore to students the importance of what Kuhn (2012) called ‘anomalies’ in science, or what we call, in a constructivist perspective, an ‘enigma’: an empirical situation observed which does not correspond to that which would be expected from theory and the dialectic between it and reality. These ideas can be supported by insights from epistemologists and sociologists of sciences. A first useful source is Popper, whose perspective must be carefully contextualized for students. Popper was confronted by the emergence of Einstein’s new theory which had replaced Newton’s theory despite the latter having been

sustained by two centuries of experiments and observations (Maxwell 2017; Popper 1972). Popper concluded that whatever the observation or the experience, no one could prove the validity of a theory (for example, observing nothing but black cats is insufficient to prove that all cats are black). He suggested following Einstein's proposal by considering science through the crucial experiment of proving instead whether a theory is false (one white cat is sufficient to disprove the proposal that 'all cats are black'). When teaching on this issue, students can also be asked to reflect on and discuss the following quotation by Popper: 'I came to the conclusion that the scientific attitude was the critical attitude. It was not looking for verifications but for crucial experiments. These experiments might well disprove the theory under examination, but they could never establish it' (Popper 1972, 49). Even if his perspective is different, Kuhn can also be evoked, because he showed how the 'anomalies' of Newton's theory could survive over two centuries, as researchers sought to invent explanations or add elements to the theory rather than reconsider it.

A useful instructional approach to discussing social sciences is therefore to emphasize the intricate interaction between empirical observation and ideas by highlighting the centrality of an enigma. By bringing positivist approaches from physics or biology to the study of social behavior, authors like Saint-Simon, Comte or Spencer were the first to examine society from a scientific perspective (Saint-Simon 2013; Pullinger 2015; Comte 2013; Comte and Le Verrier 2021). The concept of positivism was born at this period. Comte explained that the positivist attitude was based on the idea that 'any positive theory must be based on observations,' and that it required rigor, rationality, objectivity and the observation of 'facts.' It also sought to put an end to miracles and to understand nature and society. The first important positivist project was the one developed by Durkheim who suggested that sociology needs to study 'social facts as things' by considering that they 'consist of ways of acting, thinking, and feeling, external to the individual, and which are endowed with a power of coercion by virtue of which they are imposed on him' (Durkheim 2017, 2013a, 2013b; Durkheim and Neuburger 2009). Put another way, Durkheim proposed to objectify social facts by using the experimental method developed in other sciences. To do this, he needed to go beyond individual subjectivity, focusing on social constraints which can be objectified and studied in a scientific way.

This introduction to the history of science is a good way to demonstrate to students how a lot of policy studies follow the same perspective by transforming processes, policies, policy change, ideas, interests, preferences, beliefs and coalitions into an objective variable and attempt to establish links between them. These objectifying processes allow researchers to produce a lot of relevant knowledge but is necessarily confronted to certain limits. The first limit concerns how most of the 'objective' concepts used can shape the reality they seek to represent more than simply describe it. A lot of objective concepts cannot be directly observed empirically. For example, how can we observe a 'coalition' if it does not correspond to collective action where all participants are bounded together, and how can the researcher be sure that what he calls a 'coalition' is not created by himself? We can ask the same kind of question about ideas, beliefs or policy systems, etc. The second limit concerns the issue of causality. From a classical scientific perspective, rationality is a sequential link between two events which can be proved only by the repetition of the two events. Physicists used observation or laboratory experiments to identify repetition even if, as shown by Popper, this can never amount to real proof (Popper 1972). In the case of the social sciences, experience is always a methodological problem and regularity is impossible to observe because context always differs and changes. Therefore, comparison, put forward by Durkheim as a substitute for

experimentation, implies a high level of simplification. The issue for social sciences is less to confirm regularity or stability than to understand change and instability as enigmas to resolve.

PRESENTING THE PRAGMATIST AND CONSTRUCTIVIST PERSPECTIVES

After demonstrating the limitations of positivism, the main objective is to guide students through learning how, in the social sciences, certain influential authors have presented alternative perspectives for analyzing social and political behavior. Starting, for example, with Weber, Simmel and Dewey, teaching can then progress to presenting the work of Berger and Luckmann, before coming back to the policy process. The main idea is to teach the perspectives through their historical scientific development as a way of understanding the transformation of thinking. The point is also to underline the common dimension of all these perspectives by explaining how these authors all consider that the social sciences need to take meaning seriously as the main subjective activity to understand human behavior and, consequently, that the social sciences are epistemologically different from the natural sciences and cannot follow the same objectifying perspectives.

Teaching about these contrasts, for example by revisiting the work of writers like Weber, Simmel and Dewey, can highlight how the social sciences can adopt a new orientation. If Durkheim looks for social fact as an objective constraint on human behavior, Max Weber enjoins us to consider the importance and the specificity of human behavior through the understanding of their subjectivity (Weber, Gerth and Wright Mills 2022; Weber and Kalberg 2010; Weber and Tribe 2019). Following Windelband, for whom the natural sciences look for laws and the social sciences for description and comprehension, Weber suggested we build ‘sociology’ as an empirical and interpretative science, one that observes human behavior and understands it through the subjective meanings attributed to it by individuals. Building on his famous typology of legitimate authority, Weber suggests that the best way to understand motivation is to distinguish between conventional or emotional behavior that a sociologist might reconstitute via observation and practice, and rational behavior predicated on a goal and a value.

The importance of subjective knowledge and meaning in social activities is also at the core of Simmel’s perspective (Simmel 1964; Smelser 1997). Simmel emphasized the value of conflict as a means of exchanging opposing viewpoints, establishing shared norms, and, more broadly, as a means of enabling human socialization in light of the multiplicity of meanings supported by humans. Following on from the significance of exchange, Simmel defends the importance of the multiple interactions where people differentiate one from other, struggle and/or reconcile. In that way, Simmel proposed to observe micro-phenomena of interrelations between human beings.

At the same time as the emergence of the social sciences, the pragmatist movement developed in philosophy and proposed a complementary perspective. For Dewey, but also for James and Peirce (Dewey 1927, 1960; James 1975; Peirce et al. 1982), three dimensions must be highlighted to understand human behavior. The first one is human beings’ knowledge and reflexivity with a specific focus on how they define the world ‘in action’ around them, and how they grasp it through concepts. From this perspective, the question is less to distinguish between object and subject than to understand the objectification process developed by the

subject, less to distinguish facts from values than to grasp valuation and objectification as subjective activities. The second dimension is the attention given to experience and its consequences more than to causality. Dewey considers how human beings' activities are structured through their experience, which relates to their environment. He suggests considering the unexpected dimensions and the uncertainties of the consequences of human activities. In contrast to the causal model which is based on the idea that a causal link determines the stability and repetitiveness between two events, the consequential approach takes seriously the idea that an activity can produce each time a different consequence through its confrontation with its environment. The dichotomy between internal thought and external stimuli is rejected in favor of what Dewey called 'transaction,' which also considers how the impact of the environment depends on how people interpret and comprehend it. This is the third major dimension Dewey stresses. The transactional dimension is a shared activity rather than just an exchange between two autonomous entities.

To finish the historical presentation that helps provide a pedagogical foundation to understanding these approaches, it is pertinent to present the well-known book *The Social Construction of Reality*, where Berger and Luckmann (1991) proposed to reconcile two significant traditions in social sciences through the pragmatist perspective. The first tradition was developed by Emile Durkheim who considered that social sciences must consider social phenomena as a 'fact,' and the second tradition originated with Max Weber, who considers that the key to understanding human behavior is to link it to the subjectivity of human beings (Weber and Tribe 2019, p. 66). To achieve it, Berger and Luckmann suggested taking seriously the objectification process where multiple individual subjective perceptions of reality become a collective 'objective' reality in society. Without denying the existence of any objective world, they ascribe significant importance to the multiple processes through which this 'objective' world is constituted by knowledge through language. The objectification process is based on the intersubjective dynamic where an individual subjective meaning becomes a collective objective fact.

Since this period, constructivist approaches have developed in multiple ways. This includes conflicting trajectories that have led to confusion and to the term 'constructivist' becoming understood in quite different ways. To grasp these differences and to situate our own perspective pedagogically, it is relevant to present a distinction between three main traditions to the students. The first is structuralist constructivism, a term coined by Bourdieu (2016) and, in a different way, by Foucault (2009). This tradition considers that social structure and discursive regimes of truth are always constructed by specific people during a given period and within a specific context, then objectified through social propagation and integrated as an 'objective constraint' through socialization. The second is the relativist constructivism tradition developed by authors such as Baudrillard (1985) and Chomsky (2007). While the subjective process of building and shaping reality is also central here, the objectification process does not produce an autonomous structure, as is the case in the first tradition. Here, reality never exists by itself but is always built by both subjectivity and intersubjectivity.

The third is the pragmatic constructivist tradition. Here, reality is perceived subjectively, but special attention is paid to the role of experience, which helps to provide a framework for this reality. This tradition primarily seeks to go beyond the distinction between objective and subjective reality by focusing on the objectification process, and on human beings and society, as well as on the interactions between them. Like Latour (1979), Berger and Luckmann (1991) have paid specific attention to how facts are built. For example, they have attempted to deter-

mine how subjective meaning is transformed into an objective ‘fact.’ It thus appears essential to observe human interaction ‘in action.’ Boltanski (2012) suggests that the world must be distinguished from reality. While reality is constructed and ordered through subjective meaning, the elusive and disordering ‘real world’ exists, but only through the experimentation of people, and always produces unexpected effects.

At this step, it is important to give examples to help students to understand. It is possible, for example, to use a sequence from a movie like *The Matrix* (1999) where the character played by Keanu Reeves asks: ‘This isn’t real?’ and the answer is: ‘What is “real”? How do you define “real”? If you’re talking about what you can feel, what you can taste and see, then “real” is simply electrical signals interpreted by your brain.’ This vignette is a good way to underline, first, that reality appears to us through our experimental activities based on our interpretation. Teachers can use a lot of examples to explore the complexity of knowledge that confuses the traditional distinction between inside/outside, fact/value, object/subject, etc. We can ask: ‘How do we know that when we go out, the sky will not fall on our heads?’ And guide students through discussions about how we know this because we have learned that the sky is an ‘objective’ reality which does not fall. This reality is a stock of knowledge shared by our community, a kind of ‘inter-subjectivity.’ We can take the example of ‘shaking hands’ – which was considered in European society as the sign of politeness to say hello. If you do not shake somebody’s hand, it can be objectively perceived as a problem. With COVID-19, however, shaking hands suddenly became a vector of contagion and was transformed into an ‘objective’ issue through the transformation of our understanding.

TEACHING CONSTRUCTIVIST AND PRAGMATIST PERSPECTIVES AS POLICY PROCESS THEORIES

Even while these constructivist viewpoints have grown significantly in importance in social sciences since the 1970s, particularly following the linguistic turn, their presence in policy studies has been less pronounced, making it difficult to teach them as part of a public policy curriculum. The main reason is probably related to the origins of policy studies and, specifically, their link to US American political science, where positivist perspectives are dominant. Indeed, pragmatist philosophy has largely influenced the origin of policy sciences, as has been analyzed by William Dunn stressing the role of Lasswell (Dunn 2019). This pragmatist heritage is essentially visible in the literature on problem definition and agenda setting processes. More recently, however, this heritage has been integrated into a larger pragmatist perspective to grasp and to understand the policy process (Zittoun 2014). Nevertheless, non-positivist, constructivist and pragmatist approaches are not easy to teach, particularly in policy studies where dominant approaches are essentially positivist. When positivist perspectives propose to build a theory by finding objective concepts and building logical relationships between them, constructivism and pragmatism, which do not reduce human beings to variables, have more difficulties being taught and learned.

When teaching these non-positivist perspectives on the policy process, it can be pedagogically useful to start with critical exploration of ‘defining’ as a human activity. This allows the teacher to stress a central contrast with positivist perspectives, which holds as central the task of objectifying concepts for analyzing causality. The teaching strategy we propose involves three steps: (1) organizing a discussion about the different existing definitions in the academic

world aimed at revealing how defining is a controversial activity, (2) supporting students through content dedicated to helping them see how concepts are also mobilized and defined by policymakers during the policy process, and (3) discussing with them how this definitional activity can have an influence on the policy process.

Applied to the issue of public policy, the challenge is no longer to seek an essentialist definition of public policy, but to look at the way in which individuals use the concept, define it and diffuse it. A public policy then becomes an empirical concept that individuals use to give meaning and coherence to an incoherent set of heterogeneous measures carried out by public authorities towards society. The task of defining public policy involves defining the society that the government wants to shape and wants to act on, the problems it wants to solve, and the legitimate power capable of carrying out actions with the desired effects. Defining a public policy therefore restores political order by proposing a fictional statement in which the governmental actions are coherent, intractable problems are solved, decision-makers govern and society takes shape again.

We suggest beginning with public policy concepts and asking students to define them. If they are familiar with policy studies, they generally mobilize existing classical definitions like the one from Thomas Dye for whom 'Public Policy is whatever a government chooses to do or even to not do' (Dye 1972). It is interesting to remind students that Dye built his definition after checking more than 40 definitions in the academic literature, observing how these definitions were different, and conceiving a definition that was the lowest common denominator between them. The main issue of this minimal definition is that it confronts us with the difficulty of being too broad to be able to grasp the complexity of the object. To underline this point, you can ask the students to define a specific policy like 'housing policy' or 'health policy.' One of the questions could be to establish the link between, for instance, housing policy tools and housing policy to underline that housing policy is generally considered as a group of policy tools and cannot be reduced to one of them. The same can be stressed for the different (public and private) actors involved in the policy.

If a policy can be understood as a group of policy tools, the next exercise can be to answer questions like: Referring to your definition, do you consider that shale gas exploration is part of environment policy or energy policy? Are speed limits a tool of road policy or environmental policy? It is easy to find boundary examples where a tool can be part of different policies. The issue at stake is to know if we can answer that a policy can be considered to belong to more than one domain or if we need to choose and how we do this. What is interesting in this case is to emphasize how these questions correspond to empirical observation; that is to say, based on our observation of definitional struggles between different policymakers. In the case of shale gas in France, the definitional struggles take place between the Ministry and Minister of Environment vs. the Ministry/Minister of Energy (Zittoun and Chailleux 2022). In the case of speed limits, the definitional struggles may take place between the road department and the environment department of municipalities. Therefore, answering 'the policy belongs to both' is not enough for the understanding of why policymakers are in conflict on the definition of a public policy. In this way, the constructivist perspective helps remind us how definitional activities are a key aspect of the policy process related to power issues: by proposing a definition, policymakers try to shape their own perimeter of influence.

Another way to underline the importance of definition is to focus on problem definition. Since Cobb and Elder (1971), and later Rochefort and Cobb (1994), there is a large consensus in policy studies that researchers do not have to define what a problem is but rather that they

need to look at how the main actors define it and put it on the media and governmental agendas. The definitional struggles about a problem can be also understood through the concept of ‘ownership’ developed by Gusfield (1981, 1989). With this concept, Gusfield reminds us how the question of the definition of a public problem is always linked to the question of who defines it and of the unequal resources between actors. Gusfield took the question of car accidents and begun by reminding us that in the first half of the 20th century, car accidents were never considered to be a public problem but rather an individual issue. Drunk driving was considered a moral problem and the responsibility for good moral conduct was defined by the church. With the development of scientific expertise, the problem found new owners belonging to the world of science, who transformed this issue into a public problem. The author then points out that, once changed, the definition of the problem was framed around drunk drivers but never, for example, around shops that sold alcohol.

With all these examples, it is important to remind students that in, a constructivist perspective, discourse is considered seriously but never objectively. Even if it were possible to interrogate the structure of the problem or of a policy definition, discourse should never be separated from its speaker. Contrarily to a lot of discourse analysis or narrative analysis, any discourse must be observed empirically as a discursive practice; that is to say a statement developed by a specific speaker in a specific situation with a specific intention. It is possible to take an easy example to illustrate this point. During the COVID-19 crisis, a discussion on the naming the different variants of the disease emerged. Originally, the name of the country where the variant was discovered was then given to the variant itself, as was the case with the Brazilian or South African variants, for example. The representatives of these countries then mobilized around the World Health Organization (WHO), asking it to name the variants differently. This example demonstrates well how a definition can be a source of stigmatization and blame. The WHO subsequently decided to use the Greek alphabet and to make an exception for the letter Xi because its similarity with the Chinese President’s first name could trigger a reaction from that government.

Explaining the different structures of a problem and the policy definition becomes useful only if the ownership dimension is taken into account. For example, it is interesting to underline that a problem definition is generally structured on dramatization, and the identification of a cause, of victims, of people considered as responsible for the problem (blaming), and the design of a dramatic future. A policy definition is therefore also generally structured on a statement where problems find solutions, policymakers manage to decide, a new social map is designed with winners and losers, and the future is rebuilt.

TEACHING RESEARCH DESIGN FOR CONSTRUCTIVIST AND PRAGMATIST INQUIRY

Teaching research design for the constructivist and pragmatist study of policy can start with a discussion of the challenges posed by these types of approaches. The latter are distinguished by the emphasis they place on the subjectivity and reflexivity of the various participants in a policy process, by their rejection of dualist divides between object and subject or individual and society. They also consider that one simple method and one unique concept are never enough to grasp the complexity of an empirical situation. In light of this, we propose to teach

five essential rules characterizing a constructivist-pragmatist research design for the empirical analysis of the policy process.

The first rule is to always consider that the research question must be based on the construction of an enigmatic situation rather than the verification of a theory by a case. As we saw with Popper's epistemology, applying a case to check a theory is not a sufficient proof and cannot constitute a rigorous research design. This starting point is essential for social sciences where the capacity of repetitive events is impossible without eliminating the contingent context and where our capacity to justify something and its opposite is so important. The main idea is to highlight how the research design begins with the capacity of the researcher to be surprised by what he observes. This surprise needs to be genuine, unlike when the researcher knows the answer in advance, or when he just wants to deny or to criticize what he observes. Referring perhaps to Hannah Arendt, the teacher can explain how the knowledge comes first from this capacity to be fascinated.

The second rule is to remember that this enigma is not artificial, but is a construction and not a natural or a spontaneous question. If an enigma is a surprising event, it means that the researcher considers it as an unusual or unexpected one within a web of expected events. To illustrate this idea, the teacher can use the well-trodden example of the apple falling: the capacity to produce knowledge begins not by seeing the apple falling from a tree – before witnessing such an event led to Newton's epiphany, everyone merely regarded the event as 'natural' – but rather by Newton's capacity to be surprised by the apple falling, which supposed being open to the notion that the apple may not necessarily fall. Even if Newton invented this example and never actually discovered the law of gravity this way, it reveals how our capacity to be surprised depends not only on what we observe but also how it is observed. Based on Popper's falsifiability notion, the main idea of the teaching is to insist on how the transformation of an event into an enigma needs to be constructed and requires us to think beyond the notion of 'fact.' To give a policy example, policy change can be considered as an enigma only if policy stability is considered as a norm, as it is in most of policy process theories.

The third rule is to explain how the question of language constitutes one of the major problems of the research design in the pragmatist and constructivist perspectives. Language is used by individuals to simultaneously observe and define the world around them, to give their position, and to exchange with others. It is also used by the researcher to describe and to analyze the events. This is why the first idea to be taught is the importance of observing how each individual uses language without what Wittgenstein identified as 'meaning blindness'; that is to say without imposing our own meanings on the language and discursive relationship we are observing (Wittgenstein 2014). To help the researcher understand how an individual defines situations, contexts and uses language, it is essential to compare the researcher's definition with those of others. For example, to better understand an event related to a public problem, a policy alternative, a goal, a value, a causality, it is essential to observe how individuals define them with an agnostic look from the researcher. The second idea is to be careful with any objectified concept that cannot be empirically observed as a variable to explain a behavior. For example, the constructivist perspective tries not to use notions like 'interest,' 'belief,' 'preference,' 'reason,' 'representation,' and 'objectivity' as objective concepts that researchers try to interpret and deduce from their observation. Instead, subjective versions are preferred and their construction process as an objectification or valuation process are followed. The last idea to teach is to always consider the observation of language 'in action' in its empirical context without separating it from the speakers and their interactions where they take place.

The fourth rule is to explain the need to be careful in the study of collective actors, which is essential for an understanding of the policy process. This too is challenging to teach, because a lot of students refer easily to notions such as ‘the state,’ ‘unions’ or ‘coalitions’ when they try to describe a policy process. In the constructivist and pragmatist perspectives, which are opposed to the reification of collective actors, it is important to explain that a researcher can produce such a reification and therefore has to be very careful about it. Some of the questions a teacher can easily use to prompt students’ reflection on this issue are: How do you know that a group of people constitute a coalition? What kind of empirical evidence can you show to demonstrate that all the individuals share the same way of thinking? Of acting? Same beliefs? Same positions? How do you manage the diversity of positions inside any organization? It is illustrative to evoke the permanent struggles between different ministries and ministers to shed light on the main difficulty: Who speaks in the name of the state if two ministries or ministers defend an opposite position? It is essential for teachers to explain that a collective actor cannot be understood in the same way as an individual is. A collective actor does not exist as an aggregation of individuals. Therefore, students must try to observe collective action as a complex process of individuals who build agreements among themselves and not as a fact or as a given entity. Good advice given to students in this domain is to pay attention to discursive processes amounting to speaking ‘in the name of’ and their importance in the policy process.

Finally, the fifth rule is to be careful about general concepts that define an existing objective space like ‘system,’ ‘subsystem’ and ‘stream’ in the dominant policy process theories (especially the Advocacy Coalition and Multiple Streams Frameworks). Because it is generally considered as an entity or a fact, a ‘system’ is a research concept used to understand a group of individuals and actions who follow the same kind of rules. A ‘policy sub-system’ or a ‘policy stream’ are typically sets that are not easily identified without taking into account the influence of the researcher in the definition of a policy system. The constructivist perspective does not presuppose the existence of a system but rather tries to observe where interactions take place and how these interactions can be considered as a specific context with specific rules. In other words, the scale is not exactly the same and what is important is to deduce the specificity of the space from the interaction and not the opposite.

TEACHING HOW TO EMPIRICALLY ANALYZE THE POLICY PROCESS FROM CONSTRUCTIVIST AND PRAGMATIST PERSPECTIVES

There are four methodological challenges associated with empirical analysis of the policy process from a pragmatist-constructivist perspective which merit pedagogical consideration: the multi-level chronological reconstitution of debates and controversies forming the multiple action scenes of a policy process; the identification of the actors’ configurations and their sociological background; the identification and understanding of controversies and their evolution in these different arenas; and finally the trajectories of problems, solutions and their owners in these different spaces where struggles between more or less strongly structured groups of actors are unfolding over time.

For the first challenge, the analysis of the press is of major interest because it has been greatly enriched by insights from the sociology of journalism, communication and the media. These disciplines analyze the dynamics of writing articles and their conditions of production

as the result of journalistic work codified by professional practices. They take into account the organizational structure of a medium and the events it reports, often organized to make its publicization possible (McNair 1998; Neveu 2019; Nielsen 2023). The diversification of new media also corresponds to an enrichment of journalistic work, allowing more information to be provided ‘off the record.’ This is particularly the case as pertains to debates that take place in discreet spaces – for example, inter-ministerial struggles that are often reported because the actors do not hesitate to make controversial revelations for a strategic purpose in the context of power struggles. The growing plurality of media sources can help researchers make a more detailed chronological reconstruction of public events as well as getting more information on discreet spaces.

For the second challenge, an increasingly relevant method involves the detailed mapping of configurations of actors. The aim of such mapping is to grasp not only the fragmentation of bureaucratic spaces, including the division of tasks that structure expertise at the level of each office of the local, national or supranational administrations, but also that of more political spaces, where political staffers, administrative departments, elected officials, interest groups, etc., interact, and of public spaces where more or less formalized consultation mechanisms are organized (like advisory councils, hearings, conferences, dialogue, etc.). This mapping of the different actors involved in the policy process at different levels applies just as much to administrations as to elected officials, interest groups, private companies, the media, etc. It is also based on a sociographic analysis of these actors’ individual trajectories in order to understand the multi-positioning, the structuring of informal groups such as programmatic groups (Hassenteufel and Genieys 2021) and the space of interactions, based on the direct links between organizations and individuals through a network analysis.

The third challenge refers to the intersection of this sociology of the trajectories of multi-positioned actors and their interrelationships with that of controversies, based on the systematic analysis of arguments developed in different spaces, whether public (general and specialized press, television and radio, social networks, etc.), institutional (parliament, reports, commissions, etc.) or discreet (meetings within administrations or private organizations, informal meetings, etc.). Particular attention has to be paid to the spaces where argumentative confrontations are organized, such as inter-ministerial meetings, arbitration meetings and negotiations, which are most often held on a regular basis. Here, interviews – understood as a type of discussion positioned in between the ethnographic interview and historians’ oral testimony – take on their full meaning specifically in order to recreate the flow of the argumentative exchanges. Even if it does not escape a multitude of biases and distortions, the interview remains the only means of accurately reconstituting processes from the reconstruction of debate scenes (Zittoun 2021, also see chapter 17 by Chailleux and Zittoun in this volume). Unfortunately, debate scenes leave few written traces or minutes, and when they do exist, they are either difficult to access, as the deadlines are too short to request access to archives for research on recent public policies, or too succinct to give an account of the essential issues.

The fourth challenge is the study of the reconstitution of the trajectories of problems and solutions, in relation to the configurations of actors that support them, not only in each of these controversial universes, like a ballistic study, but above all in the multitude of different, partially interconnected arenas, where the move from one to another constitutes a major strategy for modifying configurations, allowing or preventing blockages and veto dynamics, and facilitating changes or initiating them. The study of this multiverse, where distinct cognitive frameworks and discursive arguments, complex power games and multiple temporalities coexist,

opens the way to a better understanding of these uncertainties at the heart of the complexity of the collective construction of current public policies, which the constructivist-pragmatist perspective helps to understand.

The final pedagogical task is to show to students that the combination of these methods makes it possible to take into account the random nature of public policy processes, without neglecting the importance of institutional and political constraints, which constitute as many challenges that the actors who bring problems and solutions try to manage and overcome. Doing so leads students to consider in tandem stability and change, domination and struggle, by integrating complexity more strongly, in contrast to simplifying models inspired by positivist or post-positivist perspectives.

CONCLUSION

The main aim of teaching pragmatist and constructivist perspectives to the policy process is to stress that they correspond to a different approach to several traditional questions in policy studies. By observing the coupling of a proposal to a problem as a definitional work giving meaning to problems and solutions, they make it possible to overcome the debate between those who consider that the definition of a problem precedes and frames the solution to be chosen and those for whom the solution precedes the problem and connects to it according to opportunities. By paying attention to the definitional work of policy actors, it also contributes to overcoming the debate between those who reject an essentialist and coherent definition of public policies and those who continue to use the concept of public policy. It also leads to a different approach to the political question and the politicization process by stressing the work of reordering and legitimizing that the construction of public policies makes possible. By taking a non-positivist and non-sequentialist approach, the pragmatist and constructivist perspectives place the non-linear and partly random dimensions of policy processes at the heart of the analysis. Finally, these perspectives lead to an understanding of policy processes based on agency and context. A public policy is understood as a collective construction, resulting from a superposition of interactions over time, between actors of various kinds (individual and collective, state and non-state) at different levels and in changing contexts.

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11. Street-level bureaucracy: Teaching policy (theory) in practice

Vincent Dubois and Gabriela Lotta

INTRODUCTION

Courses on street-level bureaucracy (SLB) often enjoy significant success among students. It could come as a surprise that the (apparently) mundane routines of daily bureaucratic work generate such an interest. What does this interest rely on? And therefore, how can street-level bureaucracy theory usefully contribute to the teaching of policy studies? These two questions are the starting point of this chapter, which reflects on why and how teaching street-level bureaucracy can contribute to providing students with concrete and critical knowledge of public policies. To conduct this reflection, we mainly draw on our respective experiences in Brazil and France, two very different contexts, both from the academic point of view and regarding institutional settings and policy orientations. Both of us have had the occasion to teach street-level bureaucracy, at least by including it in courses more generally dedicated to public policy and administration. These courses have been the opportunity to engage various publics, including undergraduate and graduate students in political science, sociology and public administration, as well as national and local civil servants and practitioners.

To put it simply, we would like to show that teaching street-level bureaucracy is a good way to teach both policy and policy theory ‘in practice’. On the one hand, it provides the opportunity to present policies in the real world and daily practices, thanks to telling examples which sometimes directly echo students’ personal experiences. On the other hand, it grounds theoretical questions and makes it easier to address them than in an abstract way, i.e., remote from actual practices, situations and experiences.

In the first part of this chapter, we argue that SLB approaches offer the opportunity to discuss what public policies concretely consist of. This is more than accounting for ‘implementation processes’, since street-level bureaucrats (SLBs) do not only enforce rules and policy programs; they perform them, and contribute to defining their contents and to shaping their meaning. We aim at challenging the taken-for-grantedness of the hierarchical divisions between levels (e.g., national policy elite vs. local bureaucratic agents) and between artificially separated steps (from decision to implementation) of policy-making, in what we call a ‘continuum approach’ to public policy. Saying this does not amount to positing that there is no hierarchy and no differences between the various processes and practices involved in policy-making. This does not amount either to postulating that street-level bureaucracy matters more or as much as other spaces of policy-making, or that it does always and everywhere. On the contrary, following this perspective is a way to engage with historical, national and sectorial comparisons. Exploring when, where and how street-level bureaucracy really matters then proves to be a good pedagogical introduction to the questions of institutional settings, policy styles and bureaucratic traditions. Whereas processual, neo-institutionalist or cognitivist approaches hardly pay attention to individuals of flesh and blood and often

under-theorize the way individual characteristics can impact policies, street-level bureaucracy theory sets them at the core of the analysis. Beyond portraying street-level bureaucrats *per se*, teaching street-level bureaucracy therefore helps students better understand the role that social background, training, and position within the organization can play in orienting the practices in which public policy is grounded.

Based on these premises, we argue that teaching street-level bureaucracy is not reducible to a presentation of the small details of policy implementation. Much more than that, it consists in adopting a vantage point from which students can be empirically and critically introduced to general policy trends. We emphasize two of the most prominent ones among them. First, the tendency to individualization, visible in welfare provision, education, penal policies, housing and many other fields, often associated with the tendency to responsabilization; that is, promoting self-help and an active involvement of the clients in managing their situation and solving their problems. Second, we will show how observation at the street-level can shed light on the main issues and outcomes of organizational reforms, and, by doing so, give the students a concrete view of ‘new public management’ reforms.

We then envision these questions from the other side of the desk; that is, from the point of view of the clients. While street-level bureaucracy theory, strictly speaking, mainly focuses on agents’ work and dilemmas, it nevertheless opens the way to include in the analysis the public subjected to or benefiting from public policy. Finally, we present some pedagogical and methodological issues that street-level bureaucracy teaching can usefully address.

NOT JUST ABOUT IMPLEMENTATION: THE CONCRETE MAKING OF PUBLIC POLICY

Street-level bureaucrats are conceptualized as those workers who interact with citizens to deliver policies (Lipsky, 2010). In a policy-cycle view, they are associated with the policy implementation stage – they are the last actors in the policy chain and are responsible for making the final decisions about what citizens will receive and how they will be treated by the state (Lipsky, 2010).

Historically, the street-level approach was promoted in opposition to the top-down perspective that held that policy implementation should be understood as (and, more normatively, should be synonymous with) the application of official decisions made and legitimized in the highest political and bureaucratic spheres, following the hierarchical chain of command. Conversely, this approach advocated for a bottom-up perspective, in which policy implementation should be analyzed at the level of low-level bureaucrats, emphasizing their role in policy-making, autonomous decisions and possibly changing policy outcomes (Barrett, 2004).

Over the decades, however, this division between top-down and bottom-up has been overcome by more continuous approaches that propose that what happens at the bottom influences the top and vice versa (Saetren, 2014). Moreover, these new approaches argue that the analysis of street-level bureaucrats may shed light on different elements that are not only related to policy implementation but also to state, policy and social dynamics. For the teaching of policy studies, street-level bureaucracy thus contributes to a general reflection on the policy process as a whole, in addition to its essential contribution to implementation studies.

Analyzing street-level bureaucrats may indeed be a way to help students better understand broader phenomena about the state, about the citizens, and, mostly, about the encounters

between state and citizens (Brodkin, 2011; Dubois, 2010; Zacka, 2018). Street-level bureaucrats materialize the policy decisions in daily encounters with citizens (Dubois, 2010). Therefore, these encounters are a micro fraction of a macro relationship between the state and the citizen. Being so, they are able to carry, even in small proportions, elements that constitute this relationship, including the idea of rights, citizenship, justice, equity, legality, identity, among others. Therefore, observing street-level bureaucrats is a way to introduce the students to many issues related to social dynamics and to how the state works. For example, the daily relations between the state and the citizens may be characterized by racism, prejudice, exclusion and inequality, which are part of the social dynamic and can be made visible by analyzing these micro relationships. Consequently, analyzing street-level bureaucrats is a way to consider that “microfoundations” are by no means solely about psychology or micro–micro causations, but are also amenable to analyses of macro–micro relationships that investigate the impact of structure on individual-level outcomes’ (Kang, 2022, 14).

We argue here that teaching street-level bureaucracy is not only a way to understand policy implementation, but also a way to teach the macro phenomena represented in these daily micro encounters.

SLBs work in organizations (Brodkin, 2012), in specific institutional settings, and have to deal with different institutional logics (Maynard-Moody and Musheno, 2003), implementing policies and instruments that carry trajectory, styles and values (Lascoumes and Le Galès, 2007), and dealing with different types of relationships that influence the way they act (Lotta and Marques, 2020; Siciliano, 2015). They have discretion, considering the contractual freedom to make decisions, and they also have agency, considering their choices as social actors. Street-level bureaucrats are social actors, with their own trajectory, values and professions (Dubois, 2010; Maynard-Moody and Musheno, 2003), embedded in specific societies and social dynamics (Møller and Stensöta, 2019). These different elements may be understood and taught when analyzing street-level bureaucrats and their encounters. The following section explores some of the policy trends that can be taught using street-level bureaucracy theory.

SHEDDING LIGHT ON GENERAL POLICY TRENDS

We present here some of the issues that can be understood by observing and teaching SLBs.

The first one concerns the changes in the public sector caused by reforms and their consequences both to services and to citizens. The new public management reforms, implemented in different ways during the 1980s and 1990s all around the world, were inspired by neoliberal principles that redefined – and usually diminished – policies and institutions (Saad-Filho and Johnston, 2005). These reforms were based on trends such as budget cuts, efficiency, performance measure, outsourcing, digitalization, and increasing accountability and workers’ responsibility. These reforms were conducted in the name of a client-centered approach, with services tailored to address specific individual needs and situations, and subjected to evaluation by the public more often than traditional bureaucracies. In this perspective, street-level agents were trained in order to improve client satisfaction and services were re-arranged (e.g., extended opening hours, renovation of physical spaces and introduction of technical devices). In the meantime, some of the consequences of these reforms included pressure for cutting resources (and clients), increasing workers’ productivity, and evaluating and controlling their performance.

These reforms ‘reshaped the organizational landscape, creating new, mixed forms of provision and complex delivery arrangements’ (Brodkin, 2012, 944). As a result, the boundaries between public, private and non-profit organizations became blurred. Managerial tools that were usually associated with the private sector started being implemented in public organizations, such as pay-for-performance, strategic planning and systems of evaluation. The reforms also focused on decentralizing services and management, which, in turn, increased the number of agencies providing the same type of services (Bouckaert, Peters and Verhoest, 2016). These new forms of arrangements caused, as an unexpected consequence, a lack of coordination and integration that impacted service efficiency and access to services (Bouckaert, Peters and Verhoest, 2016). They also caused a perverse competition among services that created islands of excellence in some places, and poor services in others, causing exclusion and disparities in the quality of services accessed by citizens.

While we should not forget about the possible improvement the reforms brought in service delivery, scholars suggest that those new arrangements and the new forms of pressures they introduced impacted in many ways the work of SLBs and the way services are delivered for citizens. First, SLBs were obligated to work with even fewer resources than before, which increased coping behaviors, such as rationing and creaming (Tummers et al., 2015). At the same time, SLBs were pressured to cut clients from the service reinforcing the discipline and coercion over those who remained in the service (Wacquant, 2009), and creating practices of administrative exclusion (Brodkin and Majmundar, 2010). This situation also created an exclusion of those citizens who did not fit in with the moral and behavioral expectations of the services (Eiró, 2019) or were not evaluated as deserving clients (Thomann and Rapp, 2018). Despite focusing on guaranteeing access to rights, many times SLBs ended up behaving like fiscal agents and controllers focused on saving public money (Brodkin and Majmundar, 2010).

The reforms also weakened SLBs by changing their contracts. As many services became privatized or outsourced (Lipsky and Smith, 1989), some of those who had previously been ‘bureaucrats’ with tenure contracts with the state became frontline workers with precarious contracts and relationships with the state. Moreover, both the process of outsourcing and the inclusion of performance measurement in policy implementation created an environment of pressure for new achievements and results controlled through contracts, indexes and payment for performances. In this way, scholars suggest that SLBs are now subject to different regimes of accountability, including market-based ones, that may create conflicts around their values and the way they make decisions (Thomann, Hupe and Sager, 2018; Hupe and Hill, 2007).

Finally, the reforms digitalized many services. This process of dematerialization (Pollitt, 2012) of the state may, sometimes, change or even diminish SLB discretion. But it also creates new types of bureaucrats, such as the system-level and screen-level ones (Bovens and Zouridis, 2002; Buffat, 2015), who also have discretion, and interfere in policy implementation and citizens’ access to services. Here again, teaching street-level bureaucracy enables us to draw students’ attention to major ongoing changes, such as how the wide digitalization trend has changed administrative work, policy-making and the state-citizen relationship.

If the consequences of the reforms are evident when observing SLBs at work, they are even stronger when observing the other side of the street: how citizens were affected by the reforms (see the next section below – ‘From the other side of the desk’).

The first evident consequence is the decrease in service quantity and quality, which we observe in most countries. The pressure for budget-cutting and productivity impacted the number and quality of services provided by SLBs. They have less time, offer more minor

services, and do not have sufficient resources or time to give citizens enough attention. At the same time, as mentioned before, they are also often pressured to exclude citizens. From a pedagogical point of view, the interest here is to show students the possible discrepancy between public policy in official discourses ('the equal grant of benefits', 'the mobilization of the unemployed to return to work', 'facilitating access to public services and rights thanks to digitalization', etc.), and concrete settings which may orient towards contrary trends when it comes to actual policy practices. Moreover, it provides the occasion to go beyond an organizational point of view, in terms of mismanagement or poor bureaucratic practices, and to show the contradictions within policy processes, and/or their political dimension when it is clear that policy leaders consciously organize a policy that is different to the one they stage in their discourses (i.e., 'the implementation trick', Dubois, 2010).

These changes also include a process of individualization, in which individual interactions with institutions become crucial. When 'tailored welfare' replaces 'one-size-fits-all' standards and universal benefits, when students, substance abusers or inmates have to define a 'personal project', when clients have to negotiate a 'contract' to access public goods, street-level bureaucracy is no longer reducible to bureaucratic routine. It is the place where individual decisions are made which, when aggregated, constitute what becomes 'public policy'. The individualization process is one of the characteristics of the paternalistic component of neoliberal reforms, in which citizens become individually responsible (and blamed) for their situations or their behaviors. So, getting (or not getting) a job is (solely) their own responsibility, as is accessing (or not accessing) a service.

A consequence of this process is the increase in practices of discipline and control over citizens. As they have now to prove that they deserve the services, and they have to comply with new rules, their eligibility and behavior are more controlled. As Auyero (2012) suggests, clients have to learn how to be a patient of the state (passive and with patience) in order to become a 'beneficiary', and not a citizen who is entitled to rights. Moreover, the reforms reintroduced the idea of different types of citizens: the entitled and non-entitled (Møller, 2009), the deserving and undeserving (Jilke and Tummers, 2018), the 'established and the outsiders' (Elias and Scotson, 1994). These processes create the idea that citizens have different degrees of citizenship and reinforce internal division and competition among them. This leads us to consider street-level bureaucracy from the point of view of the clients, as a complement to existing literature mostly focused on the agents.

FROM THE OTHER SIDE OF THE DESK: ACCOUNTING FOR USES, EXPERIENCES AND IMPACTS

As street-level bureaucracy is about the interaction between public services and clients, teaching street-level bureaucracy logically includes the consideration of the public(s) targeted by policy programs, which is rarely the case in traditional courses on policy studies. This enlarged notion of street-level bureaucracy teaching enables us to reflect on how people make use and sense of the policies they are confronted with. It is also a renewed way to address the question of how policies impact people's lives, ways of being and ways of thinking.

First, explaining to students the conditions, forms and impacts of the (non)uses of public services and programs helps them to think about public policies beyond their explicit contents and official organization. The social studies of technology have taught us that the functions of

any technical device depend on the way people use it, and not only on the performances of the device itself. We can use this analogy to explain to students how the manner in which targeted groups and clients use policy programs contributes to their success or failure, and ultimately participates in the definition of their contents. Even without thinking of the extreme cases of misappropriation, the social differentiation of the ability to apply for a benefit or a program may impact the orientation of a policy. Homeless people go to public libraries because it is warm inside, not to read books. Poor people go to the welfare office to get any kind of advice, not only to claim benefits. Entrepreneurs use tax cuts for many purposes other than the recruitment facilitation or salary increases they are intended for. All of these may be regarded as problems, but it is important for students to understand that this is how public policy often goes. Be they analysts or practitioners, they should consider the concrete situations of clients, their interests and goals before judging their behavior as misconduct or misunderstanding.

The same applies to a key issue of public policy, which is non-take-up (Zuurmond, 2008). Addressing this issue requires going beyond the contents of the programs, and even beyond the way their implementation is organized (which, of course, are crucial aspects), to include the living conditions, preferences, ways of thinking, etc., of targeted groups, in order to understand why some of their members, sometimes in large proportion, do not access services they could benefit from. It is important to train students to think in this way, for analytic purposes and also because non-take-up is a crucial issue some may deal with as policy practitioners.

This relates to a second point, which links to the question of how clients make sense of the public policy programs they are subjected to, or they benefit from. It is the readers of a book who provide its meaning, not only its author. Similarly, the signification of a policy rests on how people consider it, think and speak of it, and not only on the intentions of policy-makers (Revillard, 2018). Since this meaning-making process has an impact on the policy and its results, it deserves a place in a policy studies course.

Lastly, including policy publics in teaching street-level bureaucracy helps shed new light on the effects of public policy, beyond the traditional evaluation perspective. People-centered approaches provide the students with a humanistic, non-technocratic view of policy results and impacts, intended or not, as has been shown by anthropological research on welfare reform in the USA, for instance (Morgen and Maskovsky, 2003). But the impacts of policy programs are not only on living conditions or personal trajectories. They exist also at the symbolic and the political levels. On the latter, new and innovative street-level bureaucracy research has refined our understanding of ‘policy feedbacks’; that is, how policies change political participation and attitudes. Joe Soss, for example, has shown how welfare programs can improve or worsen the political participation of those who experience them, depending on whether the provision of benefits is perceived as fair or arbitrary, and the street-level bureaucracy viewed as supportive or coercive (Soss, 1999). By extension, this kind of research is useful for helping students realize the political implications of policy programs and of the concrete organization of public service delivery.

HOW TO TEACH SLB

In more traditional courses, street-level bureaucracy is taught as part of the policy-cycle analysis when students learn about policy implementation. This is the view associated with the top-down/bottom-up discussions, in which street-level bureaucrats are often only considered

as subaltern actors in a chain of decisions about policies. There is no doubt about the importance of teaching that SLBs are workers who have discretion, influence policy outcomes and, therefore, should be managed. In this way, issues such as discretion, accountability, coping mechanisms, incentives and interindividual behavioral variations may arise as the main lessons for students.

However, we argue here that street-level bureaucracy may be taught as a micro theory that enables the comprehension of macro elements. In this way, street-level bureaucracy theory can be taught in specific courses that will shed light on other issues not only related to the daily action of SLBs or to the way they are managed. These courses may use street-level bureaucracy as an approach, an instrument or an analogy to understand other political, sociological and managerial issues. For this second purpose, teaching street-level bureaucracy faces some challenges and requires pedagogical attention.

The principal challenge concerns the main concept of street-level bureaucracy. This is not a shared concept, used in people's or public administrations' daily lives. And actually, it can be a somewhat awkward term – many teachers and police officers may not appreciate being called bureaucrats, especially given the possible negative connotations of this word. Some scholars have evaded this problem by substituting the concept of 'street-level bureaucrats' with 'frontline workers'. But, regardless of the concept, imagining that there are common and comparable elements among the various frontline workers – such as teachers, police officers, social workers, judges, etc. – requires a certain degree of abstraction, going beyond the obvious empirical diversity of these functions. Abstraction is important for students in order to understand the characteristics of the state and public administration beyond specific policies or experiences. It allows students to analyze and think more broadly about how the state functions, its characteristics, its challenges and its opportunities for change.

A good way to face this challenge is to adopt experiential-based learning, like that described by Alves de Lima and Lotta (2023). Experiential learning consists of a learning method composed of a cyclical process of different phases, such as experience, reflection, thought and action (Kolb, 1984). Students are presented with a case (a service or program) and observe, analyze and reflect on it. This method emphasizes the role of experience in learning processes (Ng, Van Dyne and Ang, 2009, 512). It can be adopted in courses for academic students – from bachelor's to master's, or Ph.D. – but it can also be adopted in courses for professionals or managers. The main advantage of this method is that it enables students to observe encounters between street-level bureaucrats and citizens, and teachers can use the encounters as the phenomenon to be analyzed. When exposed to different types of encounters, and also to different kinds of street-level bureaucrats, students are more likely to understand the common issues among them and to abstract from the particularities and supposed randomness of individual action for a more systematic understanding of phenomena.

Different approaches may be used to expose students to these encounters. The first one is to take students to observe services. They can visit schools, social work facilities, police stations and even courts or other places that provide services to citizens. During these visits, they can observe the encounters, communicate with street-level bureaucrats and their managers, and talk to citizens. In some specific cases, students may even participate in the service delivery process, helping street-level bureaucrats in their tasks as a way to experience the process more deeply. Teachers should guide these visits, not only explaining to students how to behave – not being too invasive and respecting citizens and workers – but also what to observe and how to take notes. Later, teachers and students can discuss this process, associating what

they observed with the concepts of the course. Alves de Lima and Lotta (2023) described one such process in which they took students to visit different public services in order to talk to street-level bureaucrats. These visits were guided by a teacher-developed, theory-inspired observation guide. After the visits, students were led through a process of analysis and discussion based on the theoretical perspectives and their own experience in the field. This process allowed them to observe theoretical concepts in practice and also to understand the experience in a more theory-oriented way.

An alternative to these visits – especially in times of remote working or online teaching – is to adopt materials that represent those encounters. Movies, television series, documentaries and even podcasts may give great examples of the work of street-level bureaucrats and can be used with students to discuss the same issues as those that arise during physical visits. There are currently several films and valuable series for this purpose, including films such as: *I, Daniel Blake* (2016), *The Guilty* (*Den Skyldige*) (2018) and *The Invisibles* (*Les Invisibles*) (2018); and TV shows such as: *Unbelievable* (2019), *The Wire* (2002), *Flint Town* (2018), and some episodes of *Law and Order* (1990) (mainly S17 E5, ‘Community Policing’ (2015)) are especially useful to observe the police as street-level bureaucrats. The podcast *Serial* (2014–2020) also presents many stories about police officers, the daily work of courts and schools.

Finally, case studies are also helpful in teaching about street-level bureaucrats. The real stories presented by Maynard-Moody and Musheno in *Cops, Teachers, Counselors* are straightforward and didactic to exemplify the encounters. Teachers can also develop their own teaching cases, but for this, it is important to follow the instructions developed by the literature (e.g., Hatcher, McDonald and Brainard, 2018).

Obviously, any decision about which material to use, and how and when to use it must be made in coherence with the course and its objectives. There is the possibility of developing more traditional classes, where concepts are presented first and then students are invited to observe them in practice. Nevertheless, inverted classes can also be taught, first exposing the students to the experiences and later guiding them to develop an understanding of the relevant concepts. As mentioned before, street-level bureaucracy can illuminate different dimensions. Therefore, the same material can be used to discuss different concepts and theories. The movie *I, Daniel Blake*, for example, can be discussed to understand broad elements about the state – such as managerial reforms, social welfare and digitization of services – to managerial and behavioral elements of street-level bureaucrats – such as coping mechanisms, professionalization and street-level management. But it can also be used to discuss social issues such as citizenship, social identity, inequalities, gender issues in public services, among others. The focus and method will depend on the broader choices about course purposes, the profiles of the students and the skills to be developed.

Additionally, teaching street-level bureaucracy provides a good opportunity to discuss questions related to research methods. Without claiming exhaustiveness, we can think, in particular, of five methodological dilemmas that are especially relevant to address when teaching street-level bureaucracy. First, since it especially pertains to the analysis of (bureaucratic) practices, teaching street-level bureaucracy poses the question of the respective contributions and limits of direct observation (which enables access to actual ongoing practices but lacks a broader and diachronic perspective) and of interviews (which brings this broader perspective and the meaning agents give to their practices but access only indirectly to the latter, through the mediation of speech and narratives). Second, understanding these practices implies reflecting on the way organizational and individual factors impact them, and therefore to address *in*

concreto theoretical debates opposing or combining these two dimensions. At the individual level, it requires identifying more precisely what matters or not, such as variables like gender or age, career paths, internal interindividual relationships, or personal social background and history. Third, while the study of street-level bureaucracy involves mainly qualitative methods, it can also include quantitative aspects, and therefore introduce the students to the possible combination of methods, and to methodological issues of quantitative analysis (what should we count? How can/should we re-use quantitative data produced by the administration? Is it possible to quantify ethnographic material?). The fact that street-level bureaucracy research is most often located in specific limited units of time and space (e.g., administrative services) raises a fourth methodological question, concerning the status of case studies, and the conditions for the generalization of the results. Is this health center in São Paulo representative of the way proximity services work in Brazil? Does the way these specific French state agents in charge of granting asylum define their task account for a widely shared view among this group of professionals? Here, the development of an international scholarship, presenting specific studies of highly diverse places, offers opportunities for teachers to set local results in perspective. Fifth and last, teaching street-level bureaucracy helps us revisit the previously mentioned micro/macro divide, by reflecting on how observations conducted at the local, interindividual level can help unveil structural patterns of the policies under scrutiny, in a 'critical policy ethnography' approach (Dubois, 2009, 2015). By this phrase we mean a reflexive ethnography, focused on policy processes, shedding light on the contradictions of policy programs, and accounting for their role in the reproduction of social, economic, political and symbolic domination.

As we said before, one of the pedagogical interests of teaching street-level bureaucracy is that it is conducive to translating academic, abstract and critical knowledge into practice-driven concerns. Last, we would then like to underline what practical lessons can be drawn from street-level bureaucracy research for future public managers and policy makers. For example, at a first, theoretical step, the course can be dedicated to interindividual variations in the practices of street-level bureaucrats. This can help debunk the commonsense explanation of such variations as the result of the personal nature of the agents and their mood of the moment. To do so, it is possible to provide sociological explanations illustrated by concrete examples showing how, in the same service, individual agents make different decisions on the same types of cases, behave in opposite ways with clients and define their task in various ways. Their training, social background, gender, generation, their career (in the interactionist sense of both a succession of positions and a succession of points of view on these positions) can be explored as possible explanations for these variations. At a second, practical step, we can switch the question from how to explain interindividual variations to which criteria should be used to recruit street-level bureaucrats in a given service. This places would-be public managers in a position to reflect on their policy goals and define them more precisely, and to integrate this reflection in their future staff management tasks.

CONCLUSION

Street-level bureaucracy provides a viewpoint from which it is possible both to show the students what public policies concretely consist of and to address general theoretical questions of policy studies. Teaching street-level bureaucracy is therefore not limited to street-level

bureaucracy theory *per se* (with the notions of discretion, sorting, the questions of bureaucratic socialization, etc.), but extends to addressing general issues, such as the role of legal rules, of new public management reforms, the relationship between state and society, and, from the clients' side, non-take-up and policy feedback. Rather than a strict distinction between levels and steps (as in the traditional stage-sequential approach), teaching street-level bureaucracy analysis can help to consider policy-making as a continuous process, in which hierarchies of power are not given once and for all.

In our experience, this is conducive to several pedagogical contributions. It challenges ordinary and official views on public policy, and therefore allows general reflections of students in this domain, on the role of organizational aspects, on the frequent vagueness of legal rules and bureaucratic criteria, and on the conditions under which 'who gets what, when, and how', to quote Harold Lasswell's famous definition of politics. Such reflections fuel the academic training of students, from the theoretical, the methodological and the empirical points of view as well. Moreover, street-level bureaucracy analysis often proves to encourage vocations in academic research. However, we do not reduce our pedagogical role to the training of future academics and believe teaching street-level bureaucracy also matters if we want future policy practitioners and policy makers aware of the practical logics of agents and clients impacted by their choices, but who are most often remote from the offices in which they are made.

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PART III

TEACHING METHODS AND METHODOLOGY FOR POLICY RESEARCH

12. Teaching quantitative methods to students of public policy

Matthew C. Nowlin and Wesley Wehde

INTRODUCTION

In a notable Supreme Court case on partisan gerrymandering, Chief Justice John Roberts made a now infamous remark on political research. At one point during oral arguments, he stated, ‘the whole point is you’re taking these issues away from democracy and you’re throwing them into the courts pursuant to, and it may be simply my educational background, but I can only describe as sociological gobbledygook’ (Gill v. Whitford, 2018, p. 40). By referring to statistical approaches to determine US congressional districts as ‘sociological gobbledygook,’ Chief Justice Roberts was expressing his skepticism surrounding such approaches. Such skepticism, as Roberts concedes, is likely a result of his ‘educational background.’ Questions of democracy, congressional apportionment, and the demographics of congressional districts are complex and cannot be addressed solely through quantitative analysis, but such analysis is an important tool that can shed light on complex questions. As such, we argue that some training in quantitative analysis is an important educational component for public servants, including future Supreme Court Justices.

The collection and use of quantitative data are ubiquitous in the practice of public administration and public policy. Government agencies and public organizations collect large amounts of quantitative data on the individuals they serve, the programs they are implementing, and the problems they are trying to address. Being able to use such data to understand and improve societal conditions, in both applied and research contexts, requires some training in quantitative methods of analysis. What using quantitative data means can differ depending on the audience, or recipient, of quantitative methods training and education. Our chapter explicitly discusses differences in teaching quantitative methods to audiences of different educational backgrounds (i.e., undergraduate, master’s, Ph.D.) as well as with different goals (using vs. producing vs. consuming quantitative data and methods).

The analysis of quantitative data in public policy is multifaceted and growing, and includes applications for practice and for developing and testing theories of the policymaking process. Examples include the growing movement for evidenced-based (or informed) policymaking (see Bowers and Testa, 2019; Cairney, 2016), policy analysis (Weimer and Vining, 2017), policy evaluation (Rossi, Lipsey, and Henry, 2019), and knowledge building regarding the process of policymaking (Weible and Sabatier, 2017; Weible and Workman, 2022). Indeed, one of the core competencies for students in US programs accredited by the Network of Schools of Public Policy, Affairs, and Administration (NASPAA) is ‘to analyze, synthesize, think critically, solve problems and make evidence-informed decisions in a complex and dynamic environment.’ NASPAA goes on to explain in its rationale that ‘They [students]

should have the ability to identify, collect, analyze and use qualitative and *quantitative data* to inform decision making that best serves the well-being of the public.’¹

Given the importance of quantitative data for understanding and informing public policy, this chapter highlights a few key aspects that, based on our experience, should be considered when teaching quantitative methods to students of public policy. The next section briefly sets out what teaching quantitative methods entails. We then discuss the importance of knowing your audience, followed by the need to emphasize theory. Next, we discuss that learning by doing is essential to developing skills with using quantitative approaches. Finally, we conclude with a discussion of teaching students to build good habits in data management and analysis.

WHAT DO YOU TEACH WHEN YOU TEACH QUANTITATIVE METHODS?

In brief, quantitative methods involve analyzing statistics, which uses numbers as data to gain knowledge about a phenomenon of interest. Statistics can be descriptive, where the characteristics of the data are summarized (e.g., the average age of program participants) or inferential, where knowledge about a broader population or phenomena are inferred based on the data. Examples of inferential statistics include estimating the average age of the US population based on a random sample or estimating the impact of an increase in Supplemental Nutrition Assistance Program (SNAP) benefits on food insecurity in the US.

Apart from descriptive and inferential, quantitative data can be correlational or cross-sectional, where data is collected across several units within the same time period. Examples include the budgets of several agencies within the same fiscal year or a single survey of program participants. Data can also be time-series, where data on one unit is tracked over time, such as an agency’s budget for the last ten years. Finally, data can be panel or time-series, cross-sectional (TSCS), with data on multiple units over time, such as budget data for several agencies over the last decade. Quantitative data, relative to qualitative data, typically is more generalizable but lacks relative nuance and depth. Thus, courses on quantitative methods should help students identify questions more suited to that kind of data. Even within quantitative data, emphasis on the appropriate tool or technique is necessary. Not all research questions and data can, nor should, be analyzed using OLS (Ordinary Least Squares) or more broadly linear regression, which estimates the relationship between the dependent, or outcome variable, and one or more independent variables. Thus, the application of a particular quantitative method should match the question being asked and the data being analyzed.

Approaches to analyzing quantitative data vary and include descriptive, or summary statistics, such as measurements of central tendencies and distributions of data as well as sophisticated techniques that require significant computer processing power. Another important concept in quantitative methods is inferential statistics which allow users to make conclusions about relationships between variables or concepts of interest. However, the approach to use depends on the question(s) being asked and the type of data (cross-sectional, time-series, or panel as well as continuous or categorical) that is to be analyzed. Being able to distinguish types of data and what types of questions the various types of data can address is the central

¹ Quotes obtained here and emphasis added: <https://www.naspaa.org/sites/default/files/docs/2019-11/NASPAA%20Accreditation%20Standards%20-%20202019%20FINAL%20with%20rationale.pdf>.

insight to be conveyed when teaching quantitative methods. These quantitative analytical methods can be used with a variety of data types including secondary data, most commonly discussed in this chapter for brevity's sake, but also content analysis, structured observations, and primary data such as that collected through online, mail, or phone surveys.

Quantitative methods also often share ontological and epistemological backgrounds, at least implicitly. As such, teacher-scholars should familiarize students with foundationalist ontologies that presume a reality that exists separately from and independently of our knowledge of it (Marsh and Furlong, 2002). Additionally, most quantitative methods and approaches require a positivist epistemology which emphasizes methods of observation to measure and understand reality. Additionally, a positivist epistemology presumes the separation of fact and value. That is, empirical questions can be separated from normative ones and that science can be objective and value-free. However, there is a growing body of researchers who are applying quantitative methods through other epistemological lenses such as feminist (Stauffer and O'Brien, 2018), critical (Garcia, López, and Vélez, 2018), and interpretive (Chatterjee, 2013; Sjoberg and Horowitz, 2013) approaches.

KNOW YOUR AUDIENCE

One of the key considerations in teaching quantitative methods to public policy students is knowing your audience. We believe there are at least three dimensions on which to consider your audience within the field of public policy. The first dimension relates to the type of program where the teacher-scholar will be teaching. Teacher-scholars of quantitative methods in public policy are likely familiar with the breadth of the topic and discipline. However, even as a distinct discipline, there exists a wide variety of methods and emphases across the field, and different types of programs and departments will emphasize some methodological approaches more than other approaches. The second dimension of knowing your audience is the level of education – from undergraduate to master's and Ph.D. programs. Finally, teachers of quantitative methods in public policy need to consider the goals of their students. Does the program intend to train consumers of quantitative information for decision-making, producers of quantitative information for decision-making, or producers of knowledge? While to some extent these three dimensions overlap, public policy and the ways of teaching quantitative methods within the field are affected by each in unique ways. In this section, we discuss some of the decisions associated with various audiences and offer some advice for those teaching quantitative methods in public policy.

The first dimension to consider when teaching quantitative methods in public policy is your place within the discipline. Understanding where on this dimension you and your program exist will provide important context for understanding the subsequent dimensions and making the associated decisions. Scholars of public policy often end up in a wide variety of academic settings which provide important contexts to how they teach quantitative methods at all levels. These contexts arise from the history of the field as well as institutional history. Within the field, these differences often come back to the oft identified differences between policy studies (also often known as policy process theories) and policy analysis. The different overall approaches within these sub-fields of public policy are covered elsewhere in this volume. However, the overall divergence between the two is an important context for understanding how to teach quantitative methods.

Programs which are more firmly rooted in the policy studies and policy process sub-fields will approach quantitative methods as one tool among many and from a more strongly theoretical and less applied approach. This type often includes programs in which policy is taught as a part of, or in conjunction with, a broader more established discipline such as political science or sociology (such as at the University of Oklahoma, where the authors were trained). However, there also exist some standalone policy programs that more strongly align with this paradigm (e.g., Oregon State). Looking exclusively at the approximately top 40 U.S. News and World Report (USNWR) ranked policy schools or programs, Ash and Urquiola (2020) find distinct differences in where faculty publish research, reflecting differences in how public policy is conceived of as a sub/discipline relative to other fields of social science. In particular, these authors note four distinct journal categories: economics, political science, public administration, and natural sciences. Ranking public policy programs by faculty publications in political science journals improves the rankings of certain institutions such as the University of Georgia's School of Public and International Affairs and the University of Virginia's Batten School to top ten status. Geva-May and Maslove (2006) also document the distinction between political science-based, business-based, and standalone policy programs in the US and Canada. They note that standalone programs often focus on professional training and producing policy analyses for higher education and other government agencies, as opposed to academic knowledge production. Teaching quantitative methods in this type of program will more often focus on the norms of quantitative methods in academic research because of their focus on theoretical development and their roots in more traditional disciplines (see Reichard and Schröter, 2018 for evidence of the growth of the importance of this approach in Europe).

Programs more firmly based in policy analysis will view quantitative methods as the primary tool to be used for practical applications and less for theoretical pursuits. This type of program is more often a standalone program, often with a Masters of Public Policy (MPP) degree, or associated with an economics department or program (i.e., the Harris School; see Berman, 2011 and 2017 for the influence of economics on public policy, especially within government). Teachers of quantitative methods in this type of program will often focus more on the norms of quantitative analysis within government agencies and private organizations, both non-profit and for profit (Geva-May and Maslove, 2006).² Programs ranked by faculty publications in economics journals leads to a relatively unsurprising group of Ivy and Ivy-adjacent universities at the top, including Chicago at the fourth ranked position. Programs with faculty publishing in public administration journals may also be particularly concerned with application of quantitative methods in agencies and non-profits and include schools such as Indiana University, ranked first, or American University, ranked second (Ash and Urquiola, 2020).

Another way a teacher-scholar may need to consider their place within the overarching discipline relates to geography. In the US, policy schools and training take a more quantitative approach while in other settings, especially the UK and southern Europe, a more qualitative or

² We want to point out that these are overarching generalizations and will not perfectly describe every program. However, we do believe they apply, to varying extents, to most programs that focus on public policy. Additionally, we do not mean to suggest that theory is not used in more applied policy analysis programs but rather to suggest that the goals differ in their use of theory. In the following section, we discuss in more detail the importance of theory in guiding the teaching of quantitative methods, regardless of program context.

law-based approach to education may be more common (Hajnal, 2003, 2015). Kickert (2005) also demonstrates how public management scholarship and teaching is distinct across a variety of European countries. Geva-May and Maslove (2006) note public policy programs in Canada may be more theory based and abstract than the skills-based approach in much of US policy school curriculums. European programs may, however, be focusing more on academic knowledge than applied policy analysis, given the proliferation of training opportunities internal to bureaucracies (Reichard and Schröter, 2018).

Once a teacher-scholar has determined their place within the discipline, in addition to considering theirs and their program's or department's place within the discipline, they must then consider the level of program in which they will be teaching. The needs and skills of undergraduates learning quantitative methods will differ greatly from those of graduate students. Teachers of undergraduate students in public policy should assume students' previous exposure to quantitative methods is limited to zero or, at most, one course in statistics. Additionally, these students will have limited familiarity with the software or tools used to conduct quantitative analyses. Thus, teachers of undergraduates will need to spend more time teaching underlying skills and information like software usage. Teacher-scholars of undergraduates may also want to pay more attention to the use conditions and validity of quantitative methods. Identifying when quantitative analyses are most useful may be a skill as valuable as the ability to conduct said analyses.

Teachers in masters' programs, on the other hand, will face varying contexts. First, we want to acknowledge that at the master's level the field of public policy is often taught within public administration programs, and not as a separate field. Thus, for example, the quantitative method needs of an executive MPA differ greatly from that of an MPP (see Morçöl et al., 2020 for some evidence to this end). This introduces the third dimension of decision-making a teacher-scholar of quantitative methods must consider – whether they are training consumers of quantitative information for decision-making, producers of said information, or producers of information for knowledge (see Miller, 2021; Miller, 2022; and Smith and Martinez-Moyano, 2012 for evidence of the distinction between producers and consumers of data and quantitative information). It is likely that students in an executive MPA program are interested in becoming consumers of quantitative information for decision-making. Students in MPP programs, on the other hand, will more likely be interested in becoming producers of quantitative information for decision-making. Finally, students interested in producing knowledge will primarily be taught in Ph.D.-level programs; one key exception to this would be undergraduate programs with required or honors theses and thesis-producing masters' programs. These students may also be interested in the use of quantitative methods for knowledge production.

Each of these three dimensions should inform choices teacher-scholars make regarding the extent of content covered and the tools taught. Teacher-scholars focused on undergraduate courses and training consumers of quantitative information will cover the least amount of material and, potentially, use the simplest tools. Teacher-scholars tasked with teaching Ph.D.-level courses and producers of knowledge through quantitative information will cover the most material and use the most complex and innovative tools. Those tasked with teaching undergraduates and consumers of quantitative information should consider the use of Microsoft Excel and other spreadsheet software as the primary tool of analysis. Analyses of job websites related to policy and administration suggest Excel is the most commonly requested statistical tool (Adams, Infeld, and Wulff, 2013). These tools are commonly available on most computers and in most workplaces and thus highly useful and marketable to most

students. Teacher-scholars of undergraduates, as well as producers of quantitative information for decision-making, should also consider open-source software such as R or Python as they are freely available, and students can take these skills with them into almost any workplace or industry. On the other hand, teacher-scholars of Ph.D. students and producers of knowledge should consider tools that provide the most room for growth. Software such as R, Python, SAS, or STATA may be most useful for these courses.

Other considerations in determining which tool to teach is the instructor's prior knowledge, the complexity of the tool, and availability. Specifically, instructors may prefer tools with which they are familiar. Complexity of the tool may be especially relevant depending on the level, length, and position within the curriculum of the course. Availability is also relevant as some universities may have licenses to particular software but not others (i.e., SPSS is available but STATA is not). To that end, the open-access and free nature of R may be compelling or the near ubiquity of Microsoft products and Excel might be a determinate. These programs will allow students to build on skills learned in an introductory quantitative methods class in future coursework and are the norm for analyses in the academic setting. We would also encourage instructors to take advantage of professional development opportunities to continue to build on existing skills and knowledge as well as to acquire new skills.

Finally, we want to describe an aspect of knowing your audience that is likely relevant to teacher-scholars at any intersection of the previously described three dimensions. That aspect is statistical or mathematical anxiety. A significant body of research suggests students in the social sciences, including public affairs and policy, experience high levels of statistical anxiety (Clark and Foster, 2017; MacInnes, 2009), that is to say some students will be apprehensive and experience feelings of anxiety when tasked with learning statistics. Smith and Martinez-Moyano's (2012) review of this area of research suggests a few strategies that can aid teacher-scholars across all levels of quantitative methods instruction in public policy. These tools include humor to overcome anxiety; active or inquiry-based learning; requiring data collection and group work; use of current events and relevant real-life examples; building knowledge incrementally; and the acknowledgement of and discussion about statistics anxiety (Smith and Martinez-Moyano, 2012).

EMPHASIZE THE IMPORTANCE OF THEORY

Regardless of the type of program or level of education, we feel that it is important for teacher-scholars to emphasize theory when teaching quantitative methods to policy students. The phrase 'correlation does not equal causation' is (rightfully) often repeated when teaching quantitative methods. It is meant to caution students that just because two variables are associated, it does mean that changes in variable X *cause* changes in variable Y. The association between ice cream sales and crime is a typical example used to illustrate the point. The observation that rising (falling) ice cream sales is associated with rising (falling) crime is spurious, because there is no sensible explanation that could explain the relationship.³ However, policy scholars and students are not interested in spurious correlations, but are instead interested in

³ We encourage use of <http://www.tylervigen.com/spurious-correlations> to illustrate other, often humorous, spurious correlations.

what could happen following a change in X, or what causal impact X could have on Y. The ability to conjecture about the nature of the relationships between variables comes from theory.

Explaining observed phenomena requires the development and testing of theories. In our co-authored book we define theory as, ‘a set of interrelated propositions that seek to explain and predict an observed phenomenon’ (Jenkins-Smith et al., 2017, p.5). We go on to note that theories should have the following characteristics: they should be coherent and internally consistent, causal in nature,⁴ and generate testable hypotheses. Each of these aspects of theory is important for students, at all levels, to understand.

As we note, theories include a set of interrelated propositions, and these propositions are based on concepts (e.g., political ideology, social capital, food insecurity, educational attainment). A theory should posit relationships among concepts that are coherent (i.e., logical, ordered, and integrated) and internally consistent, where the relationships among concepts is explained through a set of common underlying causes and conditions (Jenkins-Smith et al., 2017). For example, the concept ‘social capital’ should be clearly defined and its role in a theory should be consistent with that definition.

Second, theories should be causal in nature. The role of theory is to explain observed phenomena, and trying to understand causality is a vital component of explanation, not to mention prediction. As we note, correlations are not sufficient to demonstrate causality, rather causality is understood through theory. Theories start with concepts that are coherent and internally consistent, then theories posit causal relationships among those concepts. Evidence to help with establishing causality is based on a) time ordering – the cause precedes the effect, or X happens before Y happens; b) co-variation – changes in X are associated with changes in Y; and c) non-spuriousness – there is not a variable Z that causes both X and Y (Jenkins-Smith et al., 2017, p.9). Students should be encouraged to demonstrate each of these steps as part of their analysis.

Lastly, students should understand that theories generate testable hypotheses. Theories are composed of posited relationships among concepts, and hypotheses detail those expected relationships. Theory building comes from the testing and re-testing of hypotheses. Generally, well-structured hypotheses contain a directional expectation of the relationship between variables, rather than just the expectation of a relationship. For example, a directional hypothesis states that as X increases, Y decreases, which is better structured than a hypothesis that simply states that there is a relationship between X and Y. Clearly stated directional hypotheses based on theory should be put forward before any data is analyzed. We recommend encouraging students to write what they think will happen and why before they start to analyze data.

An important step between theory development and hypothesis testing is the operationalization of the variables. Operationalization is the transforming of concepts into variables that are measured. In quantitative courses students deal with concepts that are measured and quantified. As a result, students should be asked to determine the quality of the measurement, or how well the measure captures the concept. Establishing measurement quality is always challenging, but it is impossible without a clear and consistent understanding of the concept that is being measured. Therefore, students should be encouraged to carefully consider the validity of the measurements they are using, and perhaps creating. Another concern in use of quantitative

⁴ Note this is only one approach to theorization in the social sciences and public policy. Some theories may not be causal and only descriptive. Rather, for the purposes of quantitative methods, causality is an important factor in theory and analysis.

methods is that of sampling. An introductory course on quantitative methods in public policy should cover different approaches to sampling and their relevant costs and benefits, generally and as they relate to policy research questions specifically. Theory can often be a helpful guide to students when thinking about the kind of sample most appropriate for their purposes.

Theory building is likely most closely associated with Ph.D., or other, students who will go on to be producers of knowledge; however, when highlighting the importance of theory for policy students, connections should also be made regarding the importance of theory in an applied context. Public policies have causal theories embedded within their designs that posit how a particular policy instrument (or set of instruments) should work to achieve policy goals. For example, the causal theory of a carbon tax is that adding a tax and making carbon-based energy more expensive will result in the reduction of fossil fuel energy use and a subsequent reduction in carbon emissions. Understanding the explicit or implicit causal theory within a policy is a necessary component of *ex-ante* policy analysis or *ex-post* policy evaluation. This is important not only for students who will go on to produce knowledge, but it is also important for students who will be consumers of quantitative information (all students) and producers of knowledge for use in decision-making.

As a simplified example, we can examine the relationship between providing free lunches in public schools and food insecurity in children. The causal theory in the policy design is that providing lunch to students during the school day will reduce overall food insecurity in children. The hypothesis is that as school lunches increase, food insecurity decreases. The measurement of school lunches is relatively straightforward but measuring food insecurity will take some thought. Once measures are developed and the data collected, the hypothesis can be tested. Walking students through similar examples of program theory can help them make the connections between policy design aspects and the impacts of the policy.

LEARN BY DOING

Most students of public policy are going to be users of quantitative techniques and not methodologists who specialize in the study of quantitative methods. In their careers, students may be given quantitative information to inform their decision-making, they may produce quantitative information for decision-making, or they may be producers of knowledge through theory building and testing. Therefore, as future users of quantitative data it is vital that policy students learn by doing, by being given ample opportunities to apply the methods they are learning to data. Indeed, to the extent that it is possible it is useful to dedicate class time to lab sessions where students are in front of computers and actively doing analysis, interpreting results, and performing model diagnostics. While not all students will go on to be producers of original research, going through the process of doing quantitative analysis will assist students in becoming sophisticated consumers of research that uses quantitative techniques.

While actively learning how to perform quantitative analysis is vital, it is also important that students go beyond pushing buttons or typing commands. Students need to learn the importance of research design and should be given opportunities to gain experience doing all facets of the research process including developing a research question, conducting a literature review, developing a hypothesis, operationalizing concepts, doing data analysis and interpreting the results, and finally presenting the results. Our approach to quantitative methods is based in efforts to integrate research and teaching (Brew, 2003; Locke, 2005; van

der Meer and Marks, 2016). We also recognize the enterprise-based and capitalistic pressures to engage with and enhance this practice (Hallett, 2000; McKinley et al., 2021; van der Meer and Marks, 2016). Teacher-scholars of quantitative methods can and should help students ‘do’ the work of research as a pedagogical and educational exercise. This idea relates to the more broadly studied approach of inquiry-based learning or IBL (Brew, 2003; Clark and Foster, 2017; Sewell, 2020). Additionally, we encourage teacher-scholars of quantitative methods to integrate their own research and research processes into their courses, which can allow teacher-scholars to model how to do research for their students (van der Meer and Marks, 2016). The integration of research and teaching can be done by developing a project alongside students (Elsen et al., 2009), incorporating students as co-authors in a semester-long quantitative methods project (Brew, 2003), or using review sessions and class examples to help jump-start quantitative projects of their own.

Developing a research question that is clear, important, and answerable is a skill that takes time and practice to develop. Exercises that assist students in developing research questions include taking time in class to highlight and discuss the research questions in published articles, assignments where students write out the research questions of an article(s) and bring it to class, and allowing students to turn in drafts of possible research questions. It also may be useful to have students identify a puzzle in development of a research question, which requires students to think about how ideas or concepts might fit together (Day and Koivu, 2019).

Next, students should be tasked with conducting a literature review related to their research question. As with research questions, it is useful to discuss the literature reviews in one, or more, published articles. As a first step in the literature review process, students need to be able to distinguish peer-reviewed research from other types of publications. Next, it is useful to have students summarize, in their own words, the articles that they find. Then, students should draft their literature review. Often students will put together a literature review that is more of a running list of one to two paragraph summaries of the articles they found as opposed to an integrated review. Therefore, students should be encouraged to turn in drafts of their literature reviews so this can be addressed.

Third, students should be tasked with developing their own hypothesis. Through the course of developing a literature review, students will likely come across one or more theories that have been developed around their topic and research question. Students should be encouraged to posit an original hypothesis drawn from an existing theory.

After having developed a hypothesis, students should discuss how the concepts associated with the theory and hypothesis will be operationalized or measured quantitatively. As we noted, measurement is a critical component of quality analysis, and students should be encouraged to give careful consideration to how the variables in their hypotheses could be measured. We should note that it is likely not possible for students to develop a research question, conduct a literature review, develop a hypothesis, and obtain quantitative data sufficient to test their hypothesis in a single course. Therefore, in an introductory course or in programs with one course students should be required to come up with realistic plans for collecting data, but only be required to actually collect data if and when it’s feasible. As such, teaching objectives ought to be aligned across courses in programs that have a method sequence such that in the additional quantitative methods courses students may focus primarily on the later steps in this process.

Even if they are not able to collect or access data to test their hypothesis, it is important to have students go through the process of data analysis and interpretation of results. This can

be accomplished by providing data to students and tasking them with using the appropriate methods given the nature of the variables. Additionally, students could be given data and presented with a hypothesis and tasked with using the appropriate methods to analyze the data, test the hypothesis, and interpret the results. Interpretation of the results should include more than just statistical significance but should also include substantive significance as well as the relevance to the hypotheses and theories being tested. Also, students should be required to do descriptive statistics on all of the variables to be used in the analysis as well as model diagnostics, specifically the statistical and graphical tools that allow students to assess the mathematical and practical assumptions of their models.

Finally, students should be given opportunities to present their work. It is likely that students will be required to turn in a written research design that includes the research question, literature review, and hypotheses, but students should also be required to present their work to the class, or in another venue. Where possible, opportunities to share and discuss work can be extended to students' results of their data analysis. Being able to talk through the process, answer questions, and defend their choices is an important set of skills for students to acquire. Additionally, courses on quantitative methods in public policy can help prepare students to be evaluators or peer-reviewers of research. The ability to provide constructive feedback is highly desired in both academic and non-academic settings and can be fostered in a public policy course on quantitative methods.

BUILD GOOD HABITS

As a final recommendation, we suggest all teacher-scholars of quantitative methods in public policy focus on building good methodological and analytical habits. What are 'good habits' you might ask? For us, this means emphasizing transparency and making reproduction of results as easy as possible. In order to emphasize transparency and reproducibility, there are specific sets of tools students can be taught to utilize. Specifically, we suggest teachers of quantitative methods emphasize using coding tools that force students to document the methodological and analytical choices they make. This is easiest in open-source software such as R and Python but is also doable in proprietary software like STATA and SPSS. Beyond teaching how to write and use scripts for analysis, teachers of quantitative methods in public policy should promote the public provision of data and scripts through platforms like GitHub and Dataverse. Finally, teachers of quantitative methods in public policy should emphasize the importance of carefully writing up these steps and choices in reports and manuscripts. Clear and detailed documentation of analytical choices made in the writing stage complements publicly providing data and scripts. These steps toward open science and analysis can help the field of public policy become more transparent and make reproduction and replication easier.

Many different texts for teaching quantitative methods exist which help teacher-scholars implement these recommendations. One such text the current authors have particular interest in is titled *Quantitative Research Methods for Political Science, Public Policy and Public Administration (With Applications in R)* (Jenkins-Smith et al., 2017). As co-authors of this text, we believe it fulfills many of the tenets of this chapter in incorporating transparency and replicability, emphasizing theory, and walking students through the process. It is generally suitable for a master's or Ph.D. level introductory course, covering quantitative methods through linear (OLS) regression with an introductory chapter on maximum likelihood esti-

mation and logit models. An undergraduate version with some reduced areas of content and others expanded is available as well, with applications and exercises using both R and Excel (see Wehde, Bark, et al., 2020; Wehde, Jenkins-Smith, et al., 2020). However, other such texts and resources we recommend include those created by Dr Andrew Heiss⁵ and the UCLA Institute for Digital Research and Education,⁶ among others.

CONCLUSION

This chapter provides a brief introduction to the teaching of quantitative methods in public policy. In so doing, we have focused on principles we believe, and some evidence suggests, lead to more effective courses. This chapter should be used in conjunction with other chapters in this volume describing the theories central to public policy research as well as chapters that focus on qualitative methods and research design. We believe these skills are best used in combination, and thankfully the curriculum of public policy programs usually requires at least two of these three courses. In the US a course on qualitative methods is the one most often missing; however, in other academic settings, such as in the UK, courses on qualitative methods may be more common in general and potentially even more common than quantitative courses. Yet, the principles introduced in this chapter, including knowing your audience, emphasizing theory, learning by doing, and building good habits, can apply to those topics as well; thus, we hope this chapter can be useful to teacher-scholars teaching any public policy course, though methods courses in particular.

We also want to note that previous research suggests that one best practice for the instruction of quantitative methods in public policy and social sciences is embedding. Specifically, embedding statistical instruction and concepts into substantive courses at all levels, including introductory ones (Buckley et al., 2015; Clark and Foster, 2017; Gunn, 2017; MacInnes, 2009). This practice is beyond the scope of this chapter, which considers quantitative methods in a more isolated context. However, this body of research bears mentioning and we note that teacher-scholars of quantitative methods should consider incorporating these concepts into their substantive courses. Additionally, it compels us to recommend that those tasked with teaching standalone quantitative methods courses in public policy curriculums have conversations with their colleagues about how these concepts can be incorporated into their substantive courses as well.

The principles for creating an effective quantitative methods class in public policy begin with designing the course with its audience in mind and explicitly thinking about and acknowledging the students' goals. Teacher-scholars of quantitative methods in public policy should also emphasize the importance of theory. This allows those teaching the class to incorporate academic research, potentially even including their own research or the research of their colleagues. This may be especially important for courses for Ph.D.-level graduate students looking to find research mentors and co-authors. Additionally, a focus on theory should not overlook applied contexts and emphasis on theory should also connect to causal theories within policy designs. Such a connection to an applied setting, where the majority of students will likely be working, is particularly useful. Unsurprisingly, we believe learning by doing,

⁵ See here: <https://www.andrewheiss.com/teaching/>.

⁶ See here: <https://idre.ucla.edu/>.

and by doing well, is foundational to quantitative methods in public policy. Finally, we believe in emphasizing good habits. Specifically, we encourage teachers of quantitative methods to consider using open-source and transparent tools such as R and GitHub. These tools are increasingly important in today's policy research workflow and will likely continue to be important skills for students' success in the policy job market.

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13. Teaching qualitative methods in times of global pandemics and beyond¹

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INTRODUCTION

While handbooks of qualitative methods usually offer a summary of methodical skills available to qualitative research with some basic guidelines on how to learn them, this chapter takes a step back to discuss the research design of qualitative methods in the first place. It does so to raise awareness of the importance of research design for good qualitative work and to provide tools for raising such awareness when teaching qualitative methods. The answers to some crucial and rarely addressed questions of qualitative methods will be discussed: How do we arrange the methods in response to the phenomenon we want to study? How do we react to the inconsistencies, ambivalence, and disruptions we might experience once we get in the field? How do we navigate the complexity of the researched matters within a codified guideline of qualitative methods protocols? These issues are part of the day-to-day research reality for qualitative researchers. Nevertheless, they seem to be situated somewhere between commonsense knowledge and practical hints or tips that are usually not covered in weighty methodological textbooks and teaching curricula.

While discussing these questions, the chapter wants to provide a valuable tool for all who would like to get either support or inspiration for structuring their courses of qualitative research and seek to counterbalance usual formats. In that sense, first, the chapter aims to complement the usual overview works on qualitative methods by providing specific examples and by suggesting particular tasks for teaching activities. Second, the problem-driven approach presented here is valuable as it attracts students more than a general description of qualitative inquiry and encourages them to engage in these techniques in the first place. Third, since this approach is also based on articulating detailed research steps, it opens up a space for sharing research experiences in teaching. Fourth, the approach responds to two fundamental purposes of public policy research: to find tools for helping inform policy decisions and to develop theories to help describe and explain public policy. In the world of policy practitioners, knowing how to navigate qualitative methodology while delivering rigorous expertise is crucial.

The global pandemic has changed our practice of using qualitative methods, making the day-to-day research reality difficult and making the everyday struggles of research more prominent. Talking to people became challenging to organize, leaving many to wonder whether an online platform is a reasonable substitute for the usual interview and discussion situations. Similarly, traumatic events within the pandemic brought to the forefront the emotional intensity of human experience in general, which has had an impact on other social phenomena

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that might not be directly related to COVID-19. The specific situation of a pandemic creates a valuable mirror to discuss the rules of gathering data through qualitative research and how day-to-day research reality impacts their analysis even beyond a pandemic context. Not to mention that since students all have experience with the pandemic, using this mirror has an additional pedagogical value to capture the essence of qualitative work better.

This chapter thus identifies five organizing principles of qualitative methods having an important constitutive role in establishing specific analytic skills that should be highlighted in teaching qualitative methods: contextualization, reflexivity, creativity, transparency and openness, and navigating trust and reality. None of these principles is entirely new to the field of qualitative methodology. Yet, the added value of this contribution is twofold: we put these principles forward as research design principles to set up particular qualitative methods and techniques, and we aim to reframe academic discussion on qualitative methods in line with new circumstances that social research is left within post-pandemic times. We explain, in the following section, why these principles are essential for better knowledge of qualitative methods and illustrate them with examples from our former and actual research,² which can be easily replaced either by a particular teacher's research examples or by any other convenient example.

The primary use of this chapter is to establish a guide for teachers of qualitative research and to give them a space to reflect on their own research methods. Our assumed target group is thus teachers who are familiar with qualitative research and – ideally – have some practical experience with it. Another possible use of the chapter is to use parts of it as reading to focus on some aspect of qualitative inquiry. At the same time, this chapter has no ambition to present qualitative research in all its complexity. More space would be needed for doing that, and many other handbooks and overview works have already offered such space. For beginners, we recommend the two-volume set edited by Uwe Flick, *The SAGE Handbook of Qualitative Research Design* (2022), to which our chapter is a great complement to digest the use of methods and position them in relation to public policy more specifically. While we use interpretive methods in our examples, our chapter is not limited to interpretive research. However, it outlines the five principles as general guidelines for good qualitative work regardless of the specific research tradition (see also the recent discussion in Weible and Workman 2022 on the topic). Regarding the latter, the chapter is also helpful in more effectively organizing research teams working with a mixed-methods approach.

WHY WE NEED TO TALK ABOUT QUALITATIVE METHODS DIFFERENTLY

We want to start by introducing the overarching axes that guide qualitative research and help situate these five organizing principles in the analysis of public policy. To begin with, qualitative methods are inseparable from the interest in language, text, and communication. Despite their differentiated roles and foci in specific analytical tools, language, text, and communica-

² The context of our COVID-19-related project, in which we focus on the public policy concept of staying at home – introduced in many countries as a core measure to contain the spread of the virus – and in which we propose analyzing the effects of staying home on various social groups, builds most of the examples.

tion have been critical in the methodological designs of qualitative research. This has been the case for mainstream qualitative methods (Bauer and Gaskell 2000) and interpretive methods (Wagenaar 2011; Yanow 1996; Durnová and Weible 2020). In this regard, it is important to stress that ‘text,’ for any qualitative research method, becomes a formalized trace of human interactions – interviews, focus groups, group discussions, expert interviews, observations, and field notes. This trace is embedded in larger webs of meanings that need to be unpacked in the analysis. Texts – produced in all these different situations of qualitative research – recall specific rules (language used in a situation, social status or social background, cultural context, political context) and might also carry traces of deviation from these rules, which is then usually the topic of the analysis. This is important to remember when designing qualitative research because single sentences taken out of the particular data collection situations might imply a different meaning when removed from their original context. Hence, researchers need to develop research design principles that can address this.

When analyzing such texts, the discussion of collecting and understanding the data in the larger context of the research question should be carefully thought through. Several works have supported this discussion by focusing on the epistemology of qualitative research (see Bryman 1984; Altheide and Johnson 1994). Epistemology situates the research attitude toward the events, and human interactions researchers should analyze in their research projects. This attitude will differ in a society where social phenomena have multiple meanings, varied social roles, and different government orders. Unpacking the epistemology is thus helpful for finding the appropriate research attitude, and recent works on mainstream public policy have emphasized this as an important way to move forward (Weible and Workman 2022). The research attitude also impacts the output of the results of the analysis, as it brings forward eventual limitations and biases along with the normative background of the analysis. In public policy, it is often hard to identify these biases since the analysis of policies and policy debates emerge from the policy context that researchers are supposed to analyze. Due to this situation, it is helpful to unpack and discuss openly how to identify such biases when applying qualitative methods.

For example, the so-called ‘insider epistemology’ (Fay 1996) sees the ability to gather knowledge about a policy issue as a matter of investigating the perspective from which we look at the policy issue. Such epistemology investigates a variety of material on purpose, works with inherent comparisons of the data gathered, and investigates the perspectives of the researcher himself/herself. Similarly, Richardson (1994) puts forward the practice of self-reflexivity of researchers and conceives of writing up the results of the analysis as part of this epistemological process. As he puts it, the ‘narrative of the self’ (Richardson 1994, p.521) enhances the reader’s imagination and understanding of the social impact of the issue that has been analyzed. More robust engagement with presenting the collected data becomes part of this practice: ‘Self-reflexivity unmask[s] complex political/ideological agendas hidden in our writing’ (Richardson 1994, p.523).

Another important tradition that situates the research design at the forefront of any research – not just qualitative research – is interpretivism. Essentially, interpretivism departs from the assumption that all social phenomena surrounding us are subjected to our interpretations (Yanow 1996; Schwartz-Shea and Yanow 2013). As meaningful creatures, humans try to make meaning of what we see, hear, or experience. Interpretivism makes this process visible by identifying which language tools were used in the meaning-making (see also Durnová and Weible 2020; Durnová 2022) and by reconstructing the social, political, and cultural contexts

that have an impact on this meaning-making process (see Alexander and Smith 2001). A necessary byproduct of this tradition is that words, with which we describe what we see, hear or experience, produce action (Austin 1962) and, as such, have a substantial effect on how policies are made, by whom they are made, and upon which norms and principles (see also Fischer 2003; Schneider and Ingram 1993).

A helpful way to integrate both the overarching epistemology of qualitative research and the specific interpretive perspective is to see qualitative research as a jigsaw puzzle. First, each puzzle item – the singular pieces of data – is fabricated from a specific material (the research topic and the leading research question). The puzzle item never stands on its own. Its form is fabricated to fit the final picture. This fabrication concerns the research steps, such as interviews, which need to be organized according to the topic and the persons to be interviewed. At the same time, each of these puzzle items will also somehow relate to the other interviews and data collection phases that follow, like a puzzle item with a particular contour that allows it to fit the piece next to it. Third, only when the puzzles are put together do we see the whole image – but we also see how the image has been composed and can reconstruct the composition. Good qualitative research can give both a compact image and a trace of its composition.

Overall, public policy research aims at reducing the complexity of the policy world it analyzes (Sabatier and Weible 2014; May 2012). Qualitative methods provide the means to operate this reduction, and the five principles mentioned above are methodological guidelines to organize these means; we cover each in turn below. Each section, therefore, introduces the principle by summarizing the theoretical works that discuss some valuable aspects of it and then outline the challenge's main principles. An example from actual research serves as an illustration in boxes. At the end of each section, we summarize the main argument with a lesson learned that might be applied in practice, including questions that may lead teachers' attention to find their agency regarding the role of the principle during their courses.

CONTEXTUALIZATION

Social research is practiced not in a vacuum but always in a particular situation or context. The COVID-19 pandemic and resulting protective measures (e.g., lockdowns and social distancing) changed people's living conditions and involved their current options, capabilities, capacities, and priorities. Researchers had to consider all of that when formulating research questions, when choosing research design and methods, and when interpreting data. Although it was apparent during the pandemic, it is relevant all the time that social phenomena need to be observed contextually – even in less dramatic circumstances.

The concept of contextuality existed before the pandemic and has been well-established in social research and discussed in methodological sources (Vesely 2011). Different paradigms operate with contextuality differently: sometimes context is a crucial concept, sometimes relatively marginal (Greene 2006). We focus on contextuality as an understanding of human actions within a locality's social, cultural, economic, and political environment (Hentschel 1999). Contextuality involves looking at your research problem within a bigger picture. Contextuality is connected here to a qualitative approach when human action is observed: 'in the context of the meaning system employed by a particular group or society' (Bryman 1984, p.77). Contextuality is often presented as a key characteristic of qualitative methodology in general. The awareness of social context is incorporated into various research designs

(compared to Hentschel 1999), although the concept is most potent in interpretative and ethnographic traditions.

The broader context of an examined phenomenon, and awareness of it, impacts the choice of particular methods. The methods and techniques that ideally make sense in one research design and a particular field do not necessarily fit in another. Further, the circumstances of data collection – including the researcher’s characteristics, such as gender, age, family background, and life experience – also affect the data collection and creation (Shehata 2006). Special attention to context is necessary for the secondary use of data since the circumstances of the original research are always different (different time contexts and researcher characteristics), and the original research questions or theoretical background might not fit the secondary use perfectly.

Contextuality, altogether, helps us find the relevant research question. It is risky to focus on a socio-political phenomenon without a certain degree of familiarity with the field. We strongly suggest using even mediated field experience before designing the research steps to analyze a problem. In this sense, contextualization also increases research validity and comprehensibility for readers. At the same time, deep immersion into context and good knowledge of the situation can overwhelm researchers. Everything seems interconnected and crucial, making it easy to get lost in detail. It is thus important to keep the central message of the analysis and not necessarily use all the data. Just because we have all this information and know all the details does not mean that all the details equally help us deliver the message of the analysis. Here, teamwork and peer consultation, as well as the presentation of preliminary results at different fora, are important platforms to situate this main message because they help us sort out the crucial details from those that can be omitted or delivered only on demand.

In this sense, contextualization touches upon a researcher’s balance between immersion in the field and the distance from it. While immersion yields the possibilities to examine and understand the phenomenon in all its complexity, distance helps us consider the importance of different details, orders them within the analysis, and makes this analysis coherent and valid simultaneously. The principle of contextuality can seem to clash with the principles of repeatability and replicability, which are considered rigorous research criteria and overall validity in some research approaches. Here the specific role of qualitative methods is essential to highlight. Qualitative methods are the best tools to capture context and order the details. Contextuality helps to capture this in a way that is not random but reflexive (see ‘Reflexivity’ section in this chapter) and transparent (see ‘Transparency and Openness’ section in this chapter).

BOX 13.1 APPLICATION OF CONTEXTUALIZATION: CASE OF RESEARCH PROJECT ON COVID-19 AND CONCEPTUALIZATION OF HOME AS A PUBLIC POLICY INSTRUMENT

Long-term field monitoring is an integral part of a good qualitative research approach. In our project, for example, we followed mass media and public discussions, read documents, and integrated ourselves into Facebook groups, even in those that differed from our values and attitudes (e.g., parents refusing tests and mask-wearing at school in one of our COVID-19-related projects). All these activities anchored us in the field, helping us choose the relevant focus (e.g., a focus on the pandemic experience of specific groups,

such as teachers with small children and single people) and interpret data and communicate findings.

We examined some people who had experienced tension and for whom lockdowns had presented huge burdens; they had suffered from a lack of time and other resources. This must be considered when choosing data collection methods: Is the harm caused by our research acceptable to them? How can we compensate for it? Is it possible to supplement interviews with other data (e.g., discussions on social media or memory protocols)?

As we examined teachers and school principals, we had to consider the context of the school year cycle: individual interviews with teachers were carried out during summer holidays, and focus groups with principals during the school year, but not in the most demanding weeks.

Tips for Educational Activities Supporting Adoption of the Principle of Contextuality

Role-playing-games

Various role-playing games focusing on policy can be used for the students to realize that context matters. Students can simulate the negotiation of a concrete policy or problem and present various actors with specific (and secret) positions, interests, resources, aims, and beliefs. Reflection at the end of the game is more important than the game itself, where students can share contexts of various actions.

Review of policy documents context

Students can be asked to go through selected policy documents and media performances and review the context of their origin (when, where, why, by whom, and for whom they were created) and bring evidence of where they found it.

Identifying context in research reports and research papers

First, students can be asked to go through research outputs (papers, reports) and find the information about the context (e.g., When and where were data collected? What was the role of researchers and what aims were persuaded? Who were participants of research and what might participation mean for them?). After that, different research circumstances and their influence could be discussed.

Contact with research terrain

As a long-term task, students can be invited to explore the research terrain broadly – to talk with people, follow media, and integrate activities. Students should record their experiences in the form of field notes or research diaries. The activity should be supplemented by the reflection of both the experience of the terrain and the development of students' thinking and feeling about it.

As we believe teaching qualitative research has both a professional and expert part and a personal one, we would like to note that a teacher must take a stance toward the principle. We perceive it as a precondition to be able to give it appropriate space in the teaching process and grasp enough personal material to apply it. The following question may help formulate such a stance: What role does the principle of contextualization in qualitative research play in

your teaching and research? What aspect of it would you emphasize most with respect to your students? Where have you personally succeeded or failed in terms of contextualization?

CREATIVITY

Creativity is addressed from numerous positions in qualitative research. A ‘pro-creativity’ scholarship addresses creativity as an inspiring part of research design, including various specific techniques such as visual thinking/writing (Mulvihill and Swaminathan 2012). Within this tradition are important works that focus on creative ways to gather data. Some of these approaches may cover innovative participatory activities that are nourished by participants’ active involvement (Weller 2012; Nind et al. 2013) – or by discussions on how to process this involvement in qualitative research (Konecki 2019). Furthermore, a large wave of interest regarding creativity in research has, of course, been raised due to the COVID-19 pandemic, when many researchers were forced to modify their plans and describe their coping strategies and experiences (Torrentira 2020, Krause et al. 2021). In this chapter, we do not value creativity as a significant feature of qualitative research *per se*. Instead, and following all the pandemic reflections, we understand creativity simply as a positive and adaptive response to the changing situations and conditions under which we conduct our research. Such a response allows us to keep our research going and helps us achieve our research aims while not compromising our integrity as researchers.

The pandemic has shown us the need to adapt our research plans according to the limits of the situation in which we conduct our research. At the same time, this need to adapt reveals itself as a beneficial competence under less dramatic circumstances. Likewise, our lives as human beings do not always fit the norms of ideal academic research. There are situations when, for example, being always disposable, capable, ready, or healthy enough to do everything according to the original plan is not possible. As this section discusses, to our advantage, there are means to deal with these situations found within the qualitative methodology. That said, it is not sticking to prescribed protocols and project proposals that make researchers’ outputs excellent because, at the end of the day, it is the researchers’ creativity that – respecting the rules of qualitative research – allows them to make the most of the situation.

BOX 13.2 APPLICATION OF CREATIVITY: CASE OF RESEARCH PROJECT ON COVID-19 AND CONCEPTUALIZATION OF HOME AS A PUBLIC POLICY INSTRUMENT

At the beginning of our research project on the effects of stay-at-home measures in Czechia, we had an approved research plan, and we could rely on the schedule accorded by the funding agency. In this schedule, it was foreseen that we would do interviews with experts as well as with citizens and analyze the media debate on the pandemic throughout 2020. As 2020 was winding to a close, with reports on rising numbers of COVID cases and the subsequent restrictions, we felt that, as researchers, we could do more to collect evidence on how people were experiencing the pandemic. We used the opportunity to ask people via social networks, private emails, and other informal networks to write about their experiences of how their lives changed during 2020. We did not structure these responses – instead, we

wanted to see what was on people's minds and what was important to them, so we invited them to create traces of their experiences that we called memory protocols. They were invited to protocol their memories of 2020 as they remembered it at the beginning of 2021. We did not make suggestions about length; people could write or record whatever they wanted to share. The task was to respond to the following: 'How did you experience the pandemic in 2020? What scared, pleased, annoyed, tired, charged, gripped you?' We also explained the context of our research as 'researching the experience of the pandemic situation in the Czech Republic in 2020,' asking respondents 'to share experiences and both positive and negative emotions associated with the pandemic.' We also specified a particular interest in 'childcare while institutions were closed (emergency distance learning, combination with work, situations in single-parent families or families with more children); and effects of the pandemic situation on relationships.' These memory protocols aimed to offer people a listening ear and an option to write down (or record) the most demanding experiences they have had during 2020. In three weeks, we gathered 154 messages. From the beginning, we knew we could use these 'memory protocols' to capture the contextualization of the research design we intended to apply in the interviews. Although the measures were universal, coping strategies reported in the memory protocols differed enormously depending on the social, health, and economic setting of each respondent; and our team deemed these memory protocols to have more clearly revealed those strategies that went unreported by the media or that were not present in our social bubbles. The memory protocols made us more ready for the in-depth part of our research. The memory protocols also helped us to reveal one specific group we did not have in mind in our original research plan, but that appeared to be very interesting, especially as it was largely neglected by policy makers, media, and researchers alike: single people or people living alone.

Single people reported all sorts of quite profound emotions around their loneliness. Their protocols were more about how to cope with loneliness and loss of contact rather than how to merge work and family. While caregivers/care providers – people caring for other members of their families or others – were overwhelmed and wanted to find a place to slow down, single people instead longed for their interactive and social lives. While for caregivers, 'a bit of solitude' was the desirable but unachievable goal, for single people, being alone was coupled with anxiety and fear. This helped our research design to focus more deeply on the context of emotions articulated and discussed in the public debate on COVID-19. This example also demonstrates that, in some situations, adding work steps to the original plan might be worth considering because it enriches the research design. This is not about pushing for extra work but shows that qualitative researchers should not be afraid to change or extend their research plans. Stay open to extra steps when your intuition says so and when you can process the data. Of course, not all these ad hoc changes in the research plan necessarily bring tremendous outcomes. Even though you might choose wrong (whatever that means), you still learn about another situation of qualitative research and experience the complexities of the field, which are critical in your research career.

The essential condition for experimenting with the research design and adjusting it to changing situations and conditions is to be aware of what the research needs to uncover and the research's very aim. The awareness of creativity in the research design is the anchor that allows us to explore the area of feasible methods – because there are always multiple ways to achieve the aim. It is, therefore, desirable to take time to discuss each way and not use methods that would lead us away from what we want to know.

Tips for Educational Activities Supporting Adoption of the Principle of Creativity

Creativity can help us use the unique momentum or counterbalance the research team's time deficits. At the same time, creativity is not the goal but just the means to improve the research while facing obstacles and deploying innovative modifications to surmount those obstacles. It is also perfectly OK to do solid research without any creative moments.

Teaching creativity cannot be reduced to a one-activity task. Instead, teachers should employ the principle throughout the course. For example, they can adjust the schedule of the course if needed. At the same time, it can be helpful to insert an activity (either individual or within a group), leading students to address the following questions: What methods are you familiar with? What methods do you like? What methods would you like to experiment with? What data can be found in your terrain? What could go wrong? The idea behind this particular activity is that being aware of one's preferences and options increases the chance of thinking fresh and relying not only on beaten tracks that may be unscalable under certain circumstances – when researchers know well what their aim is, they are ready to lay the groundwork for good research.

Another useful, practical task is to think about the methods and data in terms of accessibility and consistency. Especially when researchers are under time pressure or are otherwise unable to meet experts in person for interviews or focus groups, the data you are searching for may be found elsewhere – in press releases, for example (see the outcome of such an approach in Durnová, Formánková, and Hejzlarová 2021). Therefore, we suggest activities focusing on possible alternatives to the most preferred method or dataset: What option do you have to substitute for your preferred method or dataset? Find some examples of innovative use of methods or datasets in your field of research. We want to point out that when researchers cannot schedule an interview with a prominent person, it is always possible to analyze previously published interviews with her. Quite often, the more prominent the person becomes, the more organized her responses are, so your own interview is unlikely to elicit a different point of view on the matters discussed. If published interviews do not fully cover the points the researcher seeks, perhaps there is someone else who can provide those views. Further, it is always inspiring to explore new ideas in, for example, citizen-expert panels (see an example of this method-setting in Goisauf and Durnová 2019) if there are enough sources and resources, but it is not less sophisticated to develop a less expensive method of data gathering, such as collecting emails, blog posts, or diaries by the people whose experiences will help you understand the social phenomena you analyze. Nevertheless, another option is to follow previous research results and research fields to expand what has already been explored under new circumstances.

A very effective group activity is designing the best research design limited by a strictly defined assignment regarding the research goal, time allocation, and financial sources.

Again, before applying any activity regarding creativity, we recommend identifying the teacher's comfortable position towards the topic of creativity by answering the following questions: What role does the principle of creativity in qualitative research play in teaching and research? (We can imagine some teachers are not in their element regarding creativity, and it is useful to accept it.) What aspect of it would you emphasize most with respect to your students? Where have you personally succeeded or failed in terms of creativity?

REFLEXIVITY

Reflexivity is one of the buzzwords of qualitative research. There is no doubt that the concept of reflexivity as an epistemological attitude toward research is widely accepted and even demanded as the new gold standard of social research. At the same time, the researcher community admits that the use of and the expectations attributed to the concept are somewhat ambiguous.

The starting point of these discussions is that reflexivity is one of the components of qualitative research rigor and one of the sources of its validation (Lather 2004). Reflexivity in this delimitation means acknowledging researchers' biases and subjectivity that co-determine the limits of the research. The methodological debates may then swirl around the means of controlling subjectivity, the political power of research both to contribute to desired change or be abused, the strategies of using subjectivity for more in-depth inquiries (see Kuehner, Ploder, and Langer 2016), or around how intense the process of reflexivity should be (although the demand to reflect one's position or positions and beliefs cannot be satisfied by a single act, the question of when it is enough remains – see Finlay 2002). Some researchers address the significance of reflexivity more specifically. As they observe, overestimating the importance of being reflexive may lead to mistaking reflexivity for good research. As Gabriel (2015, p.334) puts it:

What reflexivity cannot replace is the researcher's intelligence and craft first in generating the empirical material and then in probing and questioning it, seeking similarities and exceptions, continuities, and discontinuities, plans and improvisations. Above all, what reflexivity cannot replace is the active and inquiring imagination that persistently asks three related questions 'Why?' 'What if?' and 'So what?'

Berger (2013) defines three types of researchers' reflexivity:

1. The researcher shares the experience of study participants.
2. The researcher moves from the position of an outsider to the position of an insider during the study.
3. The researcher has no personal familiarity or experience with what is being studied.

At this point, we tie the concept of reflexivity to another principle frequently mentioned in conjunction with the quality of qualitative research: peer auditing. If other people are involved in the process, some authors would even call for acknowledging 'team reflexivity' (Schipper et al. 2018). In contrast, others would object that there is no need to coin new concepts (Houghton et al. 2013). We agree that the topic of working in teams (although widespread) and related circumstances for applying and embracing reflexivity is not discussed enough; more debate is needed about the role of academic communities in reflexivity. We assert that team dynamics may make reflexivity processes easier and more complicated. Team cooperation is typical of multiple perspectives and ideas that may lead to a better understanding of what could obstruct the research; we can also imagine that the team dynamics may inhibit some research members from pressing their valuable points and ideas to avoid coming off as a know-it-all. Our experience suggests that an opportunity to discuss ongoing research with colleagues may be very refreshing to keep the balance we discussed earlier in the chapter and reward both the research and the researchers' self-confidence. Local traditions regarding the involvement

of colleagues' feedback may differ significantly across various academic environments. However, we stress the necessity of trying to evolve a culture where these standard reflexivity processes, and discussions about their impacts on the quality of research, are embedded.

In navigating ourselves in our research regarding pandemics, we try to balance the imperatives of good and inspiring research and reflexivity. In our search for that balance, we read, discuss, and are open both to pragmatic solutions and aspirations to methodological ideals, and we also use our intuition and former experiences to strengthen that balance.

BOX 13.3 APPLICATION OF REFLEXIVITY: CASE OF RESEARCH PROJECT ON COVID-19 AND CONCEPTUALIZATION OF HOME AS A PUBLIC POLICY INSTRUMENT

To get to grips with our subjective views and experiences of the pandemic, we wrote our own memory protocols (for details, see the box in the section on 'Creativity') as well. We aimed to gather our experiences of 2020 to visualize and capture the presumptions we mentally enter the field with. Although we were extremely open in our research team, the demand was not easy to accomplish since some situations and memories were emotional and intimate. Furthermore, we exercised reflexivity during every research meeting, discussing not only technical features of our research but also ideas that come to mind and particular moments and symbols we find interesting since the pandemic was in the media, on our minds, and on our social networks, where it took many different forms, from expert articles to blogs and memes. In our team discussions, the above-mentioned memory protocols were of great support. They helped us distinguish between what was present in the data and our experience with the pandemic being mirrored in the data.

In this case, the process of reflexivity towards our research covers both individual reflection of our own activity as researchers and the meta reflection on how to offer a platform for this individual reflection within research teams. Discussing the topics of our research openly while addressing relations and expectations in the team can be challenging, as researchers may be aware of their biases and beliefs and effectively work with them only under the condition that they have a safe and non-toxic environment to do so (see also Finlay 2002).

We also offer a second example, which shows that reflexivity is not only a 'contemplative' activity detaching what we are as researchers and what we identify as meaningful in the research process. Reflexivity can also be seen as a possible 'switch,' bringing subjectivity in to play an active role in the research. In the original research schedule, one of our work packages dealing with shared custody involved interviews with parents who shared custody of their child or children with their ex-partner. The pragmatic logic (and perhaps the creative one) would also call for swapping out personal interviews for remote ones because of lockdown conditions. Although we had the chance to become familiar with the specifics of distant research and were able to design the interviews to lower the risk of failure, we ultimately decided to postpone the interviews until it was legal and safe to conduct them in person. Since our job is doing research, and we all felt that we should be able to carry on with the work regardless of the struggles in our personal lives due to the pandemic, deciding to wait was doubly hard. Our project discussion helped us settle ourselves in the 'should do' versus 'postpone' dilemma while revealing our fears, hesitations, and desire to do the right thing for the research.

Tips for Educational Activities Supporting Adoption of Principle of Reflexivity

On the grounds of a one-semester class, we recommend letting students think about their positions and pre-concepts before entering the research terrain, especially before conducting interviews or focus groups. At the end of the research, the students may be asked to compare their up-to-date position with their previous one and describe the dynamics. When the course obligations require group research activities, it is fruitful to moderate the reflection to what particular members' positions are and how these may be used for the benefit of the research.

Another useful activity is to focus on the students' interview transcripts with special attention paid to the researcher's questions, where pre-concepts or efforts to push the participant may also appear.

Finally, the personal experience of the teacher may play a significant role. The leading questions to observe your position are: What role does the principle of reflexivity in qualitative research play in your teaching and research? What aspect of it would you emphasize most with respect to your students? Where have you personally succeeded or failed in terms of reflexivity?

TRANSPARENCY AND OPENNESS

Transparency and openness are commonly presented imperatives of qualitative research (e.g., Hiles and Cermák 2007; Closa 2021; Tuval-Mashiach 2017). Transparency requires open and explicit exposition of research specifics, demanding that researchers show how their research is executed and what lies behind the scenes (Tuval-Mashiach 2017; Closa 2021). The main argument for transparency and openness accents the trustworthiness of qualitative research. The open description of data and procedures but also background, key questions, and decision points should increase the credibility and validity of qualitative research and, even more importantly, enable others to replicate the methods and adopt them for future studies (Closa 2021; Tuval-Mashiach 2017; Hiles and Cermák 2007).

Transparency applies to the whole research process: all steps from paradigmatic and methodological background across data collection, analysis, and interpretation to reflexivity, evaluation, and dissemination (compare Hiles and Cermák 2007). Several guides, and even checklists, describe and explain how to communicate your research to ensure transparency (Marshall and Rossman 2014; Mays and Pope 1995; Talkad Sukumar and Metoyer 2019). Instead of repeating what these works cover, however, we discuss some ambiguous aspects of transparency.

A criterion of transparency balances creativity, flexibility, and adaptability on the one hand and demands of rigor and control on the other. In the section above, we argue for creativity in qualitative research, but the academic environment is rarely tolerant of flexible ad hoc research methods. Transparency of process thus presents a way to persuade readers that your research is trustworthy, valid, and relevant (Tuval-Mashiach 2017). The credibility is reached not only by good choice and application of methods but also by open communication of these procedures. Although the transparency imperative can be applied to the whole research process, there are several points at which we see it as crucial. First, in constructing the research design and dataset, it is necessary to explain your decision to do one thing and not another (this is also reasonable in the context of your research). In particular, non-implemented ways should be

described if there was a noticeable shift from the original plan (change of research question, focus, key components) or if the choice was unique (Tuval-Mashiach 2017).

Second, a transparent description of procedures used for data analysis is crucial but often neglected. Students often pay much more attention to data collection methods than their analysis. Show categories and codes or other ways concepts and themes are identified from the data.

Third, there can be an expectation to publish a complete dataset in textual form.³ This demand brings ethical dilemmas when there is an opportunity for the scientific community to control analysis on the one hand and the comfort and safety of respondents and communication partners on the other.

Finally, transparency is also contextual. Many different forums (e.g., journals, methodological journals, peer discussions, lessons, workshops, blogs, and the so-called ‘fuckup nights’) connected different audiences and their different focuses, interests, and expectations. We should be able to describe all our steps and decisions openly. However, not all are suitable for every occasion since the expectations and needs of audiences differ, and space (and time) is often limited.

BOX 13.4 APPLICATION OF TRANSPARENCY AND OPENNESS: CASE OF RESEARCH PROJECT ON COVID-19 AND CONCEPTUALIZATION OF HOME AS A PUBLIC POLICY INSTRUMENT

One part of the research project focused on teachers who were parents of small children and their experience of home-teaching and home-caring. We used two types of data: (1) interviews with teachers, and (2) discussions within teachers’ Facebook groups. There were several occasions where transparency and openness were applied differently depending on the research phase, the type of output, and its audience and aims.

First, we integrated transparency and openness in communication with research participants, i.e., schoolteachers. We used informed consent as a type of agreement with them before interviews, where (among other things) the ways of using data were specified. Moreover, we shared research results and outputs with participants before their publication. This ‘member-check’ can increase the validity of research, but we consider trust-building potential more important (see also the section on ‘Navigating trust and reality’).

Second, we described our research process in a standard academic output, in this case an article for a research journal (Mouralová and Hejzlarová 2022). There is a relatively short description of the research process in the text because of limited space, and we focused only on aspects relevant to understanding the research and credibility of findings, such as the character and context of data and methods of collecting, processing, and analyzing.

Third, we dealt with the research process more deeply in a methodological case study intended for students (Mouralová, Hrešanová, and Hejzlarová, 2023). We focused on using data from the digital area (Facebook in our case). We described not only the analyzed data but also various methodological crossroads and discussed options and decisions we made.

³ Compare for example to Berkeley Initiative for Transparency in the Social Sciences (<https://www.bitss.org/>) or DA-RT initiative (<https://www.dartstatement.org/>).

Fourth, we also prepared outputs focusing on the general public. We paid less attention to a detailed description of the research sample and methods in these texts. However, on the other hand, we presented more openly and more deeply our position and personal experience of work-family-self-care balance during the pandemic as we felt that some findings about well-being, mental health, and the keeping of boundaries were relevant to the context.

Tips for Educational Activities Supporting Adoption of Principle of Transparency and Openness

Reading with focus on methodology

Students are invited to read different research papers and discuss which information is included and which is not. They could identify either the common expectation or different styles or deficits and formulate rules for their own writing.

Presentation of teacher's own research experience

Describe openly and in detail your own research, present various decisions and particular steps, pay attention also to the bad decisions, failures, doubts, and problems.

Detailed description of students' own research project and research processes

First, students are asked to describe their own research process. After that, they read the descriptions of their colleagues' processes, try to identify various decision-making points (even the implicit ones), and inquire about reasons and motives.

For best results, we stress the need to find a sustainable stance towards the principle and as a teacher answer these questions in advance: What role do the principles of transparency and openness in qualitative research play in both your teaching and your research? What aspects of them would you emphasize most with respect to your students? Where have you personally succeeded or failed in, in terms of transparency and openness? We are convinced that the answers may lead to an effective teaching.

NAVIGATING TRUST AND REALITY

The practical lessons for policy making and policy work – stemming from analyses of public policies and policy processes – are at the heart of the expertise public policy delivers, making it of utmost importance to reflect on the public presentation of scholarly research. The debate on how to translate the research results in the world of practice is quite prominent in the recent scholarship of public policy (Flinders 2013; Veselý 2011; Weible and Cairney 2018). Such translation has, in general, two meanings. Translation of research results to the wider audience includes, first, careful reflection on how to address the complexity of the field in a simplified manner, with tangible tools and concepts to be followed by third parties. Second, translation is also a process of the policy researcher themselves when they either have a double role as a policy researcher and a policy practitioner, or when they translate their results to the media or participate in public debates on the field in which they have expertise as policy analysts. Beyond these specific characteristics of the double role of policy scholars, public policy research is closely tied to politics and political developments of the field, to which analyses

of our research are being delivered. In both these situations, translation entails researchers navigating between the reports from the field offered by the respondents and those with special knowledge of the issue, and the reality that is ambivalent and contradictory, thereby revealing more perspectives and additional, even conflicting, points of view.

As a science for democracy (Lasswell 1942), public policy has been always understood as an inquiry that should uncover inconsistencies in a policy field to strengthen the democratic process of decision-making. In many cases, this has strengthened the perspective on marginal voices within policy debates. For example, the Social Construction Framework (Schneider and Ingram 1993) has introduced target groups in the field of public policy research to demonstrate more explicitly that the groups toward whom those policies are oriented are constructed by policy makers and by the policy instruments that are proposed and argued for as legitimate: they are full of stereotypes and truth claims that impact who has a say in which policy debate. Even more importantly, these groups and the context of related policies also impact how researchers design their research questions. Against such situations, Schwartz-Shea and Yanow (2013) plead for an interpretive research design that is not limited to the collection of the data material but also involves the meta level of discussing which topics are researched, get funding, and are seen as a relevant field of study. For public policy, for example, the issue of emotions has been largely underrepresented (see Durnová 2019 for the debate) and has been limited to examining emotions as urges, as motivation to actions, or as negative aspects of political debates (see Yordy, Durnová, and Weible 2021 for discussion). The pandemic situation brought the debate on emotions to the forefront of political agendas of policy makers around the world, and so policy research has also experienced an increased demand to analyze the role of emotions in policies (see Weible et al 2020 for discussion).

All this enables the existence and the persistence of biases that impact how we design our research. We have a responsibility to the field in which we collect data because we are committed, in Laswell's words, to science for democracy. To do this, we need to develop trust in those we talk to while gathering the knowledge of the field and this trust needs to be mutual. Our respondents need to trust us to deliver their experience openly. This trust, at the same time, includes a subtle navigating between being close enough to the field to see what's really happening inside of it and being distant enough to provide a perspective that does not side with any of the parties involved. Such navigating gets even more complicated when the knowledge gathered in the field shows that one of the voices is not represented or is misinterpreted by most of the public debate. Also, when the results of our analysis show that one party of the controversy or the policy debate should be listened to more or should be taken more seriously. In such situations, once again, the emphasis on public policy research as a science for democracy makes public policy scholars responsible for ensuring that such misinterpretations and underrepresentation are put forward as part of the results of the analysis. The success of all this relies on the navigation between trust and reality.

BOX 13.5 APPLICATION OF NAVIGATING TRUST AND REALITY: CASE OF RESEARCH PROJECT ON HOME BIRTH CONTROVERSY IN CZECHIA

An excellent example of this navigation is a project on the public controversy on home birth in Czechia. Part of our team analyzed the arguments of all the actors to explain why the choice of midwife-assisted planned home birth is so controversial in the country (Hejzlarová and Durnová 2022). While the reasons for the controversy are manifold – and cannot be fully discussed in this chapter – one research step of the project is particularly interesting for illustrating how navigating between trust and reality might become complicated and why it needs careful preparation. One research step considered women’s motivations to choose home birth over hospital birth. Our media analysis identified a dominant presentation of this choice as a decision anchored in beliefs related to esoteric practices, which ultimately prioritizes women’s exceptional – even hallucinatory – experience of birth and places it even above the potential risks of newborn death. In the material we analyzed, medical professionals repeatedly stated that these women were unaware of the risks. In our fieldwork among these women and our interviews, we experienced a very different framing of the choice. Women reported being dissatisfied with their experiences birthing at the hospital, which is why they chose a home birth for their next child. Rather than discussing esoteric concepts, they talked in their interviews about their need to have control over their own bodies (Durnová and Hejzlarová 2022). As for the potential risks the authorities warned about, women prepared themselves very carefully for the birth, participating in screenings and considering a hospital if something went wrong. We decided to pick up on this different framing of the choice and embedded a supplementary research step on the project in which we surveyed women who had given birth in the past five years to give us a better overview of their motivations.

The results showed that women choose home birth very clearly because they did not want to give birth at Czech obstetric hospitals. A 90 percent majority criticized the conditions of care in Czech hospitals, where the birthing women were patronized rather than seen as self-determined human beings. We decided to issue a press release about this study and did some interviews with the media to discuss the practical aspects of the public controversy. Among other aspects, this framing pointed to an explicit perceptual default of the birth care policies in Czechia because these targeted home birth as an esoteric practice rather than a practice that resulted from dissatisfaction with the state of birth care in the country. Therefore, in one of the media interviews, we opted to emphasize this point by saying that if policy makers really wanted to decrease the number of home births, they would listen to these women and at least consider discussing the state of birth care. This framing was not only part of our results, but it also helped move the home birth debate beyond the pro-con argument towards ways to understand the choice better. However, after the interview, we received distinctly negative feedback from the home birth community. They saw our project as being about home birth, not birth care at a hospital, so they saw us as conspiring to ‘make women who want to give a birth at home go to the hospital.’ In addition, they believed we betrayed the community’s trust because we did not understand what the community wanted. At the same time, many parents (both mothers and fathers) contacted us, seeing in our research a vital message to the medical community because they had also been patronized by staff while birthing in a hospital. For these people, our research was influential because

it spoke to the larger background of the home birth debate.

This story was very important because it showed that: (1) policy research is not about siding with one of the parties. It is about explaining the context of the arguments and truth claims that this group uses in support of its cause, and (2) policy research should be able to transfer the results of the analysis to a broader context, such as translating the results concerning the motivation for home birth to the more extensive consideration of birth conditions. It also showed that feedback and discussion on translation of the results of our research within the team and careful thought about the socio-political framing of research results are substantial parts of qualitative research.

Tips for Educational Activities Supporting Adoption of Principle of Trust and Reality

It is useful to let students think of what a researcher would give back to the community subject of particular research – not in pragmatic terms but in terms of how this might affect the research design.

It is also good to stress that while giving back to the community is a crucial part of public policy research, it does not automatically mean that researchers must deliver what the participants or the community like, expect, or want to hear. Students should be assured that they should not expect everyone to be happy with the results.

Another helpful piece of advice is identifying the bias that occurs as the fieldwork develops. Students should be told that they should never underestimate the charisma and power of the field they work in. Peer discussions and mirroring these experiences against those where the respondents are not so charismatic help identify the potential shortcomings of the research.

An activity addressing a more general perspective of what navigating trust and reality means may involve students choosing a reading or research report from the class and converting it to a press release. Another valuable way to make students attentive to a public presentation of research results is to give them the assignment to convert the reading or a research report into an interview with the researchers.

For the last time, we highlight the need for the personal contribution of the teacher, which may be supported by answering these questions: What role does the principle of navigating trust and reality in qualitative research play in your teaching and research? What aspect of it would you emphasize most with respect to your students? Where have you personally succeeded or failed in navigating trust and reality?

CONCLUSION

Whether interviews, group discussions, or analyses of all sorts of documents, qualitative research is research that works with texts. As such, understanding qualitative methods is inseparable from understanding how these texts have been collected and how they have been organized prior to the analysis. These discussions are needed to organize specific coding processes and the subsequent analysis of all the material. We believe that the five principles – contextualization, creativity, reflexivity, transparency and openness, and navigating trust and reality – offer a useful tool to structure the complexity of the research design of qualitative methods, and that they also provide educative spaces to attune students to the logics of qual-

itative methods. Our personal research anecdotes highlight the importance of practical examples in teaching qualitative methods but can be substituted by teachers' experiences or other anecdotes from specific readings. Finally, with the evidence-based method being the main overarching principle of current public policy, we believe that these five principles are also essential for the practice of public policy. After all, being able to reflect on policy outcomes and policy instruments, being attentive to contexts and issues of trust, and being creative enough to manage all of this represents a fundamental feature of policy practice.

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14. Teaching comparative public policy methods

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INTRODUCTION

Not long ago, scholars debated whether comparative public policy (CPP) constituted a field of inquiry on its own. Writing in the 1970s about CPP, Feldman argues that while ‘comparison is a useful method’, CPP was not a field of inquiry by itself (Feldman 1978: 298). Anderson pointed out that CPP ‘is a field that does not exist yet’ (1975: 219). Within political science, comparative public policy has consolidated into a scholarly field over time, but competing definitions of what constitutes CPP remain. Is it the comparative method that defines the field; hence any cross-national, subnational, or temporal comparison counts as CPP? Most scholars in the field would agree that such research designs are at the centre of the CPP enterprise. There is no consensus about case study research (i.e., critical case study) or whether CPP is limited to specific theoretical and disciplinary approaches, such as political science or policy process theories. Some also argue that CPP is an empirical scientific approach for theory building and inference drawing and excludes prescriptive and normative studies or applied policy sciences even if they employ comparative methods.

The heterogeneity of what constitutes CPP is a challenge – though an exciting one – for teaching. Scholars teaching CPP methods must reflect on how they delimit the field for defining learning goals and designing a course outline. The three sections in this chapter provide a roadmap through the four basic questions scholars teaching CPP methods need to answer for themselves.

The first section reflects on the need for practitioners to ask themselves what they believe CPP to be. With the expansion of the field over the last decades, new questions, theories, and methodological challenges have emerged. However, scholars engaging in teaching comparative policy methods still must address the fundamental question of what constitutes the field and position themselves within the different currents and approaches.

Next, the second section addresses the two broad questions at the core of the debate since the field’s inception in the 1970s: What to compare? How to compare? The first question addresses the place of comparison in public policy and the conceptual challenges triggered by going beyond the single-country level. Indeed, the definition of the dependent variable is a significant challenge for enhancing CPP capacity towards theory building and generalization (e.g., Rose 1973a, 1973b, 1984; Leichter 1979; Simeon 1976; Feldman 1978; Peters 1977). The second question of how to compare tackles the comparative research design and case selection. Public policy research has made considerable progress in conceptualization and methodology since the 1970s. Single and comparative case studies have been strengthened for theory building (Eckstein 1975; Gerring 2007a, 2007b; Bennett 2010; Collier 2011; Ragin 2008; Rihoux, Rezsohazy, and Bol 2011; Heclo 1988). The availability of large-N comparative data, which was precarious three decades ago, has also significantly improved.

Nevertheless, research design and case selection remain at the centre of the methodological debate about theory building and inference drawing, and they are of crucial importance for

more applied research projects formulating propositions and recommendations. Students of public policy, whether they aim at theory building or lesson drawing for a client seeking policy advice, must acquire several crucial skills. They must know how to evaluate different research designs and the inferences they can make. They need the know-how to judge the adequacy and viability of the data, and they must learn to identify research gaps and limits by pinning down uncertainties and unanswered questions (e.g., Radin and Weimer 2018; Weimer and Vining 2017; Bardach and Patashnik 2019).

Such skills are commonly built over several courses. Drawing on our experience teaching CPP, we distinguish between three target audiences when discussing possible teaching strategies: undergraduate students, graduate students in a professionally oriented program, and research-focused graduate students. We also primarily speak to teaching within political science, as this is our field of research and training, though some ideas are undoubtedly transferable to other disciplines. For undergraduate students, we assume little prior knowledge about public policy and only a basic understanding of methods. For graduate students, we take for granted some basic knowledge about public policy and some research methods training. Among this group, we also discuss teaching strategies in function to different learning goals, namely designing comparative research or acquiring practical skills relevant for policy analysis in professional contexts, such as lesson drawing from other jurisdictions (Bardach and Patashnik 2019: 125–139). Indeed, comparative research design literacy is a crucial skill relevant for various career paths in a globalized and interdependent world where benchmarking, rankings, and other types of comparisons are prevalent in public life and the private sector. Therefore, the capacity to assess methodological choices and research designs, the reliability of data and the validity and generalizability of conclusions constitute critical transferable skills in many professional fields where social science knowledge is in demand. Consequently, teaching CPP methods is worthwhile at both undergraduate and graduate levels and for students with professional aspirations beyond academic research.

Finally, the third section reflects on the fourth and last question: What does it mean to teach CPP in a globalizing world? It emphasizes contemporary challenges in teaching CPP methods to a diverse student body in a context where data availability and the latest methodological discussion evolve rapidly. We invite scholars to think critically about the impact of current practices in CPP on the diversity of countries and policy issues regularly addressed in published research: How can we encourage students to contribute to a more inclusive field of CPP in the 21st century? This last section focuses on teaching CPP methods for students engaging in their own research and formulating the research design for their project. Still, it provides some ideas for undergraduate teaching and teaching client-oriented policy analysis.

STARTING OUT: UNDERSTANDING THE DIFFERENT SCHOLARLY ENTERPRISES OF CPP

The classic definition by Heidenheimer, Heclo, and Adams (1990) is a good starting point to initiate a discussion about CPP: comparative policy research aims at better understanding ‘how, why, and to what effect different governments pursue particular courses of action or inaction’ (Heidenheimer, Heclo, and Adams 1990: 3). Focusing on the interactions between politics and policy and the determinants of policy action across context and time should move policy studies away from descriptive single case studies (Heidenheimer 1985; Lodge 2007;

Leichter 1979; Rose 1972) and distinguish CPP from behavioural approaches and economics. The increased interest in CPP was partly a reaction towards the behavioural revolution, the shift to analyzing political phenomena through the lens of individual behaviour with the help of quantitative methods. It was also an answer to the (quasi) absence of the policy dimension in comparative politics research and part of an effort to build an applied and post-behavioural political science that would depart from economics (Anderson 1971; Ashford 1978, Leichter 1979). The new policy orientation in comparative politics aspired ‘...to extend the process of policy search, policy formulation, and evaluation across the jurisdictional frontiers of a single policy, and thus to enrich the problem-solving capabilities of any society.’ (Anderson 1971: 122).

The other driving force at the core of the field’s development was the assumption that politics matters in public policy-making. Policy scholars need to consider political variables to understand better the determinants of policy processes, outputs, and outcomes (Heidenheimer 1985; Rose 1973a, 1973b). The question, ‘Do parties matter?’ attracted particular attention (Heidenheimer 1985; Castles 1982). In short, CPP emphasizes ‘the causes, different forms, and social consequences of government action, or non-action, in a variety of historical contexts’ (Heidenheimer 1985: 445).

From the outset, the divide between two primary research goals was visible: providing comparative knowledge versus seeking generalization. Some scholars argued in favour of contextualizing and emphasizing the distinctiveness of each policy sector. These early comparative policy scholars addressed the specific context of policy-making and sought knowledge for the policy-making process rather than aiming at cumulative theory building (Cyr and deLeon 1975: 282). On the other side stood the scholars who made strong calls for tackling the ‘Why’s’ of policy choices more systematically. They pushed for theory building efforts that provided, at the very least, a tentative explanation for commonalities and differences across various policy processes and political systems. They blamed the lack of theory building for preventing cumulative results and generalization (Scharpf 1978, 2000; Leichter 1979).

Approaches based on decision-making theories to explain policy-making dominated the first decades of policy analysis (John 2012). In the 1990s, several policy process theories emerged that integrated competing ideas within more comprehensive frameworks, for example, the punctuated equilibrium theory, advocacy coalition framework, multiple streams model, or institutional analysis and development framework (see chapters by Shafran, Skogstad, Weible and Carter, and Zahariadis et al. in this volume). Globalization and regional economic integration processes and decentralization or federalization have transformed national and international political institutions. To account for the increased interdependence, policy scholars turned to concepts of internationalization, Europeanization, and multilevel governance in their research (deLeon and Resnick-Terry 1998). Moreover, the digital age and higher standards in government transparency and access to information have increased the availability and accessibility of policy-relevant information, data, and statistics.

In short, with the growth of the field of CPP, theoretical and methodological approaches have multiplied, and possibilities for comparisons have rapidly proliferated. However, as Radin and Weimer point out (2018: 58), ‘The lack of universal agreement about the goals and techniques in policy analysis as a broad field makes it difficult to figure out what adding “comparative” to the quest actually means.’ Teaching CPP methods, therefore, requires explaining what comparison adds to different scholarly endeavours.

Students must understand the different scholarly enterprises of CPP; comparative policy analysis has, since its inception, pursued two related and equally valuable scholarly enterprises: to provide practical knowledge and develop general theories (e.g., Rose 1995; Geva-May 2002). When navigating through CPP research, they need to be equipped to see that different interests and objectives drive publications. Some answer theoretical and conceptual questions, while others are interested in specific policy issues or fields to contribute to the policy-making process. Students in political science need to understand that comparative research about public policies is also conducted in various disciplines and that substantive knowledge of policies can often be found and used outside political science publications. Specialized journals in other political science subdisciplines publish policy-related and policy-relevant research, for example, in comparative politics, international relations, political economy, or public administration, but also in journals specializing in economics, health, agriculture, etc. In short, literacy in CPP methods includes identifying the aim of the scholarly contribution (Weimer and Vining 2017; Radin and Weimer 2018) and its disciplinary roots. Exposing students to different types of publications on a given policy topic and illustrating differences in aim and disciplinary anchoring allows them to achieve this learning goal. This can be done, for example, via the reading syllabus, individual or group projects, or even through guest speakers by inviting both practitioners and theory-oriented scholars alike.

ANSWERING THE TWO CLASSICAL QUESTIONS: WHAT AND HOW TO COMPARE

The choices of what and how to compare depend on the scholarly enterprise at hand (Gupta 2012). Our discussion focuses on CPP studies that contribute to theory building and development rather than studies intended to help decision-making (Bardach and Patashnik 2019; Radin and Weimer 2018; Weimer and Vining 2017). First, students must understand the different choices for what they want to compare – process, output, or outcomes – and how to delimit a policy or policy field. Second, they need to learn how to make informed choices about inference and generalizability. This chapter provides a roadmap of topics to address and reflect on. We leave detailed discussions of methods and research designs to more specialized publications that provide a solid basis for deepening methodological knowledge in CPP (e.g., Peters and Fontaine 2020; Engeli and Rothmayr Allison 2014).

What to Compare?

The various ways policies have been defined pose a challenge to accumulating knowledge and building and testing theories in policy studies. Public policies are complex entities made up of several constituent parts. They exist as combinations of goals and means articulated and implemented by various authoritative policy actors working within an environment of multiple interacting actors and organizations operating over time and space (Howlett and Cashore 2014: 20; Knill 2005). Thus, researchers must make conscious conceptual choices when designing a comparative policy study, as studying all phases of the policy cycle from agenda setting to policy evaluation – and this across time and space – constitutes a challenge for collecting and analyzing relevant data. Specialized scholarly communities have therefore developed around all stages of the policy process, from agenda setting to policy evaluation.

The field has historically faced the challenge of multiple foci of study between outputs, outcomes, and processes. Theoretical debates and conceptual vagueness between policy outputs and outcomes have animated discussions about the determinants, trajectories, or impacts of various policies. During the 1980s, debates about policy implementation focused on policy outputs. The renewed interest in implementation and the role of street-level bureaucrats keeps this focus prominent (e.g., Engeli and Mazur 2018; Howlett 2019; Moseley and Thomann 2021). Moreover, the development of policy process theories since the 1990s increased the interest in investigating policy processes, i.e., everything concerning problem definition, agenda-setting, policy formulation, decision-making, and implementation processes. Over time, the increased interest in policy dynamics and policy change has become the dominant approach (Howlett and Cashore 2007, 2014; Rose 1976; Hogwood and Peters 1983; Bleiklie, Goggin, and Rothmayr 2004). Comparing policy processes across countries or sectors brings great challenges for collecting and analyzing relevant data, explaining why comparative work was slower to shift its attention to policy processes. For instance, more recently, a growing number of studies of comparative policy agendas have invested in large-scale coding enterprises to be able to trace levels of attention over time and comparatively analyze policy dynamics in agenda setting, for example, the up and down or ebb and flow of attention to particular policy issues (for instance, the comparative policy agenda Approach. See Baumgartner 2017; Baumgartner and Jones 2002).

In the same vein, policy evaluation has also traditionally focused on outcomes but not from a comparative perspective. The comparison of policy outcomes has considerably profited from the increased data availability during the last two decades. In various policy fields, there are extensive discussions about the definition of indicators for measuring and comparing outcomes, for example, in social policies, economic policies, or education. International organizations, such as the OECD, contribute to such debates through various benchmarking projects comparing the performance of countries in different policy sectors. The greater availability of data and accessibility of data resources has given rise to comparative databases on public policy that systematically investigate outcomes. For instance, this is the case with the WORLD database on social policy that aims at ‘... constructing detailed, globally comparative policy indicators in a wide range of social policy areas.’ (Raub et al. 2021: 3). This type of research allows for systematic comparative analysis of policies. Still, it must be combined with other data sources to account for policy implementation, which remains a black box in this type of large-N analysis (Raub et al. 2021: 13).

A further challenge for students and researchers alike is the variation in research across broad categories of policy domains. The debate about the impact of the country-style versus the sector-style in public policy-making has pointed out the difficulty in generalizing conclusions about state-level capacity based on the analysis of a specific sector (e.g., Freeman 1985; Atkinson and Coleman 1989; Rose 1984; Weaver and Rockman 1993). As discussed in the next section, when designing CPP research, depending on the research interest, variation between policy domains or variation over time within one country might be as important as differences across countries or subnational units. For example, comparative historical analysis compares cases across time, and various publications focusing on temporal changes have influenced comparative policy studies (e.g., Hall 1993; Pierson 2000). Some of these studies mobilize process tracing as a specific method for case analysis and case comparison across time (e.g., Bennett 2010; Collier 2011; Blatter and Haverland 2012; Jaramillo 2020. Also see Beach in this volume). Other examples are comparisons across subnational units (e.g.,

Lucas and Smith 2019) and at the international level. Both have gained prominence within the context of multilevel governance and global public policy research (e.g., Dobbin, Simmons and Garrett 2007; Coleman 2012) over the last decades. In short, comparison levels can be national, international, sectoral, temporal, or a combination of the four.

Students need to be familiarized with these four potential dimensions of comparison in addition to the possible foci mentioned above (process, output, outcome, or various stages of the policy process). At the graduate level, this requires introducing basic concepts and theoretical frameworks of policy analysis – knowledge that students might have acquired in previous classes or need to learn at the beginning of a CPP methods class – before proceeding to address the specificities of research designs and methods. At the undergraduate level, teaching what to compare can be integrated into general public policy courses or classes on specific policy sectors, such as environmental policy, health policy, or social policy.

There are many ways to start a conversation about comparison, and one we have found helpful is to start with a newspaper article on a current issue that makes claims about policy alternatives that work well in another jurisdiction. Such an article can be the starting point for formulating questions about what is being done differently elsewhere and to what effect. Professors can redirect the discussion to a more systematic analysis of conceptualizing what we compare and teach students to identify different foci of comparison in scientific journal articles. This approach equally benefits graduate students in an applied program. They are likely to be confronted with the question of ‘what works?’ throughout their training and later careers.

How to Compare?

The call for CPP research in the 1970s targeted, among others, the fact that policy studies were dominated by case studies that were not necessarily oriented towards explanation and theory building and hence did little for producing cumulative results. While methodological sophistication was at the core of Lasswell’s plea for policy sciences (1951 and 1970), the field of public policy has taken some time to realize such scientific ambitions. As in political science more generally, the standards of methodological sophistication have increased, and the toolbox has become broader and more diversified in qualitative and quantitative research. Increasing attempts are made to bridge the methodological divide.

First, the methodological debate around case studies and their use for theory building and testing has greatly evolved since the launching of the CPP field in the 1970s. The debate about the generalization capacity of case study research has made significant advances. More recently, process tracing has gained prominence as a within-case method in public policy analysis. Case studies and process-tracing analyses are commonly described as ‘meaning centered’ because they mostly rely on a within-case perspective and focus on the thick understanding of a few cases. They are no longer considered a ‘by default’ comparison when resources for a large-N study are lacking. Process tracing and other small-N methods in and of themselves offer meaningful tools to enhance theory building and, to a certain extent, theory testing in policy studies (Blatter and Haverland 2012; Brady and Collier 2004; George and Bennett 2005; Gerring 2007b; Goertz and Mahoney 2012; Rohlfing 2012). Comparative case studies provide in-depth knowledge of each case that can be used through process tracing to confront alternative explanations for robust empirical testing simultaneously. Process tracing starts from competing hypotheses in the literature and systematically examines the accuracy of rival

explanations at each stage of the process being analyzed based on triangulated sources of evidence (Gerring 2007b; Bennett 2010; Collier 2011; Kay and Baker 2015).

With the increased availability and accessibility of policy-relevant quantitative data, large-N studies have also become more prominent in comparative policy analysis in political science (Rose and Mackenzie 1991). Quantitative comparison aims at explaining and predicting patterns of policy-making processes and policy outcomes across cases. Based on a large sample of cases, quantitative comparison attempts to broaden the generalizability of research findings. While quantitative studies suffer less from case selection bias than small-N comparisons, they encounter methodological challenges. Among other challenges, large-N comparisons are particularly confronted with a high level of heterogeneity within the sample that may result in concept stretching. Due to limited research resources, large-N comparisons are also frequently constrained to rely on aggregate data provided by external sources (such as national-level statistics), which may threaten data comparability.

Since the end of the 1990s, efforts to bridge the quantitative-qualitative divide in public policy and political science have drawn greater attention (Engeli and Rothmayr 2014; Carlson 2011). On the one hand, methodological debates have moved on to intermediate-N comparisons with the development of configurational comparative methods (Ragin 2008; Rihoux, Rezsóhazy, and Bol 2011; Fischer and Maggetti 2017; Haynes 2014; Hudson and Kühner 2013). Due to the limited diversity of cases (that is, limited availability of public policies in a given domain) or due to limited research resources (that is, research funding or language barriers), comparative policy analysis is frequently confronted by the principal challenge associated with intermediate-N comparison, namely: How can we benefit from the complexity of each case while enhancing generalizability across cases? Adequately conceived for intermediate-sized comparison, configurational methods strengthen the explanatory potential of qualitative analysis by systematizing cross-case comparison without limiting the richness of within-case analysis. Based on algorithms derived from Boolean algebra, it simplifies the interaction of explanatory factors to identify configurations of causality valid across cases. Thus, it allows for more parsimonious qualitative explanations with an enhanced capacity for middle-range generalization.

Furthermore, calls for the benefits of combining methods by including multiple pathways to knowledge and assessment for better tackling the complexity of public policy have become prominent (Coppedge 1999). One may simultaneously combine different methods and techniques across the stages of the research and triangulate data to ensure validation of the results. Alternatively, one may first conduct a quantitative phase of the study to get a systematic overview of the policy under study and then complement this with a qualitative stage that provides deeper knowledge of some aspect(s). Mixed method designs present several advantages, such as looking at a broader set of aspects of the research question and corroborating evidence; at the same time, they are time-consuming and require a solid grounding in both quantitative and qualitative methods.

Finally, the question of case selection is an important issue related to ‘how to compare’ that is crucial for the power of inference and generalizability (Geddes 1990; Kühner 2007; Seawright and Gerring 2008; Tarrow 2010). Small- and intermediate-N comparative policy research designs, which are widely applied in comparative policy research (Dunlop and Radaelli 2022: 52–53), often face challenges with case selection. They deal with a limited number of cases – for instance, because of limited case availability in reality or limited research resources – which does not allow for any randomization of the samples. Such studies

are often subject to the “Too few cases/Too many variables” dilemma (Goggin 1986) which has received closer attention since King, Keohane and Verba’s 1994 so-called ‘frequentist’ appeal for increasing the number of cases in qualitative research (Mahoney 2000; Collier 1995). The two strategies of case selection that are widely used in comparative policy studies, borrowed from comparative politics, are most similar systems or most different ones. However, they contain considerable limitations due to the over-determination of the dependent variable and the limited number of cases available. As the number of available ‘real’ cases is limited, it is advantageous to combine two or more comparative lines of inquiry to strengthen the generalization capacity of their explanation: cross-country comparison, comparison across policy domains, and comparison across time. Such compound research designs, recently proposed by Levi-Faur (2004, 2006), aim at maximizing the explanatory capacity of qualitative comparative analysis.

To teach how to compare, we suggest confronting students of all levels with different types of comparisons to expose them to the methodological plurality within CPP and to allow them to discuss the advantages and limitations of different research designs. At the undergraduate level, we suggest explicitly addressing research designs in class discussions regardless of whether students have previously acquired methodological knowledge. The extent to which questions concerning research design are centre stage in discussions will depend on whether students have had some basic methods training or not and what other classes they have taken, for example, in comparative politics. The capacity to critically assess research results constitutes a skill that is transferable to various professional contexts and is acquired across multiple classes.

At the graduate level, in our experience, students in the research stream are more strongly interested in epistemological and ontological debates because they must justify and defend their methodological choices in their master’s or doctoral thesis. They are also more interested in discussing data collection methods and research ethics. They are working on the details of their comparative research designs and will likely have to apply for research ethics approval from their university. For students in more professionally oriented policy classes, questions of the transferability or application of research findings to specific contexts tend to emerge. This includes discussing how to handle uncertainty about what we know and the transferability of findings to other contexts. For applied policy analysis classes, there will also be more grey literature to be considered, produced by various actors with different interests and ideologies (see St.Denny and Cairney in this volume). Discussing how to assess the credibility of such studies, given that they have not been peer-reviewed and published in scientific journals, will be necessary for professionally oriented classes.

TEACHING COMPARATIVE PUBLIC POLICY IN THE 21st CENTURY

In this last section, we invite teachers to honestly talk with students about the real-life variables that influence comparative research designs in public policy. Various factors besides methodological considerations influence our research design choices. What and how we compare is influenced by data availability, available resources, career considerations, the publishing market, and sometimes our unconscious biases in favour of certain topics and regions.

As we have discussed in greater detail elsewhere (Engeli, Rothmayr Allison, and Montpetit 2018), scholars of CPP should critically evaluate the spectrum of countries covered by empir-

ical research. Some journals specializing exclusively in comparative policy analysis, as is the case for the *Journal of Comparative Policy Analysis*, might fare better than other journals in covering a wide variety of countries around the globe (Geva-May, Hoffman, and Muhleisen 2018). Our analysis of three top-ranked public policy journals revealed that CPP might not be as comparative as it aspires to be. All three journals included in our research, *The Journal of European Public Policy*, *Governance*, and *Policy Studies Journal*, increased the number of articles with a comparative design between 1997 and 2014. Other research points in the same direction, with comparative designs becoming more prominent over time (Radin and Weimer 2018: 57; Peters and Fontaine 2020; Geva-May, Hoffman, and Muhleisen 2020: 369–371). However, the number of intensively studied countries remains small and includes the usual suspects. In our study, most of the countries included in small- and medium-N comparisons are located in Europe and North America. Geva-May, Hoffman, and Muhleisen (2020: 378), based on an analysis of the EBSCO database, also conclude that Europe and North America attract the most interest. Journals differ in the specific set of countries that appear most frequently in their articles according to their affiliation and focus. Still, the picture remains constant; there is an over-representation of Western post-industrialized countries. This is not of great surprise for various reasons we know well from our research experience: pragmatic and logistical reasons substantially shape research designs (e.g., Rose 1972; Rose and Mackenzie 1991; Heidenheimer 1985; Hassenteufel 2005; Gerring 2008). As has also been shown for comparative politics (Page 1990), our sample also found that authors choose to work significantly more on the countries in which their academic institution is located, or at least include that country in the comparison (small- and medium-N; see Engeli, Rothmayr Allison, and Montpetit 2018: 120). Like many other researchers, the authors of this chapter repeatedly work on the same comparative cases and continue to include countries in which they have studied or worked in their research designs.

Various developments facilitate comparative research, such as the digitization of a vast corpus of policy-relevant information, the possibility of avoiding expensive travel and conducting interviews and surveys online, or the increased spectrum of available language skills in line with the internationalization of the student body. Nevertheless, the logistic and methodological challenges increase as soon as research requires fieldwork or familiarity with foreign languages. There are challenges in terms of the accessibility and existence of documentation and archives, the reliability of data, and the availability of officials accepting to participate in research for various countries, which can be particularly challenging in the case of authoritarian regimes, political crises, or democratic transitions.

Career considerations also influence case selection. Including one's own country as a case can have advantages for funding and broader public recognition and media attention emphasizing the value and impact of the research. Also, small- and medium-N comparisons require informed choices of cases (Gerring 2008) and relying on existing publications provides a useful strategy. As we have argued before (Engeli, Rothmayr Allison, and Montpetit 2018), being studied more frequently increases the chances to be studied even more. Publishing markets might also play a role, as publishers favor research that covers countries with a greater potential academic market. What conclusions can we draw for teaching comparative policy analysis from the fact that case selection is influenced not only by practical considerations but also by market and career opportunities?

First, we should engage our students in discussing the consequences of focusing mainly on some advanced industrialized countries for CPP research. Testing theories and explanations

comparatively in different contexts improves theory building and generalization because cases will bring nuances and contradictions to some aspects and contribute to corroborating others. For example, we might lack empirical research to know how well policy theories in political science travel to developing countries and authoritarian regimes. As we have seen already with adapting policy process theories developed in the U.S. context to other advanced industrialized democracies, specific institutional contexts might challenge the usefulness of certain hypotheses and theoretical assumptions. The pool of countries regularly considered should be broader to know how well our theories travel. Equally, for effective policy advice, access to a broad diversity of country and policy contexts is crucial for evaluating the potential and possibilities of policy transfer (Rose 1995).

Secondly, with today's diverse student population in our classroom, we can build upon their knowledge of diverse policy contexts and language skills. For engaging students to pursue careers and interests in CPP, working with their knowledge and interests for less studied policy issues and countries is a strategy that can pay off by contributing to building intercultural skills relevant to the labor market. All while acknowledging that the 'Why?' question should be driving case selection, encouraging students to include less studied cases can also contribute to rendering our profession more inclusive.

There are different options to encourage work on less studied countries and policies. In this chapter, we explore three possible avenues: equipping students for tackling the unfamiliar, proposing compound research designs, and exploring the option of large-N and big-data comparisons (for greater detail, see Engeli, Rothmayr Allison, and Montpetit 2018: 120).

Equip Students for Tackling Unfamiliar Cases

We can explore with our students the possibility of comparing less-studied countries with well-documented cases (Wong 2014). Accordingly, it is necessary to talk about the challenges and potential pitfalls of such a strategy. The theoretical and methodological challenges have been discussed in great detail: there is the familiar issue of concept stretching (Sartori 1970; Collier and Mahon 1993) and the risk of imposing Western perspectives on non-Western countries; and different cultural contexts also pose challenges to instruments of data collection, not to mention important methodological and ethical challenges of doing field research in unfamiliar cultural contexts (Wong 2014), but also sometimes in more familiar but polarized settings (Ntanyoma 2021). In addition to the preoccupation with the availability and reliability of governmental data, we need to remind students about the democratic function of public policy (Lasswell 1970; Geva-May 2002), and some issues and fields of inquiry might not be attainable in non-democratic societies. Hence, we need to help students navigate two pitfalls (Wong 2014): assuming that cases are so different that they are not comparable; and not problematizing unfamiliarity and naively transplanting concepts, assumptions, and methods (Marmor 2017: 314). In this context, it might be useful to point out how larger collaboration projects might be avenues for combining familiar with unfamiliar cases (e.g., Engeli and Mazur 2022; Raub et al. 2021).

Propose Compound Research Designs

A second option, which comes with its own challenges, is to discuss the possibility of adopting compound or embedded research designs that avoid some of the difficulties that arise from

working on less familiar and documented cases. Various methods developed over the last few decades, such as process-tracing, configurational comparative methods, mixed method and nested designs (Tarrow 2010; Lieberman 2005) – designs that multiply cases through within-case studies – (Levi-Faur 2004, 2006) address the challenge to combine in-depth case analysis with generalizability in CPP. The compound research design strategy preserves in-depth analysis and increases capacity for generalization by selecting cases on at least two of the four levels of comparison: national, sectoral, international, and temporal (Levi-Faur 2004, 2006). Hypotheses are repeatedly tested across levels. Sectoral comparisons are promising for strengthening theory testing, but they come with their own challenges. As we have argued in more detail elsewhere (Engeli, Rothmayr Allison, and Montpetit 2018), as is the case for country selection, policy sectors are chosen for their salience and potential to contribute to ongoing debates. There is a strong path dependency in continuing to work on similar issues during one's career. For scholars, detailed knowledge of policies and policy development is an important advantage for theory building and testing. It also allows them to contribute to policy debates and provide expertise to policy-makers; another career aspect valorized in academic environments. Reputation building, research financing, and publication opportunities also structure the choice of policy fields to investigate. A final challenge is that sectors are not always as independent from each other as we might assume, as the literature on transfer, diffusion, and convergence has amply shown (Braun and Gilardi 2006; Knill 2005). Venturing into unfamiliar sectors comes with specific challenges that students must be aware of when embarking on the promising avenue of compound research designs. One possible pedagogical strategy for applying compound research designs in class could be pairing up students in small groups and assigning them roles of country and policy field experts to conduct case studies that build on their existing knowledge and language skills. Students will work with case study templates and will be able to engage with systematic comparison across familiar and unfamiliar cases to draw theoretical conclusions or formulate practical implications, depending on the focus of the class.

Explore Scaling Up with Big Data

With the greater availability of data across a large number of countries, large-N analysis is more readily available to students, allowing them to cover unfamiliar cases or to focus on subgroups of countries for which data was missing in the past (Venturini et al. 2017). As applies to all data sources, considering the purpose for which the data was created (see argument by Breunig and Ahlquist 2014: 127) is also essential when using big data (Jerven 2013; Lippert 2016). Some authors predict a profound transformation of policy studies to become 'data-intensive' (Blume, Scott, and Pirog 2014: 38) because data mining, the use of administrative data, web scraping, and crowdsourcing can address issues of data quality and comparability (see Danaher et al. 2017). Publications using big data are starting to be published in various policy fields, such as transport, health, environment, local government, etc. (Jasanoff 2017). Optimism regarding the greater availability of data needs careful analysis of the purposes for which the data have been created and the quality of the data. Inequalities in technological and digital access and knowledge might negatively impact data quality and availability. Such inequalities might result from socio-economic disparities across and within countries but can also result from governmental control of the internet and accessible data. As is the case for any field research, research ethics are important, including but not limited

to data protection and privacy issues. Also, similar to the issues scholars encounter with the standardization of public data, decisions taken by coders, administrations, and companies in constructing and using algorithms limit the researchers' control over the research design. Understanding the socio-technological environment surrounding big data sources is crucial for scaling up research strategies.

CONCLUSION

The chapter suggests a roadmap for teaching CPP methods knowledge effectively in three steps. As a first step, we suggested that students learn about the different scholarly enterprises of CPP: providing knowledge *of* or *in* the policy-making process (Weimer and Vining 2017), their roots, and how the loose scholarly community formed over time. Our chapter focused more on the first enterprise, i.e., theory building and testing. The second step supports students in learning the answers to two classical questions: what to compare and how to compare? We suggested that effective methodological teaching should be based on students' understanding of the various foci of comparison (process, output, outcomes) and potential dimensions of comparison. To this end, we propose exposing students to a plurality of possible research designs. One option is to analyze and help students understand research designs in published research by starting with case studies, moving towards small- and medium-N comparisons to compound research designs and large-N studies. The third section proposed strategies to broaden the spectrum of cases included in our research by going beyond familiar cases, applying compound research designs, or scaling up with big data to cover a broad spectrum of countries and policy issues in our CPP classes. Independent of the specific pedagogical tools, we suggest including less well-studied countries and policy fields along more familiar grounds in syllabi on the undergraduate and graduate levels.

To conclude, teaching CPP methods contributes to forming researchers that advance theoretical and methodological knowledge. Simultaneously, teaching CPP methods prepares undergraduate and graduate students for different professional fields. They acquire the essential skills to critically assess and evaluate comparative policy studies as they work and live in a globalized and interdependent world where comparisons are ubiquitous and often serve specific political and economic interests in public and international affairs. Therefore, careful consideration of how to teach CPP methods is of critical importance for educating the next generation of scholar-practitioners.

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15. Teaching qualitative comparative analysis

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INTRODUCTION

Among the many innovations in qualitative methods over the last decades, Qualitative Comparative Analysis (or QCA; Ragin, 1987, 2000, 2008) stands out as a major new technique in the methodological toolbox of the social sciences. Evolving from a small niche into what some scholars have deemed to be the basic foundation of the qualitative research culture (Goertz and Mahoney, 2012; for critical views: Elman, 2013; Koivu and Damman, 2015), QCA is today widely used in a variety of disciplines with sociology, business and management studies, political science, and public administration being most prominent (Marx, Rihoux, and Ragin, 2014; Rihoux et al., 2013; Thomann and Ege, 2020; Wagemann, Buche, and Siewert, 2016). Research on public policy has from the start been one of the main fields of application for QCA (Engeli, Rihoux, and Rothmayr Allison, 2014; Rihoux and Grimm, 2006; Rihoux, Rezsöhazi, and Bol, 2009), with QCA studies being found in various policy areas like, *inter alia*, welfare and social policy (Emmenegger, Kvist, and Skaaning, 2013; Lee, 2013), education (Bingham, Dean, and Castillo, 2019), or public health (Hanckel et al., 2021).

There are several textbooks, chapters, and articles available that offer excellent introductions to QCA and respective software tools that put researchers into the position to perform state-of-the-art analyses (Duşa, 2019a; Mello, 2021; Oana, Schneider, and Thomann, 2021; Ragin, 2008; Schneider and Wagemann, 2012; Thiem, 2017). Different from these works, this chapter concentrates on the content that should be taught in courses introducing QCA to a wider community of public policy scholars and practitioners. In other words, it does not purport to provide a comprehensive introduction to QCA. Instead, it highlights essential features of the approach, points out important controversies regarding the technicalities when implementing the method, and refers to further readings in order to put scholars into the position to dive into the fast-growing and sometimes confusing literature on QCA. Against this backdrop, the chapter can be read as a selected checklist of minimum requirements which can assist instructors for whom QCA is a relatively *terra incognita* to design their QCA classes. Additionally, it provides a set of basic guidelines on the do's and don'ts for application-oriented researchers when performing analyses using QCA.

The chapter is structured as follows: The next section introduces the core features and added benefits of QCA as an approach, which are often framed in terms of the triad of set theory, diversity orientation, and detailed case knowledge. While knowing what a method can do is crucial, it is equally important to recognize what a method cannot do, which is why the next section also discusses limitations which currently still apply to QCA. This is followed by a section which presents some of the most important pitfalls of the analytic protocol of QCA, also outlining strategies on how to best deal with them. The chapter ends with a section on selected lessons and recommendations which might be helpful when designing a QCA course.

TEACHING THE FUNDAMENTALS OF QCA

One challenge in teaching QCA is the fact that students, researchers, and practitioners often have stark differences in knowledge levels. Neither logic nor set theory are part of the standard teaching curricula of political methodology. And since QCA has only recently entered the stage, only a few cohorts of students have a basic understanding of the fundamentals of set theory. Of course, the many excellent training opportunities outside of normal university classrooms provide some relief here, but it cannot be compared to ‘introduction to statistics 101’ which usually every student of political science and public policy has to take.

There are three key aspects and central logics of QCA that every student needs to understand: The first pertains to its set-theoretic perspective. Associations between explanans and explanandum in QCA are modelled via set relations which, in turn, can be interpreted in terms of necessity (superset relation) and sufficiency (subset relation) (see, among others, Baumgartner, 2021; Oana, Schneider, and Thomann, 2021, pp. 3–24; Ragin, 2008, pp. 13–43; Schneider and Wagemann, 2012, pp. 56–75). A condition is necessary, if whenever outcome Y is present (absent), so is condition X.¹ A sufficient condition, on the other hand, signals that whenever condition X is present (absent), outcome Y is as well.

To teach the logic of set theory, QCA instructors should make use of different forms of visualization in order to introduce the notion of set relations (Mahoney and Vanderpoel, 2015; Robinson, 2019). Venn and Euler diagrams, or 2x2 tables, are most appropriate to capture relations between crisp sets, i.e., dichotomous sets where a social phenomenon can either be fully in or fully out. XY-plots are better to showcase the relationships among fuzzy sets, i.e., sets where *in addition to* the qualitative difference between in and out, there are fine-grained partial (non-)memberships in-between. Beyond the fact that some forms of presentation are better suited for different types of sets, it also has the advantage that scholars unfamiliar with set-theoretic thinking can find their own way to analytically grasp the idea of necessity and sufficiency, as some people might find it easier to think in Venn diagrams, others in XY-plots, whereas again others might understand set relations best via 2x2 tables.

A second feature which everybody who is new to QCA needs to grasp is its diversity-orientation – a term which describes the three concepts: configurationality, equifinality, and asymmetry (Berg-Schlosser et al., 2009; Goertz and Mahoney, 2012, pp. 41–74; Ragin, 2000; Schneider and Wagemann, 2012, pp. 76–90).² In QCA, cases are understood as configurations of their respective conditions whose conjoint presence and/or absence make an outcome possible. The main idea here is that there is usually not a single factor, but multiple ones responsible for the

¹ The term ‘outcome’ in QCA-speak refers to the explanandum or ‘dependent variable’. This can sometimes be confusing in QCA studies in public policy because here the term ‘outcome’ has a different meaning. It might therefore make sense to advise students and practitioners to clarify this issue upfront in their studies to avoid confusion with the notion of outputs and outcomes in the policy process.

² Here, the frequently used term ‘causal complexity’ (for instance, Ragin, 2008, p. 145; Rihoux, Rezsöhazy, and Bol, 2009, p. 12; Schneider and Wagemann, 2012, p. 76; Thomann, 2020, p. 256) is deliberately avoided for two reasons: On the one hand, diversity orientation better describes the genuine approach of QCA, whereas arguably a great many methods, from dense descriptions to elaborate statistical procedures and experimental designs for causal identification, also capture very complex causal relationships. On the other hand, it seems to equate set relations with causality, which, however, does not apply *per se* (see ‘Teaching the limitations of QCA and what to do about them’).

occurrence of an outcome – e.g., why certain pieces of legislation are passed or when a specific topic moves onto the political agenda.

Equifinality opens the view to multiple, yet equally relevant explanations for one and the same outcome. For example, policy brokers and issue entrepreneurs might use different sets of strategies to push a certain policy, so that success is triggered through various mixes of strategies. Similarly, failed policy interventions might be the result of various combinations of political settings and actor constellations, or very different mixes of policy instruments might contribute to reach a certain policy objective.

Asymmetry, finally, plays a role in several respects, e.g., in the separate analysis of outcome and non-outcome, the asymmetric calibration of sets, or the fact that in different configurations a condition may be conducive to an outcome in its presence, and in a different context in its absence. Again, this often makes perfect sense in the context of public policy. For instance, analyzing why certain policies succeed whereas others fail, or why some laws survive for a long time while others are abolished are just two examples highlighting that the answer to the analysis of failure/abolishment is not simply the mirror image to the analysis of success/survival but it might rather depend on very different constellations of (f)actors.

Third and finally, it is important for students, faculty, and practitioners to understand how they can best make use of the fact that QCA retains a strong connection to its underlying cases throughout all stages of the analysis (Ragin, 2004; Rihoux and Lobe, 2009). For instance, case orientation can play an important role in the formation of concepts and the calibration of sets. In addition, it can and should be utilized when interpreting the coverage and consistency of set relations, or when thinking about which rows of a truth table to include if there are inconsistent patterns. Moreover, a QCA should aim to explain the (non)occurrence of an outcome for as many individual cases as possible, which is why low coverage values should be avoided. Finally, QCA always allows for the identification of three types of cases for follow-up within-case studies (Beach, Pedersen, and Siewert, 2019; Beach and Rohlfing, 2018; Rohlfing and Schneider, 2018; Schneider and Rohlfing, 2016, 2019): Typical cases can shed light on the (causal) properties of a condition and should be further analyzed to identify the underlying mechanisms between a configuration of conditions and the outcome of interest. Deviant cases for consistency and coverage, on the other hand, represent interesting cases that need to be further explained through follow-up case studies which can offer insights on scope conditions and/or intervening factors which then can be used to modify existing theories.

One way of teaching the fundamentals of QCA is to locate them within the wider methodological discussions in political science and public policy. Here, the diversity of backgrounds can be a strength: Students, faculty, and practitioners taking classes in QCA frequently come from quantitative and qualitative research traditions and can draw on their own methodological backgrounds in order to identify the unique added benefits of QCA. Classroom experience also shows that teaching these key QCA logics is best done through a combination of introductory methodological texts and concrete examples of QCA applications. For instance, different application examples can be specifically selected that i) work with different visualizations of set theory, ii) have diversity orientation present to varying degrees, or iii) draw on the underlying cases at different points in the research design. In this way, students can also compare the best-practice advice from methodological texts against the practices on how they are actually applied.

TEACHING THE LIMITATIONS OF QCA AND WHAT TO DO ABOUT THEM

While it is important to know what QCA can do and which purposes it serves, it is equally important to know what QCA cannot do or for which types of analysis it is less well suited. In other words, we need to teach the strengths of QCA but also its limitations, disadvantages, and prevailing gaps because only then can the method be applied in a rigorous and informed way, which down the road also helps to avoid flawed inferences or far-fetched conclusions (for a critical perspective, see Tanner, 2014).

One common misperception is the idea that QCA offers a miraculous key to uncovering causality. At first sight, this misunderstanding is quite understandable because the QCA literature is teeming with causal language like ‘causal complexity’, ‘causal recipes’, or ‘causal pathways’, whereas terms like necessity and sufficiency also convey a causal meaning to many scholars which they do not have *per se*. However, QCA cannot live up to this promise since there is *per se* nothing causal about set relations.

What QCA does is signal associations of the conjoint presence (or absence) of an outcome and its *potential* causes (e.g., Baumgartner, 2015, 2021; Rohlfing and Schneider, 2018; Rutten, 2021). To be clear: There is nothing wrong with aiming for the identification of mere associations, especially since it still is the bread-and-butter-business for the many public policy scholars who deal with observational data. QCA instructors should therefore be cautious when using causal language in their classes and make their students aware of the fact that any causal claims need to be further tested – e.g., through case studies and process tracing (see Chapter 16 in this volume).

Given the recent ‘mechanistic turn’ in public policy analysis (e.g., Capano and Howlett, 2021; Capano, Howlett, and Ramesh, 2019; van der Heijden et al., 2019), it might also seem a drawback that QCA itself does not enable researchers to trace causal mechanisms. Irrespective of the understanding of what a mechanism is (see Chapter 16 in this volume), most scholars would agree that configurations resulting from QCA black-boxes any type of causal mechanism. Therefore, if the main goal is the identification of causal mechanisms and processes, additional work is required since QCA needs to be combined with case-study techniques like process tracing (Beach and Rohlfing, 2018; Rohlfing and Schneider, 2018).

The two methods do then build on the known division of labor of multi-method designs: the QCA detects regular associations at the cross-case level and identifies potential relevant conditions – e.g., factors explaining why certain policies are enacted while others are not, whereas further case studies can then be selected for further within-case analysis to probe whether the identified conditions indeed exhibit causal power and to trace mechanisms which connect the configuration and the outcome – e.g., policy enactments working through partisan ideology, log-rolling and bargaining, or bipartisan consensus. Whether and how far these insights about the working of mechanisms then travels across cases, however, must be carefully explored further (Beach, Pedersen, and Siewert, 2019; Schneider and Rohlfing, 2019).

Finally, it is notoriously difficult to model sequences, and processes over time with QCA (Fischer and Maggetti, 2017; Thomann, 2020).³ Contrary to what many studies suggest,

³ Proposals like temporal QCA (Caren and Panofsky, 2005; Ragin and Strand, 2008) were developed already quite early, but never took off and were hence never broadly applied.

QCA solutions do not contain any type of information about the sequential ordering of conditions. This, of course, limits the use of QCA for public policy analysis if the goal is to examine the development across different stages of the policy formulation process. The same is true if the explanatory model which is used for the QCA builds upon frameworks like the Multiple-Streams Approach or the Advocacy Coalition Framework (see Chapter 7 in this volume), because complexity in terms of time, ordering, and sequencing is black-boxed by the configuration.

However, there have been recently some promising methodological innovations (Garcia-Castro and Arino, 2013; Gerrits and Pagliarin, 2020; Haesebrouck, 2019; Hino, 2009; Maggetti, 2021; Pagliarin and Gerrits, 2020; Schneider, 2018a; Verweij and Vis, 2020) that seek to better integrate ‘time’ as an analytical condition at the level of the research design and/or technical implementation of QCA. It therefore seems that temporality as an apparent blind spot of QCA might be addressed in the near-term future. But it will be necessary that forthcoming applications demonstrate that the proposed innovations in QCA are indeed able to produce robust and rigorous findings.

TEACHING THE QCA PROTOCOL

Building upon these foundations, the following section describes the main steps of performing a QCA analysis. In doing so, it discusses the crucial decisions that researchers need to be made aware of, highlights common pitfalls, and points out appropriate strategies on how to deal with these. Given the restriction of what can be achieved in this chapter, it is important to note that the following set of guidelines only relate to selected problems which occur most frequently or are particularly serious; they thus do not constitute a comprehensive list for ‘how to do a QCA’ but rather offer a set of minimum requirements which should be paid particular attention to.

The next paragraphs are therefore by no means a substitute for introductions to QCA (Duşa, 2019a; Mello, 2021; Oana, Schneider, and Thomann, 2021; Ragin, 2008; Schneider and Wagemann, 2012; Thiem, 2017), but should rather help instructors and practitioners to navigate this literature. In addition, it should be highlighted that certain strategies are better suited for some research contexts or for certain research designs than for others – a point to which we come back to at the end of this chapter.

Set Calibration

Sets are the main analytic building blocks of QCA. The set membership value indicates the extent to which a case corresponds to a theoretical concept and is hence best understood as a numerical expression of an abstract idea. The process of calibration involves that cases included in the analysis are assigned a certain degree of membership in a set. There are three types of sets in QCA (Oana, Schneider, and Thomann, 2021, pp. 27–47; Ragin, 2008, pp. 71–84; Schneider and Wagemann, 2012, pp. 23–32). The first is crisp sets, where cases can be fully in or fully out of a set, like the (non-)passage of a law or being part of a governing coalition or not. Second, fuzzy sets additionally allow for partial (non-)memberships in-between being fully in/out so that different shades of a concept can be captured like the degree to which a certain bill reflects the preferences of certain political actors (from fully to partially to compromise to not at all), or the ideology of coalition governments on a left-right contin-

uum. Finally, multi-value sets can be used for multinominal concepts which do not *per se* fall onto a unidimensional continuum usually required for fuzzy sets, such as different groups of stakeholders or different types of government coalitions (Haesebrouck, 2016; Thiem, 2013).

A frequently encountered issue when teaching QCA is to convey the message that sets in QCA are different from variables used in statistical analysis (Goertz and Mahoney, 2012, pp. 139–176; Ragin, 2004, 2008; Thiem, Baumgartner, and Bol, 2016). First, fuzzy sets contain qualitative (differences in kind) and quantitative information (differences in degree) which fits squarely with the standard scheme of variables which students know from their statistics classes. Second, it is important to highlight that the process of calibration always involves an interpretation of the raw data by the researcher to capture a theoretical concept. Third, not all variation is similarly meaningful when working with sets which is why data is truncated when setting the lower and upper boundary of a set – and frequently even in-between unless one calculates really fine-grained set values.

When it comes to the calibration of sets, students and practitioners should be made aware that this process usually involves the triangulation of theoretical knowledge about concepts, expertise on specific cases, and empirical information on the data distribution. When calibrating sets, one might even need to iteratively go back and forth between the empirical data and the theoretical literature in order to come up with meaningful borders for the respective set (Oana, Schneider, and Thomann, 2021, pp. 28–42; Ragin, 2008, pp. 85–108; Schneider and Wagemann, 2012, pp. 32–42). When teaching QCA, a main task is to raise awareness of the fact that all decisions concerning what defines full membership and non-membership in a set, as well as the transition point of 0.5, must be transparently presented, discussed, and justified (Wagemann and Schneider, 2015). This is often not as easy as it sounds because there are trade-offs between being transparent and being too technical. However, this should not be used as an excuse for non-transparent calibration since the careful documentation of conceptualization, operationalization, and analysis is essential for the replicability of a study, and hence an important quality standard of science, in general. Courses teaching QCA should therefore highlight the basic elements which should be part of any QCA article like a short overview of the main calibration decisions in the form of a table should. Moreover, it should be stressed that further material needs to be made available via supplementary annexes, such as explanations of the calibration scheme including examples of the coding, descriptions of the chosen calibration strategy, and the raw and set data. While it can be tricky to integrate the QCA analysis in an article with the information provided in the annex in a reader-friendly way, there are some novel strategies available like Annotations for Transparent Inquiry (ATI) (Siewert, 2021), which can help to facilitate the transparency of calibration decisions and connect the set data in an effective way with the underlying raw information.

Depending on the underlying data, researchers can choose between various calibration strategies (Oana, Schneider, and Thomann, 2021, pp. 28–42; Ragin, 2008, pp. 85–108; Schneider and Wagemann, 2012, pp. 32–42). The direct calibration is frequently used if fine-grained quantitative data is available, since it allows a software to transform the raw indicators into set values based on the previously defined boundaries. When deriving sets from qualitative data (Basurto and Speer, 2012; de Block and Vis, 2019; Legewie, 2017), one word of advice would be to set up an iterative process where an initial coding scheme based on theory is first tested and then further developed, refined, and adapted. Irrespective of the chosen calibration strategy, a good practice might be to document throughout data collection which decisions concerning the set calibration are debatable and highlight which cases were rather ambigu-

ous. This information can later be used to perform robustness tests on alternative calibration decisions and to convey the calibration rationale to the wider community by discussing these decisions.

After the calibration is completed, the data needs to be checked regarding two aspects. First, it should be tested whether the set value 0.5 is assigned. In the methodological literature, this is usually seen as problematic since cases which are located directly at the borderline of a set are neither in or out of the given set. However, this seems to become less and less relevant for empirical studies, and there are even some scholars arguing that there is nothing special about the 0.5 set membership value.⁴ Second, the data distribution within the calibrated sets needs to be tested, since skewed data can have severe consequences for the subsequent analysis and interpretation of the QCA findings (Oana, Schneider, and Thomann, 2021, pp. 47–50; Schneider and Wagemann, 2012, pp. 232–250). In a nutshell, the problem here is the following: data which is skewed to lower (higher) values in a condition (outcome) makes subset relations more probable; superset relations, on the other hand, become more likely if data is skewed to higher (lower) values in a condition (outcome). In these settings, set relations are less meaningful and hard to interpret in terms of sufficiency and necessity, because they might be mere artifacts of the research design. In sum, QCA courses should teach that variation in set data is a core requirement to interpret set relations in a meaningful way.

Analysis of Necessity

As outlined before, a condition can be interpreted as necessary if no or only very few cases exist where the outcome occurs without the respective condition. Several parameters of fit exist to evaluate the quality of set relations (Haesebrouck, 2015; Ragin, 2008, pp. 44–70; Schneider and Wagemann, 2012, pp. 119–150). The consistency parameter denotes the strength of the association between two sets. It ranges from 0 signaling no set relation to 1 indicating a perfect set relation, whereas the QCA community has largely agreed on a consistency level of at least 0.9, i.e., 10% of inconsistency, to be acceptable (Schneider, 2018b, pp. 247–249). Two additional parameters, i.e., coverage and relevance, gauge the explanatory scope with low values (already around 0.5) indicating trivialness. It is, however, important to highlight to students and practitioners that these benchmarks should never be automatically applied because they are strongly influenced by the general features of a study's research design like the number of cases, set levels, etc. Against this backdrop, one should always base analysis of necessity on various types of information, and only interpret a condition as necessary if these different pieces of information point in the same direction; on the other hand, scholars should be more careful about ones' inferences if evidence is mixed.

How to conduct the analysis of necessity is debated in the methodological literature: Some scholars advise to start the QCA with the search for superset relations because if there is one or several necessary conditions, this can inform the subsequent search for sufficient conditions (Duşa, 2019b; Oana, Schneider, and Thomann, 2021; Schneider, 2018b; Schneider and Wagemann, 2012). For instance, it is argued that no so-called logical remainders – i.e., con-

⁴ Although the truth table algorithm implemented in R can handle ambiguous cases with a set value of 0.5, there might still be conceptual reasons not to assign a 0.5 value since these cases are directly at the set border which Ragin (2008) has also labelled the 'point of maximum ambiguity'; put differently, cases here are neither in or out or (or both in and out) of a set.

figurations in the truth table for which there is no empirical data – should be used for further minimization if this logical remainder contradicts the statement of necessity. Moreover, this literature speaks in favor of interpreting complex disjuncts of conditions only as necessary, if there is a theoretical concept under which the individual parts of the OR-combination can be subsumed. This procedure is however challenged by scholars who highlight that the process of using necessary conditions for deciding about logical remainders in the truth table leads to severe restriction of the analysis and results (Cooper and Glaesser, 2015; Thiem, 2014, 2016a). In addition, it is recommended to search for all potential disjuncts in the data and treat them as necessary if they pass the respective set parameters. Since these discussions are unresolved, two pragmatic suggestions for teaching QCA can be given at this point: first, both positions in these debates should be part of the syllabus and discussed in the classroom; second, students and practitioners are advised to run multiple QCA analyses using alternative specifications to explore how these decisions effect their results and interpretations, and report on this accordingly in the manuscripts.

Analysis of Sufficiency

The next step in a QCA involves the identification of (combinations of) sufficient conditions, i.e., factors which whenever present (or absent) also imply the presence (or absence) of an outcome. The analysis of sufficiency starts with the examination of the truth table (Ragin, 2008). As an analytic tool, the truth table summarizes the data and visualizes which configuration of conditions ideal-typically describe the cases under study. It furthermore highlights limited empirical diversity by displaying which configurations do not contain empirical information (so-called logical remainders). The consistency score again provides information about the strength of the set relationship for each combination of conditions. A consistency value of 0.75 or 0.8 is frequently mentioned as a lower benchmark signaling a moderate association (Ragin, 2006, p. 293; Schneider and Wagemann, 2012, p. 279; Thiem, 2016a). Similar to the interpretation of necessity, researchers should again be careful and not apply these benchmarks automatically. At a minimum, it should be checked whether configurations contain cases which strongly contradict the subset relation – which can be easily done by highlighting those cases in the truth table. Sometimes there are also apparent discontinuities and gaps in the consistency scores which can help to choose one threshold over another.

Another problem that might occur at this stage is the issue of simultaneous subset relations (Schneider and Wagemann, 2012, pp. 237–244) – which is linked to the skewedness of set data already mentioned. Simultaneous subset relations pose a contradictory statement since they show an association with both the outcome and non-outcome. To avoid this, such configurations can be included in either the analysis of the outcome or the non-outcome – but not in both. To spot this problem, one can either utilize an additional parameter called PRI (which stands for Proportional Reduction in Inconsistency), with values of between 0.4 and 0.6 pointing to problematic subset relations. Alternatively, scholars should display the consistency values for the outcome and the non-outcome right next each other in the truth table which immediately draws attention to those configurations which are consistently linked to the outcome and non-outcome.

Once those conditions which show a strong enough set relation are identified, complex expressions contained in the truth table are further minimized. The main aim at this stage of the QCA is to isolate those conditions that make a difference across cases – and therefore might

be causally relevant – from those which are redundant (Baumgartner, 2015, p. 840; Schneider and Wagemann, 2012, p. 105). This is done based on Boolean algebra and respective software algorithms. Three minimization strategies exist in QCA which differ in their treatment of those truth table rows which do not contain empirical information (Schneider and Wagemann, 2012; Thiem and Baumgartner, 2016): i) the parsimonious strategy which is driven by the objective to produce minimally sufficient conditions and therefore includes all logical remainders that lead to more parsimonious results; ii) the intermediate strategy which includes only those logical remainders which are in line with pre-specified theoretical assumptions; and iii) the complex strategy which counterfactually assumes that all logical remainders are insufficient and hence excludes them from the minimization.

There is an ongoing, and yet-to-be-resolved debate within the QCA-community concerning the (causal) interpretability of the solution strategies. This is not the place to provide all arguments of the discussion (Baumgartner, 2015, 2021; Duşa, 2019b; Haesebrouck and Thomann, 2021; Schneider, 2018b; Thiem and Baumgartner, 2016; Thomann and Maggetti, 2020). To summarize the problem in a (very) simple way: While the intermediate strategy is prone to include false positives, i.e., conditions which seem to be ‘causally’ relevant but are not, the parsimonious strategy identifies those conditions which are at the core of a solution, but it might mistakenly delete factors from the final solution which also play a role, i.e., it tends to produce false negatives. To make the picture even more confusing, some scholars even argue to rely on the complex strategy for certain purposes (Alamos-Concha et al., 2021; Baumgartner, 2021), for instance, when conducting follow-up case studies, and to use the within-case level evidence to decide on the causal properties of a condition. The question for instructors and applied researchers is how to deal with this contradictory best-practice advice put forward by methodologists? The answer is again a pragmatic one: first, it is important to make newcomers to QCA aware of these debates by presenting and discussing the key arguments. Moreover, it is recommended to present all solutions and to compare the (dis) similarities of findings across different strategies (Schneider and Wagemann, 2010). In doing so, researchers can explore which conditions are robust and which depend on decisions about the analytic strategies. In the end, further case studies are crucial to identify which conditions are causally relevant, and which are not (Beach, Pedersen, and Siewert, 2019; Schneider and Rohlfing, 2019; Schneider and Wagemann, 2012).

A final issue, which is unfortunately all too often not properly addressed in applied QCA studies, is that the minimization process of QCA might uncover several solution terms which describe the empirical data equally well – a phenomenon which Baumgartner and Thiem (2017) have labelled ‘model ambiguity’. Lacking a proper technical solutions or auxiliary tools implemented within existing software packages, the best that instructors and researchers can do is to rely on a similarly pragmatic strategy as mentioned before, namely comparing the different solutions and identifying those conditions which are shared between them. This, however, is only feasible if only a small number of alternative solution terms exist; if model ambiguity is high, i.e., the QCA returns more than just a handful of alternative terms, this should cast serious doubts on the analysis, and one is best advised to not interpret these findings at all. Most importantly though, there is no way around reporting all models and discussing the issue of model ambiguity in a transparent way.

Robustness Tests

It should be clear by now that the findings of a QCA – like any other empirical analysis – depend on a series of model specifications and decisions to be made along the analytical protocol. Nowadays, there a multitude of different strategies to conduct robustness tests available. Some early best practices on how to address the question of robustness can be found in Skaaning (2011) or Schneider and Wagemann (2012, pp. 284–295) who propose several tests like using alternative calibration thresholds, checking for the effects of alternate decisions concerning consistency benchmarks, or imposing a frequency threshold in the truth table. Similarly, Maggetti and Levi-Faur (2013) present an overview of possible sources of error in QCA like incorrect specification of conditions or (un)systematic measurement errors, and discuss strategies on how to address them.

Most recently, Oana and Schneider (2021) have advanced the debate by providing a conceptual foundation and an elaborate test protocol implemented in R, which allows to systematically test the robustness of QCA findings particularly those based on quantitative raw data. It is important to note that these diverse strategies offer guidance for QCA studies which are more case-oriented as well as ones which follow a more data-driven perspective. There are hence no excuses for not doing robustness tests, and we can only hope ‘that the performance and reporting of robustness tests become standard in QCA’ (Oana and Schneider 2021, p. 27). To make this happen, however, teaching the QCA protocol must always include a module which presents the toolkit of robustness tests and introduces best practices on how to implement and report them.

SOME RECOMMENDATIONS FOR DESIGNING COURSES ON QCA

Based on the discussion of previous sections, this chapter ends with some selected recommendations for designing a QCA course.

First, it is important that the goals of a study are well aligned with the analytical objectives of QCA. To put researchers into the position to check whether their research matches what QCA can (and cannot) do, courses on QCA should always include an introductory module which discusses its ontological and epistemological assumptions and foundations. This can be done with a focus on QCA, which is probably most fruitful if the course is targeted towards practitioners, or by situating QCA within the wider context of quantitative and qualitative methods in the social sciences, which might be a good opportunity for (under)graduate students to discuss general questions of designing social science research (Brady and Collier, 2010; Goertz and Mahoney, 2012; King, Keohane, and Verba, 1994).

Second, when introducing the concept of set relations, it is usually a good idea to draw on examples which are close to the interests of students and practitioners that participate in the QCA class. Public policy analysis is full of questions that are, or which can/should be, framed in terms of necessity and/or sufficiency. In addition, there are several reviews which provide overviews of how QCA is used in different subfields of public policy analysis (Bingham, Dean, and Castillo, 2019; Emmenegger, Kvist, and Skaaning, 2013; Engeli, Rihoux, and Rothmayr Allison, 2014; Hanckel et al., 2021; Lee, 2013; Marx, Rihoux, and Ragin, 2014; Rihoux, Rezsöházy, and Bol, 2009; Thomann, 2020) from which teachers, students, and prac-

tioners can draw inspiration if they are searching for topics that are or can be addressed with QCA. Alternatively, it is also a good exercise to let participants of QCA workshops explore their respective field of research and let them search for topics which are phrased in terms of necessity and/or sufficiency but are not yet analyzed using a formal set-theoretic perspective.

Third, it should have become clear that courses on QCA always need to teach the theory which is behind the technicalities of QCA as method and how it is practically implemented. Especially in times when it is rather simple to execute an R script to perform analyses with QCA, it is essential that scholars have a profound knowledge of what they are actually doing when running a line of code in a software. So as not to encourage mindless empirical analyses, the underlying basics of set theory should be introduced, ideally with some fundamentals of formal logic. This can be again coupled with a treatment of how set theory differs from standard statistical approaches (Goertz and Mahoney, 2013; Ragin, 2004; Thiem, Baumgartner, and Bol, 2016). Theory, however, is not enough but scholars need to find out for themselves about the different analytic decisions that go into QCA analyses. Using replication studies to teach and learn the complexities and intricacies of QCA is a very effective strategy here, especially for (under)graduate students, but also PhD candidates, faculty and practitioners who are complete newcomers to QCA. For target groups who have already some advanced knowledge on QCA, it is usually very effective to design the course as a form of ‘research clinic’ where problems and pitfalls concerning the analytic protocol of QCA are discussed based on using data from their own previous research.

Fourth, it has been highlighted throughout this chapter that several aspects are hotly debated within the QCA community, ranging from relatively minor issues like what benchmarks should be applied to assess the quality of set relations to more fundamental ones like which solution type should be used and how causally interpretable they are. This has severe implications for teaching as introductions to QCA should always clarify where there is consensus within the QCA community concerning practices and procedures, and where there is disagreement on how to properly run a QCA. Whenever there are alternative technicalities debated and suggestions being made, the respective advantages and disadvantages should be discussed and weighted against each other. The same applies to existing gaps and blind spots of QCA; here, instructors should point out apparent weaknesses and the necessity for further development rather than simply glancing over them.

Fifth, QCA as a technique is continuously updated, refined, and further developed. While being a positive trend to be welcomed, it does not come without negative effects. One drawback which stands out is that it can be challenging for applied researchers to keep up with the latest advancements; and even if they do so, it is difficult to reconcile the different, sometimes even diametral procedures that are discussed in the methodological literature. When teaching QCA, instructors therefore must ensure that the guidelines and protocols presented in class adhere to the current methodological state of the art. Since the method is developing at an increasingly fast pace with more and more scholars joining the QCA community, syllabi should not only rely on existing textbooks but also include peer-reviewed articles. The same applies to the software which is used for the QCA analysis; here, there is no way around using one of several available packages in R (Duşa, 2019a; Oana and Schneider, 2018; Thiem, 2016b). Staying on top of developments and trends, of course, is time-consuming and might even be challenging; it is, however, essential since students and practitioners will not be able to make these investments.

Sixth, we can observe a growing diversification concerning the ways QCA is applied in research practice (Thomann, 2020; Thomann and Maggetti, 2020; Wagemann, Buche, and Siewert, 2016) with QCA having clearly moved beyond its original envisaged purposes, i.e., the systematic case-oriented comparison of a small to medium number of cases at the macro level (Ragin, 2000, 2004; Rihoux and Ragin, 2009). This has at least two implications for teaching QCA: on the one hand, instructors should raise the awareness among newcomers to QCA that the purposes and goals of a QCA study need to be spelled out transparently and clearly, e.g., whether the focus lies on making cross-case inferences or rather mapping and explaining individual cases, or whether the goal is theory testing or more explorative (Thomann and Maggetti, 2020). On the other hand, instructors should teach that guidelines and rules concerning how to (best) perform analyses in QCA (heavily) depend on the respective research design, and selected strategies make more sense in some research contexts than in others – even though there is a standard protocol on how to run a QCA.

QCA has definitely reached a level of maturity over the last decade which makes it a valuable tool for public policy analysis. Yet being a comparatively new method also comes with certain challenges, both regarding the application of the method and teaching it. We hope that this chapter offers some guidance on how to steer these challenges in a stimulating and fast-moving field of methodological developments.

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16. Teaching process tracing methods in public policy

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INTRODUCTION

As its name suggests, process tracing is a method that aims to theorize processes linking causes and outcomes together and trace them empirically in case studies. Understanding how public policies are adopted and work requires unpacking the processes behind their adoption and implementation. In the study of public policy, there has been a movement towards studying causal processes (aka causal mechanisms) as a tool to understand how policies work in the real world and under what conditions (Capano and Howlett, 2021; Capano, Howlett and Ramesh, 2019).

The goal of this chapter is to provide teachers with a set of feasible tools and suggestions for teaching process tracing methods to students of public policy. Using the chapter assumes that the teacher has some familiarity with the literature on case study methods (for good introductions, see e.g., Goertz and Mahoney, 2012; Beach and Pedersen, 2016). The term process is used throughout instead of the term mechanism, given that it is easier for students to grasp intuitively, and given the potential for confusion due to the myriad ways in which the term ‘causal mechanism’ is used to denote very different things by social scientists.

While the utility of process-focused research has been recognized, there are vast differences in how process tracing methods are understood in the ever-growing literature on process tracing. These differences can create considerable difficulties for students (and teachers) who are interested in learning about process tracing as a method for studying policy processes. This chapter aims to cut through this confusion by developing four distinct variants of process tracing methods based on the position taken on theoretical and evidence-related issues (see Table 16.1 below).

What then are the critical distinctions? First, at the theoretical (i.e., ontological) level, the core distinction is between those who contend that a theory of a causal process should be disaggregated into a series of parts composed of actors interacting with each other, and those who theorize process using very abstract headline terms such as ‘agenda-setting’, that do not unpack what actors are actually doing in the process. Second, at the empirical (aka epistemological) level the critical distinction is between those who argue that process theories should be evidence based on the observable traces they leave within cases, and those who argue for counterfactual-based, controlled comparisons across cases at the level of process (or parts thereof). These two distinctions produce four distinct variants that can be found in the literature: 1) minimalist tracing within cases, 2) tracing unpacked process theories within cases, 3) minimalist comparisons, and 4) step-by-step process comparisons.

This chapter proceeds in four steps. After presenting some suggestions about what variants should be taught in different teaching situations, the chapter discusses the divides in process

Table 16.1 Four variants of process tracing

		What is being assessed at the empirical level? (epistemology)	
		Tracing using empirical observables	Counterfactual, controlled comparisons
What is being traced at the theoretical level? (ontology)	Minimalist (‘one-liner’) theories	Minimalist tracing within cases (e.g., Bennett and Checkel, 2014; Beach and Pedersen, 2019)	Minimalist process comparisons (e.g., Runhardt, 2015, 2021)
	Unpacked process theories	Tracing unpacked process theories (e.g., Beach and Pedersen, 2019; Beach, 2021)	Step-by-step process comparisons (e.g., Runhardt, 2021)

tracing methods in two sections. The chapter concludes with a discussion of case selection in process tracing and the challenge of generalizing about causal processes.

CHOOSING WHAT VARIANT(S) TO TEACH

Given the complexity both in terms of the different variants – as well as the broader challenge of teaching students about underlying ontological and epistemological issues and their methodological implications – it can be helpful to start by focusing only on one variant of process tracing. If there is sufficient time and the students are more advanced in their methodological understanding, other variants can then be introduced.

Irrespective of which variant is chosen, it is important to iterate to students that despite what some authors write, there is not one ‘right’ variant of process tracing, given that the disagreements about the method stem from scholars taking different positions on core ontological and epistemological issues. The ontological divides in process tracing deal with philosophical disagreements about the nature of causation itself, which means that they cannot be ‘tested’ or ‘validated’ empirically. Instead, they are beliefs about the nature of the world – meaning that there is no right or wrong answer. Of course, it is important that one’s method is in alignment with the underlying ontological understanding that one adopts, but all four variants fulfil this criteria.

What variant should be taught in which situation? If process tracing is being taught in a methods-focused course for public policy students, it makes sense to focus more on the epistemological issues (empirical level), introducing students to either or both the ‘tracing’ and ‘controlled-comparison’ variants, while at the same time only introducing the minimalist approach at the theoretical level.

Disaggregating existing causal theories into a series of parts is very difficult and requires considerable practice (see ‘What are we tracing at the theoretical level?’, below). In contrast, a minimalist approach side-steps these theoretical considerations by treating causal processes as simple ‘one-liners’. If the rest of methods training of students is quantitative and variable-focused, the ‘controlled-comparison’ epistemology can be easier to grasp for students because process is treated in essence as an intervening variable. In contrast, if students are more familiar with case study methods, then the ‘tracing’ epistemology will be easier to comprehend.

If process tracing is being taught in a more substantive public policy course, it makes sense to focus on the ontological/theoretical level, and in particular spending the time required for students to develop the skills required to unpack existing public policy theories and frameworks into more detailed, process-level theories (see ‘What are we tracing at the theoretical level?’, below).

Which variant(s) of process tracing presented also depends on what students will use the method for in their studies. If the goal is for them to do a mini-analysis (e.g., 10–15 pages), then it makes sense to work with minimalist variants, given that they are particularly useful for plausibility probes and when there are limited time/resources available for case study (Beach and Pedersen, 2019: 36–37). In contrast, if the student will be using the method for a larger research project (e.g., a master’s thesis) or for work in policy evaluation after graduation, the unpacked variant is more useful; given that it both provides greater theoretical understanding of how a process works, and enables stronger causal inferences about the processual linkage between the cause (i.e., trigger) and the outcome.

Further, whether a ‘tracing’ or ‘controlled comparison’ variant is chosen also depends on the complexity and number of potential policy processes in the population of cases that the student might be studying. If the method will be used to study relatively similar, oft-repeated processes (e.g., budgetary policy-making that is repeated annually using relatively similar procedures, etc.), it makes sense for students to think about controlled comparisons at the process-level, given that the ‘everything else equal’ assumption is more likely to hold. On the other hand, if one is studying policy processes in which there is a lot of complexity, and where cases are not independent from each other (e.g., over time), then a ‘tracing’ variant is more relevant. For instance, a ‘tracing’ variant would be more relevant if students were analyzing the spending policy processes triggered by the COVID-19 crisis. Policy processes were very different both from other types of crisis policy-making, given the unique nature of lockdowns of the economy, and they also differed significantly across countries.

Depending on the level of student (BA, MA, PhD), the teaching can go into more or less depth on ontological and/or epistemological issues, and more variants can be introduced. When more variants are taught, it then becomes imperative for students to recognize tradeoffs when they choose a variant of the method. For example, choosing to unpack process theoretically sheds more theoretical light on how process works and enables stronger evidence-based inferences about how it worked. At the same time, the tradeoff is that it is analytically taxing, meaning that one cannot realistically do it for more than one or two cases. Here one learns a lot about a little.

Finally, when teaching practitioners (policy evaluators, bureaucrats, etc.), it can be helpful to use a conceptual language that they are familiar with. At the theoretical level, the term ‘theory-of-change’ is used to describe the process linking a given policy intervention with the desired policy result. While a theory-of-change is typically much more developed than a minimalist process theory, it does not explain the linkages between parts (Schmitt and Beach, 2015). Here it is helpful to emphasize to practitioners that a process theory attempts to unpack what actors are actually doing (activities) to explain how the intervention might plausibly lead to the desired result. At the empirical level, there is a considerable literature on Bayesian reasoning and policy evaluation that is relevant and that can be used to supply relevant examples when teaching (e.g., Befani and Stedman-Bryce, 2017).

WHAT ARE WE TRACING AT THE THEORETICAL LEVEL?

At its core, process tracing as a method shifts the theoretical focus from causes (input) and outcomes (output) to the policy processes that link them together in a causal relationship. It is important to mention that despite what some authors write, the cause and process it triggers do not have to be sufficient for the outcome to occur (i.e., the cause is enough in and of itself to produce the outcome). If we could only study sufficient causes with process tracing, this would either restrict us to only assess mono-causal relationships (e.g., first-past-the-post electoral systems produce two-party political systems), or engage in research where the immense complexity of policy processes that link many different causes and an outcome are traced. In the case of the latter, this would mean that if we are studying the causes of a given policy reform, we would need to trace all of the different processes linking a large number of causes such as an external shock (crisis), advocacy by political entrepreneurs, lobbying by business groups, political bargaining between policy-makers, input from the bureaucracy and outside experts, pressure from voters, and leadership by certain policy-makers.

Luckily, process tracing can be used to assess the process linking a cause that makes a contribution to an outcome, as long as the impact of the cause/process on the outcome can be isolated analytically. For instance, it is possible to process trace how ideas from one country influenced a policy reform in another country through a policy diffusion process without having to trace all of the other different processes that shaped the reform. What is required for the student to learn is to be precise about the causal claim being made, in terms of only claiming that studied process linked the cause and outcome together, and that the cause and process contributed to the outcome.

Irrespective of whether processes are unpacked or not, causes themselves should be thought of as ‘activators’ or ‘triggers’ of causal processes (Capano and Howlett, 2021: 146; Beach and Pedersen, 2019: 69). For example, a crisis can trigger a reform process that leads to policy change. Policy failure can trigger a learning process amongst policy-makers that might lead them to change their understanding of policy problems and viable solutions. Thinking of causes as ‘triggers’ can help students think more clearly in processual terms. Yet process theories go beyond cause/outcome by making more explicit what the causal linkage is hypothesized to be, irrespective of whether a minimalist or unpacked approach is adopted.

Minimalist Process Theories – Pathways

In minimalist understandings, the causal arrow between a cause and outcome is not unpacked in any detail, but instead is theorized using simple, abstract terms like ‘lobbying’ or ‘societal mobilization’ (e.g., Bennett and Checkel, 2014; Falleti and Lynch, 2009). In effect, the process theory is a very simple description of the pathway linking a cause and outcome together. For example, theorizing the process whereby an epistemic community could influence policy, a number of plausible pathways could be theorized, including: 1) framing the discussions through expert interventions in policy debates, 2) lobbying efforts through direct discussions with policy-makers and relevant bureaucrats, and 3) gaining access to policy-makers by getting hired as experts within the bureaucracy (see Figure 16.1).

Students can be taught to theorize these simple pathway type theories by asking them to brainstorm about what could plausibly link a given cause (trigger) and outcome together. While many textbook accounts of public policy theories do not discuss processes, ideas about

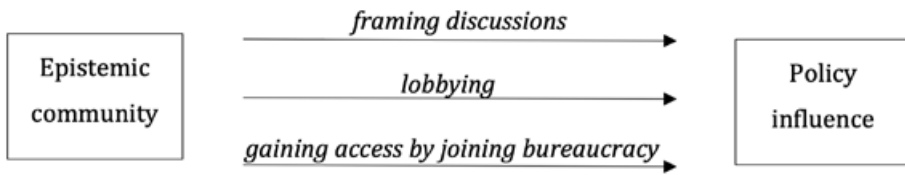


Figure 16.1 *Pathway process theories linking epistemic communities and influence*

plausible theoretical pathways are often discussed in research articles and books. Another way to get ideas about potential pathways is to present students with an empirical account of what took place in a given case, and ask them to develop hunches about what might have linked a given cause (e.g., crisis) and an outcome (e.g., reform) together.

Unpacking Process Theories

The goal of unpacking causal processes into their constituent parts is to better understand how policy processes work. This requires a more-or-less detailed theorization of policy actors and the activities that link them together in a process (Beach and Pedersen, 2019). If we are interested in making causal claims, this means that causal processes are not just a series of events that occur in-between the occurrence of a cause and an outcome. Presenting a sequence of events in a case study is a form of descriptive analysis that tells us who did what and when, but it does not tell us why they did it, and most importantly, why the events were linked in a causal sense. Describing a series of events does, though, provide a plausible narrative about what happened, and is therefore an important first step in any process tracing analysis. But tracing events does not shed light on the underlying causal linkage between a cause and an outcome, which is why narrative constructions of processes are not the same thing as process tracing. To better understand how policy processes work, we need to develop a process theory that explains why a series of actors engaging in activities links a cause (or set of causes) and an outcome together.

It is important to also note that a process theory will always be an analytical abstraction for all but the simplest of policy processes (see Chapter 6 by Weible and Carter in this volume). Instead of detailing each and every individual and what they are doing in their interactions with each other over a period of days/weeks/months, a process theory attempts to capture the central actors and simplify their activities by only focusing on the most critical interactions. Using a metaphor that works well with students: not all parts of a movie are equally ‘interesting’. In an action movie, time and special effects money will be concentrated on the final dramatic showdown between the good and bad characters. Similarly, not all parts of a political policy process theory are equally ‘interesting’. If the research deals with agenda-setting, the process theory might concentrate on unpacking the interactions leading to a window-of-opportunity being opened (e.g., by an entrepreneur).

Teaching students how to unpack policy processes theoretically can be challenging, given that many existing theories are merely heuristic frameworks that tell us little about how things work at the process-level (Capano and Howlett, 2021: 142). For instance, the Advocacy Coalition Framework (ACF), uses the term ‘mechanism’ to describe, among other things, the

belief systems that are used to simplify and interpret the world, learning processes, and factors such as the redistribution of coalition resources (Lindquist and Wellstead, 2019: 25–26). However, at no point does the ACF theorize how policy learning occurs, nor how redistribution of coalition resources can open and close policy venues (*ibid.*), meaning that what is going on between cause and outcome is essentially black-boxed.

To develop stronger process-level theories that can answer the ‘how does it work?’ question, what is required is that some thought is given to the theoretical policy processes that plausibly can link a given cause and outcome together. This is not rocket science, but it can be challenging for students trained in simple cause/outcome thinking in which linkages are hidden behind assumptions and correlation-type reasoning.

When unpacking process theories, the conceptual language of actors (i.e., entities), the activities that they perform and the causal principle linking the activity with the next actor should be introduced to students. Actors can be at the micro-level (individuals), but depending on the theory, they can also be macro-level actors such as organizations. Actors can be theorized using either proper or common nouns, with the former being the actual person or organization in a particular case, whereas the latter would refer more generically to a person or organization (e.g., a policy entrepreneur). Activities are what actors do in their interactions with each other in policy processes, and can be theorized using verbs.

To move beyond process theories that merely describe a series of actors doing things, we also need to shed light on the causal principle that explains why the activity leads another actor to do something. For example, it is not enough to theorize that an expert (actor) provides a problem diagnosis for a policy problem (activity) that is then accepted (activity) by policy-makers (actors), because we have not explained why policy-makers accept the diagnosis. One explanation could be that acceptance is due to policy-makers perceiving the experts as trusted epistemic authorities, meaning that they relatively uncritically accept what experts are telling them.

By making the causal principle linking an actor’s activities with another actor explicit, we expose the explanation to both logical scrutiny, but more importantly, the causal linkage becomes something we can assess empirically. Returning to the example above, we might find that policy-makers did not uncritically accept the diagnosis, but instead engaged in considerable debate with experts before they were persuaded to accept it because the alternative diagnoses were perceived to lead to politically unacceptable solutions.

Each part of a policy process should then be broken down into parts, composed of actors engaging in activities that link the cause and outcome together in a causal sense. This is depicted in Figure 16.2. The theorization should also answer why a given activity would lead another actor to engage in the next activity in the process. In abstract terms, a part of a process can be conceptualized as: actor, activity and explanation of linkage.

What can unpacked process theories look like in published research? As an example, in an article in *Policy Studies Journal*, Löblöová (2018) unpacked how an epistemic community (EC) can influence policy (see Figure 16.3). In the revised process theory, she details the actors and the activities theorized to link the cause (formation of epistemic community) and outcome together. Of course, the causal principles that bind parts of the process together would ideally be made more explicit, thereby also increasing our understanding of how the process works. For instance, the process theory does not explain how the EC gains access, nor why decision-makers are actually influenced. This example can be used to help students understand what a process theory can look like in public policy studies, but equally importantly, how it

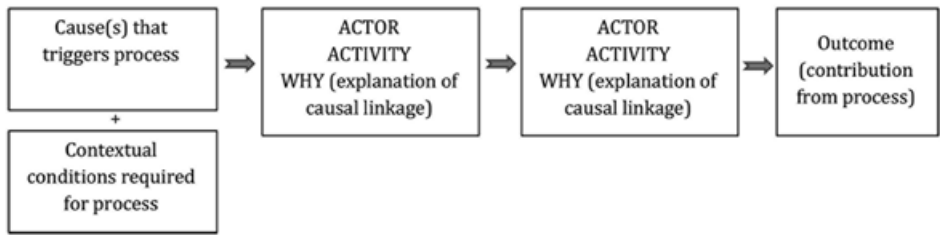
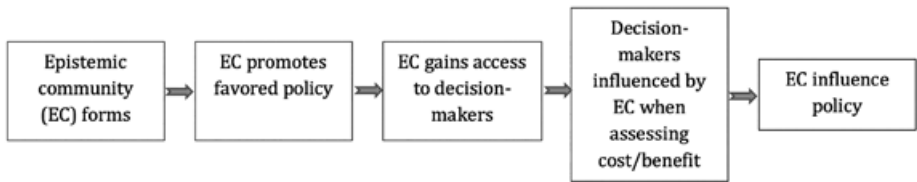


Figure 16.2 *Abstract disaggregated causal process theory*

can be made even better by making explicit causal principles drawn from existing literature to explain linkages between parts that then can be scrutinized empirically. Here students can be asked how the EC might promote their policy and why that would be linked to gaining access. Further, why does access lead to influence?



Source: Löblová, 2018: 176.

Figure 16.3 *Unpacked process theory linking epistemic community and influence*

When teaching the basics of process-level theorization, it can be helpful to start by asking students to try to brainstorm a basic blow-by-blow account of how a simple process might have played out. An easy exercise is to have them think about the interaction between a lobbyist and a policy-maker, and what activities might lead to the policy-maker being influenced by the lobbyist (e.g., policy-maker asking for information about how industry views policy, lobbyist presenting information, lobbyist promising campaign contributions, etc.).

Finally, it can be helpful for students to know that we often do not know much about a given policy process before we have done some empirical probing of a case. Process tracing research often involves a preliminary empirical probing of a case to figure out what happened, after which the analyst attempts to develop a process theory sketch of why, based both on the empirics from the case and existing theorization. After an initial sketch is developed, it can be refined through further empirical testing of the case until the process theory is able to provide some answers to the ‘how does it work?’ question.

HOW CAN WE TRACE CAUSAL PROCESSES EMPIRICALLY?

The other key divide in process tracing methods deals with what type of empirical evidence is relevant to infer whether a given process was actually present in a case or not. How can we empirically evidence either a minimalist or unpacked causal process theory? The answer to this question depends on whether a ‘tracing’ or ‘controlled comparison’ variant is chosen.

Controlled Comparisons

In the ‘controlled comparison’ variant, evidence takes the form of the difference that the presence/absence of a pathway (or parts thereof) has for the outcome in two or more cases in which the only difference between the cases is the presence/absence itself. In effect, this means that the pathway or the parts of an unpacked process are treated as counterfactual claims that we can evidence by assessing the difference in the outcome that presence/absence has (Runhardt, 2015, 2021), in what is in essence a ‘most-similar’ comparison because as many other factors as possible are held constant.

This method is illustrated in Figure 16.4, below, using the example of epistemic community → access → influence. The controlled comparison would require that two or more cases are selected in which as many factors as possible are the same, but where the epistemic community gained access through joining the bureaucracy in the one case, and did not in the other.

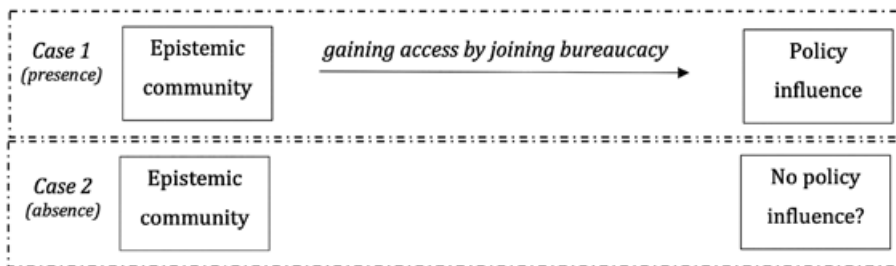


Figure 16.4 A controlled comparison of pathway between epistemic community and influence

The analysis would then assess whether policy influence occurred in the presence case, and whether it was absent in the absence case. If the difference in presence/absence of the pathway is found to have made a difference, then the inference can be made that the pathway might have made a difference. The strength of this inference depends on the degree to which other factors that might make a difference are similar between the cases. For instance, if we are comparing two cases where the level of issue saliency differs, this could also impact whether the epistemic community gains access and influence. Ideally, we are comparing most-similar cases, but in complex policy-making, complete similarity is rare. When cases are not most-similar, only relatively weak (if any) inferences can be made.

The controlled comparison method is similar for evidencing unpacked process theories, although it has to be repeated for each step of the process theory. This makes the challenge of identifying two or more cases that are most-similar even more difficult because we have to find two or more cases that are similar in all aspects except the presence/absence of a particular part of a process.

Tracing the Empirical Fingerprints of Activities

The alternative approach to evidencing policy processes is to trace them empirically by assessing whether the observable manifestations (ie. empirical fingerprints) that either pathways (minimalist) or activities (unpacked) are expected to leave are present in the case. In the literature, terms such as ‘causal process observations’ (Brady and Collier, 2011), ‘diagnostic evidence’ (Bennett and Checkel, 2014: 7), or ‘mechanistic evidence’ are used to denote the empirical fingerprints left by actors engaging in activities in a case (Russo and Williamson, 2007; Beach and Pedersen, 2019). Common to all of these terms is that evidence is any type of empirical material that has probative value in relation to determining whether an activity is associated with a part of a process within a case. These traces can take many different forms. For example, traces can involve patterns within cases – e.g., social networks that emerge between actors in a process. They can also involve temporal sequences – e.g., whether a search for alternative solutions in past cases happened before a solution was suggested by an actor. Alternatively, traces can be the content of empirical material – e.g., the speech acts of a particular actor during a meeting.

Following Van Evera (1997), accounts of process tracing have tried to systematize how to evaluate the probative value of evidence, often drawing explicitly on Bayesian logic (see e.g., Beach and Pedersen, 2019; Bennett and Checkel, 2014). Depending on the level of education, Bayesian logic can be introduced to students, either in a more informal ‘folk’ Bayesian approach as found in Beach and Pedersen (2019), or in a more formalized fashion as found in Fairfield and Charman (2017). But this formalization is not required, and the basic intuition of using empirical material to update confidence in the presence/absence of a given process taking place in a given case is ‘relatively’ simple.

Tracing processes using empirical fingerprints involves moving from the level of abstract theory to actual sources and back again. How empirics can be evaluated for what they tell us about the presence of parts of a process is illustrated in Figure 16.5.

At the theoretical level, the researcher asks if a given actor performed an activity in a given case, what empirically observable fingerprints might we expect a given activity (or overall process in the minimalist variant) to leave. For instance, a part of a ‘lobbying’ process could be that a lobbyist is hypothesized to have influenced a policy-maker by providing information that supports a particular policy change, where the causal explanation of the linkage is the demand for information to understand a policy problem. Empirical fingerprints could include: evidence that the lobbyist and policy-maker were in contact, interview accounts from both actors about what was said, and written material given by the lobbyist to the policy-maker, coupled with an assessment of whether the arguments in the material are found in later statements by the policy-maker. Often one empirical fingerprint is typically not enough to evidence an activity and causal linkage, and instead we might need multiple pieces. Returning to the example, just finding contact is not enough, and ideally we would have all of the stated pieces

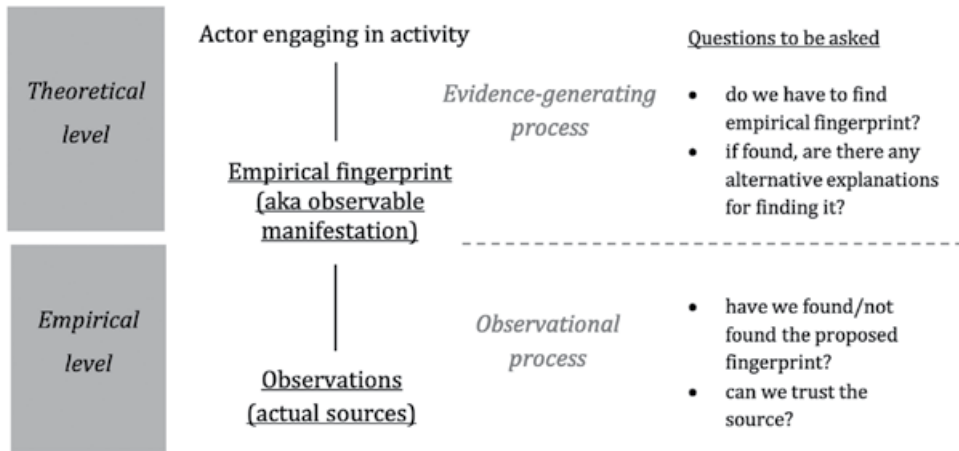


Figure 16.5 Moving from process theory to actual empirical sources

of evidence. Multiple pieces of evidence also enable corroboration across types of evidence and sources of evidence, increasing our confidence that they are unbiased.

What inferences a given hypothesized empirical fingerprint enables us to make depends on two factors: whether we had to find it ('certainty' in Bayesian terms), and if found, whether there are alternative explanations for finding the evidence ('uniqueness' in Bayesian terms). Whether we have to find evidence (aka certainty) relates to the disconfirmatory power of evidence, whereas whether alternative explanations are plausible or not relates to the confirmatory power of evidence.

Some activities can be expected to leave many empirical fingerprints in a case, whereas others might leave few traces. For instance, if a politician meets with a lobbyist, in many countries this meeting has to be recorded in a publicly accessible lobbyist register. If we then find that there is no record of the meeting in the lobbyist register, we can disconfirm with considerable confidence that the activity (meeting) took place. In contrast, there are activities that leave few empirical traces, especially if they involve illicit acts such as bribing a policy-maker. Here not finding evidence of the bribe is not disconfirming, given that we cannot expect to find it in the first place.

The confirmatory power of hypothesized empirical fingerprints relates to whether, if found, there are alternative explanations for finding the evidence. If we find the hypothesized fingerprint and there are few alternative explanations, this would enable a strong confirming inference to be made, and vice versa. For instance, for a part of a policy process such as 'actor A persuades actor B in meeting using arguments', a hypothesized empirical fingerprint could be that actor B changes how they talk about a policy after the meeting. However, the change might be purely strategic, in which they changed their position due to other reasons than arguments (e.g., material factors). Another alternative could be that actor B does not change position, but instead is only paying lip service to the views of actor A in public. When there are plausible alternative explanations for the fingerprint, finding it only provides weak or no confirmation.

One misunderstanding about uniqueness, found in some accounts of process tracing, is that uniqueness is always relative to rival or competing theories that explain the overall outcome in the case (e.g., Fairfield and Charman, 2017: 366–368). For example, if we are studying how experts frame issues to shape the agenda (outcome), Fairfield and Charman suggest we need to assess rival explanations for the shape of the agenda in the form of competitive theory test. However, testing different explanations of the outcome requires that the rivals are mutually exclusive. Yet for all but the simplest of political outcomes, there can be a number of different causes that contribute to produce a given outcome (e.g., parts of an agenda are due to expert framing, whereas other elements are the product of constituency pressures, etc.). All that is required for us to be able to do good process tracing is that we can isolate a process analytically, enabling us to trace whether there is a link between expert framing and the agenda. Therefore, rival explanations of finding evidence typically are not explanations of the outcome, but are instead focused on other explanations for finding the evidence itself.

Hypothesized empirical fingerprints are still not evidence upon which inferences about the presence/absence of the part of the process can be made. We are only able to make inferences when we also evaluate the actual sources of the observations (or lack thereof) for each of the propositions. At the empirical level, we have to ask ourselves whether a particular observation matches what we expected to find, whether we had access (if not found), and if found, whether we can trust the source. We might only have very untrustworthy sources for observing the hypothesized fingerprint, even though the fingerprint would have been very confirming if actually found. In this instance, the actually found evidence would not enable strong confirmation because we could not trust the source. The questions about our sources that should be asked here are common source critical questions such as whether the source has motives for distorting content, whether they might have known about the events, how far removed from the event the source was, and whether the source is reliable. Remember that sources can be both written documents (e.g., speeches or policy proposals), interviews, or observations by the researcher.

A good tool for teaching students how to work with empirical fingerprints is to use the Sherlock Holmes' story *Silver Blaze* as an example of the moves between theory to empirics. Students can be assigned to read the story and think about empirical evidence in relation to the process theory developed and tested by Holmes in the story. The key parts of Holmes' process theory are depicted in Table 16.2, along with the hypotheses about empirical fingerprints and the actual sources.

The core of the teaching activity is to ask students to take one part of the process (e.g., part 2 – Straker practices procedure for hurting horse) and discuss what empirical fingerprints Holmes' used to 'test' each part. As regards part 2, the fingerprints included animals that had been used for practice, and the instrument itself. The students should then be asked whether the fingerprints had to be found (certainty), and if found, whether there are plausible alternative explanations (uniqueness). For example, we would expect that as Straker cared about the race horse (*Silver Blaze*) and given the delicate nature of the operation, he would have practiced on living animals so that he could observe closely to see whether they recovered. Given that he would have had to practice right up until he planned to hurt the horse, we would expect to find the hypothesized fingerprint. At the same time, there are not many plausible alternative explanations for finding that a robust animal like a sheep is lame, although if several were lame it could have been due to a disease afflicting them (e.g., scald). Therefore, one might reasonably say that the evidence was relatively certain and unique, meaning if found, we are somewhat

Table 16.2 *An evidential matrix for the Sherlock Holmes' story Silver Blaze*

	Cause	Causal mechanism (case-specific)						Outcome
		Part 1	Part 2	Part 3	Part 4	Part 5	Part 6	
Theorized mechanism	Straker in debt because of expensive affair with Madame Derbyshire	Straker develops plans for betting on injured horse as way to cover debts	Straker practices procedure for hurting horse	Straker drugs stable boy in evening by putting poison in curried mutton	Straker takes horse from stable in middle of night	Straker leads horse to hollow in moor	Straker gets ready to hurt horse (needs light and ability to engage in delicate procedure)	Horse gets spooked and kicks Straker (death)
Hypotheses about fingerprints	Bills for expenses related to Madame Derbyshire	No fingerprints discussed in the story	ef2a—Animals that have been used for practice (Mc, Mu) ef2b—instrument for procedure (Hc, Lu)	ef3a—stable boy (Hunter) bears signs of poisoning (Mc, Mu)	ef4a—dog not barking at night (Hc, Hu)	ef5a—horse prints at hollow (Hc, Hu)	ef6a—some form of lighting needed (Hc, Lu) ef6b—jacket taken off and laid on bush (Hc, Mu)	Fatal wound that could come from horse
Actual sources	1—bill for dress 2—photograph of Straker identified by dressmaker		e2a—lame sheep described by stable lad e2b—small cataract knife found on Straker	e3a—other stable boys find Hunter groggy ('no sense could be got out of him')	e4a—neither Mrs. Straker nor other stable boys heard dog at night	e5a—'abundant proofs in the mud'	e6a1—wax vesta at scene of crime e6a1—candle found in Straker's pocket e6b—'overcoat flapping from a furze-bush'	*His head had been shattered by a savage blow from some heavy weapon'

Source: Beach and Pedersen, 2019: 289–293.

Key: ef = empirical fingerprint. L = low, M = medium, H = high. c = certainty (have to find), u = uniqueness (alternative explanations for finding evidence).

more confident the part took place, and if not found, we would disconfirm to some degree. For more advanced students, one can then also discuss whether particular sources are trustworthy or not, using typical source critical questions. The most important for all students is learning to provide justifications for why they think the empirical material could be evidence, and if found/not found, why it would be confirming/disconfirming.

Once students understand the basic logic using the stylized Sherlock Holmes exercise, one can then move to actual policy studies in the literature. For example, the article by Löblová (2018) can be used to discuss how particular pieces of empirical material described in the analysis relate to parts of the theorized ‘gaining access’ process linking an epistemic community with policy influence. Articles by Beach, Smeets and Schäffer (2019), and Coremans (2020) provide clear operationalization of what empirical fingerprints might be expected for each part of a policy process, and what inferences can be made based on finding/not finding them.

CASE SELECTION AND GENERALIZATION

Process tracing is a case study method focused on studying causal processes as they play out in real-world cases. The definition of a ‘case’ is therefore one instance of cause → process → outcome taking place. A population is therefore all other comparable instances of cause → process → outcome that have taken place. The size of the population depends on the level of theoretical abstraction of the process theory itself. If the process theory is a complex, unpacked process that includes case-specific details, the process theory is unique to the particular case. In contrast, very abstract ‘one-liner’ processes like ‘gaining access to the bureaucracy’ might be present in a large number of cases across time and space.

How does one select appropriate cases in process tracing? If we are interested in tracing a causal process linking a cause or set of causes and an outcome using the ‘empirical fingerprint’ approach, we logically want to trace it in cases where it could have been present, at least in theory. Trying to empirically trace a non-existent process in a negative case where we *a priori* knew it was not present because the cause that triggers it is not present cannot tell us anything about how the process works. On the other hand, if we are working with the ‘controlled comparison’ variants, we would select a positive (cause → process → outcome) and negative (cause → no process → ???) case in which there are no (or very few) differences between the cases other than the process being present/absent.

Selecting appropriate cases requires that we first map a set of cases by scoring them according to whether the cause (or set of causes) that is theorized to trigger a process and the outcome are present, along with contextual conditions that can potentially affect how the process works. Contextual conditions can be defined as any factor that could impact on how a process works. For example, whether a crisis involves economic or security threats to a country can impact how causal processes might play out. Critical for distinguishing between cases are the qualitative differences-in-kind in our theoretical concepts; differences that demarcate the presence or absence of causal and contextual conditions. For example, if we are studying how authorities respond to a natural disaster, we would be interested in cases in which a natural disaster was present (i.e., the cause is present).

In process tracing we distinguish between four different types of cases: 1) positive cases where the hypothesized cause, outcome and contextual conditions are all present – meaning a given process might plausibly be present; 2) deviant consistency cases, where the known

cause and contextual conditions are present but the outcome is not present; 3) deviant coverage cases, where the cause(s) is not present but the outcome is; and 4) irrelevant cases where neither the cause or outcome are present (Schneider and Rohlfing, 2013, 2016).

In process tracing, positive (i.e., typical) cases are used for building and testing theories about causal processes, whereas deviant consistency cases shed light on why a process did not work as expected, e.g., there was an omitted contextual condition that had to be present for the mechanism to work. When working with the ‘controlled comparison’ variants, comparisons between positive and deviant consistency cases can be relevant. While relevant for other methods, deviant coverage and irrelevant cases tell us nothing about the processes linking causes and outcomes, and therefore have limited use for process tracing.

If we then find a causal process operating in a positive case, we cannot automatically generalize to other cases. To make generalizations about causal processes, the analyst therefore needs to study whether similar processes are operative in other cases in the population of cases. This can proceed by selecting a second case that is very similar on contextual conditions with the initially selected, and then selecting more and more different cases to find the bounds within which the given process links the cause(s) and outcome together. Once we are confident about what is going on in positive cases, investigating deviant consistency cases is very important for developing better process-based explanations. Using an analogy, once we are certain about the mechanisms that enable airplanes to fly, we would want to investigate very closely any accidents to develop a better understanding of the contextual conditions under which planes can fly safely, for obvious reasons.

There are very few process tracing studies in the existing literature that discuss their case selection strategy. Instead, most studies select one or more positive cases (or a positive and a deviant consistency case) with little discussion of what the rest of the population is. However, a good exercise for students can be to ask them to take an existing process tracing case study (e.g., Löblöová, 2018) and discuss what the bounds of the potential population might be. Can it be expected to only work in the two countries analyzed in the article? What about other policy areas (e.g., social or educational policies)?

CONCLUSION – TEACHING PROCESS TRACING IS DIFFICULT BUT NOT IMPOSSIBLE

Process tracing is an increasingly popular method for studying public policy. Process tracing has advantages that include developing stronger causal explanations for how things actually work through theorization at the processual level, and the ability to make causal inferences about policy processes in real-world cases. At the same time, there is considerable confusion in the literature about what process tracing actually is and how to use it in practice.

This chapter attempted to cut through this confusion by describing the key divides in the literature on the theoretical and empirical levels, differentiating four distinct variants of process tracing (minimalist tracing within cases, tracing unpacked process theory, minimalist and step-by-step process comparisons). Practical suggestions were then put forward for how each of the core elements of process tracing can be taught, including: 1) what we are tracing at the theoretical level, 2) how we can trace it empirically, and 3) how we can select cases and make generalizations.

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17. Teaching qualitative interviewing for policy process studies

Sébastien Chailleux and Philippe Zittoun

INTRODUCTION: TEACHING INTERVIEWING SKILLS – BETWEEN CRAFT AND SCIENCE

Like other methods that combine rigor and craft, theory and practice, or knowledge and know-how, the qualitative interview is particularly difficult to teach. This is further complicated by the fact that many students believe interviewing to be relatively easy and assume that the theoretical and practical stakes are few. For example, confronting students with the classical methodological questions, for instance about the epistemological status of the interviewers' discourse collected during the interview, its bias, and the conditions under which this discourse may be viewed as research data, can lead to considerable astonishment and perplexity. Therefore, teaching interview skills is not only about supporting students to master the craft of asking questions, but also about helping them cultivate the reflexivity that prospective interviewers must develop before they can start asking questions.

A further challenge associated with teaching interview skills is linked to the plurality of interview types – from 'semi-structured,' to 'focused,' or 'open-ended' (Merton, 2008; Wildavsky, 1993) – as well as to the lack of shared or widely-accepted academic reference points on the matter. Moreover, the prominence of interviewing as a fixture of methods training varies considerably across regions with different policy research traditions and orientations. In the United States, for example, where the behavioralism and rational choice theory have significantly influenced political science, qualitative interviewing is relatively underused (Rathbun, 2008), and therefore featured far less systematically in both research and research training. By contrast, continental Europe has a much more pronounced tradition of qualitative research in political science and public policy, by virtue of heavy influences from qualitative sociology, including American sociology (Becker, 2008; Bourdieu, 2015; Dexter, 2006; Merton, 2008), an orientation that also pervades a great deal of research training.

Teachers of qualitative interview skills for policy studies may find insights and inspiration from an abundance of generalist social science methods' literature aimed at providing an overview of qualitative research design and data collection procedures (Flick, 2013; King, Horrocks, and Brooks, 2018; Brinkmann and Kvale, 2014; Harvey, 2010, 2011; Hesse-Biber & Leavy, 2010; Holstein and Gubrium, 1995; Mikecz, 2012; Morris, 2009; Odendahl and Shaw, 2002; Rice, 2010; Seidman, 2006; Turner, 2010). Such manuals, however, often do not address the specificities associated with qualitative interview as a specific method – this includes considerations such as the implications of interviewees' various social positions. Furthermore, the majority of studies on interviewing skills have focused on the 'pragmatics' and the 'practicalities' of interviewing (Rathbun, 2008), rather than on epistemological and ontological foundations.

In light of the centrality of this method in qualitative policy research, this chapter aims to raise two important questions to complement the existing manuals. The first question relates to the reasons why public policy students and scholars should conduct qualitative interviews and how this method fits in with the theoretical approach, paradigms, or concepts that structure the discipline. The second question relates to the tools used to teach qualitative interviewing skills. Specifically, the chapter explores how students may be helped to achieve the requisite reflexivity for successfully preparing and carrying out qualitative interviewing, as well what exercises might be devised to help them understand the type of data that they could collect depending on the different types of qualitative interviews.

This chapter particularly focuses on, and offers a general presentation of how to teach, the conduct of the qualitative interview. This method lays between the ‘pure *laissez-faire* of a non-directive interview’, and the ‘interventionism of the questionnaire’ (Bourdieu, 2015, p. 906). Under the umbrella of a single term, however, the qualitative or semi-structured interview actually covers multiple practices ranging from ‘conversations’ to ethnographic interviews, including ‘indescribable practices’ (Flick, von Kardoff, and Steinke, 2004; Mayer, 1995). While the insights that we present may be relevant to students in different types of fields, the qualitative interview we present here is primarily targeted to social science research, and therefore is highly congruent with studies of public policy. The chapter starts with a discussion about the social interaction that develops during qualitative interviews. It then stresses the importance of teaching epistemology to address the relationship between theory and empirical data. Finally, we propose the types of data that one may expect from qualitative interviews and the necessary reflexivity that is required from interviewers to enable them to adapt to the interview situation.

CONSIDERING THE INTERVIEWEE’S STATEMENT AS DISCOURSE PRODUCED IN INTERACTION

To understand what to expect from the discourses produced during the interviewing process, the lecturer can highlight three important characteristics that must be considered, based on the linguistic turn in social sciences (Rorty, 2013; Wagner, 2003; Fischer and Gottweis, 2012).

First, language is a deforming filter of reality. While all ideas rely on language to describe reality, an interviewer only accesses an interviewee’s thoughts through their own words and formulations. To illustrate this idea, one can prompt a discussion with students about Habermas’s (1999, p.181) suggestion that ‘Language and reality are inextricably permeable one for another’, which means that one cannot access an interviewee’s thoughts without passing through their language and their own formulation. The interviewee’s discourse is far from neutral and transparent and contains bias influencing the reality described. An interviewer analyzing the discourse of an interviewee has access to a reality described through the interviewee’s words, which act as a personal filter that cannot be done away with.

Second, the interview situation shapes the production of meaning. Wittgenstein (2014) suggests that one must take into account the subjective meaning of discourse and understand that what an interviewee says is always dependent on who, when, and where they speak. In other words, the same interview conducted at two different moments or by two different interviewers can produce two different discourses. This is a very significant bias, which shows the extent to which the formulation of questions and the manner in which an interview is con-

ducted can shape the content of responses. Given that a qualitative interview may be considered as a guided conversation (Warren, 2002), there is no doubt that an interviewee's discourse is shaped by the interaction itself (Beaud, 1996). This transforms the interview process into an artificial production of discourse whereby content is shaped first by the interview questions and by the situation. To illustrate this characteristic, the lecturer can encourage debate on how asking for somebody's opinion on a specific issue can also lead to the creation of an opinion, illustrating this by comparing different questions trying to elicit the same information, for instance.

Third, interviewers and interviewees build their identity and gain mutual acknowledgement through discourse. As Mead (2006) argues, identity is also shaped during interactions, and this may provoke bias if, for example, the interviewee considers that they are being judged. The main idea here is to discuss how the researcher who asks questions shapes the interviewee's position and can introduce bias into their answer. Interviewees tend to justify their behavior and they can give 'acceptable' reasons that they believe that the interviewer expects. The lecturer should stress how the interview situation may be perceived differently by different actors. In other words, they must highlight how the interview situation shapes the identities of both the interviewer and the interviewee.

BOX 17.1 EXERCISE 1: QUESTIONING THE STATUS OF THE INTERVIEWEE'S DISCOURSE

The first question that an interviewing course must address is what an interview is good for, and therefore why we might want to carry one out. This essentially speaks to the nature of the interviewee's statement as a form of data – what do we believe this sort of information might reveal? The lecturer can elicit reflection about this by asking several simple and classical questions, such as: 'Why do you want to conduct an interview?', or 'What kind of data would you like to collect?' It is important to avoid ready-made answers and to allow debate to take place. The more obvious the question, the more difficult the answer. This is why the lecturer should continue to stimulate debate by triggering reactions between different possible responses, such as 'collecting an opinion on a specific topic', 'collecting the value or the preference or the idea of the interviewee', 'collecting reasons', 'collecting analyses', etc. From students' responses, the lecturer should then draw up a list of the various data that the students expect to collect and ask the latter whether these can be considered as scientific data. The lecturer can use questions such as: 'What is the scientific value of the reasons explaining why someone did something?' or 'What is the scientific value of their personal views?' These types of questions can spark considerable discussion within groups and can enable the lecturer to address the epistemological status of the interviewee's response. These questions' main purpose is to highlight the fact that an interviewee's response must be considered as a specific production of discourse during a special context of interaction between an interviewer and an interviewee. The lecturer needs to encourage students to reflect on the status that they give to discourse and on the influence of the contextual situation of production of this discourse.

TEACHING EPISTEMOLOGY: QUESTIONING THE RELATIONSHIP BETWEEN THEORY AND DATA

Students have to be confronted with the epistemological status and scientific value that they give to interviews in their own research. Hidden behind the practical techniques and tips that they are often taught, there remains a key aspect related to students' own reflexivity regarding their motivations for collecting actors' discourses through interviews. Reflexivity is a growing concern for students and scholars, as several teaching handbooks have shown (Hsiung, 2008; Flick, 2013; King, Horrocks, and Brooks, 2018; Brinkmann and Kvale, 2014). Reflexivity provides an opportunity to identify and avoid common biases such as those linked to social classes and gender. While these elements are undoubtedly important in the realization of qualitative interviews, we wish to go beyond the question of practitioners and to undertake an in-depth analysis of the relationship between theory and methodology.

The qualitative interview is a method used to collect empirical data and evidence during an inquiry in order to respond to a specific research question. Researchers who use the qualitative interview must question the type of empirical data that they seek to obtain when they undertake this type of interview. They must also identify how the empirical data obtained through this interview may be transformed into evidence to support certain assumptions and to solve research questions. While the various types of interview have their own epistemological perspectives, the qualitative interview that we address here has a close relationship with qualitative research approaches which study micro-phenomena.

While closed and structured interviews suppose that each individual is the same and therefore can and must be questioned using the same questions and pre-determined responses, a qualitative interview in social sciences perceives each individual as interesting from a personal perspective. This means that interviewers consider individuals' own discourse, meaning, reflexivity, strategy, and their margin of discretion. Consequently, the qualitative interview is not fully compatible with the perspectives which consider that individuals' rationality is essentially objective and objectifiable (e.g., rational choice theory), or that causes, constraints, or institutions are imposed on individuals who do not have sufficient leeway (e.g., structuralist or functionalist perspectives). To ensure epistemological coherence, this qualitative perspective must be similar for both the methodology and the theoretical approach. The qualitative method corresponds to a perspective which considers that each social or political phenomenon is contextually unique and contingent and must be grasped in its particularity; that each individual behaves in a specific manner depending on the situation and on the interaction with others; and that each individual has their own dynamic and their own explanation. It is particularly compatible with interactionism, pragmatism, and with constructivism.

Furthermore, the qualitative interview helps to identify and describe each empirical situation and is primarily associated with evidence for micro-policy sciences perspectives. A qualitative interview contributes to reconstituting the policy process in detail by focusing on concrete interactions, activities, and meetings that policymakers had. This does not mean that a researcher who wants to adopt a meso or a macro perspective cannot use a qualitative interview, but rather that they cannot use the qualitative interview to produce the primary evidence they require from this perspective. A qualitative interview targets micro-level phenomena with their own dynamic. Following the witness posture, the goal of the interviewer is to understand the multiple subjective meanings of a situation.

THE THREE POSTURES OF THE INTERVIEWEE

To illustrate these characteristics, the lecturer can develop different ‘postures’ toward which the interviewer pushes the interviewee via their questioning, and shows how these may be managed.

The Analyst Posture

During the interview, when interviewers ask ‘why’, they tend to place interviewees in the position of an analyst who must find a ‘good’ explanation of a situation or a policy decision. Interviewees thus attempt to justify or explain why something happened in one way rather than in another, and suggest ‘reasons’, comparisons, or alternatives. Placed in this analyst posture, interviewees also may speak in the name of collective actors, such as ‘my administration’, ‘the state’, or ‘we’, and generalize their actions by speaking about general activities.

The lecturer can use several examples to underline the difficulties of this type of interview where the discourses do not correspond to interviewees’ direct experiences, but to their analyses of a specific situation. Rather than question whether an analysis is true or false, it is important to understand that it is impossible to determine whether or not this analysis is shaped for and by the interview. This does not mean that the interviewee has a weak capacity for analysis or that this capacity must be neglected; rather, it means only that it is impossible to know whether the given reasons were produced simply for the interview which took place right after the decision had been made. One way to depart from this analyst posture is to focus on the ‘how’. Asking ‘how’ – for example ‘how was this decision reached?’ – encourages interviewees to narrow down the reasons behind a specific context, the constraints, and the people involved.

For example, if the interviewer asks ‘Why has the government taken this decision or made this choice?’, the interviewer is likely to automatically strive to provide a ‘good’ reason used to justify the governmental decision. For instance, if the interviewer asks why President John F. Kennedy’s government chose the blockade in response to the Cuban missile crisis, the interviewee can give a lot of good reasons to justify how this blockade was the ‘best’ choice for a government. Ultimately, this justification does little to describe the complexity of the decision-making process.

The Mentalist Posture

During an interview, when interviewers ask about immaterial discursive dimensions, such as interviewees ‘thoughts’, ‘values’, ‘preferences’, ‘representations’, or ‘interests’, they place the latter in a mentalist posture. The interviewee has to explain their personal motivation through self-analysis. To render this more tangible, the lecturer can promote a discussion around two main biases associated with this posture. First, it is hardly feasible to collect personal ‘thoughts’ about a specific moment and to describe their evolution. Indeed, while interviewees may have many opinions about a certain issue, there is no way to associate these personal thoughts with chronological markers that may allow them to distinguish their thoughts on one day from their thoughts on a different day. Second, thinking is immaterial and self-analysis is biased. Foucault (1971) suggests that behind discourse lies nothing more than discourse and proposes that one must distinguish the repetition process, which has its own materiality, from

the idea that a representation hidden behind discourse is structuring that discourse. Contrary to a specific discursive interaction which has materiality and a chronological marker (e.g., a specific meeting between policymakers), the self-analysis of motivations is biased because the interviewer has no way to assess whether interviewees' motivations are not artificial or self-justified *ex post*.

For example, if the interviewer asks the decision-maker to describe his values or his preferences, they obtain only a fixed and clear sense of values or preferences that the interviewee wants to formulate during the interview. Careful consideration must be paid to how expressions of values and preferences are used to help us understand the policymaking process. For example, when we investigated the decision-making process about shale gas in France (Zittoun and Chailleux, 2022), decision-makers changed their positions several times during the process. Asking about their values, preferences, or thoughts in the context of interviews produced only an artificially fixed result which did not offer any stable understanding of the policy process.

The Witness Posture

During an interview, when researchers ask interviewees to describe a situation that they have experienced, the latter adopt the witness posture. They are often asked to describe a situation with a date, a location, a list of participants involved in the interaction, or to provide other such details. This may relate to an official or non-official meeting, a simple discussion, a dinner, an exchange of emails, and so on. The key advantage of this posture is that it makes it possible to grasp interviewees' arguments and analyses as they produce them. The witness posture helps to open the black box of the policy process by enabling researchers to reconstitute key interactions. In this case, the language that interviewees use helps to describe and to reproduce previous words, sentences, arguments, or disputes specifically (Zittoun, 2014). To help develop this posture, the interviewer must prepare a precise chronology of events before the interview, as well as questions about factual events following the chronological order.

Compared with the first two postures, the third one considerably reduces interview bias without eliminating it completely. It supposes that interviewees remember the discursive interactions in which they were involved and do not just simply reduce them to mere conclusions. The precision of what they remember is influenced by forgotten details and by poor memory. This witness posture, which roughly corresponds to a specific type of ethnographic interview (Spradley, 2016), must also address several context-specific issues. While the witness posture is helpful for reconstituting certain types of events – particularly those that are noteworthy, like meetings that were out of the ordinary, specific in some way, or the site of memorable disagreement – it is less adapted to describing events characterized by routine, repetition, or unconscious know-how. In such a case, it is highly recommended to associate interviews with observations.

BOX 17.2 EXERCISE 2: CONDUCTING A BIOGRAPHIC INTERVIEW

Teaching interviewing skills must encompass collective simulations to help the students to understand the different types of data that they can obtain from actual interviews and

to clarify the different postures. In order to underline how one's practices and discourses influence the type of data collected during an interaction, students can be asked to interview each other. This exercise targets relatively small groups of students (max. 20). The interview's objective is to understand why another student is pursuing a bachelor's/master's/Ph.D. degree. This exercise should aim to illustrate all three of the interviewee's postures as well as the types of questions that lead to these postures. After an introduction about the role of discourse in interactions such as interviews, students interview each other for 30–45 minutes and are allowed to move from one student to another. They then share what they believe to be the reasons why their fellow students are pursuing the same program as themselves. Some students may have been interviewed more than once, so there can be different answers for the same individual. The lecturer can note down the different reasons on the board.

When all the students have expressed the reasons that they have collected, the lecturer can ask about the similarities. Three main categories should emerge, reflecting the three postures of interviewees. Reasons such as 'the quality of the program', 'this is a way toward X job', 'my parents wanted it' can be classified under the category 'good reasons'. They represent the explanations one gives when placed in the analyst posture. Reasons such as 'the need to experience student life', 'the need to finish my studies before working', or 'the desire to make more money after graduating' fall under the category 'internal thoughts'. They represent the explanations one gives when placed in the mentalist posture.

These two postures are generally the first ones put forward by students. This is because it is often easier to ask and answer questions pertaining to 'why' they chose the program. To help students better grasp the witness posture, the teacher needs to encourage students to move beyond the question 'why?' and grapple instead with the question 'how?' – i.e., how did they come to choose this program? This can prompt interviewees to reconstitute the program selection process beginning with the moment the interviewee discovered the program and push them to narrow down from this moment all the steps they took in the process of making the decision. The challenge is to encourage the reconstruction of the sequence of events and discussions that surrounded the choice process, including doubts, change of hearts, hesitations, and the consideration of other alternatives. In this sequence, explanations emerge differently than with the two other postures.

Through this exercise, students learn how their own posture, and the formulation of the questions, orient the type of answers that they obtain. The exercise sheds light on the necessary reflexivity of qualitative interviewing. Students are made aware of their own practices and of the type of biases that these could provoke in relation to data collection and analysis.

COLLECTING EMPIRICAL DATA AT THE MICRO LEVEL

Helping students to understand how to create epistemological coherence between their research question, the theoretical framework, and their methodology is essential. Prior to the interview, students must reflect on the data that they seek to collect and on how these data may help them to respond to the research questions that they have either set themselves or that may emerge from the data. The goal of this section is to present four types of data that can be

collected through the qualitative interview and to teach students to reflect on what they seek to collect when they endeavor to conduct qualitative interviewing.

Biographical Data

The first type of empirical data includes information such as interviewees' personal data about their careers, educational qualifications, or social situations, and they help to shape the sociological profile of the interviewee and to provide evidence that may be linked to this social profile. This empirical data allows the researcher to reconstruct the biography of the interviewee. The biographic interview is always interesting and may help to identify the common points between different actors, for instance, those from the same university or with the same career. In this type of interview, the main questions must be organized chronologically to encourage interviewees to provide a step-by-step description of their career, beginning with their university education. The student learns that, while personal and social data may be retrieved from questionnaires or structured interviews, collecting them from qualitative interviews can help the interviewer obtain information on respondents' career pathways.

Chronological Data

Second, the qualitative interview may provide chronological information about the multiple micro-interactions and the multiple spaces of debate where these interactions take place within the administration. These spaces of debate are rarely public, and one cannot find them in newspapers or in any other documents. This type of empirical data is known only by the few actors who participated in each discussion.

First, all these interactions must be collected to map these multiple spaces of debate and to shape a micro-chronology where a project or an activity is discussed to gain a better understanding of the chronological chaining of debates and disputes. This chronology is essential to grasp how a project circulates across different departments and interactions. While all these elements must be confirmed using other elements such as media interviews, reports, and written documents, to name a few, their use does not pose any problem. Quoting from an interview may be used as the evidence of existing events. Beyond the identification of particular and discrete events and interactions, chronological information also gives the researcher access to the description of these events. However, there are numerous interactions during a meeting, and how interviewees describe a situation depends on their own selection and understanding of the events that occurred. This refers to one's subjective understanding of the meeting, but the interaction may also influence actors' behavior. Therefore, it is particularly interesting to interview different participants, for instance, both those who lose and win a negotiation. Grasping the different meanings and stories of a meeting enables triangulation and also helps to produce some evidence about the dynamics of the process, for instance, by understanding the rules of the discussion, the regime of debate, the mapping of actors' asymmetric positions, the regulation mechanisms, and so on. As Howard Becker (2008) and the process-tracing tradition suggest, this type of interview is also very useful for reconstituting events as well as in corroborating some written sources and chains of events (see also Tansey, 2007). Of interest here is to identify when interviewees were first concerned by the issue, as this acts as some form of historical cursor when an interview begins, and to ask them to narrow down to all the key moments during which the issue was discussed and to identify the where, when, and how.

This interviewer must use a precise chronology to support the chronological questions and to help to improve interviewees' memories.

Discursive Data

The third type of empirical data concerns the statements supported by interviewees or the arguments that they use. While this statement is time-specific and produced only during the interview, it is difficult to use it as evidence without casting doubt on how it was made and how it was influenced by the interview. In order to limit this bias, the interviewer should narrow down the questions to statements temporarily situated in a specific space of debate to help the interviewee to refer to an argument used in a specific context. It is particularly useful because it can help the interviewer to better understand interviewees' concrete discursive activities and intentions. The words used during an interview may be quoted to provide evidence about how actors defined a situation, a problem, or a solution during the process.

The interview can help to understand the definitional activities about the problem and the formulation of the solution. The main idea is to understand all the activities which have contributed to help policymakers to develop their own definition of a problem including the discussion they have with experts, the data they collect, the struggles they assisted with. Where there is a written document like a report, a letter, or a text of law, the main questions will be who has written it, when, how, and how many versions there are. For example, in our inquiry about a shale gas decision-making process, we studied how some actors had built their own definition of shale gas by reconstituting with whom they discussed, what they read, what meetings they attended. In the text of law, we observed the multiple versions of the four articles to understand who wrote them, when each modification took place, after what event, etc.

The interview can also help provide an understanding of argumentation by identifying the multiple arenas where actors exchanged, either convincing or challenging each other. In the policy process, there are always multiple struggles between different departments, ministers, experts, interest groups, and they all try to convince each other. As suggested by Majone (1989), argument is everywhere in the policy process. The interview can help to identify the multiple arguments and their owners, and to observe what arguments prevail or have an impact by imposing a problem or a solution during the policy process.

Organizational Data

The fourth type of information involves understanding how an organization works. There are three different streams of data. First, data can target the description of organizational routines. This involves understanding how practitioners describe their day-to-day activities. Completing the ethnographic observation with a 'thick description' (Geertz, 1973), the ethnographic interview allows for a better understanding of the description, the meaning, and the views provided by the practitioners themselves (Rhodes, 2011). The objective of this type of interview is to ask interviewees to explain what dossiers they have managed, how they managed them concretely, the steps, resources, and norms that they mobilized, the meetings they attended, and so on. The main challenge of this type of interview is to avoid generalized descriptions that are repetitive and that tend to do away with all differences. Once again, questioning about a specific case may help the researcher to obtain more precise data.

Second, data can target the division of work ‘in action’ within the administration, in each office, in the management of each dossier, and in how issues are coordinated. The organizational interview may be supported by organizational studies, which make it possible to understand that coordination within an office, or between different offices or departments, is always a source of conflict and power struggles in bureaucracies and organizations (Crozier and Friedberg, 1977). The collected data helps the researcher to compare the theoretical system of coordination of an organization with the actual tension between actors appearing during the concrete action. The data reveals interdependence and dysfunction where the theory pre-supposes coordination (Blau, 1956; Merton, 1949, 1952). The objective of the interview is to encourage interviewees to describe the tension and to reduce the dispute ‘in action’, which generally takes place in the multiple hidden spaces of debate within the organization. The main challenge with this type of interview is encouraging the interviewees to speak about the ‘internal goings-on’ that some may be uncomfortable reckoning with or revealing. Rather than seek to reduce the disputes across departments, this type of interview seeks to reduce the trajectory of a specific dossier involving different departments in order to explain the multiple internal meetings, their content, and the criticisms raised.

Third, data can target the identification of networks and coalitions. The networking interview is expected to identify all the actors with whom interviewees work and discuss ideas. The objective of this interview is to collect a list of names and positions, and also to gain a better understanding of the frequency and nature of their interactions. This means that questions must focus not only on who the interviewees work with but also on identifying the frequency and the types of collaborations used. Concepts such as ‘network’ or ‘coalition’ are still relatively vague, meaning that they do not correspond to an empirical materiality in which all actors play together at the same time and in the same location, as in a soccer team. They tend to focus on a homogeneous group of actors in which actors may collaborate on a specific situation but still oppose one another. Using chronological description may help the researchers to assess the variations within a coalition.

The qualitative interview makes it possible to go beyond the fiction presented around the administration, the decisions, and the activities in order to understand these in ‘action’ or ‘in practice’. This means that the qualitative interview is used first to observe and understand the activities of each actor. This provides access to the empirical and subjective reality of a process through the eyes of each actor; a reality that is generally not written down anywhere.

BOX 17.3 EXERCISE 3: THE FOUR TYPES OF DATA ONE CAN COLLECT DURING AN INTERVIEW

The lecturer proposes an exercise based on samples from qualitative interview transcripts. The data used can be retrieved from that previously generated by students (including that generated as part of Exercise 4 examples, see Box 17.4 below) or from his or her own archives. Data is anonymized. Drawing on a policy studies approach, transcripts are obtained from interviews targeting decision-making processes. While a wide range of actors may be involved in the process, the goals of the interviews used in this exercise must include explaining and understanding the policy process.

The lecturer asks the students to sort out the various types of data in the interviews. Different transcripts can be used to illustrate the link between the postures of interviewees

and the types of data that they are able to collect. Transcripts should be short enough for the students to explore the document in fewer than 30 minutes (or can be longer if the classroom is flipped and students can read it ahead of class). Students can then share the types of data they identified in their transcripts and the lecturer can note the responses on the board. From this exercise, four broad types of data can be highlighted. While the list may not be exhaustive, it can illustrate how qualitative interviews can be used. Some data, such as interviewees' personal data and networks, may be collected from structured interviews. The lecturer should insist on the relationship between the type of data and the research question, but also on the relationship between the formulation of questions and the data collected.

TEACHING REFLEXIVITY: THE FOUR TYPES OF INTERVIEWEES

As Bourdieu (2015, p. 904) stated, a qualitative interview is a social relationship that influences results in its own way. It forces two people to accept a specific role, one becoming the interviewer and the other the interviewee. By asking questions, the interviewer adopts a social role and attempts to force the individual to become an 'interviewee' by responding to a question, putting thoughts into words, and producing statements. This type of social relationship produces many distortions which must be examined by considering four types of classical social roles that generate different types of bias. Students need to be aware of these ideal-typical cases in order to adapt their own social roles depending on their interlocutor.

Interviewing Elites

Elites have a unique role as leaders and are key actors that stand apart. They are of specific interest for policy researchers as they have a specific role in the policy process. This may be the case when interviewing a director of a public department who has a unique position in the administration and who plays a specific role in the policymaking process. The interviewee thus occupies an important social position, and the relationship is partially dependent on the symbolic social position of the researcher as well as on whether the interviewer is a Ph.D. student, a junior researcher, or a senior researcher. The social relationship therefore appears to be asymmetric in favor of the interviewee who may tend to 'explain' and to adopt the posture of analyst. From our experience, far from eliminating this social distance by organizing a discussion between equals, the interviewer needs to reinforce the distance by emphasizing the importance of the interviewee, asking brief questions, being attentive, and listening empathetically to their interlocutor, producing regular non-verbal endorsements, giving importance to the interviewee's words by taking notes, and so on. Enabling the interviewee to assert dominance over the social interaction tends to reduce auto-censure from them and also provides the interviewer with more valuable data.

Interviewing Experts

While experts do not occupy a leadership position, they nevertheless play an important role in their field. In this case, the social relationship seems less asymmetric, but it may prove difficult to organize the classical distribution of position because the interviewee may tend

to change roles and may become the interviewer. Paradoxically, an interviewee who refuses to take their role seriously poses one of the most difficult situations that an interviewer may encounter. Social roles must be distributed by differentiating the interviewer from the interviewee: interviewers must introduce themselves and ask only brief questions without giving lengthy explanations. To facilitate the interviewee's speech, interviewers must play their role by adopting the attitude of someone in charge of the question raised and by showing interviewees that it is their role to respond. To prevent bias, the interviewer may emphasize the need for the interviewee to provide precise dates and to avoid discourse that cannot be placed within a specific timeframe. The main idea is to push the interviewee to make specific analyses or arguments that they used in a specific situation associated with the problem studied. Focusing on the working meeting is particularly interesting, because it is during these meetings that interviewees present their work and expose themselves to criticism and disputes. It is also very interesting to encourage experts to give a detailed account of how they collected their data, explained their doubts, or became aware of their change of position.

Interviewing Mid-Level Civil Servants

Mid-level civil servants are leaders on a smaller scale, such as the head of an office or department. Having to perform this type of interview is very frequent in both policy and implementation studies. Contrary to the two previous cases, the asymmetric position here may become somewhat inversed and the interviewee may consider that speaking to a researcher also means being judged by them. A major difficulty is that speaking to researchers about their activities, and particularly about their difficulties, may be perceived as a problem, and this may lead to a more controlled position than during an elite interview. Interviewers need to develop different kinds of techniques to show interviewees that they are valued, for instance, by showing empathy and by encouraging them to speak.

Interviewing Street-Level Bureaucrats

Street-level bureaucrats hold a more executive position. This is the most frequent case in implementation studies. The first major difficulty stems from the asymmetric position of interviewees who may fear being judged and disqualified by their words. Interviewees' discourse may be affected by the type of symbolic violence (Bourdieu, 2015) imposed by an unbalanced social relationship and by the interviewer's expectations. Even the very act of responding may be perceived as some form of social control in this case, meaning that there is an enhanced possibility of significant bias. The second difficulty concerns having to describe routine activities and one's know-how, using words to define an activity which is not necessarily easy to put into words. For instance, it is easier to describe a meeting during which there are arguments than to explain the processing of user applications which supposes a know-how that may be difficult to verbalize. Although interviewers can develop different techniques to reduce the social distance, they can never completely eliminate it.

These classical roles are somewhat 'ideal-types' and clearly do not sufficiently consider all the other situations that may provoke a disequilibrium between the interviewer and the interviewee. For example, the gender dimension can create an unbalanced social relationship, specifically in cases involving women interviewing men (Arendell, 1997; Warren, 2002). This may also be the case for other differences such as age, religion, ethnicity, or other types of

minoritized status that may be interpreted as social differences and may lead to considerable difficulties during an interview (Edwards, 1990).

BOX 17.4 EXERCISE 4: LEARNING TO ADAPT TO YOUR INTERVIEWEE

The fourth exercise is fieldwork. Students, as well as scholars, usually participate in methodology courses while conducting research. Masters' students may be expected to produce a master's thesis that includes interviews or sociological studies. Students should therefore be able to do fieldwork for their own research. In other cases, students can organize interviews around a topic discussed with the lecturer. The goal is to practice reflexivity with regard to the social interactions with interviewees. The student must learn to adapt to their interviewees depending on their social status as well as on their own status. Analyzing the interviews they conducted, students must list situations where the social position of their interviewee may have biased or oriented the formulation of both the question and the answer. Two types of situations emerge: the first concerns cases where the interviewer anticipates how the interview could unfold and corrects their behavior and discourse accordingly; the second concerns cases where they do not, leading to consequences with regard to interviewees' reactions. After individual analysis, students share their experience during class. The lecturer organizes the discussion and presents the four classical social roles and their associated biases. There are two available options: the lecturer can present the various roles, ask students to conduct interviews, and then dedicate a lecture on the feedback; or the lecturer can first ask the students to conduct interviews and then present the social roles and their biases.

CONCLUSION

All too often, the qualitative interview is used without any epistemological reflexivity. Teaching interview skills for research aimed at understanding the policy process must change the students' views about what organizing and preparing an interview really means. It must show the importance of bias generated by the questions, by the interviewee, and by the relationship between interviewers and interviewees. At the end of the course, which alternates between debates, questions, and exercises, students should have learned how to pay close attention to all the filters and biases that may disfigure these interviews. This could include the type of questions that the interviewer asks, the discourse produced to respond to the interviewer, the social interactions between interviewers and interviewees, and the conditions of the interview, among other factors.

The course also needs to highlight how this unique method makes it possible to obtain, through an interviewee's discourse, access to empirical situations related to the policy process that the researcher cannot observe elsewhere. Beyond all these difficulties, the qualitative interview may help to provide access to the empirical reality of those hidden arenas of interactions where public policy is drawn up, where problems are defined, solutions are formulated, and decisions are made. More generally, revaluing interview research, and the skills that

underpin it, in public policy teaching would help us better equip students to study and understand the issues that interest them. Indeed, interviewing is one of the only methods capable of providing insights into the multiple disputes and conflicts at the micro level, which are common in the everyday activities of all policymakers, and helping us understand how they contribute to policymaking.

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PART IV

TEACHING ANALYTICAL TOOLS FOR PUBLIC POLICY

18. ‘Learning how to learn’: Teaching policy analysis from the perspective of the ‘new policy sciences’

Emily St.Denny and Paul Cairney

INTRODUCTION

When we teach public policy we focus on both what to learn and how to learn. Ideally, we want to support students to not just memorize information but to become adaptable lifelong learners and reflexive practitioners. ‘Learning how to learn’ involves developing greater knowledge of public policy by developing analytical skills that can be used to understand and use knowledge. Such learning can relate to the ‘basic science’ of public policy or to the ‘applied science’ of policy analysis. In the former, we focus on using policy models, concepts, theories, and frameworks to understand policymaking dynamics, from the actions of individual policymakers to the overall patterns of policymaking in complex systems. In the latter, we apply our knowledge of the policy process to identify a policy problem and possible solutions, generally with a particular policy-facing audience in mind. Moreover, when it comes to helping students develop policy problem-solving skills, an ideal world would be one with a high degree of overlap between scientific policy research and practical policy analysis. Instead, however, students often learn quickly that there is a gap between theory-driven studies of the policy process and more hands-on analysis of how people should act within that process to identify problems and solutions.

As a result, theory-informed policy process teaching is often (but not always) taught separately from practically oriented policy analysis. Consequently, this chapter seeks to highlight the distinct value of bringing both of these orientations back to bear on each other. Specifically, the ‘new policy sciences’ – a recent effort to reintegrate policy theory and policy analysis (cf. Cairney and Weible, 2017) – offer opportunities to rethink what and how we teach. Drawing inspiration from this approach, one aim of this chapter is therefore to support a teaching practice that, in addition to helping students learn the practical ‘nuts and bolts’ of how to ‘do’ policy analysis, fosters a wider understanding of policy processes and a critical capacity to reflect on the politics of policymaking in order to intervene in it more effectively. We argue that teaching students theoretical and conceptual insights from the policy sciences, and supporting them to then reflect on the implications they have for policy analysis allows them to strengthen their ability to develop problem-solving knowledge that stands the test of a range of relevant criteria including technical and political feasibility and more normative dimensions of desirability. We believe that the main advantage to this approach, compared to teaching approaches that only focus on the practical ‘how to’ of analysis, is that a theory-informed approach can produce students able to make and present pragmatic recommendations (i.e., recommendations not untethered from reality) and who are able to explain or anticipate what costs and trade-offs are involved and what might go wrong. The aim is not to make students

give up on presenting anything but tentative and modest recommendations. Rather, it is to encourage them to engage in ambitious policy analysis with their eyes open.

Our reflections derive from our plural experience of teaching policy analysis. Both of us have experience of teaching policy analysis to social science university students across different levels (undergraduate, postgraduate, and PhD) and backgrounds (our students typically study for single or joint degrees in politics/political science, history, sociology, communications/public relations, marketing, etc.). We also have experience of teaching short policy analysis courses to practitioners without prior formal training in policy studies but whose jobs bring them to work on policy-related or policy-facing issues. We have primarily taught in European countries, including the devolved UK, France, and Denmark. One other thing we have in common, however, is that neither of us has ever been responsible for delivering an entire program of study dedicated to policy analysis as those that might exist, in particular, in North American ‘policy schools’. Instead, most of our policy analysis teaching (especially with respect to our university-based practice) is embedded into a wider public policy curriculum. Our courses generally have titles like ‘Comparative Public Policy’, ‘Policymaking in the United Kingdom’, or ‘The Politics of Policymaking’, to name a few, through which we weave and embed policy analysis content and skills acquisition. Some of the arguments we make therefore reflect the audiences, programs, and regions that have defined our practice to date. We nevertheless believe that our general enjoinder to (1) problematize policy analysis as a (set of) practice(s), (2) find ways to overcome the false duality between policy theory and practice, and (3) develop curricula that support students to ‘learn how to learn’, may be helpful to anybody wishing to develop a more reflexive policy analysis teaching practice.

The chapter subsequently unfolds in three parts to reflect these objectives. First, it historicizes policy analysis – and policy analysis teaching – as a practice, illuminating the origins and strong legacies that shape teaching and learning experiences and expectations in this area, against and among which teachers are always positioning themselves. It supports practitioners to reflect on the ‘what’ and the ‘why’ of teaching policy analysis, before thirdly setting out some practical suggestions on ‘how’ we might improve pedagogical practice in this area.

WHAT IS POLICY ANALYSIS?

What ‘policy analysis’ means is less intuitive than one might think, even among public policy scholars. For some, policy analysis refers to any form of study – from theory-informed empirical policy research to practically oriented policy problem-solving – that simply involves analyzing (that is studying in some detail) any aspect of policy. Some academic policy researchers therefore refer to everything that they do as ‘policy analysis’. More than just the expression of individual interpretations of what ‘analysis’ means and refers to, the disciplinary use of the term ‘policy analysis’ also reflects regional and linguistic patterns (see Part VI of this volume). For example, ‘public policy studies’ has historically been translated as *‘analyse des politiques publiques’* in French (literally ‘public policy analysis’). By contrast, a sharper distinction between the two terms tends to be operated in North America, where a stronger division of labour exists between policy ‘schools’ dedicated to training policy analysts, and the training of academic policy researchers, usually within social science departments – chiefly political science ones.

We nevertheless believe it is useful to conceptually distinguish policy analysis from other kinds of policy research, even when talking about practices belonging to regions or traditions where the disciplinary vocabulary does not recognize this distinction, and even if – as we argue later in the chapter – the boundaries between the two often quickly dissipate in practice. Indeed, contrasting ‘policy analysis’ from something else that we might call ‘(theory informed) policy research’ is useful primarily because it allows us to describe a range of practices and their underpinning motivations, beliefs, and assumption that, no matter how analogous or compatible they appear, have historically developed quite independently from one another (see Chapter 1 in this volume). Consequently, in this chapter, when we refer to policy analysis, we refer to ‘the identification of a policy problem and possible solutions’ (Cairney, 2021: 3). This definition implicitly contrasts policy analysis to other possible forms of process-oriented policy research that may not be directed towards applied policy problem-solving.

Considered this way, the teaching of policy analysis can appear relatively straightforward: there is now a large number of texts that provide ways to make policy analysis systematic (e.g., Mintrom, 2012; Weimer and Vining, 2017; Dunn, 2018; Meltzer and Schwartz, 2019; Bardach and Patashnik, 2020), and one way to approach teaching is to simply pick one of these guides (or synthesize the lessons from several) and instruct students on how to carry out the prescribed procedures. Broadly, all these texts present policy analysis as having three main aims: (1) to identify and define a problem, (2) link this problem to feasible solutions in (3) a persuasive manner. Teaching policy analysis in this way therefore involves supporting students to learn and refine a number of analytical, synthesizing, and communication skills. Analysis and synthesis skills required to carry out policy analysis include: problem identification and definition; selection of appropriate evidence on the problem and possible solutions; selection of appropriate evaluation criteria to assess alternatives across at least two dimensions, namely technical feasibility and political acceptability; and extrapolation from evidence to predict likely outcomes of alternatives. Communication and rhetorical techniques required concern the ability to be concise and compelling in the presentation of this information, and to be able to tailor this to a range of written and oral formats (e.g., policy briefs, blog posts, and presentations) for different audiences (e.g., civil servants, MPs, ministers, etc.).

However, stopping at this skills-based approach to teaching and learning policy analysis is problematic and short-sighted (e.g., Fukuyama, 2018). There are major gaps or trade-offs in the ways that typical ‘how to’ texts explain policy analysis (Cairney, 2021), with knock-on implications for how we teach it. Two challenges stand out in particular. Firstly, many practical guides present the goal of policy analysis as relatively singular and coherent: identify a problem and communicate a simple story about how to solve it to actors with the power to do something about it. However, if we place this representation in broader context in the classroom by, for example, putting the contents of these guides in dialogue with other bodies of scholarship in public policy, political science, and other related social science disciplines, this illusion of simplicity quickly disappears. Instead, policy analysis appears to refer to a broad collection of practices, with different and at times competing objectives, taking place in a policy process that is inherently political and contested, and involves a dizzying plurality of actors. Furthermore, students can be supported to concretely grasp the fuzzy and changeable boundaries of policy analysis as a concrete practice by being introduced to studies of policy analysts (e.g., Radin, 2019; Brans, Geva-May, and Howlett, 2017; Thissen and Walker, 2013; Geva-May, 2005; Kohoutek, Nekola, and Veselý, 2018). These studies provide empirical evidence suggesting that, as a professional practice, policy analysis has changed over time, takes

different forms across different sectors and geographical regions, and has grown as a sector to include new professional configurations and standards. Moreover, while some guides hint at the importance of understanding policy process theories, they do not provide sufficient acknowledgement of the implications of these insights to policy analysis. Put simply, it is customary to describe policy analysis as a fairly rational and technical exercise, through a series of steps, even if the authors highlight some time pressures, political constraints, and the need to treat clients as the main audience. These constraints tend to relate to the ability to complete your own work, rather than the constraints in policymaking systems that, for all intents and purposes, place severe limits on the ways in which anyone will seek to understand problems, and the technical and political feasibility of proposed solutions.

Secondly, existing policy analysis handbooks do not explain fully how to learn and combine research methods. Some texts spend a great deal of time explaining economics so that students can perform cost-benefit analysis. Some focus primarily on communication skills. Others suggest that policy analysts learn on the job, and ‘hustle’ data in a short space of time. Ultimately, policy analysis is a versatile practice that requires versatile students. If, indeed, policy analysis is more ‘art and craft’ (Wildavsky, 1980) than the application of a manageable finite number of concrete methods (like cost-benefit analysis), then the focus of teaching also needs to shift from ‘only’ introducing students to these methods to actively equipping them with skills that will serve them long after they have left the classroom. These skills include adaptability, reflectivity, and the capacity to learn autonomously in complex and changeable contexts. Teaching policy analysis effectively therefore also requires acknowledging that no single research method or approach may be sufficient to provide answers to all the questions that students may be confronted with. Consequently, it is more effective to support students to become methodologically and functionally adaptable.

RECONCILING A (FALSE?) DUALITY

How has the technical-rational approach to policy analysis come to dominate public policy teaching? The existence of a ‘policy analysis’ that is distinct from other types of policy-relevant inquiry, and which can be taught by means of ‘how to’ instructional guides speaks directly to the duality supposedly at the heart of the field of public policy. We have a large disciplinary vocabulary to talk about this duality, one which sets up the idea of there being ‘two worlds’ of policy-focused knowledge production which contrasts policy theory with policy practice, and positions policy either as object or activity (Ranney, 1968; Sabatier, 1992). This dichotomous ‘two worlds’ perspective is an intellectual legacy of the way we organized public policy as a field of inquiry and human activity, largely as a result of the interpretation and operationalization of principles associated with ‘policy sciences’. Its main architect, Harold Lasswell, originally envisaged the policy sciences as a manner to (1) combine science and practice in a way to (2) systematize and optimize the way we made and implemented public policy (Lasswell, 1970, 1971). While Lasswell called for greater integration of what he saw as knowledge *of* policy (i.e., process knowledge) and knowledge *in* policy (i.e., policy analysis and evaluation), two largely separate tracks of professionalized policy-relevant research became institutionalized – one taking place within universities and which did not always have practical applications, and one taking place within public agencies, think tanks, and private consultancies, which very rarely drew on academic theories and concepts of the policy process.

Over the last twenty years, the dominance of this dichotomous 'two worlds' perspective has been gradually eroded. Functionally, the boundaries between those who 'think about' and those who 'do' policy have become more porous. A great deal of policy learning and skills development has been brought 'in house' to universities, through the mainstreaming of public policy courses in, for example, political science, economics, and management – increasing students' exposure to policy theories and concepts. Moreover, if having a clearly identifiable 'client' who sets the questions and to whom advice is directed was considered the distinguishing feature between policy analysts and policy researchers (e.g., Behn, 1985; Weimer and Vining, 2017; Meltzer, 2013), this distinction has fallen away. Indeed, the advent of the 'impact agenda' in academic knowledge production has incentivized academic policy researchers to 'translate' their work for policy practitioners and, in so doing, grapple with questions of relevance and practical applicability (Cairney and Oliver, 2020; Weible and Cairney, 2021). Conceptually, the very basis of this dichotomy has been called into question with the ascendancy of critical policy analysis. Here, older rational-instrumental conceptions of policy analysis are cast out in favour of those that foreground the inherently political nature of policymaking.

In fact, to the extent that we (1) often rely on rational-technical 'how to' guides, and (2) divorce policy analysis teaching from that of policy theories and concepts, this area remains one of the last bastions of this limiting 'two worlds' narrative. Overcoming the exaggerated duality between policy theory and practical policy analysis in our teaching would therefore offer new opportunities for supporting students to develop not just applied problem-solving skills, but also the sort of intellectual and practical agility to support lifelong policy-relevant learning of the sort required long after they leave the classroom. To help students grasp policy analysis, let alone grapple with how to carry it out proficiently, we should therefore embrace a teaching practice that problematizes policy analysis and contextualizes it in a manner that foregrounds its historical, intellectual, and professional heritage. This means, in particular, drawing out the practical and normative assumptions that underlie dominant conceptions of policy analysis. Indeed, conceptions of policy analysis as the production, synthesis, and assessment of information with a view to identifying and solving a problem problematically elides the possibility there does not exist a single problem or solution. Instead, we may be faced with a perpetual process of interpretation, negotiation, and ranking of preferences based on more than just rationality.

One disciplinary 'anchor' for contextualizing policy analysis in our teaching can be found in the form of the 'new policy sciences'. It highlights how policy theory and policy analysis might fruitfully cross-fertilize (Cairney and Weible, 2017; Cairney, 2021; Weible, Cairney, and Yordy, 2022). Theoretical insights into how policy actors think and make decisions (e.g., bounded rationality), about how policy action unfolds in complex systems, or about how and why policies change (or do not), are immediately germane for those seeking to advance actionable insights. Our teaching practices can therefore aim to foster integrated (i.e., theory-informed) approaches to policy analysis that attempt to teach students to understand politics, understand complexity, but also understand strategies to manage the challenges these raise. This requires an integration of knowledge of and in the process. In particular, this would involve developing policy analysis curricula that better take up cutting-edge knowledge on human decision-making and complex systems and actively engage with theories of the policy process. This also requires supporting students to reflect on the politics that underpin the very objectives of policy analysis in the first place. This includes, for example, bridging the scholar-

ship on evidence-based policy and policy analysis to highlight how science does not ‘speak for itself’ in decision-making processes (cf. Smith in this volume). It might also involve fostering reflection on what policy analysts can or ought to do. For instance, helping decision-makers learn and manage may frequently be more realistic and effective than telling them ‘what to do’, yet we often overlook these approaches to ‘practical policy problem solving’ in our teaching practice. Finally, using theory to help illuminate the different dimensions of the policy system (e.g., silos and timescales) that practitioners often need to actively grapple with can provide students with the necessary heuristics to tackle them themselves – no matter what shape they take – in their later professional practice.

An integrated approach to teaching policy analysis would therefore explicitly recognize the complementarity between policy process knowledge, applied problem-solving skills, and a versatile ‘toolbox’ of research methods. Areas of overlap between them (see Table 18.1) reveal the implication each has for the other. For instance, core concepts like ‘bounded rationality’ are not just useful for theorizing decision-maker behaviour in policy research, but also have significance for the communication of policy-relevant information in policy analysis. Similarly, analytical notions of ‘feasibility’ have concrete implications for methods/research design, for example when it comes to selecting cases in prospective policy learning and transfer studies. Indeed, the cases from which policymakers wish to learn tend not to be derived from an objectively set ‘universe of cases’ (e.g., Cairney, St.Denny, and Kippin, 2021). Instead, dimensions of technical and political feasibility speak more closely to policymakers’ pragmatically/heuristically-derived case selection approach. The body of policy research knowledge on (the limits of) evidence-based policymaking has consequences for the practice of policy-relevant research. It complexifies how we think about policy timescales, the importance and prevalence of networks in deciding and making policy, and the logic of gradual ‘enlightenment’ (e.g., Weiss, 1977) that underpins policy development in many sectors.

Critical policy analysis (CPA) can also be brought in to help students grasp the inherently political nature of policymaking. CPA broadly identifies the power imbalances present in policy analysis and policymaking that result in or exacerbate social disparities, and compels scholars to recognize and support those who are harmed or marginalized and more generally incorporate emancipation into their research (Bacchi, 2009: 44). The notion that policy analysis might or should be a rationalist endeavour is contested by CPA researchers. They challenge the representation of policy analysis as the disinterested use of objective and neutral analytical techniques with a view to generating technical and apolitical advice. Instead, they argue that the projection of putative objectivity by analysts actively contributes to the ongoing marginalization and subordination of certain groups. These insights matter for teaching policy analysis, since they speak to hierarchies of knowledge, and dominant norms and beliefs concerning target groups or the ‘nature’ of problems and solutions that policy analysts can only mindfully choose to reproduce or challenge if they are aware of them. Who should participate in informing policy analysis why, and how, can therefore look very different to the classical model if critical perspectives are brought in.

Weaving these insights into our teaching allows us to demonstrate how policy analysis is more than the quick production of bounded problem-solving knowledge and can also be a tool in the ‘long game’ of policy. Moreover, adopting this perspective allows us to rethink the different constituencies or audiences we teach and, in the process, broadens the relevance of policy analysis teaching. Theoretical and conceptual insights from policy process studies belong in policy analysis courses just as much as the skills associated with ‘thinking like

Table 18.1 Areas of overlap

	‘Basic’ science	Key overlaps	‘Applied’ science
Substantive knowledge	• What is the policy process? • How can we identify and measure policy change?	• What is policy? How should we study it?	• What is the policy problem? • What policy solutions are technically and politically feasible?
Conceptual and analytical skills	• Theoretical analysis. Micro, macro, meso levels of analytical abstraction • Frameworks, theories, concepts, and models	• Conceptual and empirical analysis • How useful is e.g., the ‘policy cycle’ to (1) understand the policy process, and (2) engage in the policy process?	• Policy analysis • Problem definition/formulation, implementation, and evaluation
Research skills	• Using research methods to produce new knowledge of the policy process	• Combining research methods – quantitative and qualitative methods, modelling, social networks analysis, ethnography	• Using research methods to generate knowledge of a policy problem and calculate the likely success of solutions

a policy analyst’ (cf. Geva-May, 2005) belong in general public policy courses. Understanding the policy process is key to influencing it (Weible et al., 2012) – a goal common to many students of public policy, not just those inhabiting specialized policy analysis schools or programs, as well as to academic policy researchers. The next section therefore sets out some suggestions approaching the design of policy analysis teaching for a broad range of different student groups in a way that integrates theory with conceptual, analytical, and methodological skills.

CRAFTING RESPONSIVE POLICY ANALYSIS TEACHING

Ultimately, what an integrated approach to teaching policy analysis looks like in practice is a fruitfully open question. This is because how you teach depends a lot on who you teach (Cairney, 2023). When it comes to teaching policy analysis, who we teach (and how they ended up in our classroom) varies. It includes:

- Students at different levels (BA, MA, and PhD)
- Generalists (e.g., BA and MA students undertaking broader social science programs) or specialists (MA and PhD students in dedicated public policy programs, including those in ‘policy schools’)
- Those with and without professional experience (e.g., professionals undertaking part-time specialization courses for career progression)
- Those from different parts of the world (and therefore operating in different policy contexts and teaching traditions).

In keeping with the plurality of our students, how we organize our policy analysis curricula can also vary greatly. We can plot different approaches across a notional spectrum from minimalist to maximalist. Minimally, policy analysis may represent a single session of a general introductory course in public policy/administration/management. Medially, it may represent, for example, a stand-alone course taken by students in broader policy-relevant social science

degrees. Finally, at the maximal end of the spectrum, we find entire ‘integrated’ client-oriented policy analysis programs which feature a combination of live and simulated application of policy analysis skills for ‘real’ or imaginary clients over a longer period of time (i.e., over more than one semester) (Meltzer, 2013). Typically, these are dedicated graduate programs which merge topical (i.e., substantive) courses on specific issues, topics, or sectors, with policy analysis components built into individual courses and integrated into other modules in a way that emphasizes the repeated application of theoretical knowledge to practical cases in order to hone skills over time. The client-orientation of the program is supposed to act as a ‘bridge’ between classroom and workplace by intensively developing transferable professional skills necessary to undertake policy analysis ‘in the real world’ (i.e., in client-driven, time and resource-constrained environments) (Allard and Straussman, 2003).

In light of this diversity, we propose teaching strategies to overcome what we believe to be two of the central challenges faced by policy analysis teachers no matter their audience: developing an appropriate curriculum and activating learners. We finish the section by zooming in on a discussion of how to apply elements of these strategies in designing the teaching and assessment of policy writing exercises. Overall, the insights below are generally applicable to any format but do not represent the full range of considerations involved in designing policy analysis curricula (especially over the course of entire programs, which necessarily involve considering questions of teaching team management, logistics, and program-level coherence much more so than for smaller courses or self-contained sessions). Moreover, these strategies are based on general principles that need to be translated to meet the specific needs of each cohort and course. Cross-referencing these principles with insights from this *Handbook*’s chapters on teaching public policy to different audiences (Part V of this volume) and teaching public policy in different geographical regions (Part VI of this volume) may therefore be useful for contextualizing and rendering them operationally appropriate to meet different needs.

Developing a Reflective Practice to Guide Curriculum Development

Teaching policy analysis from a perspective that actively integrates theoretical, conceptual, methodological, and practical insights requires a curriculum that is up to the task. Here, we understand curricular development to be the design of sequenced experiences that allow students to gain knowledge, practice skills, and ultimately achieve proficiency across the learning objectives. The key, when designing such a program of work, is centering a dual emphasis on the ‘what’ of policy and the ‘how’ of analysis. This might seem simple but it rarely is, principally because a single teacher is unlikely to have equal knowledge or mastery of all of the substantive and practical knowledge that might be useful to convey to those wishing to learn policy analysis. In light of this, it is important to take stock of the tools and resources at your disposal. This means, in particular, being actively mindful of where the contours of your experience, skills, and knowledge lay. For instance, those who teach policy analysis are not necessarily the same as those who consider themselves professional policy analysts. It may nevertheless often be the case that those of us who come from a policy research background have punctually carried out the tasks associated with policy analysis, for example in the context of our own engagement, impact, or consultancy work. Similarly, we may not all be equally equipped to teach the myriad research methods amenable to policy analysis work.

Teaching policy analysis therefore requires us to reckon with who we are and what we know (and what we do not know). Identifying gaps in our own ‘toolbox’ provides an opportunity to

then survey what other resources we might consider bringing into our practice. Typically, this can take the form of collaborative working, which allows for multiple perspectives to inform the session, course, or program. Co- or team-teaching, for example, can allow us to draw on colleagues' expertise and securely cover more substantive, methodological, theoretical, or practical ground. Alternatively, we can invite external guests to come and speak to students about, for example, their experience of practice. Collaboration can be in person, but new modes of online teaching may also offer opportunities to bring in expertise, including from further away. Moreover, even in cases where formal collaboration is out of reach and we teach alone, continually taking stock of our own experience may help us draw out elements that are germane to policy analysis teaching. For instance, neither author of this chapter has ever held a formal position as a policy analyst – we both come from academic backgrounds where theory-informed policy research constitutes the majority of our work – but we both have quite a lot of experience of doing tasks that are either analogous to or comfortably fall within the realm of policy analysis. For instance, we have been tasked by government actors to research an issue and report back with suggestions, and we have presented policy-relevant information in a range of formats to different policy audiences. Our experiences are therefore frequently brought into our teaching as supplementary examples or illustrations.

Using reflective practice to inform the development and delivery of our teaching is therefore a continual exercise in mapping. We must map our own self – our knowledge, experiences, but also our blind spots – but we must also in tandem map out the learning objectives we want our students to reach. This requires casting a wide net and considering whether skills or knowledge the discipline has not traditionally associated with policy analysis may nevertheless benefit our students. Ultimately, policy analysis is one of many forms of 'policy work'. Policy work refers to all the activities that 'those professionally engaged in policy actually do' (Colebatch, Hoppe, and Noordegraaf, 2010: 239). As policy workers, policy analysts carry out a wide range of activities (Radin, 2000; Colebatch, 2006; Colebatch and Radin, 2006; Kohoutek, Nekola, and Veselý, 2018), many of which do not fit the ideal of the classical 'five-step' approach to policy analysis (Hird, 2017). This is primarily because – rather than in spite of – this work's client-orientation: the clients of policy analysis are plural, their needs are diverse, and the questions they ask are often better answered using different approaches. Relying too heavily on the 'classical' approach therefore under-serves our students not only in terms of skills development but also in terms of helping them develop a realistic sense of professional identity and value (cf. Radin, 2000: 183). This may increasingly be the case if we consider that public service is not our students' only professional destination, and that many may end up working in the private or not-for-profit sector, both of which feature a high demand for policy analysis skills (see Laforest and Smith in this volume). Our teaching goals should therefore be competence-based, that is to say centered on employability, skill versatility, and the ability to generate impactful policy analysis (i.e., that is likely to be used), rather than only on the ability to mechanically and faithfully (re)produce 'classical' policy analysis. This is especially so when approaching policy analysis teaching outside of the distinctive North American context from which this particular model was derived (e.g., Kohoutek, Nekola, and Veselý, 2018: 266. See also He, Lai, and Wu, 2016).

Consequently, in addition to fostering analytical and synthesis skills, we must also critically attend to the full range of additional aptitudes that might inform or enhance policy analysis work (see, for example, Dryzek, 2008; Forester, 2008; Wilson, 2008; Winship, 2008). Being methodologically proficient, for example, matters. Policy analysis requires data collection

skills: information needs to be collected before it can be organized and assessed. There is no *a priori* and finite list of data collection skills a student needs to learn in order to become an effective policy analyst. Instead, just as we teach social science students more generally, the questions they seek to answer will tend to guide both the way the research is designed and how it is carried out. Nevertheless, many useful data collection skills, such as effective interviewing, remain underappreciated in policy analysis teaching – particularly that which considers cost-benefit analysis to be a ‘Golden Hammer’, that is to say a tool notionally capable of being used in all cases. What we can and should teach students in the context of policy analysis is neither disciplinarily settled nor temporally fixed. Indeed, as technology and research practices evolve, so too do the opportunities and norms concerning what constitutes useful or valuable policy-relevant information. For example, policymakers’ increasing interests in the uses of big data and machine learning may influence the skills we wish to support our students in acquiring. It may be that we ourselves, as teachers of public policy, are brought to teach these data collection methods. In many cases, however, robust and pluralist training in methods and research design is carried out in other courses dedicated to them. Here, a key strategy is therefore to ensure program-level curriculum coherence so that the skills our students are learning in other courses can be capitalized on in a way that allows us to support them as they learn to apply these methods to policy analytic tasks.

Activating the Learner

No matter how ‘practical’ it is presented to be, even the most classical approaches to policy analysis involve abstraction, regardless of whether this abstraction is explicitly indexed on policy theories and concepts. Indeed, every step of classical policy analysis is abstract until rendered tangible through application. Employing insights from policy studies therefore does not needlessly ‘complicate’ otherwise ‘straightforward’ policy analysis. Rather, it affords us the opportunity to better surface and describe the logics that underpin different aspects of policymaking and, therefore, of policy analysis. Furthermore, adding policy theories and concepts to the policy analysis curriculum does have to involve layering an entire ‘introduction to policy studies’ course, accompanied by a thousand-page syllabus, on top of a practically-oriented policy analysis curriculum. To produce succinct and engaging summaries of the most important policy studies, innovations in teaching resources, such as blog posts, podcasts, and vlogs, can all be utilized (e.g., Cairney, 2023). Of course, teachers can develop their own versions of these resources, but there already exists a wealth of excellent content that can be drawn on.

Ultimately, however, teaching policy analysis from a purely theoretical perspective is never fully adequate. This is because policy analysis, with its practical and client-oriented nature, calls for the development of abilities that are primarily acquired through the consistent material application of knowledge. Teaching policy analysis must therefore incorporate practical components. The whole range of learning, knowledge consolidation, skill development, and assessment methodologies should be taken into account while choosing or designing these components. In this context, it might be helpful to reframe what we consider ‘innovation’ to be: teaching policy analysis in novel and exciting ways that better reflect the issues facing policymaking today may require coming up with new strategies and activities, but it may also require reevaluating some of the traditional tools we have available to us in order to realize their full potential. More than we already tend to do, it is possible to ‘unpack’ the various learning objectives supported by certain teaching and assessment activities that we frequently

employ, or 'repackage' these with additional elements to increase the learning impact. Subsequently, the rest of this section is dedicated to describing how we operationalize these guidelines in the planning and execution of a 'portfolio' policy analysis project.

All of our courses comprise some element of policy analysis teaching, which is reflected in the design of our formative and summative assessment. Rather than only requiring students to produce a piece of policy analysis, we also require them to communicate the information from this analysis in additional ways for different audiences, as well as to produce theory-informed reflective accounts of why they designed and carried out their analysis the way they did. Typically, this means assigning a series of assignments comprising some or all of the following (see for example Cairney, 2021: 'Annex A'):

- A policy brief or policy analysis paper: Students identify a policy problem and a client and produce a paper that carries out all of the tasks typically associated with this form of work:¹ define the problem, identify possible solutions, determine suitable criteria with which to adjudicate between different alternatives, and put forward a clear recommendation that takes into account both technical and political feasibility. The paper is kept short (around 1,000 to 1,500 words) to force students to deliver information concisely to a client who is presumed to be short on time and attention. This exercise also requires students to prepare an annotated bibliography: a short list of key texts, accompanied with a short summary (usually in bullet point format), that their client can consult should they want to gain a rapid but comprehensive overview of existing knowledge on the issue.
- A theory-informed reflection: Students are asked to prepare a short (approx. 1,000 word) narrative that demonstrates how their understanding of policy theories and concepts informed their policy analysis. For instance, they can use bounded rationality to think about how policymakers will process the information and complexity to think about who the audience is, when and why they might act, and what the likely repercussions are. The reflection offers them the opportunity to explain how they used concepts and theories to make the decisions that underpin their paper, for example in terms of prioritizing types of evidence, or selecting cases from which to 'learn' or propose policy transfers, or assessing and communicating the issue of political feasibility to their audience.
- A blog post: Students are then asked to 'translate' their policy analysis into a short (500 word) blog post aimed at a broad, interested but non-expert audience. The goal is to provide a succinct and direct description of the issue (together with any potential remedies) in a way that dispenses with jargon and highly technical information. Conceptual insights should be used to guide the work but without appearing in the text. Care should be taken with communication, to anticipate the challenges associated with the high competition for readers' attention that operates on social media.
- A short oral presentation: Students are tasked with once more translating the content of their policy paper into a different format, this time a short (approx. three minute) oral briefing to the class, followed by questions from the audience. The exercise is useful to reveal to students the challenges involved in (1) delivering a full case (problem and solu-

¹ There are many good resources for teachers looking to teach policy writing or design policy writing exercises. We suggest, in particular: Boys and Keating, 2009; Chagas-Bastos and Burges, 2019; Druliolle, 2017; Judge, 2021; Pennock, 2011; Smith, 2019; Trueb, 2013; Wilcoxon, 2018; and Wiley, 1991.

tion) in a short amount of time in a context where (2) audience attention has to be actively managed, and (3) managing and fielding questions the nature of which can never be fully anticipated.

The ‘portfolio’ approach challenges students to create connections between theory and practice. While the policy analysis paper serves as the central component, layering on the additional elements increases the opportunity for students to practice various ways of expressing the same material by diversifying the forms they employ (shorter vs. longer, technical vs. lay, oral vs. written). Furthermore, by pushing students to defend their decisions and actions in light of policy insights rather than a policy analysis checklist, the reflection serves as a ‘bridge’ between theory and practice. Additionally, these elements can be altered in a variety of ways to emphasize or achieve certain learning objectives. Below are some common modifications of each of the elements:

- Policy brief or policy analysis paper: Common modifications we employ include: the length and structure of the paper (for instance by adding or removing a section dedicated to implementing and evaluating the recommended solution); whether the work is carried out individually or as part of a group; as well as the number of times students rework their piece (requiring students to submit their first attempt for peer review by classmates and then rework the piece, or rework the piece in light of feedback received after the oral presentation, is a useful way to help students gain skills associated with applying or acting on feedback).
- Theory-informed reflection: For students without a background in policy studies, we frequently alter this activity. For instance, when Emily assigns a policy brief to her ‘Gender and Politics’ course students – who have a generalist political science background rather than a background in public policy – they are encouraged to reflect on how feminist political science insights (for example on feminist expertise, e.g., Chappell and Mackay, 2020, in addition to those they have learned about public policy, were used to inform the design of their brief.
- Blog post: In addition to changing the blog post’s length, we occasionally alter the preparation requirements for the activity. For instance, before writing the article, we invite students to identify three policy-related blog entries that they can draw inspiration from and share them with their peers. Following a discussion of the articles’ advantages and disadvantages, the students come up with a set of standards for what they consider to be an effective policy-related blog post.
- Oral presentation: This exercise can be customized in a number of ways, including the duration of the presentation and the target audience (we can do the exercise as a ‘Brief your boss’ simulation or as a component of a group panel discussion with other students). We can also add another activity to the subsequent Q&A by asking the audience what they remember about the presentation and which parts they found most memorable or convincing. By doing this, we can learn who was paying attention to what and why, which may help us understand how communication and attention interact. If the presentation is converted into a podcast or vlog, digital proficiency may also come into play.

The overall goal of this ‘portfolio’ approach is threefold: (1) link policy theory and practice; (2) maximize the value of conventional activities (presentations, policy writing exercises, etc.); and (3) keep the learner actively engaged. A strong and engaging competence-based

teaching framework can be created by recognizing that all of the 'staple' activities of teaching policy analysis have something to offer in terms of both substantive knowledge and practical skills, and working to strengthen both those dimensions in our teaching practice. These can be further enhanced with new approaches, including structured reflections, to open up new possibilities for connecting the 'how' and the 'what' of policy analysis. Additionally, as our teaching methods continue to evolve, especially in relation to online and hybrid forms, so do our prospects for maximizing the effectiveness of our activation strategies. Although each format has its own difficulties and restrictions, most of us have more options now than ever when it comes to teaching. In particular, the internet provides opportunities to connect students with information, materials, and people from a wider range of locations than our historically localized teaching methods may have previously allowed us. If we want to ensure that a variety of viewpoints are used to guide our students' learning, this is crucial.

CONCLUSION

Teaching policy analysis in a way that accurately reflects and speaks to real-world policymaking contexts is important yet challenging. While learning what it means to engage in ethical and professional practice, students also need to learn a wide range of technical, methodological, and communication skills with which to identify and assess feasible alternatives to complex issues in time-constrained conditions. Traditionally, policy analysis has been taught separately from theory-informed policy research, and has tended to follow stepwise models that may not sufficiently account for the complexity and politics inherent to policymaking. Yet the insights from policy studies are highly germane to informing how we design and execute effective policy analysis – that is policy analysis that stands a chance of solving the puzzles it sets itself. Consequently, this chapter argues that those who teach policy analysis should consider developing approaches that combine what we know about how policy is made from studies of the policy process with teaching tailored to fostering adaptability and lifelong learning. Without necessarily shoehorning a comprehensive 'introduction to policy theory' into existing policy analysis programs, we propose a number of strategies for better integrating theory and practice. Firstly, historicizing and contextualizing policy analysis as a set of professional practices that are neither historically fixed nor regionally stable helps reveal its contingency to students. Secondly, developing a reflective pedagogical practice in order to 'map out' our own assumptions, skills, and blind spots is useful for then identifying what resources we have (or need to access) in order to deliver teaching that best meets the needs and interests of different types of students across a wide range of institutional and pedagogical settings. Thirdly and finally, with examples from our own practice, we discuss the value of competence-based approaches that focus on activating the learner and challenging them to actively index their decision-making on robust theoretical and conceptual insights into how policymakers think and behave.

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19. Teaching policy design: Themes, topics and techniques

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INTRODUCTION: IS POLICY DESIGN TEACHABLE?

Policy design denotes a conscious effort to marshal governing resources and direct them towards the attainment of government goals (Howlett 2019a). A design typically involves the creation of a mix or bundle of policy tools which can reasonably be expected to work together to attain a government goal or goals (Salamon 2002; Hood 1986). These goals are varied and range from resolving well-known and well-understood social problems, such as healthcare, in the public interest, to the personal self-aggrandizement of leaders and the promotion of highly selective private or group partisan self-interests (Howlett 2020). What separates ‘design’ from ‘non-design’ efforts in this area, however, is not so much the purpose of the policy but rather the manner in which a policy response or output utilizes knowledge and evidence about ‘what works’ rather than being enacted purely through inter-group bargaining or solely upon the basis of leadership experience or intuition (Howlett and Mukherjee 2017b; Newman and Nurfaiza 2020; Johnson and Cook 2014).

This emphasis on knowledge accumulation and mobilization in the creation of effective bundles of policy tools is what allows policy design to be taught in an academic setting (Vesely 2020). That is, if policy design was purely about strongly-held beliefs or experiential in nature, then it would be more craft than science. And students would be better served through apprenticeship programmes and mentoring than by university-based policy courses which attempt to impart codified information on ‘what works’ and why to students (Weimer 1992; He, Lai and Wu 2016).

While professional and case-oriented instruction in these venues does continue to emphasize ‘real world’ or experiential knowledge, the policy schools which have expanded rapidly around the globe have now settled on a core curriculum which includes many aspects of policy design. This includes courses dealing with topics such as institutional design, the nature of policy processes and policy instrument analysis as well as courses dealing with political feasibility, policy analysis and evaluation, and other such design-oriented aspects of policy-making (Pal and Clark 2016a, 2016b).

Many gaps, of course, continue to exist in this curriculum, including older topics such as formal policy analysis through techniques such as cost-benefit or cost-effectiveness analysis which are often lacking in new more process- and design-oriented programmes (Wu, Lai and Choi 2012). And these gaps also extend to newer aspects of policy study and activity such as digital governance (Clarke and Craft 2017) and ‘big data’ (Leitner and Stiefmueller 2019; El-Talaiwi, Goyal and Howlett 2021), which are recognized as important but often poorly represented in current policy school offerings. These problems also extend to the subject of policy design itself, which at present is taught as a core, stand-alone subject only in a few schools and

programmes (see sections on pedagogy in *Annual Review of Policy Design* Vol. 5 (2017) and Vol. 7 (2019) for examples of course syllabi in this field).

Thus although a growth area in the overall public policy field, policy design courses have not yet become commonplace in policy school curricula, although the signs of this beginning to happen are clear and the number and variety of courses will increase in the near future.

Policy design courses exist in other places besides academia, of course. Some design schools themselves have also begun to develop curriculum and courses that attempt to use design thinking as a means for addressing policy formulation (Dorst 2011; Bason and Schneider 2014), and such courses are a staple of executive-level professional management training programmes, even if they are not always labelled as such (Rasmussen and Callan 2016; Manwaring, Holloway and Coffey 2019; Johansson-Sköldberg, Woodilla and Cetinkaya 2013). These courses may offer a less traditional route to understanding policy development and design, but also often introduce non-traditional techniques and more ‘designerly’ ways of understanding the interface between policy and design (Cross 1982).

But what do these policy design courses entail? How are they structured and what subject matter is typically covered? And what pedagogical techniques are considered suitable for such courses? Even if design topics are scattered over a number of courses rather than a single dedicated one, and/or delivered in a variety of mediums and through a range of techniques, what sorts of topics need to be covered by them and what are the strengths and weaknesses of different available pedagogies? And how are varying ideas on the convergence of policy and design reconciled with one another? These are all subjects covered in this chapter.

After briefly discussing the origins of the policy design field, the chapter examines aspects of pedagogy around the subject in policy schools and programmes. It sets out a series of topics which courses typically cover, explains their importance to the field and how they are generally addressed in coursework.

The chapter then turns to the pedagogical techniques deployed in existing courses located on four continents, dealing with differences between undergraduate- and graduate-level instruction, case-based instruction and online and distance learning, as well as efforts to integrate co-design and innovative pedagogies, including new methods and techniques from ‘big data’ methodologies and the deployment of artificial intelligence to the promotion and creation of policy labs and experiments.

KEY TOPICS COVERED IN POLICY DESIGN COURSES

Examination of existing university course syllabi (*Annual Review of Policy Design* 2017, 2019) and commonly used textbooks (Howlett 2011, 2019a) reveal a standard set of readings and topics in policy design instruction in academic settings organized around the ‘5Ws’: the ‘who, what, where, when and why’ of policy design. Courses which deal with the subject in this way can be found in the United States, Turkey, Canada, Australia and elsewhere (*Annual Review of Policy Design* 2017, 2019).

These courses are typically intended to define key concepts, survey past and present research in the field, and establish the history of thinking about policy design within the more general discipline of the policy sciences (Bobrow 2006). In particular, these courses tend to highlight the difficulties of policy design, including notably an emphasis on the vagaries of

policy formulation (deLeon 1992) and the problematics of policy implementation (May 2003) which may lead even the best-formulated plans to go astray.

These courses go beyond simply describing policy and policy-making problems to provide guidance on what it means for a policy to be ‘effective’ (Peters et al. 2018) and how erstwhile policy designers can overcome problems related to knowledge generation and utilization, such as uncertainty and the clash of interests which typically characterize policy deliberations (Manski 2011, 2013). They also spend a great deal of time discussing the policy process and who makes policy as well as the nature of ‘policy work’ and policy advice (Colebatch 2006; Verbruggen 2011). This is in addition to providing basic data and instruction on the nature of common policy tools and instruments as well as the patterns and reasons found for their selection and use in different sectors, governments and time periods (Howlett 2019b).

In many cases, these subjects are taught in a single semester-long course which includes between 1–3 weeks on topics such as: what is policy design?; introducing policy tools and portfolios; persuasive design, targeting and compliance; who are the policy designers and how do they think and operate?; what is meant by policy effectiveness and how does it vary with macro- (structural), meso- (institutional) and micro- (agential) level contexts?; what are design best practices?; how do designs and designers deal with uncertainty, conflict and controversy?; and what are the future directions in which the field is heading? However, in some cases these subjects are spread across a number of courses and included in other courses dealing with subjects such as policy evaluation, policy analysis, introduction to public policy and others which serve to provide the background and contextual knowledge needed for more advanced consideration of policy designs and designing.

Each of these topics is addressed in turn below and some key sub-topics, authors and readings are listed.

First there is the issue of ‘why policy design?’. This is usually introduced as a way of separating the field of policy design from that of policy studies while noting the close links between the two. Important topics covered include the derivation of key definitions of design both in the policy field and elsewhere, usually drawing on classic works such as Dorst (Dorst and Dijkhuis 1995; Dorst 2011), Schön and Rein (1994; Rein and Schön 1996; Schön 1984, 1988, 1990; Waks 2001), and in the policy sphere, Dryzek (Bobrow and Dryzek 1987; Dryzek and Ripley 1988), Bobrow (2006), and Linder and Peters (1984, 1987, 1988, 1990a, 1990b, 1990c, 1991, 1992). The need to arrive at some criteria for the evaluation of ‘good’ designs such as efficiency and effectiveness are stressed (Peters 2018), along with a clear-eyed examination of problems around uncertainty in terms of predicting policy outcomes and target behaviour (Morgan and Henrion 1990; Walker, Lempert and Kwakkel 2013; Walker, Marchau and Kwakkel 2013; Walker and Marchau 2004).

Having established that there is such a thing as policy design, attention is then paid to distinguishing between different kinds and types of design, in other words ‘what is policy design?’. This introduces the basic distinction between design and non-design mentioned earlier (Howlett and Mukherjee 2017b). However, it also broaches the differences between different design modalities linked to the degree to which a complete package of policies is constructed at a single point in time or gradually developed through incremental processes such as ‘patching’, ‘layering’ or ‘stretching’ (Thelen 2004; van der Heijden 2011; Feindt and Flynn 2009; Howlett and Rayner 2013; Howlett, Mukherjee and Rayner 2018).

In this work, the nuances of these evolutionary processes and the possibility of the intentional or unintentional sequencing or alteration of policy components over time is a key subject

and its relationship to policy robustness and resilience a central focus of discussion (Howlett 2019c).

An expansion of interest on policy instruments is also apparent in these courses and crucially concerned with their impact on policy design (Howlett 2019a). The study of policy instruments and their effects can either be highly practical and vocationally oriented, i.e., focused on understanding which instruments might achieve the most effective outcomes in a specific situation. Or it can be much more focused on design thinking and how individual and small teams develop new techniques of governance or improve on older ones, such as is the case with the States of Change programme, originally established by Nesta UK, and now being rolled out as training for public servants in a number of national jurisdictions.

The teaching of policy design can also be theory driven and research heavy, although that is less likely to be the focus in professional training and ‘on the job’ vocational courses.

A third topic then broached is ‘where is policy design?’. This entails a discussion of where policy design occurs within a government system. This topic typically embraces issues such as the notion of design spaces and also the study of the varied organizational forms, from political decision-making bodies such as cabinets and legislature through to the ‘business as usual’ work of the public service, to specialized policy or design units and design labs, where design takes place ‘outside’ bureaucratic structures (Howlett and Mukherjee 2018; Mortati 2019; Lewis 2020).

A fourth topic is ‘when is policy design?’. This involves a discussion of the details and particularities of the policy process and especially policy formulation (when design proposals emerge), and policy implementation (when they are adopted and have to be put into place) (Howlett and Mukherjee 2017a; Lindquist 2006; May 2003). An important sub-topic here concerns the social designation or construction of policy targets, a subject covered in many classic works by Schneider and Ingram, for example (1990a, 1990b, 1993, 1994, 1997, 2005).

This contributes to the fifth topic which is especially common in political science-oriented courses: ‘who is policy design?’. This includes studies of both policy advice and policy work (Vesely 2016) and who conducts it. It often engages in an extended discussion of specialized actors such as interest groups, think tanks, research institutes and lobbyists who can sometimes have an outsized impact on designs and designing (Fraussen and Halpin 2016; Nelson and Yackee 2012). It is also common to link these to specialized terms developed within academe to groups such as design coalitions (Haelg, Sewerin and Schmidt 2020), instrument constituencies (Simons and Voss 2017) and policy advisory systems (Hustedt 2013; Craft and Halligan 2016) as well as the use of sociologically inspired techniques – such as social network analysis – which can be used to identify these actors, their ideas and the interactions between them (McNutt and Pal 2011).

A final topic often used to conclude such a course is future-oriented, looking at ‘where is policy design going?’. This introduces such topics as new analytical techniques, new actors and processes such as policy experiments and policy labs, and the role of data science, artificial intelligence, design thinking and co-design which are altering the ways policy design is conceived and practiced (Wellstead 2020; Olejniczak et al. 2020; Lewis, McGann and Blomkamp 2020; Lee and Ma 2019; Mukherjee and Giest 2020).

DIFFERENCES BETWEEN UNDERGRADUATE, GRADUATE AND PROFESSIONAL TRAINING

The commonly received wisdom around teaching public policy and public administration exists at different levels (undergraduate, graduate), is directed at different audiences (future/current civil servants, government policy-makers, consultants, not-for-profit leaders, policy researchers), and is underpinned by specific emphases (research-focused and theory heavy versus vocational and professional training). Thus there is by no means a universally held and applied set of strictures and pedagogies which rather vary for different audiences.

Some higher education institutions and academics firmly hold the belief that public policy should not and perhaps even cannot be taught to undergraduates, for example, because it requires an undergraduate education to provide the context in which government problem-solving and other kinds of policy activity may be understood and managed. But other institutions prefer to have policy introduced early in the undergraduate curriculum, alongside subjects such as political science and economics, in order to cover both the inputs and outputs of the political system in equal detail and emphasis. And others regard politics and/or economics and policy as inextricably linked and would not contemplate separating out policy from politics and public administration and management in curriculum design and subject offerings, regardless of which level the subject is taught at. Still other disciplines from geography to criminology and social work, among many others, view policy-making as a supplementary subject to their disciplinary specializations and therefore consider it an appropriate subject for specialized upper division or senior undergraduate courses but not lower-level or introductory ones which focus instead on core disciplinary terminology and insights.

Further, in certain countries in Asia and Europe, some institutions are charged with the delivery of policy courses that are a requirement before entering the national (and sub-national) civil service and thus emphasize a public administration content. In other nations, it is more common to begin working in public service organizations with an undergraduate degree – often with no experience of having studied any politics and/or policy – and then to take up part-time study of these subjects while in these posts, either out of general curiosity or specifically to gain knowledge or frameworks that can help in undertaking the work involved in these posts, or in order to progress to a more senior post in the future. In this latter situation, the individual might be either partially or fully sponsored by their employing organization (with time in lieu or fee subsidies or both in recognition that this education will support the development of knowledge acquisition and new skills for staff, thereby also growing the talent within the organization) in enrollment in graduate degrees or certificate programmes in public policy at universities or civil service institutes.

INTEGRATING POLICY STUDIES AND STUDIES OF POLICY DESIGN

Given these differently structured types and levels of public policy education at the tertiary level, where does policy design fit? Should different aspects of the subject be taught, depending on the specifics of the overall degree/diploma/certificate, as currently occurs with public policy courses? To answer this question requires delving into the meaning of policy design and how it might be variously constructed for different groups of students.

In most generalist public policy subjects, and in the teaching of policy as part of political science, students are often introduced to some variant of the policy cycle – a sequential model or heuristic of the stages in the ‘ideal type’ policy process: moving from agenda-setting to policy formulation to decision-making to policy implementation and finally, monitoring and evaluation (see, for example, Howlett and Ramesh 2003). Extended versions of this sometimes include ‘policy design’ as a stage. For example, a version by Young and Quinn (2002) places policy design between the stages of decision-making (choice of solution) and policy implementation. Other versions, such as the Bridgman and Davis (2004) version, instead use the term ‘policy instruments’, and place this earlier in the cycle, following on from identifying issues and policy analysis, but before consultation, coordination and decision-making.

Integrating policy design with various versions of the policy cycle is appealing for the teaching of public policy at a broad level, but when the emphasis is on instruction in the specifics of policy design, the subject needs to be rendered as more than just one stage in a larger policy process. Herbert Simon (1969) in *The Sciences of the Artificial*, for example, made design central and also much more encompassing than is suggested by the common habit of simply adding it as a stage of policy-making. In stating that ‘Everyone designs who devises courses of action aimed at changing existing situations into preferred ones’, Simon effectively likened design to the entirety of the policy-making process – which involves developing courses of action aimed at changing situations. In recent times, Simon’s work has attracted renewed attention, not just because of the recent embrace of his work in the widespread adoption of behavioural insights (such as ‘design experiments’) to policy-making in practice, but also because of the broader insights that his work generates in theory.

In fact, design researchers of all stripes and backgrounds have increasingly moved into the policy sphere as they have become interested in using design knowledge and techniques to help solve complex societal problems, such as in the current trend to apply the insights of ‘design thinking’ from product and service design to policy-making. The work of design researchers such as Kees Dorst (2015) highlights how the re-framing of problems through design thinking can be used to better understand them, including public policy-making. Others working in design leadership roles, as heads of design labs and similar design-led organizations, have coined the term ‘design for policy’ (e.g., Bason and Schneider 2014) to signal this movement and contrast this approach to policy-making from a design perspective, rather than doing ‘old’ policy design (Peters 2018) which approaches design from the viewpoint of policy-making.

Looking at Processes or Searching for Causality?

Another division in current design courses relates to their emphasis on either process tracing or causal mechanisms. These are two separate methods in policy design teaching which should not be conflated. The former focuses on describing and understanding the unfolding of a sequence of events over time (Bennett and Checkel 2014: 9), whilst the emphasis in the latter is on the causal chains connecting specific kinds of structural- and institutional-level policy phenomena with individual policy behaviour and collective outcomes (Hay 2016; Mayntz 2004; Bakir 2020).

TECHNIQUES AVAILABLE FOR INSTRUCTION

These various trends add up to a new focus on policy design by scholars, and by governments and others trying to find new ways to address societal challenges. As a consequence, the teaching of policy design, and considerations of curriculum and course design along with it, has gained new life.

As we have seen, this teaching mainly occurs at the graduate level, and in more vocationally oriented courses, although some subjects are offered for undergraduates. Critical and theoretical subjects, where students are invited to engage with Simon's design science and the social turn of design research towards policy, tend to appear in undergraduate listings, for example, but are not totally confined to this level.

Regardless of course content and approach, however, most courses use a relatively small number of key pedagogies. These extend from regular undergraduate lecture courses and graduate seminars to efforts to innovate through the use of policy labs, experiments, artificial intelligence, cases and specific kinds of policy-relevant datasets.

Teaching with Labs, Studios and Datasets

With a renewed interest in policy design research and practice, and in teaching policy design as a consequence, a new set of approaches and methods have been incorporated into the teaching of this subject. These tend to reflect (but are not limited to) the currently 'in vogue' policy design topics of design for policy, policy labs and datasets that provide evidence for policy design with a great deal of interest currently raised by developments in artificial intelligence.

The 'design turn' in public policy, especially, has been used as a means for focusing on the use of creativity in making public policy, in contrast to the more frequent emphasis on 'rational' and other models of approaching policy design in traditional teaching. Teaching creative 'outside the box' thinking in policy-making has been taken up by running classes as co-design sessions, for example, where students take on assigned roles in a simulated (abbreviated) design exercise aimed at coming up with solutions to a specific challenge. In such classes students are typically given a scenario (for example, street violence in a particular geographic location), the need to adopt a role for themselves (such as a mayor, a young unemployed person, a local resident and so on), and then must try and understand and empathize with others' points of view, and understand what the policy problem is from multiple perspectives. This provides students with insights into how difficult it can be to simply arrive at a common understanding of the problem, and how important it is to have people affected involved in policy formulation and design.

Similarly, using class groups to 'lab' complex issues by working out how to find and then analyse relevant data (of many types), and how to present policy options in policy briefs written with specific contextual politics in mind, is also quite common. This approach teaches students to critically evaluate different sources of evidence in the development of their arguments, and to work productively and collaboratively in groups with other students, over a short period of time, in order to produce a policy brief of the kind often found in senior government decision-making practice. More specifically, actual experiments (that is, online surveys) can be developed by groups to try and 'nudge' participants towards a desired behaviour. With enough time and resources (and staff with expertise on running experiments), these can be run

using pools of survey respondents, and the data analysed with a view to making policy design recommendations.

Working on such datasets to produce evidence for policy design, can also be taught using small groups in classes. This method again has students working together over a short period of time to produce policy-relevant information to inform briefs and reports. In this case, the data provided must be analysed with a view to discovering some interesting trend or contrast. Students learn how to find and analyse relevant data, and how to use that analysis to design policy. It relies on having students who are already comfortable using statistical analysis packages, or teaching basic statistical analysis as part of the subject. This exercise teaches students to ask relevant questions of the data available, understand the results of the analysis, and explain how this analysis suggests certain policy design recommendations and discourages others.

Additionally, students can find innovation in the structure of the classroom itself while discovering the usefulness and relationship between policy and design. A studio setting, for example, is one that design schools employ to discuss in a group setting what works, what does not work and what can be improved in a particular design. This format is non-traditional in policy programmes or schools, but has bred success within programmes such as industrial design and architecture pursuing outcomes that tend to require an iterative process, prototyping, imagining and group evaluation. This requires a communal effort where the best ideas are not achieved in a vacuum, but instead developed through a group effort, oftentimes involving end-users and experiments within the design process itself.

Engaging with the Community

Perhaps one of the more important aspects of associating policy with design is its ability to develop abstract solutions to real-world problems. Each programme that employs design within the context of policy decision-making and its varied outcomes will have access to the surrounding community which can serve as a mutually beneficial testing ground for students and instructors.

Non-profits, local government, the public and even the local business community can all serve as recipients of the ‘designerly experimentation’ taking place within the classroom. By engaging in this sort of educational exchange – either formally through internships and placements, or informally through talks and visits – students are able to apply the concepts they have learned within the community. This process allows the student and the community the time and venue needed to partake in cost-effective low stakes exchange which leaves room for highly creative and non-traditional thinking to take place. By addressing ‘wicked problems’ (Rittel and Webber 1973), or problems which oftentimes do not have enough definition to be solved through traditional means, students are able to find innovative ways of addressing old problems facing society and, often, to see why they might, or might not, work in practice.

Design research methodology, or methods of design, can be a framework of individual methods used to elicit information or discover vital aspects of a product or system (Martin and Hanington 2012). Within the interface of policy and design, students can use various methods of design to develop conclusions for which can be used through field research to reach conclusions about the subject at large. A student may conduct non-traditional interviews or surveys as well as behavioural maps, user personas or role-playing in order to arrive at conclusions for which traditional means of inquiry may not provide the best solution. The flexibility of the

design process in conjunction with policy makes for a much more open and creative environment to tackle old problems in new ways.

WHAT METHODS TO TEACH?

Teaching with Cases versus Lectures and Seminars, and a Role for AI

As it currently stands, the discipline is divided between the merits of case study versus textbook learning and has only begun to grapple with the pedagogical aspects and potential (and drawbacks) of artificial intelligence. Cases can be created for teaching the who, what, where, when and why of policy design and can be helpful in either introducing or supplementing or reinforcing traditional textbook learning, lectures and discussion groups. In this respect, they can also be used to reinforce or challenge conceptual or theoretical frameworks. Bundling various resources to create a quasi-case is useful for effective student engagement with everyday policy design issues and cases are often available from other courses and depositories that can be used or adapted for this purpose. For example, bundling multiple media sources such as newspaper articles, clips from news outlets, YouTube videos and/or documentaries for contextual information proves highly useful for linking theory and practice. After the introduction of new concepts and/or theoretical perspectives, an instructor may offer this compiled material that relates to the description of the who, what, where, when and why of the policy design. The aim is to ensure student engagement with the real-life situation through theoretically informed analysis and/or exploration.

The policy design actions of principal decision-makers and their effects vary with such macro-, meso- and micro-level contexts, and they reflect cross-level and situational aspects of these contexts. Comparative cases can help scholars shed more light on why policy formulations and implementations are effective in one temporal dimension, policy sector or country but not in another, and whether the actions of public sector actors are likely to generate intentional or unintentional outcomes (Bakir 2022). In this respect, case teaching approaches are often comparative and offer a useful avenue to illustrate how theoretical and conceptual approaches can be operationalized in the classroom in a real-world context. Case studies may be organised in five different forms which have their unique purpose for student engagement (Ronstadt 1994; Harling and Akridge 1998; Walker 2009: 216–217). Anecdotal cases are useful for the introduction of a new concept through identifying the problem and illustrating policy actions taken to address that problem. Technical problem-solving cases enable students to use a specific theoretical or conceptual tool to solve a problem. Short-structured cases challenge students to apply their knowledge and offer solutions to multiple problems raised by the instructor. Longer-structured cases relate to complex problems where there are no clear solutions, and require students to collect and analyse detailed data for the interpretation of the situation and arrive at relevant solutions. Groundbreaking cases structure real-life situations with a problem-solving perspective where students focus on analysis rather than problem-solving.

Utilization of case studies helps student engagement to make sense of theory as an analytical tool to understand policy design and implementation practice and improve their skills to select and analyse policy-relevant information.

Faculty have always relied on technology-based tools in classrooms as these have been helpful in making teaching material more accessible, contributed to a richer student experience

and facilitated participation. Over the past few years, however, innovations in some of these tools, and particularly those based on artificial intelligence, have raised important questions as to their applications and use among faculty and students. These include considerations around the efficacy of such tools over the long-term, and ethical considerations around their use. The proliferation of Large Language Models (LLMs) such as GPT, BERT, XLNet, and GPT-3 and GPT-4 (see Kasneci et al. 2023 for a review) have brought these questions into sharper relief.

Simply put, LLMs are large probabilistic models that can generate text without or with little intervention by human beings. More recent versions of these models are 'prompt engineered', i.e., they allow users to communicate easily with the interface and respond to specific instructions. Understandably, such platforms have many widespread applications including in higher education and policy studies. For example, faculty can use these platforms to develop teaching resources such as PowerPoint slides, lecture notes, quizzes and providing personalised feedback to students among others (Dijkstra et al. 2022). Other examples include using GPT 3 or 4 to encourage students to ask 'deeper' questions (Abdelghani et al. 2022), generate code explanations (MacNeil et al. 2022) or assist in peer review of assessments (Jia et al. 2021). More recent versions of the GPT have also been helpful in assisting students to prepare for competitive exams such as the Uniform Bar Examination (*ABA Journal* 2023). Similarly, given that these platforms are prompt engineered, they are extremely user-friendly allowing students to use them to summarize readings, clarify specific aspects of a problem, and even generate code or write software among other things (Kasneci et al. 2023).

There are very few studies that examine the long-term efficacy of such platforms in realizing learning outcomes, however. And there are several risks that the use of such technologies present (Kasneci et al. 2023). A common challenge relates to dealing with copyright and plagiarism issues where faculty may find it difficult to distinguish between model-generated responses and those written by students (Cotton, Cotton and Shipway 2023). Some institutions have responded by banning students from accessing or using LLMs in their assessments, whilst others require students to use or regulate the use of LLMs in assessments (Tsai, Ong and Chen 2023). Common software platforms used to monitor academic integrity such as Turnitin have introduced updates to assess if student submissions include AI-assisted writing or are based entirely on AI writing (Caren 2023). Other challenges relate to students or teachers becoming too reliant on such tools, questions around bias and fairness if language learning models generate texts that amplify existing inequities and prejudices in society, issues related to data privacy and security, and how their use affects important learning skills such as critical thinking or problem-solving (Kasneci et al. 2023).

CONCLUSION: LOOKING TO THE FUTURE

The interplay between policy and design appears to be very bright and necessary for addressing problems brought on by rapid societal advancement in numerous public-facing sectors. Given this, it is of the utmost importance to bring together the work of researchers, designers and academics in order to critically explore and define the relationship between policy and design and assess how best to promote it within an academic context.

Presently, the topic is very much open for debate as these two concepts differ, relate and interact with one another in complex ways. As discussed in this chapter, while there are general agreements on the scope of policy design and policy-relevant design instruction, there

exist several different ways in which policy design can be taught, with differences in course content and methodologies originating in the policy studies tradition and the ‘design for policy’ approach. The former sees the need for policy to instrumentally embody a conscious design of its own making while the latter holds that design is a pre-existing field of study unto itself that can be employed in policy formation (Bason and Schneider 2014; Howlett 2019a). There are key differences in their logics, foundations and how they speak truth to power (Lewis, McGann and Blomkamp 2020).

However, beyond that important distinction, courses in either orientation can choose from a variety of pedagogies and methods to convey wisdom and knowledge to students. Although explicitly connected to the same subject matter, each different approach and direction is built upon differing criteria and parameters, thus creating multiple unique starting points for instructors. Some courses in these two orientations at times overlap while at other times they deviate considerably.

Given this diversity and the lack of a ‘one size fits all’ pedagogy, it is not surprising that there has been growth in the number of books and articles as well as conference topics on the subject of policy design instruction, indicating a strong need for increased attention to policy design pedagogy in years to come (Mortati 2019). More academic rigor and greater interaction between the policy and the design research communities in the future may determine which of these different approaches works best in which circumstances and with which set of students. At present, however, embracing a diversity of approaches and ‘letting a thousand flowers bloom’ are the watchwords of instruction in the field.

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20. Teaching discourse and dramaturgy¹

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INTRODUCTION

Arguably one of the best ways to introduce a course on the role of discourse in public policy is to share the opening sentence of the seminal volume *The Argumentative Turn in Policy and Planning*, edited by Frank Fischer and John Forester (1993): ‘What if our language does not simply mirror or picture the world but instead profoundly shapes our view of it?’ It begs the question what the authors mean when they argue that language is ‘not simply a mirror’? Opening language as a domain of choice, and hence of influence, helps students get to grips with the myriad ways in which power is present in social interaction. It introduces the key analytical point for scholars of public policy that language is not a neutral ‘medium’. Quite the contrary, the words we use or have available influence what we can express. The choice of the words and concepts we use is always an expression of power and/or having a power effect. Or, using a core concept of political science terminology, language is always the ‘mobilisation of bias’ (Schattschneider 1960; cf. Hajer 1995): with language you highlight certain aspects of reality but not others. Or, to put it slightly differently, some things can be said meaningfully with certain vocabularies while others cannot. But how exactly this power is expressed is the topic of long-lasting debates.

That language is not ‘neutral’ but can be used for the expression of power, is something most students are aware of, at least vaguely. But how exactly words and utterances influence power relations is a domain of scholarly study in itself. The recognition of this field is hampered by the fact that the best scholarship is scattered over the disciplines, from sociolinguistics and feminist theory to discursive psychology. Moreover, there are clear overlaps with the study of rhetorics as a topic of political theory and law, to frames and framing in the domain of communication science. So, to teach the role of discourse scholars will have to bring some of the insights together. In this chapter, I define discourse as ‘an ensemble of notions, ideas, concepts, and categorizations through which meaning is ascribed to social and physical phenomena ...’ (Hajer 2009: 60).

Moreover, if we really want to teach the influence of language, we should highlight the setting in which language is uttered. This is what I call the dramaturgical dimension of policy and politics. ‘All the world’s a stage, and all the men and women merely players’ are the famous lines from Shakespeare’s play *As You Like It*. In this chapter, I will argue that we should include the analysis of the setting and staging into the way in which we teach the role of language. This creates the possibility to develop a nuanced way of connecting the (seemingly) ephemeral category of language and signs, to the hard category of the material context in which public policy is made.

¹ I thank Minke Hajer and the editors of the book for comments on an earlier draft of this chapter.

The fact that the study of language is scattered over the disciplines implies that many concepts are not clearly demarcated but overlap, such as, for instance, that of ‘discourse’ and ‘frame’. In this chapter I will focus on teaching discourse and dramaturgy as the two inter-related topics that ought to be taught as a core part of any basic course on politics or public policy, not as a very special ‘extra’ element for the clever students, but as something that speaks to the heart of political and policy processes.

In the following, I will first discuss some of the scientific underpinnings of why we know language matters, then go into the conceptual tools of discourse analysis (also pitting it against the analysis of frames and framing). After this, I will address some of the methodological issues with doing discourse analysis and will elaborate on the social scientific underpinnings of this scholarly approach. Following an introduction of how discourse analysis uses the concept of ‘practice’, I will then conclude, introducing the more recent combination of discourse and dramaturgy to bring the material back into the analysis.²

THREE EXPERIMENTS

I prefer to start with priming students by making them aware of the influence of language on our perception. A bit in the positivist tradition perhaps, but very helpful is to introduce students to the key experiments from the 1970s on the topic. They are the typical randomly controlled trials that psychologists like to do, but the outcomes emphasize the need to investigate the role of language in policy making and politics.

A first experiment is that of Loftus and Palmer (1974). They showed two groups the same clip of two cars that ran into each other. They then simply asked the two groups the same question but with a tiny linguistic difference:

- Group A: About how fast were the cars going when they *smashed* into each other?
- Group B: About how fast were the cars going when they *hit* each other?

The experiment became famous because the participants of group A gave a higher estimate of the speed of the cars. Allegedly, some respondents even reported having seen broken glass, although this was not part of the clip.

The experiment underpins the crucial insight that language influences our cognitive perception. An experiment that, incidentally, should also make us very wary of the outcomes of survey research in general (as the answers we get are influenced by the way the questions are phrased).

The second experiment is even more famous and is part of the reason that Daniel Kahneman received the 2002 Nobel Prize in Economics. In 1984, Kahneman and Amos Tversky reported on an experiment they conducted in which they presented two groups with two different formulations of the same dilemma (Kahneman and Tversky 1984). The dilemma in question concerned the suggested policy response to ‘the outbreak of an unusual Asian disease’ that was expected to kill 600 people. The core of the matter was that the formulation of the proposed

² This relatively short text draws on earlier work. The best summary of my own work on discourse and dramaturgy is found in Hajer 2009, chapter 2. Additional articles to look at may be Hajer 2006 on ‘doing discourse analysis’, or the recent further development on my thinking, analysing ‘futuring’, in Oomen, Hoffman and Hajer 2021.

policy response differed for the two groups. In one group the emphasis was on how many people would be saved (200 people), while the other group was told how many people would die (400 people) as a consequence of the policy intervention. In actual fact, the outcome was identical, of course: the assessment is that if no action is taken 600 people will die, but the suggested programme can reduce the number of casualties by 200.

This experiment highlights the importance of understanding the role of language in public policy and politics as it affects decision-making matters of life and death. Yet the sting of the experiment is in how it affects the decision-making: 72% of the respondents were in favour of the programme when it emphasized that 200 people would be saved, while only 22% chose the (very same) programme when the emphasis was on the fact that 400 people would be killed. This shows how profoundly language affects public policy decision-making.

The third experiment I derive from the linguist George Lakoff (2004). It is an experiment for the classroom itself and requires all students to close their eyes. You then give them the simple task to *not* think of an elephant for two minutes. It is close to impossible. Of course, from experience I know there is likely to be one student that claims that he (!) did not think of an elephant, but the large majority of students admit: it is impossible to take on this task of not thinking of an elephant if told to do so. As Lakoff points out, this has to do with the fact that the mere word 'elephant' leads to our imagination of the animal. Why is this important? Because it makes the students experience how language influences perception. And this is a crucial aspect of public policy and politics. When a president invokes the metaphor of 'war' people listening will be inclined to think of 'enemies' and 'allies' ('if you are not with us, you are against us'). Frames and metaphors stick and powerfully affect audiences. An example from my own experience as policy advisor may serve to illustrate this. In 2010, I presented a report that was meant to make the government and the general public more aware of the role of diets (and particular meats) in climate change. The policy suggestion was that this should also be taken into account in mitigation policy. We proposed to put a price on this 'externality'. Yet at the press conference journalists immediately asked if I was proposing a 'meat tax'. This negative frame (tax as 'yet another burden' on the public) immediately dominated the discussion, hindering the original educational intention of raising awareness of the role of diets in climate change abatement strategies.

In teaching these three experiments, students are helped to understand that language is not 'merely' a neutral medium to express what you want to say, but is a topic for research in itself. Based on that foundation one can then discuss the various concepts that you can use to deal with the power of language in public policy.

The virtuous thing about teaching discourse and dramaturgy is that, once students know where and how to look, they will recognize the power of language and setting, come up with examples themselves, internalize the patterns they saw and will never forget. Moreover, the course can always be based on concrete examples taken from contemporary affairs. Indeed, having taught discourse and dramaturgy for decades, I have never had any difficulty finding material in the media to illustrate the new analytical tools, just days before class. For example, take the fact that you cannot escape the power of a frame by denying it. The classic example is that of President Nixon, addressing the American nation via television to ease the pressure put upon him because of the Watergate scandal way back in 1972. Nixon spoke the infamous words 'I am not a crook', using the television camera to look the American public directly in the eye. Indeed, here is a case of where academic knowledge also allows for good policy advice. Never try to distance yourself from a 'frame' by using the selfsame frame and trying to

deny it. It does not work. As George Lakoff pointed out, by saying ‘not a crook’ you are actually saying ‘*not* a crook’ and, in so doing, you invoke and reproduce the very frame of ‘crook’. And then you are caught up in the web of language, since frames somehow stick. The person, Nixon, gets tied to the label ‘crook’: Nixon/crook, Nixon/crook. Consequently, people will think of a ‘crook’ when they see the person Nixon. The alternative strategy would have been to reframe; create your own perspective on the situation, using words of your own choosing. Say, for example, that you are the ‘father’ of the nation, who will do anything to protect its safety, even if it is slightly illegal. Be it as it may, the attempt to deny a frame by invoking it (‘I am not ...’) is very common and therefore there is always teaching material available from the recent news. In fact, for teaching this makes a very nice couple: a classic case (e.g., Nixon and Watergate) and a case from present-day politics.

DISCOURSE AND FRAMES: METHODS TO ANALYSE THE ROLE OF LANGUAGE

In the American tradition, a lot of emphasis is put on the conscious choice of words. Take for instance the example of the utterance ‘I am not a crook’ above. This is often analysed using the concept of ‘frame’. This then explains power in terms of active framing. Robert Entman’s seminal piece on the topic (1993) states that ‘To frame is to *select some aspects of a perceived reality and make them more salient in a communicating text, in such a way as to promote a particular problem definition, causal interpretation, moral evaluation, and/or treatment recommendation* for the item described’ (Entman 1993: 52, italics in original). Introducing ‘frames’ and ‘framing’ as a first conceptual step is generally helpful as it is close to the common-sense understanding of language. ‘Framing’ is about active choice, about individuals making those choices, and it is about politics and power as commonly understood and reported by journalists: a horse race. Framing often ends up analysing who is best at using the power of frames (Borah 2011).

The idea that language is actively used in contemporary politics for political purposes is accurate, of course. So, we see how policy makers and politicians consciously think about what frame to use. They would label a particular policy package as a ‘relief’ package, or they speak of a ‘green new deal’. In the first instance, as Lakoff (2004) points out, the politician poses as hero, relieving people from a burden. In the second example one invokes a historic analogy, here the positive association with the New Deal of the 1930s that was successful in fighting unemployment as well as in acting upon the ecological drama of the ‘dust bowls’ that haunted America at the time. I would always emphasize that understanding framing is just a first step into the topic.

I prefer to analyse language using the concept of ‘discourse’, which puts the emphasis more on the ‘family of words’. It also has a different origin, going back to the work of Michel Foucault (2020) and the linguistic philosophy of Ludwig Wittgenstein (2009). In the introduction I defined discourse as ‘an ensemble of notions, ideas, concepts, and categorizations through which meaning is ascribed to social and physical phenomena ...’ (Hajer 2009: 60). This already reveals an important difference with frames. Discourses are often pre-given. Take as an example a graduate starting a first job in public policy after leaving university. Upon entering, she will be confronted with all sorts of new words and concepts that all colleagues use, and that, initially, do not make any sense to the outsider. This we could call the policy

discourse of that department or ministry. In this language all sorts of power struggles of the past are captured and reproduced. Here, language is just as important as operational routines ('this is the way in which we do things here').

My argument is that any policy domain comes with a particular discourse and that analysts and practitioners should be aware of the way in which that affects the possibility to influence the course of affairs. It is almost obligatory to use the (specialized) language of particular policy domains to express yourself meaningfully. But that (pre-given) language comes with a bias. If you work in the domain of energy policy you often talk about 'supply' and 'demand'. You invoke the language of the engineer and you can meaningfully talk about 'inputs' and 'outputs' and 'energy loss', but it will be hard to talk about 'empathy', 'just transition', 'energy poverty' or 'solidarity'. In my own empirical research into environmental politics, I revealed how, over time, it has come to be dominated by a particular way of talking, which I labelled 'ecological modernization', with a crucial role for science in defining the problem, and economics in where to look for solutions (Hajer 1995, 1996; Hajer and Versteeg 2005; Mol, Sonnenfeld and Spaargaren 2009). Central in this discourse is the conviction that 'pollution prevention pays' and that a new policy regime can therefore basically deliver. Innovation and technological solutions are central in this ecological modernization discourse. This linguistic dominance was not apparent for many of those involved in environmental policy making. Yet to speak with influence in policy circles they all had to comply to this dominant way of speaking (Hajer 1995). Yet by doing so, the value of environmental improvements got more and more monetized. Ethics was driven out, and an economic way of reasoning took hold of the domain of environmental policy: pollution or destruction was not economically rational (be it often in the longer term). To show that 'pollution prevention pays' think tanks invented concepts like 'ecosystem services'. With this concept one could 'measure' the savings related to leaving a mangrove forest intact (saves you the costs of building a dike). But such discourses are never innocent as 'ecosystem service accounting' would implicitly suggest that the value of another natural element is without value, while others, like first nations, may assign great spiritual value to it.

By focusing on discourse (the concepts, categories, etc. of the above definition) we can now study the language used (what we call 'language in use') in policy making or politics allowing us to reveal how this language *itself* is a factor influencing power differences and also policy strategies and outcomes.

Language matters. It matters as it can be seen as the solidified values and preoccupations of the past, just like it can be used to open up such commitments. Moreover, it creates power unbalances as some people can utter their concerns easier than others. Take the topical climate debate: you need to master terms like CO₂, ppm (parts-per-million), negative emissions, CCS (carbon capture and storage), urban heat island, climate 'adaptation' and 'mitigation', blue and green hydrogen, and national pledges, if you want to be able to express yourself with authority in the world of environmental policy making. But what if you want to address how our lifestyles and institutional regimes are implicated? What if you want to speak about nature in spiritual terms? What if you think it is simply wrong to measure the value of nature in monetary terms? Well, you just cannot express yourself in the eco-modernist language of the powerful, and you must reckon with the fact that you will not be taken seriously (cf. Ghosh 2021 for further illustrations).

This example of environmental politics reveals that in empirical reality we often have to work with a whole language, a vocabulary if you like, related to various institutionalized

practices, not ‘simply’ a frame. This is why I prefer to use the term ‘discourse’ over ‘frame’. Moreover, discourse analysis comes with a relational understanding of power that draws on the work of Michel Foucault (2020) and Judith Butler (1988) for instance, suggesting actors routinely ‘enact’ relations via language. This is different from a perspective in which actors consciously choose to use language, such as that which underpins the idea of ‘framing’. We will come back to this social theoretical underpinning later on in this chapter.

DOING EMPIRICAL RESEARCH

Discourse is something a researcher can bring out empirically. That can be done, first of all, by making students aware of the ubiquitous nature of text. We type messages, we write policy documents, we read newspapers or news websites, we listen to the news. And the good thing about text is that you can read and code texts (policy documents, newspaper reports, etc.), watch presentations and social media. Moreover, you can use texts for a secondary analysis, doing interviews with people who wrote or uttered a particular text and then, based on this qualitative or quantitative research effort, infer a particular ‘language in use’ (cf. Hajer 2009). That inference of a particular regularity in the words that people use to make sense of the world is a first finding for a discourse analyst. Subsequently, the analytical effort must be to see how that discourse actually mobilizes bias: are there points of view? Are there interests that are hard to articulate using that language, like in the example of the eco-modernist discourse I discussed above? Can we infer who becomes powerful if social or physical realities are constantly described using language?

Here the ‘site’ of your research is also crucial. We may want to broaden our research and look out for the wider ‘discursive space’, searching for sites and settings outside the immediate policy perimeter. Perhaps there are groups around that use a different vocabulary and have a different idea about what ‘really’ is at stake as well? This exploration of alternatives can be really informative as alternative discourses shed light on the discursive bias of dominant discourses. Also, we see how discourse analysis can be used very well in comparative research: in that case, two different countries/cities/organizations discuss the same topic but in slightly different terms. And in those terms, we can often see hidden value commitments (Prettner et al. 2021).

To teach discourse effectively, one can require students to try and analyse the discourse in their own environment. Writing in 2022, the various national policy approaches to COVID-19 come to mind, but a discourse analysis might also be done of a sexual harassment protocol, the university’s divestment strategy (if they have it at all) or the efforts of universities to develop their ‘public engagement’ profile.

Going back to the definition, it is of course also possible to speak of ‘legal discourse’ (analysing the way in which legal terminology produces a particular approach to a given subject matter), or of ‘economism’ if a public policy field is dominated by economic concepts and categories (like ‘costs and benefits’, macro-economic effects, or measuring value with a measure like GDP) and then investigate how this determines the way value is allocated in that policy domain.

Discourse analysis can be taken on via qualitative or quantitative methods or a mixture of both. A range of software programmes is available to examine large bodies of empirical material, like ATLAS.ti or Nvivo. Ideally, students should get a feel for what you can meaning-

fully research with both qualitative or quantitative methods. Quantitative work allows to test the presence of linguistic categorizations in a larger context than qualitative work would allow for. Yet much depends on a careful and iterative process of coding. Qualitative work has much more appreciation of the interaction between the words uttered and the context within which they were uttered. Quantitative work, on the other hand, may allow you to spot ‘coexistences’ of linguistic categories that you might overlook in a smaller sample.

Discourse analysis focuses on language and hence there is space to discuss the role of narrative and stories in public policy (Roe 1994; Throgmorton 1996), to discuss the role of metaphors and how they can give a certain ‘direction’ to the political debate (Lakoff and Johnson 1980), or point at the importance of classifications in politics as they, in the words of Deborah Stone ‘... confer advantages and disadvantages, rewards and penalties, permissions and restrictions, or power and powerlessness’ (Stone 2001). Many case studies have been written using such concepts, opening up new ways to conceive of effective planning as ‘persuasive storytelling about the future’ (Throgmorton 1996) and to see how ‘to classify is to give the world a structure’ (Bauman, in Stone 2001). All in all, the point is that language is power. Indeed, making people conceive of the world according to your discourse is probably the highest form of power as it penetrates the imagination of people. Power via discourse is of a subtle sort, as subjects may miss the fact that power has been exercised (more on doing discourse analysis in Hajer and Versteeg 2005).

STRUGGLING WITH THE MATERIAL: THE CONCEPT OF PRACTICES

The above included my initial definition of discourse. Yet, in actual fact, I only quoted the first part of my definition. The full definition runs: ‘An ensemble of notions, ideas, concepts, and categorizations through which meaning is ascribed to social and physical phenomena *and which get reproduced through a particular set of practices*’ (Hajer 2009: 60). Adding ‘practices’ is a crucial step. The point here is that language does not ‘float’ freely in time and space, but is embedded in particular routines; that is how discourses survive and reproduce. A famous example was Wittgenstein’s bricklayer who uttered all sorts of words that only made sense in his practice of building a house with bricks. This is how Wittgenstein came to the concept of a ‘language game’, and it can be taught referring to the very example that Wittgenstein used himself, invoking the bricklayer. People structure their interaction via language, and this also relates to building a house. The bricklayer tells his colleague ‘Pass me the mortel, please’ and the ‘mortel’ makes sense to his colleague, as it is part and parcel of the practice of bricklaying (no solid wall without using cement/mortel) and this is how the linguistic connects to the practical. This again helps discourse analysis: we can now connect the language in use to the actual existing social or organizational practices and localize the places where discourses are produced and reproduced.

An example from higher education is the way in which neoliberalist idea have slipped into academic practice. The language of efficiency, costs, predictability and service delivery first problematized existing university routines, and then led to the introduction of all sorts of new management practices (‘Key Performance Indicators’, SMART definition of goals, promotion according to individual performance measured via publication in commercially owned peer-review journals and a ‘H-index’, invented by that same publishing industry, or

take the – bizarre – practice that departments have to rent lecture theatres according to a rate that is related to the external real estate value of university premises, like in the Netherlands) that were the materialization of that new discourse in institutional routines. And these practices shape mentalities: early career researchers refuse services to keep their focus on the criteria spelled out for tenure; a head of department decides to cancel a research seminar because of the internal costs of renting the room. Of course, the recent concerns over the embedded colonial past in our practices of research and education are a similar example. The fact that we are now confronted with the unpacking of remnants of colonial pasts via discourse analysis is itself evidence of the power of discourse. After all, generations of scholars have not problematized the terminology and assumptions in teaching materials and research strategies. Fortunately, now actors have found the language and practices of protest to do so effectively.

I bring two additional terms to the situation that help to explain how language is power: ‘discourse structuration’ we use to describe a situation in which a particular discourse starts to influence the way of expressing, seeing and feeling (for instance, the fact that we now have new words to avoid carrying over the colonial past, speaking of ‘first nations’ or ‘people of colour’), and ‘discourse institutionalization’ is the subsequent phase when that way of seeing materializes in new institutional routines (I would argue that it is still early days for the decolonialization of university practice, which would, for instance, require engineering classes on resource extraction to discuss the particular political regime under which (mostly foreign) companies get the commission to dig out resources like lithium, copper or iron ore).

Practices create a nice intermediate empirical focus. One of the most prominent theorists in the field of discourse analysis, Judith Butler, speaks of practices as a ‘stylized repetition of acts’ (Butler 1988: 520). Practices are a middle layer between the ‘institutions’ and the individual that allows us to analyse the dynamics of something big like a university. One can analyse a university in terms of the practices-in-use that make up how we ‘live’ our university lives. But importantly, focusing on an ‘ontology of practice’ (according to which we analyse the world in terms of the practices that we find) allows us also to identify how change occurs and where we can localize the entry points for change.

THE DISCURSIVE PARADOX

A component part of discourse analysis that requires some more attention in teaching is whether or not protagonists and antagonists in a given political conflict quarrel about the terms that should be used, or whether they conduct their fight using the same discourse. This is crucial. Language can be the container of the conflict and quarrels can take place within that sphere described by that discourse. I invented the term ‘discourse coalition’ to describe this. A discourse coalition is a set of actors that, via their activities in particular practices, shares and reproduces a particular construction of reality (cf. Hajer 2009). Note that actors within a particular discourse coalition do not necessarily agree with each other on matters of substance; yet they share a language to express their concerns and fight their fights. Hence, they will also search for solutions within the confines of the reality that that particular discourse allows one to express.

We use the concept of ‘discursive paradox’ to describe this (Hajer 1995): one can latch on to the dominant language but then accept the limitations to what can be said meaningfully with that vocabulary, or choose to express oneself in the preferred language but run the risk of

not being taken seriously and being refused access to decision-making conversations. There is no simple rule which strategy is better. Yet we can see that social movements have often managed to change the dominant discourse by insisting on speaking on their own terms. Think of the animal rights movement or, more recently, the ‘divestment’ (from fossil fuel companies) movement. Both argued their case in moral terms – the animal rights movement pits the ‘meat industry’ against ‘care for living animals’, and the divestment movement would argue that a university that is future-oriented and educates the next generations cannot, at the same time, have assets in stocks of a fossil fuel industry that jeopardizes that very same future, as it goes against what it means to be a ‘good’ university – and have managed to cause major shifts in policy discourse.

This hidden power of discourse can also be brought out in the classroom. People who are bilingual and have lived in different cultures then have a privilege as they are able to reflect on whether the things that can be said and thought in one language can ‘simply’ be translated in another without changing meaning. They will often, quite spontaneously, come up with examples illustrating the ways in which language forms a web of meaning from which people cannot disentangle themselves so easily.

Alternatively, a given discourse can itself become the focus of debate. The recent meaning of the term ‘woke’ refers to the extent to which people are sensitive to the signifiers of the dominant ‘white’ discourse and appreciate the cultural values and interests of marginalized communities and/or communities of colour. This then radically opens up the discourse and requires a willingness to engage in a search for a new terminology with which one can create the basis of new conversations.

SOCIAL THEORETICAL UNDERPINNINGS

When teaching the crucial role of language in public policy at MA level, one can also touch on the somewhat more complicated epistemological and ontological underpinnings. While there are many variations of discourse analysis, there are some underlying principles that are especially welcomed by graduate students, PhD students in particular. I usually deal with them in a particular order.

Firstly, arguing that language creates social realities places discourse analysis squarely in the tradition of the social construction of reality (Berger and Luckmann 1967). But this raises the question of how this process of social construction unfolds. Discourse analysis suggests linguistic exchanges are crucial in this process. Language is no longer regarded as (neutral) ‘medium’ and language utterances are always in the context of particular, historically given, practices. Secondly, the next step is to bring the actors back in: after all, practices do not act by themselves, but are dead unless produced, reproduced and transformed in interpersonal interaction. Behind this are big debates between pluralists and elitists and later structuralists (emphasizing the power of structures) and poststructuralists (rediscovering the role of agency). Looking closely at how language is uttered one can see how people make ‘claims’ via their utterings; they create relations between people and, via their utterances, also either suggest the world is changeable or fixed and impenetrable. Where structuralists (like the early Foucault) may use ‘discourse’ to show how everything is predetermined, the poststructuralist approach would argue that all depends on the actual enactment (Butler 1988). In this vein, discourse is always a set of claims, the power of which depends on the degree that it is actually taken up.

Power and influence are then analysed in the interaction of actors with the appreciation that particular practices are biased and often favour the interests of some actors, not others.

Thirdly, analytically the social construction of reality thus takes place between actors. Someone makes a statement, but the effectiveness of it in terms of allocating meaning is dependent on the uptake of that 'claim' by others. The third step is to see that we are defined by the web of relations that we find ourselves in and that we produce and reproduce via our interaction. This amounts to a 'relational ontology': society exists not in the collection of persons but in those relations. Epistemologically this requires us to look for ways to reveal how these relations are produced, reproduced and often routinized. This is why I would speak of an 'ontology of practice', as practices are then often what is brought out by the analyst as the way in which relations are kept in place over time.

Discourse analysis, then, is an example of a 'relational epistemology' that can bring out the relations that are defined among actors. A discourse analysis gives hand and feet to this relational social science focusing on how language creates relations among actors and how language can also change those relations. Even within this relational view there is a range of possible approaches. Whereas Goffman (1959) would speak of 'roles' that people play (which is closer to the structuralist end of the spectrum) others would argue people are constantly active in a game of 'positioning' (Davies and Harré 1990). The latter theory leaves more space for agency.

While this may appear overly theoretical, this relational approach to understanding social realities opens up vistas for research. Bear in mind that it may appear counter-intuitive to the uninitiated: many people will come to the situation with a common-sense idea of 'powerful actors acting' and consciously 'deciding' on changes in reality. But discourse analysis suggests that the space for individual, cognitive choice is far more confined than people are often aware of or would tend to admit. We live our lives in the web of discourses we do not always see. There are, of course, many exercises you could do in the classroom to try and make students aware of the power of discourse in their own reality, how this influences their thinking and even their taking things for granted or seeing some practices as a reason for protest.

METHODOLOGICAL REQUIREMENTS

The above also impacts on how we can best study the role of language.

Ideally, one works with material of 'actual interactions'. This can be parliamentary proceedings, speeches, participation in talk shows, utterances on X, previously Twitter, or op-eds in newspapers or on online platforms. In these cases, one has direct access to the language-in-use. It is a primary source. Such statements can be analysed in detail. I consider interviews as a secondary source. This is because an interview creates a setting in itself; people say things as interviewee to the interviewer/investigator. To counterbalance some of the risks of using those statements as if they were themselves language-in-use, one can, of course, give particular excerpts from 'real' statements and ask people to reflect on those. 'You said xxx in this talk show. Can you recall why you said that at the time?'

All in all, the discourse analyst will often illuminate a discourse that is not actively known to the political actors. Discourses are not always obvious to those that reproduce them; they can be an inference on part of the analyst. In that sense it is often the case that they need to be pointed out. That is, of course, a crucial element of the analytical approach: to see if respond-

ents recognize the inferred material. From experience we know that the response can vary from 'Mmm, I suppose you are right' to 'It is truly absurd that you suggest this'. But good empirical work can reveal how different stakeholders use the same terminology in a policy debate, or are seen as not credible precisely because they refrain from using the dominant language-in-use.

Doing discourse analysis requires you to do two things in conjunction: analyse the language-in-use, and, on the other hand, think about what cannot be expressed meaningfully in that language in use. This reflection on the limits to the language in use can make the actual work of the analyst a bit explosive at times. As part of good research ethics, you would like to show your results with your respondents (Hajer 2006). What you have to reckon with is that respondents often feel caught when you share your analysis afterwards. It has happened more than once that people were unpleasantly surprised when they saw how they had indeed restricted themselves unwittingly by the language they used. In teaching the topic, it is therefore important to train students how to approach such conversations.

DRAMATURGY

Once students understand the role of language in the social construction of reality and the reasons for approaching social science using a relational ontology, one can develop the theory by bringing out the 'material' aspect of reality and social change. This topic of the 'material' has been given a big push by the Science and Technology Studies (STS) scholarship of the last decades. Arguably, this insight that we need to appreciate the role of the conditions under which people (can) act goes back to Marx, who famously wrote in *The Eighteenth Brumaire* that 'men make their own history, but they do not make it just as they please; they do not make it under circumstances chosen by themselves, but under circumstances directly encountered, given and transmitted from the past', but it is also manifest in Foucault's analysis of the 'panopticon' as a material form that allowed governments to control prisoners with only few guards present. A discourse-analytical approach to material artifacts is to see the discourse as primary, leading to, or resulting in material artifacts that support a particular regime. As an example, I often use the university itself. In the old ideal of the university as a community for learning, one would ideally shape the conditions so that students can see and feel how academics work. Hence, seminar rooms would be close to the offices of the faculty. However, as the discourse of new public management penetrated the thinking of the university, we see how staff accommodation and teaching often become physically separated. Staff lose their own offices as they are not there often enough. This is allegedly 'more efficient' but no one ever took into account what it did to the mentality of students, to what extent it created a more consumerist attitude instead of intriguing students by allowing them into the habitat of learning and reflection.

The great master of dramaturgy is Erving Goffman (1986). He famously would insist that the first question a social scientist should always ask is 'what sort of occasion is this?'. I have fully incorporated this attitude and seek to teach this to my students. I never claim to fully know what situation I enter; I have trained myself to look for what does not fit, what suggests something else other than the usual may be the case.

Political scientist Murray Edelman famously wrote: 'although every act takes place in a setting, we ordinarily take scenes for granted, focusing our attention on actions' (Edelman 1964: 95). This still holds true. The setting speaks back to a conversation, indeed, sometimes shapes it. Not only is a setting often carefully plotted to influence the outcomes, settings may

also influence us more routinely. I call this the dramaturgy of politics and policy making. Dramaturgy is here defined as the art of making drama and putting it properly on the stage, by means of composition and representation.

Dramaturgy holds that the context of conversation matters and that every action takes place in a specific setting that can and should be analysed. Dramaturgy adds a full new dimension to discourse analysis. Now discussions are not merely about speaking, they are also about acting. Moreover, they are about acting in a particular setting, which now also allows us to analyse the role of the material setting.

To try to make up for the lack of attention to how politics and policy making are also about drama, I teach my students to analyse policy processes on four levels:

- *Who* says what? Analysing the persons speaking;
- *How* are things being said? This then is the level to analyse discourses, frames and framing;
- *Where* is something being said? Here one can pay attention to the particular way in which engagements are staged and the routine type 'stages' of politics and policy making;
- *To whom* is something being said? This is a crucial analytical task which forces the analyst to go beyond the idea of a uniform 'public' that is spoken to; in a social constructivist analysis we look how publics *emerge* as a consequence of discourse and dramaturgy.

To help students I often use the anecdote, taken from real life, of a manager of a multinational producing food stuffs like soup, sausages and butter. He was confronted with incredible numbers of rejects and was, for a long time, unable to reduce this food waste. After pointing out the problem in terms of net produce or lost revenue in board rooms using graphs and numbers, he turned to an alternative dramaturgy. He asked all members of staff, from the coffee ladies to his fellow board members, to come to the plant on a Saturday morning. Once they had arrived, they were dressed in wellies and white lab coats and were asked to board coaches that he had ordered. They then drove to a large warehouse at the other side of town where he had, secretly, asked for all rejects to be stored for a whole month. Here, everybody had to walk through the racks, loaded with rejects, path by path. It being foodstuffs, it smelled like hell and people were totally uncomfortable. Once everyone had walked his scripted route, he addressed the company as a public: 'This is what we wasted. This has now gone on for month after month. And this now has to end.' And this alternative dramaturgy, that used a script in which persuasion worked differently than merely via cognition, in which people had to surrender free time and where suddenly all hierarchical difference was taken out, led to a radical change of practice and a measurable policy success. Of course, there are many similar stories one can use at this point. One of the most celebrated is that of the 'walk in the woods', referring to the 'sudden' diplomatic success in the Cold War era, when, after months of negotiations in an official setting, the leaders of the Soviet and American delegation discovered they could actually come to an agreement, during a joint walk in the woods.

Adding dramaturgy to the analysis of discourse creates a further reason for excitement among students. Appreciating the role of setting and staging presents new variables in understanding the way in which language is politics. It also helps students to reflect on how they might use the staging of meetings in order to help achieve policy results.

CONCLUSION

In this chapter I have sought to show how you can help students see that language is not merely a means to express yourself. It profoundly shapes us. This is of crucial importance to students of public policy in which language and written text play such a crucial role. Much power is embedded in and exercised via language and to be able to see this makes for better policy analysts. Moreover, the discourse-analytical take emphasizes the importance of spotting existing discourses that actors often draw on, unconsciously and collectively. Bear in mind that who determines the language in which we discuss our political issues has won half the battle. Bear in mind that political discussions can take place both *within* and *across* discourses. Yet often particular settings come with a particular way of speaking and discourse. However, if a discussion is confined to one particular discourse certain solutions are rendered irrelevant. Studying discourse and dramaturgy allows us to reveal such confinements and may also help us think of alternative strategies to achieve policy success.

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21. Teaching ‘evidence-based’ policy: Reflections from practice

Katherine Smith

INTRODUCTION

I strongly suspect that the most effective starting point for teaching ‘evidence-based policy’ depends on the backgrounds, disciplinary training and professional experiences of students. My own experiences have often involved teaching students who come from medical, public health or social policy backgrounds so my reflections in this chapter are inevitably shaped by these experiences. While these subject areas are diverse, in disciplinary terms, the students I encounter do tend to share a belief that policies should be evidence-based, or at least evidence-informed (whereas, I imagine that students trained in political science or the sociology of science might bring rather different beliefs and assumptions – a point I return to later). This belief that policy should be informed by evidence is one that, for the most part, I share. So, I often begin teaching sessions by engaging with this assumption, focusing on some classic examples of how evidence has changed policies and practices in ways that have brought societal benefits. Nevertheless, I feel it is important for any teaching space to surface the assumptions we are each bringing to the topic, so that we are more aware of the way our existing thinking shapes our learning, preferences, beliefs and practices. It is also always good practice to try to think about an issue from alternative perspectives, especially in the context of an ever-changing policy landscape. Indeed, as populism rises (Moffit, 2016), I think we have an obligation to reflect on what this means for ‘evidence-based policy’, both as an aspiration and in terms of the practices that those working to improve the use of evidence in policy have promoted; practices which often seek to achieve greater alignment between academic work and policy goals.

Consequently, I tend to structure my teaching on this topic with a view to surfacing foundational assumptions among those whose starting point is that policy ought to be informed by evidence. I try to encourage students to go on something of a journey in their thinking about the interplay between evidence and policy, exploring and reflecting on some of the challenges and limitations of practices advocated in the name of evidence-based policy. The risk with this approach is that it leaves students disillusioned. In the hope of avoiding this, I attempt to balance these challenges with sessions that try to bring key insights and lessons together in a constructive way, exploring how we can adapt efforts to promote evidence to policy audiences as the landscape around us changes.

TEACHING WHAT, HOW AND WHO?

The rest of this chapter provides a more detailed outline of the way I have come to teach evidence-based policy in the UK and explains the rationale underpinning the content and

structure. In the spirit of surfacing assumptions (as I have suggested we all need to do), I first reflect on some of the assumptions that have informed my approach. First, the following section assumes a substantial teaching block is available (e.g., regular sessions over a ten-week period, or a shorter more intense period, with each session consisting of something like an hour's lecture followed by an hour or two more group-based, interactive seminar work). This means that I am envisioning a situation in which it is possible to explore evidence-based policy in detail.

I should also note that I had in mind final-year undergraduates or postgraduate students, who have some interest in, or even familiarity with, policymaking systems in the UK or other high-income, parliamentary-style systems (such as in Canada). Although I have not assumed that there will be some students in this mix who have direct experience of working in policy settings, this often has been the case and the structure described enables opportunities for these students to contribute their insights regarding the policy sphere and the role (or absence) of evidence. Where such students engage, student discussions are often greatly enhanced and it also provides important learning opportunities for me, as a scholar seeking to understand policy perspectives on evidence. So, where this is not the case (as is common at undergraduate level in the areas I teach), I tend to bring in guest speakers who can provide reflections on these kinds of direct policy experiences.

The assumptions I have made will not hold for many teaching programmes and this is a clear limitation to what I will go on to outline (indeed, students on the postgraduate programmes I have recently begun teaching on are from a much more diverse range of geo-political settings than I have previously tended to encounter so I am currently working to adjust what I teach in response). The reason my outline reflects these assumptions is partly that this has been my dominant experience of teaching so far (and I am drawing heavily on these experiences) and partly that I try to use my own research (primarily focusing on evidence and policy in the UK and Europe) to bring some of the material to life. However, it is also a reflection of the fact so much of the literature on the evidence-policy interplay focuses on the UK and a small number of other high-income settings (e.g., the USA, Canada, Australia and the Netherlands), or draws on theoretical frameworks and empirical studies developed in these contexts. It is therefore very easy to focus on these contexts but also (I must acknowledge) completely insufficient. For the importance of thinking through how evidence is used in policy, how policy shapes evidence, and what the appropriate relationship between the two is within policy systems and how this interacts with public views, extends to a far wider range of contexts. And our insights are likely to be far richer if we widen our reading to learn through comparison and via theories and analytical frameworks developed in other policy settings (see Chapter 14 by Engeli and Rothmayr Allison in this volume). Indeed, I hope to spend much of the next few years diversifying the geo-political focus of my own reading, understanding and teaching around evidence and policy.¹ So I very much hope that, if I am given an opportunity to revisit this chapter in 3–5

¹ When I co-edited the journal *Evidence & Policy*, for four years from 2018–2021, one of our core priorities was to increase submissions and publications from contexts beyond the UK and this focus is starting to shift. The African Evidence Network (<https://www.africaevidencenetwork.org/en/>) and the World Health Organization are both examples of networks/organisations working to promote evidence-based policy in the Global South. With these attempts will come more opportunities to study what happens when efforts are made to strengthen these connections, and to better understand how a more diverse range of policy systems use, and respond to, evidence-based information. On a more personal level, as I meet more students from the African, American and South Asian continents – many

years' time, it will look much more international in scope. For now, I hope that the example I have given is useful for thinking through the potential structure of teaching evidence-based policy, if not necessarily the substantive content and specific examples.

Before moving to the outline, I want to acknowledge that I am often asked to contribute single sessions on evidence-based policy to modules that have a broader focus on policy-making or particular policy issues. In these cases, I try to provide a high-level overview that touches on all the key points but with far less detail and fewer case studies. In very short sessions, I focus on succinct versions of the material outlined for Sessions 1 and 2 combined with the following three themes (which are the focus of Session 10): First, I always try to emphasise that there is a long history to studying and thinking about the relationship between evidence and policy (at least within the UK and the USA), with many ideas resurfacing repeatedly. It is important to understand this earlier work in order that we can build on it (and avoid making the same mistakes). Second, I encourage students to think about the importance of context by drawing on perspectives of the evidence-policy interplay from a range of different contexts. This includes contrasting different organisational contexts, different national contexts and different historical contexts, but I also try to emphasise the inescapable role that our disciplinary training plays in shaping not only what role we each think evidence should play in policy but also how we each understand evidence (so what we each think constitutes evidence). Third, I work to consistently identify the role that politics plays in the relationship between evidence and policy, noting that evidence itself is shaped by politics (e.g., in terms of which research is funded and by whom). I am currently using this third theme to encourage students to revisit ideas and guidance for improving the role of evidence in policy in the context of a populist politics in which facts are disputed, and evidence and expertise dismissed.

OUTLINING AND EXPLAINING MY APPROACH TO TEACHING EVIDENCE-BASED POLICY

Session 1: The Case for Evidence-Based Policy

This session starts with a lecture that asks why we might desire policy to be 'evidence-based'. It considers the views of 'science' advocates, who make strong claims about the potential value of scientific evidence for policy. For example:

Science matters when it has amassed good evidence that defines policy challenge, such as climate change, and the effects that different solutions might have. In many ways, it matters still more when the evidence base is weak and questions are more open. If ministers want to know how best to teach children to read, or how best to rehabilitate drug offenders, they can use the evidence of science to find out. [...] Politics asks tough questions of our leaders, but science provides a great tool for answering them. (Henderson, 2012: 9)

Randomised controlled trials (RCTs) are the best way of determining whether a policy is working. They are now used extensively in international development, medicine, and business to identify which policy, drug or sales method is most effective. [...] However, RCTs are not routinely used to

of whom have direct policy experience – I have opportunities to learn (which is one of the many benefits of dialogue-based teaching).

test the effectiveness of public policy interventions in the UK. We think that they should be. (Haynes et al., 2012: 4)

I then encourage students to work interactively to identify the common threads that connect these apostles of ‘evidence-based policy’. Classic answers are that evidence-based policies are more likely to be effective or successful (precisely what we mean by success is something I often encourage students to discuss and critically reflect on since I often find students have different ideas about this). I then challenge students to come up with some examples of evidence-based policy that they feel have been successful, before introducing some classic examples from the literature. The aim here is to focus our attention on cases in which evidence is thought to have played an important role in achieving policy shifts that are widely accepted as having been beneficial for society. Reflecting both my own expertise and the strong ties between the concept of evidence-based policy and that of evidence-based medicine, many of these examples I draw on myself emanate from public health, such as: tobacco control measures, vaccination roll-outs, the introduction of legal requirements to wear seat-belts in cars and the regulation of harmful products such as asbestos. We also look at NICE (the National Institute for Health and Care Excellence in England) as a case study of an organisation producing evidence-based guidance (e.g., around clinical practice and pharmaceuticals). So far, so positive.

The next task – which I usually undertake within interactive seminars – is to encourage students to start thinking more critically about the idea of evidence-based policy. I start by asking students to think of examples in which policies appear to ignore available evidence (they usually have plenty!) and examples of evidence-informed policies that have turned out to be ineffective, problematic, contested or unsuccessful in some other way (this part is usually harder for many students, the exception being those who have worked in policy settings for any period of time). After discussing some of these examples, I encourage students to ask questions about the seemingly successful examples of evidence-based policy in Table 21.1:

Table 21.1 Questioning ‘successful’ examples of evidence-based policy

Successful example of ‘evidence-based policy’	Questions to ask
Tobacco control policies in 21st century UK	Why did it take so long for evidence to lead to substantive policy change?
Vaccination roll-outs (e.g., polio and small-pox)	The MMR scandal, the growth of anti-vaccination movements and the re-emergence of key infectious diseases
Regulations of harmful substances such as asbestos	Why are so many other carcinogenic substances not regulated to this extent and why are occupational cancers so high?
NICE’s evidence-based approach to assessing new pharmaceuticals	Why is it that some pharmaceuticals that were not recommended to the NHS by NICE have nonetheless been made available by the NHS (e.g., Herceptin, a drug used to treat certain types of breast cancer)?

One (somewhat simplistic) answer to all of the questions in Table 21.1 is ‘politics’ and, at this point, I often introduce the view (which is popular within evidence-based policy scholarship) that ‘politics’ is the key ‘barrier’ to rational decision-making. In Pawson’s terms, ‘politics’ is ‘the four-hundred pound brute’ that quashes the ‘six-stone weakling’ that is evidence (Pawson, 2006: viii). I argue that this is, however, too neat an explanation which is simultaneously overly generous about what constitutes ‘politics’ (party politics, ideologies, public preferences?) and too dismissive of politics (painting politics as simply a barrier to evidence-based

policy inadvertently promotes a highly technocratic and potentially undemocratic vision of policymaking).

By the end of Session 1, my hope is that students have encountered some real-world examples of evidence-based policy that demonstrate the potential for empirical research to inform decisions about what is likely to be societally beneficial, effective and cost-effective. Together we have looked at some of the arguments put forward by evidence-based policy advocates who make a strong case for scientific research (especially particular methods, such as systematic reviews and randomised controlled trials) playing a greater role in policy. However, we have also started to ask some challenging questions about the role of evidence in policymaking, in ways that hopefully encourage students to reflect on some of their own assumptions and beliefs about the role of evidence in policy. Between Sessions 1 and 2, I ask students to come up with examples of policies that they feel are not evidence-based and ask them all to prepare a short (five-minute) presentation on one example in which they try to explain this evidence-policy 'gap'.

Session 2: The Absence of Evidence-Based Policy

The Session 2 lecture starts by introducing some key criticisms of the idea that policies ought to be evidence-based. Here, I often draw on Geoff Mulgan's observation (published in the first volume of the *Evidence & Policy* journal) that, in democratically elected countries, 'the people, and the politicians who represent them, have every right to ignore evidence' (Mulgan, 2005: 224). I consider the case made by some of those involved in promoting the use of evidence in policy that it might be more realistic to advocate for 'evidence-informed' policy (see Boaz et al., 2008). However, I also note that such compromises have provoked significant consternation among evidence-based proponents. Pawson, for example, dismisses 'evidence-informed policy' as 'a horrible expression, all thin-lipped, prissy and politically correct' (Pawson, 2006: viii). Meanwhile, Sanderson argues that 'advocacy of a more "realistic" position of "evidence-informed policy making" conflates description with prescription, legitimises the status quo and potentially undermines our ambitions for stronger use of evidence in policy making' (Sanderson, 2009: 700). I conclude this opening part of the lecture by arguing that one of the problems with placing such a central focus on the role of evidence in policy is that it makes it difficult to conceive of politics as anything other than a stumbling block for evidence. From this perspective, it seems hard to get beyond the idea that 'evidence' and 'politics' are opposing forces, locked in battle (e.g., Pawson, 2006; Monaghan, 2011).

In the next part of the lecture, I draw on three policy case studies in which there are clear gaps between available research evidence and dominant policy approaches. We explore each of these in turn to try to identify why these gaps exist. The case studies I commonly draw on, and the issues I draw attention to, are summarised in Table 21.2.

Having briefly examined each case study in turn, I then introduce seven widely cited 'models' of the relationship between evidence and policy which emanated out of studies of policy efforts to increase the use of social research in policymaking in the US and UK in the 1960s and 1970s (see Figure 21.1 and Weiss, 1977; 1979; 1982). The aim here is partly to introduce students to the wealth of scholarship published on the evidence-policy interplay in the 1970s and partly also to consider the relevance of each model today by considering how each might explain (or not) the case study examples of evidence-based policies introduced in Session 1 and non-evidence-based policies introduced in Session 2.

Table 21.2 *Case studies of evidence-policy gaps*

Case study	Example issues we consider
Illicit drugs (i.e., the lack of alignment between the harms caused by specific drugs and the degree of regulation/accessibility, with reference to alcohol, tobacco, cannabis, heroin and cocaine)	• The role of historical precedents and institutionalism in policymaking • The role of values and ideologies in politics and policymaking • The potentially contrasting lens that can be applied to this policy issue (e.g., criminal justice versus public health) • The role of cultural and societal values in policymaking • The role of media
Health inequalities (here I set out the consistent policy focus on responses that prioritise healthcare and behavioural change with evidence emphasising the importance of material-structural, social and commercial determinants)	• How the organisation of policymaking bodies institutionalises certain ideas • The role of cultural and societal values and preferences in policymaking (and policy perceptions of these values and preferences) • The silo-based nature of research and advocacy • The lack of a clear ‘advocacy-coalition’ • The resources required to implement many of the policy ideas evidence supports • Competing policy pressures • Lack of specific, cost-effective policy solutions
Social security (here I consider the increase in welfare conditionality in the UK with evidence that this is ineffective, socially damaging and, in many cases, costly to administer)	• The role of popular discourses and the ways these come to ‘stick’ • The role of media • The role of cultural and societal values and preferences in policymaking • Ideologies and party politics • The resources required to implement many of the policy ideas evidence supports

By the end of Session 2, the aim is for students to have a sense of which ideas about the role of evidence in policy have persisted over time and to start thinking through what the implications of these ideas are for guidance on how to improve the use of evidence in policy. Here, I often like to compare recent guidance on increasing the use of evidence in policy with Weiss’s assessment of the need to shift from a focus on increasing use to improving use:

There has been much glib rhetoric about the vast benefits that social science can offer if only policy makers paid attention. Perhaps it is time for social scientists to pay attention to the imperatives of policymaking systems and to consider soberly what they can do, not necessarily to increase the use of research, but to improve the contribution that research makes to the wisdom of social policy. (Weiss, 1979: 431)

In reviewing historical contributions, I use a review of this body of work, published by Rein in 1980, which echoes Weiss’ concern and argues that the very notion of research ‘utilisation’ or ‘use’ is unsatisfactory because it suggests a one-way process in which research influences policy but is not itself informed by policy. Rein argues that it would be more helpful to think of the ‘interplay’ between research and policy to highlight the interactive nature of the relationship (Donnison, 1972), and to draw attention to the potential influence of policy on research. Rein also makes a case for moving away from a focus on research use to think about academic contributions more broadly (including, for example, social theory).

We use seminar discussions to think about key differences between the case studies and the implications of these for thinking about the evidence-policy interplay and for developing guidance and interventions to improve/strengthen the role of evidence in policy (here, I draw on a paper I co-authored with Christina Boswell – Boswell and Smith, 2017). As part of this, we consider various factors that might collectively be thought of as ‘politics’ including, notably, public views and preferences or, perhaps more accurately, policy perceptions of these

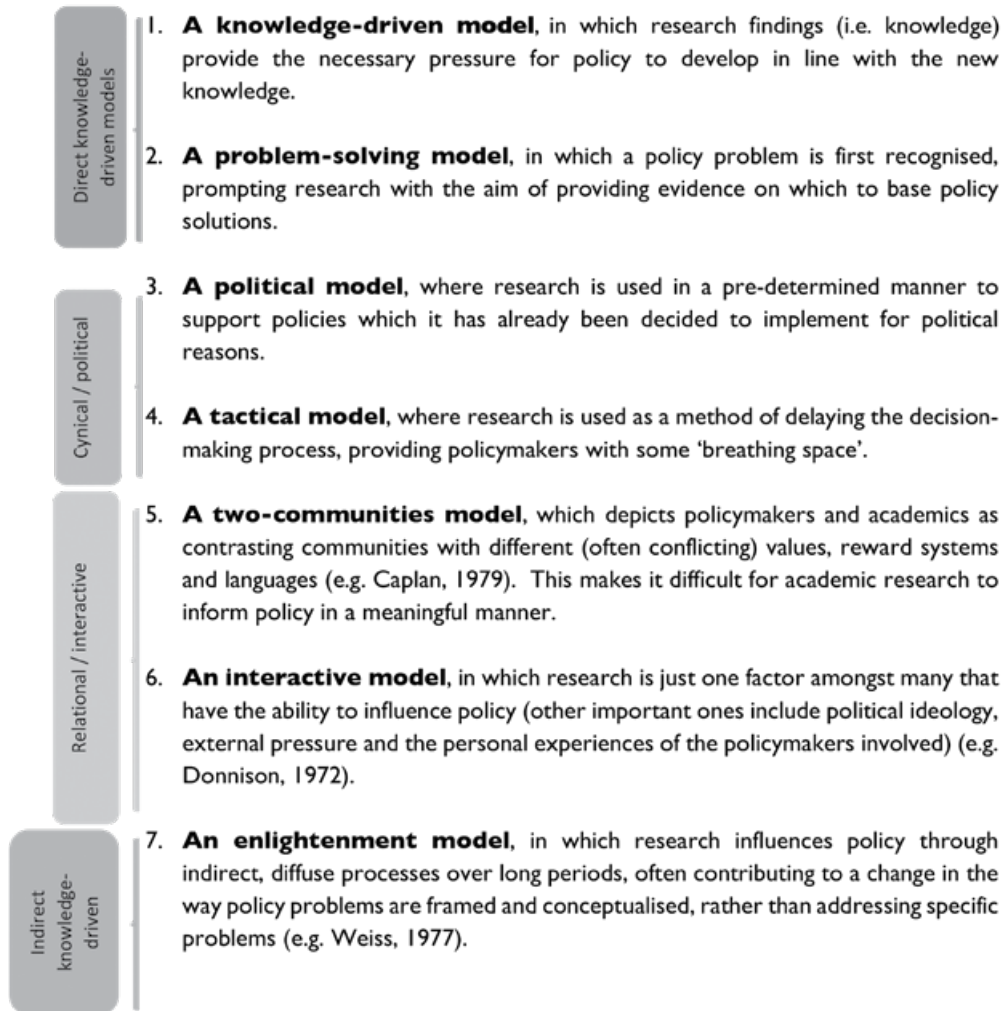


Figure 21.1 *Classic 'models' of the evidence-policy relationship, grounded in historical research in the UK and the USA*

views and preferences. For example, while the existence of conflicts between evidence-based and ideological approaches to politically contentious issues, such as illicit drugs, is widely recognised and means that there are starkly contrasting views about desirable policy goals (Monaghan, 2011), there seems to be rather more of a consensus about the overarching objectives of improving public health and reducing health inequalities. It is therefore less obvious how or why 'politics' might obstruct the use of evidence within this area of policymaking. Yet, disappointingly, most assessments of public health policies conclude that they are also not evidence-based (e.g., Bartley, 1992; Hunter, 2009; Katikireddi et al., 2011; Macintyre, 2011). I encourage students to come up with ideas that might help explain this.

Session 3: From ‘Two Communities’ to Co-Production

In Session 3, we delve more closely into a popular explanation for the lack of evidence-based policy, which is that this disjuncture results from communicative, institutional and cultural gaps between researchers and policymakers. In other words, the gaps between research and policy are perceived to reflect divisions between those involved in producing research evidence and those involved in constructing policies (see, for example, Innvær et al., 2002 and Mitton et al., 2007). The lecture considers how concern about these ‘knowledge to action gaps’, as they are commonly conceived (Wehrens, Bekker and Bal, 2011), has been particularly acute in countries where the evidence-based movement has been most influential, such as Australia, Canada, the Netherlands and the UK. We explore how these concerns have stimulated efforts to develop ‘bridges’ that might help connect the ‘two communities’, including the creation of ‘knowledge broker’ posts and organisations and a growing support for the ‘co-production’ of research, in which decision-makers are involved from an early stage (see Redman et al., 2021; Wehrens, Bekker and Bal, 2011). More recently, we have explored moves to encourage ‘co-production’ and ‘co-design’ in research, in which researchers work collaboratively with potential research users (e.g., Bovaird and Loeffler, 2021). The lecture then introduces some key critiques of these approaches, focusing on the following three areas:

- The potential for closer alignments between researchers and policymakers to lead to the *politicisation of research* (here I often draw on interview material I gathered from academics working in UK academia over the past two decades, as well as critical literature, with the co-authored book Smith et al., 2020 serving as a key source).
- The *limited empirical basis for co-produced approaches* and the difficulties that can ensue, which are often described in empirical accounts of efforts to work in this collaborative way. Here, I draw in some of my own experiences, including the five-year SIPHER consortium (www.sipher.ac.uk), which is taking a co-produced approach with policy partners working at three different levels of UK policy.
- The divergent conceptual origins of the term ‘co-production’, which are informing *confusion about what counts as co-production* (Bandola-Gill, Arthur and Ivor Leng, 2022). In particular, we compare ideas about co-production that centre on research-user collaboration (e.g., between researchers and policymakers) and contrasting conceptualisations which place a strong emphasis on public/community engagement.

In Session 3 seminars, I encourage the students to work in pairs to develop and discuss plans for taking a co-produced approach to one of the three case studies from Session 2 (see Table 21.2). We then collectively discuss these ideas, with reference to the three critiques outlined above. This kind of discussion often evolves into something of a class debate, as contrasting perspectives emerge.

Session 4: Institutionalism

This session introduces a family of theories called ‘institutionalism’, focusing especially on Schmidt’s (2010) concept of ‘discursive institutionalism’, which aims to capture the ways particular ideas come to be embedded in policy organisations, going on to shape policy thinking and decision-making. I use a case study of my own research on health inequalities research and policy in the UK to explore this further, demonstrating how policy ‘silos’ and hierarchies

work as filters to evidence-based ideas, encouraging those ideas which support existing institutionalised ideas (or 'policy paradigms'), whilst blocking or significantly transforming more challenging ideas. I argue that this limits the extent to which research can inform policy, even if a lack of institutional memory within policymaking enables an impression of evidence travelling into policy on a regular basis. The case study shows that re-cycled ideas (both evidence-informed and those widely critiqued within research) can keep travelling into policy settings because of the huge 'churn' of people involved, creating an impression of meaningful, ongoing dialogue between research and policy.

In advance of the seminar, I ask students to: (1) read some classic institutional accounts of policymaking, focusing particularly on Schmidt's work; (2) try to identify how policy is organised for an issue they are interested in, in a setting they are familiar with. In the seminar, I ask students to present their assessment of the extent to which discursive institutionalism helps explain policy development in their chosen area.

Session 5: Publics and Politics – the Symbolic Value of Evidence

This session explores the 'uneasy tension' that Stewart et al. (2020) describe between efforts to promote evidence-informed policymaking and efforts to support democratically engaged policymaking. Once again, we return to the three case studies in Table 21.2, in which evidence and policy have long been misaligned. In the case of illicit drugs, we use Monaghan's (2011) analysis of the way in which politics (both ideologies and party politics) and evidence collide, exploring the role of public views and preferences (and policy perceptions of these) within all this. In the case of health inequalities and social security, I start off by outlining a similar account but then disrupt this by drawing on empirical evidence to demonstrate that policy 'perceptions' of public opinions about these policy areas are not always well aligned with data on public opinions. In fact, available evidence suggests that public views and preferences appear to vary depending on the method and context and, at least by some measures, public views are relatively well aligned with researcher perspectives (e.g., Smith, Macintyre and Weakley, 2022). This then calls into question the idea that 'public opinion' is the key barrier to evidence-based policy for health inequalities or social welfare. This sets the scene for some discussion of the role of discourse and narratives in society and the role of social, broadcast and print media within this.

By the end of this session, many students are often moving away from asking why public policy is evidence-based to asking why we might ever assume it could (or even should) be, and might even be reflecting on the fact research itself is a value-laden activity (e.g., Bartley, 1992; Knorr-Cetina, 1981; Latour and Woolgar, 1986). Given all this, I often close by reflecting on the persistence of evidence-based policy as an idea, noting the strategic utility of being able to claim that a particular policy is 'evidence-based' (Stewart and Smith, 2015). Political proclamations of being 'led by the science' in developing policy responses to the COVID-19 pandemic are used as an illustrative example in which 'the public' was constructively imagined in ways that precluded particular policy responses (Ballo et al., 2022).

For the seminars, I ask students to prepare by choosing a policy topic that interests them and trying to identify: (1) evidence of policy perceptions of (or claims about) public views or preferences; and (2) empirical evidence examining public views or preferences. I then encourage students to work in small groups to discuss how easy (or difficult) it was to identify this kind

of information and to reflect on how well aligned policy perceptions of public views appear to be with data on public views.

Session 6: Corporate Policy Influence

This session takes tobacco policy in the UK as a case study through which to explore policy change (or inertia) in the context of corporate policy influence. Using Sabatier and Jenkins-Smith's (1993) 'advocacy coalition framework' (ACF), we consider whether it is useful (as some have suggested, e.g., Farquharson, 2003; Givel, 2006; Princen, 2007) to conceive of the tobacco policy 'subsystem' as being dominated by two distinct advocacy coalitions: (1) proponents of stricter tobacco control measures, a coalition usually perceived to include public health researchers and interest groups and some policymakers (e.g., those responsible for public health); and (2) opponents of stricter tobacco control measures, a coalition normally portrayed as being dominated by tobacco industry interests but also involving smokers rights' groups, other corporate interests and/or some policymakers (e.g., those responsible for business interests and/or agriculture). It focuses on the ways corporate policy actors have used evidence and experts to influence policy, demonstrating both direct and indirect forms of influence. This includes direct efforts to fund favourable research and to fund experts to critique non-favourable research. However, more subtly, it also includes work to shape what – and who – is considered credible in policy settings.

Here, I draw on my own research exploring tobacco industry efforts to shape policy requirements to undertake *ex-ante* impact assessments in the European Union and key member states (notably the UK). Drawing on documentary and interview data, I show how British American Tobacco worked to influence and promote the 'better regulation' agenda with a view to minimising the impact of public health research (Smith et al., 2015). The lecture highlights: (1) how policy entrepreneurs with sufficient resources (such as large corporations) can shape the membership and direction of advocacy coalitions; (2) the extent to which 'think tanks' may be prepared to lobby on behalf of commercial clients; and (3) the ways in which regulated industries can work to shape the policymaking process (as well as lobbying to influence more specific decisions).

In the seminars, I often undertake a role-playing exercise for alcohol policy, in which students take on the role of key actors (e.g., health minister, finance minister, minister with responsibility for violence and anti-social behaviour, civil servants supporting the ministers, a police representative, an alcohol manufacturer, an on-trade alcohol representative, an off-trade alcohol representative, various advocacy organisations working to reduce the harms caused by alcohol, and public health researchers). I present the group with a draft alcohol strategy (drawing on recent examples from Ireland and the UK) and ask them to research their position in advance. We then bring the group together for a chaired consultation exercise in which the ministers and their civil servants are trying to achieve support for the alcohol draft strategy. We then take 10–15 minutes to reflect on the discussions and the role of evidence and framing within this.

Session 7: Advocacy for Policy Change

This session considers what some think of as the 'flip side' of lobbying, exploring the role of advocacy in policy change. Taking public health as a case study, I start by exploring what

advocacy is, noting that there are multiple perspectives, many of which map to two deeply contrasting conceptualisations: (1) representational advocacy which involves 'selling' evidence to change policy for the benefit of public health; and (2) facilitational advocacy, which focuses on working with communities whose voices are less commonly heard in policy settings to enable their views to better contribute to debates. Drawing on work with my colleague Ellen Stewart (Smith and Stewart, 2017), I make the case that these divergent ways of thinking about advocacy speak to a fundamental challenge regarding the democratic dimensions of efforts to use evidence to influence policy (revisiting some Session 5 discussions). I encourage students to think about the similarities between the work involved in representational advocacy and the corporate efforts to influence policy discussions in Session 6.

With some exceptions, I try to show that whether efforts to influence policy are viewed as 'lobbying' or 'advocacy' often relates more to differences in the underpinning values and interests than to the role of evidence. Since 'representational advocacy' appears more aligned with efforts to influence policy with evidence, I then explore contrasting perspectives on whether academics should engage in this kind of advocacy. I note, for example, a 2014 letter published in the high-profile medical journal, *The Lancet*, written by five public health doctors, argued that 'it is the duty of UK public health institutions to advocate strongly for evidence-based measures to improve the health of society' (Tillmann et al., 2014). But I also bring in examples of academics warning against fellow academics becoming too closely involved in politics and advocacy, and challenging the scientific credibility of those who do.

In the seminar for this session, I encourage students to read some contrasting views on this question and we then undertake a facilitated debate on the topic of 'academic advocacy – duty or propaganda?'. For the purposes of the debate, students are allocated to one side or the other (to ensure an even split) so may, therefore, find themselves arguing in favour of a position they do not actually support. With this in mind, we use the last 10–15 minutes of Session 7 seminars to reflect on whether anyone has altered their original position on the value (and appropriateness) of academics getting involved in advocacy and, if so, why.

Session 8: 'Evidence Tools' – Effective Forms of Synthesis and Influence

This session takes a more practical focus, exploring the range of techniques and methods that have been developed to assemble and present evidence so that it is 'useful' to policy-makers. I take four common 'evidence tools' as examples: (1) policy briefings; (2) impact assessments (of various types); (3) systematic and other evidence reviews; and (4) economic decision-making tools (including cost-benefit analysis and scenario modelling). Drawing on published research (Stewart and Smith, 2015), I argue that, while these tools differ from each other substantially, they share the goal of usefully synthesising evidence for policy audiences and, when undertaken effectively, function to save policy audiences time (e.g., by collating large bodies of research into a format that addresses policy questions). Drawing on interviews with policy actors (in government, in advisory bodies and in policy-facing NGOs), I suggest that evidence tools are more likely to be used, where they:

- Translate evidence across different contexts (e.g., taking evidence of what has happened in what context to make projections about what could happen in the context of concern to policymakers)

- Convey the credibility of a policy option (or decision) to others (internal and external) by acting as a symbolic marker of ‘evidence-based policymaking’
- Offer clear, quantified answers and/or predictions of likely policy outcomes.

With these findings in mind, I suggest that scenario modelling is currently particularly appealing to policymakers and use the case study of minimum unit pricing for alcohol in Scotland as a positive example of the policy influence that scenario modelling can achieve. What this shows is that evidence can be particularly appealing when it predicts specific, quantified outcomes that map to policy goals. However, I also discuss how the ‘black magic’ (as one policy interviewee put it) of modelling can both potentially enhance the appeal of modelling and serve as a risk to its credibility. While the case of minimum unit pricing for alcohol demonstrates that scenario modelling can be used as a successful means of translating evidence into policy, I use two other case studies to show how fragile the credibility of this kind of sophisticated (not widely understood) tool can be. I close the lecture by arguing that the utility of evidence tools may lie primarily in their symbolic value as markers of ‘good’ decision-making.

For the seminar, I provide students with contrasting examples of each of the other evidence tools. Dividing the class into three groups, I ask each group to give a presentation that critically assesses two examples of a particular policy tool (so one group focuses on policy briefings, another on systematic reviews, and another on impact assessments). In all cases, I provide the groups with an example of the evidence tool they are focusing on that policy-based actors have suggested was well received and well used in policy (i.e., an example that had facilitated the use of evidence in policy). I also provide a counter example of the same tool, which policy-based interviewees have criticised (e.g., for not being useful/useable or for not being credible in policy settings). Each group is tasked with assessing why they feel these two examples of the same evidence tool met such divergent fates. The idea is to encourage the students not only to think critically about the potential value (or not) of evidence tools but to try to assess evidence from a policy perspective and, crucially, to consider the broader political and policy contexts that may play a role in shaping the credibility of evidence tools.

Session 9: Deliberative Democratic Forums

The penultimate session considers recent efforts to counter the shortcomings of ‘evidence-based policy’ via strategies for democratising the utilisation of evidence. It focuses in particular on the rise of deliberative forums, which bring lay citizens (often in relatively small numbers known as ‘mini publics’) together with researchers and policymakers. This lecture focuses on ‘citizens’ juries’ and ‘citizens’ assemblies’, using health inequalities and climate change as examples in which such forums have been trialled. After introducing citizens’ juries and citizens’ assemblies, the lecture considers whether these forums might help overcome the apparent tensions that exist between evidence, policy and publics. The lecture uses two case studies to argue that deliberative forums do seem to offer constructive discursive spaces in which it appears possible to overcome some tensions between evidence, policy and publics. However, it also acknowledges reasons to be cautious, given limited political engagement, the high resources required, and challenges around ethically representing minority groups.

In the final seminar session, I try to bring in someone who has been involved in policymaking in one of these areas who has a critical perspective on deliberative forums and someone with deliberative expertise who has more positive accounts. The idea is that both

speakers talk to the group about their experiences for ten minutes each and we then open up a question-and-answer format discussion about the potential for deliberative forums to play a role in evidence-based policy.

Session 10: Revision and Cross-Cutting Themes – History, Disciplines, Context and Politics

The final session I run focusing on revising the key insights that I hope the course has provided. To help with this, I often draw on recent scholarship that tries to unpack some of the debates around evidence-based policy to distinguish normative, values-based perspectives about how policy should be made from realist accounts of how policy is made (e.g., Newman, 2017; Ahlin Marceta, 2021). I then work to draw out the following three themes that cut across Sessions 1–9:

Theme 1: Lessons from history – recycling broken wheels or building on the shoulders of giants?

I encourage students to engage with historical work on the relationship between evidence and policy and to critically reflect on the extent to which scholarship in this area has evolved (or not). Here, I focus especially on the content of Sessions 1–4. My aim is to stress the importance of working to learn from what has gone before or, at least, not to continually reinvent ideas in ways that do not acknowledge, build on or refine what has gone before.

Theme 2: Contextual awareness (institutions and disciplines)

I try to emphasise the importance of context by reminding students of examples in which institutional, political, socio-cultural and disciplinary contexts have played a role in shaping the relationship between evidence and policy. This theme draws particularly on the material in Sessions 2, 4 and 8. While the importance of different organisational and national contexts emerges from contrasting case studies in a way that is quite easy to grasp, I often find myself investing more time in emphasising the inescapable part that disciplinary training plays in shaping the role we each think evidence should play in policy and, crucially, how we each understand evidence (so what we each think constitutes evidence). To help with this, I often refer back to Bartley's (1992) seminal book, *Authorities and Partisans: Debate on Unemployment and Health*, which highlights the strong disciplinary links (e.g., for economics and statistics) that cut across the research-policy boundary.

Theme 3: Politics and publics – revisiting evidence-based policy in populist political contexts

I encourage students to think about the multiple different ways in which politics shapes the relationship between evidence and policy and to think about the role of publics within this. This theme draws especially on Sessions 2 and 4–9. As part of this, I draw the course to a close by going slightly beyond the material covered in Sessions 1–9 to consider whether the rise in populist politics is (or ought to be) changing the way academics approach efforts to influence policy with evidence.

Further Resources

I also use the final session to provide students with a range of additional resources relating to the topics that we have been discussing, which include a mixture of journals, blogs and webpages. These must necessarily be regularly updated but a summary of sources I currently highlight is provided in Box 21.1.

BOX 21.1 FURTHER RESOURCES FOR TEACHING 'EVIDENCE-BASED POLICY'

Blogs

The *Evidence & Policy* blog (<https://evidenceandpolicyblog.co.uk/>) includes lots of blogs summarising the key messages in recent publications in the linked journal as well as some additional policy perspectives.

Professor Paul Cairney's blog (<https://paulcairney.wordpress.com/>) provides a fantastic overview of relevant research and theories of policy change, many of which effectively summarise seminal texts in a few hundred words, providing an accessible introduction.

Transforming Evidence for Policy & Practice (<https://transforming-evidence.org/>) provides a wide range of resources dedicated to trying to improve the use of evidence in policy and practice.

The Integration and Implementation Insights blog (<https://i2insights.org/>) provides regular blogs that relate to evidence translation and use, many of which take an implementation science perspective.

Key Journals

The international journal *Evidence & Policy: A journal of research, debate and practice* (<https://bristoluniversitypressdigital.com/view/journals/evp/evp-overview.xml>) explicitly focuses on the relationship between evidence and policy.

Policy & Politics (<http://www.bristol.ac.uk/sps/policipolitics/>) is a sister journal to *Evidence & Policy* but also regularly publishes on this topic, albeit often with a more policy studies/political science lens

Science & Public Policy (<https://academic.oup.com/spp>) focuses on the relationships between science, technology and policy.

Implementation Science (<https://implementationscience.biomedcentral.com/>) focuses specifically on methods for promoting the uptake of research evidence.

CONCLUSION

In this chapter, I've provided some reflections on my experiences of teaching students about the complex relationship between evidence and policy. I've outlined the structure and content that I often use, via a ten-session module that reflects my approaches to teaching on this topic so far, much of which takes a research-informed approach to teaching, drawing on my

own experiences and research in the UK and EU. I do this for two reasons: (1) so that I can hopefully bring lectures and seminars to life by drawing in research that I know first-hand, allowing me to help contextualise the findings via interesting anecdotes and reflections; and (2) so that I can openly reflect on how my own thinking about the relationship between evidence and policy has changed over time and why this is. An added benefit is that this approach often allows me to draw in people who work in the policy settings that I have referred to, who know me via my research, to come to talk to the students about their experiences. Where this is possible, it is usually invaluable for I frequently find that, no matter how well I think I have made a point about policy perspectives on evidence, these ideas land far better when students are hearing directly from someone who has worked in policy settings.

A fundamental aim of the way I aim to teach 'evidence-based policy' is to encourage students to critically reflect on any assumptions they may hold about policymaking and the role of evidence within this. The assumptions I commonly encounter among students are that evidence plays an important role in policy, that this role should be stronger and that working collaboratively is likely to help achieve this goal. The ten-session course I have outlined was developed with these assumptions in mind. However, as we enter an era of more populist politics, in which the role of experts and 'facts' is increasingly challenged, and the politicisation of research made more explicit, my sense is that the assumptions, and the way I teach evidence-based policy, may need to alter quite substantially. As ever, therefore, the approach outlined here is very much a work in progress.

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22. Teaching introductory policy evaluation: A philosophical and pedagogical dialogue across paradigms

Jill Anne Chouinard and James C. McDavid

INTRODUCTION

There are different, even competing views, on what evaluation is, its overall purposes and its place in the broader policy analysis field (Lemire, Peck and Porowski, 2020). Some definitions of evaluation focus on function (e.g., making judgements, determining merit, worth or significance), others look primarily at purpose (e.g., information for policy development or program improvement), others reflect method use (e.g., participatory evaluation), and still others include theoretical orientation (e.g., fourth generation evaluation) (Shaw, Greene and Mark, 2006). Evaluation is also represented by multiple bodies of knowledge that include evaluation theories (models and approaches), social science theories, methodologies, evaluation and program theories (e.g., regarding implementation, use, participation, etc.), and paradigms (McDavid, Huse and Hawthorn, 2018). In the literature, discussions and reflections include questions around epistemology, values, power relationships, methodologies and the evolution of the field since its beginnings in the 1960s (Alkin, 2012; Lemire, Peck and Porowski, 2020; McDavid and Henderson, 2021). As such, there is not one history of evaluation, but multiple, often competing histories (Shaw, Greene and Mark, 2006) that are shaped by a diversity of disciplines, practices, program and cultural contexts, sectors, rationales, and geographic locations. Today, program evaluation can assume many identities and can play a number of different roles, depending upon the program sponsor, the context, and whether its intended use is to render judgment, facilitate program improvement, or generate knowledge, learning, support, accountability, ongoing monitoring or program development (Patton, 2018).

Implicit in these different conceptions, histories and pedagogies of evaluation are multiple cultural and methodological assumptions concerning the purpose of evaluation, the role of evaluators, the values and principles of practice, the nature and limitations of the inquiry process, and evidentiary standards. As such, the field of evaluation resides very much in what Schwandt (2015) describes as ‘contested space’ (p. 145). Do we position evaluation as a key player in governmental accountability systems, playing a role in policy cycles, or do we see a role for evaluation in terms of providing social betterment? Are these roles mutually exclusive? Are we working in international development evaluating the progress towards SDG goals, or are we measuring the recidivism of sexual offenders? Are we providing governments with results in relation to targets on key benchmarks or indicators, or are we building evaluation capacity among community stakeholders? Are we engaging youth through photovoice projects to help empower them to better understand and advocate for themselves, or are we providing data on performance-based indicators to better manage government expenditures? The questions we pose, our philosophical orientations, educational disciplines, the institutional

rules and regulations that govern how we can teach, the interests and backgrounds of our students, the programs we teach in, and the sectors we work in have pedagogical implications in terms of how we teach and what we teach. The breadth and cultural diversity of evaluation and lack of overall consensus on the history and scope of the field (Montrosse-Moorhead et al., 2021) means that evaluation is represented by multiple views and perspectives, the diversity of which translates into multiple pedagogical approaches for training evaluators (King and Ayoo, 2020).

As such, this chapter will not provide a ‘one best method’ (Taylor, 1911) with which to teach evaluation. The focus of this chapter instead is to highlight how paradigmatic differences between two evaluation scholars and practitioners (Jill and Jim) are made manifest in the design and teaching of their evaluation courses in the same program (a postgraduate program in a professional school). Most importantly, the juxtaposition of their two orientations highlights the diversity and breadth of perspectives and worldviews in the field of evaluation, illuminating the many institutional, political, cultural and social influences that continue to shape the evolution of evaluation theory and practice. We begin with a brief overview of the current state of evaluator education, course content and training programs, most of which are located in a North American or Western context. We then turn to the main focus of this chapter – the philosophical and methodological differences (and similarities) between two experienced evaluation scholars/practitioners and the influences on their pedagogical and curricular approaches to evaluation. We conclude with final implications for teaching evaluation and for the field.

AN OVERVIEW OF EVALUATOR EDUCATION AND TRAINING PROGRAMS

There has been a significant expansion in the function and reach of evaluation over the past 50 years, as well as an increase in the demand for evaluation services, performance monitoring, reporting and audit. At this moment, it is fair to say that evaluation has become a major institution in society (Dahler-Larsen, 2012) as well as a key player in local and global arenas. In an effort to keep pace with the increasing demand for evaluation, there has been a considerable increase in the number of evaluation journals, conferences, professional evaluation associations, internet resources and consultancies. We now see significant local and global momentum around the professionalization of evaluation, with a lot of work being done to develop associated evaluation competencies and related certification and credentialing models based on competencies related to methodology, methods, culture, and personal and professional attributes (Schwandt, 2019). To ensure related skill acquisition as well as to meet market demands, there is also a proliferation of graduate-level masters’ and evaluation certificate programs in Canada, the US, Europe, Africa and Australasia (King and Ayoo, 2020). Recent work by LaVelle (2018, 2020) identifies graduate-level masters’ and certificate programs in over 87 colleges and universities across the United States, with 27 other advanced evaluation programs in Canada, Europe, Africa and Australasia, located in faculties of education, public policy, public administration, psychology, educational psychology and other related disciplines.

Related research also notes significant differences in course content among instructors, programs, disciplines, departments and universities (LaVelle, 2014; LaVelle and Davies, 2021), highlighting the multiplicity of approaches, styles, locations and contexts of teaching,

whether enacted in a classroom, online, in professional workshops or through community engagement during an evaluation or evaluation practicum. While the range of topics and pedagogical approaches and strategies illustrate the breadth of perspectives on evaluation, values and philosophical positions held by evaluators across the field, emphasis is put on evaluator competencies and related technical/methodological skills over other competency domains (Christie, Quiñones and Fierro, 2014; King and Ayoo, 2020). Despite some curricular similarities, there is no ‘common core’ of evaluation, no unified approach to relevant knowledge, skills and attributes (Gullickson et al., 2019), and no agreement on the goals of educational programs for evaluators (Engle, Altschuld and Kim, 2006), as well as no consensus on what effective evaluator training should look like (King and Ayoo, 2020). For some, the motivation for research on evaluator education is to improve quality and consistency of training related to the professionalization of the field (Gullickson et al., 2019; King and Ayoo, 2020), whereas for others the motivation is to develop a better understanding of evaluation practice (Christie, Quiñones and Fierro, 2014), improve the design of evaluation training courses (e.g., Darabi, 2002; Kelley and Jones, 1992; Morris, 1994), understand pedagogical approaches to teaching evaluation in the classroom and in the field (e.g., Buitrago et al., 2015; Hurley, Renger and Brunk, 2005; Perry, 2008), understand the pedagogical strategies used to teach evaluation (Alkin and Christie, 2002), or to prepare aspiring evaluators with what Schwandt (2015) calls ‘a life of the mind for practice’ (p. 143).

Much of the recent discussion about evaluator training and education is situated in debates about accreditation, credentialing, certification, competencies and the professionalization of the field (see Christie, Quiñones and Fierro, 2014; King and Ayoo, 2020; LaVelle and Donaldson, 2015; Lawson, Hunter and McDavid, 2020; Montrosse-Moorhead et al., 2021; Podems, 2014), with a focus on aligning curricular content to the mastery of specified knowledge and skills. In a recent Delphi study of evaluators who led American Evaluation Association Topical Interest Groups (n=11), Montrosse-Moorhead and colleagues (2021) were unable to find consensus on prioritizing evaluator competencies to be taught in graduate programs in areas outside of methodology, even after three rounds of discussion. As they note, these curricular disagreements cut to the heart of the debate about evaluation, what it means to practice evaluation, what it means to do ‘good’ evaluation, and what the role of evaluators is in our society. Others have also noted that while there is some curricular consensus around the acquisition of technical/methodological skills, there is less consensus in other interpersonal competency domains (King and Ayoo, 2020; LaVelle, 2014). From a global perspective, there are numerous challenges in pursuing an agenda of professionalization with such diversity of perspectives on the purpose, nature and use of evaluation, and where questions about what counts as ‘evidence’ remain politically and culturally charged.

CONTRASTING PERSPECTIVES AND ORIENTATIONS: DIALOGUING ACROSS PARADIGMS

We are framing this section to explore philosophical, methodological and pedagogical differences and similarities between two experienced evaluation scholars/practitioners. To frame the discussion, we each address three interconnected questions: 1) Since our perspectives shape our thinking, how would you describe the underlying philosophical assumptions and values that guide your research and practice as an evaluator? 2) From your perspective, what is the

nature of the evaluation ‘enterprise’? 3) What do you consider foundational knowledge for new students?

After our responses, we discuss our similarities and differences and their implications for what and for how we teach.

How Would You Describe the Underlying Philosophical Assumptions and Values that Guide Your Research and Practice as an Evaluator?

Jill: Early on in my graduate studies, I realized that epistemology (how we construct knowledge, under which conditions, what kind of knowledge we construct, and with/for whom) was not only political, it also defined methodological practice and method selection in evaluation, and in the social sciences more broadly. Through my reading at this time, I came to see that how we construct knowledge and what knowledge we construct, is embedded within a matrix of epistemological, social, historical, discursive, cultural, political and material practices (Foucault, 1971, 1972), all of which is foundational to methodology, to how we make meaning in research. This understanding ensures an ongoing epistemological critique of our practice, as we continue to challenge the moral, cultural, social and institutional fabric of our field, and of our work more broadly as evaluators and as teachers of evaluation. I thus remain concerned with the ‘epistemic privilege’ (Pillow, 2015) of evaluators and researchers, and I question whose knowledge is included in our frameworks and theories, and whose is omitted, which forms of knowledge are privileged, which forms are silenced, and whose voices and perspectives are excluded. I am thus drawn to collaborative and culturally responsive approaches to evaluation, as it enables me to foreground the cultural, historical and socio-political nature of knowledge construction in shaping how we come to know, thus providing a way to question and critique the foundational philosophical assumptions that guide methodological practice.

I am also drawn to postmodernism’s critique of Western metanarratives and modernist conceptions of knowledge construction. I recognize multiple, localized and partial ‘truths’, rather than one meta-truth, which for me means that no one group has a monopoly on the truth (Howe, 1994), and thus knowledge must be understood as a contextual, localized reflection and expression. This leads to a less reductionist and more pluralistic conception of our practice, to the active inclusion of diverse voices and perspectives, and to a view of evaluation as a moral and political practice shaped by the local context and people (Schwandt, 2002). I eschew a technological approach to evaluation that seeks certainty, control and the elimination of ambiguity, and instead am drawn to ways of thinking that are responsive to local perspectives and ways of knowing, and that provide philosophical ideas for critiquing the practice of evaluation. I do not want my students to aspire to be ‘torchbearer[s] of modernity’ (Dahler-Larsen, 2012, p. 105), but to embrace the complexity, diversity, ambiguity and uncertainty of the social world, as I believe socio-political awareness and appreciation is necessary today.

Jim: I will begin with a contemporary public policy challenge and tie it to my own philosophical and methodological stance. In the past 18 months (this is being written in June 2021), we have all been a part of the global COVID-19 pandemic. We have witnessed how political leaders and governmental institutions, globally, have responded to the health, economic, political and social challenges of the pandemic, including the challenge of developing, testing and deploying effective vaccines.

In some cases (including within Canada) jurisdictions have downplayed or even ignored science-based information (numbers of cases, infection rates, reproduction

rates, among others) and have suffered repeated cycles of rising infections, hospitalizations and deaths. In the United States, where responses to the pandemic have been politicized at all levels of government, there is an ongoing problem of the willingness of some to be inoculated. The policy differences between the two major political parties and politicizing the science/evidence around the pandemic has cost lives and deepened the distrust of science and science-based institutions.

In 2018, Michael Patton, in an article published in the *American Journal of Evaluation*, made his case for being an evaluation scientist. He was responding to the anti-science rhetoric that is now a part of American political discourse. He defines evaluation science as follows: 'Science is systematic inquiry into how the world works. Evaluation science is systematic inquiry into how, and how well, interventions aimed at changing the world work' (p 184). His concern is that where science has been increasingly under attack, public policies are made without seriously considering scientific evidence. In the case of COVID-19, downplaying or ignoring evidence has had negative consequences internationally.

His view, and mine, is that it is important to take a stand in defense of what science does. For him, having a science-based imprimatur connotes credibility. Connecting evaluation with science is a way of enhancing the stature of the field in public policy-related discussions.

My own philosophical and methodological approach to evaluation has evolved over time but has been substantially shaped by my own background – starting in the physical sciences, then the social sciences (economics, political science), and then developing an enduring interest in the history and philosophy of science. Although there are important differences between evaluation and the sciences (including the social sciences), my stance shares with the sciences: the importance of observable and replicable data, methodologies that are transparent, and an openness to having one's results challenged through a process of peer scrutiny and replication.

My own orientation to the evaluation field is pragmatic (less concern with the alignment between particular methodologies and corresponding philosophical positions). Pragmatism emerged in the evaluation field out of the 'paradigm wars' in the 1980s and has been a de facto 'resolution' of that debate (McDavid and Henderson, 2021). Like Patton, I believe that there is a world that we can apprehend (describe and explain), and although there are important differences between the social, biological and physical sciences, they are not fundamentally different – there is no clear demarcation between these domains – and our pandemic-related experiences suggest that treating them as if they are separate results in negative consequences (measured by lives lost, for example). Although the philosophical debates among evaluators are important as we try to conceptualize the whole field, my main emphasis as a scholar/practitioner has been on practice, particularly evaluation practice in governmental/public sector and quasi-governmental settings. Those settings are conducive to pragmatism – designing and implementing public policies in contexts where competing values are the norm (Goodman, Zammuto and Gifford, 2001) and compromise is usually a part of getting things done.

One implication of my view is the importance of focusing on what works and why it works (programs, policies and interventions). Addressing causality-related questions is a central public policy issue – programs that are designed and implemented with public resources carry with them an expectation that at some point, their effectiveness will be assessed.¹ Effectiveness includes examining whether the resources that were allocated to an intervention have produced the intended results. This is part of what is meant by public accountability.

¹ The centrality of causality in evaluation is also reflected in John Mayne's 'contribution analysis' approach – arguably one of the most important innovations in the past 20 years (Mayne, 2001, 2011, 2012, 2017, 2019).

In the sciences, there is no neutral ground (no defensible ‘objective’ stance) – all the work that individual researchers do, as well as the collective efforts in different fields, is undergirded by a matrix of values, beliefs, expectations and experience. But science (including the social sciences) is fundamentally a community endeavor. It depends, for its success, on the scrutability of methods and the replication of results; objectivity is a collective outcome – it is not absolute but does reflect evidence-based understanding (both what and why) at a point in time.

From Your Perspective, What is the Nature of the Evaluation ‘Enterprise’?

Jill:

Evaluation is an applied domain of social inquiry that is fundamentally about the construction of knowledge to determine the worth, value or significance of a social program or social intervention (Shadish, Cook and Leviton, 1991). An enduring characteristic of evaluation is its strong, practical, problem-solving orientation, and from this perspective it has played a technocratic role in public sector institutions, remaining a key player in current public management and accountability systems. Our understanding of evaluation, particularly within public sector contexts, remains centered on evidence about ‘what works’ (Richardson, 2013), and enmeshed with the bureaucratic ideals of good governance. Evaluation, by this definition, is valued for its perceived scientific and technical authority (House, 1993), and is used as a way to legitimize government activities, ensure cost-effectiveness and enhance managerial decision-making. Thus, while the field of evaluation has evolved over the past 50 years to now encompass diverse methodological options, its modernist legacy continues to hold sway across much of the public sector.

At the same time, as an applied domain of social inquiry, evaluation is also very much embedded in the current moment. In fact, as one of the ‘technologies of government’ (Rose and Miller, 1992, p. 183), evaluation emerged in the 1970s as a promising new ‘scientific’ approach to research, designed to assist American policy makers in determining program success and failure. While the ‘experimenting society’ (Campbell, 1991) of the early 1970s has since given way to a more methodologically diverse and eclectic range of evaluation approaches and methods, its modernist legacy continues to influence its application, theory and practice. As such, considerable debate persists, as there is little to no consensus on the purpose, nature and use of evaluation, and questions about what counts as ‘evidence’ remain politically and culturally charged. I simply cannot disencumber my understanding of evaluation from its past, especially given that it continues to play a key role in neo-liberal conceptions of the public good.

As such, I remain critical of evaluation in terms of its role and function in bureaucratic/public institutions and its promise of providing ‘evidence’ about the impact of social interventions through the use of narrow performance indicators, targets and benchmarks, all of which reframe our understanding of how we construct knowledge and what kinds of knowledge we construct (Rodriguez and Acree, 2020). While these success measures seem to simplify complexity while remaining politically disinterested, their construction has critical epistemological, social and cultural consequences, as they reduce our understanding of the world to easily definable constructions that are then only measurable through a narrow range of techniques, methods and practices (see Chouinard, 2013). Dahler-Larsen (2012) uses the term ‘constitutive effects’ to describe how indicators function as a way of orienting action, discourse and attention to pre-selected evaluative indicators and criteria, and in so doing they create a particular socio-political version of reality that determines not only what can and should be counted, but how and by whom. As Franklin (1990) argues, the tools have redefined the problem. Thus, while indicators, as codified

metrics of social and economic phenomena purport to stand outside the fray of politics, as a vital ‘technology’ of evaluation, their construction, orientation and use has critical epistemological, ontological, political and democratic consequences.

This almost singular focus on performance measurement metrics with public sector contexts narrows program and community understanding to predetermined measures of program success, confines program quality to measurable outcomes, reinforces ways of knowing that already exist and that have been predefined and pre-determined, circumscribes method selection to primarily quantitative methods, and curtails stakeholder input and public dialogue. We live in a culture of compliance (Franklin, 1990), as over time, we have become less willing to question the orthodoxy surrounding these metrics, less willing to question the implicit theories that underlie and frame their program logic. By paying closer attention to the way indicators are constructed and measured, evaluators become more aware of the reality about which they are making judgments, as well as the implications of those judgments.

As an evaluator and teacher of evaluation, I thus believe that we have a responsibility to critically reflect on the tools and instruments of our practice, and to convey to students that these technologies have significant epistemological, cultural and socio-political implications. As Peim (2009) states, ‘questions of method are not simply questions of *craft* but are always also questions engaging metaphysics – in other words, they are questions concerning ideas about how things *are*’ (p. 236, *italics* in original).

I hope Schwandt (2019) is correct in his characterization of evaluation as entering a ‘post-normal’ (p. 317) period, which he defines as a shift from the technical values of scientific rationality, effectiveness and efficiency measures, to what he terms an ‘ontology of emergent complexity’ (p. 324) that encompasses an understanding of valuing that is qualitative, relational, embedded and contextual. From this perspective, evaluation thus evolves from a role of ‘scientific watchdog’ (p. 322) focused on providing oversight and judging the performance of interventions, to an understanding about the function of social interventions and their ability to adapt and transform within a complex, often unjust and unequal environmental context.

Jim:

By now, evaluation associations (both national and international) have a collective global reach. This suggests a robustness in the field that bodes well for the future. But, within that general picture are indications that evaluation has plateaued (Stockmann and Meyer, 2016). In fact, recent research has pointed to a waning of the role of evaluation as a function in national governments (Peters and Pierre, 2020; Pierre, Peters and de Fine Licht, 2018). Instead, audit has stepped into the roles that had been occupied by evaluation.

In Canada, the Canadian Evaluation Society was created in the 1981 in part to be a professional association that supported the new federal program evaluation function and federal evaluation professionals (Canadian Evaluation Society, n.d.). First and foremost, evaluation was a governmental function in Canada. Although its role in Canada has been discussed at length (Dobell and Zussman, 1981; Dobell and Zussman, 2018; Mayne 2018; Mayne, 1986; Segsworth, 2005;) and the function has been audited repeatedly by the federal Office of the Auditor General (Office of the Auditor General of Canada, 2009, 2013; Segsworth and Volpe, 2005), an enduring concern voiced by audit reports has been the lack of capacity (methodologically, organizationally) to assess the effectiveness of federal programs. What these audit reports underscore is the need for the evaluation function to focus more squarely on its accountability-related mandate. Various iterations of federal evaluations policies (Treasury Board of Canada, 2001, 2009, 2016) and commentaries (Shepherd, 2011, 2018) all suggest the importance of connecting evaluation with government accountability.

But the field is moving away from this role (Mayne, 2018) and instead has embraced learning as a broad goal for the evaluation enterprise. Learning as a goal for doing evaluations is important – some researchers and analysts have suggested that using evaluations (including performance measures) for learning instead of accountability better reflects the complexities of assessing governmental performance (Jakobsen, et al., 2017; Laihonon and Mäntylä, 2017, 2018; McDavid, Huse and Hawthorn, 2018; Perrin, 2015). But in governments, there is an enduring expectation that evaluation will address questions related to program effectiveness and efficiency. Not paying attention to that role, indeed critiquing evaluation practice because it is tied to governmental expectations, amounts to undermining the ground that government evaluators stand on – and serves to indirectly support the case for replacing evaluation with other approaches that promise to focus on government efficiency and effectiveness.

The nature of the evaluation enterprise is in flux – its traditional fit with governmental and non-governmental roles is being challenged both within the field and outside it. Even the definition of evaluation has changed in governments over time (McDavid and Henderson, 2021). Performance measurement, which has been advocated by the auditing profession for decades (Canadian Comprehensive Audit Foundation, 2002) has been embraced by governments and non-profits as a way to assess whether programs and policies are delivering results. It is complementary to program evaluation but has a different focus – it describes program or policy results but it does not explain them. Program evaluation does the latter and continues to perform a unique role in the public sector (Aucoin, 2005).

For Students, What Would You Consider Foundational Knowledge? In What Ways Does It Frame Your Course Content and Pedagogy? What is Included in Your First Evaluation Course?

Jill: Of enduring concern in the pedagogy of evaluation remains the tension between cultivating a critical, moral, political and reflective capacity, while still providing the technical knowledge and skills required in evaluation practice (Schwandt, 2015). How do we teach our students to think about these broader, yet arguably more important critical, moral questions, while also developing their technical expertise? While the students clamor to learn about logic models and evaluation frameworks, always on the lookout for checklists and the ultimate ‘toolkit’, as a teacher of evaluation I distract them with philosophical discussions about methodology and method use in the social sciences. This discussion about epistemology, ontology, ethics and values sets the foundation for learning about evaluation; it is where the students learn that our methodologies are historical artifacts and that each comes encumbered by its own set of traditions, purposes, practices, contexts and methods. The students want easy answers, and I challenge them with complexity, diversity and nuance. The students want to learn the craft of evaluation and be able to apply evaluation techniques in ‘the real world’, while I warn them about the need to adapt their techniques to the program and community context, stakeholder interests and needs, organizational resources, and evaluation purpose. I call into question their role as evaluators, the need for inquisitiveness and for critical self-reflection. Class discussions shift to conversations about values, perspective and voice, and about pluralism and the politics of knowledge. We discuss the relationship between theory and practice, between evaluation theories and principles and evaluative contexts. In the end, the students do learn the technical skills of the craft of evaluation, but they also learn that these skills are encumbered by history and a socio-political context that remains complex and enduring, and that cannot be ignored.

While my introductory graduate class in evaluation is intended to provide students with an overview of the basic concepts, issues, theories and models in evaluation, its predominant focus is on the technical aspects of evaluation (e.g., constructing a logic model; creating an evaluation plan and budget; developing evaluation questions, methods of data collection and analysis; approaches to reporting). I also make extensive use of case studies as a way to provide students with the opportunity to identify appropriate evaluation designs that are culturally and contextually appropriate; understand (and work through) the exigencies of program contexts; identify key stakeholders, evaluation purpose and the role of the evaluator; develop strategies to address practical and method-based problems; and engage with diverse evaluation orientations. Using case studies also provides students with the opportunity to practice evaluation in a low-stakes setting, to make mistakes and adjustments, to practice reading diverse cultural contexts, to try on different evaluator roles, and to use different data collection methods and approaches based on identified evaluation questions. Overall, the purpose of using case studies in this course is to ensure that students have ample opportunity to think through being evaluators and conducting evaluations across a diversity of program and community settings before they ever go out into the field. The overall goal is to enable students to compare and contrast major theories of program evaluation, with a focus on determining which evaluation approach to use in a given context; developing an evaluation plan; identifying the various roles of the evaluator; understanding the social, historical, political and cultural dynamics of an evaluation context; planning the collection of data; and establishing reporting processes. As Patton and Patrizi (2005) have stated, the use of the case study method enables novice evaluators to ‘bridge the gap between knowing and doing’ (p. 98), a gap that I have seen students struggle to overcome.

Jim:

My introductory graduate course is framed substantially around the importance of understanding and addressing ‘why’ questions in evaluation settings (Patton, 2018). In addition to looking at whether a program is working (description), interrogating why a program works (explanation) is essential. How do we explain the results we observe? What are the causal connections, if any, between a program and its theory/logic on the one hand and the observed/measured outcomes, on the other hand? How do we tell whether a program has ‘made a difference’? I take these questions to be important regardless of the purposes of the evaluation (formative, summative, learning or accountability-focused).

Although there are many different questions that evaluations can address (I introduce a broad range of questions that evaluations can tackle, at the beginning of the course, ranging from program need to the costs versus benefits of a program), it is whether a program is effective, that is whether a program actually has caused or contributed to the observed outcomes (both intended and unintended), that is the core question. This question is different from determining the degree of alignment between performance targets and measured results. I see the two questions being complementary but the former is really the grist for the evaluator’s mill – this question is really what distinguished evaluation as a field of practice from audit and other competing professions (Abbott, 1988; Picciotto, 2021).

Evaluating program effectiveness is challenging. It requires that both students and instructors learn/convey methodologies that range from randomized implementations of programs/pilots to qualitative methods, all with a view to being aware of the fit between evaluation contexts, evaluation questions, resources, and fundamentally the need to balance the credibility of the evaluation with the opportunities and constraints in its setting. In my view, these issues, addressed with case examples, written assignments, weekly discussions (my introductory course is taught online), and ultimately, an actual (doable) program evaluation design that focuses on program effectiveness, are important components of my introductory course.

Focusing on program or policy effectiveness does not mean requiring randomized controlled trials (RCTs) to design an evaluation. But it does require students developing the capacity to think in causal terms (taking into account rival explanations, for example) when designing an evaluation and examining the findings. Program theories, theories of change or program logics (with their assumptions) all rely on explications of hypothesized or assumed causal relationships between and among factors that comprise the theoretical structures that underpin policy and program interventions.

My introductory graduate evaluation course is divided into three parts. The first segment (total of seven weeks) is focused on theoretical and practical aspects of scoping, modeling and designing a program evaluation that is focused, among other things, on the effectiveness of the program. Students who take the course must have an actual program to work on (usually from their workplace or a co-op work term placement) and the step-by-step elaboration of their draft evaluation designs begins in week two of the course. Each week, class members post a tranche of their designs, starting with program objectives and ending with an elaboration of a workable mixed-methods design by week seven of the course. Time is spent along the way introducing philosophical issues; comparing features of paradigms (post-positivism, constructivism and pragmatism); and developing and practicing critical reasoning skills (assessing published articles, actual program evaluations, and doing a written assignment that asks for both a critique and practical improvements to an actual contemporary program evaluation report).

The second segment of the course (three weeks) critically examines the design, implementation and uses of performance measurement frameworks for programs and for organizations. Students are introduced to the neo-liberal arguments for accountability-focused performance measurement (Borins, 1995; Dunleavy and Hood, 1994; Hood, 1995) and research that is critical of this perspective (Bevan and Hamblin, 2009). This segment builds on the knowledge and skills acquired in the first part of the course – performance measurement is framed as a complement to evaluation, with a more limited scope (describing results versus attributing results).

The third segment of the course (the final two weeks) is focused on contextual issues – for example, how evaluation purposes (formative, summative) intersect with organizational management, including conflict of interest issues for program managers and other stakeholders. Evaluation ethics and ethical frameworks are introduced, and professional judgment is introduced and discussed – how professional judgment connects with practical wisdom (Hurteau and Archibald, 2023) and how evaluator ethics underpin the whole enterprise. Finally, professionalization of the field is introduced (its advantages and limitations).

OUR DISCUSSION

Our differences, as outlined in this discussion, are both philosophical and methodological and are traceable, in part, to our respective academic backgrounds. Jill's exposure to Foucault's ideas as a graduate student, and her critical stance as an evaluation theorist and practitioner; and Jim's background in the physical sciences (chemistry), the social sciences, and the history and philosophy of science (as a graduate student, with exposure to Thomas Kuhn's ideas) and his belief (unlike Jill) that there is no fundamental difference between the social sciences (Foucault's immature sciences) (Hacking, 1979) and the physical sciences, have shaped their views and continue to frame their approaches to teaching their respective introductory (graduate-level) evaluation courses.

At the same time, our two courses share common pedagogical and curricular elements (albeit with different weights) – both Jill and Jim’s courses blend an overview of the field with an introduction to evaluation methodologies, and blend classwork (discussions, assignments) with cases to enhance student understandings of the range and diversity of practice settings and their challenges. Both courses emphasize the importance of values (evaluator, stakeholder) in what evaluators do. Both courses introduce ethical frameworks that have been developed by evaluation professional associations and both courses connect evaluation practice to the ongoing (contested) challenges of professionalization.

The courses differ in how we introduce and describe the field. Jill’s course emphasizes the growing diversity in evaluation theory and practice and the importance of culturally-based evaluation in a global context. Her approach focuses on the importance of learning as an overarching goal for evaluation practice. For her, the inclusion of stakeholders in the evaluation process enhances the credibility of evaluations.

Jill also privileges context and thus uses cases from practice settings (these have been prepared in advance as teaching and learning tools) to provide students with a diversity of evaluation contexts in which to practice their methodological skills. The use of case studies throughout the course is intentional, as it provides students with the opportunity for reflection, applying critical and creative thinking, and judgement; all of which is required of evaluators in real-life situations (Patton and Patrizi, 2005). Students in the course are challenged to continue to think broadly about evaluation theory and practice – the course challenges their own views and facilitates students learning from each other. In the final project students respond to a ‘request for proposal’ (another case study), and working in small teams, prepare an evaluation plan, that includes an evaluation design, logic model, evaluation framework, methodology, data collection methods, data sources and approach to analysis.

Jim’s course introduces the field at the beginning of the course but mainly (first half of the course) focuses on a methodologically-intensive introduction to the field, linked to evaluation practice. Instead of case studies that facilitate weekly discussions, students are expected to come to the second week of the semester with an actual evaluation project in mind – a project that will principally focus on designing a practical evaluation to assess program or policy effectiveness. On a weekly basis, each student (there is no teamwork on this project) is expected to post a ‘slice’ of their evolving design. Both peer comments and suggestions, as well as instructor questions and comments are solicited on a weekly basis. In effect, these practice-based designs are most of the cases introduced in the course. The final paper for the course is a revised version of each class member’s evaluation design.

In the latter half of the course, topics related to performance measurement (a critical perspective), performance management, evaluator roles versus manager roles, evaluator ethics and professional judgment are introduced. Several cases are introduced to contextualize evaluation practice (evaluator ethics, for example). The final class introduces professionalization as both a challenge and an opportunity for evaluation practitioners.

CONCLUDING THOUGHTS

Currently, there is interest in professionalizing evaluation practice. This is a thread that can be traced back to the 1980s (Lincoln, 1985; Shadish and Epstein, 1987) and was there with the creation of the American Evaluation Association in 1986. Most recently, work done by

Jean King and her colleagues for the American Evaluation Association (King and Stevahn, 2020) continues to keep evaluator competencies in the spotlight. Parallel work done by other professional associations (Buchanan, 2015; Buchanan and Kuji-Shikatani, 2014) supports the view that evaluation practice should be professionalized – competency-based education and training is generally viewed as a step towards professionalization (Huse and McDavid, 2006; McDavid and Huse, 2015; McDavid and Huse, 2023). One view of teaching evaluation courses is that their contents and even student performance should reflect the recognized evaluator competencies.

However, there is no consensus on whether professionalization is desirable (Chouinard, 2021; Donaldson, 2019; Jones and Worthen, 1999; Schwandt, 2018). Our conversations, as we have worked on this chapter, suggest that transforming current statements of evaluator competencies into workable, measurable, practice-focused expectations for the whole field may not happen, nor may it even be a desirable goal. We agree that evaluation as a field has evolved away from its origins as an analytical support function for governmental efficiency, effectiveness and accountability roles, and both of us see the field being in flux. Where this ‘post normal’ (Schwandt, 2019) will take evaluation is yet to be determined. The diversity in the field and the lack of agreement on evaluation’s purpose, role and practice, as well as the diversity, complexity and uncertainty of the evaluation context, has broadened the scope of the field, as was originally conceptualized. While we do agree on the importance of teaching evaluation methodology, our congruence ends there, as our paradigmatic differences remain sufficiently deep.

For Jim, a final question that our discussions have raised is how to position theory and practice in relation to government-based evaluation functions and practitioners. Should we be competing more vigorously with the audit and accounting professions, for example, to challenge their claims to be able to do what evaluators do? Should we be doing more to understand government-based evaluation practice? Is there a dilemma inherent in taking a critical stance on the field – to make a difference, how do evaluators create the power to act? And if professionalization is not an option, then where do they get the clout to exert leverage? Is government-based evaluation practice even necessary for the wellbeing of the field or instead is it a holdover from views of the field that have since been superseded?

For Jill, final observations relate to the role of the evaluator in the world today, in what is a post-pandemic world, as issues involving justice, equity, migration, health and environmental ecology continue to mount. These are the contexts and spaces within which evaluators are invited to practice, whether we work for governmental or non-governmental organizations, and whether we work locally or more globally. As a teacher of evaluation, her pedagogical challenge thus remains: how do we teach our students to think about these broader, yet arguably more important critical, moral questions, while also developing their technical skills and expertise, so that they can contribute to creating a more equitable, humane and ecologically safe life on the planet?

From both of us, notwithstanding the differences reflected in our dialogue, we strongly support the importance of engaging with students to model and encourage critical reasoning skills. Through class discussions, cases and assignments, building the capacity to critically assess arguments and offer constructive, reasoned responses is, for both of us, a (meta)core competency. It is essential in building the capacity in students to learn how to learn. Evaluation is embedded in the broader public policy field, and we suggest that the intellectual and pedagogical diversity we have illustrated in this chapter is relevant for reflecting on teaching public

policy more broadly. The issues we discuss, and how our perspectives have been translated into what and how we teach, offer opportunities for others to reflect on their own teaching: their assumptions (both philosophical and methodological) and how these frame both the content and pedagogy of the courses they teach.

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PART V

TEACHING PUBLIC POLICY BY AUDIENCE

23. Teaching public policy to undergraduate and graduate students

Raul Pacheco-Vega

INTRODUCTION

Public policy as a field of study presents teachers, professors, and other educators with multiple challenges. How do we make the study of public policy an appealing topic to candidates for graduate degrees, and how can we help them learn relevant content and develop useful skills? The pedagogy of public policy is thus both quite an interesting challenge and an important one. Though we have several studies on how public policy is taught at the undergraduate level (Miller 2019; Mitchell 2018; Yildiz, Demircioğlu, and Babaoğlu 2011), and a few that focus on graduate-level teaching (Henderson and Chetkovich 2014; McKee 2014; Pryadilnikov 2016; Trounstin 2014), there is room and a need for additional work that systematically examines the experiences and learnings gained from teaching public policy at both levels.

In this chapter, I conduct a systematic analysis of undergraduate and graduate-level teaching of public policy. Other chapters in the *Handbook* focus on different elements of the pedagogy of public policy as well as different levels of instruction (publics). My contribution to the literature focuses on a broad survey of programs and syllabi that examine how public policy is taught across undergraduate and masters' programs commonly associated with public policy: Bachelors of Public Policy, as well as Masters of Public Administration (MPA), Masters of Public Policy (MPP), and though less frequently, some variations of these.

In the chapter, I develop a competence-based conceptual framework that focuses on techniques, methods, and content to investigate how public policy is taught across a broad range of undergraduate and masters' programs. Though this chapter is not intended to be an exhaustive, in-depth analysis of all the various ways in which public policy content is being developed and delivered globally, the empirical analysis I conducted along with a systematic literature review enables me to develop broad themes around which policy scholarship is built, synthesized, and disseminated at the undergraduate and graduate level across multiple programs. Moreover, Radaelli's chapter in this *Handbook* focuses on doctoral-level instruction, and I therefore will not discuss this public, though there will be natural similarities across undergraduate, graduate (master's level), and doctoral instruction.

Though other chapters in the *Handbook* do examine regional differences in how public policy is taught, it still felt important to consider whether there were regional differences in undergraduate and graduate education. I wanted to observe whether there were variations in instruction in undergraduate and graduate programs across different countries. The analysis reveals increasing demand for native-language publications in public policy (Yildiz, Demircioğlu, and Babaoğlu 2011) as well as growth in interest in public policy scholarly content, both in courses and in degrees (Haigh and O'Sullivan 2020).

The chapter also provides a reflection of the expectations and needs of undergraduate and graduate students, and the assumptions and expectations that instructors have of them as well.

While this is an empirical chapter, the material drawn from a literature survey presented provides a basis for reflection of how the type of audience drives the content, pedagogical process, and structure of coursework.

The chapter is structured as follows: in the second section after this brief introduction, I present the research questions, data sources and methodological approach I used. In the third section, I present the framework I developed inductively from the results of the analysis. The fourth section delves deeper into the results and offers a discussion of the various ways in which approaches to teaching public policy differ. As previously mentioned, other chapters of the *Handbook* discuss different regional approaches to teaching public policy (see Part VI of this volume), so I won't be delving into how approaches differ across regions, but will instead focus on the actual publics (undergraduate and graduate students) and the content (coursework, practicums, course sequencing, etc.). Finally, the sixth section allows me to conclude with a reflection on which direction(s) the teaching of public policy might take and potential avenues for future work in this area of pedagogy.

RESEARCH QUESTIONS, DATA SOURCES AND METHODOLOGICAL APPROACH

This chapter answers three questions:

- (1) Which approaches are being used to teach public policy at the undergraduate and masters' level?
- (2) What type of content (theories, methods, analytical approaches, techniques, and concepts) are taught in undergraduate and graduate programs in public policy?
- (3) Which new insights can we derive for the practice of teaching public policy from an analysis of how it is currently done?

The chapter uses several sources of data to undertake three different types of analysis:

- (1) A meta-review of articles discussing how public policy is taught in undergraduate and graduate programs across the board.
- (2) A content analysis of a sample of syllabi and program descriptions from several universities worldwide.
- (3) A systematic review of recently published pedagogical innovations regarding the teaching of public policy in undergraduate and graduate programs.

The chapter is also informed by my own experience teaching public policy theories and public policy analysis at both the undergraduate and graduate levels. While much of my teaching has been at the doctoral level, I have gained valuable experience teaching below the doctoral level. In particular, I became keenly aware of the importance of teaching public policy with a focus towards increasing student employability. Because this type of postgraduate teaching is also relevant to potential employers, I will also discuss executive-education type programs, though I will center my analysis on full-time coursework and degrees.

Though the methodological approach I used for the chapter lends itself to quantitative analysis, I used an inductive approach more specific to the qualitative tradition to search for broad themes (Braun and Clarke 2019; Jackson and Mazzei 2012). Thematization is a quali-

tative strategy that helps researchers inductively discern overall patterns rather than seek the quantification of each concept. This methodological approach is much more convenient for the purposes of the *Handbook* because comprehensive surveys of undergraduate and graduate programs will necessarily be outdated by the time they are published. Discerning broad patterns and trends (both current and projected) in public policy content and pedagogy is thus much more useful for instructors and learners.

I also conducted a systematic review of articles using several sources of data, which I present in detail next.

Journals

So far, there are no specific journals for the pedagogy of public policy. Though we have plenty of policy-specific journals (e.g., *Policy Studies*, *Policy Sciences*, *Policy Studies Journal*, *Journal of Public Policy*), there is a dearth of coverage of pedagogical aspects. A couple of journals focus on the pedagogy of public administration, but they are less specific to public policy. Though the *Journal of Policy Analysis and Management (JPAM)* has a section for curriculum, as does the *Journal of Comparative Policy Analysis: Research and Practice (JCPA)*, these can still not be described as public policy pedagogy journals.

The *Journal of Public Affairs Education (JPAE)* is the flagship journal for the Network of Schools of Public Policy, Affairs, and Administration (NASPAA) and it does cover some of the materials on public policy, but content-wise, it is majorly a public administration journal. The *Journal of Political Science Education (JPSE)* occasionally publishes public policy pedagogy, but it is more of a norm in *JPAE*. *Teaching Public Administration (TPA)* is the specific journal for teaching public administration and has sometimes published pieces on teaching public policy.

Specific disciplinary and area journals like *Policy and Society* and the *JCPA* have published a few pieces on teaching public policy. It is worth noting that recent special issues of journals such as the *Asia Pacific Journal of Public Administration (APPA)* have focused on teaching public policy across multiple nations. These journals formed the core database from which I sourced articles for the literature review.

I conducted a literature search in *JPAE* using the words ‘public policy’ as keywords. Given the focus of this journal on pedagogy in public affairs, it is fair to assume that all these articles focused on teaching various aspects of public policy. I conducted similar searches throughout all databases that host public administration and public policy journals (*JPAM*, *JCPA*, *Policy Sciences*, *Policy Studies Journal*, *APPA*, *JPSE* and *TPA*). This search produced 1,134 articles. From these articles, I narrowed down the selection to focus exclusively on pedagogical aspects within undergraduate and masters’ programs. This exercise proved challenging as much of the content, methods, and skills taught at the undergraduate level are also taught in graduate programs and it was hard to differentiate across publics. Nevertheless, through a combination of Boolean searches I was able to reduce the number of articles to analyze to 247. I tried to get a broad range of regional coverage beyond the Americas, to include more traditional European-focused education. I also included in my survey literature from multiple Asian countries as well as from Eastern European countries. My survey doesn’t appear to yield much work from Africa, which is a potential gap that remains for future work in this area.

Organizations

NASPAA is the flagship organization that focuses on public affairs education. While it is intended to focus on public policy too, a substantive portion of their membership hail from the public administration and public management fields, and this prevalence is visible in what gets published in *JPAE*. The Latin American equivalent is INPAE. For the empirical component of this chapter, I searched through the websites of both organizations as well as their European equivalents for materials relevant to the pedagogy of public policy in graduate programs. I narrowed down my selection to specifically focus on reports, documents, white papers, and other materials related to the pedagogy of public policy within undergraduate- and masters'-level degrees. I surveyed programs and course syllabi from a sample of NASPAA affiliated institutions.¹ In total, this amounts to 120 syllabi and 40 programs with an average of three syllabi from each program.

Individuals

I also conducted 14 informal interviews with faculty across North and South America who teach public policy at both the undergraduate and graduate level. Though these educators teach across different levels, our conversations were focused specifically on undergraduates and graduate level. Given that my interest was broadly focused on which topics, what kind of courses, and the type of content that these faculty taught, interviews did also cover some the differences between levels of instruction (undergraduate, masters, PhD). These interviews form the basis for my analysis of potential avenues for improvement of graduate education in public policy.

A CONCEPTUAL NOTE ON PROGRAM DESIGN AND THE TEACHING OF PUBLIC POLICY

This brief section serves as a prelude to the empirical material and discussion of findings. It is important that we recognize that public policy is taught in lots of places, but this chapter will primarily focus on the programs that are dedicated to it.

Teaching Public Policy in Programs Not Directly Associated with Public Affairs, Public Administration, and Public Policy

Public policy is not only taught in undergraduate and graduate programs in public affairs, public administration, and public policy. Generalist programs such as political science and law do have courses in public policy. Different graduate programs teach various components of, and approaches to, public policy theories, methods, and concepts. For example, in geography, public policy is taught as both the focus of geographical analyses and the consumer population for geographically informed studies. Students may want to use geography to inform their policy analyses through geographical information systems, or they may want to learn how

¹ See: <https://www.naspaa.org/membership/list-naspaa-members>.

policies are designed and implemented in a context where geography is the core disciplinary approach for project planning and execution.

An important reason to teach public policy as a set of tools and as a field of study is the increased interest by other disciplines in how a specific policy can be better designed within the context of other fields of study. Public policy content then may become part of the curriculum of a non-public-affairs graduate program as a tool to improve performance outcomes and offer new skills to graduate students. Teaching public policy thus is an important activity that can both benefit other disciplines and fields, and offer new ways of upgrading and improving graduate education.

I consider two different approaches to interweaving public policy with other disciplines, depending on which field is considered as the core of the taught component. For example, we can infuse public policy teaching with feminist thinking (Mills and Newman 2002). In this case, public policy is the core field of teaching. Adding content on feminist theories to public policy courses' syllabi can enhance how public policy is taught through a feminist lens (Huxley 1988). We may even develop a specialization in feminist public policy or feminist policy analysis (Hankivsky and Jordan-Zachery 2019; Paterson 2010) for participants in an MPA or MPP.

Another approach is to embed public policy theories, concepts, and methodological approaches within coursework from other disciplines and other programs. This would imply, for example, imbuing geography, sociology, or anthropology courses with public policy theoretical content. This is not unusual given the relevant intersections between different disciplines and public policy scholarship. For example, the discipline of nursing can benefit from having public policy content embedded in their program curriculum (Faulk and Ternus 2004) as they frequently implement specific public policies, behaving as street-level bureaucrats (SLBs) (Coghlan and Casey 2001; Hughes and Condon 2016).

A very broad range of undergraduate and masters' programs can have public policy courses. Depending on the requirements for graduation, policy content in non-PA/PP programs could vary from one course to a sequence. Lawyers, for example, would benefit from public policy instruction. Knowing how policies are made and what role they play in legal proceedings is fundamental to the preservation of the rule of law and democratic institutions. While regulations, laws, statutes, and standards are part of the suite of policy instruments (Harrison 1998; Pacheco-Vega 2020b), the relationship between lawyers and public policy is much more complex. Therefore, teaching public policy in LLM (Masters of Laws) programs, where law students frequently upgrade their skills, becomes one possible route to improve lawyers' engagement with public policy (Allard 2022). Particularly, would-be lawyers need to understand how their role in crafting legal frameworks, regulations, and codes affects and is affected by policy contexts, political settings, and the polity within which they operate.

ECONOMIC THINKING, MANAGERIAL APPROACHES, AND PRACTICAL SKILLS FOR COMPETENCY DEVELOPMENT THROUGH TECHNIQUES, METHODS, AND CONCEPTS: A SUGGESTED FRAMEWORK FOR THINKING ABOUT PUBLIC POLICY TEACHING IN UNDERGRADUATE AND GRADUATE EDUCATION

Public policy can be taught from various vantage points. Thinking about the specific skills and competencies students need to develop is fundamental. I also suggest that undergraduate and graduate education should consider which techniques are taught, which paradigms are considered, and how courses are designed and implemented to provide the maximum amount of practical learning.

In this chapter, I conceptualize how public policy is taught by suggesting three foundational approaches: economic, managerial, and practical. I argue that public policy is taught at the undergraduate and graduate levels as a combination of *economic* thinking (focusing on policy instruments as tools to solve market failures), *managerial* approaches (such as the implementation of public policies through street-level bureaucrats), and *practical* skills (such as problem-solving and policy analysis). Throughout the chapter, I expand on how different elements of public policy teaching contribute to each of the foundational approaches. Though this framework could appear as an extreme focus on policy analysis, I argue that it also allows me to highlight the importance of appreciating policy studies and broadening our teaching scope to include theory-informed research on the policy process to demonstrate that it is fundamental to robust teaching of public policy in undergraduate and graduate programs.

I also suggest that undergraduate and graduate students develop *competencies* through acquiring and exercising specific *techniques*, learning *concepts*, and applying *methods* across the board. Other authors have discussed competency development, particularly as it relates to public policy and public administration instruction (Lopez-Littleton and Blessett 2015; Purón Cid 2019). A competency-based framework for instruction enables practitioners of public policy teaching to help learners develop sets of skills that will potentially increase their employability and ability to formulate policies, programs, and projects that will be useful for government agencies and other employers (Henderson and Chetkovich 2014).

Though there is no agreement on specific competencies that public policy graduates must have, we can make informed parallels with public administration programs, which have been evaluated within NASPAA. In their assessment, NASPAA suggest five core competencies (Haupt, Kapucu, and Hu 2017):

- (1) Leadership with a view to defending and promoting the public interest
- (2) Participation and contribution to the policy process
- (3) Analysis, synthesis, and critical assessment of problems and development of problem-solving skills through evidence-based thinking
- (4) Application of a public service perspective to their everyday activities
- (5) Communication and interaction with diverse public service forces.

These competencies can also be transported to public policy education, though 1 and 4 are more specific to public administrators. One competency that is not specifically discussed in the NASPAA standards but which is germane to discussions on the pedagogy of public policy is the development of models and frameworks to understand policy processes. I argue that

this competency is specific to public policy undergraduate and graduate education because the focus of the entire program is the public policy process, which is therefore also the unit of analysis. Whereas public administration programs are more interested in developing organizational analysis skills and public managerial expertise, public policy programs are more focused on whether the policy is sound and robust and whether it is politically palatable, economically feasible, and socially acceptable (Bardach 2012; Howard 2005; Howlett, McConnell, and Perl 2015).

RESULTS AND DISCUSSION: HOW IS PUBLIC POLICY TAUGHT AT THE UNDERGRADUATE AND GRADUATE LEVELS? A NOTE ON TEACHING PUBLIC POLICY AND PUBLIC ADMINISTRATION

Much of the literature on teaching public policy focuses on the specific field of policy studies. However, it is quite obvious that there is no clear demarcation that could allow us to separate public policy from public administration. This is not uncommon. Public administration as a discipline and field of study asks us to consider how organizations and individuals design and implement public policy within governments. Therefore, finding graduate programs that teach a combination of public policy and public administration courses is quite usual and should be viewed as a positive rather than a negative.

How we teach public policy is a key element of the development of policy sciences as a field. Developing pedagogical standards and teaching strategies that best respond to the increasing internationalization of the field is key to ensuring that policy scholars of the new generations formulate robust and rigorous research projects. Beyond scholarly pursuits, the study of public policy, its components, and its affiliated fields is part of the formative curriculum that is designed to help train students to become proficient in specific policy areas.

While there are substantive differences across both disciplines, both are focused on improving government, strengthening democracy, and delivering robust public services to an increasingly demanding and diverse set of publics. Though public administration may not have as strong a focus on theory-informed policy research, it is in public policy education that we are able to fill this gap. Public administration scholars will continue to need an increasing understanding of policy change (why on-the-ground policies work or do not), and policy implementation (how to make policies work). Increasingly, neoliberal approaches to higher education have had negative impacts on undergraduate and graduate education, making it a challenge for universities, institutes, and research centres to offer programs that are not only economically viable but also technically robust and substantively strong (Knott 2013; Mitchell 2018; Rich 2013). Because funding for public education has shrunk, public administration and public policy educational programs have had to become more client- and consumer-oriented. This change in the political economy of higher education also has a negative impact on public affairs programs (Rich 2013).

Nevertheless, in this chapter I argue that developing undergraduate and graduate programs focused on strengthening skills, teaching a broad range of methods, and fostering diversity in the types of concepts learned can help increase the viability of undergraduate and graduate degrees as the marketability of student learners increases with the acumen and tools they acquire over the course of their program. Using a combination of the three foundational approaches (economic thinking, managerial approaches, and practical skills) as a framework

can help program directors and institutes decide on how best to chart specific trajectories for their programs and degrees.

THE CONFIGURATION OF UNDERGRADUATE AND GRADUATE EDUCATION IN PUBLIC POLICY

Both bachelors of public policy and public administration programs, as well as Masters of Public Administration and Public Policy programs, have professionalizing goals: to help learners develop new sets of skills, competencies, and gain a deeper understanding of government goals. How these programs are configured is important to consider since the teaching of public policy may differ when configurations change. In a recent review of undergraduate public affairs education, Mitchell (2018) finds that undergraduate programs in public policy, administration, and public affairs develop their own identity depending on the specific societal purpose they proclaim to have. The configuration of an undergraduate degree in public affairs, whether this degree is focused directly or indirectly on the teaching of public policy theories or policy analysis, establishes which components of public policy are prioritized and how they are taught. For example, undergraduate degrees in public administration and governance prioritize teaching public policy from the perspective of governance theories. This means that the emphasis in this program is the configuration of government that enables the design and implementation of public policies. As such, government and governance remain the core emphasis with theories of public policy and policy analytical skills taking a relative backseat.

The design of masters' programs can also vary widely, though in this chapter I focus specifically on MPAs (Masters of Public Administration) and MPPs (Masters of Public Policy) primarily. These degrees tend to have many similarities. Both programs broadly intend to develop skills and competencies related to a robust understanding of how government works. Both programs often feature similar teaching practices, for example fostering engagement with the public in various ways, particularly through practicums and policy clinics. Moreover, both programs tend to feature economic analysis of public policy as a core component (Hausman and McPherson 2006; Straussman 2015). Hur and Hackbart (2009) conducted a meta-review of MPA and MPP comparisons in the published scholarly literature where they found that MPA and MPP curricula do differ, but that these variations are substantially associated with which disciplines faculty hail from. Though more recent reviews that expand on Hur and Hackbart's findings have yet to be conducted, my own survey of MPA and MPP programs finds similarities with these authors' results. In particular, the emergence of innovative approaches to researching specific aspects of public policy (e.g., evidence-based policy, behavioural public policy, increased emphasis on street-level bureaucracies and machine learning/big data) appears to be correlated with the specific disciplines and fields from where faculty are based, in particular whether these are law schools, political science departments, and public policy schools. As just an example, the master's program at the University of Chicago is well known for its quantitative approach, and a recent concentration in computational social science has become quite popular.

Undergraduate instruction also shares the same division (Bachelor of Public Policy vs. Bachelor of Public Administration), and instruction is centred around the specifics of each discipline. BPAs tend to receive classes in public management, organizational theory, and implementation, whereas BPP programs will have much more of an emphasis on public policy

content (design, instrument choice, implementation, policy analysis, policy evaluation). There are a number of elements of public policy taught in undergraduate programs which are more generalist, like political science and law. This division is much clearer in graduate programs, particularly because of the emphasis on employability and training around specific skills (Denison and Kim 2019; Pal and Clark 2016a).

Though one could infer that undergraduate programs may follow similar structures to their equivalent graduate programs, a recent study of 42 universities found that there is some degree of similarity but also substantial differences across program curricula both in course sequencing and structure (Miller 2019). Emphasis on differentiation can be quite relevant for some universities and programs because their goals may explicitly be to distinguish themselves from competitors and offer unique experiences for learners. Though there are substantial similarities between public administration and public policy programs at both the undergraduate and graduate levels, being able to differentiate a specific program by its focus in, say, social justice or its pragmatic approach to program delivery and implementation may be an important factor in determining whether prospective students choose a specific course or program.

Management and equitable distribution of staff workload as well as coursework administration may also be a determining factor in similarities across the BPA/BPP and MPA/MPP programs. If universities and departments face staffing challenges, they may choose to follow a similar structure for course structure and sequencing, and content delivery strategies that reduce the amount of workload faced by instructors. From interviews I conducted, this consideration came up frequently in conversation. For instructors, it is relatively easier to upgrade an undergraduate course in policy analysis by adding components (either theoretical or practical) and offering it as a graduate-level class. But they also indicated that teaching undergraduate courses required them to spend substantial time creating the framework for advanced understanding of public policy theories and of public policy analysis skills, methods, and techniques.

There are a number of strategic improvements to the design of MPA programs which can be mirrored in how we design the MPP. Specifically, interest in educating for excellence drives interesting modifications to the MPA program, in particular seeking to develop standards for accreditation (Raffel 2009). Masters of Public Policy programs and Bachelors of Public Policy degrees do not have, as of yet, a body that develops standards for what a good MPP or BPP is, although there is a role for associations like the International Public Policy Association (IPPA) to contribute in the future. Task forces for IPPA on the teaching of public policy could prove equally fruitful to NASPAA equivalents for the MPA and MPP degrees.

Competencies Development in Public Policy Programs

The specific orientation of competence-based teaching may be slightly different across the many publics who opt into public policy programs at varying levels. At the undergraduate level, teaching foundational public policy competencies becomes much more important given the nature of the degree. Undergraduate degrees in public policy and public administration are primarily intended to train individuals for public service, either as policy analysts and designers or as public service delivery providers. Developing specific competencies becomes therefore an important goal for learners in public policy contexts.

Public servants or individuals interested in the public service also frequently undertake a Masters of Public Administration or a Masters of Public Policy but primarily as a potential

route for upgrading their skills and improving their understanding of the policy process and the intricacies of public management (Raffel 2009; Rubaii and Calarusse 2014). Learners frequently use this quest for additional skills as a lens to search for the specific program that will help them build those competencies, particularly in areas that are the target of potential work moves. To help them with this competency and skill-building exercise, public policy courses in masters' programs can be used to help develop policy analytical and policy theoretical specific competencies and skills (Aristigueta and Raffel 2001; Newbold 2011).

Though there is some published work on competency development in MPA and MPP programs, there are substantially fewer articles focusing on how public policy-specific competencies can be developed through MPA and MPP programs. There is some work on how departments and universities can use the similarities across programs to gain efficiencies, but less so on the specific competency-building exercises required to implement at the course, program, and department levels. Nevertheless, it is possible to infer strategies used by instructors and institutions to build competencies across both types of programs drawing from what is available in the public administration literature.

MPP and MPA programs have different components even though for some candidates both programs could be considered as interchangeable. Their design is distinct and different, and course contents vary depending on the requirements for each program (Pal and Clark 2016b; Sanabria-Pulido, Rubaii, and Purón 2016; Staroňová and Gajduschek 2016). Nevertheless, in the survey of institutes I conducted, I found that most programs had to some extent a clear articulation of the different competencies they were seeking to foster in degree candidates. However, candidates may not recognize the differences between programs and therefore it is important that departments and instructional staff make it very clear which skills and competencies are developed within each program, in particular those associated with public policy design and implementation as well as policy analysis.

WHAT TYPE OF CONTENT (THEORIES, METHODS, ANALYTICAL APPROACHES, AND CONCEPTS) ARE TAUGHT IN UNDERGRADUATE AND MASTERS' PROGRAMS IN PUBLIC POLICY?

Across the world, different faculties, departments, and institutes will offer a broad, variegated range of options for masters' programs. Each one of these offers public policy courses and training with varying degrees of emphasis, both on the nature of public policy and on the specifics of policy sciences. A few programs emphasize public policy analysis as the core of their program, whereas others offer bridging options between public policy and public administration. In the analysis I conducted and present here, I found a broad variety of course design and delivery options, which I discuss in detail in this section.

Different public policy programs teach different components of the process. In some cases, programs focus strongly on policy analysis (Durrance 2022). Others emphasize learning how to do policy analysis using decision analytical tools (Morgan 2014; Winterfeldt 1980). Yet others put stronger emphasis on public administration and public management tools and how these intersect with public policy (Pacheco-Vega 2020a; Purón Cid 2019).

Teaching the Work of Government

What kind of material should public policy educators teach? Mead (2013) rightfully warns us about a risk that public policy research and teaching may face: the kind of studies and courses that are designed and developed and taught are more focused on methodologies and scholarly advancement rather than furthering our understanding of how governments work. Though many scholars of public policy may believe that the US tradition of economic-based policy analysis dominates how public policy is taught, my own survey shows that there is some important plurality in the landscape of public policy teaching, including theory-driven policy research. Given that one of the major goals of policy sciences and policy studies is to understand how public policy is made, designed, implemented, evaluated, and terminated, Mead's concern is well taken and is one that I use as a lens throughout the entire chapter. Knowing whether a program and/or a course is taught with an emphasis on the politics of public policy or on the empirics of public policy research is important because universities and scholarly institutes can adjust their programming to offer a balance between both areas. Learners do need to know how government works and we also need to be able to discern what works and what does not when designing, implementing, and evaluating public policy.

In this empirical investigation on how public policy is taught in undergraduate and masters' programs, I wanted to see whether the focus was more on how government works, the inner workings of policymaking, or on the empirics of policy research. I found that most of the programs teach a mixture of what we could consider public administration and public management coursework (the inner workings of how government works) as well as public policy content (design and implementation of policies, programs, and instruments). Though most undergraduate programs do offer content on research methods and require a thesis to graduate, the main focus is not on the empirics of policy research, which would be more adequate for graduate-level, research-focused degrees.

The public policy process as outlined by deLeon and deLeon continues to be the core component of a structural framework for how we teach public policy in graduate programs. This permanence can be attributed to various factors. Among these we can mention its ease of use, its similarities with problem-solving strategies, and its intuitiveness (Cairney 2015; Clemons and McBeth 2020). Policy instruments' design and conceptualization is also frequently taught. There is a particularly strong emphasis on design in East Asia, New Zealand, and Australia (Haigh and O'Sullivan 2020; Wu, Lai, and Choi 2012). While the attractiveness of the policy cycle as a means of framing course content appears globally established, certain regions show patterns of particular attention to certain conceptual or theoretical tools. For example, I found particular attention being paid to agenda-setting theory in Latin America (as Porto de Oliveira et al. in this *Handbook* also indicate) and to implementation and street-level bureaucracies in European programs.

Teaching Policy Analysis at the Undergraduate and Graduate Levels

Policy analysis is one of the most popular techniques and areas of instruction in public policy scholarship (Merlo 2019; Wildavsky 2017). However, the teaching of policy analysis has received little attention in the literature. This gap is filled with the contribution by St.Denny and Cairney in this *Handbook*. Nevertheless, it was important to discuss this specific area of study here because it appeared repeatedly in the systematic review of programs and courses

I undertook for the chapter. Policy analysis is a key component of instruction in undergraduate and graduate programs (Durrance 2022; Mead 2013; Swain 1993) as it is a marketable technique that learners can use to attain positions as policy analysts in industry, government, or civil society organizations.

Designing curricula for undergraduate public policy students varies across different countries and languages (He, Lai, and Wu 2016). In some cases, policy analytical techniques are drawn from decision analysis theoretical frameworks (Morgan, Henrion, and Small 1990; Winterfeldt 1980), where objectives by alternatives matrices are the norm. In others, the core of the teaching component is focused on the politics of policy analysis (Cairney 2021), combining the different approaches into a much more politicized framework. Yet others use a much more pragmatic approach to policy analysis (Dunn 2018; Meltzer and Schwartz 2019; Radin 2019; Wildavsky 2017) where practitioners and learners walk through specific steps, gathering information and designing clear solutions to problems. The economic analysis of public policies is a tradition more aligned with the decision-analytic approach, though it has also become an essential component of public policy pedagogy both at the undergraduate and graduate levels, and core texts in the field are frequently referenced and used. This mainstream approach focuses on public policies as solving market failures (Merlo 2019; Weimer and Vining 2017).

Teaching policy analysis is a consistent occurrence in undergraduate and graduate teaching. In the survey of courses, programs, and syllabi I conducted, I consistently found policy analysis as one of the core courses in the sequence of programs. One potential reason for this consistent appearance is the uniqueness of policy analysis as a sub-field, but also as a marketable tool. Being able to conduct policy analysis in its various approaches, from more text-based and argumentative (Hansson and Hirsch Hadorn 2016; Wagenaar 2015; Weimer 2002) to the more economic-oriented, decision-analytic approach (Besharov and Oser 2013; Carlson 2011; deLeon 1998; Durrance 2022; Geva-May and Maslove 2006), and learning how to analyze public policies, design policy instruments and assess their political and social viability all serve to increase the marketability of potential graduates. Though strong emphasis is paid to the microeconomics of public policy, there are other applications worth discussing, including the use of Q Methodology (Durning, Gajdamaschko, and Selden 1997), consultancy strategies and techniques (Colombo 2016), and action-research-informed approaches (Bartels and Wittmayer 2018).

Ethics and Social Justice Teaching in Undergraduate and Graduate Public Policy Education

One of the least developed topics in the field of public policy pedagogy is the teaching of ethics in public policy. Though there is some work on ethics in public administration (Dwivedi 1988; James 2016), particularly that focused on the ethical standards that public servants must comply with, and even an entire journal devoted to this area of scholarship, *Public Integrity*, there is very little discussion on ethics in the design and implementation of public policies. This is an important lacuna that requires substantive engagement and will prove a useful area of study for future scholarship on the pedagogy of public policy in undergraduate and graduate programs.

Ethical behaviour is supposed to be a core characteristic of public servants. Similarly, public policy analysts, designers, and evaluators ought to behave in equally ethical ways. Though

there are lessons to learn from public administration education in ethical matters (Pickus and Dostert 2002; Swain and Duke 2001), it becomes necessary to develop an approach that is specific to public policy. Given the role that public administrators have in public organizations, we can infer that public policy analysts, designers, evaluators, and implementers would need to establish codes of conduct and ethical standards for their activities in a similar fashion.

Beyond teaching ethics, public administration programs have increasingly had a focus on social justice issues (Ancira, Rangarajan, and Shields 2022; Kolocek 2017; McCandless and Larson 2018; Somit and Peterson 2012) as well as in diversity and equity (Knott 2013; Lopez-Littleton and Blessett 2015; Rubaii and Calarusse 2014). This is an important consideration for the teaching of public policy: how can we craft policies that are aligned with social justice goals as well as with increased diversity and equity targets? One potential solution is to develop programs and courses that have a focus on community services (Crawford 1999; Mueller 1984). Another potentially robust approach is to expose learners to ideas about social justice that are drawn from groups that have been traditionally marginalized (Wyatt-Nichol and Antwi-Boasiako 2008). Ethics, diversity, and equity remain important concepts and keywords as my interviews and content analysis reveal.

Teaching Public Policy Using Different Pedagogical Approaches and Methodologies

How we teach public policy at the graduate level, specifically in undergraduate and masters' programs requires careful consideration of a multiplicity of factors, including coursework goals, alignment of program objectives and course design, and implementation of innovative teaching practices that encourage students to carefully engage with a range of course materials. As teaching practitioners consider which approach to use, it is important to remember that there is no single magic pill that will provide solutions for a broad range of populations. Therefore, it is useful to consider an assortment of strategies and approaches instead of focusing on just one type.

Problem-centred pedagogy is one of the mainstream approaches to public affairs education (Munoz-del-Campo 2022). Focusing on one specific public policy challenge and motivating students to develop creative solutions allows for interdisciplinary cross-pollination in contexts where students come from very different backgrounds. Other authors prefer to use case studies (Mudida and Rubaii 2017) in their teaching (also see Weaver in this volume).

How we structure pedagogy strategies and teaching processes and what types of methods we use to deliver policy theories and content help shape learning outcomes. In my analysis, I found that the case study as an approach has recently gained popularity and increased usage as a tool to teach public policy both at the undergraduate and graduate (masters') levels (Careaga-Tagüeña and Sanabria-Pulido 2022; Schröter and Röber 2022). Using cases to teach public policy, from design to implementation to analysis to evaluation, facilitates learning as case studies are easy to understand and pragmatic.

The case method has become quite popular in public policy teaching because it facilitates the delivery of theoretical content on public policy theories and methods while focusing on specific problems and situations where policymakers and policy analysts may need to make sound decisions in the face of uncertainty. The case method also enables instructors to mix and match across different pedagogical strategies (Foster, McBeth, and Clemons 2010). Cases can also be used to inspire learners and expose them to challenging situations and variegated contexts (Mudida and Rubaii 2017). The case study is also substantially powerful to help con-

figure context-appropriate cases through which public policy content can be made more accessible and tangible. Case studies about countries in the Global South can help learners in the Global North learn in more depth about how public policy is configured, designed, analyzed, and implemented in contexts where their familiarity with specific conditions may be limited.

Public policy is one of the fields most blessed with fertile ground for using multiple methods, from ethnography (Pacheco-Vega 2020c) to big data (Clemons and McBeth 2020; Gerton and Mitchell 2019; Lipovetsky 2019; Ungsuchaval, Boossabong, and Hartley 2022) to simulators (Ku et al. 2016). Methodological innovations do not necessarily need to be social-science oriented, but can take a more heuristic approach. Root cause analysis (RCA) is a method that learners can use to establish which public policy problems are the most important to tackle and how they can be solved (Ku et al. 2016). Future work can focus on a systematic survey of which methods are the most used, though there is emphasis on quantitative methods across a broad range of institutions and programs. Diversifying the curriculum by including mixed methods and qualitative methodologies can also help provide learners with a much more ample variety of tools, techniques, and strategies to study how policies are made, research policy changes, analyze and tackle policy problems, etc.

CONCLUSION: HOW SHOULD WE STRUCTURE AND DELIVER PUBLIC POLICY COURSES WITHIN UNDERGRADUATE AND GRADUATE (MASTERS') PROGRAMS?

Teaching public policy is a challenge partly because of the applied nature of the discipline itself, but also because the theoretical insights taught need to be balanced against appropriate practical applications of the theory. Developing courses in public policy theories and policy analysis is not an easy task. Nor is it easy studying how public policy is taught across multiple levels of education, programs, and countries. This chapter is an attempt to add to the conversation that needs to be had regarding the design and delivery of course materials on multiple aspects of public policy.

I want to close this chapter dealing with the normative question of how public policy should be taught at the undergraduate and masters' levels. Enunciating normative prescriptions for how a discipline and a field should be taught is complicated because what needs to be taught varies by department, field, and program. They also vary by degree (undergraduate versus graduate), leading to BPA and MPA programs that are strongly focused on the inner workings of government at the organizational level may put more emphasis on the elements of public policy that are more specific to public administration (e.g., policy design and implementation) whereas MPP programs may choose to expand topics to the latest developments in policy sciences (behavioural public policy, evidence-based policies, etc.)

We can improve how we teach public policy by focusing on both the processes and the results of government decisions (Haupt, Kapucu, and Hu 2017; Henderson and Chetkovich 2014; Rubaii and Calarusse 2014). This model of public policy pedagogy facilitates learning across the three foundational approaches. A process-and-results-oriented approach allows educators to create learning strategies that enable learners to absorb the theoretical underpinnings of public policy theories and at the same time, consider the practical implications of these for a broad range of stakeholders.

Public policy pedagogy is often conflated with the design of courses on public policy. Though both aspects are relevant, how the material is taught (pedagogy) is just as relevant as how the course is designed and what the content of the course will be. This chapter contributes to the overall goal of the *Handbook* by offering an overview of how public policy is taught to graduate students. For the empirical analysis, I conducted a systematic review of the published scholarly literature on how public policy is taught across the world. Several journals have organized special issues on the subject, which made the process substantially easier. Nevertheless, a substantial amount of work was required to systematize, analyze, and synthesize lessons that can be derived from these articles and special issues and reflect on possible applications and models of implementation for these lessons learned.

Structuring a chapter like this required a lot of thinking about what needed to be discussed regarding the teaching of public policy at undergraduate and graduate (masters') level. There were several questions that need to be answered:

- (1) Which concepts and theories do we teach in each course?
- (2) Which elements of public policy are taught, and which ones are omitted, and why?
- (3) How is public policy taught? From an economic perspective? From a managerial viewpoint? From a practical standpoint?

I found substantive interest in developing core competencies in public policy design and implementation as well as in policy analysis. My analysis additionally revealed that undergraduate and graduate courses and programs emphasize teaching with a focus on diversity and equity. I also find substantive interest in using a broad range of methodologies and pedagogical approaches, with much interest in applying case studies and the case method; an approach drawn from the management and business literatures and programs. Though there is substantial evidence of growing interest in public policy education at the undergraduate and graduate levels, there is also concern for how to differentiate these degrees (BPPs and MPPs) from their public administration and public management counterparts.

In the chapter, I offered a systematic review of the literature, supplemented with a thematic and content analysis of course syllabi, program curricula, and course sequencing and offered an analytical framework that can serve as an organizing device for future programming in public policy courses at the master's level. Undergraduate- and master's-level instruction, as I have shown in the chapter, have specific challenges that are associated with whether these degrees offer competency development. Differences across levels of instruction are not insignificant. My analysis reveals that a substantial focus of the instructional work on public policy at undergraduate and graduate levels is informed by the needs of industry and government: the 'markets' to which our programs cater (Manwaring, Holloway, and Coffey 2020). Future work on the pedagogy of public policy will need to consider how programs like BPAs, BPPs, MPAs, and MPPs can be flexible and adaptive to rapidly changing conditions and high uncertainty.

Examining how public policy teaching is conducted across multiple universities and graduate programs allows us to gain a deeper understanding of the multiple ways in which we can improve it. Lessons drawn from this analysis can be applied to redesigning courses, improving delivery of material related to public policy, and reimagining how theoretical and applied work can be taught. I argue that teaching public policy at the undergraduate and graduate (master's) level should be conducted in a way that benefits not only graduate students but also potential future employers and the employability prospects of degree candidates.

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24. Teaching public policy in doctoral programs¹

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INTRODUCTION

This chapter is in the style of a personal reflection on my own experience of teaching doctoral students. It does not provide the reader with evidence about who does what in different doctoral public policy programs across the world. This is partly because I am not aware of any systematic treatment or global repositories of public policy/public administration doctoral programs.³ Additionally, empirically identifying the distinction between those universities and schools of government who offer a PhD in public administration/public management and those which, under this label, actually provide a doctoral curriculum in public policy also poses a challenge. Another tricky issue is how public policy courses are accompanied by training on topics like ethics.⁴ To answer these questions our discipline needs a comprehensive project that can look beyond the labels of doctoral degrees and collect granular information on what goes on inside programs and courses. This is a task more suited to the mission of public policy organizations than to a single book chapter.

Instead, the chapter aspires to provide a vivid account of the lessons learned through personal experience. Another reason for this choice is that apart from public policy and public management schools, there is a vast amount of public policy teaching that goes on in PhD programs in political science, international relations, economics, and sociology (just to mention four large disciplines). Essentially in these programs the student is enrolled to become a professional political scientist or sociologist. But if and when the first supervisor and the thesis are in the domain of public policy, the student will be *de facto* trained to become a professional policy analyst – this will be the first label identifying her professional identity. Thus, sometimes the PhD category (political science) does not ‘do’ what it says on the tin. I belong to this category: I have a doctorate in political science, yet I have always considered myself a (hopefully professional) policy analyst.

At this point I have to say where my experience comes from. It derives from supervising, examining, and teaching graduate students in doctoral programs mostly in the UK, always in departments of European studies and political science/international relations. I have experi-

¹ This chapter is dedicated to my mentor Bruno Dente, who passed away on 13 January 2022. <https://www.ippapublicpolicy.org/announcement/tribute-to-bruno-dente/630>.

² I am grateful to Lorenzo Mascioli and the editors for their comments, especially Emily Flore St.Denny who went through different drafts with intellectually generous, impeccable comments and suggestions. I am in debt to Michael Barzelay for having enlightened me on how to enhance the supervision of PhD students and accompany them in their research design as well as writing. I wish to acknowledge how fortunate I was to have Gloria Regonini as my PhD supervisor and Bruno Dente as my mentor. The usual disclaimer applies.

³ Pal and Clark (2016) discuss the wider global trends in teaching public policy, finding diffusion but little evidence of convergence in substance.

⁴ See Flinders and Pal (2020) on public engagement and ethics.

ence of being the single supervisor or acting in teams of two, and on occasion three, supervisors. I have taught and/or examined doctoral students in Belgium, Denmark, France, Italy, the Netherlands, Norway, Sweden, Switzerland, the USA and of course the UK. I recently joined the School of Transnational Governance at the European University Institute where my students and policy leader fellows⁵ ask for usable knowledge (Lindblom and Coen, 1979) rather than comprehensive treatments of policy process theories. This has pushed me towards a more selective approach to theories when I teach, foregoing ‘theory for the sake of contributing to theory’ in favour of ‘theory that can empower you in the real world’.⁶

I taught classes in Masters of Public Administration (MPA) courses for eight years at the University of Exeter and several executive training modules (both at Exeter and at the School of Transnational Governance). University College London (UCL) gave me the opportunity to teach large cohorts of Masters in Public Policy students and appreciate the meticulous and supporting role of upgrade panels for doctoral students moving from conceptualization to field-work. Occasionally, I co-supervised or examined students undertaking a PhD in law. Almost all of my experience is European, and this is a caveat to consider when reading the chapter.

Why should you read this chapter, then, unless you are interested in my personal vicissitudes between one PhD supervision and the other? Well, you can read this chapter as an introduction to the foundational elements and motivation of policy analysis. If you are considering a PhD in public policy, this chapter is meant to be a possible entry point to ‘see’ the world as a policy analyst. This is the readership I want to be useful to. I will mostly talk to students, but I also have a few messages for supervisors and coordinators of doctoral programs. My academic colleagues will excuse me if I take shortcuts here and there, and do not present other ways of seeing the world as a policy researcher – ways that are undoubtedly relevant, but can be better illustrated in an encyclopaedia or handbook of public policy (Capano and Howlett, 2020; Moran, Rein and Goodin 2008; on methods see Peters and Fontaine, 2022).

With this background, the following sections discuss steps in teaching public policy in PhD programs, without necessarily following a chronological sequence, from day one of the program to the awarding of the degree. I start with what I consider to be the step of cleaning up the mess of conventional wisdoms, and then discuss the following issues: the policy process; how to grasp ontology and epistemology; framing the PhD through research design; ownership of the thesis; balancing content-specific information and discipline-specific knowledge; the connection between learning, researching and publishing; and, finally, how to approach the end of the PhD trajectory (if it ends at all!)

‘DECONTAMINATION’

At the outset, there is a common challenge for teachers like me whose graduate students are in a political science doctoral program, as opposed to studying in a dedicated public policy or public management school. This initial challenge with supervision and teaching concerns helping students achieve an effective balance between disciplinary focus, on the one hand, and interdisciplinarity, on the other. After all, the students I encounter have already made a precise

⁵ See: <https://www.eui.eu/apply?id=policy-leader-fellowship>.

⁶ For an example of how this is done: Radaelli and Terlizzi’s presentation (2022) on the narrative policy framework.

choice for a discipline – in my case, political science, but it must be the same in sociology, economics, anthropology and so on. Hence these students, *a priori*, do not come to our public policy seminars to become proficient in interdisciplinary research. And yet, public policy is inherently interdisciplinary. Depending on the subject, a doctoral project in public policy is often informed by insights from, among others, sociology and/or economics, public administration, organization theory, anthropology and so on.

The question that often arises for supervisors is therefore: how do we engage doctoral researchers, whose background and sense of professional identity may be quite mono-disciplinary, in an interdisciplinary domain like policy analysis? When broaching this issue with students, I have often noted a sense of fatigue, as if the students wanted to tell me: ‘It is fine to learn public policy as well as political science, but then do not ask us to go further and, in order to master public policy, also learn models and approaches from economics, organization theory, sociology, ethnography and ... what else? We want to specialize, we have already done the generic masters’ program.’ I have no simple response to offer. I can only say that, in my experience, growing out of mono-disciplinarity and embracing boundary-spanning ways of doing and thinking can be painful for both student and supervisor, and the best resources to face the challenge include: intellectual curiosity (which fortunately does not see or obey disciplinary boundaries), a problem-driven attitude and ample opportunities to engage with peer-to-peer learning, for instance in doctoral seminars (you pick up a lot about other disciplines from being part of a disciplinary diverse cohort).

Beyond the issue of convincing students of the merits of interdisciplinarity, and of public policy as a subdiscipline more specifically, there exists another related challenge: ‘decontaminating’ new students from the conventional intellectual baggage they arrive with. Indeed, many students with a background in political science rather than public policy carry with them the dominant mindset and conventional disciplinary wisdoms of that discipline. Many of these scholarly beliefs are germane to the study of public policy but retain problematic blind spots. For example, one such conventional wisdom is a certain belief in the chain of delegation. The chain of delegation (Strøm, Müller and Bergman, 2003) is definitively attractive from a normative perspective. It is an excellent normative benchmark or standard. I am not here to dispute the following: The citizens *should* make choice about their representatives at elections, and select their representatives in parliamentary assemblies. Parliaments *should* be the body forming governments in parliamentary democracies. Governments *should* execute their manifesto by delegating tasks to public administration. In turn, public managers at different levels *should* be the agents delivering policies to the citizens, respecting as much as possible the manifesto. At elections, the incumbents *should* be called to account for the policies they have delivered.

The problem is that this account does not always adequately represent the empirical reality we are faced with in policy processes. Substitute ‘should’ with ‘do’ in this story, and the problems start to pile up. Most of the time, these steps do not happen in this sequence, or the actors are not the same, or they change and take on unexpected roles in the chain of delegation (Cairney, Hekkila and Wood, 2019). Thus, the chain of delegation, which remains a staple focus of political science teaching, is normatively attractive but does not empirically describe how policies are made.

There are many other political science conventions that can also place students at a disadvantage when tackling questions of policy and policymaking. For instance, the portrayal, within the chain of delegation, of decision-making as the gift of a single decision-maker.

It is not uncommon for students to talk about countries as if they were led by a unitary decision-maker. We hear in class statements like ‘Trump de-regulated when regulation was necessary’ or ‘Biden is engaged in a set of policy reforms that will make the difference for many years.’ This personification of policy power is at odds with the discipline’s emphasis on policy most often being the result of plural processes, involving a great number of actors, sometimes spread across different sectors and at different territorial levels.

Finally, students can come saddled with the belief that policy is entirely about choice, change and reforms. Policy change is an extremely interesting topic, but it must be placed correctly into an understanding of what actors realistically do in public policy. Students’ minds are easily focused on, for example, political incumbents’ reform initiatives. The appreciation that any new leader or government has to manage a large body of existing rules, laws and policies created by their predecessors can quickly be lost.

This is what Richard Rose has explained and documented magnificently in his ‘inheritance before choice’ approach (Rose, 1990; Rose and Davies, 1994). Politicians form governments and enter office only to find out that they inherit policies and commitments (enshrined in laws, organizations, independent agencies and expenditure programs) from the governments of the past, as well as from existing commitments set in their membership of international organizations. Policy legacy constrains the choices of any government. The new incumbent will be able to make a certain number of policy changes, but not to overturn these constraints and the whole legacy. Maintenance occupies the activity of public administrations and independent agencies more than reforms.

Taken together, mono-disciplinarity, conventions imported from political science, and the emphasis on choice and change can be formidable barriers to teaching public policy. If, then, you are confronted with cohorts and students like mine, I find that the best place to start is with identifying and critically discussing conventional wisdom in the initial seminars. We need to clean the floor before we lay the carpet. As my mentor Bruno Dente was fond of saying: ‘policy analysis is simple, it can be taught even to children. But it is difficult to teach it to political scientists.’ This is not intended as an attack on political science. It simply means that apart from teaching seminars on substantive policy topics, those of us who aspire to teaching PhD students with an interest in public policy should dedicate time to laying strong foundations. This involves:

- (1) Explaining why it is reductive to think that public policies are the product of the chain of delegation. Policies are not solely a product of politics – that is, what comes out of the chain of delegation as output. Following Lowi (1972), policies format the terrain of politics. Each policy arena creates its own politics. It is wrong to think of policies exclusively through the image of products of governmental action, particularly because there are other actors involved and sometimes they are more important than governments, including pressure groups, experts and international/transnational organizations. This first step is about altering the student’s observational point – from the formal characteristics of parliament, type of electoral system, the party system and form of government (single party or coalition, for example) to the empirical level of where policies emerge, are decided, carried out and implemented. It is at the level of observing policy processes that we find what the actors are, whether parties or leaders have originated policy ideas, and what citizens get out of this in terms of accountability. Instead of the formal con-

stitutional structure of a country,⁷ students should care about the empirical constitutionalism of public policy. It is not by chance that implementation scholars like Hjern and Hull (1982) talked about their field as ‘empirical constitutionalism’. Similarly, students should be encouraged to develop an understanding of the policy *process*, and move away from simplistic conceptions of policies as things – solid and monadic entities that exist in a given, stable manifestation.⁸ All this is, of course, anathema to some very orthodox political scientists, but here we are concerned with offering training in public policy in a way that grants it intellectual independence from the strictures of mono-disciplinary conventions.

- (2) Developing, in students, a thorough understanding of polycentricity. The fact that governance is polycentric has important implications, vertically and horizontally. Vertically because it situates the observational lens below and above the unit of national governments, and invites an appreciation of international and transnational governance. This is something that is already well-understood by graduate students with a background in international relations, but those with a masters in comparative politics or political science may find it more difficult to appreciate this. Horizontally, because it widens the range of actors to include private actors, public-private partnerships, advisory bodies, regulators, epistemic communities and civil society organizations. The identification of actors is not provided by theory or laws. It is an empirical step. We have to go out in the field to find out. Stakeholders are not necessarily actors. Institutions described in law as competent for X are not necessarily actors in X – it depends if they act or do not act on the basis of the resources and interactions they have (Dente, 2014). For this task, the chain of delegation offers little help. Finally, polycentricity has normative dimensions. Can polycentric governance be considered accountable in the same way we approach public policymaking in the chain of delegation? What are the legitimacy standards for polycentric governance and what is their instrumentation? All these are mind-opening, refreshing (and for some ‘decontaminating’) questions – as shown by Cairney, Heikkilä and Wood (2019, chapter 4).
- (3) Developing students’ appreciation of the role of inertia, institutional commitments and policy legacy, hence a shift from perspectives anchored in choice to those that foreground inheritance (see Skogstad in this volume). This is (absolutely not!) to say that ‘there is no choice’ in public policymaking processes. Rather, this is intended to mean that inertia and change should be considered in a single historical process-driven, time-sensitive framework. Change can occur in processes characterized by long periods of inertia – here, the reference would be to punctuated equilibrium (Baumgartner and Jones, 1993; also see Shafran in this volume). Inertia is not a hindrance to understanding change (Pierson, 2003). Indeed, inertia creates change when initial policy choices stick but the contextual conditions change, making the same policy different in terms of reach and outcomes. To give it a punchy slogan, this dimension of teaching PhD students

⁷ By this I mean constitutional features at large, including mono- or bi-cameralism, and presidential or parliamentary systems, but also the type of party system and electoral laws that are not in the formal constitution.

⁸ I am grateful to Albert Weale for having said that in many conversations we had at UCL and the Public Policy & Management group of the Department of Political Science.

with a background in political science is about seeing public policy as a film rather than a snapshot.

POLICY AND POLICY PROCESS

Since we are talking about what policy is, a separate but no less foundational learning step is about focusing the minds of our students on the policy process, and on the attendant theories we have of the policy process (see Weible and Carter in this volume). Particularly for those who do not have a background in public policy at masters' level, it may be challenging to shift the mindset of doctoral students from policy as something concrete and tangible, such as 'percentage of GDP allocated to education', to the more diachronic and time-sensitive lens of the policy process. Furthermore, graduate students who are familiar with public opinion, perhaps because they have a background in communication studies or have studied politics with an emphasis on electoral behaviour, may be accustomed to the assumption that 'policy' is a matter of communication, i.e., what the politicians say about migrants, financial matters, taxation and so on. It may also take time to shift the minds of these students from this notion to one that also accommodates the concept of the policy process.

Once attention has rightly shifted to the policy process, the issue is how to approach it. The policy cycle still informs official government guidance in countries like the UK (HM Treasury, 2022). Much as the policy cycle can be useful to training officers on policy appraisal and evaluation, it has several limitations, as shown by St.Denny and Cairney in this volume. I ask the students to contrast the cycle heuristics with ambiguity. In brief, ambiguity (Kingdon, 1984; Zahariadis, 2008) means that policy problems can be re-defined multiple times. The actors participating in the search for solutions change frequently, hence there is no stability of the policy networks. And the arenas where the search for alternative solutions is carried out change across time in the same institution (such as the European Union) and policy domain, for example from the mass mobilization arena to the parliamentary arena, or from technocratic arenas to public, political arenas (on the latter case, see Harcourt and Radaelli, 1999). These concepts ('actors can choose institutions-arenas' and 'problems can be redefined') and other ideas put forward by Dente (2014) led to my recent involvement in the P-Cube project (<https://www.p-cube-project.eu>). In P-Cube, a suite of policy games leads the players to discover how to change public policy by following a finite number of strategies. Crucially, these are games to be played in class, where the experience of playing is followed by the instructor's explanation and collective reflection.

ONTOLOGY AND EPISTEMOLOGY

Most doctoral programs offer seminars on the philosophy of the social sciences. Some supervisors ask their students to embrace a certain philosophical presupposition to support the mentorship process with shared beliefs between student and mentor. I observed how this (by all means necessary) insistence on how one sees the world (ontology) and how one produces knowledge of the said world (epistemology) can become a matter of animated discussions – sometimes close to matters of faith or, at least, strong beliefs. But underneath the agonism is the fundamental matter of coherence. Indeed, assumptions concerning the nature of reality and

our ability to access or interpret it need to be logically related, otherwise the scientific endeavour fails. On this, every student would benefit from reading Peter Hall (2003) and reflecting on his recommendation to align ontology and methodology.

In my experience, transparency is key to effective supervision of students as they attempt to first organize, and second clearly communicate, their beliefs, assumptions and decisions on these matters. Indeed, transparency and explicitness on philosophical presuppositions and approaches is to be encouraged from students, but also from supervisors. My personal intention has always been to introduce students to their 'choices space' (should they not already be well aware of this space) and let them have ownership of their work (on ownership, see section below). This can be done in many ways. One is to avoid presenting the presuppositions about the policy world in 'black and white' (i.e., the Manichean language of positivism versus post-positivism I have heard in numerous doctoral workshops). Having established that students (not supervisors) should make decisions on ontology and epistemology, they should be supported to understand that their decisions are not (and should not be) uni-dimensional. Ontology and epistemology relate back to each other in more complex ways than can be adequately grasped by the blunt labels of 'positivism' and 'post-positivism'. Students must be encouraged to position themselves coherently in a more diverse space.

One demonstrative example of this multi-dimensionality is to introduce students to a two*two space. This space comprises of ontology and an epistemology. In turn, both ontology and epistemology can be either social or naturalistic. You can believe that policies are made up of meanings and social constructions, yet you can examine them in objective ways (social ontology combined with a naturalist or objective epistemology). For example, money is a social construction, yet banks and citizens can count money pretty objectively (Searle, 1996). Alternatively, you can believe that there is a 'Big R Reality' out there, which exists independently from the observer, and you can study this reality objectively (naturalist ontology and naturalist epistemology). In this way, the term 'positivist' is revealed to conflate two dimensions (ontology and epistemology) into one. The two*two approach provides more options and nuances – in a way, more degrees of freedom and fewer tribal wars. Of course, depending on students' needs and interests, these choices can be made to appear in even more nuance. For example, pragmatic epistemology can be both naturalistic and social, in the sense of the social context that produces epistemic knowledge.⁹ Overall, however, the point here is that students must attend, and therefore supervisors must be willing to support them, to not just identifying the beliefs that underpin their research but also organizing and communicating them clearly in a manner that fits coherently with the conceptual, theoretical and methodological tools they select from the public policy research toolbox.

RESEARCH DESIGN

At some point, either before, during or after having established where they stand on ontology and epistemology, many doctoral students may take courses on methods and/or research design. Methods courses are about statistics, econometrics, data science and so on. They can also cover techniques like the ethnographic interview or coding text. There is a fascinating,

⁹ I am grateful to Lorenzo Mascioli for this observation.

and growing, array of courses on methods and summer schools offered across the world. For example, the International Public Policy Association (<https://www.ippapublicpolicy.org>) offers summer and winter schools worldwide, in different continents.

By contrast, courses on research design involve helping students learn the difference between a claim and argument, topic and field, how to build a research question, and what evidence ‘does’ in the overall design of research. Michael Barzelay taught me to introduce students to two fundamental books he used for years at LSE: *The Craft of Research* (Booth et al., 2016) and *Tricks of the Trade* (Becker, 1998). Later I co-authored a book with two Swiss colleagues to extend the message to other dimensions of research design, such as ‘interdependence’, ‘temporality’, ‘heterogeneity’ and, fundamentally, ‘causes’ (Maggetti, Gilardi and Radaelli, 2012). Throughout this book and in my practice, I insist on pluralistic research design to stress that there is no definitive research ‘cookbook’ or simple list of do’s and don’ts. Navigating research design is about gradually gaining control and ownership of the dissertation, rather than completing a checklist of do’s and don’ts (more in Maggetti, Gilardi and Radaelli, 2012, chapters 1 and 8).

Courses on research design, and particularly those aimed at public policy researchers, are comparatively less common than methods courses (although organizations like the IPPA have recently begun to offer courses with this title). Attendance of either/both should be based on students’ needs and interests. On the part of the supervisor, this warrants a willingness to help students identify these needs and interests, since the value of honing specific methodological skills and/or more generic research design skills, especially relative to each other, may not be obvious to students. In this sense, and in the spirit of student ownership of their research, there may be value in discussing and exploring the possible trade-offs between focusing on gaining ever-more refined skills in a very narrow range of methods versus more general research design skills. Here, my experience has led me to emphasize the value of mastering research design, since without proper training in this area, we risk producing PhDs where the only added value is a sophistication in the deployment of a certain methodology, but without any serious attention paid to public policy as such. Research that is solely methods-driven, in this sense, relegates the issue of public policy to second ground, and methods risk becoming the aim and not the means of the research endeavour.

OWNERSHIP

Underpinning the process of determining and communicating fundamental assumptions about the world, public policy and the process of crafting a PhD thesis is the question of ownership. By this I mean ownership of the obvious: the direction and purpose of the dissertation. My motto here is: ‘more research design = more control’ (Maggetti, Gilardi and Radaelli, 2012, chapter 1). There is a point when students have to stop reading about their topic and must read more about research design. That increases control over the dissertation (Maggetti, Gilardi and Radaelli, 2012).

But, also and arguably more importantly, ownership here means being aware and in control of how the process of generating findings may have beneficiaries outside academia – often starting from those organizations that are studied empirically in the dissertation. Students must own their work also in the sense of being in control of the process leading to wider benefits that arise to non-academic audiences.

The PhD is not just a bundle of courses and seminars, skills learned, methods mastered, and other things that land into a dissertation. The dissertation retains centre-place, and the courses exist to provide the pre-requisites in terms of research design, methods and techniques, as well as an understanding of different lenses on the policy process (Weible and Sabatier, 2017). Consequently, our students ought to have ownership of their research. The latter is the flagship of the initial steps in the profession. It signals the specialization achieved in one or more fields, methods or sectors of public policy analysis, as well as a capacity to carry out autonomous research, that is: to design, take responsibility for, manage and complete a significant piece of work.

In addition to taking responsibility for crafting the research design and explaining and defending this during supervision sessions, peer-to-peer learning is fundamental to establishing ownership. It allows individual students to reflect on what ‘they are and do’ in relation to other students and early career researchers. It is common to frame the doctoral experience as dyadic relationship between the candidate and the supervisor(s). But key is the task of creating a sense of being together in a doctoral program. I have seen departments succeeding at creating the structure, fora and opportunities for peer-to-peer learning in masters’ programs. In my experience, however, this is less the case of doctoral programs, where the old idea of ‘working with a supervisor(s)’ can be a hindrance to the wider notion of learning and sharing experience and knowledge in a cohort. Most departments nevertheless try to offer at least the minimum pre-conditions for this to happen: a space or room dedicated to doctoral students, a doctoral or doctoral-staff colloquium or regular seminar, and annual doctoral workshops designed and managed by students. These efforts are particularly successful when they feature the active participation of post-docs/early career researchers, to establish a continuum between the doctoral experience and what comes after. An example of such a dynamic early research network is the Public Policy Research Network (<https://publicpolicyresearchnetwork.co.uk>) in London, which gathers early career researchers from three universities.

The supervisor must assist students in embracing or formulating a certain vision of public policy. I have found it useful to ask my students the question ‘why do you want to become a professional policy analyst?’

Let me digress on this question for a moment. When I changed job from ‘outside academia’ (where I worked for seven years after my degree) to pursuing an academic career and starting a PhD, I told my mentor Bruno Dente that I wanted to do ‘academic, theoretical policy analysis’. Bruno then asked me whether I wanted to become *educated* or *professional*. Recalling his words to the best of my memory, he would say: ‘if you think the beauty of taking a doctoral degree in public policy is to read and read and read books (and one day teach these books) and contemplate “theory”, you have (in my view) no sense of your mission and responsibility in the world.’

My translation of his thoughts is: There are many people working *in* and *on* public policy: public managers, journalists, experts, politicians, lobbyists. Some of them are very educated indeed. But what makes our knowledge different from the policy knowledge of a journalist is the range of professional methods we mobilize to approach and explain public policy, not the number of books we have read. For this reason, I am not fond of the distinction between policy analysis (carried out outside universities for a client) and theory-informed policy research (on this, see St.Denny and Cairney in this volume). What matters is whether one deploys the professional tools of a policy analyst or not. As for clients or absence of clients, policy analysis is grounded on philosophical pragmatism when it comes to the role of individuals in society.

In the context of pragmatism, researching, publishing and doing policy analysis always needs a perspective or purpose: this can be the perspective of a client, of a government, of an organization contesting public policy, of the national research council that funded your work. It can, of course, be a normative perspective, such as fighting for more transparency in policy decisions. But there is no ‘pure’ policy analysis, if pure means ‘without a perspective’. Or, if it exists, it may be irrelevant to the real world of public policies.

So, back to my question, I tend to use the term ‘professional policy analyst’ (instead of ‘academic’) because the doctoral students I teach one day (hopefully) will be doing professional policy analysis in public administration, politics, international organizations, non-governmental organizations, companies, pressure groups and independent research institutes. Not all of them will seek a university job.

It is not the supervisor’s job to answer the question ‘why do you want to become a professional policy analyst?’ However, pedagogically speaking, the supervisor must accompany the search of the answer as a fellow traveller of the student, and even more importantly pose the same question at the beginning, during and at the end of the dissertation. The object of this reflection (or perhaps long-standing meditation!) on the question can indeed shift from one stage to another in the process.

One way to accompany students in this reflection is to ask them to complete the answer to ‘why do you want to become a professional policy analyst?’ with verbs – here I follow Dunlop and Radaelli (2021), and see also: Cairney (2021). One obvious verb is ‘to analyze’. ‘To analyze’ is one of the aims, expectations or aspirations of someone willing to complete a PhD program in public policy. But analysis is also a vast category of predispositions and ways of approaching an object of social inquiry and ‘going deep’ so to speak. It comes with its own sub-dimensions of, for example, rational policy analysis (Weimer and Vining, 2017), design-thinking (Mintrom and Luetjens, 2016), interpretivism (Schwartz-Shea and Yanow, 2012), analysis of decisions (Dente, 2014) and so on. Analysis is but one dimension of policy research and one activity undertaken by professional policy analysts, and other, equally important, dimensions warrant our attention.

One such other fundamental dimension is, arguably, *learning*. ‘To learn’ allows student and supervisor to explore a large territory (more in Dunlop and Radaelli, 2021). Learning for yourself is one thing, learning to produce usable knowledge another (Dunlop and Radaelli, 2021). Undertaking a PhD is likely to offer up ample opportunity for either or both, but students may need guidance when navigating the appropriate or desirable balance between the two in relation to, for example, their own personal interests and/or their professional aspirations. Another verb that often comes up is the verb ‘to advise’. This brings us into the dimension of producing usable knowledge and translating findings into languages and operations that differ from those of the social sciences.¹⁰ Next we find two colossal verbs: ‘to empower’ and ‘to reflect’. The policy scholar is (definitely) not the demiurge or leader or commander of those that seek power and influence. Yet, there are implications about how policy knowledge affects power relations in a society or in the world around us that students should be aware of, so as to get a firmer grip on their project in terms of ownership.

¹⁰ Today, colleagues like Paul Cairney and Chris Weible talk about translational policy sciences (Weible and Cairney, 2018). To reflect on the translational properties of a dissertation means to reflect on the range of possible beneficiaries. A dissertation where no translation is possible will have academics as the exclusive potential population of beneficiaries.

To reflect, among other things (Dunlop and Radaelli, 2021), balances the verb ‘to empower’ with epistemic humility (Etzioni, 2014). The reflective practitioner is described by Donald Schön (1983, 1987) who studied how practicing a profession produces valuable insights for creative problem-solving. Key in the reflection process is the appreciation that professional and lay knowledge are equally important in collective problem-solving. Not everything in public policy is a problem to be solved.¹¹ The best compass on reflection is the attitude Schön magisterially described (1983, 1987).

Concrete experiences reinforce the exploration of these verbs. With Claire Dunlop, I used an experiment in class to make graduate students reflect on the illusion of controlling phenomena that are in fact random, and on the value of epistemic (in our case, regulatory) humility (Dunlop and Radaelli, 2014). In our experiment, a group of student-practitioners were asked to extract a number from an urn. For the control group, we took the number out of the urn and gave it to the student who was standing in front of the urn and us. Then we asked them to estimate the probability of guessing the correct number. Students who had taken the number with their hands estimated a higher probability. This is a classic experiment, repeated several times, that shows how we may misdiagnose a random phenomenon as a phenomenon on which we have control. Showing the results in class, we reflected with the students on the consequences of the illusion of control for their own job in public administration or regulatory agencies. It was easy for them to recognize the presence of illusions of control in how public administration operates in the development of policies. Some told us that often the illusion is reinforced by politicians who want to be seen as doing things about problems. In conclusion, even a simple experiment can trigger reflection and more awareness on what one does outside the class.

BALANCING CONTENT-SPECIFIC KNOWLEDGE AND THEORETICAL KNOWLEDGE

During the course of the fieldwork and beyond, one often gets totally immersed in the subject matter of the policy sector, or issue, or puzzle, at the centre of the dissertation. If, for example, the topic is competition policy, there is a lot of literature specific to competition policy that ought to be understood and absorbed, from economics, law, but also official documents such as decisions of competition authorities. One may end up going to conferences on competition policy more often than to conferences about public policy. When I was researching my dissertation on corporate taxation in the EU, I was invited to speak at conferences of chartered accountants and at events organized by tax lawyers more often than by the organizers of seminars in political science. It was rewarding to open these conferences of professionals with ‘a bit of policy history on what the EU is doing and may be doing on corporate taxes’ – but to know more about corporate taxes was not the main reason I was writing the dissertation.

¹¹ The philosopher Gabriel Marcel (1933) distinguished between ‘problem’ and ‘mystery’. A problem is something external to us, something we can look at from a certain distance, dissect, inspect and analyze. Problems can be solved by techniques, methods, algorithms. In a paradoxical way, this notion of problem is meta-problematic. A mystery, instead, can only be approached by someone who is involved – and the identity of the person asking or seeking answers is an important dimension. The problem is ‘before me’. The mystery is ‘in me’. If the questioner changes, the question raised by the mystery changes.

Therefore, doctoral research should balance content-specific knowledge with the possibility to keep up a conversation with the wider world of policy scholarship. One way to do that is to adopt the vocabulary of theories of the policy process (Weible and Sabatier, 2017) as the bedrock of this conversation. In the end, a good doctoral thesis is rich in content, but its research design, foundational conjectures or hypothesis, findings and implications can be translated into the language of one or more policy concepts, models and theories.

One must find her fellow travellers in public policy – for example, are these fellow travellers in the multiple streams models, in implementation theory, and so on? To achieve this, the very concepts adopted in a dissertation must travel – a lesson I heard from sitting in front of Giovanni Sartori when he introduced us to the doctoral program at the University of Florence (on concepts that travel, see Sartori, 1970). The best way is to think like a social scientist and substitute the ‘name of what I am researching’ with categories and concepts that apply to many cases. Students should ask themselves ‘what is my central policy question in the dissertation a case of in the world of public policy analysis?’ In the example of competition policy, the ‘case’ can be one of advocacy coalitions, agenda setting, narratives, policy learning, diffusion, implementation and so on. It is the classic rhetorical question of ‘why should I read your dissertation, assuming I am not interested in competition policy?’. Going back to my example of corporate taxation, the switch for me was when I realized my dissertation was a case of knowledge utilization in public policy, and taxation was a strong empirical case to test some expectations about technical and epistemic power in the policy process of the European Union. At that point, I started being invited to seminars in political science! The lesson I learned is to balance research on the subject matter with a proper framing in terms of social scientific concepts and theories.

PUBLISH OR PERISH?

Most students become worried about publications towards the end of their doctorate. This late awakening is a mistake. Being ‘someone who publishes well’ is a process starting in year one of the PhD. Students who do not read the best journals, attend conferences, contribute to the early career networks of professional associations of public policy, from year one onwards, will find it hard to establish and maintain a steady pipeline of publications.

Publishing is not incidental to professional research, it is a key process of becoming a professional researcher in a given field. Though the publication process can appear daunting to doctoral students, there are no secrets to success but rather two well-known professional truths: students who publish are students who (1) read, and (2) write. It may seem paradoxical to emphasize the importance of reading before writing. Indeed, supervisors are likely to more often be confronted with students’ apprehension about *what* to write, and *where* to try to publish it than with their questions about what more they could read. Nevertheless, I contend that students should not think too much about what to write in order to get published, but rather they should first think about what to *read*. Publishing research amounts to contributing to an ongoing conversation among likewise interested colleagues and stakeholders. Students aspiring to participate in these conversations should therefore be strongly encouraged to particularly focus their attention on reading their target journal(s), so as to immerse themselves totally in the kind of issues and questions that mark that publication – i.e., the conversations that attracts their readership.

Of course, it remains the case that those who do not write cannot publish. Publications do not emerge from thin air. A good place to start, of course, is the thesis itself! In my experience, my students benefited from clearly articulated writing advice from researchers such as Patrick Dunleavy (2003). However, writing for social scientists goes beyond the doctorate. For some it is a whole-of-professional life experience, carrying on through decades in the profession and several publications. Learning how to write clearly (and even *gracefully*) is not a gift of nature. It is a skill that can be learned. This is demonstrated by Becker (2007) and Williams and Bizup (2014): two volumes that are as rewarding to read as they are to applying to your own writings.¹² Supervisors can, and therefore should, support students to become better writers. Within the supervisory team, this can involve: feedback on drafts that is attentive to form as well as substantive content, signposting to relevant writing advice, and identification of public policy research that is well written and which may serve as exemplar. In broader doctoral training programs, group labs or writing workshops can also be incorporated, which involve careful and constructive peer-to-peer scrutiny of drafts and in-class sessions showing how a manuscript can be improved by directly addressing style and structure.¹³

Moreover, in our profession, publications typically emerge from good conference papers at competitive conferences. Students should therefore be actively supported in participating in all relevant conferences and workshops. This includes support and training to learn the skills and conventions of good scientific writing and presentations. For instance, good conference papers come from clear abstracts, and therefore that time invested in writing a good abstract is never wasted. Being that they do not necessarily represent a staple writing format of undergraduate and masters' programs, we should not assume that new doctoral students already have strong abstract writing skills or, indeed, proficiency in other conventional aspects of scientific writing. Attending to students' skill development in these areas is therefore likely to pay dividends in supporting them to becoming productive writers.

To conclude on this agonizing issue of 'publish or perish', I have always thought my task to be one of presenting this as a normal process and, in response, inviting students to plan accordingly. To publish should not become a drama, but the natural consequence of reading, researching and actively participating in professional conversations in a given field. Indeed, as the German philosopher Ludwig Feuerbach famously said, 'you are what you eat'. Consequently, those students who do not engage deeply with the journals they wish to publish in, do not attend relevant conferences and otherwise do not engage in debates outside the empirical field of their dissertation will surely find publishing in journals with a wide readership more painful than it needs to be.

¹² This is yet another lesson I learned from Michael Barzelay, who introduced me to these two books.

¹³ I was fortunate to be involved in the *atelier écriture* of the Centre Emile Durkheim at the University of Bordeaux. In that particular experience, we learned that making choices about writing structures reveals some deep-seated understandings about the purpose and process of research. This was very clear in the case of turning a French dissertation into a series of articles for Anglo-Saxon journals. <https://www.sciencespobordeaux.fr/fr/recherche/nos-laboratoires/centre-emile-durkheim.html>.

OUT OF THE DOOR?

Completing a PhD is an ending, but also often a beginning. As an academic degree, the PhD represents the completion of a very specific exercise. Yet, unless one wants to comprehensively forget the doctoral experience and embrace a totally new life, I do not think that getting the degree means turning the page.

To begin with, for many, the research process undertaken for a dissertation is likely to lead to some of the most important publications of their career, or at least to those that begin to establish one's name in the world of public policy analysis. Many of these publications will post-date the submission of the thesis. For instance, a book based on a dissertation may take years to prepare, reflecting the amount of time it can take to rewrite the manuscript for a different audience than a dissertation examination panel and to consolidate the findings from the thesis with further research. The first research grant after the PhD is likely to build on and extend the dissertation's topic or theory or model. Furthermore, alongside or even instead of conventional academic publishing in books or journals, there are also diverse and sometimes unexpected ways to disseminate findings to policy stakeholders and other beneficiaries. Even those newly-minted PhDs who opt to pursue a career outside of academia are likely to find the insights that they gained or generated through their PhD have wider currency and would benefit from effective dissemination. Indeed, the findings of some PhDs may end up in the public debate and become part of the discourse around a given policy problem.

Finally, beyond the substantive insights from the dissertation, the broader experience of doing the PhD and of being a PhD student can often have wider professional ramifications. For instance, early career policy analysts often define their network during the PhD, with these going on to act as professional springboards for next steps. For those striving to remain in the profession, this might include invitations to participate in collective works such as edited books or organizing panels at conferences. For those who leave the academy, professional networks may be the source of job opportunities or a way to actively maintain relations across the research-practice divide.

All this means that the thesis, and the broader PhD experience, cast a long shadow; one that extends long after the dissertation has been archived in a university repository. This is yet another reason for both students and supervisors to take both the exercise of the thesis and the attendant professional and intellectual development that characterize the PhD very seriously indeed. It therefore implies that those whose job it is to support PhD students – this includes supervisors but also extends to other relevant professional and academic staff – should strive to support such students in proactively planning and managing their transition out of the PhD. Much like publishing, career planning should not be left to the last minute, and students should be encouraged to develop relevant skills, including for example, a proficiency in translating and communicating their academic skills to demonstrate suitability for non-academic jobs.

CONCLUSION

I discussed some aspects of teaching public policy in doctoral programs with the aim of drawing lessons from my experience. Inevitably, both the choice of aspects and the lessons I derive from them are subjective: they reflect the conventions and expectations of systems in

the parts of the world I am better acquainted with, and of the profile of students I have interacted with the most.

I first suggested that there is value in ‘preparing the terrain’ of a doctoral student in public policy by weeding out some conventions often inherited from more general social science study at undergraduate or masters’ level. I then homed in on key facets of a successful PhD and PhD experience in public policy. This includes the need to support students to clearly and cogently navigate different realms (such as philosophical presuppositions about reality and knowledge), assert control over research design, establish a sense of intellectual ownership over the thesis itself, achieve the right balance between policy content and disciplinary knowledge, and take steps towards publishing and career planning from day one and continuing with this after submission.

Sometimes I looked at these issues from the point of view of the students, other times from the perspective of the supervisor and the coordinator of the program. I did not talk about how to monitor progress, how to establish the value of a doctorate, how to carry out an examination, and other dimensions that differ markedly by country and academic traditions. In conclusion, the doctoral program is more than just the completion of a dissertation but a contribution to our discipline, the first in-depth experience in research and for most students in teaching too, the opportunity to learn from other doctoral students in a constructive research environment, the identification of beneficiaries of social scientific findings outside academia, and the experience of reflecting and giving purpose to our professional activity.

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25. Challenges of teaching public policy to practitioners: A case for andragogy

Jean-François Savard and Isabelle Caron

INTRODUCTION

As professors, we are all experts in our respective fields of research. Our university studies have led us, over the years, to hone our research skills, to deepen our interests and to develop our expertise. However, our university studies rarely prepare us for teaching. Some will have had the opportunity to be sessional lecturers, but not all professors have had this opportunity before starting their careers. The most many of us can count on when we come to take on full teaching responsibilities, therefore, is some (often limited) experience of teaching undergraduate students. Thus, when we begin our teaching career in earnest, we usually have the reflex to imitate what we know, and what we know is usually how to teach traditional university students with no professional experience.

However, in public policy education, we sometimes have cohorts of practitioners as students. In this chapter, we focus on this particular group of students, who require teaching that considers their specific realities, which we cannot assume are the same as those of the regular students (with no professional experience). Having had the opportunity to teach several cohorts of practitioner students, we argue that teaching public policy to this clientele requires an adapted approach based on andragogy, which is a teaching approach tailored for adult learners.

To this end, in this chapter, we will first distinguish pedagogy from andragogy by focusing on Knowles' five assumptions (Knowles, 1980, 1984), which will later serve as a conceptual guide for the analysis we present below. Second, we will outline the characteristics of student practitioners that need to be considered in adapting our teaching approaches to this group. Third, we will define the storytelling technique we have chosen to conduct our analysis and propose solutions. Thus, for each of Knowles' five assumptions, we will tell a story from one or another of our perspectives. Each story illustrates one of Knowles's assumptions in action and demonstrates how we can adopt techniques that are better suited to teaching student practitioners.

ANDRAGOGY, OR THE ART OF TEACHING ADULTS

Kapp first introduced the concept of andragogy in 1833 to describe adult learning. Based on Plato's educational theories, Kapp's andragogy approach maintains that adult education is essentially based on character formation and self-knowledge (Loeng, 2018). Kapp argued that 'in vocational education, character formation was superior to practical occupational skills and that the development of outer, objective skills must not take place independently of the inner formation of human character' (Loeng, 2018: 2).

Almost a century later, building on Kapp's writings, Rosenstock-Huessy defined andragogy as 'the name that includes all school-like education for adults' with an emphasis on the importance of 'solving social problems and moving towards a better future' (Loeng, 2018: 2). This notion of adult education was then taken up by several European researchers such as Hanselmann (Switzerland), Pöggeler (Germany) and Savicevic (Yugoslavia), emphasizing the importance of shaping a form of education that could contribute to achieving peace and justice in our societies (Loeng, 2018). This conception of andragogy carried by European authors insists on the importance of a type of education that emphasizes the social role that adults can play in society.

In North America, the notion of andragogy was first introduced by Eduard C. Lindeman in the 1920s and 1930s in his books on community development and group work. However, Knowles popularized the term with the publication of his book *The Modern Practice of Adult Education: Andragogy versus Pedagogy* in 1970. Initially viewed as a concept opposed to pedagogy, Knowles defines andragogy as 'the art and science of helping adults learn' (Knowles, 1980: 43). This conception was later revised in light of criticism of his dichotomous pedagogy-andragogy approach. Indeed, while several teachers reported that they were applying the concepts of andragogy to the education of youth and that both pedagogy and andragogy could be used in a classroom depending on the situation, Knowles refined his approach in a book published in 1980, which proposed instead to understand andragogy as 'simply another model of assumptions about learners to be used alongside the pedagogical model of assumptions' (Knowles, 1980: 43). Furthermore, instead of viewing the pedagogical and andragogical models as dichotomous, Knowles proposes approaching them as two ends of a continuum. On this basis, he proposes five assumptions about the characteristics of adult learners that have become the founding principles of andragogy.

First, Knowles stresses the importance of the self-concept specific to adult learners. He maintains that as individuals mature, 'their self-concept moves from one being a dependent personality toward being a self-directed human being' (Knowles, 1980: 44). In fact, according to Knowles, adulthood happens when individuals perceive themselves to be self-directing. Therefore, the adult learner expects to be seen as capable of self-management. However, Knowles points out that since adults have been preconditioned in childhood to be passive learners, it is difficult for them to become more active learners who know how to take charge of their own learning, even if they know how to be more self-directing in other areas of their lives. Thus, in an andragogy context, the teacher has a responsibility to encourage and nurture the transition from a dependent learner to a self-directed learner and adapt their teaching to respond better to these self-directing needs.

Second, Knowles emphasizes the role of the learner's experience. As individuals mature, they develop a wealth of experience, a genuine mine of information. Mature learners pay more attention to learning from experience than to passive learning. As Knowles argues,

To children, experience is something that happens *to* them; it is an external event that affects them, not an integral part of them. [Adults] define who they are in terms of the accumulation of their unique sets of experience [...] Because adults define themselves largely by their experience, they have a deep investment in its value. (Knowles, 1980: 50)

Therefore, experiential-oriented teaching techniques such as discussion and problem-solving are effective for mature students (Knowles, 1980).

Third, Knowles refers to the notion of ‘readiness to learn’: ‘Children learn best what is needed to get to their next developmental phase’ (Knowles, 1980). The same phenomenon applies to adults. However, when individuals mature, their ‘readiness to learn’ becomes more oriented towards the developmental tasks of their social roles (Knowles, 1980). Adult learners are more motivated to learn if the knowledge and skills enable them to address real-life issues better and accomplish relevant tasks. As Knowles points out, ‘[p]eople become ready to learn something when they experience a need to learn it in order to cope more satisfyingly with real-life tasks or problems’ (Knowles, 1980: 44). These ‘readiness to learn’ situations lead to a ‘teachable moment’. It then becomes possible for the teacher to take advantage of these moments to go further since the subject becomes relevant to the learner.

Fourth, orientation to learning differs between children and adults. Adult learners are rather pragmatic as they mature; their time perspective shifts from delayed knowledge to immediate application. Moreover, ‘[t]o adults, education is a process of improving their ability to cope with life problems they face now’ (Knowles, 1980: 53). As a result, their orientation to learning shifts from a subject-centred to a performance-centred orientation (Knowles, 1980). Adult learners expect that the learning will meet their real needs in a concrete, efficient and rapid manner. Accordingly, as Knowles (1980) points out, ‘[...] learning experiences should be organized around competency-development categories’ (p. 44).

In 1984, Knowles added a fifth assumption stating that as an individual matures, the motivation to learn in a formalized context becomes more internal and individual to each learner. Internal motivation can range from getting a promotion to developing a new skill or improving life inside or outside the workplace.

As these five assumptions form the foundation of andragogy, Knowles maintains that the andragogical process design must also include essential elements (Tough, 1985). First, he underlines the importance of establishing the right climate setting, both physical and psychological. In addition, he stresses the importance of involving the learners in mutual planning, identifying their own learning needs, formulating their learning objectives and designing learning contracts to implement these elements. Finally, Knowles emphasizes the importance of involving learners in evaluating their learning (Knowles, 1984).

While the European approach focuses on the social role, Knowles’ conception of andragogy proposes a more individualistic approach based on the practice and development of the individual and his/her skills. Without entering into a theoretical debate, we argue that there is a difference in teaching public policy to practitioners and inexperienced students. Most schools or departments that offer practitioner programs focus on learner and skill development. For these reasons, our chapter builds on Knowles’ approach to andragogy.

THE SPECIFICS OF TEACHING POLICY TO MATURE STUDENTS

Our teaching experience has taught us that three main characteristics distinguish practitioner students from regular students, and these main characteristics echo Knowles’ five assumptions of andragogy. For the purposes of this chapter, ‘regular students’ refers to those who generally follow a linear path in their studies. Typically, these are students who have completed a bachelors’ degree in a public policy-related field (sociology, economics, political science) and go directly to a master’s degree in public policy, public affairs or public administration (depending on the program offered at the universities where they enroll). Conversely, student-practitioners

are those who, after completing a program of study, enter the labor market in a field related to public policy, only to return to school after a few years.

Following this brief definition, we understand that practitioner students are usually older than regular students. Indeed, they are returning to university a few years – and sometimes even decades – after completing their first university studies. These years spent working in their practice settings have given them a great deal of field experience in public policy. This field experience, while varying from student to student in both nature and intensity, is certainly the first characteristic that distinguishes practitioner students from regular students.

These practitioner students are also distinguished by the fact that they come from a wide variety of backgrounds. Thus, as noted previously, our regular students often come from public policy-related disciplines, while practitioner students come with a plurality of academic backgrounds and bring with them professional experience of a wide range of sectors and positions. Indeed, we have often had students who were former airline pilots, doctors, nurses, teachers, engineers, biologists, social workers, etc. In fact, these practitioner students return to school because, over the years, they have taken on new roles and accepted positions in which they now must develop or implement public policy. So, they enroll in our programs to further their knowledge and skills in this domain.

It is important to take this variety of backgrounds into account in our teaching. This is because it requires the adoption of levelling strategies – that is to say that we must ensure that all students have a common minimum knowledge for the courses to run smoothly, if only in terms of how public institutions function. This is also to ensure we integrate this variety of fields of action, which constitutes a real richness, into our teaching. We do this, for instance, by relating our content back to diverse practical examples of the consequences or challenges related to the design and implementation of public policies.

Finally, while experience is a rich resource that must be exploited, it may also constitute a weakness for many from a theoretical perspective. Indeed, years of fieldwork can cause practitioner students to lose the ability to deal with theories and, consequently, to lose their skills in applying theories to their objects of study. Thus, while it is relatively easy for a professor to introduce theories to unexperienced students and get them to use those theories to interpret (and critique) the real world, this may not be the case with practitioner students. This brings us to a critique that we address to Knowles' conception of andragogy: it focuses on practice, but it fails to include how adult learning addresses theories. As we will see in the next section, we believe that the practical approach inherent to Knowles' andragogy conception does not mean that we must evacuate theories, but rather, that it is usually best to proceed inductively with practitioner students and see how the real world helps them understand the theory, which, we believe, is in phase with Knowles' third and fourth assumptions.

THE POWER OF STORYTELLING

Knowles insists on the fact that the way youths and adults learn differs. In our case, this means that the way we teach public policy to practitioner students should consider the ideas of self-concept, learners' experiences, a readiness to learn oriented towards the developmental tasks of their social roles, a pragmatic learning experience and an internal learning process.

Thus, the traditional academic lecture that has been characterizing university teaching for centuries does not seem particularly well suited for practitioner students.¹

Therefore, several management and public administration schools use case studies as their main teaching techniques. However, although case study has been proven efficient, we strongly believe that storytelling is a more appropriate technique for teaching public policy to practitioner students since it reinforces the self-concept and individual learning experience.

The origins of this technique can be traced back to the work of neurologist Oliver Sacks in the 1980s. A professor at Columbia University, Sacks published his book *The Man Who Mistook His Wife for a Hat* in 1985, which was, surprisingly enough, a literary success. Drawing on his classroom teaching, Sacks structured his book quite simply: each chapter tells the story of his encounter (or encounters) with a patient and then offers a diagnosis to explain the disorders experienced by those patients. In the classroom, Sacks adopted a slightly different posture. He would tell the stories of different patients and question his students to see if they could, through discussion, come up with a diagnosis for these patients.

While it is true that this technique is similar to the case study (see the chapter by Weaver in this volume), it differs quite clearly from it. In the case study, the unit of analysis is the problematic situation around which various actors are grafted, some of whom are the source of the problem and others of whom are affected by it. The students are called upon to analyze the case and propose solutions. In storytelling, the unit of analysis is the character who lives a situation. The analysis seeks to understand the sources of the problem or issue experienced by the character to offer a ‘diagnosis’ of the situation and, ideally, possible solutions.

This teaching technique is particularly effective with practitioners because they can relate to the story of the character being told and associate their own experience with that story to understand the problem or issue, which makes it easier to implement the ideas of self-concept and internal learning (cf. Caminotti and Gray, 2012; Karanasiou et al., 2021). However, while they associate their own experience with it, the fact that the story is someone else’s and not their own allows them to distance themselves sufficiently so that they can use their experience as a source of information to think about solutions (which is consistent with Knowles’ second assumption). In this approach, the teacher’s role is to get students to infer solutions based on their experiences and to show them how the inferred solutions can be associated with various theories. In short, it is an inductive teaching technique; that is, it starts with a character’s story and brings to the students’ attention situations from their own experience, thus leading them to a better understanding of the theory (which echoes Knowles’ first, second, fourth and fifth assumption), rather than starting with the theory and leading students to determine how the theory allows them to better understand their own experience.

We have decided to organize our chapter following the logic of the storytelling approach. Thus, we have selected five cases that we have personally experienced during our career and illustrate how we considered one of Knowles’ assumptions. For each of these cases, we first tell the story of the character (whose name has obviously been changed for ethical reasons), then we propose an analysis of the problem and then explain the lesson we learned and the teaching techniques that this story allowed us to develop and retain.

¹ It worth noting that this traditional academic lecture model is also increasingly challenged in all higher education, driven by enjoiners to, among others, ‘activate the learner’ and ‘teach employability skills’.

ANDRAGOGY IN ACTION: FIVE REAL-LIFE CASES

Importance of the Self-Concept: Jean-François' Story

Charles' case could be that of many other students. I met Charles in a 15-hour course focusing on integrated public policy development. The course was offered intensively over two days and required students to take a test at the end of the second day and produce an essay on the topic of their choice, using the method of their choice, and submit it a month later. The only guidelines were that the essay must be saved as a PDF, submitted on the course platform and not exceed 2,000 words.

Usually, when I introduce the course outline, the questions students pose mainly concern the assignments. This time was no exception. The 30 students wanted to know what kind of questions would be asked on the exam, what kind of topic would be acceptable for the essay, what kind of font would be accepted, would late papers be accepted, and so on. It was business as usual! Many questions, as I expected, were about the essay, and more specifically about the parameters of the essay. Practitioner students are often uncomfortable at first with the freedom I offer them. I could see, however, that even though he was not asking questions, Charles seemed uncomfortable with the idea of producing the essay. I could have told him right then and there that I could see something was wrong, but many students hate being put on the spot like that – it makes them feel even more uncomfortable – and they become less receptive to the rest of the class. So, I decided to let it go and talk to him during the break instead.

I did not have to go to him during the break; he came to me. His questions were all about the essay. I was expecting him to ask me questions about the themes, but to my surprise, his questions were only about the parameters of the essay. Since the break was not long, I quickly ended the conversation.

At noon, he asked me if he could go to lunch with me. It should be noted that Charles was a civil servant who was approximately the same age as me, so it was not too strange that he asked me if he could join me for lunch. This is quite common with practitioner students. The conversation quickly turned to the parameters of the essay. He kept insisting on precise directions. He wanted to know what I expected in each paragraph. He wanted a list of grading criteria with the points associated with each criterion. His insistence was beginning to irritate me.

The next day, Charles was back at it as soon as he arrived in the classroom, before we had even started the class. This time he insisted that I share with him a similar essay from a previous year that had received a good grade for the sake of setting an example. Such a practice would have been unethical. I was getting impatient when I realized the source of Charles' discomfort. While I thought I'd pleased the students – and Charles – by giving them the freedom to write whatever they wanted, however they wanted, Charles perceived this as a free-fall jump, but without the experience of tackling similar assessments with which to draw on and avoid crushing all his bones on landing. So, he was petrified.

How do we understand this gap between my perception of the essay and Charles'? Let us go back quickly to Knowles, who explains that adults have been preconditioned as children to be passive learners. Knowles further points out that teachers who teach adults often simply replicate dependent learner models, not allowing students to become self-directed learners. This is precisely what was happening here. In the courses Charles had taken up to that point at our university, the assessments to be handed in were all framed by specific criteria. Many courses even provided a specific framework for the final assignments. All the students had to

do was follow some sort of recipe. This was very comfortable for Charles because it reinforced his dependent learner model and gave him a sense of control over the content he produced and the content evaluation that came out of it. The type of assignment I was asking him to do made him feel insecure because it forced him to think outside the box in a more self-directed learning model that he was not used to, and he felt he had less control over the ins and outs of his assignment.

My goal was to get him to overcome his fears and trust himself. A professor cannot force a student to adopt a learning style. A professor can only facilitate their transition from one style to another. To accomplish this, I first asked Charles what public policy issues he was concerned about. Then, I had a discussion with him to help him think about the problems of public policy integration (the theme of the course) he observed concerning his topic. I continued this discussion to quietly and subtly structure his work in his own mind (this discussion took about 30 minutes). In the end, he felt more confident, and more in control of his work. He went home at the end of the two days and, as agreed, handed in his essay a month later.

Learner's Experience: Isabelle's Story

This was the first time I had taught my public policy course to mature students. I had always taught this course in a master's program for regular students with no work experience, and it had always been a success. The students participated well and generally did very well. The course for mature students was slightly different as it was offered in a blended model. Most of the teaching was done asynchronously with bi-weekly live classes allowing students to ask questions. At the end of the term, there was a three-day intensive session in which students participated in person.

Catherine was a part-time student who was completing her program with my course. In her late thirties, she was recently appointed as a director in a provincial government department. She supervised about 20 employees. When I asked all the students to briefly introduce themselves at the beginning of the intensive session, Catherine spent a long time recounting her various work experiences and listing her present duties and responsibilities. It was clear that Catherine was ambitious and valued her work experience.

Throughout the semester, students were invited to ask questions about the course material during the live classes. Catherine often monopolized the discussion by asking questions that were more about discrediting my teachings and proving me wrong than actually getting an answer to the question. She always brought the conversation back to her personal experience. This annoyed me greatly, and I felt it annoyed the other students. I had to step in several times to allow other students to ask questions during these live classes. I was very apprehensive about the three-day intensive session.

On the first morning of the intensive session, Catherine would interrupt me or take advantage of a short moment of silence to go back to her personal experience. At first, I tried to ignore it and quickly moved on to something else or to another student. Alas, when I ignored her, she would start talking out loud to the students sitting near her in the classroom. I had to ask the students to keep their voices down a few times. I felt like I was teaching children!

At lunchtime, all the students were eating together in a room because the university provided the meal. After taking some deep breaths, I decided to sit next to Catherine and started asking her questions about her work experience. She talked for almost an hour non-stop, repeatedly emphasizing that her work experience allowed her to look at the material with more insight

and understanding. The other students around her listened and nodded. She insisted that she was different from students without work experience. She was a practitioner. This distinction seemed very important to her.

I realized that until now, I had been teaching the material I was supposed to teach, but I had never considered the experience of my students. When I was teaching this course to regular, inexperienced students, I focused on the theory. They were receptive and learned what they needed to know. Yet, the work experience of adult students is a necessary background that we cannot ignore. As Knowles argues, unlike children, the experience shapes self-identity in adults. They define themselves based on their acquired skills and their unique experiences. As Knowles puts it, ‘adults *are* what they have *done*’ (1980: 50). Since adults define themselves mainly by their experience, it is of great value to them. Thus, ignoring or minimizing their experience is to reject them as persons (Knowles, 1980).

Because I had not considered the personal experience of my students, some like Catherine, who valued it extensively, may have felt that I was rejecting them as people. Therefore, I decided to change my approach. After each topic or concept was taught, I included a discussion period where students could share their experiences and connect to the material being taught. Catherine’s attitude changed immediately. She no longer tried to interrupt me to discredit me. Her questions were about deepening her knowledge and understanding of applying theory to practice. By recognizing the value of her experience in the learning process, I had also recognized her value as a person. She felt valued and respected, which allowed her to fully invest in the course. In addition, this change in approach was also beneficial for the other students who were also invited to share their experiences. In the end, the learning process was greatly enriched by the sharing of experiences and the students showed an increased interest in the subject matter.

Readiness to Learn: Jean-François’ Story

To address the concept of readiness to learn, I will cheat a bit and tell two stories: Elizabeth’s and Dominic’s. Both stories happened in the same public policy development and implementation course early in my career.

Elizabeth was a manager in a Canadian federal government department with almost 20 years of experience. She was coming to do her Masters in Public Administration to gain the skills necessary to become a director and eventually a director-general. It was nice to have Elizabeth in a class because she was very participatory. She also had leadership skills and was able to bring people together, which can be an excellent quality in a class and a problem when leadership has negative impacts on a group.

During the first two weeks of class, everything was going well for Elizabeth, but I noticed that she was showing less enthusiasm by the third week. During a break, I took a moment to chat with her. She shared her frustration with me. She maintained that she did not understand anything and felt ignorant. After the fourth week of the course, she came to me and said she wanted to drop the course because she did not think she was smart enough for it. This was very surprising to me since she was doing well in her other courses and was in a management position. What bothered me the most was that because she was a leader, she was dragging several other students with her who also showed a desire to leave the course, even though they were doing quite well.

In the same class was Dominic, a relatively senior military officer. Having joined the military at 18, he was only two years away from retirement from military life (after 25 years of service) and was preparing for his second career. Like many in the Canadian military, he wanted to pursue a career in federal public administration. The Masters of Public Administration degree would provide him with the knowledge and skills to achieve this goal.

One evening at the end of a course, Dominic told me that he found my course very interesting but too theoretical. He did not see how my course could be helpful for managers who were facing 'real' problems every day. He did not see how my course gave them the 'tools' to solve the problems they faced. Dominic was a very nice person, but I must admit that I found his comments insulting and hurtful at the time. I promised him that I would think about it.

Elizabeth's and Dominic's stories have one thing in common: they both present a classic case of readiness to learn. Elizabeth and Dominic entered a master's program in public administration to gain specific skills and knowledge that would equip them to solve the day-to-day problems they faced the day after the course. This was what they expected. Their frustration with the course was rooted in the fact that it was constructed in a more 'traditional' way by presenting public policy theories and discussing those theories to see how they could be put into practice afterwards. However, for managers whose work for the past 10 or 20 years had consisted of solving problems every day, it was difficult to break out of this thought pattern and adopt an approach that was more theoretical than the procedural approach to which they were accustomed. At the same time, the dilemma for me was that teaching those theories in a master's course was required by my university program committee and I could not just focus on practical problem-solving. My challenge was to reconcile teaching theories and practical problem-solving.

So, I decided to change my approach. Rather than starting from theory to understand real-life situations, I decided to start from real-life situations to understand theories and then have students see how theories are used to understand other real-life problems. My first technique was to prepare a simulation of a public policy problem over four weeks. The simulation work was first done in teams. Each team was given a document presenting part of the situation, and they had to produce a short document showing how they responded to that situation. Then we would come back as a group and discuss each team's responses. In the end, I would show them how their responses related to the theories presented in the readings and ask the students if they could see how the theories could be applied to concrete problems experienced in their department, using the outcome of the simulation as an example.

Along with the simulation, I also created a series of podcasts that students could download from the course's web platform and listen to at any time during the week. In these podcasts, I would talk with other federal government managers about problems they had experienced and explain how they related to any of the theories seen in class. Then at the beginning of each class, I would take a moment to discuss the content of the week's podcast with the students. It should be noted that this technique is not only well suited to the concept of readiness to learn, but it is also a valuable technique for promoting self-directed learning. Several students told me they appreciated podcasts because they allowed them to better structure their study time. Dominic, for example, told me that he downloaded the podcasts onto his iPod and listened to them on the bus between work and home.

I started the simulation and podcasts in week five. By the end of the fifth class, I saw a difference in Elizabeth's attitude. By week seven, she was back to the cheerful student she was at the beginning of the course and was participating in class again. She was also a positive influ-

ence on the other students. Dominic also liked the simulation, but he enjoyed the podcasts the most. Most importantly, he could finally see how this course was helpful for his management career. This was an important moment in my career since it shaped how I would go on to teach from there on out. Indeed, after this course, I started to create podcasts for my other courses on a regular basis (I even bought semi-professional equipment for this purpose) and integrated a simulation exercise in all my public policy courses.

Orientation to Learning: Isabelle's Story

The first few times I taught a public policy course to mature students, I offered a series of pre-defined topics for their final paper. The final assignment was to develop a public policy proposal addressing a social issue. I thought that providing a series of themes would make it easier for the students to do the work, as they would not have to come up with a theme on their own. I also thought that if all the students were working on common themes, it would be easier to encourage discussion of these themes in class or refer to them as examples. The results of these assignments were always average. Students had difficulty defining the problem, identifying the policy actors involved and defining the goals of the proposed policy. No matter how much support I gave them (examples, exercises, etc.), I felt they did not correctly understand the material.

Matthew was a mature part-time student who worked full-time as a firefighter. He was passionate about his job and very involved in the fire department he worked for. He had decided to go back to school part-time to obtain a master's degree that would eventually allow him to move up the ladder and get a management position. Matthew was an excellent student who participated a lot in class. His questions were always relevant, and he put a lot of effort into his work.

At mid-term, after explaining to the students that they had to choose one of the proposed themes for their term paper, Matthew asked to meet with me. He had decided to focus on the first theme, the issue of childcare funding. Matthew was having difficulty defining the policy issue. Whenever he tried to define it, his definition was too vague and general. Despite my efforts to bring him back to a more specific definition, he persisted in addressing the problem in a very general way. As I asked him a few questions, I realized that he was not familiar with this policy area since he did not have any children of his own and no one he knew had children of childcare age. His interest in the subject seemed minimal. Therefore, I suggested that he choose another topic. The following week, Matthew asked to meet with me again. This time he had decided to work on the issue of drinking water on Indigenous reserves. Once again, Matthew could not define the problem, identify the actors correctly and define the objectives. Although he seemed to understand and recognize the importance and seriousness of the problem on Indigenous reserves, Matthew showed little interest in pursuing the issue. It seemed very far from his area of expertise.

I asked Matthew to think of a policy issue that affected him professionally or personally (outside of the suggested topics). He immediately responded that he was interested in better understanding the lack of coherence in emergency policies that affect small municipalities. Matthew was soon able to clearly define the problem, identify the actors and define the objectives of a future policy without my help. I realized that he had all the knowledge and skills necessary to do the job. However, because he could not apply that knowledge and skill to an immediate problem he faced in his professional life, he had little interest in doing the job.

Knowles argues that adults tend to want to apply their learning immediately. The decision to return to school is often motivated by the need to respond to the problems they encounter in their professional lives better. Therefore, learning should be more problem-centred than subject-centred (Knowles, 1980). As Knowles (1980) states, 'adult educators must be primarily attuned to the existential concerns of the individuals and institutions they serve and be able to develop learning experiences that will be articulated with these concerns' (p. 54).

By allowing Matthew to focus on a topic relevant to him, he could immediately apply the knowledge and skills he had learned. This made learning more effective because he could rely on a topic he knew and understood and something that he cared about. After careful consideration, I decided to encourage all my students to work on a social issue relevant to their work or one that affected them personally. To my surprise, the quality of the final papers improved significantly. Students also seemed more motivated to learn because they now felt they could immediately apply the knowledge and skills they had acquired. In addition, class discussions were more interesting because various topics were covered. Being able to directly use what they learned really improved the learning process for these adult students.

Internal Motivation to Learn: Jean-François' Story

Knowles explains that the motivation to learn in a formalized context is external to the individual in children. The child is encouraged to learn by an adult in such a context (teacher, parent). However, in adults, this motivation is internal. As teachers, we need to understand what motivates students to learn and shape our teaching to accommodate these motivations.

I could have told many stories that would have illustrated the application of this concept well. However, I have decided to select one of the stories that has had the most significant impact on me during my career: the story of Mary.

Mary was a senior analyst in a federal government department. Her job was to analyze issues related to her department and produce briefing notes proposing solutions to those issues. Her manager then reviewed the notes, then her director, then her director-general, before the assistant deputy minister could get his hands on the notes and decide whether to present it to his deputy minister. Mary told me that, at first, she was passionate about her work, but very quickly, she began to question herself. She wondered what the point of all her analysis and writing was if, in the end, the briefing note that arrived at senior management was so altered by her superiors that it did not even resemble what she had initially written. She felt that her work made no difference to anyone.

Mary decided that she wanted to become a manager and eventually a director. It was her way to gain control within the bureaucracy and make a difference. For this reason, she enrolled in a public administration program. Since her work involved policies implemented by her department, she quickly enrolled in my public policy development and implementation course.

When I first met Mary in my class, I thought she was taciturn and somewhat introverted. She participated very little in discussions and was quite reserved. This did not concern me much since there are always some students who are not comfortable speaking in front of the whole group. One day, around the fifth or sixth week, Mary asked to speak to me privately before the class started. She wondered what the point of the class was. She did not see how what I was teaching would help her achieve the goals she had set for herself. In other words, she did not see how she would make a difference. She felt the same frustration in my class that she felt at work.

As I reflected on Mary's case, I realized that I needed to focus on her wanting to be an agent of change. She wanted to change this bureaucratic culture that led public policy analysts, usually experts in their field, to feel that their knowledge and analysis were not valued. As professors, we want to provide students with the best conditions for learning, but when those conditions are influenced by external elements – in this case, Mary's frustrations at work – it becomes challenging to act to change those conditions.

Since I had several managers/directors and analysts in my course, I decided the following week to organize a reflection activity that asked the former what they expected from a good briefing note from their analysts and the latter what forms of value they expected from their policy analysis work. I formed a team of managers/directors and a team of analysts to think through the questions I was asking. Then, I separated the group into four teams, all of which included managers/directors and analysts, to confront their views. Following this team discussion, I asked students to reflect on how they could realistically make changes in their organizations to value the work of policy analysts better while still meeting the expectations of managers/directors, based on this confrontation of views. I also suggested that Mary take the perspective of a manager/director since she was doing her master's degree to get such a position. In other words, I asked her what she would do to value the work of an analyst if she were a manager/director.

In doing so, I directly appealed to Mary's internal motivation to learn. I knew that what had motivated her to undertake her master's program was to become an agent of change, so I appealed directly to that motivation. By doing so, I was able to affect Mary's learning conditions. I did not change her situation at her office, but by giving her the opportunity to do some reflection that allowed her to see herself as an agent of change, I could prevent her frustrations at work from being reflected in her course.

Mary enjoyed this exercise, and by the next week, she became more engaged in the course, participating more actively. What is more, in the following weeks of class, she continued to reflect on her practices based on the topics we were discussing and see what concrete changes she could implement as a manager. She indeed found her motivation to learn in my course.

What is important to remember from Mary's story is the importance of understanding the internal motivations of students and making the necessary adjustments in our teaching techniques to offer them the best learning conditions that respond to their motivation.

CONCLUSION

This chapter started by asking if teaching public policy to practitioners is like teaching regular inexperienced students. After years of experience, it appears that asking the question is to answer it. However, as the stories we told proved, it did not seem obvious when we started our respective careers. We had to learn the hard way that teaching public policy to practitioners demands different approaches based on andragogy's principles rather than those of pedagogy. In our chapter, we first discussed the differences between pedagogy and andragogy, highlighting Knowles' five andragogy assumptions that structured our reflection. We decided to approach teaching public policy to practitioners through the lens of Knowles' five principles because they confirm the characteristics of practitioner students that we have observed in our classrooms, namely: they come to a classroom with a wealth of fieldwork experience, they hold a variety of background that we have to take into account, and, because of their years of

experience away from the school benches, working with theories is usually more challenging in comparison with regular students.

To discuss Knowles' five assumptions and explain what teaching techniques we adopted to overcome some challenges we faced teaching practitioners, we opted for a storytelling technique. We argued that this technique is particularly well adapted to teach practitioners because it engages with their experience and is particularly well-suited to andragogy's principles. So, to discuss each of Knowles' five andragogy assumptions, we first told a story that happened to us. Then we diagnosed the problem and explained what technique we developed or adopted to overcome the problem we were facing. Each story illustrates well one of Knowles' assumptions. Based on these stories, we can draw some lessons.

First, Charles' story stressed the importance of the self-concept when teaching public policy to practitioners. This example teaches us the importance of professors recognizing that practitioner students have been preconditioned in their childhood to be passive learners and that the idea of having more control over their learning process takes them out of their comfort zone. One of the roles of the professor is therefore to facilitate their transition from one teaching style to another.

Second, Catherine's story illustrates the value of including the learner's experience when teaching practitioners. As discussed, the experience shapes self-identity in adults and practitioner students define themselves based on their skills and unique experience. Ignoring their experience means rejecting them as people and this could significantly hinder their learning outcomes. This story teaches us the importance of including mechanisms to allow practitioners to share their experiences in our teaching styles so that they can feel valued as persons.

Third, Elizabeth and Dominic's stories demonstrate the relevance of considering students' readiness to learn when teaching public policy to practitioners. Since these students already have a significant amount of experience, most are looking for specific knowledge and skills to tackle problems they face daily as managers. While teaching theories and concepts remains a central part of a course in a master's program, these two stories teach us that it is possible for instructors to adapt their teaching style so that practitioners can better understand how to use and apply these theories and concepts in a practical setting.

Fourth, Matthew's story addresses the concept of orientation to learning. As discussed, practitioner students tend to want to apply their learning immediately. The decision to return to school is often motivated by the need to respond to the problems they encounter in their professional lives better. This story teaches us that learning can be more effective if learners can rely on a context they already know. Instructors can support the orientation to learning by allowing these students to work on social issues that are relevant to their work or that affect them personally.

Finally, Mary's story illustrates the concept of internal motivation to learn. This story teaches us the importance of understanding specific practitioner students' internal motivations to learn and providing them with opportunities – through certain activities – to appeal to this internal motivation. This creates conditions that facilitate the learning experience and motivates students in pursuing their studies.

We could have told many other stories and explored other techniques, but the most crucial lesson that needs to be drawn from the experiences we reported is that practitioners learn differently than regular students. Thus, we must adapt and develop different techniques that acknowledge those learning differences. But this cannot be an excuse to solely focus on the practical side of what we teach. Our courses remain academic in nature. We simply must

use techniques that consider both the realities of adult learning and the requirements of the academic world.

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26. Teaching public policy to the public

Jale Tosun

INTRODUCTION

There is no aspect of any day-to-day experience that is not directly or indirectly affected by public policy (Knill and Tosun 2020). Nevertheless, the minority of people who consider themselves to be politically interested would state that they are interested in public policy. And most persons who claim to have a political interest would indicate that they follow politics (see, e.g., Prior 2018). Consequently, they consume news media that provides information on politics in a given country or a given level of a country's political system (national, regional, or local). This does not mean that individuals do not pay attention to policy outputs or outcomes. In fact, the case is quite the contrary since people who follow politics also tend to have an opinion on what the subject of politics is, and in most cases, it is public policy. Admittedly, it is seldom that it is a certain policy choice *per se* that draws public attention to politics, but rather a government's policy performance in terms of whether it managed to reduce poverty or fight environmental degradation.

A famous example of how the people's judgment of a government's policy performance was decisive for the outcome of an election is the 1980 presidential campaign in the USA. During the television debate between President Jimmy Carter of the Democratic Party and Republican nominee Ronald Reagan, the latter posed what would become one of the most important campaign questions of all time. He addressed the American voters and asked them whether they were better off today than they were four years ago. To all appearances, most Americans felt that they were not, which earned Reagan the electoral victory. There are numerous other examples of how the people's judgement of a government's policy performance or the prospect of more effective policies being adopted following a change in government was decisive for electoral outcomes (Debus, Stegmaier, and Tosun 2014; Williams, Stegmaier, and Debus 2017). One could even argue that in essence, elections are about past and future public policy decisions, which resonates with theories of competitive political party behavior in advanced democracies (Strøm and Müller 1999).

This is good news for anyone striving to teach public policy to the public because it appears a promising strategy to approach themes in public policy by presenting them through the prism of elections and politics. And we can witness that with digitalization, the provision of publicly accessible webinars on themes in public policy has grown over time. To give an example, the Asia Global Institute at the University of Hong Kong offers several webinars that aim to present current research on global policy issues and reflect on their significance and implications for Asia and other world regions. Another example is the webinar series facilitated by the Global Public Policy Network. In addition to webinars, podcasts are a format through which scholars teach public policy to the public, with a case in point being 'No Jargon', which is a monthly podcast run by the US-based Scholars Strategy Network. The reasons to offer courses for the public are manifold. One of them is that policy scholars want to increase the societal impact of their research. Another is to contribute to addressing real-life problems such

as the COVID-19 pandemic or climate change. In most cases, however, it appears that a mix of different considerations induces policy scholars to engage in such activities, and it is difficult to discern which one dominates.

Unlike other audiences, the public is particularly challenging since it comprises a wide and therefore heterogeneous group. Some individuals will be interested in politics and already be knowledgeable about it, whereas others may take less or no interest in political life. Therefore, teachers of public policy must adopt a dual strategy that accommodates for both extremes. The presentation of the political dimensions of themes in public policy (e.g., the ‘yellow vests’ movement in France, which was initially motivated by a policy decision: the domestic consumption tax on energy products) still needs to strike the balance between a very basic introduction for those members of the audience who have little knowledge and an advanced treatise for those who consume news media regularly and have a good sense of the characteristics of the respective political landscape. This is a didactical challenge, but one that can be mastered when adopting the right strategy.

This chapter follows the overarching strategy of using a ‘plot’ when teaching public policy to a general audience and trying to involve it in a conversation about policy decisions. The core elements of a classic plot, starting from an exposition and proceeding to a climax and ending with a resolution, are less suited to teaching public policy to the general public since the policy process does not always include them. A policy process could end without a resolution when a policy proposal fails, for example. A case in point is the German government abstaining from adopting a legal obligation to be vaccinated against COVID-19. After some votes took place in the German parliament without producing a majority for either of the various proposals presented, the government abstained from taking any action.

Nonetheless, some kind of a plot is necessary since otherwise many members of the audience may lose interest. Perhaps this is the biggest challenge with this particular audience: the need to keep everyone interested and engaged while acknowledging their diversity. To this end, this chapter recommends a plot that begins with those elements of political life that are most talked about and then moves on to those that receive less attention in order to end with those that bear the potential to reveal surprising or puzzling insights. In the process, the chapter highlights another important device for teaching public policy effectively, which is the use of many and diverse examples since this will reduce the level of abstraction and make the lesson more relatable and enjoyable.

THE POLITICS DIMENSION OF PUBLIC POLICY

This chapter builds on the premise that teaching public policy to the public must be seen as an activity similar to starting a conversation. The best way to start a conversation is to connect to what matters to an audience and to ask it for its experience or opinions. Politics lends itself perfectly to this purpose. Of course, there exist many facets of politics people can relate to and therefore the number of themes we could elaborate on is enormous. We choose elections and party competition, interest groups, and standard operating procedures in countries to illustrate our point. Party competition represents an empirical phenomenon that is visible and of interest to most people. Likewise, interest groups and their activities tend to appeal to a wider audience, whereas the standard operating procedures in countries may appear of limited interest

at first glance but because of that holds the promise of ‘surprising’ people and giving them an eye-opening moment.

Elections and Party Competition

Elections take place in almost every political system, including defect democracies and (some types of) authoritarian regimes (see, e.g., Croissant and Hellmann 2018). Evidently, elections are consequential in terms of their potential to bring about changes in political leadership in advanced democracies, which is why, for the purpose of developing our argument, we concentrate on a narrow definition of political leadership. While the most visible feature of electoral campaigns are the candidates running for office, they are not supported or opposed because of their personality (at least not under normal circumstances, but see, e.g., Setzler and Yanus 2018 on the voters of Donald Trump), but because they promise certain kinds of policies such as higher social welfare benefits or lower income taxes. In presidential systems, which tend to be more personalized, the candidates make the policy promises, whereas in parliamentary systems, it is the political parties that make them.

Concerning the latter, there is a vibrant literature in comparative politics on individual political parties’ policy preferences and how they have changed or remained the same over time. To capture these policy preferences, political scientists have developed a wide range of measurements of policy positions. The best-known measurement is provided by the Comparative Manifesto Project (CMP), now called the Manifesto Project (MARPOR) (Volkens et al. 2013). The CMP/MARPOR database is an influential source in comparative politics, but what it measures is the political parties’ preferences regarding certain public policies. And these policy preferences lie at the heart of the electoral competition of political parties. Parties do not compete against each other because they are and want to be different but because they have differing ideologies that culminate in differing policy preferences.

The ideologies, in turn, stem from societal cleavages (Lipset and Rokkan 1967) and fundamental societal transformations such as post-materialism (Inglehart 1971). According to the cleavage perspective, in a nutshell, left-wing parties are in favor of state intervention (i.e., regulation) in the economy, whilst right-wing parties want state intervention to be minimal. Party competition concerns position issues, while there also exist valence issues, which refer to issues on which there is agreement on the ends of politics (Stokes 1963), such as sustainability (Cox and Béland 2013).

Seen from this perspective, it becomes clear that electoral competition is in its very essence a competition over policy ideas and their appeal to the electorate (Lowi 1972). While studies in comparative politics are useful for explaining why certain policy proposals are preferred over others by certain segments of the electorate, scholarship in public policy poses different kinds of questions. For example, a policy scholar would wonder to what extent the policy ideas put forth during the electoral campaign depart from previous ones. An influential theoretical perspective is historical institutionalism, which stresses the enduring impact of policy choices made in the past (known as critical junctures). Past policy choices, historical institutionalists argue, close off alternative policy options and lead to the establishment of institutions that generate path-dependent processes (Capoccia and Kelemen 2007).

Consequently, a public policy scholar would pay very close attention to the content of the policy ideas or more concretely of the policy proposals and then try to assess how much they

resonate with past policy choices. And this is a perspective that ‘the learners’ of public policy are also likely to appreciate when they are guided accordingly.

There are good reasons why politicians may choose to propose policies that are path-dependent: They are less likely to arouse political conflict, since they tend to be of an incremental nature, and can have practical considerations related to the institutional arrangements needed for the implementation of a given policy. Likewise, there are situations in which the opposite would be the wiser strategic choice, for example, when there is evidence that a given policy has failed (McConnell 2015). The learners of public policy may find it intriguing that in public policy, policy failures have a real analytical value and represent cases which policy teachers actively look for.

Another aspect related to elections and party competition that public policy scholars would find interesting is whether the policy proposals for individual sectors add up to produce consistent, coherent, or congruent policy mixes. This is very likely a perspective that most people have never thought about when thinking about elections and how parties compete against each other.

Policy mixes are portfolios of different policy instruments (Howlett and Rayner 2007). Consistent policy mixes reinforce rather than undermine each other, coherent policy mixes denote constellations in which multiple policy goals do not contradict each other, and congruent mixes refer to policies that work together in a uni-directional fashion (Sewerin 2020: 192). When adding considerations of the characteristics of policy mixes to the policy proposals made by candidates and political parties during the electoral campaign, the voters’ judgement of them could change. If, for example, one party promises ambitious climate action but then does not propose any measures that target the functioning of agriculture, the overall policy proposal could be regarded as less ambitious because it abstains from addressing a sector that is, together with other sectors, responsible for carbon emissions (Tosun and Lang 2017; Tosun and Leininger 2017).

The effects of policy mixes that either are or fail to be consistent, coherent, or congruent provide a perspective which even the more knowledgeable segments of the audience might consider a novel and therefore intriguing insight. Only a few scholars think of public policies as policy mixes, and we would expect even fewer non-academics to be aware of policy mixes and the fact that their design matters for solving a given problem. A particularly intriguing feature of policy mixes is that their components are not designed at one point in time but that they develop over time. A promising question for discussion within a teaching session could be whether governments of differing ideologies can be thought to choose policies that, under usual circumstances, would not fit with their policy preferences (e.g., taxes for an economically liberal party), but do when they realize the need for consistent, coherent, or congruent policy mixes.

Interest Groups

Another feature of political life on which people tend to have an opinion are interest groups, defined broadly as private interest groups (which are considered as lobby groups) and public interest groups (which are considered as non-governmental organizations, NGOs). In the United States, lobby groups are an accepted element of politics, whereas in the European context, for example, they have negative connotations (Knill and Tosun 2020). It is true that interest groups represent the interests of their members and attempt to shape public policy

accordingly. Theoretically, there is also good reason to expect business groups to be more influential than NGOs (Lindblom 1977). But empirical research has shown that NGOs, too, can be influential actors in politics. In some countries, NGOs can file lawsuits against public authorities and businesses, which gives them considerable influence in politics. For example, in 2019, Friends of the Earth Netherlands together with other Dutch NGOs filed a lawsuit against the oil company Shell. The competent court ruled that the company must reduce its worldwide carbon emissions by 45 percent by 2030 compared to 2019 levels.

In addition to explaining how exactly lobby groups and NGOs matter for policymaking, public policy research sheds light on less directly observable aspects of the role of interest groups. By presenting the policy process as a constellation in which actors compete to raise attention toward the issue they would like to place on the political agenda (Green-Pedersen and Mortensen 2012), Baumgartner and Jones with collaborators have established a prolific research agenda on how interest groups shape public policy (Baumgartner 2010; Baumgartner and Jones 1993). From the viewpoint of teaching public policy, the most surprising element to a general audience may be that issues compete against each other for attention since there exist more issues than the policymakers are capable of addressing.

This insight connects to the real-life situation whereby people may have wondered why issues that matter to them are not discussed by policymakers whereas others are, even though they appear less important to them. This topic is itself the subject of research on agenda setting and public policy (for an overview, see Birkland 2017). One of the functions interest groups fulfill in the policy process is drawing attention to certain issues and placing them on the political agenda. Likewise, interest groups can also influence the policy process by keeping issues off the agenda, as argued by Bachrach and Baratz (1963) in their analytical framework on ‘non-decisions’. Only a few people would consider agenda exclusion as a source of power, but this strategy can be as effective as putting an issue on the political agenda (see, e.g., Tallberg 2003).

The reflection on interest groups does not end with the agenda-setting stage but can be linked to the policy cycle as a whole (Lasswell 1956): agenda setting, policy formulation/adoption, policy implementation, and policy evaluation. Interest groups are also important for the drafting stage of a policy. Interest groups possess technical and specialized knowledge on certain policy issues, which makes them influential actors in the policy process. For example, if policymakers aim to adopt technical standards for industrial production, they may consult the interest organizations of the industries concerned, as this will help them to choose standards that are feasible and implementable.

Policy implementation is another stage of the policy cycle in which interest groups play an important role, even if it is less apparent at first glance. Policy implementation is about putting a policy into practice, of which one element is that the target groups of a given policy comply with its stipulations. If a policy lacks acceptance, the chances are greater that its target groups (an industry or groups in society such as drivers or teachers) will not comply with it, which can result in a policy failing to meet its goals (Pressman and Wildavsky 1984), and eventually ‘policy failure’ (McConnell 2015). A case in point is the introduction of the ethanol-petrol blend E10 in Germany, which had a take-up that was well below the levels projected by the government (Tosun 2018). Despite the low demand for E10 and the fact that the policy represented a failure more comprehensively as it caused a lot of uncertainty among car drivers in Germany and was heavily criticized by environmental and other societal groups, it has

remained in place. The need to comply with the EU's requirement for promoting biofuels in the traffic sector has prevented the policy from becoming dismantled.

Interest groups can facilitate policy implementation by learning about the acceptance of the planned policy measures among their members and communicating this to policymakers, as well as by actively promoting a policy measure. To achieve this, organizations' communication channels are useful, as these enable interest associations to inform their members about the planned policy, state their position on it, and invite their members to comply with the new rules by stressing the expected benefits.

Standard Operating Procedures

Another relatable feature of political systems and policy processes are states and how we think they operate. There have been several attempts to identify the routines and standard-operating procedures of states. For example, Castles (1998) published an influential book in which he identified families of nations and associated trajectories of public policy (see also Castles and Obinger 2008). Castles' analysis revealed that there exist states in which policymaking is more state-oriented whereas in others it is more market-oriented. In addition, he indicated that policymaking follows specific patterns depending on whether the state concerned is affluent and located in the geographical center (i.e., Europe and North America) or less affluent and located on the periphery. The question of how policies are made in one country in comparison to another is one that is often discussed by individuals in various contexts, academic and non-academic. Certainly, almost all of us can think of a conversation where we argued that in our country, something is made in a specific way – often implying that it performs either better or worse than another country. And to address this question, public policy can offer helpful guidance.

Even before Castles, Richardson (1982) published an influential volume that looked at the contemporary similarities and differences among the countries of Western Europe in terms of their propensity to take anticipatory or reactive decisions and, in either case, whether they tended to do so by seeking to reach consensus with organized groups or by imposing decisions on them, notwithstanding opposition from such groups. In light of the fundamental changes modern states have experienced in the half-century since 1982, Howlett and Tosun (2019) revisited the original concept of policy styles as put forth by Richardson, Gustafsson, and Jordan (1982) and provided an updated and expanded version of it. In an attempt to provide a unified scheme for both democracies and authoritarian regimes, Howlett and Tosun stress the degree to which policymaking is inclusive and which actors (bureaucrats/experts vs. politicians/public) are involved in it.

The value of the notion of policy styles is that it structures the reflection of the ways in which political systems differ. With reference to the original formulation by Richardson, Gustafsson, and Jordan (1982), the COVID-19 pandemic has shown how important the differentiation between anticipatory and reactive policymaking is: some countries were swifter in responding to the pandemic than others (Zahariadis et al. 2022). Likewise, reform agendas, such as the transition to a carbon-neutral society, entail questions concerning social acceptance, which, in turn, depends on how the government collaborates with interest groups. The typologies proposed by Richardson, Gustafsson, and Jordan (1982); Castles (1998); and Howlett and Tosun (2019) identify dimensions which enable researchers to distinguish policymaking between countries and to group countries.

They thereby open up a new perspective on those elements of policymaking that can be generalized and those which are unique to certain countries. Generalizations have been a central feature of several conceptualizations in various subdisciplines in political science. For example, the influential work by Lijphart (1999) on consensus and majoritarian democracies aims to provide exactly this: identifying features of countries that allow them to be grouped in categories and to explain how they perform in policymaking. The commonalities and differences between how countries function tends to represent a popular subject of conversation among people coming from different countries. Such conceptual frameworks can help to structure such conversations and give people an understanding of why things are done differently in Switzerland and the United States, for example.

Summing Up

The three themes selected from comparative politics showcase the possibility to begin a conversation with a general audience about features of political life that are directly observable (e.g., because of their coverage in the news media). In the course of this conversation, teaching is most likely to be successful if it first provides a public policy perspective that is reasonably close to the observable features of the phenomena, before delving into less obvious thoughts and considerations of them.

NOT POLITICS BUT STILL VISIBLE: BUREAUCRACY

Another very visible feature of political life is bureaucracy. People talk about bureaucracy, especially when they feel that it is excessive or inefficient, and this is why it is a useful hook for drawing the attention of a non-academic audience to public policy. Similar to the standard operating procedures of policymaking discussed in the previous section, there have been attempts to characterize state bureaucracies. For example, Painter and Peters (2010) assign state bureaucracies to the following categories, which bring together geographical, cultural, and historical considerations: Anglo-American, Napoleonic, Germanic, Scandinavian, Latin American, Postcolonial South Asian and African, East Asian, Soviet, and Islamic.

One way of familiarizing the public with the policy perspective of state bureaucracy is to start the teaching session by referring to delegation and accountability in political systems, which states that state bureaucrats are eventually accountable *vis-à-vis* the citizens (Strøm 2000). By explaining this, it may become clearer why the question of delivering services has been addressed frequently by studies on the intersection between public policy and public administration. The main literature strand on cross-sectoral policy integration tends to focus on issues related to policy design, but another one asks how the delivery of different types of public services can be integrated (Tosun and Lang 2017). For example, to deliver support to unemployed young people, it is essential to have a collaboration of numerous agencies working on different themes such as education support, social benefits, career counselling, health issues, etc. (Aurich-Berheide et al. 2015; Trein and Tosun 2021). In some countries, this has resulted in the establishment of one-stop-shops that aim to provide all public services related to bringing young people into employment.

State bureaucracy is a good field for familiarizing audiences with an influential concept in public policy: horizontal and vertical policy diffusion. In brief, policy diffusion refers to

a process of policies spreading from one component of a system to another and in which the policies that diffuse come from elsewhere, such as another country, or subnational units, such as a city (Shipan and Volden 2008). Policies can diffuse horizontally across the same type of units or vertically across different levels of a system (e.g., from the local to the national level). The main mechanisms associated with diffusion refer to imitation, competition, and learning (Maggetti and Gilardi 2016). State bureaucracy is a good case for introducing this concept because in the last years, there have been attempts by the state bureaucracy to implement electronic government (Lee, Chang, and Berry 2011), which is the application of information and communication technologies to fulfill functions in administration. For example, instead of applying for a birth certificate in person, in some countries this can be done by ordering it online.

Empirical studies have shown that satisfaction with public administration has an impact on satisfaction with democracy (Ariely 2013), and this is a finding that could be discussed very dynamically and seminally with the general public. In this particular case, scholars of public policy should act as intermediaries between researchers working on public administration and on political sociology and democracy.

PUBLIC POLICY BEYOND POLITICS

Starting a conversation with the public on aspects of public policy that are less directly connected to politics and therefore less visible can be challenging. A good strategy, though, could be to take certain events as the motivation for starting such a conversation. Similar to the previous section, here we can only elaborate on exemplary themes that lend themselves to such an event-driven exchange with a non-academic audience. They include the role of science and policy feedbacks.

Science

In the last few years, there has arguably been no event more visible than COVID-19. The policy responses to the pandemic can be studied by making recourse to the whole arsenal of concepts and theories in public policy (Weible et al. 2020; Zahariadis et al. 2022). For an illustrative purpose and to vary the themes that feature dominantly in public policy, COVID-19 provides a unique opportunity to elucidate the role of science and scientists in policymaking. More generally, public policy has a long-standing track record in research on evidence-based policymaking (for an overview, see Cairney 2016). The gist of this insightful literature is that evidence matters, but the degree to which it matters depends on politics as well as other factors such as urgency, the level of threat, and uncertainty. COVID-19 provided an ideal context for evidence-based policymaking (Boin, Lodge, and Luesink 2020; Boin and Lodge 2021).

In almost every country around the world, scientists became visible actors as they appeared on TV and in press conferences to inform the public on the development of the infection rates, or as part of a group of top politicians and bureaucrats announcing the next step in the fight against the pandemic. On the one hand, the appearance of scientists in the media as a means of justifying and explaining policy responses helped to increase the public's acceptance of the measures, especially in the beginning. On the other hand, as fatigue grew with the lockdowns, the role of scientists in policymaking became more contested (see, e.g., van Dijck and

Alinejad 2020). A notable number of people saw in scientists the driver for policy overreactions (e.g., Maor, Sulitzeanu-Kenan, and Chinitz 2020) and questioned the legitimacy of their involvement.

Here, policy scholars can clarify that policymaking depends on scientific expertise and advice. Under regular circumstances, scientific advice systems are not effective but do help to depoliticize an issue, which facilitates the reaching of agreement and consensus among the parties represented in parliament. Most people will agree that with COVID-19, scientists exerted a very high level of influence on policymaking. There are other issues for which this also holds true but that are less salient to the public. For example, the responsible regulatory bodies in Germany recently stipulated that the state health insurance will now cover the costs of non-invasive prenatal diagnostic tests for chromosomal disorders. This policy decision was informed by a comprehensive scientific assessment and can be expected to have a major impact on society. While there was a parliamentary debate on the issue, it was not subject to voting, meaning the decision-making took place within the pertinent technical bodies.

The teaching of public policy could help the general public to understand how politicians cope with technical advancement. In the German example above, we saw that a far-reaching decision was made on the basis of scientific advice, but there are other similar examples that involve broader civic involvement. A case in point is the consultation process launched by the European Commission, which asks citizens for their opinions on the importance and legal classification of new genomic techniques. This is a political process that aims to foster public involvement and where scientific advice serves as one of several inputs when making a policy decision. To link this aspect with the previous discussion on interest groups, public consultations provide a venue for these actors to make their voices heard (see, e.g., Eising et al. 2017). Therefore, NGOs in particular are eager to be included in such processes as they facilitate civic involvement. To this end, they provide information on how the consultation procedure works and even provide templates containing statements that citizens can use if they wish to express their view on the subject matter of the consultation.

Public policy scholars can improve the public's understanding of the role scientists play in policymaking by highlighting the existence of policy advice systems (e.g., Howlett 2019), as well as by stressing that the impact of science on policy decisions is contingent on political considerations. In the latter example on new genomic techniques, the fact that the European Commission launched a consultation procedure already indicates that it will eventually have to balance the views of scientists and of the public. Arguably, the latter will be more dismissive of this novel technology than the first. In an effort to reconcile the opposing viewpoints, the European Commission could come up with a compromise proposal, which may or may not please both sides.

The most important take-away message here is that science and scientists have participated in policymaking long before COVID-19 and they will continue to do so. The involvement of scientists does not automatically generate the selection of the 'best' or 'right' policy decisions. After all, scientists provide data and evidence, but it is policymakers that propose and adopt public policy. Therefore, no matter how influential scientists may appear on certain issues, policymakers hold a political mandate, and it is they who are accountable for the policy decisions taken.

Policy Feedbacks

One of the defining features of public policy scholarship is that it conceives of policymaking as a dynamic process which does not stop at a certain point but starts over continuously. This conception of policymaking dates back to the work of Lasswell (1956). An important mechanism for ensuring that policymaking is dynamic are so called policy feedbacks, which are defined as the reactions of the policy addressees or other parts of society to past policy decisions (Béland 2010). Policy feedback can be both positive and negative: positive feedback would entail that an adopted policy brings about the intended outcomes, whereas with negative feedback policymakers would be informed that a policy fails to meet its targets. As a rule, positive feedback reduces the likelihood of policy change whereas negative feedback increases it (Jacobs and Weaver 2015; Pierson 1993).

Mettler and SoRelle (2017) point to four dominant streams in the study of policy feedbacks. The first stream analyzes how policies affect political agendas and the definition of policy problems. This is an interesting perspective since it suggests that sometimes a poor performance may be traced all the way back to how the underlying policy problem was first conceived, which non-specialized audiences should find very interesting. This perspective shows again that policies are based on perceptions and assumptions about causes and solutions of policy problems, which may change how general audiences perceive policymaking. Another feature that people may find instructive in this regard is to learn that most policy proposals are elaborated by state ministries rather than elected politicians.

The second stream extends the logic of policy feedbacks to how they affect governance through their impact on governmental capacity and on political learning by public officials. As already discussed in the previous section, policymakers are learning agents, but the question is how exactly they learn. Dunlop and Radaelli are two public policy scholars who have investigated learning processes systematically, and they were able to show several types of learning exist (Dunlop and Radaelli 2017, 2018, 2020). A general audience may find the topic of policy learning particularly interesting if the teacher explains that it can be facilitated by public participation. For example, citizens' initiatives at the subnational, national, and European level are on the rise. In Germany, for instance, citizens' initiatives on biodiversity have resulted in the adoption of new legislation, which indicates that policymakers are willing to learn from non-state actors.

The third stream concentrates on how policy feedback influences the power of societal groups, which connects with our previous elaborations on the role interest groups play in the policy process. For example, there are hints that the agrochemical company Monsanto influenced the risk assessment of glyphosate in the European Union. Together with the critical perception of the renewal of the authorization of glyphosate, the procedure for the current risk assessment changed to prevent Monsanto from exerting influence on its outcome.

The fourth literature identified by Mettler and SoRelle (2017) concentrates on the study of individual political behavior and examines how policies shape electoral participation. And this is where our discussion comes to full circle since we began this chapter by proposing that a public lesson on public policy should connect to visible and known features of political life, which in our view includes elections. Dissatisfaction with policies and their effects tend to mobilize and result in higher turnouts, whereas satisfaction has a less mobilizing effect. This is an insight that general audiences may welcome and like to reflect on.

TEACHING PUBLIC POLICY TO THE PUBLIC: SOME RECOMMENDATIONS

Our first recommendation for policy scholars interested in teaching public policy to a general public is to catch its attention by referring to known phenomena and then to follow a plot that comprises of three stages: first, the ‘discovery’ phase, in which the audience learns that public policy is related to known phenomena such as elections and politics; second, an ‘explanation’ phase in which teachers make a compelling case for how the policy perspective contributes to furthering our understanding of known phenomena; third, the ‘outlook’ phase, which outlines the potential of public policy to open up novel perspectives and may elicit surprise from the audience. Policy teachers should pay particular attention to the latter because audiences will only stay engaged with the study of public policy if they experience its analytical merits.

The second recommendation is to present phenomena that are less relatable to the public in such a way that they become relatable and relevant. In its simplest form, this can involve the use of illustrative empirical examples, but it can also entail the need to reframe a political phenomenon and to emphasize those aspects of it that are most relevant and relatable to the audience. A useful strategy is to connect themes in public policy to certain events. What lends itself naturally to such an event-focused strategy are crises such as the COVID-19 pandemic, but there is no rule that the events must be crises. The annual Conference of the Parties to the United Nations Framework Convention on Climate Change, for example, can serve as an event to communicate the specific characteristics of policy responses to climate change. In this context, some observers have referred to climate change as a ‘super wicked problem’ (Levin et al. 2012), which can be used as the point of departure for delineating ‘super wicked’ problems from ‘wicked’ (Rittel and Webber 1973) or ‘regular’ ones.

While public policy has a lot to contribute to developing a better understanding of political phenomena, we must also acknowledge its limitations when teaching it to the public, which is the third recommendation. Scientists, including social scientists, are generally highly trusted, which entails a responsibility for them to engage with the audience in an honest fashion. Despite the impressive development of the scholarship on public policy, there remain conceptual, theoretical, and empirical limitations. Many of them can and will be overcome in the future, but there are others that appear more persistent, such as the development of a valid measurement of policy learning. The literature on behavioral public policy has even demonstrated that in order to advance the state of research on some topics, it might be necessary to combine public policy with other subdisciplines of the political sciences, such as political sociology, or to engage in collaboration with fringe disciplines, such as economics or psychology (see, e.g., John 2016). To prevent the audience from getting a flawed image of the analytical potential of public policy, it is important to concentrate first on the ‘knowns’ and then turn to the ‘unknowns.’ After all, research has covered quite some ground and it is important to communicate this effectively to a wide and diverse audience.

CONCLUSION

For most individuals, political interest concerns issues related to elections and politics. The task of public policy scholars is to raise awareness of the fact that politics and policy are closely interconnected and mutually shape each other – an insight dating back to the work of

Lowi (1972). In the meantime, public policy has developed into a mature and multifaceted field of research and is in a good position to provide many explanations for political phenomena in day-to-day life. To be appreciated as a field that offers such explanations, public policy must ensure that it is not regarded as an abstract discipline but one that offers understandable answers to and relevant insights into real-life phenomena.

Having said that, it is clear that policy scholars have their respective views on what matters most for explaining public policy. Accordingly, when acting as teachers, policy scholars will have their favorite perspectives for explaining real-life phenomena. It is desirable for policy teachers to embrace the perspectives they feel most comfortable with because this means that they can speak to their students with a more authoritative voice. At the same time, policy teachers are well advised to reflect on their potential bias and problematize it when interacting with their students. Such a conscious and transparent approach to teaching public policy to the public will help to maintain the trust people have in scientists, and trust is key to establishing a sustained exchange with the public.

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PART VI

TEACHING PUBLIC POLICY BY CONTINENT: CURRICULUM, TRAINING AND RESEARCH

27. Teaching public policy in Africa: Comparing Cameroon and Kenya

R. Mireille Manga Edimo and Joseph Okeyo Obosi

INTRODUCTION

Public policy, viewed as a distinct field of study and learning within African academics, emerged on the eve of the 2000s. Courses dedicated to teaching university students about public policy go by different names ranging from ‘public policies,’ ‘policy analysis,’ ‘public policy analysis,’ and ‘policy studies’. These varying nomenclatures reflect the tendency for African political scientists not to distinguish clearly between the different disciplinary dimensions of public policy. They use these concepts to broadly delimit a political science subfield that comprises scientific and academic knowledge deriving from the study of ‘state apparatus’, civil servants, and governmental actions. Likewise, African political scientists use these terms to describe the policy fields and public policy cultures. Concerning the term ‘public policy’ precisely, African scholars deploy it to map out states’ interventions in various social areas and, in some cases, to suggest how to enhance the state’s activities, and solve social problems. The manner in which public policy, as a field of research and study, has been interpreted and translated into teaching practices in Africa has yet to be systematically explored, despite the growing prominence of dedicated courses across higher education institutions. This chapter, therefore, aims to address this absence by describing and discussing salient aspects of public policy teaching in this region.

The African continent is vast and diverse, and a decision has been made in this chapter to explore aspects of public policy teaching in this region by means of a particular focus on two countries: Cameroon and Kenya. In using a comparative case analysis method, the chapter looks at public policy curricula in African universities from both French-speaking and English-speaking practices. Indeed, these countries inherited two western cultures and administrative styles from colonisation: British culture and techniques for Kenya, and French and British cultures and styles for Cameroon. Cameroon is a small country that, until very recently,¹ had only eight public universities, each of which was established through Presidential Decrees.² In addition, policy studies became a distinct teaching and learning domain in Cameroonian public universities from 2006. By contrast, Kenya is best known across Africa for its high number of public universities, created through Acts of Parliament,³ and the diversity of its oldest higher educational training programs. Moreover, scholarship

¹ On 5 January 2022, three new public universities were created in three regions of Cameroon. Read *University World News* for more details: <https://www.universityworldnews.com/post.php?story=20220112073127939>, accessed 23 September 2022.

² For instance, Decree no. 93 / 026 of 19 January 1993 created five Cameroonian universities.

³ Compared to Cameroon, the Universities Acts are part of Parliament laws in Kenya. For instance, there is the Universities Act that was adopted in 2012. See the following link: http://kenyalaw.org/kl/fileadmin/pdfdownloads/Acts/UniversitiesAct_Cap210B.pdf, accessed 7 September 2023.

and multidisciplinary courses related to public policy existed much earlier in Kenya than in Cameroon, within distinct departments of political science and public administration existing in the country's public universities as early as the 1960s.

These two cases illustrate well how public policy teaching activities have emerged differently in this region due to distinct historical contexts. The chapter, therefore, draws on this historical context to chart the introduction and evolution of public policy teaching activities. It then explores the content of the curriculum of public policy courses in African universities in relation to international practice and policy contexts of the region, attempting, in particular, to identify whether the curricula reflect African policy contexts or issues. It also maps out the institutionalisation of public policy teaching across African universities, its specificities, and practices, focusing on the experiences of Cameroon and Kenya. In doing so, it interrogates explicitly the role of teaching public policy in enhancing a particular domain of knowledge and learning within the tradition of political science, presenting sociological insights into the relevance of public policy teaching activities across the continent.

THE HISTORICAL CONTEXT OF TEACHING PUBLIC POLICY IN AFRICA

A historical-cultural perspective places the activity and practice of teaching public policy in Africa in a global context characterised by national regularities and specificities. Most specifically, the historical context looks at the academic uses of public policy knowledge in teaching activities within African universities without falling into the pitfalls of Afrocentrism and postcolonialism, both of which search for purity and authenticity (Sindjoun, 2002) and can be inoperant ideologies in the sociological analysis of teaching of public policy in this region. Afrocentrism is a contemporary perspective of black nationalism which is 'gallant yet misguided' in an attempt to define African ways of doing in westernised society (West, 1993). By ignoring the hybrid nature of practices embedded in postcolonial worlds, it fails to connect African contexts to their international cultural heritage such as the British and French cultures for Cameroon, and the British culture for Kenya. A postcolonial approach has the advantage of acknowledging historical developments and factors. However, it is a more valuable perspective when it shows the boundaries of practices in a contemporary globalised world. The historical perspective applied in this chapter thus turns on a sociological knowledge where history adds to cultural practices (Manga Edimo, 2021) of public policy teaching in Africa. The historical context reveals common trends across national contexts and specific cultural challenges in each national context.

Public policy teaching practices in African universities reveal themselves as unfolding in a globalised world of public policy mainstream theories and emerging critical approaches to policy studies. However, the import/export traffic of policy knowledge and use of teaching resources, the indigenous trajectories of political institutions in Africa, and actors' practices place the theories and paradigmatic debates at the intersection of national and international boundaries. Examining trends across African national contexts better highlights the technological and cultural challenges faced by those teaching public policy in Africa, which unfolds within a global cultural context of knowledge transfer and learning in policy studies. By focusing on, and comparing case studies of Cameroon and Kenya, this chapter draws attention to

the interplay between national contexts and the public policy teaching practices and activities across African universities.

The Cameroonian Context

Public policy in Cameroon can be traced back in the colonial (Laakso, 2021) and post-independence period. Earlier orientations focused on foreign policy analysis with objects such as Africa's development in a post-Cold war context. The primary beneficiaries of such programs were diplomats. Public policy teaching activities only increased after independence and gained more importance with 'the acute needs in public service delivery' (Laakso, 2021) coupled with academic mobilities and the diversification of domains of specialisation in political science. Teaching public policy as a distinct subfield of knowledge in political science in Cameroon also coincided with the autonomisation of political science from law studies and the diversification of sites of public policy training in public universities. Autonomisation refers to the separation of political science from law studies while the diversification of sites of political science teaching activities relates to the government's creation of the new public universities in Cameroon. First, only one university, the University of Yaoundé I, had existed until 1993 in only one region in Cameroon. This university included all faculties (science, health, humanities, arts, education, and law). In 1993, the government created five new public universities in five other regions of Cameroon: one more public university in Yaoundé, the University of Yaoundé II, which specialised in economics, management, and law and political science studies, and four others in other regions of Cameroon which included the University of Buea, and the Universities of Douala, Ngaoundéré, and Dschang. This action brought the number of public universities in Cameroon to six and contributed to the diversification and development of political science programs across different regions of Cameroon. Second, the government created two new public universities in 2008: the University of Bamenda and the University of Maroua. All these public universities appointed new generations of lecturers who promoted specialised teaching programs in political science.

Most specifically, distinct training and degrees in public policy and public administration were introduced in public universities in Cameroon in the early of 2000s across seven regions in Cameroon. These programs have enhanced the institutional development of policy studies as an autonomous program within political science. Until 2008, public policy was taught through public administration, political sociology, and local governments courses. For instance, the University of Buea, which is one of the public universities in Cameroon with a British culture, has offered public policy contents through public administration and local governments courses since 2008. The division of the Department of Political Science into three distinct departments in 2018 has brought no particular change. Lecturers of the University of Buea teach different aspects of public policies across three areas of specialisation including political science, public administration, and international relations.

Compared to Buea, the University of Yaoundé II is one of the public universities with a dominating French culture. It has offered public policy knowledge within courses dedicated to political sociology, administrative science, and political anthropology since 2008. Indeed, broadly speaking, there was no specifically designed public policy course, called 'public policy', until 2008 in Cameroonian public universities. Subsequently, over the last fifteen years the University of Yaoundé II has focused on strengthening programs in political science as a distinct domain of training, especially by creating specific areas of specialisation, among

which stands public policy. Likewise, the Department of Political Science has created and promoted courses and specific programs dedicated to public policies, and delivered specialised master's degrees and PhD research programs in a more sustained manner since 2008. Like the public Universities of Yaoundé II and Buea, five other universities in other regions of Cameroon have also begun to offer public policy training since 2008, primarily as part of political science programs.

The growth of public policy teaching in Cameroon has been spurred by growing scientific and governmental interests in developing political science programs in Africa in a number of specific areas such as decentralisation, participatory governance, transnational research in HIV, the fight against terrorism, development, and aid programs (Eboko, 2005; Lavigne Delville, 2017). The emergence of distinct and dedicated public policy programs was further impelled by the state and Cameroonian universities' push to harmonise university curricula and degrees across regions to enhance accreditation equivalency and student mobility. In academia, the African and Malagasy Council for Higher Education (Conseil Africain et Malgache pour l'Enseignement Supérieur – CAMES) adopted rules and regulations in favour of specialisations within social science disciplines. This included establishing a dedicated examination to recruit and accredit lecturers in political science.⁴ This has accelerated the development of public policy teaching activities as a distinct sub-discipline. In this way, the CAMES has contributed to the emergence of new corps of assistant professors in public policy in public universities with a dominating French-speaking culture in Sub-Saharan Africa since 2009.⁵ Moreover, national reforms to university degree models have contributed to further establishing political science as a distinct disciplinary curriculum within law and political studies faculties in Cameroonian public universities in general, and public policy as a distinct domain of knowledge in the University of Yaoundé II in particular.

Research in global health, development, and 'international aid programs' have also contributed to transforming historical context of public policy teaching activities in Cameroon. Senior and junior political scientists have collaborated through field research, the teaching of research methods, and organisation of public policies seminars in the early 2000s.

The empirical observation of teaching activities in public universities in Cameroon displays different degrees or intensities of public policy teaching activities determined by the number and diversity of courses, public policy lecturers, enrolled students in public policy training programs, and specifically designed courses of public policy. More specifically, only a small number of political scientists are involved in teaching public policy. A survey conducted between 30 September 2019 and 7 October 2019 revealed that, out of 156 political scientists in public universities in Cameroon, fifteen taught a course on public policy. Some have a background in public policy, and others do not.⁶ While there is a 'corps of specialists' – a minority claiming academic knowledge of public policies – teaching activities have enhanced the

⁴ The 'Concours d'Agrégation des Sciences Juridiques, Politiques, Economiques et de Gestion'.

⁵ In 2009, one assistant professor in public policy from the University of Douala was promoted through CAMES. In 2011, two assistant professors of public policy were promoted and included one woman from Cameroon and one from Senegal. In 2015, two other candidates were promoted in Cameroon and Benin. While in 2017, one assistant professor from Cameroon was promoted. Out of the six lecturers, two belong to the University of Yaoundé II, one from Douala, and the others from the University of Dschang.

⁶ Interviews with lecturers of public policy in public universities in Cameroon.

visibility of a distinct field of knowledge within political science which implements different types of international and national knowledge in teaching activities.

The Kenyan Context

In contrast to Cameroon, teaching public policy in Kenya emerged alongside researchers' need to understand and question the state's governance (Tapscott, 2021). In this context, public policy was initially taught as if it had universally applicable principles regardless of context. Moreover, public policy and policy analysis were frequently subsumed under the banner of public administration. This is reflected in the prominent place given to works of neo-classical scholars, particularly scholarship on state affairs, especially on development administration, wealth creation, allocation, and distribution of resources such as: Leys, 1975; Rweyemamu and Hyden, 1975; Langdon, 1977. Therefore, public policy studies and analysis was picked from the legacy of Max Weber's conceptualisation of a rational-legal policy system. It was transferred to the European colonies in Africa and inherited at independence by schools and universities teaching public policy. We can therefore see that the reference materials used in teaching public policy from the 1960s through to the 1990s were the same materials used for public administration and governance (Rweyemamu and Hyden, 1975) and politics (Barkan and Okumu, 1979). By extension, political scientists and development scholars advanced the teaching of public policy within their disciplines. Therefore, the teaching of public policy was domiciled in the Department of Political Science (Government) and Institute for Development Studies at the University of Nairobi for over three decades before other universities in Kenya rolled out their own programs. Moi University later began to offer political science and public administration courses in the 1990s and, after a decade, introduced public policy programs. Kenyatta University followed suit from around 2010, when it established the Department of Political Studies. Egerton and Maseno Universities later started teaching public policy in 2013 following a memorandum of understanding involving thirteen universities in Africa, including the University of Nairobi, aimed at establishing a collaborative master's degree program in public policy and research under the umbrella of the Partnership for African Social and Governance Research (PASGR). Neither Egerton nor Maseno has a political science or public administration department. Instead, public policy teaching is achieved through service teaching across several departments with a coordinating role assigned to one department. Whereas the sociology department was responsible for coordinating the program at Maseno University, at Egerton University, this was done by the department of agricultural economics.

The second dimension of the teaching of public policy in Kenya is the strong influence of scholarly interest in regionally specific topics and issues. Four such areas of substantive interest can be discerned. The first concerns the multi-level and international dynamics that affect policymaking including, for example, the provision of resources from different sources such as donors' support of public projects and programs, structural adjustment programs which involve conditional aid, and trends involving partnerships between the donors and state. Scholars in the country have focused on policies that serve national interests (Alila and Hyden, 2020). Their teaching therefore reflects this close attention paid to the content, context, and trends in the provision of external assistance.

In addition to a focus on development policy and the governance of development, policy research and teaching in Kenya has also been influenced by sustained interest in the socio-economic inequalities born out of the country's colonial legacy, and particularly in

regards to the politics of agriculture. Policies in this area continued to prioritise growth rather than redistribution in Kenya (Alila and Hyden, 2020). Public policy teaching has therefore reflected concern with and reactions to the conditions instituted by the colonial masters as a way of appreciating the socio-economic status of the country and the conflicts arising therefrom. For instance, the question of land distribution and development of capitalism and class dominated public policy teachings in the 1970s as tools for explaining landlessness, inequality, and capital accumulation. These themes still dominate the public policy curriculum in Kenya.

The third influence on policy curricula can be traced from politics, with an interest in distribution of resources, competition for political offices, formation of political parties, and representation based on, for example, equality, economic interests, and collective interests.

Fourth and finally, policy teaching has also focused on administrative and procedural specificities, and particularly the role of privileged civil servants who influenced public policy through agenda-setting, policy formulation, and implementation, hence shaping debates on national development (Leys, 1975). These discourse orientations on the processes paved the way for the resurgence of civil society organisations either in opposition to or in complementarity to the role of the state in the policy processes, especially the civil society-state engagement on governance platforms.

Overall, both Cameroonian and Kenyan historical contexts show that public policy teaching activities evolved through the influence of the political environment. Compared to Kenya, state institutions (at the national and regional levels) played significant roles in enhancing the institutionalisation of public policy programs in Cameroon. There, the state offers infrastructure, resources, and an environment for learning and teaching public policies by creating universities, rules, and laws. In Kenya, political scientists have driven the development of public policy teaching and learning, reflecting their research and teaching interests in the management of state resources, the dynamic economic context, and evolving environmental and agricultural governance. In the meantime, the two historical contexts show that development policies and international programs are prominent trends in public policy research and teaching.

METHODOLOGY AND THEORETICAL PERSPECTIVE

The following analysis draws on qualitative comparative case studies of Cameroon and Kenya as a way to identify and illustrate trends in public policy teaching activities and policy course content in African universities. Drawing on semi-directed interviews, an online survey, and content analysis of political science programs across eight universities in Cameroon and Kenya, the study puts knowledge of Africa's public policy teaching and practice and learning activity in a sociological perspective.

First, data were obtained from interviews with lecturers in policy studies at various levels in Cameroonian and Kenyan universities. Interviews consisted of four to five main questions, including questions about the orientation of policy courses inside political departments, lecturers' methodology when teaching the courses, what leading authors and/or approaches were used to inform courses, and lecturers' personal policy research and professional profiles. Second, data were also obtained from responses to a survey questionnaire sent to eight universities. The survey research included four universities from Cameroon and four from Kenya, namely: the University of Nairobi, Kenyatta University, Moi University, and Egerton University in Kenya; and the University of Yaoundé II, University of Dschang, University of

Douala, and the University of Buea in Cameroon. In each of the eight universities, we identified respondents from all relevant units responsible for teaching and organising knowledge transfer on public policy. Whereas all the four universities from Kenya had Anglo-Saxon teaching in terms of language, curriculum, and pedagogical orientation, the universities from Cameroon had both Anglo-Saxon and French orientations (two each). The survey questionnaire was administered through SurveyMonkey, an accessible online survey software. Finally, the interview and survey data were further complemented with information gathered from the institutions' websites about the public policy programs on offer.

In contrast to the survey, which only included staff, the interviews involved both public policy lecturers and students. They aimed at learning more about the experience of both these groups within the universities under study to better understand and explain the context within which teaching activities take place in African public universities. They included a total number of ten lecturers and six students in Cameroon and thirteen lecturers in Kenya. Specifically, they included: two lecturers from the University of Buea; four lecturers from the University of Yaoundé II; one lecturer from the University of Dschang; two lecturers from the University of Bamenda; one lecturer from the University of Douala; six students from the Universities of Ngaoundéré, Maroua, and Yaoundé II; and one to two lecturers from each university in Kenya. Respondents were asked what is taught as 'public policy' across all relevant courses. They were also asked to share their experience, preferences, methods, teaching practices, or public policy learning outcomes at their respective universities. Specifically, they were asked about curriculum, levels of study, public policy courses, where the programs were hosted, facilities, factors, and practical challenges affecting public policy teaching practices at the universities. While the number of interviews means that we cannot generalise without challenges, we argue that our results nevertheless highlight interesting patterns concerning teaching public policy in Cameroon and Kenya. The results were compared between each university and between the two countries to identify any international regularities and/or regional specificities in teaching public policy in Africa.

RESULTS, FINDINGS, AND DISCUSSIONS

Overall, our data indicate that public policy teaching activities occur in public universities of both countries, but at different levels. In most cases, public policy courses are hosted by political science departments and show evidence of a diversity of programs, curricula, theories, and approaches in response to varying contexts, societal issues, organisational needs, and transnational networks and collaborations. Specificities of public policy courses result in the levels at which they are taught in public universities in Cameroon and Kenya. Curricula and programs differ according to each country, public university cultural background, and purposes for which courses are designed. Undergraduate, graduate, and postgraduate students benefit from public policy courses in both countries. However, the research reveals challenges which need to be addressed in the case of both countries.

Levels of Public Policy Teachings/Courses

All Kenyan universities, except Egerton University, deliver courses in public policy at the master's and PhD levels. The same is true of the Universities of Buea, Yaoundé II, and Douala

Table 27.1 *Universities teaching public policies by the level of study and country*

University	Department	Country	Bachelors	Masters	PhD
Kenyatta University	Public Policy and Administration	Kenya	✓	✓	✓
Moi University	History, Political Science, and Public Administration	Kenya	✓	✓	✓
	Agriculture and Natural Resources, Agricultural Economics	Kenya		✓	✓
Egerton University	Peace, Security, and Social Studies	Kenya		✓	
University of Nairobi	Political Science and Public Administration	Kenya	✓	✓	✓
University of Buea	Public Law and Public Administration	Cameroon	✓	✓	✓
University of Douala	Political Science	Cameroon	✓	✓	✓
University of Yaoundé II	Political Science	Cameroon	✓	✓	✓
	International Relations Institute of Cameroon (IRIC)	Cameroon		✓	✓
University of Dschang	Political Science	Cameroon		✓	✓

in Cameroon. Public policy teaching at the bachelor level is also the norm in most places, although provision is slightly patchier, with no BA level public policy teaching available in either Egerton or Dschang. Table 27.1 shows a summary of teaching provision across the two countries.

Table 27.1 also shows that public policy teaching is domiciled in a wide range of departments, including those dedicated to international studies, history, agriculture, natural resources, peace, security and social studies, public law, public administration, and political science. Departments of political science are, however, dominant. Only Egerton University in Kenya demonstrates a case of public policy teaching occurring in a university without a department of political science or public administration. Typically, universities with departments of political science also offer public policy, highlighting the strong relationship between political science as a discipline and the teaching of public policy. Moreover, universities that do not have political science departments also tend not to teach public policy at undergraduate level. This illustrates the multidisciplinary nature of public policy teaching in the two countries. However, policy courses are taught at graduate level in all the eight universities including in those without specific ‘political science’ programs or political science departments.

Public Policy Programs and Circumstances of Offering Public Policy Courses in Cameroonian and Kenyan Universities

Our research suggests that public policy courses are offered under the aegis of different programs depending on the university, including: as a subfield of political science; as a specialisation in public administration and political science (this is mainly the case at the Universities of Buea, Dschang, Kenyatta, and Nairobi); as a distinct program at bachelors’, masters’, and PhD degree levels (especially in the case of the Universities of Yaoundé II and Kenyatta); at graduate research levels in both multidisciplinary and more specific forms (e.g., Egerton University

and the International Relations Institute of Cameroon (IRIC)) encompassing foreign policy analysis, regional and ‘communitarian’ policy analysis, international public action, international programs, international institutions and foreign powers, policy evaluation, public policy theories; and finally as a subfield in agricultural economics (particularly in Kenya).

The data also show that public policy is offered as a subfield of political science or public administration wherever a dedicated department exists, like at the Universities of Nairobi and Moi in Kenya, and at Douala and Yaoundé II in Cameroon. However, a distinct public policy program is offered at graduate level through research only at the Universities of Nairobi, Yaoundé II, Buea, and Douala. In these Kenyan and Cameroonian universities, public policy courses were not traditionally taught as a specific program, but rather as themes in political science which graduate students carrying out thesis research can specialise in. This explains why the University of Nairobi has two sets of public policy programs: one within political science and another in a multidisciplinary degree program titled ‘Master of Public Policy and Research’. This is similar to the degree offered at Egerton and eleven other universities across Africa under the collaboration with PASGR. Thus, students at the Universities of Buea, Douala, and Yaoundé II (including IRIC) primarily research on various topics ranging from policy evaluation, the different models of policy implementation, electoral policies, decentralisation to regional integration policies, international cooperation, governance, public administration, civil society, pressure groups, and comparative politics. Kenyatta and Moi Universities have each adopted a multidisciplinary approach, and their public policy programs are offered through dedicated degree programs. In contrast, public policy programs at Cameroonian universities are all delivered through lectures and research activities. In addition to these classical methods, PhD students can also access privately funded learning and teaching activities offered by private organisations such as the Nkafu Policy Institute based in Yaoundé, and training in policy analysis with the International Public Policy Association (IPPA) which organises international summer schools and winter short training programs in public policy for PhD students in Yaoundé.

Finally, our results show that public policy courses unfold in both disciplinary and multidisciplinary contexts. Context can be considered disciplinary when courses or programs in public policy are part of political science departments’ activities. However, the multidisciplinary approach is gradually but steadily gaining credibility even in universities like Nairobi, which traditionally followed the disciplinary approach. The view is consistent with the consideration that public policy theorisation is built through an interdisciplinary scientific approach and applying problem-solving (Dunn, 2018) analysis in policymaking. Therefore, the interdisciplinary approach justifies negotiated realities of social problems underpinned by the contexts, the ‘need for contextualization’ (Strassheim, 2016) of public policy realities, and the historical approach of values, epistemology, and ontology. Consequently, government officials, the private sector, the informal sector, civil society, pressures groups, non-governmental organisations, think tanks, agencies, and the networks and partnerships among these different actors all constitute public policy concerns.

The Content of Public Policy Curricula at the Graduate and Undergraduate Levels

As evidenced in seven out of the eight African universities studied, public policy programs at the undergraduate level revolve around introductory courses. This includes ‘introduction to public policy and public administration’ and ‘administrative science and institutions’ in the

Universities of Buea and Yaoundé II, and introductions to public policy theory and policy analysis at universities in Kenya. However, undergraduate students in political science programs at the University of Yaoundé II are also introduced to general sociology, political sociology, history of political and social facts, political anthropology, and ‘international issues’ as future tools for public policy studies and analysis. Public policy theory and policy analysis also cut across Kenyan and Cameroonian universities at the graduate level. For instance, the public policy programme content at the Universities of Yaoundé II includes: public policies, policy evaluation, international public action, and regional policies. However, in all cases, the content includes teaching policy based on the ‘policy cycle’ heuristic, including policy design, agenda-setting, implementation, monitoring, and evaluation. It is worth noting that in all the universities except Kenyatta, which offers the program at the undergraduate level, public policy is taught as a subfield of political science and public administration. At three universities, namely, Kenyatta, Moi, and Douala, the content also includes ‘sociology of public action’. While in Douala, it can be understood as the consequence of French cultural influence and the French academic trajectory of lecturers, sociology of public action has also begun to appear as a topic of interest in Kenya which does not share the same cultural links with France.

Data in Cameroon and Kenya indicate that the teaching of public policy in Africa has followed two significant and substantive trends. Firstly, the research suggests a gradual complexification of policy teaching in both country cases, with a shift from simpler two-step process models that distinguish only between policy design and implementation to more complex heuristic models that also consider agenda-setting, design, implementation, and review/evaluation. Secondly, we have seen the diversification of the different perspectives according to which public policy is taught. These perspectives echo Birkland’s (2019) classification and include: a traditional focus on the policy process, and particularly on policy formulation and implementation; comparative public policy, primarily involving descriptive rather than theoretical cross-national comparisons; public policy analysis focusing on the identification of problems and solutions; finally critical policy approaches which structure teaching activities around the lens of ‘sociology of public action’.

Factors Driving the Public Policy Teaching Contents and Activities in Kenya and Cameroon

Various structural-cultural, economic, and technological factors shape public policy teaching in Africa. The survey results revealed different trends in particular public university contexts feeding into public policy curricula, lectures, and teaching activities. Factors shaping these include the country’s political history, the general state of public policy theories and approaches across the field globally, the need to compare (comparative policy analysis, comparative politics), the features of local politics and governance, and research and teaching collaborations across the national and international levels including transnational partnerships, networks, and universities’ institutional affiliations.

For respondents, the most determining factor in teaching public policy in both Kenya and Cameroon is the country’s political history. In Kenya, political history engages researchers in various social science disciplines and is linked to state institutions, lecturers’ educational experiences, and academic status. In Cameroon, public policy teaching programs contribute to the development of political science as an autonomous discipline. Like at Kenyan universities, lecturers of public policy at the University of Dschang, Douala, and Yaoundé II include

examples, cases, and materials from environmental and electoral policies, governmental laws and measures, management of natural resources, land, and crises. Comparative politics has a distinct identity at the Universities of Nairobi, Kenyatta, and Moi. This is less the case at the Universities of Yaoundé II, Buea, Douala, and Dschang where none of the interviewed comparative politics and public policy lecturers were specialists in public policy. Instead, these individuals learned to teach ‘public policy’ as part of their job once hired or as part of their PhD in health policy. Interviews thereby raised the curious fact that many young political scientists in Cameroon teaching public policy barely acknowledge being ‘specialists’.⁷

All of the four universities in Kenya have embraced collaborations, partnerships, and networks in public policy teaching. This is not the case in Cameroon with the exception of the University of Buea. Moreover, in further contrast to Cameroon, public policy teaching activities in Kenya are more diversified and democratised. Lecturers who teach public policy in Kenya actively aspire to decolonise knowledge and employ African theories about public policies (Tapscott, 2021). Unlike in Kenya, where many of the lecturers have backgrounds in public administration, Cameroon displays a large number of public policy lecturers active in public universities dominated by the French-speaking culture. Lecturers of public policy in these universities use their resources in political anthropology, theory, and sociology to question and develop their course contents and discuss mainstream knowledge.

In Kenya and Cameroon, public policy teaching activities are limited to classrooms and happen through discussions between students and teachers. Contextualisation of knowledge is done through different examples. The Universities of Nairobi, Egerton, and Kenyatta for instance use case simulations of real policymaking processes such as agenda-setting. The norm in Kenyan universities (with the exception of Egerton) is to provide public policy students with opportunities for both internships (i.e., relatively long, hands-on, embedded training in an organisation) and externships (i.e., generally shorter shadowing of professionals with less hands-on training). The autonomisation process faced by policy learning and teaching helps explain the difference in networking activities that distinguish Kenya from Cameroon.

Nevertheless, the need to improve public service delivery, the search for jobs, and the challenges brought about by processes of globalisation have led to increased dynamism in public policy teaching activities in both Cameroon and Kenya. In particular, they have fostered the development of transnational networks of public policy scholars, lecturers, practitioners, and organisations. They have also led to the insertion of public-private networks of training programs in public policy across the regions and within the continent.

Compared to Cameroon, many Kenyan universities (through institutional membership) and their staff (through individual membership) participate in several public policy networks across the African regions and globally. Three important networks were identified in the context of Kenya, namely: the IPPA, the African Association for Public Administration and Management (AAPAM), and the PASGR. All the universities in Kenya belong to at least one of these three networks. The initiative created by the PASGR under Utafiti Sera illustrates such an agenda, with researchers and policy actors brought together to strengthen the uptake of research findings into policy and legislation. This initiative involves establishing a single policy association in which members can not only present their work for peer review but also

⁷ This was particularly acknowledged in an interview with a lecturer in public policies at the University of Douala, recruited in 2019.

engage with policy actors in government and representatives from civil society for the promotion of public policy as a discipline.

Africa has its specificities drawn from history and national cultures. Institutions and individual background curricula and research experience in political science influence the development of the discipline while challenging the contents. Public policy courses have not yet become objects of ‘accreditation schemes and evaluation of best practice research’ (Pal and Clark, 2016). Nevertheless, the survey and interviews show that public policy courses, teaching activities, and programs in policy studies in Africa have a relative convergence with other policy programs worldwide. However, the historical context of public policy teaching activity in Africa displays various challenges.

CHALLENGES AND THE FUTURE OF TEACHING PUBLIC POLICY IN AFRICA

The study that underpins this chapter also identified three main challenges to public policy teaching in Africa, namely: human resources, material challenges and inequalities, and the tendency to use universalised theories of public policy in the absence of regionally-specific policy knowledge. All these challenges are common to the eight universities but to varying degrees and in different forms.

The human resource challenge, which manifests as a lack of qualified public policy teachers, is more pronounced at Kenyatta, Moi, and Egerton. This may be because lecturers of public policy are best known and actively present in the most prominent universities and those based in national capitals, leading to regionally unequal teaching provision.

The material resource challenge was more prominently reported at the Universities of Moi and Buea. These observations are consistent with Alila and Hyden’s (2020) findings concerning teaching public policy in Kenya. Indeed, our research confirms the following as the main three challenges faced by the institutions teaching public policy: lack of teaching materials, the link between theory and practice, and the relationship between researchers and practitioners. The challenge of adequate teaching material is linked to the cost of textbooks. Hence, limited access to the full range of public policy scholarship, either through personal purchases or libraries, entails that African policy scholars often must rely on a narrow range of policy knowledge produced by prominent western counterparts.

The third and related challenge is therefore that teaching public policy to students in Africa has often meant relying on and transferring western knowledge. Nevertheless, inroads into reflecting on and producing material to meet the specific needs and interests of policy scholars and students in Africa are being made. For instance, the first handbook on public policy in Africa, put together by African policy scholars, was produced in 2021 (see Onyango, 2021). According to Alila and Hyden (2020), we are witnessing the emergence of efforts to reconcile insights from practice and theory, with practitioners, for instance, being encouraged to share their experience through writing autobiographies after retirement – thus providing a new type of resource which could be integrated into public policy teaching (Ndegwa, 2006; Mkapa, 2019). At the same time, efforts are also being made to improve the reach and impact of African public policy scholarship. This involves clarifying and valorising the role of research in policymaking through supporting researchers in engaging with stakeholders. Overall, such initiatives may enhance the teaching field and begin to address the challenge linked to the

absence of textbooks reflecting African realities, namely the need to transfer context-free theoretical abstraction to highly specific policy contexts. Nevertheless, at the moment, students and young lecturers struggle to fill in the gaps between abstract and contextually-appropriate knowledge by making do with a relatively limited set of resources (which they usually have to personally acquire), including lecture notes, proceedings from international conferences and seminars, personal networks and collaborations, and limited textbooks.

CONCLUSION

Through a case comparison of Cameroon and Kenya, we can see that the teaching of public policy in Africa displays a certain degree of regional and international convergence and divergence. We identify variety in terms of approaches and methods for teaching policy knowledge depending on teachers' research backgrounds, course curricula, and the disciplinary department or program within which the course is embedded at the level of the university. Public policy teaching and the research that policy teacher-scholars undertake is, in these two cases, revealed to involve plural intellectual activities drawn from expertise that brings knowledge from sociology, anthropology, and economics into constant interaction with public policy theories.

Regardless of the humble beginnings of public policy teaching activities in Cameroon and Kenya, our analysis has shown that public policy has now been institutionalised as a teaching activity within the academic field of political science in Africa. It has also shown that despite Cameroon and Kenya having different long colonial legacies, featuring distinctive English and French influences, there remain areas of convergence, including the shared focus on a range of substantive themes and policy theories. Whereas, Kenya has embedded public policy teaching more at the graduate than undergraduate level, Cameroon appears to have put in a stronger foundation for public policy teaching at undergraduate level. Furthermore, in both countries public policy teaching appears to have primarily been domiciled in departments of political science. Nevertheless, in universities without a political science department, public policy teaching has still taken root but in a more multidisciplinary manner. Finally, material challenges, including access to textbooks or knowledge on local cases, persist in the teaching of public policy in the two countries. At the same time, however, collaborations and networks are emerging as very fundamental in the teaching of public policy at the universities, especially in Kenya, and may in time address some of these gaps by supporting the production and dissemination of more African policy knowledge.

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28. Teaching public policy in Asia: Is a unique identity emerging?

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THE CHANGING LANDSCAPE OF POLICY EDUCATION

In the last two decades there has been a rise in public policy schools and policy degree programs at the graduate level in Asia, Africa, the Middle East, and Latin America. This phenomenon has captured the interest of many public policy and public administration scholars as a form of ‘internationalization’ of public policy education (Fritzen, 2008) expanding beyond the West where policy education originally emerged at the university level more formally. In this chapter we build on findings from our previous study on public policy education in the global south at large (El-Taliawi, Nair, and van der Wal, 2021) and focus on the emergence and changing landscape of policy education in Asia. As a contribution to this *Handbook of Teaching Public Policy* we specifically comment on two aspects: whether public policy is emerging as an independent field of study in the region and whether Asian policy schools are assuming a unique regional or national character. We believe these two aspects are worthy of the attention of policy scholars, educators, and students interested in understanding how the field of policy education is evolving in Asia and avenues for further development of the field as well as its teaching in the region.

For our research, we consider policy education as an all-encompassing term to reflect training regarding policymaking to embark on jobs in academia, as well as in the government, non-governmental agencies, not-for-profit organizations, and the private sector (Prabhu and Mohapatra, 2012). The field of public policy has fuzzy disciplinary boundaries which affects the way policy education is administered. Policy education also covers executive education targeted at policy professionals and mid-career practitioners, including civil servants (Varma and Nair, 2022). The fuzziness of disciplinary boundaries of the field has implications on not only the structure of policy schools and departments themselves but also content of policy programs that are offered (Knott, 2019; Mead, 2013). We are thus interested in studying whether the expansion of the field in Asia in the past two decades reflects this fuzziness or whether the field is consolidating itself in some form.

What informs the content of training in policy schools has also been a topic of interest for scholars. Anheier (2018), for example, views public policy schools globally as focusing on three areas: economic analysis, public administration and management, and policymaking and politics. Master’s in Public Policy (MPP) and Master’s in Public Administration (MPA) programs are typically designed to equip prospective public servants with a set of analytical, quantitative management and leadership skills to function as analysts and managers in the public service (Rasmussen and Callan, 2016). The task of trained professionals from such programs is then to be able to review the functioning of the agencies in which they work, ranging from government agencies to private sector to civil society organizations, to ‘set things right’ (Anheier, 2018). Echoing Harold Lasswell’s view of the field of policy sciences,

policy education and training should involve the providing of skills and knowledge that allows public servants a multidisciplinary, problem-solving, and pragmatic perspective (Howlett, Ramesh, and Perl, 2009). The training offered in policy schools in other words should prepare individuals for the public sector just as business schools train individuals for the private sector (Anheier, 2018). Public policy education for those employed in the public sector is also deemed important for raising policy capacity and enhancing policy outcomes consequently (Wu, Lai, and Choi, 2012). This discussion is particularly relevant today as the training of policy students and professionals is needed to raise the capacity of government, and yet the value of this training is sometimes questioned in terms of what specific added value it brings to governments in the 21st century.

The future of policy education and public policy schools themselves has been raised by some scholars (Anheier, 2018). Some argue that the future outlook for policy schools and their sustainability in the education and job spheres lies in continuing to prepare individuals to take on roles in government and non-governmental agencies, and carry out a range of specialized tasks including conducting policy-relevant research that cuts across disciplines (Knott, 2019). Apart from traditional training content within policy education, new topics and skills such as collaboration, cross-cultural proficiency, adaptability under change, etc. are being recognized as key to contemporary policy practice and also being recognized as such to some extent in the policy curricula (Rubaii, 2018; Evans, Morrison, and Auer, 2019). While a detailed analysis of the curricula of contemporary policy courses and programs in Asia is beyond the scope of this chapter, we deem it important to bring attention to the changing nature of policy education in response to demands from governments as well as to contemporary policy issues regionally and globally. Changes in political order in the real world of policymaking affects the design and development of policy education and necessitates that policy educators keep pace with pedagogical innovations to optimally train the next generation of policy students, including those who are or who will become practitioners, accordingly. Such training could require potential customization and blending of traditional and modern pedagogical tools to keep pace with the dynamic national, regional, and global policy contexts (Varma and Nair, 2022).

The sections ahead begin with an overview of the origins of policy education, focusing on the policy sciences and a synthesis of scholarly work on the expansion of policy education outside the West. This is followed by a description of the methodology and sampling of our research exploring the landscape of public policy education in Asia and, subsequently, a presentation of the results, concluding with insights on the challenges and opportunities for policy education and its teaching in Asia.

POLICY EDUCATION FROM WEST TO EAST: A SYNTHESIS OF KEY LITERATURE

This section focuses on the origins of formal policy education in the West and on key scholarly work that has aimed to capture the spread of policy sciences training offered via courses and programs at the university level in non-Western countries. The formal offerings for the study of policymaking can be traced to 19th century Europe when cameral sciences were introduced by Fredrick William I along with courses and programs focusing on public administration and state affairs (Rutgers, 2003). The USA has the largest number of policy schools globally and

is associated with the origin of the ‘policy school’ (Anheier, 2018). Thus, the role of policy education received in the West and its influence outside of the West mandates a closer look.

Knott (2019) identifies five trends that have affected the development of public policy schools in the USA with larger implications for their evolution elsewhere in the world. These include: 1) viewing bureaucracy as neutral and professional, drawing on Weber and Wilson’s work; 2) a focus on rationality in policy analysis; 3) the impact of behavioral social science and political science on the field of public administration; 4) the inter-sectoral dimensions of problem-solving in public policymaking; and 5) the rise in the influence of technology in policy research and practice. While these trends hold value in the US context a direct mapping of these trends outside the US context to be done with caution. We discuss this further in the next section.

The US, quite naturally also receives students from across the world for its public policy programs. Some of these students bring back many aspects of this education to their home countries. Kuo and Kuo note that as of 2012, over 42 percent of the faculty teaching public policy programs in Taiwan had received a policy degree from the US. In some instances, the ‘Western influence’ could be seen in the form of similar reference textbooks as well as emulating policy network models from the West. For example, the Taiwan Association for Schools of Public Administration and Affairs is modelled after US-based National Association for Schools of Public Administration and Affairs (Kuo and Kuo, 2012). The growth of policy programs in Turkey since the 1990s is noted to reflect several features of policy teaching in the US and Europe. A review of undergraduate policy programs in Turkey reveals that this ‘diffusion’ from the West could be to some extent attributed to Turkish policy scholars returning after graduate education in the US and/or Europe and transferring their knowledge for the design of similar policy programs in their home country (Yildiz, Demircioğlu and Babaoğlu, 2011). Adapting and contextualizing literature on public policy developed in the global north with the on-the-ground experiences of policymaking in the global south, however, remains a challenge for policy scholars and teachers alike. For instance, highlighting experiences of teaching policy students in India, Narain (2018) notes that a lack of adequate case examples and discussion of policy issues and challenges relevant to countries outside the West often poses difficulty.

Despite the origins of policy education more formally in the US and Europe, existing studies provide no conclusive evidence about the extent to which policy education in the non-Western world has adopted a Western model, or whether country-specific and region-specific course content are evolving in a unique manner in policy programs outside the West (Purón Cid, 2018; Sanabria-Pulido, Rubaii, and Purón, 2016). In Japan for example, academic training in public policy programs is designed for developing individuals as specialists for policy analysis and management that is sensitive to local context, be it by being part of the government or nonprofit and research organizations (Watanabe, 2012). In a study of 29 tertiary education institutes offering graduate policy degree courses in India, Mukherjee and Maurya (2022) observe that public policy degrees compete for attention with other graduate programs in business, development studies, etc. for undergraduates seeking higher degree programs. They also note that over the past decade policy education in India has seen a rise in short-term executive education programs as an avenue for career development by offering additional specialization for those who have some work experience with the public and/or private sector. The value of executive education not only as an income generation opportunity for policy schools but also as an opportunity to directly connect with policy practitioners via training has been acknowl-

edged in the long-established policy schools in the US but whether this trend will be followed elsewhere in the world, including Asia, remains to be seen (Rasmussen and Callan, 2016).

Creation of policy schools and programs globally has often been in response to the rising demand for professional policy analysts and policy advisors, who are entrusted with the task of dealing with the increasing complexity of policy challenges facing governments (He, Lai, and Wu, 2016). In Brazil and East Asia, for example, the development of public affairs education came as a response to changes in the regions' political, social, and economic systems, including the transition towards democracy (Gomes, Almeida, and Lucio 2015, Wu, Lai, and Choi, 2012). The drivers and motivations behind the creation and development of policy schools in these different regions appear to be very context specific. For instance, Tan (2013) notes that while setting up of the Lee Kuan Yew School of Public Policy in Singapore – a leading policy school in Asia – there was a general sentiment of wanting to avoid being shaped and influenced by Western models of policy thinking and discourses, and instead a focus on the socio-cultural and historical context of Asia. It is to be noted, however, that the master's level public policy program that preceded the formation of the School was based on, and established in close collaboration with the Harvard Kennedy School of Government in the US, sharing similarities in its structure and content, albeit with an intent to stay relevant to the Asian context.

While we explore literature of policy education moving from the West to East, it is important to also acknowledge various comparative studies related to policy teaching and program design, and consider the countries and variables that have been compared. While many country and cross-country studies on policy education have focused on Anglo-democracies and the developed world (Pal and Clark, 2016a; Ellwood, 2008; Geva-May et al.; 2006, Fritzen, 2008) some have also attempted to capture any convergence or divergence between non-US and US-based policy programs (see Purón Cid, 2018; He, Lai, and Wu, 2016; Watanabe, 2012). Policy programs beyond the Anglo-democracies have gradually expanded to countries in Western Europe, former Soviet states, and Central and Eastern Europe, followed by Latin America, Asia, and Africa (Pal and Clark, 2016b). Sanabria-Pulido, Rubaii, and Purón (2016) and Purón Cid (2018) compared patterns and trends in public affairs education in Latin America, Mexico, and the Caribbean to the evolution of MPA/MPP programs in the United States. Other cross-regional comparative studies include those by He, Lai, and Wu (2016) and Watanabe (2012) that compared public affairs education in China and Japan to the US. Some comparative studies have benchmarked national programs against regional or international standards. For example, Bremer and Baradei (2008) compared masters' programs in public administration and public policy in Egypt with respect to international course standards as well as local demands from the public sector in terms of related competencies and capacities. Wu, Lai, and Choi (2012) in another study examine public policy education in East Asia.

Studies focusing on programs and schools have also compared courses at different levels, such as comparing content of syllabi of undergraduate and graduate policy programs (Miller, 2018; Wu, Lai, and Choi, 2012). Comparative studies predominantly focus on MPA and MPP degree programs, rather than doctoral programs, possibly because master's level programs are easier to compare and are the most common offerings (Pal and Clark, 2016a), or because the resources allocated to these programs and the number of graduates are relatively similar (Purón Cid, 2018). In one instance, comparing convergence of MPA and MPP curricula at George Washington University, US deduced from surveys on career values and goals of MPA and MPP students gave critical insights for curriculum design (Infeld and Adams, 2011). With similar public service motivation, MPAs were observed to view their future roles as admin-

istrators, focusing on management issues while MPPs saw their role as analysts, focusing on quantitative analytical techniques and critiquing public policies.

Other areas of interest in related comparative studies have focused on research profiles and publications of faculty members from public affairs programs (Zuo, Qian, and Zhao, 2019), student profiles, and attitudes among non-Western policy programs and schools (van der Wal, 2017a; van der Wal, 2017b; Infeld et al., 2010; Infeld and Adams, 2011). Teaching capacity has also been studied by comparing the profiles of course instructors as well as course content and teaching materials (Wu et al., 2012). Comparing MPP and MPA programs in Russia over 25 years, with a focus on changes in the curriculum in the leading public policy and administration institutions (Pryadilnikov, 2016), identifies the curriculum content to be selectively designed to balance the more popular business education and management practices with the demands of the state to have managers trained in diverse policy fields.

There have been a few cross-cultural studies looking at motivations to take up careers in public service. For example, a study by Infeld et al. (2010) covering students of MPP and MPA across China, the US, and Malaysia found that despite cultural differences, all students were driven by similar motivations towards public service, with differences coming in aspects of individual career growth opportunities and working environment in general. A study comparing public service motivation of students from public affairs programs in the Netherlands and Singapore indicated a higher level of public sector motivation among Singaporean students. Such public affairs programs could leverage the ‘prosocial motivation of students’ through cross-institutional interactions built within the course design (van der Wal and Mussagulova, 2020). This speaks to leveraging of cross-cultural learning as a potential factor to enhance the quality of training in these programs.

Another important feature that has been studied in the context of Asian policy schools has been the motivation behind student enrollment in public policy schools. Van der Wal (2017a), for instance, examined differences in work motivations and sector perceptions between graduate students enrolled in public policy schools versus business schools in Singapore. The study compared Asian Master of Business Administration students ($n = 71$) with MPP and MPA students ($n = 91$) from three leading schools in the country. The findings indicate that work motivations, sector perceptions, and career preferences differ between both groups but slightly less so than between their Western counterparts. The author finds that public policy school students tend to be ambiguous about their preferred sector of employment, and to be critical of their government’s capacity to tackle social issues and pursue public values, as well as its ability to enact meritocracy and incorruptibility. This finding differentiates Asian students from their Western peers.

In general, we see that there have been diverse studies comparing content of policy programs within and beyond the West. A few useful variables have been put forth by country-specific studies, often comparing or benchmarking themselves against policy schools in the West. However, there is a lack of conclusive and systematic evidence on tracking the transfer of a Western model of policy education to countries outside the West, specifically Latin America, the Middle East, Africa, and Asia.

INSIGHTS FROM GRADUATE POLICY PROGRAMS IN ASIA

Sampling Graduate Policy Degree Programs

In our search for public policy schools outside the West, and to determine a sampling frame for our analysis, we explored whether any standard lists of schools existed within prominent international public policy and public affairs associations, including the Association for Public Policy Analysis and Management, International Public Policy Association, and the Network of Schools of Public Policy, Affairs, and Administration. We found that no such handy list was available. A sample of policy schools in Latin America, the Middle East, Africa, and Asia was generated using the QS listing of universities by subject.¹ Drawing from this master list of public policy schools in the global south created for our previous research (El-Taliawi, Nair, and van der Wal, 2021), we extracted a sample of Asian public policy schools to inform the research underpinning this chapter in order to be able to discuss their emergence and key features in the context of policy education.

Our initial query of policy schools from the QS listing included all universities that offered degrees in: (1) a public policy specialization, (2) at all study levels, and (3) in Asia, Latin America, the Middle East, and Africa. Based on these criteria, the results showed 170 universities in Asia, 63 in Latin America, and 41 in Africa and the Middle East.² For this chapter we focus on universities in the Asia sample.

While the QS Intelligence Unit provides information on its methodology, it does not define the specific disciplines or programs it lists under public policy specialization. To overcome this problem, we manually checked all university websites to identify those offering graduate degree programs in public policy. Undergraduate and non-degree programs are beyond the scope of this research. Public administration and management degrees were also excluded, and the focus was on public policy programs only. For university websites that were not in English, or did not provide English versions of their websites, we relied on the use of Google Translate.

Key Features of Graduate Policy Degree Programs in Asia

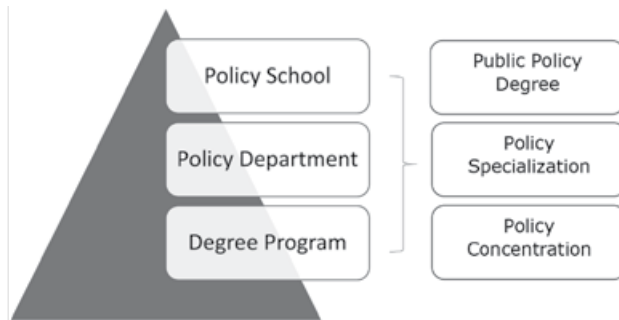
We observe that public policy education can be offered by a dedicated policy school within a university, a dedicated policy department within a school,³ or policy degree programs that are not housed within a dedicated policy school or department. We use the term dedicated to denote that the title of the school has ‘public policy’ or ‘policy’ in it. We observe that irrespective of whether policy degrees are offered within policy schools, departments or outside

¹ The QS Intelligence Unit and Elsevier compile data annually to guide prospective students to identifying potential universities offering specific subjects of interest. QS listing was chosen because its disciplinary and regional coverage fitted better with our research aims and includes global coverage of universities. More information on QS methodology can be accessed at: <https://www.topuniversities.com/subject-rankings/methodology>.

² To ensure that no other programs were missed, we ran a Google search using keywords: ‘country’ (and) ‘policy’ (and) ‘university’. We also cross-checked our results with the relevant institutional members (teaching institutions) of the International Public Policy Association (as of 2019). We then added any relevant results which were not included in our first rounds.

³ Some universities may not have a department nested within a school; instead, there could be several departments instead of schools under the organizational structure of the university.

‘dedicated’ policy schools/departments, three tiers of policy degree offerings exist: (1) public policy degrees (e.g., Master’s in Public Policy); (2) degrees with policy specializations (e.g., economic policy); and (3) degrees offering a concentration or subfield in public policy (e.g., PhD in Management with a concentration in public policy) (see Figure 28.1) (El-Taliawi, Nair, and van der Wal, 2021).



Source: El-Taliawi, Nair, and van der Wal, 2021.

Figure 28.1 Policy degree offerings through schools, departments, and programs

To determine the extent to which public policy as a field is operating as a distinct discipline in the regions under examination, we compared the disciplinary distribution of policy degree programs offered by dedicated policy schools as well as non-policy schools or departments. To ensure consistency during coding and classification of disciplines, we used Purón Cid’s (2018) codes for faculty classification. This classification uses eight categories, including: Economic and Administrative Sciences, Basic Sciences, Social Sciences and Humanities, Political Science and International Relations, Law, Public Administration and Public Affairs, Urban Sciences, and Others. In Asia, we found that graduate policy degrees are predominantly hosted with other programs under the aegis of social sciences.

From the list of universities filtered from the QS university listing (as discussed in the previous section) we found 64 graduate policy degree programs in our sample from Asia. We found that 76 percent are public policy degrees, 16 percent are degrees in sectoral policy specializations, and 8 percent are policy concentrations. While the selection of courses directly related to public policy was rather straightforward – for example, masters’ and PhDs in public policy and specialized policy courses – we acknowledge that the selection of courses offering public policy as a concentration is nebulous, especially if these are not housed in distinct policy schools or departments. We discuss this in the next section in more detail.

Our interest in doing this exercise, apart from generating a useful listing of policy programs and schools, was to study whether the field of public policy is gaining a new disciplinary identity outside the West. This is important as it has implications for the way public policy is described within the curriculum for a particular policy program, how it is taught, the instructor qualifications, as well as pedagogical training that will be required to teach it effectively.

Insights from Policy Schools and Departments in Asia

From our initial sample of 170 universities in Asia, 29 had a ‘distinct’ policy school or department. For purposes of our research, we deem a distinct policy school or department to be those that have one of the following words in their title: ‘policy’, ‘government’, ‘governance’, or ‘public affairs’ (see list of policy schools/departments in Appendix 28.1).

From our sample, in terms of geographic distribution, Japan and India host the highest number of policy schools in Asia. Seventy-nine percent of the policy schools in our Asia sample were established in the 2000s. It is possible that some policy courses and degree programs may have been offered even earlier in other forms in other departments and these were consolidated into distinct policy schools later. In general, however, development of such distinct public policy schools is a recent phenomenon in Asia.

We were also interested in gauging drivers behind the creation of policy schools, and we examined the self-reported mission and vision statements of the 29 policy schools to explore whether their establishment was driven by an expressed intention to meet local needs or demands or a focus on being known internationally, or both. To answer the key question of what new policy schools are aiming to achieve, we analyzed the content of their mission statements with regards to their intended (1) geographic focus; (2) teaching versus research focus; and (3) sectoral focus (public, private, and/or others). Within the Asian schools/departments in our sample, the mission and vision statements did not indicate any trend. Instead, most of the statements were found to be all-encompassing, covering academics, professionals, communities, managers, and students; a focus on both research and teaching aspects; and attention to local, regional, as well as global issues.

In Asia, 30 percent of the sample identified a national/regional focus in their mission/vision statements. For example, for the Fulbright School of Public Policy and Management in Vietnam, the focus is on being ‘devoted to advancing transformative, innovative, and inclusive public policy and management in Vietnam and the region’. Similarly, Singapore’s Lee Kuan Yew School of Public Policy aims to be ‘the leading global public policy school in Asia, developing thought leadership, improving standards of governance and transforming lives for a more sustainable world’.

In Asia, 38 percent of schools offer doctoral studies. In terms of the public/private nature of the educational institutions in which the policy schools in our sample are housed, we found that 59 percent belonged to public universities. Since public universities tend to be funded by the state, a country’s GDP and budgetary allocations to higher education is an important variable to consider regarding the changing nature of investments in policy education within countries.

Executive education offers an important avenue for raising public sector capacity and policy education for practitioners. For the purposes of our research, we define executive education offerings as programs (often short-term) geared towards professionals, without a formal academic degree being awarded upon completion. Within the Asia policy schools sample, only 20 percent of the schools and departments report offering executive education. This is quite a low percentage compared to other regions in the global south. For instance, in Africa and the Middle East, 57 percent of policy schools and departments offer executive education (El-Taliawi, Nair, and van der Wal, 2021). Executive education predominantly takes the form of short courses offered to public and nonprofit sector employees covering a variety of themes

including public management topics and local governance, among others. Different formats are offered including open enrollment and customized programs.

There is clearly ample room for growth in terms of the provision of executive education in the Asian policy education landscape. The fundraising value of executive education is very well acknowledged.

Rasmussen and Callan (2016) argue that executive education is also crucial for the success of a public policy school, since faculty who teach professionals must be cognizant about the public service experience of their students and their opinions, which can then reflect on their own academic teaching. Executive education also offers opportunities for faculty to network with the public sector, especially at the senior management level. It can therefore be a way to enhance a school's reputation among national and local leaders and be a channel for the dissemination of academic research to practitioners (Rasmussen and Callan, 2016).

DISCUSSION AND CONCLUSION

This chapter focuses on the landscape of policy education in Asia drawing from a larger dataset and previous research by the authors capturing the rise of policy education in the global south more broadly. This expansion of policy education outside the West where it originally developed formally within higher education institutions is interesting and important for policy scholars to study as the field of public policy evolves and spreads globally. The key question that motivated this research was whether policy education in Asia is assuming a unique identity. We approach this question by firstly focusing on disciplinary underpinnings of the spread of graduate degree programs in Asia and by characterizing selected features of policy schools and/or departments within the larger sample of Asian universities.

Observing our sample of graduate policy programs in Asia we conclude that the way policy education is defined and where it is housed in terms of departmental and disciplinary boundaries matters for the way the field is developing. In Asia, we find that policy programs still exhibit fuzzy disciplinary boundaries. This is not surprising given that most of the policy degrees in our Asian sample are offered under the broad umbrella of social sciences. Mission and vision statements of emerging policy schools in the region indicate that they intend to assert a local and regional presence and character. Translation of these statements into curricula that reflect the unique local and regional identity of the degree programs, however, can be challenging and needs more research. Contextualization of policy sciences that originated as a field in the West, to local and regional realities outside the West, would depend on availability of teaching material specific to the countries in the region and scholars advancing this research, which is still lacking currently.

While studying the landscape of policy education in Asia, we are also cognisant that policy sciences would have existed prior to the 2000s in other forms in Asia, without formal institutionalization in public policy schools and before the increase in establishment of distinct policy schools and departments. We observe features of what we term 'distinct' policy schools while recognizing that policy education need not necessarily be limited to a policy school. However, there is a case to be made that the emergence of such distinct policy schools and departments are important for the field to exhibit a unique identity of its own while recognizing the inevitable inter-disciplinary nature of the field of public policy. This has interesting implications for teaching public policy, including in relation to how a public policy school's

course offerings should be structured, what courses should be taught, what the course content should be, what prior training students entering these programs have and what faculty recruitment criteria should be, among other aspects.

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APPENDIX 28.1

Table A28.1 List of universities in Asia study sample with a policy school/department

Country	University	Policy department/ School
Cambodia	University of Cambodia	Techo Sen School of Government and International Relations
Vietnam	–	Fulbright School of Public Policy and Management
Brunei	Universiti Brunei Darusalam	Institute of Policy Studies
Malaysia	University of Malaya	International Institute of Public Policy and Management
Singapore	National University of Singapore	Lee Kuan Yew School of Public Policy
Russia	National Research University – Higher School of Economics	School of Politics and Governance
Indonesia	–	School of Government and Public Policy – Indonesia
Thailand	Chiang Mai University	School of Public Policy
South Korea	Kyung Hee University	Graduate School of Public Policy and Civic Engagement
	–	KDI School of Public Policy and Management
India	Indian School of Business	Bharti Institute of Public Policy
	Management Development Institute	School of Public Policy and Governance
	O.P. Jindal Global University	Jindal School of Government and Public Policy
	Indian Institute of Technology Delhi	School of Public Policy
	National Law School, Bangalore	Institute of Public Policy
	Tata Institute of Social Science	School of Public Policy and Governance
	Azim Premji University	School of Policy and Governance
	Xavier University	School of Government and Public Affairs
Japan	Ritsumeikan University	Graduate School of Public Policy
	Doshisha University	Faculty of Policy Studies, Graduate School of Policy Science, and Graduate School of Policy and Management
	The University of Tokyo	Graduate School of Public Policy
	Osaka University	Osaka School of International Public Policy
	Tohoku University	School of Public Policy
	Hokkaido University	Graduate School of Public Policy
	Hitotsubashi University	School of International and Public Policy
	Kyoto University	Graduate School of Government
	Meiji University	Graduate School of Governance Studies
China	Tsinghua University	School of Public Policy and Management
Kazakhstan	Nazarbayev University	Graduate School of Public Policy

29. Teaching public policy in Europe

Nils C. Bandelow, Johanna Hornung, and Ilana Schröder

INTRODUCTION

The academic discipline of public policy emerged in the USA over 50 years ago and has been influencing scholars and students worldwide since then. The translation and transfer of this discipline to other countries and contexts outside the US led to nationally varying definitions, theoretical and methodological approaches, and objectives of public policy (Bandelow et al., 2022). Especially European countries with their different traditions, languages, scientific systems, and political-administrative systems mirror the diverse criteria in which public policy teaching is embedded (Stauffer and Kuenzler, 2021; Sager, Ingold, and Balthasar, 2017). To overcome national differences and foster an international public policy community, the European Union and national tertiary education institutions have been founding and supporting international forums, networks, and exchange programs for public policy scholars and students (Marques, Zapp, and Powell, 2022). However, public policy is often only embedded as one course in related disciplines such as political science, economics, or public administration, instead of being taught as a single discipline. This is mirrored, for instance, in the Web of Science and Scopus and thus also in measurements based on it, such as the Academic Ranking of World Universities (ARWU or Shanghai Ranking) (Van de Walle and van Delft, 2014).

Considering these trends, a systematic empirical overview of where and how public policy is currently being taught in Europe is missing. This chapter wants to provide such an overview by systematically identifying public policy degree programs in 11 European countries and assessing what is differentiating and unifying them. In the second section, we introduce how public policy evolved in Europe and present previous studies and theoretical explanations for different as well as similar European developments in understanding and teaching public policy. After that, we explain the methodology and data that we used to identify and compare public policy programs. In the fourth section, we present the study's results and answer the question of whether and where public policy is taught as a single discipline. We discuss the country comparison in relation to our previous theoretical considerations. In the fifth section, we zoom in to the curricula of one program per country to examine thematic foci, taught methods and theories, the final thesis, and practical components more closely. The chapter closes with a reflection on the study's implications and limitations for the present as well as future teaching of public policy in Europe.

PUBLIC POLICY IN EUROPE

In Europe, there are neither unambiguous terms nor clear definitions of what can be understood by public policy. Instead, different terms can be found which are used interchangeably with 'public policy', such as 'policy studies', 'policy analysis', and adjacent fields such as 'public administration'. Even in English-speaking countries, the meanings of these concepts

are not clearly defined. Why is that problematic? Firstly, the terms overlap. To an inexperienced observer, all terms seem to imply a policy orientation but the demarcation remains unclear at first sight. Secondly, the increasing combination of theoretical perspectives fosters interdisciplinary research while implicitly assuming a common perception of the terminology. The often interchangeably used terms, however, have different research traditions and assigned meanings both across and within European countries, thereby focusing on other stages and aspects of policymaking (e.g., the design and decision of a policy vs. the effects of a policy). Considering this confusion within the academic discipline, what are the implications for teaching it?

In addition to definitional problems, teaching public policy in Europe has to face the translation of relevant terms and concepts into respective national languages and embed them in a context that differs from the US one where they were initially developed. This furthermore increases the ambiguity of the discipline and leaves the question of what is taught in public policy programs in different European countries unanswered. Therefore, it must be taken into account that the effort to provide an overview of teaching public policy in Europe refers to diverse, multiple understandings of public policy resulting from different national traditions and interpretations of the discipline.

Looking at the historical development of the discipline and possible path dependencies to today's public policy teaching, some countries have been linking teaching and research more closely together, while other countries have established separate career paths for teaching and conducting research in higher education. As a result, European countries have a fragmented landscape of teaching public policy, partly interlinked with the discipline of public administration. This fragmentation relates to what is taught, how it is taught, and by whom. In Germany, for example, the first public policy courses were offered mainly by political scientists at universities with a research orientation (Reiter and Töller, 2013). In France, on the other hand, exists a traditional separation of research-oriented universities and the training of management personnel in public administration by the *Grandes Ecoles*, especially the *Ecole Nationale d'administration* (ENA) which was replaced by the *Institut National du Service Public* (INSP) in 2022 (Hassenteufel and Le Galès, 2018; Le Theule, 2022).

Such differences in approaches to teaching public policy across countries are consequences of several institutional and historical conditions. For instance, the difference between former socialist European countries and Western Europe still has some impact on teaching public policy. Since the 1990s, the civil service in many Eastern European countries has been increasingly staffed by younger professionals (Ochrana, Plaček, and Krápek, 2018). Governments were looking for 'democratic' qualifications which often came from higher education in public administration and public policy (Pryadilnikov, 2016). Therefore, one could expect that the curricula of public policy in Eastern European countries are rather more focused on political institutions and processes than on policies. Furthermore, European countries differ in their administrative traditions, size, (changing) political orientation, and focus. Administrative cultures include the Scandinavian cooperative contracting, the Anglo-Saxon flexible bargaining, and the Continental-European formalized regulation (Knassmüller and Veit, 2015: 122). Using a survey from 2003, Hajnal (2014: 97–98) categorized countries into three clusters based on their approaches to teaching public administration. Belgium, France, Spain, and Sweden are the only countries in the 'public cluster' with a focus on public policy. Other countries have either a stronger legalistic orientation or are primarily focused on management. However, a second survey from 2013 showed a shift to a stronger policy orientation in Italy, Slovenia,

and Slovakia (Hajnal, 2014: 102). These findings were confirmed by a comparison of public administration programs in five CEE countries which also have been shifting their focus from a purely legalistic orientation to the inclusion of more perspectives, including public policy (Staroňová and Gajduschek, 2016). These changes resulted from different conditions like managerial reforms (Italy), internationalization (Slovenia), and a temporary lack of demand by students (Slovakia).

Nevertheless, there have been ongoing general trends across European countries. Firstly, teaching has gained importance. Programs like the Teaching Excellence and Student Outcomes Framework (until 2017 Teaching Excellence Framework, TEF) in England tie university funding to teaching assessment. Secondly, the practical orientation of university teaching has been strengthened. Universities are increasingly expected to not only train academic specialists but to also teach hands-on, interdisciplinary skills connected to practice. Related to this, there is an increasing number of interdisciplinary degree programs, some of which teach public policy as a subdiscipline of, for example, public health. Thirdly, international student exchanges within Europe have been steadily promoted. This is happening through the bachelor's and master's systems as part of the Bologna Process, and also through exchange programs such as Erasmus (since 2014 succeeded by Erasmus+). There is also an increasing number of joint cross-national programs at all levels (Goldsmith and Goldsmith, 2010: 63). Additionally, international associations such as the European Consortium for Political Research (ECPR) and the International Public Policy Association (IPPA) have been expanding teaching programs in Europe that contribute, in particular, to strengthening methodological competencies.

In the following sections, we will take a closer look at how these national commonalities and differences are mirrored in practice more specifically in public policy degree programs across European countries. To this end, we will first explain our methodological approach and case selection, before we present a quantitative overview of public policy degrees and detailed case analyses of selected national programs. The analysis will focus on criteria mentioned in this chapter such as the language of instruction, thematic foci, the inclusion of practical components, and internationalization within Europe.

METHODOLOGY

To provide an overview of public policy degree programs in Europe we conduct a systematic review of national and international study programs across selected European countries. For case selection, we consulted three well-known university rankings of 2022, namely the QS World University Rankings (subject: 'Politics'), Times Higher Education World University Rankings (subject: 'Political Science and International Relations'), and the Shanghai Global Ranking of Academic Subjects (subjects: 'Public Administration' and 'Political Sciences'). We compared the rankings' top 11 European countries in the respective subjects and selected our analysis those that overlapped across at least two of three rankings. This resulted in the following countries: Austria, Belgium, Denmark, France, Germany, Italy, the Netherlands, Norway, Switzerland, Sweden, and the United Kingdom (UK). We based the case selection on the university rankings because they give an empirical indication of national performances in higher education disciplines related to public policy. However, it should be reflected that the rankings' assessments rely on a limited set of indicators which include research-oriented criteria (citations, publications, scientific awards) that tend to favor more traditional and

Table 29.1 *Keywords in all national languages of the selected cases*

Language	Keywords
Danish	Offentlig Politik
Dutch	Publiek Beleid Beleidsadviesing Overheidsbeleid
English	Public Policy Policy Process Policy Research Policy Sciences Policy Analysis Policy Studies
French	Politiques Publiques Action Publique Sciences de Gouvernement
German	Policy-Analyse Politikfeldanalyse Policy-Forschung
Italian	Politiche Pubbliche Analisi Political
Norwegian	Offentlig Politik
Swedish	Offentlig Politik

resourceful universities (Fernández-Cano et al., 2018). Having said that, we believe that using these 11 cases additionally allows us to take a closer look at teaching public policy in countries with relatively established research institutions.

After deciding on European countries, we identified keywords in the respective national languages that would be used for the search and analysis of public policy programs. Decisions for keywords were based on scientific literature, national textbooks, university websites, and recommendations of public policy scholars affiliated with universities in the respective countries. A challenge in translating ‘public policy’ is the lack of analogous differentiations of the three English policy dimensions (policy, polity, politics) in other European languages. This is mirrored in the national terms which are not always literally translated as ‘policy’. The final keywords are depicted in Table 29.1. We used keywords in English and in respective national languages to search for degree programs across multiple (inter)national online databases for every country.

We included study programs in our final overview when keywords were directly mentioned in the program’s title. This decision was made to ensure that the further analyzed programs taught public policy as the main discipline and not as a sub-course of overarching subjects such as political science. The program selection focused on undergraduate (bachelor’s) and graduate (master’s) programs to present an internationally comparable offer of fundamental higher education courses by European universities that are not requiring previous professional experience.

In the following section, we present the results of our database search for public policy programs in the selected 11 European countries. In the tabular macro-overview in Appendix 29.1, we illustrate the geographic distribution of public policy programs across Europe, languages of instruction, and duration of study. We present our results in country-specific sections where

we address the prevalence of public policy programs, their interdisciplinarity, and international orientation. We further zoom in on one program per country. For this, we select public policy masters' degrees that are, if possible, not integrated into other academic fields to ensure comparability and a clearer representation of public policy teaching as a single discipline. In the analysis of curricula, we look at thematic foci, courses on theory, courses on methodology or scientific foundations, practical components, and the format of the final thesis/project.

RESULTS: PUBLIC POLICY TEACHING PROGRAMS ACROSS EUROPE

In total, the search for stand-alone public policy programs across the selected European countries yielded 121 results with zero programs in Norway and a maximum of 53 programs in the UK (see Table A29.1 in Appendix 29.1). We found that there is no general benchmark across countries and universities to distinguish between a stand-alone program and a specialization within a more general program. Programs in public policy are sometimes specializations of subjects like political science or economics. In our operationalization, we regarded programs as stand-alone when they had their own title. In a few cases, however, this is also inconsistently communicated by universities. Therefore, the number we have determined is an approximation as of the end of 2022. The programs we will analyze more in-depth are shown in bold.

Only five of the public policy programs we identified are bachelor degrees. They are marked with an asterisk before the respective country abbreviation. One of these programs is the four-year program 'International Governance and Public Policy' offered by the University of Keele (UK) in cooperation with the Beijing Foreign Studies University in China. Another undergraduate (and award-winning) program is the 'Social & Public Policy' degree offered by the University of Glasgow (UK) which combines a bachelor degree with a master of arts with honors over four years. The other bachelor programs are offered by the Universität Passau (Germany), the London School of Economics (UK), and the Stockholms Universitet (Sweden). These programs last three years each and can be consecutively continued with the same-named masters' programs at the respective universities. Except for the 1.5-year master's program 'Science in Economics and Public Policy' at the Universität Basel (Switzerland), all masters' programs last either one or two years.

Taking a look at the language of instruction, it becomes apparent that most public policy programs are taught to some extent in English. Slightly more than half of the programs in Italy and Germany are taught partly or entirely in English. In France, teaching languages present quite a mix of English-only, French-only, and both English-French programs. The latter language mix is also found in dual degree programs offered especially at the renowned Sciences Po universities. The Netherlands is, next to the UK for obvious reasons, the country with the highest share of English-taught programs. This goes along with the country's international research orientation and long-term objective to become an attractive destination for international talent. The programs we found in Belgium and Sweden are taught in their respective national language. In Switzerland, two of three programs are taught in English.

Next to the high prevalence of English-taught programs, we identified multiple joint degree programs offered in direct cooperation with at least one other international university, thus strengthening the international orientation of public policy teaching even further. Addressed to the international public, some of the programs we identified are part of the

widely-known European cooperation for masters' degrees in public policy, namely the privately funded Erasmus Mundus Masters Program in Public Policy (Mundus MAPP). This cooperation was co-founded by the Erasmus+ program of the European Union in 2007. The Mundus MAPP program offers students a joint public policy degree at either two of the four partner universities, namely the Central European University (AT), the Erasmus University Rotterdam (NL), the Institut Barcelona d'Estudis Internacionals (ES), or the University of York (UK). Moreover, we identified several other dual degree programs between European universities. These include: multiple public policy programs offered jointly by Sciences Po universities in France and European countries like Germany, Italy, Switzerland, or the UK; the German-France dual degree in 'Public Policy and Management'; multiple dual degrees offered by the University Bocconi (IT) in 'Politics and Policy Analysis'; and joint programs across the UK. Intra-European study exchanges are, in particular, supported by the EU-funded Erasmus+ program, therefore creating resources for the internationalization of European teaching.

PUBLIC POLICY PROGRAMS PER COUNTRY

Austria

Our search yielded one public policy program in Austria that is offered by the Central European University (CEU) in Vienna. The CEU, previously also located in Budapest, is a privately owned university in Vienna that was founded in 1991 after the collapse of the Soviet Union. CEU's main objective was to offer English-language programs to foster democratic transitions in Central and Eastern Europe, thereby actively fostering an international orientation. The program we found is a one-year public policy master's degree that can also be studied as a two-year Mundus MAPP program in cooperation with the Barcelona d'Estudis Internacionals (ES) or the University of York (UK). We did not find specific public policy programs at other Austrian universities. Programs that cover public policy or policy analysis are not offered by specific public policy faculties but are taught by institutes for political science, social sciences, law, and economics. This represents a rather fragmented and interdisciplinary understanding of public policy teaching. The one-year 60 credits' program 'Master of Arts in Public Policy' at the CEU is offered by the Department of Public Policy. Building on core subjects such as 'policy analysis', two courses on 'economic analysis for public policy' and 'academic writing', and qualitative as well as quantitative method courses, the program offers five thematic foci that students can choose from. These specializations are: 'Development', 'Security', 'Governance', 'Media and Communication', and 'Higher Education Policy'. The program covers theories on public management and administration, (international) political economy, democracy, institutionalization, governance, partisanship, policy design, policy evaluation, and critical theory. The method courses include quantitative and qualitative research designs and data collection, statistical analyses of (big) data including applied regression analysis, experiments (RCTs), philosophy of science, interviews, focus groups, and participant observation. Statistical analyses are taught with the use of R or Stata. There are multiple courses on economics, policy impact evaluation, and the European Union. Didactically, courses include preparatory readings, lectures, homework, quizzes, preparation of reading notes, in-class discussions and debates, student presentations, and group work. The program has a mandatory practice component requiring an internship of 320 hours or

participation in a policy lab. In the end, students are required to write a final research thesis of approximately 12,000 words which is, together with obligatory writing workshops, worth eight credit points.

Belgium

Belgium presents the smallest country in our sample. This is one but not the only reason why only a few public policy programs exist here. The only Belgian program we found that has public policy in its title is at the KU Leuven. At KU Leuven, teaching public policy only gained prominence in the 1990s because of an institutional merge between the Perfection Centre for Government Policy and Management and the Public Administration Unit which also resulted in a new distinct chair in public policy (Brans, Aubin, and Ruebens 2017: 298). Outside of KU Leuven, public policy teaching remains connected to either policy-specific programs or as part of programs on political science, governance, public administration, or economics.

The public policy program at KU Leuven is called ‘Master of Science in Public Management and Policy’. It is taught in Dutch (therefore originally titled ‘Master of Science in het Overheidsmanagement en -beleid’) and addressed to both regular students and those with professional experience in the public sector. The one-year program consists of 60 ECTS gained in compulsory theoretical and methodological modules and in additional courses which students can choose from. The compulsory modules encompass policy, administration, and management with courses on governance, law, and a special emphasis on evidence-based policy, policy advice, and digitalization. Within the compulsory modules, different concepts of governance and governance theories (principal-agent theory, property rights theory, transaction cost theory, and stewardship theory) are taught. The management course is built around the three basic financial tools and steering techniques for the policy and management cycle in government, specifically budget, accounting, and audit. The course on evidence-based policymaking addresses ‘ethical issues’ that policy advisors may face, and teaches practical skills for problem analysis and modeling, for the analysis and selection of policy solutions, and for modernizing policy advice. The remaining two compulsory modules are on digital public governance and administration law. Two methods classes of three ECTS each, one in qualitative and one in quantitative methods, complement the compulsory part of this study program. The teaching style is shaped by practical assignments designed to ‘independently analyze and evaluate administrative and policy problems and developments, and formulate solutions’ as well as interactive lectures in small groups, including role-playing and simulation games, discussions, exercises, and group presentations. Practical components are integrated within the master’s thesis where students are required to conduct independent research on a chosen topic which can be combined with an internship in a public or non-governmental organization.

Denmark

Both the University of Copenhagen and Aarhus University are among the top 20 European universities in all three consulted university rankings. In the Shanghai ‘Public Administration’ and ‘Political Science’ rankings, Aarhus University holds first and tenth place worldwide, respectively. However, our search did not yield public policy programs at these universities. Programs that feature public policy or policy analysis are embedded in political science in Aarhus and data science and economy degrees in Copenhagen. Selecting ‘Public Policy’ as an

interest on the Aarhus University website redirects the user to their master's program in economics. While there is a strong research orientation to public policy in Denmark, our research does not mirror this disciplinary focus in teaching.

The only Danish public policy program we found is the two-year master's degree in 'Comparative Public Policy and Welfare Studies' at the University of Southern Denmark (SDU) in Odense. The program's website informs readers that the program will not be offered in 2023, without further explanations. While the official tuition language is English, admission requirements also include Danish language proficiency as one of the compulsory modules is taught in Danish. In the first study year, the program offers compulsory courses (60 ECTS) which include an introduction to public policy and welfare studies as well as seminars on the welfare state and labor markets, public administration, quantitative methods, research design, Nordic models of governance, public policy (Danish: *offentlig politik*), and economics for policy evaluation. Additionally, students can choose between the specializations 'Social Justice' and 'Social Change' which go along with two thematically specific courses each. In the third semester, students can take electives in Denmark and abroad (10 to 30 ECTS) and/or do an internship (10 to 20 ECTS). In the master's thesis (30 ECTS) students conduct research on a topic of choice. In general, the program's courses are focused on conveying theoretical and policy field-specific knowledge. This goes along with the lecturers who are mostly affiliated with the Danish Centre for Welfare Studies. The program does not include mandatory research projects (before the final thesis) or practice components. Qualitative methods are also not part of the curriculum. However, the study structure allows students to take more method or research-oriented courses and internships in the third semester if desired.

France

In France, the keyword search identified 24 masters' programs in public policy. These programs are almost exclusively centered around the various 'Sciences Po' institutes in Grenoble, Lyon, Rennes, Saint-Germain-en-Laye, Toulouse, and – obviously – Paris. Except for the 'Ecole des Hautes Etudes Commerciales de Paris', which has a double degree cooperation with the Free University of Berlin, all international cooperation within public policy masters' programs is found at Sciences Po Paris. Besides the Toulouse School of Economics and the ParisTech School of Bridges, which offer the 'Public Policy and Development' master's program in English, Sciences Po Paris is also the only institution that offers public policy masters' programs that can be studied exclusively in English. Other universities, such as the Université Paris Sciences et Lettres, the Université Paris-Est Créteil Val-de-Marne, the University of Rennes, the Sciences Po Lyon, and the Sciences Po Rennes offer courses in English but also include compulsory courses in French. This is in line with the tradition of policy research and academia in France being rather nationally oriented, with research usually published in French and an only recently increasing international orientation of French political science (Irondelle, 2006).

The flagship institution, Sciences Po Paris, offers a master's program that we take a closer look at. Within the two-year master's program, students choose between one of 11 policy streams (taught purely in English, purely in French, or both), which is connected to mandatory courses related to the chosen stream. In addition, all students attend core courses that represent the multidisciplinary nature of the program because they entail modules on economics, law, public policy, management, and leadership as well as ethics and digital humanities, and students are

also embedded in a so-called policy lab ('Public Policy Incubator'), where they collaborate with public and private partners. Furthermore, students choose among electives and decide in their last semester whether they want to complete an internship, a thesis, an exchange program, or a personal project.

The streams are either policy-related (e.g., social policy, energy/environment/sustainability, digital and new technology, cultural policy, health policy, security, and defense policy) or more general, such as public administration, politics, public policy, management, and public affairs. As a result, there is not only a variety of streams but also of courses within the streams and even within the core modules. There are four core modules ('Governance, Democracy and Public Policy', 'Public Economics', 'Policy Analysis and Policy Evaluation', and 'Public Policy Challenges') within which multiple courses are offered from which the students can choose one per core module. The pedagogical style depends on the stream and the courses. Usually, there are between 18 and 22 students per course. Within the streams, further foci are pursued. In the stream 'Politics and Public Policy', for example, European and national institutions, but also institutions in non-democracies, are discussed. Overall, the masters' programs in public policy in France seem to be quite broadly distributed across the country, but with an international orientation primarily at the Sciences Po Paris. Nevertheless, there is a clear tendency in France to educate civil servants and advisors for the public sector which corresponds to the strongly elitist system of education and public sector recruitment in the country (Biland and Gally, 2018; Genieys and Hassenteufel, 2015).

Germany

In Germany, we identified 15 study programs of which 13 include 'public policy' in their title. The University of Magdeburg uses the term 'policy analysis' and the University of Bamberg is the only university to use the German term '*Politikfeldanalyse*'. Some of the public policy programs are offered by economics departments. These are English-language programs with a focus on an international audience (e.g., University of Trier, Johannes-Gutenberg University Mainz). In these cases, public policy only plays a role in the programs' titles. The modules include governance, political science, and especially economics, without specifically addressing public policy. Other programs are related to individual chairs from political science departments with a personal focus on public policy. In some cases, these chairs cooperate with chairs from economics and law for joint degree programs. These programs are in danger of being discontinued when the chairs leave. For instance, this concerns the currently frozen public policy program in Münster in cooperation with economics, political science, and law.

The Hertie School in Berlin plays a special role in the German university landscape. It is one of the first and a particularly successful and renowned private university in Germany with a strong focus on public policy. One goal of this institution is to break the legal sciences' monopoly on training for the German civil service. The Hertie School offers several degree programs with public policy elements. It combines academic curricula with strong practical components and with this partly resembles the French model of the *Grandes Ecoles*. The two-year, 120-ECTS program 'Master of Public Policy (MPP)' combines elements of political science, economics, public administration, law, and sociology. Admission requires a bachelor degree of 180 ECTS without restriction to a specific subject. Practical experience is desired, but not a requirement. The program consists of seven modules. Mandatory are modules on 'Foundations of Public Policy', 'Tools of Public Policy', and 'Economics'. In the second of

four terms, students take a module on professional development which is a practice-oriented project course with partner institutions of at least six weeks. There are several electives also within the mandatory modules. This makes it possible to focus on particular topics such as multilevel climate governance, digital governance, education, labor markets, welfare, or health. It is also possible to choose 'Policymaking in the European Union'. In the courses on public policy, basic theoretical concepts and features of the policy field are first introduced in a problem-oriented manner. On this basis, students have to develop, present, and compare their case studies. The students' tasks also include suggesting readings. The program finishes with a final master's thesis of about 12,000 to 14,000 words.

Italy

In Italy, we did not identify any bachelor programs on public policy but found a diverse range of masters' programs. There are programs with a more economic orientation and also programs with a more political science orientation. Of the 13 identified programs, six are exclusively in Italian and four are in English only. Three programs are multilingual and combine Italian parts with various other languages (English, French, or German). Some teaching institutions are non-governmental and aim directly at training staff for specific organizations. For example, the International Training Center offers a one-year program on 'Technology and Public Policy' in Turin for the International Labour Organization (ILO). The Johns Hopkins University has a one-year program on 'European Public Policy' in Bologna that focuses on EU institutions. There are also joint international programs with an academic orientation. The University of Bocconi stands out in this regard, offering its two-year program 'Politics and Policy Analysis' in various collaborations with prestigious universities in other countries.

For a more detailed analysis, we have selected the two-year, 120-ECTS Italian-language program of the State University of Milan on '*Amministrazioni e politiche pubbliche* (APP)'. The admission requirements are diverse. As an alternative to a bachelor degree in a wide range of subjects, skills and knowledge gained in practice or in an assessment by the university can also enable access to the program. The first study year comprises six compulsory modules, including 'Data Analysis' and 'Theories and Research Methods for Public Administration'. In the second year of study, students can choose between three study strands: 'eGovernment', 'Local Government', and 'Rule of Law and Organized Crime'. Only the two compulsory modules of the second year for all three strands 'European Research and Innovation Policies' and 'Policy Analysis and Evaluation' are directly related to policy research. The latter module covers the basics of policy research, policy formulation, and evaluation with a specific theoretical focus. Teaching approaches include lectures, discussions, and team presentations on students' case studies.

Netherlands

Despite the comparatively small size of the country, we found 11 public policy programs in the Netherlands. However, a closer look reveals that of all programs, only the Mundus MAPP degree offered by Erasmus University Rotterdam is a specific public policy program. In the Netherlands, public policy is often embedded in economics programs that focus on the (economic) evaluation of specific policies and political economy. In other cases, public policy and policy analysis are part of European studies, political science, or management

programs. There are also thematically focused programs such as the master's in 'Public Policy and Human Development' at the University of Maastricht and the program 'Engineering and Policy Analysis' at the TU Delft. Most programs are taught fully in English, highlighting the country's focus on internationalization. In general, Dutch higher education puts a stronger emphasis on public administration and political science than on public policy. As all programs we found are embedded in other disciplines, we want to zoom in on the one-year program that students follow during the Mundus MAPP at the Erasmus University Rotterdam before continuing their studies at a partner university in either Spain or the UK.

The Mundus MAPP track at the Erasmus University Rotterdam is offered by the International Institute of Social Studies (ISS). The degree foresees that students spend the first study year at ISS and continue the second study year either at the Institut Barcelona d'Estudis Internacionals (IBEI) with a focus on public policy in the context of (non)governmental international organizations and think tanks, or at the University of York with a focus on public policy in developing countries. Independently of the tracks, students take three core courses at the ISS, namely 'Comparative Public Policy' (5 ECTS), 'Development Economics and Public Policy' (5 ECTS), and a free-to-choose research method course on either qualitative, quantitative, or mixed-method approaches worth 8 ECTS. The master's program further teaches thematically specific courses that prepare students for their upcoming specialization at other universities. These courses account for 21 ECTS in total and cover topics on institutions, governance, political economy, and global development studies. In the second and third quarters of their study year at ISS, the program offers over 25 electives of which students are required to take either one 8 ECTS course or two 4 ECTS courses. The electives cover a broad range of topics on, *inter alia*, economy, ecology, gender and youth studies, digitalization, and security. At the end of the first year at Erasmus University, the program includes a mandatory 'study visit' which entails three days of meetings with officials from various organizations from different sectors in another European cities. This format allows students to hear about different organizations' activities and exchange their ideas and questions with the respective representatives. The study visit is concluded with a graded paper. To finish the Mundus MAPP track in the Netherlands, students write a thesis of 6,000 words (10 ECTS) that serves as a proposal for the final research project and thesis they will submit at the end of the master's program.

Norway

Norway is an internationally renowned site of public policy research that, like other Scandinavian countries, offers higher education free of charge for European students. Our analysis of Norwegian study programs indicates that the country has a stronger focus on public administration and management studies. Despite the great importance of Norway in research, we could not find any specific public policy programs, neither in the national language or in English.

Sweden

Similar to Norway and Scandinavian countries in general, Sweden is also an internationally renowned country for research on public policy and policy analysis, especially concerning social and welfare policy. Our search for public policy programs in Sweden yielded two results, a bachelor and a master's program that are both offered in Swedish at the University

of Stockholm. The degree is entitled '*Statsvetenskap med offentlig politik och organisation*' which can be translated to 'political science with public policy and organization'. The three-year bachelor program with 180 ECTS is aimed at training students for jobs in public administration or as investigators in the private sector. In terms of content, it comprises a mix of political science, business administration, and administrative science. Since 2021, the program has not admitted any new students. The two-year master's program is also not focused on public policy. In terms of content, it primarily includes political science with portions of public administration and organizational science. There are courses on research methods and practical skills as internships. The method courses include the basics of qualitative and quantitative methods which are tested in written exams. Public administration is taught based on English texts on management, governance, and bureaucracy. References to specific content-related policies are hardly recognizable. The program is concluded with a final research project and thesis that account for 30 ECTS. In general, this case also shows that the internationally oriented and renowned role of Sweden in public policy research is not reflected in the teaching of the discipline.

Switzerland

In our search for public policy programs in Switzerland, we found that the country has a special focus on teaching governance and management programs. This especially refers to the 'Master in International Affairs and Governance' at the University of St. Gallen and the 'Master en Management Public' at the University of Geneva. Only at the University of Basel is public policy directly addressed in the master's on 'Science in Economics and Public Policy'. The ETH Zürich's orientation toward engineering and technology is reflected in its policy-related 'Master in Science, Technology and Policy'.

A specific study program on 'Public Management and Policy' (PMP) is jointly offered by the University of Bern, the University of Lausanne, and the University of Lugano, which also represent the three language regions of Switzerland (German, French, Italian). The study program is taught in the regional language of the respective university. It is a two-year study program with 120 ECTS of which 60 ECTS are completed in basic modules. These compulsory modules are: 'Management of Public Administration', 'Political Science', 'Economics', 'Public Law', and 'Interdisciplinary Events and Research Methodology'. An internship at the end of the study program is optional and can be combined with the master's thesis which accounts for 30 ECTS. With the three partner institutions, the study program is explicitly designed as a multicultural, multilingual, and interdisciplinary program at the intersection of political science, economics, public law, public administration management, and communication. After the basic modules are completed, students pursue in-depth studies. For this, the program foresees that students go to an (inter)national partner institution. While this is not obligatory, it is highly recommended and even if students do not follow this advice at least 18 ECTS must be completed in a different language (including English).

The courses offered in this master's program include mandatory lectures on public law, policy analysis, and policy evaluation, as well as on organizational and financial management. Thereby, the teaching style is rather frontal, but with regular graded individual assessments. The methods training is part of the 'empirical research internship' which is not directly an internship but simply serves the purpose of ensuring students conduct their own research and write a paper on their research project. This course spans two semesters and allows students

to choose between three different tracks (quantitative-statistical methods, qualitative methods, and Qualitative Comparative Analysis). Teaching public policy and policy analysis at the University of Bern essentially relies on the handbook *Policy-Analyse in der Schweiz* (Sager et al, 2017) .

United Kingdom

As expected, the UK has by far the largest number of degree programs with relevant keywords for public policy and possible synonyms. We were able to identify a total of 53 programs, 51 of which explicitly include ‘public policy’ in their titles. Alternative terms were found only in Bristol (‘policy research’) and Paisley (‘policy analysis’). Nineteen programs are titled ‘public policy’ without an additional designation. The most common addition is ‘management’ in eight programs. Five universities offer ‘social and public policy’. At the London School of Economics and Political Science (LSE), there is the addition ‘international’ which designates both a one-year master’s program and a three-year bachelor program. The only further bachelor programs we found in the UK are in Glasgow and Keele. The other 50 programs are masters’ programs of which most lead to a Master of Science (MSc) degree. Master of Arts (MA) degrees are less common in public policy teaching in the UK. Some universities offer multiple public policy programs or combine a public policy orientation with various alternate program components – especially at the LSE, where the offer is diverse.

At the renowned Blavatnik School of Government at the University of Oxford there are also different possibilities for studying public policy. There is a public service-oriented ‘Master of Public Policy (MPP)’ and a strongly research-oriented MSc program ‘Public Policy Research’. These two one-year masters’ degrees can be combined to form a double master (‘Public Policy 1+1 Program’). Admission to the MPP requires a bachelor degree with merit in any discipline. For the research master’s, a public policy degree is required, either the MPP from Oxford or a degree that is fully comparable to the MPP. The MPP includes seven compulsory modules in three terms. The first two terms provide an academic foundation in economics, politics, law, and the political use of evidence. The one-year MPP includes a mandatory research project of at least six weeks which is combined with the provision of professional competencies and leadership skills. Unlike the MPP, the research master’s has a strong orientation toward theory and especially methods that affect all eight modules. The master’s degree is completed with a thesis. The goal of the program is to enable students to analyze scientific evidence, ideologies, and institutions as explanations of political processes while developing communication skills to inform public policy.

CONCLUSION

The systematic overview of 121 public policy programs in Europe shows that the subject is still not present as a stand-alone program at the bachelor level. Almost all programs demand concrete prior knowledge. These prerequisites usually include a bachelor degree. At this point, the commonalities of the analyzed countries and programs almost end. For example, some providers of bachelor programs are very specific about the subject requirements for admission to a master’s program in public policy. Other universities do not specify content requirements at all. In some cases, there are requirements for further competencies that may

have been acquired in practice. Sixty-six of the analyzed masters' programs are one-year programs and 50 masters' programs have a duration of two years (if full-time study is assumed). The two-year programs are often combinations of multiple one-year programs. There are also numerous collaborations across European countries – although only a few universities are involved in these.

Regionally, the distribution of programs is very unbalanced. Almost half of all programs are offered in the UK. There are programs in all parts of the country (Wales, Scotland, Northern Ireland, and England). In the Scandinavian countries, on the other hand, there are barely any programs that explicitly refer to public policy in their titles. Here, the masters' programs are usually offered in specific policy fields or related disciplines such as public administration. In addition to the UK, France, Germany, Italy, and the Netherlands offer a considerable number of relevant programs. In these countries, the masters' programs take mostly two years, while in the UK two-year masters' programs are an exception.

The thematic focus of the programs often differ in their titles. Many programs combine public policy with elements of other subjects. The combinations are diverse: programs are often offered either by political science or economics departments, sometimes simultaneously and often in cooperation. It is also common to include elements of administrative sciences, law, and individual content areas. Not only do the titles differ, but also the contents, target groups, and teaching methods. A large proportion of the programs are oriented toward specific careers in concrete administrations (national or international). In these programs, there are usually more practice components of at least six weeks. Theories of the policy process are then not taught abstractly but are applied to specific practical problems. In addition to teaching approaches to identify drivers of political decisions, these study programs teach communication and leadership skills. Knowledge transfer often includes team projects and can thus contribute to the formation of students' networks even beyond their studies. Some programs also use digital forms of learning, but so far these are in the minority.

The few explicit research masters' programs that focus on theories and methods of public policy are distinguishable from the practice-oriented programs. Here, more traditional forms of knowledge transfer are found such as frontal lectures, preparatory readings, and graded presentations or written exams. However, these forms of teaching are not unified and also related to the programs' content: the (mainly British) research masters' with a strong orientation towards positivist perspectives include many modules on quantitative methods. In more critical and constructivist departments, which are more likely to be found in Continental Europe, teaching is based on more research-oriented literature.

This overview of teaching public policy in Europe is only a snapshot of a very dynamic subject. We found that public policy seems to spread across European higher education in a barely systematic way but – at least at the master's level – in impressive quantity in some regions. It also became clear that there are more research-rich countries, especially in Scandinavia, that hardly offer stand-alone public policy teaching programs. On the other hand, there are several public policy programs in Eastern Europe, especially in the Czech Republic. These were not included in our analysis as Eastern European universities have hardly been successful in the (Anglo-Saxon) rankings so far. The same applies to parts of Southern Europe. Separate studies with different methodology would have to be conducted for these regions. We have not yet done a systematic analysis of PhD programs either, since many countries and universities do not (yet) have formal teaching at the PhD level. However, it is anticipated that, similar to the master's level, the number of PhD programs will increase. It is not yet predicta-

ble whether public policy teaching will become established throughout Europe within its own schools or whether the programs will continue to be dominated by different providers with different foci. In this case, it would have to be observed whether offers from practice-oriented institutions will increase or whether the anchoring of public policy in one of the neighboring disciplines – political science, economics, and administrative science – will prevail. The still great diversity of European higher education systems, administrative systems, and also political systems probably continues to hinder standardization across countries. At the same time, in an increasingly internationally interconnected world, there is a growing need for competencies in understanding public policy in different countries.

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APPENDIX 29.1

Table A29.1 Overview of public policy study programs across 11 European countries

#	Country	University	Program	Language	Months
1	AT	Central European University	Public Policy (Mundus MAPP)	English	12
2	BE	Katholieke Universiteit Leuven	Overheidsmanagement en -beleid	Dutch	12
3	DK	Syddansk Universitet	Comparative Public Policy and Welfare Studies	Danish, English	24
4	FR	Sciences Po Grenoble	Administration et action publique - parcours politiques publiques de santé	French	24
5	FR	Sciences Po Lyon (en partenariat avec l'Université Lumière Lyon2, VetAgro Sup et l'Ecole Nationale Supérieure des Travaux Publics de l'Etat)	Analyse des politiques publiques	French	12
6	FR	Sciences Po Lyon (en partenariat avec l'Université Lumière Lyon2, VetAgro Sup et l'Ecole Nationale Supérieure des Travaux Publics de l'Etat)	Evaluation et suivi des politiques publiques	English, French	12
7	FR	Sciences Po Lyon (en partenariat avec l'Université Lumière Lyon2, VetAgro Sup et l'Ecole Nationale Supérieure des Travaux Publics de l'Etat)	Politiques publiques de l'alimentation et gestion du risque sanitaire	French	12
8	FR	Sciences Po Rennes, Université de Rennes 1, ENS Rennes	Politiques publiques	English, French	24
9	FR	Université de Rennes 1	Public Policies	English	12
10	FR, DE	Ecole des hautes études commerciales de Paris, Freie Universität Berlin	Public Policy and Management (Dual Degree)	German, French	24
11	FR	Université Paris-Est Créteil Val-de-Marne	Politiques publiques	English, French	24
12	FR	Université Paris Sciences et Lettres	Politiques publiques	French	24
13	FR	Université Pantheon-Assas (Paris II)	Politiques publiques	French	24
14	FR	Sciences Po Paris	Public Policy / politiques publiques	English, French	24
15	FR	Sciences Po Paris	Science politique, majeure 'politiques publiques'	French	24
16	FR, DE	Sciences Po Paris, Hertie School Berlin	Public Policy (Dual Degree)	English, French	24
17	FR, USA	Sciences Po Paris, Columbia University	Public Policy (Dual Degree)	English	24
18	FR, UK	Sciences Po Paris, LSE London	Public Policy / Public Policy and Public Administration (Dual Degree)	English	24

#	Country	University	Program	Language	Months
19	FR, IT	Sciences Po Paris, Università Commerciale Luigi Bocconi (Milan)	Politics and Public Policy (Dual Degree)	English, French	24
20	FR, CH	Sciences Po Paris, University of St. Gallen	Public Policy (Dual Degree)	English, French	24
21	FR, CA	Sciences Po Paris, Toronto University	Public Policy (Dual Degree)	English, French	24
22	FR, JP	Sciences Po Paris, University of Tokyo	Public Policy (Dual Degree)	English, French	24
23	FR	Sciences Po Saint-Germain-en-Laye	Droit et Action publique	English, French	12
24	FR	Sciences Po, Université Paris Cité	Santé et politiques publiques (Dual Degree)	French	24
25	FR	ParisTech School of Bridges	Public Policy and Development	English	12
26	FR	Toulouse School of Economics	Public Policy and Development	English	12
27	FR	Sciences Po Toulouse	Science Politique – parcours ‘Conseil et expertise en action publique’	French	24
28	DE	Universität Augsburg	Economics and Public Policy	German	24
29	DE	Universität Bamberg	Politikwissenschaft – International vergleichende Politikfeldanalyse	English, German	24
10	DE, FR	Freie Universität Berlin, École des hautes études commerciales de Paris	Public Policy and Management (Double Degree) (also listed for France)	German, French	24
30	DE	Hertie School Berlin	Public Policy	English	24
31	DE	Hertie School Berlin	Data Science for Public Policy	English	24
16	DE, FR	Hertie School Berlin, Sciences Po Paris	Public Policy (Dual Degree) (also listed for France)	English, French	24
32	DE	Technische Universität Darmstadt	Governance and Public Policy	English, German	24
33	DE	Universität Duisburg Essen	Politikmanagement, Public Policy und öffentliche Verwaltung	German	24
34	DE	Universität Erfurt	Public Policy	English	24
35	DE	Otto von Guericke Universität Magdeburg	Economic Policy Analysis	English	24
36	DE	Johannes-Gutenberg-Universität Mainz	International Economics and Public Policy	English	24
37	DE	Westfälische Wilhelms-Universität Münster	Public Policy	German	24
38	*DE	Universität Passau	Governance and Public Policy – Staatswissenschaften	German	36
39	DE	Universität Passau	Governance and Public Policy – Staatswissenschaften	German	24
40	DE	Universität Trier	International Economics and Public Policy	English	24
41	DE	Eberhard Karls Universität Tübingen	Public Policy and Social Change	English	24
42	IT	Johns Hopkins University, School of Advanced International Studies Bologna	European Public Policy	English	12

#	Country	University	Program	Language	Months
43	IT	Freie Universität Bozen	Public Policies and Administration	English, German, Italian	24
44	IT	Università degli Studi di Cagliari	Economia, Finanza e Politiche Pubbliche	Italian	24
45	IT	Università di Genova	Amministrazione e politiche pubbliche	Italian	24
46	IT	Università degli Studi di Milano	Amministrazioni e politiche pubbliche (APP)	Italian	24
47	IT	Università Commerciale Luigi Bocconi (Milano)	Politics and Policy Analysis	English	24
19	IT/FR	Università Commerciale Luigi Bocconi (Milano), Science Po Paris	<i>Politics and Public Policy (Double Degree) (also listed for France)</i>	<i>English, French</i>	24
48	IT/UK	Università Commerciale Luigi Bocconi (Milano), LSE University of London	European and International Public Policy and Politics (Double Degree)	English	24
49	IT	Università degli Studi di Modena e Reggio Emilia	Economics, Public Policy and Sustainability	English, Italian	24
50	IT	Luiss School of Government Roma	Parlamento e Politiche Pubbliche (MAPPP)	Italian	12
51	IT	LUMSA (Libera Università degli Studi Maria SS. Assunta di Roma)	Tecnologia e Politiche Pubbliche	Italian	12
52	IT	Sapienza – Università di Roma	Scienze delle amministrazioni e delle politiche pubbliche	Italian	24
53	IT	International Training Centre (ITC) Torino	Technology and Public Policy	English	12
54	NL	Universiteit van Amsterdam	Public Policy (Economics)	English	12
55	NL	Universiteit van Amsterdam	Public Policy and Governance (Political Science)	English	12
56	NL	Vrije Universiteit Amsterdam	Management, Policy Analysis and Entrepreneurship in Health & Life Sciences	English	24
57	NL	Vrije Universiteit Amsterdam	Economics: Public Policy	English	12
58	NL	Universiteit Maastricht	European Studies: European Public Policy, Institutions and Governance	English	12
59	NL	Universiteit Maastricht	Public Policy and Human Development	English	12
60	NL	Universiteit van Tilburg	Economics: Public Policy	English	12
61	NL	Radboud Universiteit Nijmegen	Beleidsadvisering	Dutch	12
62	NL	Technische Universiteit Delft	Engineering and Policy Analysis	English	24
63	NL	Erasmus Universiteit Rotterdam	International Public Management and Public Policy	English	12
64	NL, ES, UK	Erasmus Universiteit Rotterdam, Institut Barcelona d'Estudis Internacionals, University of York	Public Policy (Mundus MAPP)	English	24
65	*SE	Stockholms Universitet	Statsvetenskap med offentlig politik och organisation	Swedish	36
66	SE	Stockholms Universitet	Statsvetenskap med offentlig politik och organisation	Swedish	24

#	Country	University	Program	Language	Months
67	CH	Universität Bern, Université Lausanne, Università della Svizzera italiana (Lugano)	Public Management and Policy (PMP)	German, French, Italian	24
68	CH	Universität Basel	Science in Economics and Public Policy	English	18
69	CH	ETH Zürich	Science, Technology and Policy	English	24
70	UK	University of Bath	Public Policy	English	24
71	UK	Queen's University Belfast	International Public Policy	English	12
72	UK	Birkbeck University of London	Public Policy and Management	English	12
73	UK	University of Birmingham	Global Public Policy	English	12
74	UK	University of Bristol	Public Policy	English	12
75	UK	University of Bristol	Policy Research	English	12
76	UK	University of Edinburgh	Public Policy	English	12
77	UK	University of Edinburgh	Comparative Public Policy	English	12
78	UK	Cardiff University	Social and Public Policy	English	12
79	UK	Cardiff University	Politics and Public Policy (Economics)	English	12
80	UK	University of Exeter	Public Policy	English	12
81	UK	University of Essex	Public Policy	English	12
82	UK	University of Essex	Economics with Public Policy	English	12
83	*UK	University of Glasgow	Social and Public Policy	English	48
84	UK	University of Glasgow	Education, Public Policy and Equity	English	12
85	*UK	University of Keele	International Governance and Public Policy	English	48
86	UK	University of Leeds	Social and Public Policy	English	12
87	UK	Leeds Beckett University	Public Policy	English	12
88	UK	King's College London	Public Policy	English	12
89	UK	King's College London	Public Policy and Management	English	12
90	*UK	LSE University of London	International Social and Public Policy	English	36
91	UK	LSE University of London	International Social and Public Policy	English	12
92	UK	LSE University of London	Public Policy and Administration	English	12
93	UK	LSE University of London	Philosophy and Public Policy	English	12
48	UK, IT	LSE University of London, Università Commerciale Luigi Bocconi (Milan)	European and International Public Policy and Politics (Double Degree) (also listed for Italy)	English	24
94	UK	Queen Mary University of London	Public Policy	English	12
95	UK	Queen Mary University of London	International Public Policy	English	12
96	UK	SOAS University of London	Public Policy and Management	English	12
97	UK	SOAS University of London	Public Policy, Finance and Management	English	12
98	UK	UCL University College London	Public Policy	English	12
99	UK	University of Manchester	Political Science – Governance and Public Policy Pathway	English	12
100	UK	University of Manchester	International Development: Public Policy and Management	English	12
101	UK	University of East Anglia (Norwich)	Public Policy and Public Management	English	24
102	UK	Nottingham Trent University	Public Policy	English	12
103	UK	Nottingham Trent University	Politics and Public Policy	English	12
104	UK	University of Nottingham	Public Policy	English	12
105	UK	University of Oxford	Public Policy	English	12
106	UK	University of Oxford	Public Policy Research	English	12
107	UK	University of Oxford	Public Policy 1+1 Programme	English	24

#	Country	University	Program	Language	Months
108	UK	University of the West of Scotland (Paisley)	Policy Analysis & Global Governance	English	12
109	UK	University of Reading	Public Policy	English	12
110	UK	University of Sheffield	Economics and Public Policy	English	12
111	UK	University of Sheffield	Politics, Governance and Public Policy	English	12
112	UK	University of Stirling	Public Policy	English	12
113	UK	University of Strathclyde	Public Policy	English	12
114	UK	Swansea University	Public Policy	English	12
115	UK	Swansea University	Public Policy (Extended)	English	24
116	UK	University of Warwick	Public Policy	English	12
117	UK	University of York	Public Policy and Management	English	12
118	UK	University of York	Economics and Public Policy	English	12
119	UK	University of York	Social and Public Policy	English	12
120	UK	University of York	Global Public Policy and International Business	English	12
121	UK	University of York	Public Administration and Public Policy (Mundus MAPP)	English	12

* Bachelor program.

Italic: dual or double degree of different countries, listed twice, numbered according to the first listing.

Bold: study program is discussed in following section as an example.

30. Teaching public policy in Latin America

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INTRODUCTION

Latin America is the region of the American continent that extends from Mexico to Chile and it comprises 20 countries. The main languages in the region are Spanish and Portuguese, but French, Créole, Guaraní, and Quichua are also some of the other languages spoken in the region. These countries share the legacy of European (especially Spanish and Portuguese) colonialism, as well as strong influence from the United States. The region is also characterized by a wave of democratization, which started in the 1980s, bringing not only new constitutions, but also important innovations, such as the inclusion of indigenous rights, civil society participation in public policymaking, social protection, among other elements. These developments had an impact on how we teach public policies in the region. The rapid process of urbanization, starting in the 1950s, and which has established Latin America among the most urbanized regions in the world, has also influenced how and what is taught in relation to public policy, since cities, in particular, have become an important locus of public policy design, implementation, and experimentation.

Understanding how public policies are taught in the region is a complex task. Even if several similarities are shared among states, there is an initial challenge due to the diversity in the region. How do we consider, for example, the Amazon Rainforest countries,¹ or the special relationship between Mexico and the United States, or the continental scale of Brazil in contrast to the small islands in the Caribbean, which are some examples of ‘hybrids cultures’ (García Canclini 1990)? A second challenge is related to the diversity among academic institutions where, and the publics to whom, public policy is taught. Public policy courses can be part of graduate and undergraduate programs in public administration or political science, among others. Meanwhile, students can be practitioners, governmental officials, or academics. The region also varies in terms of the prevalence of policy teaching. For example, taking into account public policy courses in political science programs, Bentancur, Bidegain, and Martínez (2021) identified 56 programs in Mexico, 35 in Colombia, 13 in Peru, and 2 in Paraguay. Along with this, the community interested in public policy research and teaching is more or less consolidated according to each country. In Brazil² and Argentina, for example, there exist associations for the study of public policy, which is not the case in Ecuador. Moreover, despite the region as a whole having relatively limited access to public policy literature translated into Spanish or Portuguese, there also remains substantive diversity with regards to the authors

¹ The countries sharing the Amazon Rainforest are: Brazil, Colombia, Ecuador, French Guiana, Guyana, Peru, Suriname, and Venezuela.

² See the following website for the association: <https://www.anepcp.org.br> (consulted: 14 July 2021).

featured in course syllabi. Finally, each country has their own unique governmental systems, institutional arrangements, policy instruments, and state and civil society relations, and thus the main thematic and empirical focus of research interest also varies (e.g., public policies and federalism in Brazil; indigenous parties and movements in Bolivia and Ecuador; decentralization, territories, and local powers in Colombia; individual capitalization system in Chile, etc.), contributing to diversifying the teaching of public policy across the region.

Drawing out salient features of public policy teaching in Latin America therefore involves grappling with this complexity, asking questions such as: From where (i.e., in which department, course, or faculty) are public policy courses taught (e.g., political science, sociology, economics, administration, etc.)? Which undergraduate and graduate programs or academic institutions are the main references in the field of public policy? What are the key international, regional, and local authors adopted in public policy courses, and what are the implications for curricular content? Are translations of the classics available for teaching or are English texts used and, if so, with what consequence? Which topics are specific for teaching public policies? Which cases are incontrovertible for training students in public policies? Can we identify a distinct field of public policy in terms of research-based teaching? What are the main current challenges and future work that should be undertaken in Latin America to develop public policy teaching capacity in the region?

In order to address these questions, and taking into account the complexity of the region, the main idea of this chapter is to offer a first outline of how public policies are taught in Latin America. Far from attempting to provide an exhaustive overview, our purpose is to offer a map and encourage further discussion on this matter. In this way, our work is complementary to other research produced on this subject (Bentancur, Bidegain, and Martínez 2021; Cardozo 2020, 2021). To inform the empirical analysis, we conducted research using the following methods. First, we prepared a literature review of the topic, which is briefly outlined in the first section of this chapter. Then we used a survey to access specific information from professors of graduate and undergraduate courses in Latin America. Our survey had 23 respondents, mostly from Brazil, Chile, Uruguay, and Ecuador. We then conducted in-depth interviews with scholars to further probe the contours of the discipline. Finally, we collected and analyzed program syllabi from different programs across the region. Our data was sufficient to have a general overview of the main similarities and differences in public policy teaching in the region, which are described in the first section, as well as to provide information for a set of three case studies (Brazil, Chile, and Mexico), which are presented in the second section.³ These materials also allowed us to dive into a broader reflection about what is missing and what an agenda for future research and action for teaching public policies in the region might involve, which are addressed in the conclusion.

³ This study considers the teaching, investigative, and professional experience of its authors. For this reason, it was decided to include their own work, which was quoted in the interviews and the survey carried out during 2021. The main cases were also chosen based on the knowledge and access to data of the authors, who have been teaching and conducting research in universities in Brazil, Chile, and Mexico.

TEACHING PUBLIC POLICY IN LATIN AMERICA: A GENERAL OVERVIEW

Latin America is an extremely diverse region, and as such, how we teach public policy is equally diverse. Professors have different disciplinary backgrounds, and there are also significant variations in terms of political systems, economy, demography, and geography across countries. Mainstream topics and approaches also vary from country to country. Most of the teaching on public policy in Latin America is driven by an interest in public management and public administration (Bentancur, Bidegain, and Martínez 2021; Sanabria-Pulido, Rubaii, and Purón 2016). While countries like Mexico, Chile, and Brazil have shown a very healthy interest in the study of public policy through the lens of the ‘policy sciences’, other countries have more or less remained focused on public management and public administration, as we show in the case studies examined in this chapter. Certainly, the development of public policy programs at the undergraduate and graduate levels has been driven by individual countries’ circumstances (Purón Cid 2019). However, over the years, we have seen both an emergence of new schools of public policy in the global South, with substantive growth in Latin America (El-Taliawi, Nair and van der Wal 2021), and an increased focus on the policy sciences, which then is reflected in curricula change (Bentancur, Bidegain, and Martínez 2021). Over the past three decades, the number of theoretical and empirical public policy publications has grown, and so too have the quality of these works and the demand for training at the undergraduate and graduate levels. Moreover, there is now much more of a push to craft public policy syllabus content in both Spanish and Portuguese. This process has been pioneered by a few scholars, including younger, more recently-graduated faculty. Though much of the design of policy-related graduate programs is similar to those in the US, Europe, and Canada (Sanabria-Pulido, Rubaii, and Purón 2016), there is substantive evidence of ‘tropicalization’. This means that programs in public administration and public policy in Latin America frequently use Spanish-language readings or translations from the classics. In relation to this, throughout the chapter, we use two indexes proposed by Bentancur, Bidegain, and Martínez (2021) to measure national and foreign influences in programs. The ‘assimilation index’ measures the importance of northern countries (United States, Canada, and Europe) in public policy programs, and the ‘self-referencing index’ is used to assess the integration of national authors. In the following paragraphs, we briefly outline an overview of teaching public policy in a few Latin American countries (Argentina, Uruguay, and Ecuador) and the region of Central America.⁴ We expand on other countries such as Brazil, Chile, and Mexico, later in the chapter.

Argentina has had a very strong tradition in teaching public administration as a degree and as a course of study, both at the undergraduate and graduate levels (Cardozo and Bulcourn 2020). Nevertheless, in a similar fashion to other Latin American countries, much of the work being taught still has a very strong public administration ethos rather than focus on public policy scholarship. Public administration as a discipline seems to have been taken up much more easily and in a more durable way than public policy (i.e., what we understand as the

⁴ We have chosen these cases due to our expertise in each of them. Considering the limits and scope of the chapter, as well as our capacity to collect data in the region, it was not possible to provide a profound presentation of each Latin American country. We prepared a brief and stylized snapshot of a few cases to offer overview of teaching public policies to the reader. We suggest that future studies complement and expand our work, as this is an important frontier of research.

‘policy sciences’). This observation was confirmed in our interviews in Mexico (Interviewee 1). A study of public policy programs in Latin America identifies at least 30 programs where public policy is taught in Argentina (Bentancur, Bidegain, and Martínez 2021). Training in this country is considered high level and many of those who teach public policy all over South and Central America and Mexico are Argentinian in origin. Argentinian scholars are also regularly cited in syllabi (Bentancur, Bidegain, and Martínez 2021). Despite the predominance of public administration in Latin America, public policy courses are also frequently taught in the context of these programs, with Argentina being no exception (El-Taliawi, Nair, and van der Wal 2021; Purón Cid 2019; Sanabria-Pulido, Rubaii, and Purón 2016). Contextually, Argentina is clearly one of the stronger countries in Latin America when it comes to emphasizing the distinctive value of public policy in graduate and undergraduate programs.

Uruguay, is located in seventh place (out of the 11⁵ analyzed) in terms of the number of public policy programs (seven) in degree courses in political science or similar (Bentancur, Bidegain, and Martínez 2021).⁶ Eighty percent of these programs have a theoretical orientation complemented by empirical approaches to the national case and other Latin American cases. A high (76%) assimilation rate of bibliography from other countries stands out, the second highest in the sample and there are a limited number of books available in Spanish (Bentancur, Bidegain, and Martínez 2021, and survey). Only 6% of the authors cited are nationals and only 17% are Latin American. In general terms, scholars agree that the consolidation of public policy teaching in political science programs is relatively recent (Rocha Carpiuc 2012; Bentancur and Mancebo 2013; Garcé and Rocha Carpiuc 2015). For example, the undergraduate program in political science from the Universidad de la República – the most well-established in the country – was created in 1998. Within this program, public policy appeared only in an isolated, sporadic, and disjointed manner until 2009, when a curricular modification introduced the module on ‘State and Public Policies’ (Rocha Carpiuc 2012; Bentancur and Mancebo 2013; Garcé and Rocha Carpiuc 2015). Moreover, based on our survey, Uruguay does not yet have an association for the study of public policy. Finally, a significant number of academics teaching in the country initially obtained their training abroad (Bentancur, Bidegain, and Martínez 2021), consistent with the degree of assimilation identified.

In Ecuador, Bentancur, Bidegain, and Martínez (2021: 3) identified six programs in public policy. There are two main graduate institutions teaching public policies in Ecuador: FLACSO (Facultad Latinoamericana de Ciencias Sociales) and IAEN (Instituto de Altos Estudios Nacionales).⁷ The manuals used for teaching public policies are the publications of Roth, Mendez, Fontaine, Aguilar Villanueva, as well as the translation of Parsons (see the details in Table 30.1).⁸ According to our interviewee, there are not a high number of specialized scholars in public policy and there is no professional association in the country. Programs offer training for students and practitioners. There are different important topics for research and teaching public policies, particularly, recently, those related to the significant higher education reforms introduced after the election of Correa (2007) and the new Constitution (2008) (e.g., in education and the production system). The years following these developments witnessed a growth

⁵ Argentina, Brazil, Bolivia, Chile, Colombia, Ecuador, Mexico, Paraguay, Peru, Uruguay, and Venezuela.

⁶ Political science and government, political science and international relations, etc.

⁷ Interview with professor in public policy at FLACSO, 21 September 2021.

⁸ Interview with professor in public policy at FLACSO, 21 September 2021.

Table 30.1 *Textbooks used in teaching public policies in Latin America*

Author	Publication	Year
Yves Mény and Jean-Claude Thoenig	<i>Las políticas públicas</i>	1992
Luis Aguilar Villanueva	<i>Antología de política pública</i> (Tomo I–IV)	1992
Luis Aguilar Villanueva	<i>Problemas públicos y agenda de gobierno</i>	1993
André-Noël Roth Deubel	<i>Políticas públicas: formulación, implementación y evaluación</i>	2002
Joan Subirats, Peter Knoepfel, Corinne Larrue and Frederic Varonne	<i>Análisis y gestión de políticas públicas</i>	2008
Guillaume Fontaine	<i>El análisis de políticas públicas: conceptos, teorías y métodos</i>	2015
José Luis Méndez	<i>Análisis de políticas públicas: teoría y casos</i>	2015

in studies related to the implementation of such reforms, focusing on the dimensions of policy implementation gaps and failures. Other important elements in teaching public policy in Ecuador are related to poverty programs, such as the Bono Solidario, a conditional cash transfer policy, as well as the relations between the indigenous movements and the government, in particular with the principle of ‘*sumak kawsay*’ (from the Quichua, which means ‘*buen vivir*’ in Spanish and ‘living well’, in English).

Finally, the seven nations that make up Central America are located between Mexico and Colombia and are bordered by the Atlantic and Pacific Oceans. Only Belize does not speak Spanish. Due to the dearth of regional research on this subject, examining the development of public policy education in the region is challenging. However, it is possible to offer some insights, starting with those from the field of political science, where similarities between the various nations in the region can be seen in the almost complete lack of programs, the small numbers of political scientists who belong to distinct disciplinary communities, the sparse production and upkeep of scientific knowledge, and the ongoing pursuit of disciplinary identity (Sánchez 2005; Artiga-Gonzalez 2005; Cáliz and Sierra 2005; Azpuru 2005). Political science is developing in Central America at a slower rate than it is in the other parts of the American continent. Second, although much of the regional research does not include Central America, it is also possible to draw some conclusions from research that examines the state of public affairs education in Latin America. Sanabria-Pulido, Rubaii, and Purón (2016) found five master’s programs in Guatemala and one each in Costa Rica and Panama. By ranking 19th in the QS LA University Ranking 2020 and offering a doctorate in government and public policy as well as a master’s degree in administration with a focus on public management, Munoz-del-Campo (2021) demonstrates that Costa Rica is the regional leader in Central America. With this overview in mind, the next section presents three case studies about how we teach public policies respectively in Brazil, Chile, and Mexico.

CASE STUDIES: HOW DO WE TEACH PUBLIC POLICY IN BRAZIL, CHILE, AND MEXICO?

Brazil⁹

Brazil is the biggest country in South America. It is a Portuguese speaking country, with very diverse geography and a population of 214 million inhabitants. The country is marked by high levels of social inequalities and heterogeneous processes of urbanization. It is a federalist presidential republic, which means that the election of the President – the head of the government and the state – who has a four-year mandate, is made directly by citizens and the subnational states have political autonomy. The democratic Constitution of Brazil was promulgated in 1988, bringing with it important new instruments for public policymaking. In order to address poverty, hunger, and social inequality, various policy innovations were progressively developed in Brazil, such as conditional cash transfers, family farming subsidies, school feeding programs, among others. Besides that, specific policies are also a distinctive characteristic of the Brazilian policymaking system and history, such as the Family Allowance Program (Programa Bolsa Família), Universal Health System (Sistema Único de Saúde), Public Policy Councils and Conferences (Conselhos e Conferências de Políticas Públicas), and Participatory Budgeting (*Orçamento Participativo*), as well as policies related to gender, race, and indigenous people.

Public policy teaching in Brazil has a long history, which can be traced back at least to the government of Getúlio Vargas (Farah 2016), who implemented in 1938 the Administrative Department of Public Service (Departamento Administrativo do Serviço Público – DASP) and the pre-history of public administration teaching can be traced even further, to the Empire in the 19th century, according to Coelho and Nicolini (2013). Public policy training was first dedicated to civil servants and, in the last few decades, has also become an area of graduate and undergraduate study. Since the 2000s there has been a vertiginous expansion of public policy courses in Brazil, especially at undergraduate level, as will be detailed later in the chapter. These are only a few different elements that are important to reflect on in order to distinguish the Brazilian context from other countries in Latin America. Such specificities have an impact on the topics that are taught by professors, such as agenda-setting, implementation styles, bureaucracy, decision-making, power relations, institutionalism, civil society, and state relations (for a detailed account, see Menicucci 2018). The aforementioned elements are crucial on the specific policies presented to students, along with their learning process about public policies. We now turn to questions regarding the institutions, authors, and content for teaching public policies in Brazil.

Where is public policy taught in Brazil?

The field of public policy studies in Brazil is multidisciplinary (Marques and Faria 2013). It was first located in faculties such as political science, sociology, and public administration (Marques and Souza 2016).¹⁰ Among the pioneering academic institutions teaching public

⁹ The authors thanks Renata Bichir for her suggestions for this case study.

¹⁰ It's worth noting that despite the fact that teaching public policies can be found in different disciplines, there is a strict area of public administration.

policies is the Fundação Getúlio Vargas (FGV), where training has been offered to civil servants since the 1930s (Farah 2016: 995). The FGV is currently one of the main institutions for research and teaching in public administration and public policies in Brazil. Other academic institutions with a consolidated tradition in teaching public policies include the Universities of São Paulo and Brasília, which created undergraduate courses in public policy management in 2005 and 2009 respectively. The National School of Public Administration (ENAP), which is a public institution inspired by the French *École Nationale d'Administration*, provides master's and PhD programs and professional training, especially to civil servants. Even if a movement of policy analysis predates this, the institutionalization of the field of policy studies was led by political scientists in the 1980s and 1990s (Farah 2016: 971). Moreover, since 1982 and 1998 respectively, two main associations – the National Association of Graduate Studies and Research in Social Sciences (ANPOCS) and the Brazilian Political Science Association (ABCP) – have included dedicated public policy thematic groups, (Marques and Souza 2016). The discussions held in these networks have contributed to the organization of the field, spurring publications, including edited volumes and special issues, on topics such as public policies in Brazil, multidisciplinary in public policies, and federalism (some of these publications are mentioned in Table 30.2).

A turning point in this process was the implementation, during the administration of President Luiz Inácio Lula da Silva in 2007, of the Program to Support Restructuring and Expansion Plans of Federal Universities (Programa de Apoio a Planos de Reestruturação e Expansão das Universidades Federais – REUNI) and similar programs at the subnational level, which exponentially increased the number of courses in Brazilian universities (Pires et al. 2014: 120). In 2013, there were more than 200 undergraduate courses related to public policies in Brazil, taken by a cohort of approximately 49,000 students (Pires et al. 2014: 122). This field is now rapidly progressing and consolidating, though a number of our survey respondents warn that the area remains somewhat fragmented and disorganized. However, evidence of gradual consolidation includes the rise of the National Association for Teaching and Research of the Field of Publics (Associação Nacional de Ensino e Pesquisa do Campo de Públicas – ANEPCP). This is a special association insofar as it defines the '*campo de públicas*' (field of publics) as those involved with courses such as public administration, public management, public policy, public policy management and social management (among other pedagogically analogous courses).¹¹ According to our survey, public policies are taught from all these different areas, with the influence of sociology also visible in some faculties (e.g., University of Rio Grande do Sul in Porto Alegre), and we should also add sectoral courses, such as those in public health, social service, and education. We now turn to exploring the main authors used in teaching public policy in Brazil.

Who are the main authors used in Brazilian policy studies' courses?

Public policies are still predominantly taught using the Anglo-Saxon mainstream authors and approaches, such as multiple streams analysis, the advocacy coalition framework, punctuated equilibrium theory, and the policy cycle. For instance, our survey respondents frequently resorted to using classic authors such as B. Guy Peters, Michael Hill, Paul Sabatier, Charles Lindblom, John Kingdon, Michael Lipsky, Theodor Lowi, Aaron Wildavsky, Thomas Dye,

¹¹ <https://www.anepcp.org.br/acp/conteudo/artigo/o-que-e-rcampo-de-publicasrr/665?> (consulted: 31 August 2021).

Paul Pierson, among others. More contemporary references were also present in the responses, such as Michael Howlett, Giliberto Capano, Frank Fischer, and Laura Chaqués-Bonafont. Neo-institutionalists working with public policy were also raised in the survey, such as Ellen Immergut and Kathleen Thelen. Engagement with this literature may be explained by the importance of historical institutionalism in political science teaching about, among other topics, state reforms in Brazil.¹² Finally, French scholars working on the *Political sociology of the policy process* (*Sociologia política da ação pública*), such as Philippe Zittoun, Pierre Lascombes and Patrick Le Galès (see Porto de Oliveira and Hassenteufel 2021) were also highlighted in survey responses.

Concerning Latin American scholars, a few of our respondents informed us that they do not use authors from the region, and some even considered it a deficit in their teaching. However, the majority of our respondents informed us that they use authors from the region, including: André-Noël Roth Deubel, Armando Barrientos, Guillermo O'Donnell, Oscar Oszlak, Tulia Falleti, Núria Cunill-Grau, and Sonia M. Ospina. In terms of prevalence of foreign influences on policy programs, public policy teaching in Brazil features 32% of assimilation, one of the lowest levels in the region (Bentancur, Bidegain, and Martínez 2021).

Responses were more consistent concerning Brazilian authors used in public policy teaching, with a small number of references shared by the majority of respondents. The most cited authors were Eduardo Marques, a professor from the University of São Paulo, who has been working for a long time with urban policies, and Marta Arretche, who is also from the University of São Paulo and has made a significant contribution on the subjects of public policies and federalism in Brazil. They are also among the main figures of the Center for Metropolitan Studies, a research institution with funding from the São Paulo Research Foundation (FAPESP), that has been doing cutting-edge research and training students in public policy. Other highly mentioned professors are:¹³ Gabriela Lotta, from the Fundação Getúlio Vargas, who is one of the main scholars working with street-level bureaucracy and policy implementation in Brazil; Telma Menicucci, who has been working with social policy for a long time and has had important involvement with the public policy area both at ANPOCS and ABCP; and Ana Cláudia Capella, a leading scholar in the area of agenda-setting. Celina Souza, from the Federal University of Bahia, a senior scholar who produced research in different topics of public policy studies (such as participatory democracy, federalism, distributive policy, among others), was also mentioned in our survey. Additionally, other authors working in specific domains were mentioned, such as Rosana Boullosa from the University of Brasília, who has been a leading scholar on critical studies in public policies in Brazil with an important involvement in ANEPCP; and Roberto Pires from the Institute for Applied Economic Research (IPEA), who has published on bureaucracy, policy implementation, and social participation, and often uses the political sociology of public action in his work.¹⁴ Besides the authors mentioned, there are a few handbooks that are commonly used in the courses on

¹² Interview, with public policy professor from the University of São Paulo.

¹³ There are also important scholars that were not mentioned by our respondents or had a low level of citations that were not included in this list. This is the case, for example, for: Sonia Draibe, Aldaiza Sposati, Francisco Gaetani, Leonardo Secchi, Sonia Fleury, among others.

¹⁴ Other authors important for teaching public policies in Brazil are: Soraya Vargas Côrtes, Sonia Draibe, Vilmar Faria, Francisco Gaetani, Marta Farah, Paulo Calmon, among others.

public policy in Brazil, which are presented in the table below. In the next section, the issue of language is tackled.

Table 30.2 Textbooks used in teaching public policies in Brazil

Author	Publication	Year
Gilberto Hochman, Marta Arretche, and Eduardo Marques	<i>Políticas públicas no Brasil</i>	2007
Marta Arretche	<i>Democracia, federalismo e centralização no Brasil</i>	2012
Gilberto Hochman and Carlos Aurélio Pimenta de Faria	<i>Federalismo e políticas públicas no Brasil</i>	2013
Eduardo Marques and Carlos Aurélio Pimenta de Faria	<i>A política pública como campo multidisciplinar</i>	2013
Telma Maria Gonçalves Menicucci and José Geraldo Leandro Gontijo	<i>Gestão e políticas públicas no cenário contemporâneo: tendências nacionais e internacionais</i>	2016
Leonardo Secchi	<i>Análise de políticas públicas: diagnóstico de problemas, recomendação de soluções</i>	2016
Gabriela Lotta	<i>Teorias e análises sobre implementação de políticas públicas no Brasil</i>	2019
Osmany Porto de Oliveira and Patrick Hassenteufel	<i>Sociologia política da ação pública</i>	2021

Are there translations of classic texts in the policy sciences available for teaching?

Language is often a barrier to students of public policy in Brazil, as well as elsewhere in the world. According to our survey, texts in English are harder to use for undergraduate teaching because of the language skills of students at that level, while the situation is slightly better for master's and PhD students. In the past years, important efforts have been made by the ENAP to translate classic public policy studies. Such translations include *The public policy primer: managing the policy process* by Xun Wu, M. Ramesh, Michael Howlett, and Scott Fritzen (translated in 2014) and *Street level bureaucracy: dilemmas of the individuals in public services* by Michael Lipsky (translated in 2019). More recently, Osmany Porto de Oliveira and Patrick Hassenteufel edited a 21-chapter volume, bringing together the most important streams of research from the French scholarship in public policies, which was published and translated by ENAP with the title *Political sociology of public action (Sociologia política da ação pública)*. These texts have been very important for making the international debate more accessible to graduate and undergraduate students.

What are the main topics specific to teaching public policy in Brazil?

Topics and public policies that are specific to Brazil are widely used for training students. These include federalism, decentralization, social inequalities, universal basic services, affirmative action, participatory institutions, and policy diffusion. Particular attention is paid, firstly, to the universal systems for health (Sistema Unico de Saúde – SUS) and social assistance (Sistema Unico de Assistência Social – SUAS), which are complex public policy arrangements spanning three levels of the government. Secondly, conditional cash transfers, which emerged out of a municipal policy innovation movement initiated in the 1980s in the context of democratization, decentralization, and public management modernization (Farah 2008: 109), are also a central topic for teaching public policies in Brazil. The country has

not only been a pioneer in designing these programs, but also implemented one of the largest experiments in the world and became a global icon for conditional cash transfer policies, receiving hundreds of delegations of policy experts from all over the globe (Porto de Oliveira 2020). Starting in the mid-1990s, these experiments were first implemented at the municipal level. Cash transfers then shifted to the national level, with *Bolsa Escola* (School Allowance) implemented during the center-right wing government of Fernando Henrique Cardoso (Brazilian Social Democracy Party – PSDB), and *Bolsa Família* (Family Allowance) implemented during the leftist government of Luiz Inácio Lula da Silva (Workers’ Party – PT). The Family Allowance program is a policy designed to support families in poverty and extreme poverty. Through the program, the government offers income transfers, which are conditional on health and education criteria.

Thirdly, another recurring empirical theme in Brazilian public policy teaching is participatory democracy. The establishment of different constitutionally mandatory spaces designed to include the participation of civil society in specific sectors such as health, education, social assistance, and other national and subnational councils and commissions is a salient element of Brazilian political and public policy history. The National Council of Food and Nutrition Security (CONSEA) was an institution designed to directly advise the presidency of the republic, as well as a space for monitoring, designing, and evaluating public policies (Maluf and Santarelli 2015). Moreover, the innovation of ‘participatory budgeting’ in Porto Alegre in the 1980s captured international attention and was diffused throughout the country (Wampler 2008) and across the world (Porto de Oliveira 2017).¹⁵ Fourth, gender, race, and ethnicity policies were the object of different programs of the government, as, for example the inclusion of quotas in public universities (Feres Júnior et al. 2018). Finally, since democratization, Brazil has increased its participation on the global stage, via paradiplomatic and diplomatic actions, leading to various actions of centralized and decentralized international cooperation, involving the transfer of policy instruments and knowledge to other countries, in particular via South-South relations (Pomeroy, Suyama, and Waisbich 2019).

Chile

Chile is the cradle of the neo-liberal paradigm in Latin America, and the last country in the region to free itself from dictatorship, democratizing in 1990 when the world was already on a fast track toward globalization. Since then, governments have faced challenges linked to the political, social, and economic legacy of dictatorship and the consolidation of a democratic system in crisis at the regional and global level.

The development of public policy teaching – closely related to political science – was associated to that historical process and, therefore, was truncated for several reasons. Firstly, teaching that was inconvenient to the military regime (1973–1990) was interrupted during this period. Secondly, universities were policed and purged (Errázuriz 2017), and a process of ‘double exile’ was evident in the removal of scholars who were banned, in addition to the departure of those who could not remain in the country (Altman 2005). For the field of political science, this resulted in the non-existence of undergraduate programs until the 2000s

¹⁵ The CONSEA was extinguished during the Bolsonaro government, meanwhile participatory budgeting is a rare experience in contemporary Brazil.

(Altman 2005). Only years later, from 2015, did the first doctoral programs in the discipline emerge, as a result of the gradual professionalization in the area (Heiss 2015).

Along with this, the political and social processes undertaken from the *coup d'état* in 1973 and the transition to democracy in 1990 impacted the characteristics of the state and the profile of decision-makers. The neo-liberal paradigm restructured the state and profoundly transformed the profile of 'state leaders' in two key ways. Firstly, there was the conversion of public leaders from men of law educated in the European faculties to economists trained on the large campuses of the United States (Dezalay and Garth, 2002: 20). The 'Chicago Boys' who occupied positions of power during the dictatorship in Chile were the representation of this change. Secondly, as of the 1990s, during the transition to democracy, professionals who lived in exile were trained in foreign universities and developed their experience in international organizations. The technocrats of the Concertación political coalition, originally founded to challenge the military dictatorship (Silva 2010), represented this second transformation; they were economists respectful of human rights who worked within the networks and norms of international exchanges. These specificities, in terms of university structure and the characteristics of the state, provide the context within which teaching of public policies has developed and evolved in Chile.

Where is public policy taught in Chile?

In Chile, public policy teaching is mainly undertaken by public and private higher education institutions¹⁶ at two levels. At undergraduate level, public policy is taught in the context of degrees in either public administration or political science. At postgraduate level, public policy can feature in masters' programs oriented towards subjects like government, democracy, social policy, and governance.

In 2011, a total of 33 undergraduate programs featuring public policy courses in their curricula were identified across 5 public and 17 private universities. Most of these were programs in political science (11), sociology (8), public administration (7), and social work (5), located mainly in faculties of social sciences (or legal and social sciences), with only three in faculties of economics¹⁷ (Dávila and Soto Soutullo 2011, and database¹⁸). The number of programs has

¹⁶ The Chilean educational system was transformed during the dictatorship, adopting the neo-liberal postulates that led to a deregulated education market in the 1990s, which, according to Altman (2005), led to a flourishing of programs in the region. In Chile, there are 61 private universities (31 in the capital), while there are only 18 public universities. Currently, decisions on the functioning of the educational system and teaching are based on the principle of university autonomy. Thus, academic units within universities are in charge of setting their own curriculum. Nevertheless, while curricula are not homogeneous across all universities, they must respond to the axes defined by the country's accreditation agency, the National Accreditation Commission (CNA, by its Spanish acronym) created in 1999. The CNA is one of the institutions that make up the National Quality Assurance System (Law 20129, 2006) together with the Ministry of Education, through the Undersecretary of Higher Education, the National Council of Education, and the Superintendency of Higher Education. This Agency regulates both undergraduate and graduate programs but does not focus on the training in specific areas within them, such as public policy. It is important to note that when the educational system was regulated and the CNA was created in 1999, several private universities that failed to reach these quality parameters began to disappear.

¹⁷ When this was the case, it was from faculties of administration and economics or social, legal, and economic sciences.

¹⁸ The authors used an updated (to 2021) database with the same universities identified in Dávila and Soto Soutullo (2011); no more universities were added. Since the list presented by Dávila and Soto Soutullo (2011), two universities closed down.

remained stable over the course of the last decade, with 37 undergraduate programs spread across 5 public and 16 private universities identified across a similar spread of degrees.

A similar stable pattern can be found with regard to postgraduate public policy teaching. In 2011, Dávila and Soto Soutullo (2011) recognized nine master's degree programs offered by two public universities (Universities of Chile and Santiago) and five private universities (Universities Católica del Maule, del Desarrollo, Alberto Hurtado, Adolfo Ibáñez, and the Pontificia Universidad Católica de Chile). This remains the case, with the exception of there being five rather than six degree programs offered by private universities. In contrast to undergraduate provision, postgraduate programs are offered mostly by faculties of economics, engineering, or government, with only two from the area of social sciences. Moreover, the graduate programs all share a goal of training and professionalizing future 'practitioners'.

This data indicates that the teaching of public policy at undergraduate level is essentially delivered through the lens of social sciences. This shifts as we move on to graduate studies where economic approaches are predominant (Dávila and Soto Soutullo 2011: 24). This has an implication for the manner in which professionals are trained and specialized. While public policy is a component of different programs, public administration remains the foremost specialized program in Chile through which future policymakers, public managers, and policy analysts are trained at undergraduate level.¹⁹ Nevertheless, the above-mentioned programs do contribute, at both undergraduate and particularly at master's level, to teaching public policy to future public actors.

In terms of specific training for civil servants currently in office, there are three others training spaces within institutions of the political-administrative apparatus. The first is constituted by training carried out by the public institutions themselves, with the involvement of universities commissioned through public tenders. Secondly, a new civil service 'Campus' was created in 2019,²⁰ which is intended to be 'the first cross-platform training for public servants, which allows them to access programs of training of skills, in a simple and agile way, to deliver better services to citizens.' Finally, the third option is the Center for Studies of the State Administration belonging to the Office of the Comptroller General of the Republic.

How are curricula composed in Chile? And who teaches public policy?

The content of public policy teaching in Chile is as plural as the programs in which the subject is taught, often being tailored to the broader programs within which it is nested. The teaching is mainly delivered by three types of actors: practitioners working in the private and/or public sectors, policy practitioners who also hold part-time positions in universities, and academic researchers. These different roles have some consequences for the content taught.

Those teachers with a practice background are mainly economists and their careers are strongly associated with both national and international organizations upon returning from exile. During the period of transition to democracy these actors were integrated into the state, occupying positions at different levels of government. Others belong to the 'Chicago Boys' wave (from the dictatorship period) and are also economists. Their teaching is anchored in

¹⁹ Public administrator is defined as 'a professional, trained with the knowledge and methodologies of the sciences and technologies of public service, especially those related to the areas of administration, political sciences, law, economics, finance, sociology, psychology, and other related disciplines' (CNA, n.d.).

²⁰ See, for example: <https://campus.serviciocivil.cl/>; <https://www.ceacgr.cl/CEA/#>.

the rational paradigm, with a tradition of reference to the policy cycle and utilizing the guidelines and data provided by international institutions such as the World Bank, Inter-American Development Bank, and OECD.

Those with an academic background tend to specialize in political science, sociology, and public administration. Their teaching was originally anchored in a policy analysis tradition with a gradual integration of insights from policy process theories, even if the lack of translations significantly limits this cross-fertilization. Our survey indicates that the most frequently taught theoretical frameworks or models focus mainly on the public policy cycle, multiple streams, and the advocacy coalition framework. Punctuated equilibrium, policy network, and cognitive approaches are mentioned to a lesser extent. There is also evidence of a policy evaluation orientation, underpinned by the strong tradition of evaluative knowledge production by international organizations or the Budget Office (DIPRES).²¹

Finally, it is important to point out that Chile stands out as the only Latin American country where all those who taught public policy studied in another country (Bentancur, Bidegain, and Martínez: 20). Indeed, these academic researchers and practitioners have been trained, as we've pointed out before, in North American and European universities. We therefore turn to the implications of this intellectual heritage in relation to curricular content in the next section.

Who are the main international, Latin American, and national authors listed in policy studies courses?

As in the Brazilian case, public policy in Chile is still predominantly taught using mainstream Anglo-Saxon authors and approaches. In terms of the Bentancur, Bidegain, and Martínez (2021) indexes, Chile appears as the country with the highest assimilation index (over 70%) and the lowest self-referencing rate (6%). The country also has the highest percentage of English texts (46%) compared to Mexico and Argentina (11% and 8% respectively) (Bentancur, Bidegain, and Martínez: 28). Nevertheless, contributions by Oscar Oszlak, Guillermo O'Donnell, the anthologies of Luis Aguilar-Villanueva, and the reflections of Cabrero Mendoza²² are valued by policy experts and often reflected in Chilean public policy courses (Díaz in Plissock 2014). Finally, we also find evidence of the prevalence of works that inform policy curricula in other parts of the region (cf. Table 30.1), including that of André-Noël Roth Deubel and Guillaume Fontaine, and others authors from Spain, such as Joan Subirats. Recently, a new book published in Mexico, *Enfoques teóricos de políticas públicas: desarrollos contemporáneos para América Latina* (*Theoretical approaches to public policies: contemporary developments for Latin America*) (Del Castillo Alemán and Dussauge-Laguna 2020), which proposes a debate about the classic approaches to policy analysis from the perspective of Latin American researchers, has also begun to feature in curriculum design.

²¹ Centralized evaluation of public policies linked to the budget discussion is carried out by DIPRES. Evaluations are also carried out by agencies and institutions, which are tendered to third parties, but are not centralized and available to DIPRES citizens.

²² Enrique Cabrero Mendoza is a Mexican academic. He has a PhD in Management Sciences from the HEC School in France. He is professor-researcher at Centro de Investigación y Docencia Económicas (CIDE).

Mexico

Mexico, officially the United Mexican States, is in what would be considered the lower bounds of North America. Mexico officially started being considered a democracy in the 2000s with the election of Vicente Fox Quesada and his defeat of long-standing main government party, the Partido Revolucionario Institucional (PRI). Though not a dictatorship, Mexico retains characteristics of a single party, presidentialist, even autocratic country (Edmonds-Poli and Shirk 2009). Teaching public policy became a relevant educational activity towards the end of the 1990s, driven by an increasing interest, initially, in how public administration, and later public policy and policy analysis, scholarship could potentially help new governments improve the policymaking process. This increased attention over the last two decades has served to constitute a separate disciplinary identity for public policy, situating it alongside rather than subsuming it within the disciplines of political science and public administration.

Where is public policy taught in Mexico?

Over the course of the years, the number of institutions and programs where public policy is taught have increased. Historically, there have been five major institutions that have focused on teaching policy sciences as we know them: El Colegio de Mexico, Centro de Investigación y Docencia Económicas (CIDE), Universidad Nacional Autónoma de Mexico (UNAM), Instituto Tecnológico Autónomo de Mexico (ITAM), and Facultad Latinoamericana de Ciencias Sociales (FLACSO) Mexico. There have been also a number of efforts to innovate in developing public policy programs in other universities both in Mexico City (such as Universidad Autónoma Metropolitana) and outside, within subnational public institutions such as the Universidad de Guanajuato.

It is important to note that in Mexico, public policy as a field is relatively young. Historically, the field began to gain recognition in the early 1990s. Previous to that, Mexico had a tradition of teaching public administration, and focusing more on bureaucracies, organizational processes, and the production of public services.²³ This approach centered the study of administrative law as the core discipline to understand how public administration and public policies were developed. Most of the professors who taught public administration were in fact lawyers by training who then moved on to the public sector and, from there, taught courses on the side.²⁴

From our interviews, it became clear that towards the 1990s, demand for well-trained public administrators made it very hard to continue working and teaching just from the administrative law side of the field and required faculty to think about ways to incorporate various elements of public administration in curricula. A number of courses started to emerge in Mexico between 1980 and 1990 that incorporated elements from US public policy scholarship, particularly the work of deLeon and deLeon on the policy cycle (e.g., deLeon and deLeon 2002).²⁵

Interestingly, the teaching of public policy did not start in the ‘major four’ institutions (Colegio de Mexico, FLACSO Mexico, ITAM, and CIDE), but instead emerged in the two major universities in Mexico City, which are also the biggest universities in the country: the previously mentioned UNAM and Universidad Autónoma Metropolitana (UAM). Our interviews identified two scholars as the core faculty who started teaching public policy-related

²³ Interviews A and B, 17 August and 31 August 2021.

²⁴ Interview A, 17 August 2021.

²⁵ Interview B, 31 August 2021.

courses: Myriam Cardozo Brum from UAM, who taught public policy evaluation, and Luis Aguilar Villanueva, formerly from UNAM, currently at Universidad de Guadalajara in the central state of Jalisco. In particular, Aguilar Villanueva is credited with introducing Mexico to the field of public policy through his translation and compilation of a number of key works on agenda-setting, problem definition, implementation, and evaluation.²⁶

It is important to note that specific programs in public policy both at the undergraduate and graduate level are of relatively recent creation.²⁷ CIDE and ITESM (Instituto Tecnológico de Estudios Superiores de Monterrey) are the only two institutions in Mexico that have a specific doctorate programs in public policy, though their orientations are quite substantively different. Masters' programs have emerged and proliferated over the past 20 years, particularly as interest in governmental affairs has increased. The first master's program focused on public policy was created by ITAM, a private university in Mexico City whose faculty have rigorous training in economics, econometrics, and political science. Frequently, ITAM faculty are either Mexicans with PhDs in foreign countries or scholars from other countries, particularly the US but also Canada and Europe. This type of training reflects on the type of courses and curricula that are taught, as much of the curricula is in the English language and uses texts published by scholars from the policy science fields. CIDE is in a similar situation, with faculty trained in foreign countries (usually either Mexican or Latin American scholars, but increasingly these institutions have also been able to recruit Canadians, US citizens and European scholars).

Over the course of the 1980s, the focus in what was taught regarding public policy was always on social policies. This phenomenon was probably a response to the particular circumstances in Mexico's socio-political system: the Mexican peso was in crisis and got extremely devaluated, increasingly citizens started to question the PRI's single-party ruling approach, and social unrest led to an increase in focus on poverty mitigation measures. Teaching on public policies reflected this interest.²⁸ The 1990s then saw substantial growth in the number of public policy courses taught, primarily featuring a very Anglo-Saxon approach based on the policy cycle, sometimes focusing on one particular stage of the cycle (e.g., agenda-setting, implementation, instrument design), and increasingly reflecting interest in sectoral policies.²⁹ Finally, during the 2000s, programs transitioned to teaching public policy using the deLeon policy cycle framework. As we discuss further in the chapter, undergraduate curricula in public policy are frequently reflected as one or two courses, except for in the case of CIDE, which has created the first-ever Bachelor of Public Policies. This program is unique in that it is an undergraduate degree that integrates economic tools with politics, public administration, and public policy scholarship.³⁰

Who are the main international, Latin American, and national authors listed in policy studies courses?

Historically, the key author for Mexican public policy was Aguilar Villanueva, not only because of his compilations of translations of classics but also because he was the first scholar

²⁶ Short bio of Luis F. Aguilar Villanueva is available here (in Spanish): <https://www.politicas.unam.mx/orientacionacademica/wp-content/uploads/2014/08/luisf.aguilarvillanueva.pdf>.

²⁷ All interviewees agree on this point.

²⁸ Interviews C, 17 August 2021, B, 31 August 2021, and E, 17 August 2021.

²⁹ Interviews D, 17 August 2021, E, 17 August 2021, and F, 3 September 2021.

³⁰ Interviews G, 17 August 2021, and C, 19 August 2021.

who explicitly spoke about public policy and policy studies. As one interviewee noted, ‘policy sciences’ and ‘policy studies’ were previously not considered distinct fields of study because of Mexico’s historical focus on teaching public administration and administrative law.³¹

Myriam Cardozo Brum, José Luis Méndez Martínez, and Mauricio Merino Huerta hold the distinction for most popular authors in public policy in Mexico, though several other authors have been considered as key authors in the field more recently. Internationally, the classics (Hood, Peters, Vedung) are now also taught alongside well-established (Howlett, Geva-May) and younger scholars (Béland, Engeli, Rothmayr Allison, etc.) A noticeable trend is that the field is substantially diverse with multiple women publishing in English and in Spanish and considered leaders in the field.

Are there translations of the classics of public policy studies available for teaching?

One of the key barriers that all interviewees noted to the growth of public policy, policy sciences, and policy studies as a field of study was language. Frequently, scholars in Mexico do not engage with the international literature nor do they publish in English. This barrier is also present with students, although international internships and exchanges with foreign universities ameliorate this situation. Institutions where public policy is taught in earnest will frequently ask their faculty to participate in global conversations, and publish and give talks in English.

Access to classic works in policy studies in Spanish is relatively good, but more recent works have not yet been translated. Aguilar Villanueva’s anthologies are usually the works that most faculty and students access for classics in policy sciences. He compiled Spanish-language translations of classical works, such as Downs’ 1971 article on the attention cycle and Kingdon’s 1990 article on agenda-setting, which are used quite frequently. Nevertheless, these are classics and more recent scholarship should probably be translated to increase accessibility.

Recently, a few scholars have begun to either produce work in Spanish or have it translated into Spanish. For example, Dussauge-Laguna and Del Castillo Alemán recently compiled several chapters on different public policy frameworks (policy networks, advocacy coalitions, behavioral approaches to public policy) in Spanish, published by FLACSO Mexico. Along the same lines, Méndez Martínez and Dussauge-Laguna edited a volume in English (*Policy analysis in Mexico*) featuring authors who are all Mexican and focusing on various aspects of the policy analysis processes in different sectoral policies. This volume was recently published in Spanish (Del Castillo Alemán and Dussauge-Laguna 2020).

One key contribution in the early 2000s was a book published by CIDE where all chapters were authored by CIDE faculty (affiliated with their Public Administration Division at the time). This book was an attempt to avoid translations of English language works and instead focus on specific problems in Mexico.³² Del Castillo Alemán took a similar approach in her translation of the Wayne Parsons book, where she added a number of chapters by Mexican authors on issues of relevance to the Mexican public. This book was published by FLACSO Mexico.³³

³¹ Interview H, 27 August 2021.

³² Book available from FCE here: <https://www.fondodeculturaeconomica.com/Ficha/9786071661005/F>.

³³ Book available from FLACSO Mexico: <https://www.flacso.edu.mx/publicaciones/novedades/Politicapublicas>.

What are the main topics specific to Mexico that are taught in public policy courses?

Given the historical approach to policy studies' development in curricula across the board, much of the public policy teaching that is done in Mexico focuses on specific sectoral issues. For example, UAM-Xochimilco's 'Masters in Public Policy', now the oldest program of its type in Mexico, has a very strong focus on social policy. FLACSO Mexico is unique in that their graduate programs at the master's level feature different specializations: traditional theories of public policy are taught as core components, but students can then opt to take classes in a range of other policy-related areas such as gender, comparative public policy, and public affairs and government.

CIDE's historical tradition as a public management school, where many graduates end up working in the Mexican government, has led to a very strong focus on teaching public administration and public management. However, over the past five years, leaders of the graduate program have tried very hard to shift more emphasis and focus on to policy sciences and policy studies.

El Colegio de Mexico tends to have a more historical, soft (qualitative) approach to public policy teaching whereas CIDE tends to be more empirical, using quantitative and econometric techniques as part of their analytical toolkit. UAM and UNAM tend to be more focused on topics related to social policy, transparency, corruption, and accountability. However, over the past two decades, an increasing interest in security policy and drug policy has also led to multiple courses and graduate-level programs that, while public policy-oriented, also have a very strong focus on issues that are of national relevance to the country's current political and social turmoil.

What are the most common approaches used to teach public policies in Mexico?

There was consensus among the interviewees that most public policy teaching in the country was classical, based on the traditional use of the policy cycle as a framework to scaffold knowledge about different stages of the policymaking process, as well as an analytical lens through which to examine different sectoral policies. Curriculum design varies between undergraduate and postgraduate levels, with a clear emphasis on the policy cycle at the undergraduate level, but more innovative and recent approaches such as behavioral public policy being taught at the masters' and doctoral levels.

According to one interviewee, there are three pathways of development of curricula that can be clearly discerned: more theoretical (UNAM), more empirical (CIDE), and more balanced (FLACSO Mexico).³⁴ El Colegio de Mexico tends to teach public policies as tools of government, with a more public administration-oriented approach.³⁵ Finally, subnational-level universities such as Universidad de Guanajuato tend to follow Mexico-City-centric approaches, particularly teaching public policy on par with public administration.

CONCLUSION

This chapter offered a broad overview of how public policy is taught in Latin America. While not entirely comprehensive, given the scope of the study and limitations in resources, as well

³⁴ Interview F, 3 September 2021.

³⁵ Interviews D, 17 August 2021, and B, 31 August 2021.

as paucity of materials to evaluate and assess each individual Latin American country and its public policy teaching programs, we used several methods to triangulate and make our analysis as comprehensive as possible. The cases discussed in this chapter (Brazil, Chile, and Mexico) are widely considered as pioneering in the teaching of public policy scholarship. In this concluding section, we now summarize a few lessons we learned from analyzing how public policy is taught in each country.

In Brazil there has been a rising area of policy studies, although this is very diverse due to the expansion of the courses teaching the subject in the country. This has led to a broad community, expanding the field beyond classic public administration and political science courses. Teaching public policy in Brazil counts on a few translations of classic and contemporary approaches provided by the National School of Public Administration (ENAP). From the empirical perspective, teachers of public policies in Brazil need to grapple with the complex challenge of explaining political change and the far-right impact in public policymaking.

In Chile, the disciplinary autonomy of public policy and policy from the field of political science has not yet been configured, although there are relevant training programs, especially at postgraduate level.³⁶ Teaching is strongly influenced by the neo-liberal model as a legacy of the military dictatorship when exiles and the ‘Chicago boys’ returned from abroad, bringing with them new ideas and perspectives. Technocrats from the Concertación added a further emphasis on the importance of efficiency and effectiveness in the context of the policy cycle. This perspective competes with efforts to teach the policy process theories from the field of public policy analysis, which is gradually becoming taught by academics who studied their doctorate in foreign universities.

In Mexico, we still find a substantive number of teaching programs centered around bureaucracies and the training of public servants. As a result, much of the focus is still on making sure that those working in the public sector are well trained in public administration. Nevertheless, over the past 30 years, gradually increasing independence from the field of public administration has facilitated the creation of full programs on public policy, including undergraduate degrees. Growing recognition of the importance of policy sciences as a field of study in Mexico has mirrored increasing interest globally on the study of public policy.

Table 30.3 compares a couple of key lessons drawn from our comparative study.

We foresee important challenges in improving how public policy is taught and growing the number and quality of teaching programs in Latin America. First, we argue that syllabi and curricula could focus on increasing comparative public policy teaching of Latin American cases. Secondly, given that there is currently a dearth of theoretical underpinnings, analytical tools, concepts, and methods specific to Latin America, more work needs to be done to foster theorizing and methodological development. Third, we acknowledge the challenge that language barriers pose for an intermingling of national, regional, and international debates. Fourth, we are well aware of the complexity that the challenge of building students’ capacity poses. Given structural inequalities of language and funding barriers, there is a strong need for more work to increase funding for language training, and technical and theoretical teaching, not only for students but also for researchers and faculty. Fifth, we believe that there is

³⁶ The Chilean Association of Political Science (ACCP, <https://www.accp.cl/>) includes a Public Policy Group that holds workshops and seminars. Also, the Chilean Society of Public Policy (<https://www.sociedadpoliticaspublicas.cl/inicio/index.php>) is a scientific corporation that contributes to the improvement of public policies and holds an annual conference.

Table 30.3 *Key lessons from the comparative study*

	Brazil	Chile	Mexico
Key Lesson 1	Policy studies is an emerging area due to the expansion of courses, which brought diversity to the way professors teach public policies.	Public policy is taught via the social sciences, public administration, and political science, and although public policy has not yet been consolidated as a distinct subfield, this is likely to happen in coming years thanks to the increase in specialized PhDs returning to the country from abroad and integrating into national universities.	Public policy programming is still designed around the policy cycle, though recent innovations (behavioral public policy, for example) are also increasingly recognized and included in syllabi and curricula.
Key Lesson 2	Translations have been important to broadening the discussions in public policy studies, as well as to offer students different analytical tools to conduct research in public policy.	Training is focused on a functional, operational nature based on the need to formulate, implement, and evaluate policies; studies therefore remain focused more on the public policy cycle than on the analysis of public policies.	Political turmoil and a seismic shift in national political leadership (from traditionally neo-liberal presidents to a populist branding himself as a left-wing warrior) have shown the increasing relevance of public policy and the importance of studying it within graduate and undergraduate programs.

an inherent contradiction in how and where Latin American public policy-focused faculty publish. Different academic incentives that put more value on English-language publication deter scholars from publishing in their own languages. Concurrently, there is a dearth of English-language publications regarding public policymaking in Latin America that is also potentially the result of a lack of language and technical training. These contradictions limit the diffusion of publications about public policies in Latin America. Finally, we find that there is still substantive room for pedagogical development of methodological resources intended to help teaching and learning public policies.

This leads to the question: where should we go? Answering this question requires not only focusing on *what* to teach but also thinking about *how* to teach to achieve meaningful learning. First, we propose that a network of scholars in public policy is a desired element for sharing knowledge across the region, promoting the circulation of academics, students, and ideas, as well as increasing collaboration among Latin American experts.

Secondly, this study recognizes that access to translation represents a critical issue. The future translations of classic authors – with a digital version available, preferably free – could be very important to provide students with the foundations of public policy studies and to contribute to the democratization of knowledge. At the same time, translating Latin American authors would also be important for students from all over the world to have access to the knowledge produced in this region. This would be an important step to shaping a more diverse and representative field, moving beyond reliance on the classic publications from the global North towards fostering greater global diversity and the visibility of underrepresented authors and regions in the work we use to inform our teaching and research. This effort could include a combination of traditional work of domestic authors with insights from the public policy process (cf. Halpern, Lascoumes, and Le Galès 2014 for an example of how the French policy instrument approach integrates Foucault and Weber's work). Drawing inspiration from authors such as Paulo Freire, from Brazil, to understand the dynamics of exclusion and marginalization, or even policy mobilities, may also be fruitful (Clarke et al. 2015). Consequently,

we need more concepts and theory-building produced by Latin American scholars to service students, researchers, and professors teaching public policies. This would increase textbook options for students, but also contribute to the deployment of the public policy field through the study of the portability of theories that emerged outside of Latin America. Moreover, the discipline of public policy itself would be enriched by better integrating consideration of the region's contexts and specificities, including experience of authoritarianism; cultural and identity dimensions that involve the influence of native peoples in public policies; the existence of strong informal and non-state institutions (e.g., neighborhood associations and religious organizations, etc.) delivering community services; the environmental challenges linked to economic models based on production and extraction of commodities; the forceful intervention of politics and governments in the public policy process; and the rise of a diverse and demanding citizenship. Finally, the latest findings on the increase in Latin American public policy scholarship (Bentancur, Bidegain, and Martínez 2021) allow us to hope and expect that these suggestions could be achievable in the short and medium term.

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31. Teaching public policy in North America: Adapting to uncertain times¹

Rachel Laforest and Steven Rathgeb Smith

INTRODUCTION

In North America, as elsewhere in the world, public policy is taught in many ways and to many different types of students. In particular, the region boasts the longest standing and most well-known schools of public policy – specialized teaching institutions, many of them integrated within broader universities, dedicated to preparing students for policy-facing careers, particularly in public service. The nature of public policy programs taught in these schools in Canada and in the United States – the two largest nations in North America – share some important commonalities which have affected the direction of curriculum development. Because their economies are interconnected in many ways, the policy challenges both countries face are similar, including slower growth, increased women’s participation in the labor force, youth unemployment, stagnating middle-class incomes, aging population, and concerns over rising income inequality. From a policy perspective, schools of public policy in North America are preparing students for careers in public service to tackle analogous problems.

This chapter aims to reflect on the changing place and nature of public policy teaching in schools of public policy in the region considering the staggering pace of policy change and the continual emergence of new challenges. Indeed, with technological advances, new knowledge is continuously being created. Today, *how* you think can be more important than *what* you know. These developments are turning teaching on its head and forcing us to rethink the traditional lecture model, the teacher’s role and place in the classroom, and the experience of students. For those teaching public policy, an awareness that students need to be prepared to work in a new collaborative, dynamic, technologically driven, flexible 21st-century environment is necessary. Schools of public policy in North America also need to prepare students to work in an atmosphere of uncertainty where big data and artificial intelligence will significantly change workplace needs and how policy analysis is conducted. The challenge will be to prepare students for a future as yet unknown to us, but the contours of which we are beginning to glimpse. This will require that schools of public policy shift their focus away from content-based learning to a greater emphasis on developing skills and competencies that prepare students for times filled with uncertainty, complexity, and contested knowledge. Students need to develop the habits of mind to continue to deepen their knowledge and expand their work skills as they adapt to new circumstances.

In this chapter, we explore the benefits of integrating learner-centered design and challenge-based learning into policy curriculums to address the challenges of training policy analysts for the future. We examine how technological developments are reshaping the role

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of the policy analyst and how the public service is changing as a result. This allows us to then position curriculum redesign in light of the future needs of policy analysts. The analysis provided is based on our professional judgement from over 35 years teaching public policy in North America. Rachel Laforest was program director at the School of Policy Studies, Queen's University in Canada for seven years. In that capacity she oversaw the curriculum redesign of the MPA program and worked closely with the Centre for Teaching and Learning at Queen's University to develop a pedagogically innovative curriculum. Many of the views presented in this chapter are informed by the best practices in competency-based curriculum design that also informed Rachel's work. Steven Rathgeb Smith has over three decades of experience working in schools of public policy. Throughout his career, he has often occupied teaching-oriented administrative and managerial roles, including as the director of undergraduate studies at the Sanford School of Public Policy at Duke University and associate dean at the Evans School of Public Policy and Governance at the University of Washington. He continues to teach at the McCourt School of Public Policy at Georgetown University.

THE NORTH AMERICAN PUBLIC POLICY TEACHING LANDSCAPE

Today, an estimated 53 schools of public policy exist in the United States. Public policy programs and schools of public policy were initially established in the 1960s and 1970s to improve the training and a skill level of individuals who wanted careers in government. Traditionally, curricula emphasized policy analysis of government programs and strategic leadership in the public sector. Most graduates initially went to work in government. Some schools grew out of existing institutions dedicated to public affairs and public administration. The John F. Kennedy School of Government at Harvard University is a good example of this historical legacy, having grown out of the Harvard Graduate School of Public Administration founded in 1936 and renamed in 1966. This example highlights a broader trend where the field of public administration in the United States shifted its focus from an initial emphasis on management and economics to an emphasis on policy studies in the mid 1980s. Others institutions emerged later and had an explicit policy orientation from the beginning. The Institute of Policy Sciences (now the Sanford School of Public Policy) at Duke University, which was established in 1971, illustrates this trajectory.

The first school of public policy in Canada was founded in 1953 at Carleton University. Over the past two decades, Canada has seen a steep rise in the number of public policy programs and, along with them, exciting curriculum innovations in the field. In Canada, there currently exist 23 public policy programs delivered across 24 universities. Most policy programs are located in stand-alone schools of policy studies and offer only a master's degree, either MPP or MPA. In some universities, the policy programs are housed within departments of political science but these are more traditional theoretically oriented policy programs and offer the possibility of doing a PhD on a public policy topic. In this chapter, as with the United States, the focus will be specifically on schools of public policy which specifically prepare students for public service and of which there are currently 14 in Canada.

Not surprisingly in Canada, policy programs have been strongly influenced by developments in the United States. Indeed, since the United States has a longer tradition of public policy programs, the scope of American influence on curriculum development in Canada is

undeniable. Consequently, public policy programs have traditionally been structured around similar core content in North America. This general convergence is captured by Leslie Pal and Ian Clark (2016) who compared material being taught in 99 MPP and MPA programs in Australia, Canada, New Zealand, the United Kingdom, and the United States. Although they found quite a bit of diversity across program content, there are huge overlaps in content pillars around management, economics, institutions, and policy analysis. The policy programs they examined have generally focused on providing students with a methodological toolkit that can be used to analyze a variety of policy problems such as statistics, cost-benefit analysis, and modeling. Over time, many of these programs have also de-emphasized public management as they have moved to instead emphasize applied micro-economics, policy analysis, and, increasingly, program evaluation. Indeed, mastering a broad range of content has been the hallmark of schools of public policy in North America with analytical skills associated with economics and statistics being relatively consistent across programs.

Schools of public policy and public affairs in North America have also embraced accreditation. Schools in the United States have done so primarily by pursuing membership to the Network of Schools of Public Policy, Affairs, and Administration (NASPAA), which has been mandating a competency-based curriculum for MPA programs since 2009. This push towards measurement and quality assurance is driven by a concern from universities and governments to make higher education more relevant for employability purposes. Reflecting this shift, accreditation standards also require curricular attention to nonprofit management since many of the MPA program graduates now enter the nonprofit and NGO sector. In Canada, the move towards accreditation via the Canadian Association of Programs in Public Administration (CAPPA) has been more timid. Nevertheless, curriculum development in North America has remained relatively uniform. While that might have been a good approach for teaching policy in the past, we need to ask ourselves whether the toolkit remains relevant for preparing students to tackle future challenges.

COMPETENCY-BASED CURRICULUM DESIGN

In North America, the focus of public policy school curricula has been on teaching policy analysis, as opposed to the policy process. Policy analysis, in this tradition, involves a range of practically- and client-oriented activities consisting of developing an initial problem statement, assembling evidence, evaluating optional solutions and instruments, and often spanning to program design, implementation, monitoring, review, and assessment. Teaching public policy from a policy analytic perspective requires supporting students to acquire a range of knowledge and skills. Indeed, according to Geva-May and Maslove (2018, p.187), ‘Thinking like a “policy analyst” requires the acquisition of tacit knowledge common to the professional community, based on strategies and procedural tools influenced by the context of the problem or “decision frames”.’ Policy analysis is not a linear process but rather iterative, as the problem can get reformulated when our understanding of the context gets refined. In fact, policy problems are often complex, ill-structured, and have several workable solutions. Take poverty, for example; there is rarely one best solution. Instead, policy analysts work hard on pieces of the problem which can be messy in the absence of blueprints. Hence, it is important that the policy curriculum prepares students for how to think through a problem and sit with uncertainty.

With the goal of making students more marketable, and in recognition of the need to align learning outcomes with the different practical and analytical dimensions of policy analysis, many schools of policy studies in the United States and in Canada have moved towards a competency-based model (Ashe, 2012; Buckley and Reidy, 2014; Curtis, 2012). The prevalence of this approach is further reflected in the 2009 adoption by the NASPAA of new public policy accreditation standards that focused on competency-based approaches (Kapucu, 2017; Raffel, Maser, and Calarusse, 2012). A competency-based curriculum seeks to balance conceptual knowledge with skill acquisition (Tompkins, Laslovich, and Greene, 1996). Thus, schools are expected to evaluate skill and knowledge acquisition by students and track their postgraduate placements.

A competency-based approach to curriculum redesign allows us to shift the attention away from traditionally defined subject areas towards the complex outcomes of the learning process and integrate a focus on soft skills. It is also an adaptive and flexible framework which allows students to apply the knowledge, skills, and attitudes they learned to new situations when they arise in the real world. Finally, by taking a holistic overview of the curriculum, we can foster greater integration of learning across content. Costa and Kallick (2000, p.21) have emphasized that we should be ‘interested in not only how many answers students know, but also how students behave when they don’t know the answer. Students must learn what intelligent people do when they are confronted with problems, the resolutions to which are not immediately apparent.’ To do so will require that policy students focus on learning to *think* like a policy analyst about problems. Being a better thinker is the key to developing habits of mind that lead to lifelong learning.

Already, most public policy programs in the United States and in Canada use case studies, capstone projects, internships, and ‘co-op programs’ which refer to work integrated programs that combine academic studies with periods of paid work in the field with a view to enriching students’ learning experience. Such research- and practice-informed work provides an opportunity to apply conceptual material on public policy to actual problems or cases and pushes students more fully to understand the reality of public policy. Abstract notions, such as ‘policy implementation’, and the complex processes they involve, can be rendered more concrete through self-directed research or confrontation with case-based material. For instance, a case on public-private partnerships for a municipal park can prompt students to wrestle with key implementation issues such as leadership and program design. Good cases also facilitate the learning of the ‘soft-skills’ so essential to effective organizational management as well as imparting knowledge on central program delivery and implementation issues such as impact assessment and governance (see also Weaver in this volume).

Case teaching in public policy programs is especially useful, given the importance of an integrated approach to learning that combines problem-solving with decision-making in situations of uncertainty, complexity, and ambiguity. Cases are often structured around a decision requiring judgment by a public or nonprofit leader. The case then requires the student to analyze the case scenario, understand options available to the protagonist, and recommend a specific course of action. Case teaching also involves class discussion and interaction among students. Many teaching cases also lend themselves to role-playing whereupon students can ‘inhabit’ the various characters in the case. Thus, students can build skills in public speaking and contribute to collaborative learning. It can be an essential part of a competency-based curriculum with students taking more responsibility for their own learning. Finally, case teaching can also promote curricular integration. Historically, public policy programs tended to develop

with separate courses for policy analysis, political analysis, and public management. This separation, however, can leave students without the tools and knowledge to understand the interaction between policy and politics (see Mead, 2018). In this context, teaching cases can offer a rich opportunity for students to understand the politics involved in policy development and implementation.

Moreover, capstone projects can also be an excellent complement to case teaching since they can offer students an opportunity to delve deeply into a specific policy problem or organizational and program dilemma or challenge. Capstone projects also can be organized as team endeavors to foster the collaborative skills needed in the contemporary public service work environment.

Overall, curriculum design in North America has tended to focus on ad hoc practices in specific courses, particularly regarding the uptake of pedagogical tools like case studies and capstone projects. NASPAA standards and the increasingly competitive environment among schools has encouraged many of them to think seriously about their market niche, mission, target student audience, and their relationship to local communities, and for some schools, their connections to Washington, D.C. and the national government. Regarding the latter, many prominent schools of public policy have established actual teaching and internships programs in Washington, D.C. These satellite programs are envisioned as helping with student recruitment and job placement and providing an opportunity to connect the real world of public policy with the classroom.

Nonetheless, it is also important to think more holistically about how schools of public policy are preparing students in an integrated way along these curriculums. Tweaking course offerings will not be enough; innovation and creativity have to be brought to the fore of our teaching.

POLICY ANALYSIS IN TIMES OF UNCERTAINTY

The analytical toolkit required for policy analysis is changing in ways that are now unpredictable. The United States and Canada, like other OECD countries, are in the early stages of the ‘Fourth Industrial Revolution’, predicted to bring about massive social and economic change at an unprecedented pace (Schwab, 2017). The growing prominence of new disruptive technologies that characterizes this period has the potential to fundamentally reshape how we live, work, and interact with each other; yet we do not know the full extent of its impact. What we do know is that change is happening at an exponential rate. In some policy areas, decision-maker discretion is already being replaced by automation (Goodman and Flaxman, 2017). Artificial intelligence, for example, has enabled governments to analyze vast amounts of data to predict broader patterns within the economy and society in multiple policy areas (Goodman and Flaxman, 2017; Kleinberg et al., 2017). Canada adopted an automated decision system in 2019 to make administrative decisions to improve service delivery. These systems are seen to be neutral and efficient ways to improve policy, yet they are bound to change the role of the policy analyst. After all, these systems can search databases, identify relevant information, apply algorithms to various scenarios and make predictions about these options – all on their own.

At the very least, policy analysts will have to work alongside these artificial intelligence systems and will need to draw on new techniques like predictive analytics, clustering, big

data methods, and the analysis of networks. As a result, students need to be technically proficient to understand these algorithms, how they process data and the decision inputs – or at least be proficient enough to work on teams with data scientists. Ultimately, we do not quite know how governments will deploy and regulate these new technologies. Nevertheless, the implications these new processes have for what we believe policy analysts can and should do are significant. Teaching and training will therefore have to continue to adapt and respond to new challenges and opportunities in order to equip students to meet new demands and expectations. One strategy for supporting our learners to face an inherently unpredictable future could consist of adopting a ‘pedagogy of uncertainty’ (Shulman, 2005). Such a pedagogical orientation sees educators embrace the fact that both teachers and learners operate in complex, mutable, and therefore deeply uncertain contexts and, consequently, emphasizes the value of experience and judgment in organizing the ideas, values, and skills being taught.

The Fourth Industrial Revolution is also bringing the ubiquitous application of new robotics, biotechnologies, and even genomics across all aspects of life and work in ways that remain as yet unfathomable. Not only will it reshape the labor market – with some jobs declining and new ones emerging – but it also runs the risk of widespread labor dislocation, with an increase in involuntary job losses associated with declining sectors. These processes are likely to lead to new social and economic challenges for which traditional policy tools may not be well-suited. One example concerns automated vehicles, which are being tested in multiple cities around the world. These objects have the potential to reconfigure how we get around and the way we live. These reconfigurations are of direct significance to policy. Indeed, some are already predicting that with automation, digitalization, and the platform economy, we will have to rethink how we utilize and organize dense urban areas (Mukhtar-Landgren and Paulsson, 2021; Martin et al. 2019; Gill et al., 2015). Moreover, automated vehicles are expected to decrease private ownership and provide around-the-clock mobility. In turn, this will reduce the need for traditional parking structures, which could be transformed into green spaces or more housing. Yet, we cannot predict what the modern city will look like in the future, so how do we best prepare our students to develop municipal policies for reconfigured cities we cannot yet conceive? Ensuring that these new horizons are actively integrated into both the content and skills we teach will therefore be necessary to future-proofing policy school graduates.

Overall, the digital revolution favors certain skills and types of knowledge at the expense of others. The role of the policy analyst engaging with these new technologies will require different skills and abilities than in the past. From a field perspective, this strongly entails that students of policy need to be well-versed in new disciplines that extend beyond the politics and economics content that has traditionally structured policy school teaching provision, and instead are encouraged and supported to explore and gain competencies associated with a range of new digital and biological technologies. Yet, with the pace of change, it is also difficult to know exactly what students will need to know and what skills will be the most relevant for them in the workplace. Since schools of public policy in North America cannot anticipate this knowledge and skillset, their top priority should therefore be to prepare students for lifelong learning. Indeed, rather than graduating with a static set of substantive and skills-based knowledge, graduates will be better served by acquiring the competencies that will allow them to continue learning and adapting long after they leave the classroom. In particular, educators should prioritize developing habits of mind that lead students to be inquisitive, curious, analytical, and creative throughout their lifetime. Indeed, the capacity of policymakers to adapt to uncertainty and rapidly changing conditions will be a critical part

of successful policymaking in the face of uncertainty, and those entering the field should be equipped to face these challenges.

SOFT SKILLS AND THE SHIFTING CONTOURS OF CIVIL SERVICE

Over the past decades, a very important consideration for public policy education in the United States and in Canada has been the profound changes in the delivery of public services. Starting in the mid-1980s, the New Public Management (NPM) replaced bureaucracy as the dominant point of reference of public administration (Hood, 1991). The core tenet of NPM concerns the exchange of traditional bureaucratic ‘hierarchy’ for ‘the market’ as the central mode of coordination. Thus, the emphasis on NPM has been on private sector management and the increased use of markets, competition, and contracts for resource allocation and service delivery within public services (Osborne, 2010, pp.3–4). Consequently, this new model of public administration translates into introducing market-oriented policy instruments and management techniques into the delivery of public services. This includes greater government contracting with nonprofit and for-profit firms, public-private partnerships, vouchers for housing and education, and various tax credits and incentives. The adoption of different NPM strategies reflects government fiscal pressure and the increased focus on accountability and program impact. The logic behind resorting to contracting, for example, is to instill more consumer choice, efficiency, and effectiveness into the public services (Maier, Meyer, and Steinbereithner, 2016; Phillips and Smith, 2011; Drechsler and Randma-Liiv, 2015; Osborne, 2006).

As the various NPM strategies have been adopted in North America in the last 30 years, the structure of the public sector has changed profoundly. Nonprofit and for-profit organizations are now much more involved in public service delivery. Whereas previously an individual civil servant might remain in a public sector position for their entire career, many public service-minded individuals now might work in a nonprofit organization or a for-profit social enterprise at some point. Indeed, it is becoming more common for individuals to move between sectors during their professional career (Henderson and Chetkovich, 2014). In a study of Masters of Public Policy (MPP) alumni from the Harvard Kennedy School, Henderson and Chetkovich found that more than half of the respondents had worked in more than one sector over the course of their careers. Further, many graduates also now work in hybrid organizations and collaborations such as a local economic development project involving public, for-profit, and nonprofit organizations.

Consequently, it is important that our policy programs prepare students for multi-sectoral policy work and take an expansive view of policy. According to Davidson (2011, p.34), ‘[if] we continue to prepare students as if their career path were linear, definite, specialized and predictable. We are making them experts in obsolescence. We are doing a good job of training them for the 20th century.’ In contrast, she argues that 21st-century skills involve soft skills such as interpersonal skills, synthesizing skills, collaboration, and communication. The need for these skills reaches far beyond the confines of the public sector. Indeed, with the advent of more competition in public services, the leadership and staff of public, nonprofit, and for-profit service organizations also need a new skillset that places greater emphasis on relational approaches such as negotiation, strategic planning, networking, effective communication, and the assessment of program impact (Needham, Mangan, and Dickinson, 2014).

Indeed, the demonstration of program impact by service agencies is increasingly critical to obtaining grants and contracts, especially from public funding bodies and foundations.

While analytic skills are very important, the so-called ‘soft skills’ of teamwork, partnerships, and collaboration have become essential, especially given the shifting contours of the civil service in North America, involving greater contracting with nonprofit service organizations and various forms of public-private partnerships. Schools of public policy will need to find a way to better integrate a focus on soft skills in policy programs. Soft skills are notoriously difficult to teach (Cukier, Hodson, and Omar, 2015). They cannot be assessed and quantified as easily as hard skills. To improve the way students are supported to acquire these crucial competencies, schools of public policy in the United States and in Canada need to expand the definition of academic success. Introducing soft skills into the curriculum allows schools to expand the competency-based framework. Workplaces already place a premium on these skills, and are likely to only value them more over time. What is more, such competencies are highly transferable across sectors. Valuing and actively supporting acquisition of these skills is therefore key to ensuring we optimally prepare students to navigate multi-sectoral work as well as support graduate employment more generally with an understanding that not all students go on to work in the civil service. A focus on soft skills should not be considered to diminish the importance of content-based learning, which remains highly valuable. Rather, crafting programs and courses in which both are integrated and complemented may support our graduates to meet the new realities of public service.

The value of integrating a range of professional and methodological skills with substantive and process knowledge is evident in current policymaking contexts. Indeed, NPM-type strategies have also led to greater organizational complexity and fragmentation, given the growth of service agencies at the local level. Consequently, policymakers, scholars, and practitioners have observed that greater collaboration or joint action is required if services are to be more responsive and effective. Scholars have dubbed this new paradigm the ‘new public governance’ to reflect the need to consider a more comprehensive approach to public services reflecting contemporary organizational complexity and programmatic design. Importantly, the pathway to increased participation and responsive public service provision facilitated through new public governance depends on horizontal partnership arrangements or relational governance (Phillips and Smith, 2011). But, ‘such networks are rarely alliances of equals but are rather riven with power inequalities,’ noted Stephen Osborne (2010, p.9). For example, government-nonprofit partnerships often involve contracting regulations and performance targets developed by the government; thus, the nonprofit may be required to adopt government priorities even if they are at variance with their existing program goals. Nevertheless, in contrast to bureaucracy and new public management, new public governance, at least in theory, constitutes a strand of thinking and theorizing in public administration that underlines the importance of private actors, and particularly nonprofits, as civil society actors in public policy (Zimmer and Smith, 2021).

NPM and the new public governance has also renewed attention to the co-production of services, which generally refers to the active participation of service users and citizens with professionals and volunteers in the development and delivery of key public services. In recent decades, co-production was initially used to refer to the reliance of street-level bureaucrats, such as teachers and the police, on citizens to actually produce education or policing (Parks et al., 1981; Brudney and England, 1983). More recently, co-production has received support from the NPM movement to encourage more efficiency, effectiveness, and innovation in

the public services. Nonprofit organizations are predictable and logical homes for expanded ‘co-production’ because their community roots offer an opportunity for voluntarism and citizen participation (Bovaird, 2007; Smith and Phillips, 2016; Bovaird et al., 2013; Smith, 2022). Many examples of co-production involving nonprofits exist: self-help programs for individuals with substance misuse or mental health issues, government contracting with a local community agency to support a clubhouse program for at-risk teenagers, and a parent education program to promote positive early child development (Smith, 2022). A major connecting thread for these various initiatives is joint production of services by professionals and citizens often in complicated collaborative initiatives. Incorporating new techniques like user-centered design and stakeholder engagement in the curriculum can help better prepare future civil servants to engage in co-production.

Many organizational scholars have noted the importance of horizontal networks and partnerships for innovation and organizational effectiveness (Senge, Hamilton, and Kania, 2015; Kotter, 2007). Public service agencies in turn need to create governance structures that promote collaboration and innovation. Thus, program design, governance, and project management need ongoing emphasis and attention by leaders in public and nonprofit service organizations. For example, many schools of public policy in North America now offer courses that focus on nonprofit management, public-private partnerships, and conflict resolution. Preparing policy students in these areas will be valuable.

NPM and the new public governance have also greatly influenced the widespread support among the public and private sectors for greater accountability, performance, and evaluation for the public services. Often this movement is called ‘pay-for-success’ (PFS) (Corporation for National and Community Service, 2015). In brief, PFS seeks to link payment for services to the success of the intervention for clients and the broader community. Perhaps one of the most visible examples of this focus on performance management with regards to human services is the advent of social impact bonds (SIBs) – a form of pay-for-success that has achieved wide attention in the US and abroad as an innovative strategy to achieve greater social impact. SIBs are complicated initiatives that depend upon private investors assuming the risk of social programs, with the government paying off those investments if and when the outcome goals are met. Private investors loan money to an intermediary (usually a nonprofit) which then sub-contracts with service providers (nonprofit and for-profit) who then deliver services with specific performance targets. The project is evaluated by independent researchers and the government sponsor repays the loan with interest to investors if the performance targets are met. SIBs illustrate the combination of NPM (performance contracts and private capital) and the new public governance (many stakeholders and horizontal relationships) (Zimmer and Smith, 2021).

Given these accountability trends, the staff in public service organizations, broadly defined, need to have greater knowledge of program evaluation and greater sophistication in terms of their training in the assessment of outcomes and impact. Moreover, the trend toward big data and its use for program evaluation requires greater skill sophistication. The increasingly digital environment also necessitates that staff have the ability to present accessible and informative program and organizational data. Social media also increases citizen expectations with regards to transparency and immediacy of information. In this context, new visual communication tools such as dashboards and infographics are gaining importance when governments are interacting with citizens (Matheus, Janssen, and Maheshwari, 2020).

Thus, public policy programs need to prepare students for working in a complex organizational environment where career trajectories often look entirely different to the ones traditionally envisaged by schools of public policy; instead of government, many graduates of public policy programs go directly into a nonprofit organization or a social enterprise mixing a social mission with a market orientation. Examples of the latter can include: a nonprofit restaurant employing disadvantaged people who also benefit from training in the food service industry, a for-profit affordable housing organization, or a micro-credit NGO. Many graduates of schools of public policy also now work in for-profit consulting firms and think tanks that may have nonprofit and government contracts and clients. Moreover, the multi-level nature of policymaking and governance more generally also requires us to attend to the professional specificities of policy-facing work undertaken at community and regional level. Some skills and knowledge taught in policy analysis programs are generic to policy-facing work in any sector and at any territorial level, but some roles may also require specialized knowledge. For instance, working in community and regional agencies involves understanding the relationship between the organization and the local community, especially in regards to support and representation. For example, the competition for government funds also means that nonprofits can benefit from community support. Indeed, long-term sustainability hinges on community support, broadly defined. Community members can be on the board of directors, which can also forge cooperative social networks with the broader community. In essence, then, nonprofit leaders need the same ability to work with external groups as public sector personnel who often need to work closely with external groups to advance important public policy goals and objectives.

Building external support also highlights the strategic importance of governance and representation. In the past, governance often referred to a board of directors for a nonprofit or a public agency advisory board (Renz, 2018). But the ripple effects of NPM and the emergence of the new public governance, including more network approaches to program development, design, and implementation, mean that local leaders need to think very differently about governance. Often, the emphasis is now shifted from the board itself or the board-staff relationship to the relationship between the board, staff, and the broader community of public, nonprofit, and for-profit organizations. In this environment, a premium is likely to be placed on skills integral to building individual and community support through philanthropic contributions, volunteering, and political support.

This rethinking of governance has direct curricular implications. Strategic management for the public services is now often accompanied by mandatory coursework on governance and program design. In particular, students need to understand that the partnerships and collaborations of contemporary public services require careful and appropriate program design. The use of teaching cases based on real-world examples of good governance and program design can be essential in providing students with the necessary tools to be effective managers and leaders. Many teaching case repositories for public policy curricula now exist including at the Kennedy School of Government, the Network of Schools of Public Policy, Affairs, and Administration (NASPAA), and the Case Collection. Many policy-oriented and public and nonprofit management journals also publish case studies. The value of such case repositories is also their tendency to remain current through the continual addition of new material that stays apace of contemporary challenges and contexts. Over time, teachers who employ case-based pedagogical strategies should therefore embed a dimension of ongoing horizon-scanning to

their practice, whereby they frequently switch outdated material for that which better reflects the contemporary policy environment.

Importantly, while schools of public policy were initially established with a focus on the public sector and their programs, their programs now need to integrate content on nonprofit organizations and NGOs more fully into the core curriculum. As nonprofits have become much more prominent in the delivery of public services, many schools have begun to add nonprofit management courses. Many schools and programs courses have even added specializations or concentration in nonprofit organizations as part of the MPP or MPA degree (Smith, 2022). For public policy students to be adaptable and flexible as they move through their professional careers, they will need to understand all three sectors and their interactions and relationships in the delivery of public services, broadly defined.

ADOPTING CHALLENGE-BASED LEARNING STRATEGIES TO HELP STUDENTS MEET THE NEEDS OF TOMORROW

The time is ripe for change. From an educational perspective, schools of public policy in North America know more about the process of learning and brain development which has helped educational leaders recognize the importance of preparing students for success in this new collaborative, dynamic, technologically driven, flexible 21st-century environment. With the internet and social media, there is lots of knowledge being created and shared. In this hyper-connected environment, the way students interact with knowledge is changing. Since new knowledge is constantly being created, how students know is increasingly more important than what they know. This requires more intentional reform in the classroom and a revision of how we think about program content and curriculum to support lifelong learning.

Education theorists have been telling us for years that active learning leads to more engagement, better retention, and ultimately better learning outcomes. By encouraging students to become active and inquisitive in the classroom in the face of challenges, we can better equip them for the challenges of tomorrow. This requires decentering the classroom and introducing a learner-centered focus in the curriculum. According to Briggs (2016, p.832):

The movement away from the lecturer as the font of all knowledge to a relationship that is more akin to a partnership approach looks likely to continue with the student and tutor equally engaged and fascinated by their discipline. Using this approach, the tutor becomes more of a facilitator or guide, helping the student to research and unearth knowledge and information themselves.

Rather than focusing on providing a set ‘toolkit’ of methods and discrete knowledge, this approach entails training policy students to ask – and answer – the right questions. Embracing uncertainty as an educational approach forces students to evaluate what they know and do not, and to look at all the possibilities before choosing the best solution. With this approach, students become more curiously engaged and are more open to alternative ways of thinking. Eventually, they come to accept uncertainty as part of the decision-making process and are more confident to work through future uncertainties. They also have more control over their learning, and research has shown that students want to be increasingly involved in their learning (Briggs, 2016; Zepke and Leach, 2010).

Schools of public policy need to rethink the learning experiences of students. This rethinking must move beyond the scale of the classroom and break down the walls of traditional class-

room learning. The School of Policy Studies at Queen's University in Canada, for example, embraced challenge-based learning (CBL) at the core of its curriculum redesign with great success. According to Malmqvist, Rådberg, and Lundqvist (2015, p.1):

A challenge-based learning experience is a learning experience where the learning takes place through the identification, analysis and design of a solution to a sociotechnical problem. The learning experience is typically multidisciplinary, takes place in an international context and aims to find a collaboratively developed solution, which is environmentally, socially and economically sustainable.

The value of the CBL framework is that it facilitates the development of transversal competencies that are transferable between jobs and across sectors. Throughout the process, students are invited to collaborate on a real-world challenge with public, private, and nonprofit sector stakeholders. This collaboration fosters creative and authentic experiences for the students.

CBL is different from problem-based learning because there is no predefined study or content (Binder et al., 2017). The focus is not on the final solution but rather it is the inquiry process that matters. This framework has been gaining in popularity in higher education settings and is particularly well suited for preparing students to face a world of uncertainty. According to Mayer (2003, p.218), 'dynamic qualities are necessary for a new perspective on the world, allowing us to be flexible, appreciate other people's opinions, to abandon known paths and seek new ones.' A CBL approach incorporates uncertainty as context and invites students to openly reflect on the challenge at hand. There is no single solution to the challenge at hand, which is why it is perfectly suited for teaching policy analysis. Rather, the students are invited to engage in an iterative learning process and are learning to formulate their own questions when they face a challenge. In other words, with CBL we are teaching students to ask questions and think like a policy analyst. Students exposed to this approach have reported increases in ability to innovate and create (Johnson and Brown, 2011; Yang et al., 2018).

The School of Policy Studies at Queen's University was an outlier in the field of curriculum development. A CBL approach allowed it to focus the curriculum around a wide range of 'soft skills' including communication, critical thinking, strategic thinking, creativity, interpersonal skills, and collaboration (Cukier, Hodson, and Omar, 2015) and away from subject content. The teaching of soft skills requires more integrated skills training (Needham, Mangan, and Dickinson, 2014). It also requires greater collaboration among professors to provide better integration of material across course content. Each team engaged in the challenge-based learning experience at Queen's University was assigned a faculty member as a mentor. This cross-department collaboration was a catalyst for better integration of curriculum content.

As a central component of the overall learning process, students were called to demonstrate their learning outcomes. In the process, they were asked to reflect on the skills and competencies they'd been developing at every stage through a learning portfolio. A learning portfolio is a purposeful collection of student work that demonstrates a student's effort, progress, and competencies gained during the program. It provides an opportunity for students to reflect on their education and helps them make connections across courses. It documents the process of thinking like a policy analyst, which is what matters more than the solution they put forward to solve the challenge. The value of self-reflection extends beyond demonstrating learning outcomes, it is also integral to the development of a good policy analyst. According to Needham, Mangan, and Dickinson (2014, p.20):

The public service changes [...] in which structures are fragmenting, citizens require authentic interactions, careers require much greater self-management, commerciality and publicness must be reconciled and expectations of leadership are dispersed across the organisation, require time and space for public servants to reflect.

Self-reflective practice helps reinforce learning. It helps students focus on the analytical process, how they felt, and what they learnt. This also helps them build confidence in their ability to work through uncertainties. In a policy world where transversal competencies and soft skills are becoming increasingly important, this approach to curriculum development will allow students to foster flexibility and depth in their thinking.

This emphasis on soft skills also needs to be accompanied by an integrated approach to public service organization, governance, and program design. As noted, though, the public services have been transformed since the founding of schools of public policy in the 1960s and 1970s. Nonprofits are now critical to the delivery of public services, often with government funding. Many different types of public-private partnerships, including many large corporations for infrastructure development and community-based coalitions comprised of public, nonprofit, and for-profit organizations, exist to address important community problems. As the delivery of public services has become more complex, understanding policy implementation and project management has become more crucial for effective public service programs. At the same time, the pressure for greater accountability and program impact means that public policy students also need proficiency in program evaluation and strategic leadership.

CONCLUSION

As we move forward, facing lots of uncertainty and change in the public sector, schools of public policy have a responsibility to make sure we meet the needs of 21st-century learners. Clearly, public services have been profoundly transformed in countries around the world, and not least of all in North America, with much greater involvement of nonprofit and for-profit organizations and a big increase in partnerships, collaborations, and coalitions. The tools of analysis we use to understand and respond to these changing circumstances are evolving rapidly and in unpredictable ways. To address future challenges and this more complex public service landscape, we need to develop new dynamic curriculums to empower students to become creative problem-solvers. Policy analysts will increasingly require strong analytical reasoning, critical thinking, creativity, originality, and initiative, not to mention the leadership, social influence, emotional intelligence, and communication skills required to work in a collaborative environment. Policy curricula must focus on higher-order skills such as critical thinking, collaboration, and entrepreneurship in a cohesive and integrated way. Competency-based approaches to teaching and learning lend themselves well to this goal. Nevertheless, transforming our curricula to a competency-based approach requires more than tinkering around the edges. To prepare our students to navigate still unforeseen challenges, we need to create learning experiences that allow them to integrate their learning across the content pillars. There remains lots of work ahead for schools of public policy to prepare students for the uncertainty that lies ahead and, in this chapter, we contributed to starting the conversation about ways to do so.

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32. Internationalising public policy teaching

Marleen Brans

INTRODUCTION

The internationalisation of public policy teaching has been a subject of scholarly attention for decades. The accepted view on conceptualising and operationalising international public policy teaching (PPT) was long seen as the migration and spread of the US style policy analysis taught in policy schools and programmes to other Anglophone countries, Europe and the rest of world (Fritzen 2008). More recent is the spillover of the debate on building, maintaining and strengthening policy capacity. Its rise and resonance are relevant to the genesis, spread and pace of PPT and training of audiences who work in and with governments in formulating, implementing and evaluating policy solutions.

There are good reasons to expect convergence in the global understanding of what is essential knowledge and what are essential competencies and skills to infuse in PPT graduates. Pal and Clark (2016a) in their consideration of the global growth and spread of public administration and public policy programmes – the connection of which are discussed later in this chapter – point at various drivers of the spread of approaches and curricular content. The earliest would be the articulation of answers to needs deriving from the development of the modern bureaucratic state, considering ‘public administration’ – and later, public policy analysis – as ‘technologies of the modern state’. As ‘modern’ bureaucracies spread, so did the need for training skilled civil servants. More recent and contemporary drivers of a similar nature would be the many diffusive powers – coercive or voluntary – of international, regional and donor organisations, such as the World Bank, the OECD and the EU, in articulating the need to bring public work forces in line with principles of good governance and enhance their capacity to render solutions to problems of all kinds. Another such influence would come from transnational public administration and policy networks, the functioning of which would seem to require interoperable frames of reference for training and practice (see Pal and Clark 2016a). Finally, we may add the more fundamentally growing convergence of policy problems, the solutions to which transcend the boundaries of national and regional perspectives.

It is clear that a spread and growth of PPT across Anglophone countries, Latin America, Asia and Europe has happened. This is clearly evidenced by the authors in this volume as regards these regions, and by other scholars’ analyses on these and other regions (Pal and Clark 2016b; Staroňová and Gajduschek 2016; Wu, Lai and Choi 2012; He, Lai and Wu 2016; Botha, Geva-May and Maslove 2017; El-Taliawi, Nair and van der Wal 2021). Although hampered by some problems of conceptualising and operationalising PPT, the evidence is conclusive. PPT across the globe, whether it be regionally or, strikingly, nationally, has not converged to one dominant model of curricular content and pedagogy. There is no one model that prevails. Contrary to expectations, the classic US policy school model has been emulated to a rather modest extent, such schools being the exception rather than the rule. Instead, public policy teaching is being hosted under different disciplinary roofs and denoted by a variety of subject names.

This chapter serves two goals. One is to bring together and reflect on findings on the variable spread and presence of public policy teaching in regions analysed by contributors to this book's volume. The second goal is to present an alternative perspective on international and internationalising PPT, one that calls for a dialogue between local and international understandings of PPT pedagogy and for actions to symmetrically circulate and embed essential PP knowledge and competencies across the globe. These goals cannot be met without opening the scope of analysis of what is 'in' and what is 'out' in PPT. It is therefore to the fuzzy language and borders of public policy pedagogy that we first turn.

SCOPE OF COMPARISON: FUZZY LANGUAGE AND POROUS DISCIPLINARY BOUNDARIES

Public Policy: Lots in a Name

Comparing the presence and longevity of public policy as a subject for teaching is complicated by language, not only in conceptual terms, but also in its more mundane linguistic meaning. Policy analysis, policy research, policy studies and policy sciences are often used interchangeably (see St.Denny and Cairney in this volume). What is denoted in one curriculum as being policy analysis may feature in the next one under policy studies. And what is named the 'policy sciences' in English may not have an equivalent name in other languages. A distinction is often made between policy research or policy studies as the academic variants of explaining policy processes, change and their consequences (Dobuzinskis and Howlett 2018), versus applied policy analysis, which is not just conducted at universities or even by researchers, but by a broad range of actors – including in federal government, political parties or public interest groups. Van Nispen and Scholten (2014, p. 6) have characterised policy studies as theory-driven, nomological, mono-disciplinary and descriptive/empirical. In comparison, they see policy analysis as utilisation-focused, ideographic, multidisciplinary and prescriptive. True to Lasswell's legacy, the term policy studies is sometimes associated with 'analysis of policy', while policy analysis is associated with 'analysis for policy' (Lasswell and Lerner 1951). While the latter then trains graduates to understand and master skills meant to inform the action and decisions of specific clients in the public sector, policy research and policy studies deepen the understanding 'about' the policy-making process as a social, economic and political phenomenon worthy of study in its own right (Brans, Geva-May and Howlett 2017).

The distinction between policy studies and policy analysis as subjects taught in graduate and undergraduate programmes has been useful to study comparative differences in a number of Anglophone countries, as well as in Europe. Without a doubt, the United States – the birthplace of policy analysis – leads in the anchorage of policy analysis in academic curricula and public policy schools. PP is also firmly embedded in academic programmes in Australia, but there, 'policy analysis' in its applied definition has perhaps not caught on as much as in the US (Crowley and Head 2015), and may be found under such specific topics as programme evaluation. In Canada, PP emerged comparatively later than in the US. It is now taught at many places, although according to Dobuzinskis et al. (2007), there is less of a bifurcation between applied policy analysis and policy studies, with policy studies being slightly more dominant. In their comparison of academic degree programmes across the US, Canada and Europe, Botha, Geva-May and Maslove (2017) used a similar distinction between policy anal-

ysis and policy studies (the latter of which they named policy research). Based on a statistical analysis of curriculum components and website information, their study confirmed that in the US programmes are policy-analysis heavy while programmes in Canada are policy-studies heavy. In Western Europe they found policy analysis alongside policy studies, while in Central and Eastern Europe, capacity building in post-communist administrations had brought along a strong applied focus in PPT. European countries' various historical paths are held accountable for these differences. The pragmatist tradition in the US and the revolving door between policy professionals and academics would have promoted a client orientation that is typical of applied policy analysis. In Canada, preoccupations over academic independence prioritised policy studies over applied policy analysis. In Western Europe, the mixed profiles are best understood against the background of different academic traditions with strong historical roots. Consistent with legal, public governance and corporate traditions (Hajnal 2003, 2015) in teaching public sector approaches, there are indeed many different homes to PPT in Europe, including law, political science, public administration departments and business schools. In Central and Eastern Europe, too, there are within-region differences behind the apparent adoption of policy analysis in post-communist curricula, with some country profiles showing lasting influence of legalism in the study of the public sector, and others the endurance of economics.

Next to capturing differences in concepts, a linguistically comprehensive analysis of the spread of PPT would have to be open to there being different names for policy, particularly in languages where there is no (longer) a direct equivalent for the word itself. Hassenteufel and Le Galès' (2017) account of the French emancipation of public policy as a subject in academia and teaching, shows how the study of *action publique* was progressively picked up by French political science under the 'political sociology of public action'. Political science is now the leading discipline for PPT, emphasising theory building and policy process studies over more practical policy analysis. Also in Germany, PPT was carried forward under different names in German language, even though in the 18th and 19th centuries *Polizeiwissenschaften* was a recognised university subject dealing with the science of creating internal order in the community, and included such foci as public and administrative law, public health and hygiene, and urban planning. Losing its comprehensiveness as a term, *Polizei* did not survive in the development of PP as a subject in contemporary research and teaching. Instead, the term *Politikfeldanalyse* (policy-field analysis) came to denote the academic analysis of policy. *Policy-Analyse* (policy analysis) and *Policy-Forschung* (policy research) are more recent terms in German. As all three terms are largely used interchangeably, there is often no clear distinction between policy studies and policy analysis (see Blum and Brans 2017). At any rate, this volume's international comparisons of PPT in university curricula did well to open up the analysis of PPT to conceptual and linguistic diversity of a scope much larger than this author's limited mastery of some European languages only.

Public Policy and Public Administration: Porous Boundaries

In addition to broadening the scope to include the various linguistic equivalents of public policy, comparisons of university hosts and curriculum should not be limited to programmes that use any of the verbal equivalents of 'public policy'. One recurrent observation in comparative analyses is the widespread embeddedness of PPT in public administration programmes. This is a point well taken by most authors in this volume and elsewhere, who, even if they

started out differently, had to broaden their analysis to cover programmes by names of public administration, public management – and even more broadly public affairs – in order to cover the spread of activities related to teaching public policy.

There are many good reasons to have done this. The boundaries between public policy and public administration are porous. In many parts of the world, public policy subjects are taught within public administration degrees. It also happens that public policy's foci are horizontalising in public administration degree content, as PA programmes seeking to pursue and demonstrate relevance increasingly incorporate problem-solving or sectoral policy content. Elsewhere, we have made the case that public administration and public policy meet in many places (Van de Walle and Brans 2018). Policies need bureaucrats and bureaucracies to make and design policies as well as to implement them. Even if the realm of policy has moved away from state-centric approaches to policy-making, bureaucratic structures and personnel remain essential in the policy process.

In Western liberal democracies, the diffusion of rational planning systems through the 1960s and 1970s, in particular the Planning-Programming-Budgeting System (PPBS), closely connected public policy to public administration. In many countries outside the US, the disciplines only started to drift apart when the questioning of rationality and technocracy went hand in hand with the growth of policy process studies (Blum and Brans 2017). Meanwhile, substantive policy analysis developed as another strand of policy research with variable autonomy from policy process studies and PA. Research on welfare policies, education and, from the late 1990s, increasingly also environmental policies began to focus on the nature of problems, content of solutions, and their effects and impacts. Apart from implementation research in the domain of social work and the emerging attention for policy instrumentation, substantive policy research has traditionally shied away from the nuts and bolts of public administration. Coupled with PA's relative apathy toward substantive issues, the meeting points between PA and substantive policy research have traditionally been scarcer than between PA and PP. That said, PA's search for relevance may have brought a horizontalisation of substantive policy content within PA courses.

Of the many possible encounters between the fields of PA and PP, two stand out. One is the policy cycle, perhaps the single most important export from US-emerging policy studies in the post-war period. Although the literature is rife with different names and numbers of stages, the basic idea is that the policy-making process can be described by distinct stages. These include: (1) agenda-setting, (2) policy formulation, (3) decision-making, (4) implementation, (5) evaluation and (6) policy feedback. The policy cycle model has been fiercely criticised. Its inaccurate linear representation of the policy process prevents it from explaining what it describes (Jann and Wegrich 2007). While contested by a number of approaches that are very much at the heart of developments in policy process studies (e.g., the advocacy coalition model or the multiple streams model), the cycle model remains useful as a heuristic tool to describe how policy problems are marked for government action, what actors and dynamics are involved in the process of goal setting and solution finding, who takes legitimate policy decisions, how policies are maintained or changed by processes of implementation, who observes and judges their outputs and outcomes, and what constitutes policy status quo, change or termination. It also helps, as Howlett, Ramesh and Perl (2009) show, to disentangle the actors, institutions and ideas that respectively create agency, enable or constrain opportunities, and provide content. And, as this book's chapter on Latin America argues (see Porto de Oliveira et al. in this volume), the cycle model aids the scaffolding of PPT content in curricula.

The heuristic quality of the model also serves to highlight the meeting points of PA and PP. PA typically appears in those stages where government actors and institutions are pivotal, and even when not the sole, then at least central actors with legitimate mandates to support the making of policies. Traditionally, agenda-setting has not attracted much academic interest from the PA community, with the exception perhaps of scholarship on the international diffusion of public sector reform and governance models (Pal 2012). Policy formulation is a more vibrant field of cross-fertilisation between the two subdisciplines. The policy work by bureaucrats is a classic subject of attention in the study of bureaucracy (Meltzer 1976; Page and Jenkins 2005; for an overview see Brans and Fobé 2021). The twin trends to externalise and politicise policy advice (Craft and Halligan 2017) have meanwhile shifted the original focus from 'bureau-policy advisors' (policy advisors internal to government bureaucracy) to policy advisors external to government and also partisan advisors within executive government structures. Studies of policy advice now embrace the involvement of various external actors in policy formulation, while the engagement of stakeholders in policy design is explored from a co-creation and co-design perspective. Decision-making is commonly seen as the most political stage of the policy cycle and its key actors have been favorite units of analysis of political science and policy studies alike, and less so of PA scholarship. But policy choices do not simply travel from the politically mandated decisions to sets of rules and programmes ready for execution on the ground. Studies on policy-making without politicians has revealed the discretionary power of bureaucrats in secondary legislation (Page 2012).

As implementation is the traditional playing field of government agencies and their partners in governance, this stage connects PP with a number of classic concerns of PA: specialisation and co-ordination (Verhoest and Bouckaert 2005), control and compliance, and policy instrumentation (Hood 1986; Capano and Howlett 2020). Evaluation as a subject of study is closely associated with applied policy analysis, but it has also drawn the attention of public administration scholars interested in evaluation capacity building (Pattyn 2014). Policy feedback, change and termination, finally, is less of a domain where PA is active, except for public sector reform studies, benchmarking and financial cutback studies (Kickert, Randma-Liiv and Savi 2015).

The second conceptual meeting place for PP and PA is the matrix model of policy capacity as an enlightening scheme for disentangling various dimensions of policy capacity. For Wu, Ramesh and Howlett (2017), policy capacity is, in essence, a function of three competencies or skills that constitute the ability of governments to make, implement and evaluate policies, as well as to learn and adapt. The three competencies rely on the mobilisation of resources at the individual, organisational and system level. The authors distinguish between analytical, operational (or managerial) and political skills and competencies. Analytical skills are deployed for problem diagnostics, solution finding and policy evaluation. Operational skills mobilise material and organisational resources to implement policies in practice. Political skills enable policy actors to mobilise resources for garnering and maintaining support for policies and their implementation (Wu, Ramesh and Howlett 2017, p. 5). For the matrix to travel better to countries with strong legal traditions in government operations, and to redress the relative neglect of lawmaking skills in policy capacity studies, we have suggested adding a legal dimension to the matrix (Bouckaert and Brans 2019). Legal competencies are necessary to transpose policies in law and regulations, ensure due process, enforce compliance and control, and protect citizens from policies' harm.

INTERNATIONALISATION AS THE SPREAD, GROWTH AND VARIATIONS OF PPT ACROSS THE GLOBE

The four regional chapters in this volume have all deployed different units of analysis and operationalisations to study the state of PPT in Africa, Asia, Europe and Latin America (see Chapters 27, 28, 29 and 30 in this volume). Even so, their findings on the spread, growth and variations allow for meaningful generalisations across the cases. The chapter on North America (Chapter 31) has taken another flying route to descend on PPT, the landing of which is addressed in the section reflecting on internationalising perspectives on competencies development. Besides, comparisons of developments of PPT across Anglophone countries have been amply documented elsewhere (Pal and Clark 2016b), demonstrating how the so-called US model of PPT is both a construct that is itself contested by developments within the discipline, as well as having had less of an influence in Anglophone countries outside the US than originally thought.

Africa

Spread and variations of PPT

The African continent is huge, and the variety of PPT is potentially the same. This book's chapter on PPT in Africa is based on a two-case comparison. This has advantages and disadvantages. Limited coverage is offset with an in-depth discussion of the nature of PPT in countries with administrative traditions stemming from different colonial rules: French and British for Cameroon, British for Kenya. The authors place the emergence of PP as a distinct field of study at the start of the 2000s, although teaching PP as a subject had received some earlier embedding in anthropology and public administration in Cameroon and in political science degrees in Kenyan public universities before this. Public policy courses go by a variety of names: policy studies, public administration, public policy analysis. This is by no means exceptional – PP courses across the world often feature different names, while programmes with similar names sometimes feature different content. A striking example are courses with the name 'Policy Analysis' – in some curricula such courses consist of applied policy content (analysis for policy), while in others the course content rather complies with the 'analysis of policy' or academic analysis of policy processes.

In the authors' study, it's clear that most public policy teaching takes place under the roof of political science and public administration departments. PPT is most often a concentration in a political science or PA degree, but there also exist dedicated public policy degrees, even if in a minority of cases. PPT also features in substantive specialisations in, for instance, agriculture, development and security studies. In the studied African cases, the content of PP courses ranges from the study of the state apparatus, to actions of the state, the latter closely resembling the French tradition of studying *action publique*. At the undergraduate level, most courses typically address a policy cycle heuristic. Strong substantive policy foci are noted in issues of development, environment and societal needs next to the management of state resources. Also of interest, specific to the African context, is the governance of international aid.

Drivers of internationalisation

The chapter described the development of PPT as following distinct historical trajectories. Amidst these trajectories the drivers of PPT development are both domestic and regional/

Table 32.1 Summary of findings on spread, growth and variations of PPT

	Africa	Asia	Europe	Latin America
Genesis as distinct discipline	2000s (precursory tracks in political science, public administration and anthropology)	2000s	1990s–2000s, with notable forerunners across disciplines	1990–2000s (precursory tracks in national civil schools and PA training)
Drivers	<i>Reform Agendas</i>	International donor programmes	Policy capacity, leadership	Rationalising public bureaucracies, Democratisation and transition (CEE), public management reform
	<i>Changes in higher education</i>	Democratisation of social sciences, Harmonisation of degree programmes	Bologna Master reform, credit transfer system, Erasmus student and staff exchange (accreditation)	Constitutional reform, democratic innovations, urbanisation
Enabling conditions	<i>Regional epistemic communities</i>	AAPAM, CAMES, PASOR	ECPR Methods Schools, IPPA seasonal schools (EGPA, NISPAcee)	Domestic professional associations
	<i>Involvement in regional and transnational research</i>	Global pandemics, development, poverty reduction programmes	Alignment of international research	
	<i>Return migration</i>			e.g., Mexico, Chile, Uruguay
Academic homes	Political science, public administration, agriculture	Social sciences, numerous public policy schools	Political science, public administration, business schools, economics, a few PP schools, national schools of public administration, <i>Grandes Ecoles</i>	National public service schools, public administration, political science
Degrees	Concentrations in PS and PA degrees, substantive specialisations, a few dedicated PP degrees	Dedicated PP degrees, mainly specialisations, concentrations in PA, PG degrees	Dedicated PP degrees, concentrations in PA degrees, substantive specialisations	Concentrations in PA, PM and PS degrees, a few dedicated PP degrees, national schools

		Africa	Asia	Europe	Latin America
Content		Public action, state apparatus, policy cycle		Applied policy analysis, policy studies, positivist/post-positivist	Policy analytics, public action, policy cycle, policy studies
Canon		Limited resources for access to Western-produced texts, emerging regional sources (e.g., Onyango 2022)		Mix of European and North American texts	Tropicalisation, mixed circulation of Spanish and Portuguese translations of classical texts and of locally produced texts
Internationalisation challenges		International circulation of African epistemologies and knowledge	International circulation of local knowledge and approaches; Islamic public administration, Confucianism, legalism	Dealing with diversity of the student body and their backgrounds in increasingly Anglicised programmes	Content on semi-authoritarianism, decentralisation, indigenous people's impact on public policy, and democratic and social innovations

Source: Chapters 27, 28, 29 and 30 in this volume, by Manga Edimo and Obosi; Nair, El-Taliawi and van der Wal; Bandelow, Hornung and Schröder; Porto de Oliveira et al.

international. Domestically, driven trajectories originated from the state in Cameroon and from academia in Kenya. In Cameroon, mention is made of the democratisation of political science as a social science discipline and a call for harmonising curricula with, amongst other objectives, a view on accreditation of programmes and on facilitating student exchange. In Kenya, PPT developed several decades earlier, driven by academia rather than by the agency of government. These diverse routes have impacted on differentiation in the content of programmes. In Kenya, compared to curricula in Cameroon, content focuses less on state institutions and responds more to challenges posed by post-colonial, socio-economic inequalities and agriculture, as well as relations with donors and roles of actors in government and governance.

Regional facilitators of the spread of PPT for Cameroon include the engagement with the African and Malagasy Council for Higher Education (CAMES), which led to regulation in favour of specialisations within social science disciplines. CAMES helped develop a new corps of assistant professors in public policy in French-speaking Sub-Saharan Africa. In Kenya, PPT content circulates in practitioners' and research networks such as the African Association for Public Administration and Management (AAPAM), and the Partnership for African Social and Governance Research (PASGR) respectively. Also of importance for PPT in both countries is the involvement of faculty in cross-national and transnational research, for instance on global pandemics and poverty reduction programmes. This and the presence of foreign researchers would have sensitised researchers to develop an interest in policy theory and methods.

Content and canon

In the absence of detailed evidence of course content and materials, it is difficult to assess to what extent African PPT has isomorphically mimicked global North PPT content and canon. Beyond the presence of the 'policy cycle' in degree curricula, it is uncertain how much international PPT has pervaded teaching practices in Africa. Even more challenging is the question of to what extent more abstract theoretical approaches that characterise policy studies in the global North are useful in dialogue with context-bound development practices. The circulation of international PP content is much constrained, given the historically limited resources of most African countries to access teaching materials as well as international epistemic communities. And even when handbooks developed in the global North are accessible, and international research networks increasingly engage local researchers, internationalising PP content in Africa risks being asymmetrical if not conducive to the development and circulation of indigenous epistemologies. There are, on the other hand, reasons for optimism (see Tapscott 2022 for a lengthier discussion) given opportunities arising from regional mobilisation in associations such as AAPAM, from open access and virtual resources, and from growing participation of African researchers in seasonal schools (two of which carried forward in Cameroon and Kenya) and other activities of the International Public Policy Association. Finally, the recent production of the *Handbook of Public Policy in Africa* (Onyango 2022) contributes to the potential of attenuating asymmetrical internationalisation.

Europe

Spread and variation of PPT

The starting point of the authors may be a little strong, claiming that the scientific discipline of public policy has influenced both political systems and higher education structures. It may

be better to turn this round – that the scientific discipline is influenced by political systems and higher education structures. The authors study how European perspectives on how to teach public policy are local translations from modern post-WWII public policy disciplinary developments in regards to both traditions of respective local communities and international alignments to research. The discussion of how PPT evolved and what the differences and similarities are confirms what has been documented by several European public administration scholars in the past 20 years (Hajnal 2003, 2015; Randma-Liiv and Connaughton 2005; Staroňová and Gajdushek 2016). There is an enduring influence of politico-administrative traditions, even though important transitions have taken place. The authors in this volume acknowledge that the PPT landscape in European countries is fragmented, and PPT is in part interlinked with teaching public administration. However, in order to identify the distribution and nature of programmes that teach public policy as the main discipline, they narrowly operationalised their analysis to programmes whose titles include public policy, policy studies, policy analysis and these terms' national translations. This search for designated public policy programmes is a fair trade-off between feasibility and the identification of functional equivalents. However, it also comes with a cost, as it is not able to capture PP concentrations in many programmes that go by different names, such as public management, governance and public administration, in the latter of which more applied contents on policy design, policy implementation and policy evaluation are taught. If not doing full justice to the broad variation of PPT, even with the narrower search, the authors' analysis confirms divergence in denoting the disciplines, and acknowledges important language differences.

Bachelor degrees are rather the exception in European PPT. Only five stand-alone public policy bachelors' programmes are identified (at the universities of Keele, Glasgow, Passau, LSE and Stockholm). We know that bachelors in public administration, with concentrations in public policy, are also rather scarce, except perhaps where research traditions on public policy and public administration are particularly strong, such as in the Netherlands (see Blum and Brans 2017). Also at the master's level, the Netherlands, given its rather small size, has a strong offer with 11 designated PP degree programmes as opposed to 15 programmes in the much larger Germany (see Table A29.1 in Chapter 29 in this volume). This confirms what has been described elsewhere (Blum and Brans 2017). The European forerunner in applying policy analysis in university curricula is the Netherlands. The Atlanticism for which the country is known may have facilitated the influence of US style policy analysis education. Policy analysis was institutionalised within the Dutch academic world in the 1970s, when there was a strong policy orientation in academia and favourable personal connections between academics and policy-makers (van Nispen and Scholten, 2014). In many other European countries, PP as an academic subject took longer to find a distinct place in university curricula.

The authors' analysis in this book reaffirms the variety of disciplinary roofs under which PP is taught. PPT has many different houses, within political science departments, public administration departments and, for example in the UK, business schools. Having separate public policy schools, such as those found in the United States, is not widespread, although some have popped up in the United Kingdom and Germany (see Blätte 2012, cited in Blum and Brans 2017).

Politico-administrative traditions still seem to have lasting influence on the nature of PPT. Nordic co-operative contracting, Anglo-Saxon bargains and continental Europe's formalised regulation infuse variations in PPT. For Central and Eastern Europe, long was the influence of legal traditions, even if in some countries PP as a subject is flavoured by a refashioning of old

economic planning courses. It is acknowledged though that the pace and scope of transitions these countries experienced also led to variably breaking away from what is called the legal cluster (next to the public cluster and management cluster of programmes across Europe). Estonia, for instance, showed the strongest and earliest rupture with the legal perspective's heritage, and moved its PPT to social sciences. What about with Russia? (Interestingly, PPT in Russia is on the radar of both Asia and Europe in this volume.) As expected from the formalised regulatory tradition, a legal perspective persists in the content of teaching, even though the disciplinary homes vary between economics, political science and management departments (see also Pryadilnikov 2016).

Drivers of internationalisation

As to the internationalisation of programmes across Europe, the authors point to important drivers of change and the strong presence of English-language masters' programmes that both receive and exchange students. Facilitated by learning in networks where common views on teaching quality are developed, the European PPT scene benefits from student and staff exchanges that are regulated and supported by common credit transfer systems. Incentives of all kinds promote cross-national degrees with a coordinated view on the knowledge and competencies students are intended to acquire. Of note are Erasmus Mundus programmes such as MAPP (four member universities) or double degrees (such as between Science Po Paris and Bocconi University in Milan). One may also add other international experiences that are possible in networks for student exchange such as the European Master of Public Administration Consortium with 15 partners offering students semester exchanges on the basis of a framework of commonly agreed learning outcomes and commitment to European accreditation. CIVICA is another such network with ten universities as partners, recognised by the European Commission as the European University of Social Sciences.

Content and canon

As analysed in this volume, the curricular content of public policy masters' programmes shows quite some variation, in line with what was found by Botha, Geva-May and Maslove (2017). Some programmes are more practice-oriented, others more policy process focused. Research masters' programmes, in turn, are few. This variation also transpires in teaching pedagogy, with variable attention to practice components.

Many programmes identified by Bandelow, Hornung and Schröder (this volume) are taught in English. The Anglicisation of programmes has arguably internationalised the content and canon of PPT, increasing the use of Anglophone reading materials. Yet, given the access of European scholars to international networks and publishing, we can expect that a lot of material is homegrown. There are also some examples of mixes between international and homegrown textbooks. One is the books published under the International Library of Policy Analysis series on Belgium, the Netherlands, France, the Czech Republic and Germany. Another example is the textbook collaboration with a replication of a Swiss textbook with domestic translations and cases (for the original, see Larrue, Varone and Knoepfel 2005).

As PPT has Europeanised, and with it Anglicised, exchange is not only facilitated within Europe, but has also opened up European programmes to attracting students from outside Europe. This presents yet another challenge to internationalising PPT; that is, the openness to diversity in perspectives and experiences that students from different parts of the world bring to the classroom.

Asia

The authors in this volume draw on their earlier analysis of public policy education in the global South (El-Taliawi, Nair and van der Wal 2021) to explicitly address whether the development of PPT in schools and departments in Asia reflects the fuzziness of the discipline or whether it is taking on a distinct identity in the region.

Spread and variations of PPT

The growth and spread of PPT are situated by the authors in the first two decades of the new millennium. Yet it is acknowledged that there may be precursors to these developments which their analysis may have been oblivious to due to the sampling of schools and departments in the analysis. This may definitely be the case for Chinese programmes in the 1990s, where He, Lai and Wu (2016) refer to the presence of PPT in Chinese degree curricula, even if to a modest degree. At any rate, whatever the diffuse incidence of precursors, distinct public policy schools and departments are a recent phenomenon, with some marked geographical concentrations in Japan and India. The schools and departments go by relatively broad names not narrowly denoted by public policy. Public affairs, government and governance feature most in the names of schools and departments. The disciplinary homes of schools, departments and programmes are predominantly the social sciences. Degrees which feature PPT are presented as varying across three kinds: public policy degrees proper, public policy specialisations in substantive policy areas, and public policy concentrations or specialisations as subfields. Over three quarters of masters' degrees studied in the sample are of the first kind, with a minority of the latter. At the risk of being a result of selection bias in the sampling, this suggests that PPT in Asia has developed within distinct PP programmes mainly. It also appears from the analysis that distinct public policy schools as models have spread quite substantively in the region, yet whether those schools have been modelled on US-style PP schools is debatable. The authors signal some evidence of emulation in Turkey and Taiwan. Yet in other cases, PP schools, even if initially modelled on US-style schools – Lee Kuan Yew School of Public Policy is a case in point – the mission analysis performed by the authors in this volume, shows that at least one third of the schools in the studied sample adapt their offerings to local and regional needs.

Content and canon

Whether the need to respond to local audiences translates into distinct curriculum structures and components, and what the canon is for PP schools/departments/and programmes awaits further research, in the absence of which it is also cumbersome to gauge the actual disciplinary content of PPT in Asia. If we follow He, Lai and Wu's (2016) analysis of teaching PP in China, what one sees is not what one gets, as many courses denoted as 'policy analysis', for instance, fall short of offering any policy analytics, and are surprisingly more focused on policy process studies. More comprehensively, for future research it would not only be interesting to know more about the disciplinary content of PPT in Asia, but also to get a sense about local and regional content in PPT. One may expect Islamic public administration, Confucianism, and also, for instance, the particularities of Japanese administrative law to be relevant subjects in PPT in various regions in Asia. For internationalising PPT, these indigenous perspectives can help PPT to break away from Western biases.

Latin America

Spread and variation of PPT

The complexity of capturing similarities and differences of PPT in Latin America is well explained by the authors. The countries in the region are diverse in language and culture. As to PPT specifically, the locus and audiences of PPT are quite diverse, with PP subjects appearing in different cycles in education, from the undergraduate to the executive training level, and under different degrees such as political science, public administration and public policy proper.

PPT has spread and grown at variable paces in the region, and the consolidation of the field is much dependent on historical paths and developments. The rich case studies in the authors' contribution show that the dominant anchorage of PPT in Latin America (LA) is public administration and public management, while PP as a subject is also taught under political science programmes (see work of Betancur, Bidegain and Martínez 2021) as well as in recently emerged public policy schools (see also El-Taliawi, Nair and van der Wal 2021). In Argentina, Brazil and Mexico, the embedding in public administration is strong, but the trajectories of PPT through teaching cycles are diverse. Argentina, for instance, boasts a long tradition of teaching public administration as a field both at the undergraduate and graduate level, and can be considered as one of the strongholds of PP as a subject in first and second cycle degrees. Another trajectory is illustrated by Brazil, where PP content was first addressed by civil service training (the latter having roots as early as the 1930s), then migrating to undergraduate and graduate training under the consolidated roofs of public service foundations, universities and recently emerged schools. In Mexico, PPT was little developed until the 1990s, not in its own right, nor given much space by the legal orientation of PA programmes. By the second decade of the 2000s, however, PPT had boomed, particularly in masters' programmes. One obvious case where PPT has next to no precursor is Chile. In Chile, PPT, sharing the fate of political science teaching under the dictatorship, was slow to develop. Moreover, the neoliberalism that marked the country translated in both a slow embracement of PP as a subject of study, as well as a notable disciplinary bifurcation across teaching cycles, with a predominance of economic orientations at the graduate level. Another case with a rather recent consolidation, this time within political science degrees, is found in Uruguay. Less embedded in precursory tracks, it also appears that Uruguay has much assimilated to Anglophone PPT, aided perhaps by the effects of return migration, with faculty having specialised abroad.

Drivers of internationalisation

Driving the spread and growth of PPT across LA are variable combinations and results of changes in the environment of education, changes in higher education, and changes in the professionalisation of the discipline. As in parts of Asia and Europe, the development of PPT has surfed on the waves of democratisation, taking off in the 1980s with constitutional reforms and other democratic innovations. Other influences are thought to have derived from rapid urbanisation in countries (we are reminded here of the emergence of *Polizeiwissenschaften* earlier in Europe) pushing substantive urban policies on the radar of research and teaching. Substantive policy problems of all kinds and degrees of severity also had substantive policy agendas translate in the call for building and consolidating policy capacity in bureaucracies (see also Mendez and Dussauge-Laguna 2017). These national agendas thus created opportunities for integrating PPT content in university curricula. The trajectory of the spread of PPT in Mexico is telling in

this respect. Considerations of strengthening policy capacity in the 1990s would have created space for insights from policy cycle approaches within public administration curricula. While the first focus had been on social policies and poverty reduction, reflecting the national crisis agenda in the 1980s, in came Anglo-Saxon foci on the policy cycle and the different stages therein. Over the 2000s, programmes transitioned not only to incorporate policy cycle content in teaching, but also use it as a source of inspiration for structuring curricula and for scaffolding PPT content of all kinds. Changes in higher education have been important as well, and in some cases operated as an engine accelerating the spread of PPT. In Brazil, this was the case with the 2007 implementation of the Program to Support Restructuring and Expansion Plans of Federal Universities and similar subnational programmes, leading to a multiplication of PP courses at the undergraduate level. Finally, the spread of PPT is carried by professionalisation of the discipline, by faculty characteristics and by their engagement in professional networks. Of note is the entrepreneurship of some Latin American authors in disseminating PPT content (Aguilar Villanueva in particular, see e.g., 1993), the return migration of faculty and the presence of consolidated professional associations. The latter is exemplified by the work of the Brazilian National Association for Teaching and Research of the Field of Publics in marking as relevant courses such as public administration, public management, public policy, public policy management and social management.

Content and canon

The content of PPT in Latin America is not easily put in one box, and there is variation across the region, across programmes as well as over time. Chile stands out as a country where PPT content, at least in graduate programmes, has more applied policy analytical content, echoing the influence of predominant economic approaches. In many other cases, the concept of the policy cycle has noticeably caught on, not only as a subject, but also as a way to structure curricula. French perspectives on ‘public action’ have been well received, particularly in programmes in Brazil. At the same time, there are also notable shifts to policy studies, to different degrees dependent on return migration, and the circulation of authoritative texts in local languages. The ‘tropicalisation’ (Porto de Oliveira et al., this volume) of PPT canons is of great relevance in the region, contributing to the mixed nature of PPT content. Authoritative Anglophone texts are translated in Spanish and have helped diffuse the notion of the policy cycle as well as various policy studies approaches. Important work published by LA authors in English have also been translated back into Spanish, thus increasing their impact in PPT. There are also publications that present classic policy approaches from a Latin American perspective. This tropicalisation of international content is blended with work by local and regional scholars, who have much to say about policy-making in authoritarian and semi-authoritarian regimes, and on dealing with such substantive policy issues as environmental challenges and poverty, and on indigenous people’s impact on policy-making, to name but a few subjects meriting international circulation.

As demonstrated by the different regional chapters, the development of PPT is best understood as depending on multi-level and multi-dimensional influences (see Figure 32.1). At the national level, substantive reform agendas, changes in higher education and developments in the profession have variably impacted on particular manifestations of PPT. The ways in which these vectors can be driven to a symmetrical and inclusive internationalisation of PPT are discussed in the next section.

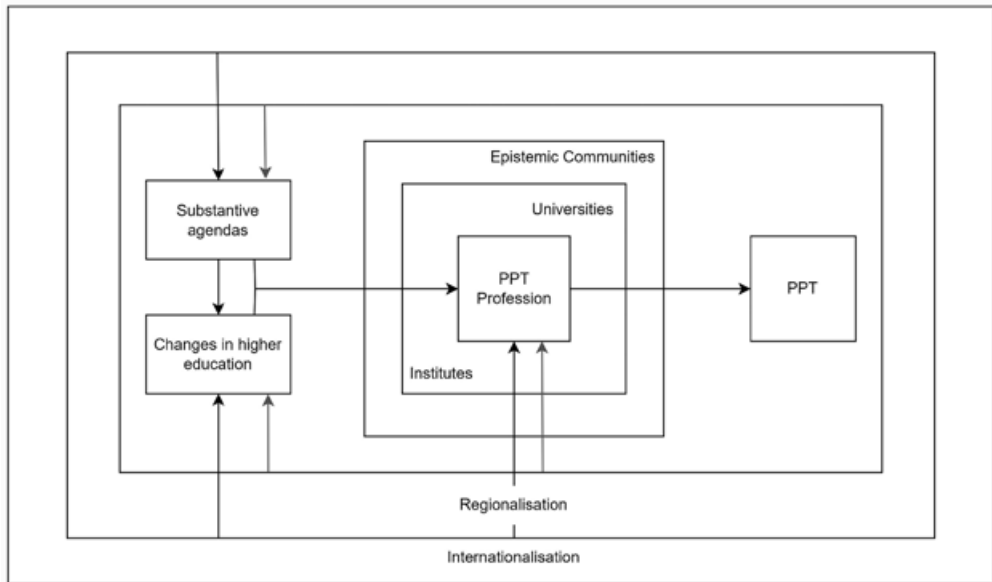


Figure 32.1 Influences on PPT development

TOWARDS SYMMETRICAL AND INCLUSIVE INTERNATIONALISATION OF PPT

Internationalisation of PPT as spread and consolidation of PPT across the globe has happened. This is evidenced by the chapters in this volume. But internationalisation as convergence towards one model has clearly not. It is now safe to say that this view is *passé*, both empirically and normatively. PPT is generally not hosted by public policy schools, but by a variety of disciplinary homes. Nor do degrees go by one name, and should they do, their content may still differ, as will their pedagogy. Empirically, many sources of divergence endure. National states still have large discretion over the organisation of higher education, and public policy scholars retain autonomy over the themes in which they specialise and in which they teach. Moreover, programmes respond to the employability of graduates in still dominantly local and national contexts. Normatively, convergence through emulation is challenged by an emergent alternative view that recognises the risks of asymmetrical or unbalanced internationalisation, such as a lurking disconnect between abstract theoretical models and approaches and the lived practices of policy-making on the ground. For PPT to internationalise in a balanced and inclusive way, a view is needed in which ideas, people and pedagogy circulate nationally, regionally and transnationally.

Before proceeding with this argument, it is instructive to make a distinction between international PPT as a product and internationalisation of PPT as a process.

International PPT as a product has the following markers. Degree programmes carry a variety of names that are recognised by global PP communities. Students and staff are internationally experienced. The curriculum is mission-oriented with variable combinations of discipline-driven and locally relevant courses. Canon is inclusive of both locally produced knowledge and foreign produced or co-produced knowledge. Teaching cases are mixed local

and international. The pedagogy makes use of various teaching methodologies, drawing from the global toolkit. Internationally tuned competency-based learning outcomes prepare graduates for working in various contexts, as they are trained to be cognisant of politics, value paradigms and context. In dealing with a diverse student body, programme management is culturally sensitive to various levels of student comfort with available teaching methods and evaluations. Programme accreditation recognises international input. International PPT is the opposite of parochial PPT, where both students and staff are homegrown, local policies and policy-making are the scaffolds for the curriculum, approaches, canon and cases are domestic only, accreditation is national, pedagogy is locked into accepted ways of instruction, and there is no culture of dealing with diversity in the student body.

The process of internationalisation in turn, relies on the circulation of people, ideas and pedagogy. In Figure 32.2 we present these three axes of mobility.

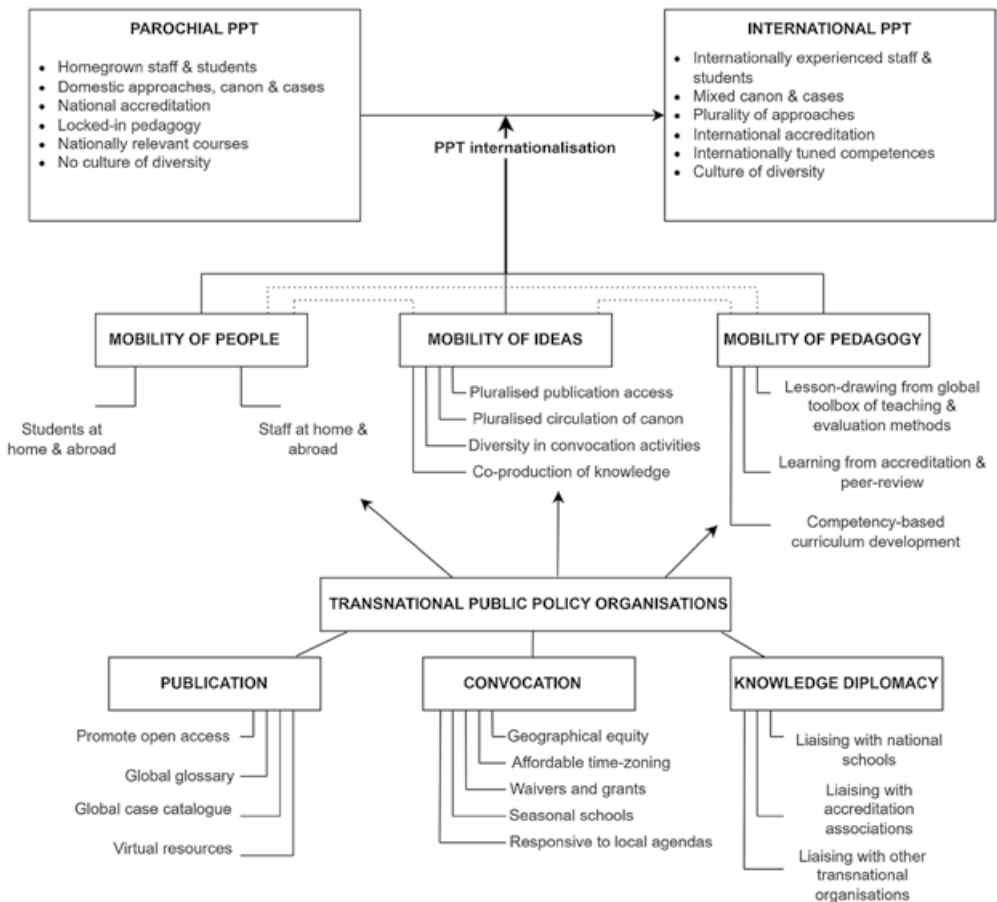


Figure 32.2 *Internationalising PPT*

First, staff and student mobility can happen both at home and abroad (Engeli, Kostova and Tronconi 2022). For staff, programmes can recruit foreign-trained staff, invite visiting lecturers and facilitate return migration. Staff enjoy exchange opportunities. So do students. They can take credits at foreign partnering institutions as part of exchange networks or joint degrees. Internationalisation at home materialises through enrolment in international branch universities or by exposure to an international student body in foreign language programmes. When travelling far and long is not an option, students partake in regional seasonal schools.

Second, epistemic mobility or the mobility of ideas sees staff publish in international outlets in addition to national and regional ones, partake in international conferences, make use of foreign language/translated publications, and be involved in co-producing knowledge through collaborative research and publication activities.

Third, mobility of pedagogy occurs through social learning from international peer platforms and transnational activities, in which a common understanding is developed of the quality of PPT programmes each in their own national, regional and international context. Inspiration is taken from the global toolbox of teaching and evaluation methods, and lessons are learnt from best practices and international accreditation. PPT competencies and learning outcomes are internationally tuned and adapted to global challenges related to public policy and problem-solving.

In the process towards international PPT, individuals and institutions are active at several levels: individual universities, governments, transnational associations. At the intergovernmental level of facilitating student and teacher mobility, of note is the experience of what is called the Bologna Process in Europe. The Bologna Declaration of 1999 signed by 29 European ministers in charge of HE triggered a series of reforms with tangible results, such as a Europe-wide credit conversion system, a comparable degree system with three cycles at bachelor's, master's and doctoral level, a diploma supplement for international transparency, as well as a common framework of qualification indicating levels of knowledge, skills and competencies. Another development in Europe, documented in Chapter 29 in this volume, is the building of joint masters' programmes and exchange networks.

While Europe is somewhat considered as a pioneering region in harmonising HE for facilitating mobility, other regions in the world are pursuing similar initiatives. A case in point are the exchange activities developed in the Association of Southeast Asian Nations (ASEAN), and ASEAN Plus Three when including China, Korea and Japan. These include the promotion of academic exchange programmes and the formulation of guidelines for quality-assured student exchange. Building international exchange and joint programmes, however, is a global game in which not all participants can play on an equal footing. In a logic of consequence, individuals, institutions and programmes engage in internationalising their programmes for capacity building, recruiting student numbers, access to funding and prestige through partnering (Vukasovic 2013). The market logic that has only some reap the benefits of international exchange risks not only reproducing existing material inequalities, but also limiting the circulation of ideas and pedagogy to a happy few. Even in Europe, as we learn from studies on the internationalisation of political science (Engeli, Kostova and Tronconi 2022), inequalities in the uptake of mobility opportunities persist. Other markers of internationalisation also indicate unequal access, largely because of the uneven distribution of resources and incentives.

While transnational PP associations' material resources to incentivise people's mobility are no match to those of governments, they are in many ways well placed to further an inclusive and pluralistic international PPT, through their convocation, publication and diplomacy activi-

ties. They are crucial actors in providing platforms for transnational pluralistic learning. Figure 32.2 shows where the growth potential may lie for transnational actions to support mobility of people, ideas and pedagogy. This list of actions risks not being exhaustive, but at least it presents some strategic points of attention for transnational PP organisations.

Firstly, investing in grants and waivers for participation to transnational activities is one obvious action point for enhancing the mobility of people. Equally or even more importantly is facilitating access to international experiences for students and staff by continuing and consolidating the geographical circulation of international conferences, workshops and seasonal schools and, when meetings are virtual, by ensuring a non-exclusionary time-zoning of encounters. Capacity building and support for regional associations is also important for lowering barriers to mobility, and so is fostering other benefits these associations bring for circulating ideas and pedagogy.

Secondly, as concerns epistemic mobility, both publication and convocation actions towards building a pluralistic circulation of concepts and approaches are of importance, and so is knowledge diplomacy *vis-à-vis* local actors. Publication actions include: the promotion of collaborative, cross-national handbooks with balanced contributions from different parts of the world; support for translations of local language seminal work, or of locally produced seminal work in foreign languages back to local language to increase the uptake of its content; removing barriers to global South contributions in journals; and supporting open access publications. Building a global open access and pluralistic glossary of concepts and approaches is another such action. Convocation activities, in turn, can make room for debating pressing concerns from local as well as international policy agendas, ensuring a plurality of approaches and balanced representation. International associations may also engage in knowledge diplomacy with national schools of public administration and their regional associations, in a desire to have internationally mobile content dialogue with national and regional concerns.

Thirdly, for the circulation of pedagogy, transnational activities can help provide and strengthen platforms for building a common understanding of the quality of PPT programmes, recognising that the latter each operate in their own local, national and international contexts. Points of actions include providing learning platforms with directors and deans of public policy programmes and schools, as well as liaising with national and international accreditation organisations. A more specific point is developing a competency-based learning outcome frame for public policy students instead of content-based frames consisting of key courses programmes should schedule. The move to competency-based frameworks has also been picked up by international accrediting associations, such as NASPAA and EAPAA. Internationally tuned competency-based frameworks have many advantages. They inform programme designers on how to translate their overall mission and programme specifics into the delivery and evaluation of knowledge and skills among their graduates, allowing for mission-based differentiated programmes. Competency-based frameworks, more than content frameworks, also allow for a better integration of public policy skills (hard and soft) teaching to deal with new and emerging challenges, including artificial intelligence, cross-sectoral co-production and collaboration, to name but a few that Laforest and Rathgeb Smith highlight in Chapter 31. To the extent that competency-based frameworks comprise soft skills, they also carry the advantage of being transferable and increase the employability of PP graduates across different sectors. Combined with learner-centered pedagogy, competency-based curricula hold promises for both a better vertical integration of international content and local practice (or of local content with international practice), and greater horizontal integration across

content in curricula. While there are many variations of student-centered pedagogy (Moseley and Connolly 2021), case-based teaching (Weaver, this volume) in particular is apt to carry forward an agenda that meets the demands for marrying conceptual and theoretical knowledge with substantive policy problem orientations. Creating an open access, international teaching case catalogue is hence another action international associations can take forward.

CONCLUSION

In bringing together and reflecting on findings on the variable spread and presence of public policy teaching in four regions, this chapter confirms that PPT comparisons are useful only to the extent that they are sensitive to variations in names and language with which public policy studies are denoted and to various disciplinary traditions in which those studies are path-dependently embedded. Comparing degrees, courses and canon only scratch the surface of the actual learning outcomes programmes deliver in their graduates. But in the absence of comparative PP learning outcomes data, they are the second-best choice to generate some meaningful generalisations across countries and regions. The evidence produced by the regional chapters in this volume has demonstrated that PPT across the globe has taken shape in a multi-level and multi-dimensional context, in which national policy agendas, changes in higher education and developments in the profession interact with regional and international influences. The extent to which this dialogue of national practices and external influences contribute to genuinely internationalised public policy teaching is not only a question for future research on the many markers of internationalisation. It also presents an agenda for action by transnational public policy organisations to further an inclusive circulation of people, ideas and pedagogy.

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